Patrologia Pacifica: Selected Papers Presented to the Asia Pacific Early Christian Studies Society

Scrinium: Revue de patrologie, d'hagiographie critique et d'histoire ecclésiastique

6

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Patrologia Pacifica: Selected Papers Presented to the Asia Pacific Early Christian Studies Society

Fifth Annual Conference (Sendai, Japan, September 10–12, 2009) and other Patristic Studies

Edited by

Vladimir Baranov
Kazuhiko Demura
Basil Lourié

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LIST OF ABBREVIATIONS

XB	*Христианский Восток*
AB	*Analecta Bollandiana*
ACW	Ancient Christian Writers
AASS	*Acta Sanctorum*
BHG	F. Halkin, *Bibliotheca Hagiographica Graeca*, vol. I–III (Bruxelles, 1957) (Subsidia Hagiographica, 8a); idem, *Novum Auctarium BHG* (Bruxelles, 1984) (Subsidia Hagiographica, 65)
BHO	P. Peeters, *Bibliotheca Hagiographica Orientalis* (Bruxelles, 1910) (Subsidia Hagiographica, 10)
BIFAO	*Le Bulletin de l'Institut français d'archéologie orientale*
BSGRT	Bibliotheca scriptorum graecorum et romanorum Teubneriana
Byz	*Byzantion*
BZ	*Byzantinische Zeitschrift*
CCSG	Corpus Christianorum. Series graeca
CCSL	Corpus Christianorum. Series latina
CPG	M. Geerard, *Clavis Patrum Graecorum* (Turnhout) I (1973), II (1974), III (1979), IV (1980), Supplementum (1998) (Corpus Christianorum)
CSCO	Corpus Scriptorum Christianorum Orientalium
CSEL	Corpus Scriptorum Ecclesiasticorum Latinorum
CFHB	Corpus Fontium Historiae Byzantinae
DOP	*Dumbarton Oaks Papers*
ECF	The Early Church Fathers
JECS	*Journal of Early Christian Studies*
JSNTS	Journal for the Study of the New Testament. Supplement
JTS	*The Journal of Theological Studies*
Mansi	J. D. Mansi (ed.), Sacrorum Conciliorum Nova et Amplissima Collectio, t. I sqq. (Florentiae—Venetiis, 1759 sqq.)
OCA	Orientalia Christiana Analecta
OCP	*Orientalia Christiana Periodica*
PG	J. P. Migne (acc.), *Patrologiae cursus completus. Series graeca*, tt. 1–161 (Parisiis, 1857–1866)
PL	J. P. Migne (acc.), *Patrologiae cursus completus. Series latina*, tt. 1–225 (Parisiis, 1841–1864)
PO	*Patrologia Orientalis*
PTS	Patristische Texte und Studien

Scr	*Scrinium* T. 4 (2008) — V. Baranov, B. Lourié (eds.), *Patrologia Pacifica. Selected papers presented to the Western Pacific Rim Patristics Society 3rd Annual Conference (Nagoya, Japan, September 29 – October 1, 2006) and other patristic studies*
SH	Subsidia Hagiographica
SP	*Studia Patristica*
TLG	*Thesaurus Linguae Graeca*e (http://www.tlg.uci.edu/)
TM	*Travaux et Mémoires*
TU	Texte und Untersuchungen
VC Supp.	Supplements to *Vigiliae Christianae*

PREFACE

It is my great pleasure to address the Preface to the *Patrologia Pacifica Secunda* that includes selected papers presented at the fifth APECSS Conference in Sendai, 2009. The Asia-Pacific Early Christian Studies Society (APECSS) was established in 2003 under the name of the Western Pacific-Rim Patristics Society (WPRPS). Since then, we have held annual international conferences in Tokyo (2004), Nagoya (2006), and Melbourne (2005 and 2008), in order to strengthen the international cooperation among New Testament scholars, Patristic scholars, and late Antique historians in the Asia-Pacific Area.

The fifth APECSS conference was held on the Tsuchitoi campus of Tohoku Gakuin University in Sendai, Japan, from 10–12 September, 2009. It was organized by Miyako Demura (Tohoku Gakuin University), Geoffrey Dunn (Australian Catholic University), and myself. We were delighted to have more than thirty participants from Australia, Canada, Japan, Korea and Russia, as well as three colleagues from South Africa.

The general theme of the Conference was "Letters in Early Christianity." We enjoyed Professor Manabu Tsuji's opening lecture on the original context of Pauline letters in the first century. During the conference we had twenty papers on letters of various authors (Greek, Latin, Coptic, and Syriac) in Early Christianity from various perspectives and held fruitful discussions. In this volume we are happy to include twelve papers that reflect our lively discussions at the conference.

The Conference had also two plenary sessions of the "Korean Poverty Project I and II." Six South Korean scholars presented to us their active research, which has been funded by the Korean government for two years starting in 2008. We also held two public lectures: *Papal Letters of the Early Fifth Century: The Example of Innocent I* by Rev. Dr. Geoffrey Dunn and *The Lotus and the Cross, Early Christianity in China and India* by Dr. Ken Parry.

The next APECSS conference incorporating the Prayer and Spirituality Conference of the Australian Catholic University was held in Melbourne in July 2010. We are planning to meet again at Oxford in August 2011 and hold our seventh conference at Hoseo University in Korea in 2012. We hope that the APECSS conferences will promote further international exchanges and contribute to early Christian studies from our Asia-Pacific viewpoint.

Finally I would like to express my cordial gratitude to Rev. Dr. Basile Lourié, rédacteur, and co-editor Dr. Vladimir Baranov of this volume, who kindly offered to publish our conference proceedings.

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BEYOND THE ORIGINAL CONTEXT: RECEPTION OF THE PAULINE LETTERS IN THE FIRST CENTURY

Introduction: the Primary and Secondary Context of the Pauline Letters

The Pauline Letters are read today in two respects: they are treated on the one hand historically, that is, as documents from the past. But at the same time they are also accepted as a religious message which is valid beyond its original context and *mutatis mutandis* for all Christians.

This way of reading the Pauline Letters is not a compromise of modern historical studies and traditional Christian belief, but goes back to the Christians in the first century A.D. who copied the letters of Paul and passed them on to other churches not intended originally as their addressees. Although no papyrus fragments dating from the time of Paul or shortly after his death (ca. 60 A.D.) have been preserved,[1] we have no reason to doubt that the Pauline letters were already being duplicated for repeated reading or for circulation in the first century. They were treated as documents to be read also in churches whose members were neither primary recipients nor necessarily faced the issues dealt with in the letters. Otherwise it would be quite difficult to explain, for example, how *Clement of Rome* in the 90s of the first century[2] was accessible to the *First Corinthians* (cf. 1 Clem. 47:1–3).

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(1) No New Testament papyrus dating from the first century is preserved today. The oldest of the Pauline letters, P52 (Chester Beatty II), is dated to ca. 200 A.D.

(2) On the date of 1 Clem., see A. Lindemann, *Die Clemensbriefe* (Tübingen: Mohr Siebeck, 1992) (Handbuch zum Neuen Testament, 17) 12; H. E. Lona, *Der erste Clemensbrief* (Göttingen: V&R, 1998) (Kommentar zu den Apostolischen Vätern, 2) 76.

Though each of the Pauline letters[3] represents as its primary context the correspondence from Paul to the addressed church,[4] they began to be read also with a new context, in which the validity of their content was not restricted to the original situation, but extended to other Christians and accepted as theological and ethical criterion of Pauline Christianity.

The character of this "multiple context" was one of the most important features that the Pauline letters gave to early Christian literature. In the history of early Christianity we can find, in my view, a process of the Pauline letters being read as "multiple context" documents. And in this process the emphasis was placed more and more on the secondary context.

In this paper we are dealing with the process of the reception of the Pauline letters in the first century. Here the focus is put on the way in which they came to be read more with the secondary context. But because of limited space, we have to restrict ourselves to a few of the most important points in this process.

1. Readership of the Pauline Letters

There are several ways of categorizing letters in antiquity. For example, the so-called Pseudo Demetrius (*Epistolary Types*: 2nd Century B.C. – 3rd century A.D.) mentions 21 types, whereas Pseudo Libanius (*Epistolary Styles* 2: 4th–6th centuries A.D.) gives as many as 41.[5]

But for our purpose it would be sufficient, following David Trobisch,[6] to accept the following three categories: (1) private letter,

(3) Regarded as genuinely "Pauline" here, by the majority of scholars, are the following seven letters: Rom., 1–2 Cor., Gal., Phil., 1 Thess. and Philemon. The others, i.e. Eph., Col., 2 Thess. and the Pastoral Epistles are treated as pseudonymous and called "deutero-Pauline," without detailed discussions about authenticity.

(4) Also the Letter to Philemon is actually one of the "church-letters", because it is addressed not only to him, but also to "Apphia our sister and Archippus our fellow soldier, *and the church in your house*" (Philemon 2 [RSV, as always in this article], italics mine). But, as its reception history suggests (the Pastoral Letters, the letters of Ignatius, and the title of this letter given by the copyists of older manuscripts), it was regarded as a personal letter.

(5) Cf. A. J. Malherbe, *Ancient Epistolary Theorists* (Atlanta, GA: Scholars, 1988) (Sources for Biblical Study, 19) 31, 67.

(6) D. Trobisch, *Die Entstehung der Paulusbriefsammlung* (Freiburg [CH]: Universitätsverlag, Göttingen: V&R, 1989) (Novum testamentum et orbis antiquus, 10) 85–86.

(2) open letter, and (3) literary letter (Kunstbrief). These are based on the method of communication between sender and recipient(s). The private letter is a substitute for a direct conversation between persons who are separated from each other; when it is read by the intended recipient(s), its function is fulfilled. In contrast, the open letter is based on the premise, that it is possible and expected to be read not only by the intended recipient(s), but also by others. Totally different is the case of the literary letter. Its alleged recipient(s) does not actually read it. The sender and addressee can often be fictional.[7]

Adolf Deissmann's analysis of the type of communication, the distinction of the "letter" and "epistle" is basically right, though it needs some corrections. According to Deissmann, the former is non-literary and "is intended only for the person or persons to whom it is addressed, and not at all for the public or any kind of publicity," whereas the latter is "an artistic literary form," whose contents "are intended for publicity — they aim at interesting 'the public.'"[8] It must be noted that Deissmann fails to see an important factor of the Pauline letters, i.e. that they are not addressed to individuals, but to a church community, and that he consequently compared them with ancient private letters, which are shorter and simpler than they are. But this inadequate comparison had, as is well known, a great influence on the Pauline studies of following generations.[9] This problem with Deissmann's analysis is related to another shortcoming that he does not consider concerning the letters of the second category above. And we are just dealing with the boundary between the first and the second category, which Deissmann did not take into consideration.

Which of these categories do the Pauline letters belong to? Though they are not private letters between two persons, they were undoubtedly written as a substitute for direct conversation between Paul and a church community, or communities sharing the same context. Thus they were apparently written as a kind of private letter, which expects no circulation outside of the intended readership.

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(7) Trobisch, *Entstehung…*, 86.

(8) L. R. M. Strachan (trans.), A. Deissmann, *Light from the Ancient East* (London: Hodder & Stoughton, 1927) 228–229 (also citations).

(9) But Deissmann's thesis has been long since treated not without criticism; cf. e.g. W. G. Kümmel, *Einleitung in das Neue Testament* (Heidelberg: Quelle & Meyer, 1983[21]) 212–214; Ph. Vielhauer, *Geschichte der urchristlichen Litetatur* (Berlin—New York: de Gruyter, 1975) 59.

But at the same time we have to differentiate among the Pauline letters in this respect. Some of them are really addressed to one church community without presupposing further circulations. *1 Thessalonians* and *Philemon* will fall under this type.

Galatians could also fall into the first category, though it is composed as a circular letter: "to the *churches* of Galatia" (Gal. 1:2). These churches are supposed to share the same context that Paul is now using. In this sense the churches of Galatia can be regarded as his intended first readers.

More difficult is the case of *Philippians*. The address "to all the saints in Christ Jesus who are at Philippi with the bishops and deacons" (Phil. 1) seems not to restrict the recipient to a single church community.[10] Here Paul is surely talking to the church of Philippi (cf. 4:15–16), but at the end of the letter he sends greetings to "every saint in Christ Jesus" (4:21).[11] Who is Paul thinking of with "every saint," if they are not the members of the Philippian church who are supposed to listen to the letter read aloud at the service (cf. 1 Thess. 5:27)? Paul may know that the letter will be duplicated and sent to other churches. If so, then *Philippians* indicates that Paul wrote also a letter of the second category.

In the case of the *Corinthian letters* there is a higher probability of this second category. In the addressee (*adscriptio*) of *1 Corinthians* (1 Cor. 1:2) Paul mentions three groups as recipients: "the church of God which is at Corinth", "those sanctified in Christ Jesus, called to be saints" "with all those who in every place call on the name of our Lord Jesus Christ".[12]

The second group might be interpreted not separately from the first, but as an apposition ("the church…at Corinth, *namely* those sanc-

(10) *Contra* Gnilka, cf. "Hier verzichtet er [= Paulus] auf den ἐκκλησία-Begriff (vgl. 1 Kor 1,2; 1 Thess 1,1; 2 Thess 1,1), es darf aber nicht übersehen werden, daß mit πάντες οἱ ἅγιοι *faktisch dasselbe* gemeint ist" (J. Gnilka, *Der Philipperbrief* (Freiburg—Basel—Wien: Herder, 1987[4]) (Herders theologischer Kommentar zum Neuen Testament, 10.3) 31, italics mine).

(11) Gnilka, *Philipperbrief,* 181 n. 5, refers to Rom. 16; 2 Cor. 13:12 and 1 Thess 5:26 as parallel. But these passages clearly concern only members of each community. On Rom. 16, cf. below.

(12) The following αὐτῶν καὶ ἡμῶν is, as in RSV, to be connected to κύριος, hence: "both their Lord and our Lord."

tified…").[13] In that case, the "saints" belong to the Corinthian church. However, the third group cannot mean the Christians in Corinth.

The preposition σύν ("with") is used here as synonym for καί ("and").[14] It cannot be related to the preceding κλητός ("called"), since this is not a participle but an adjective and does not permit a translation "called to be saints with all those…".[15] But, at the same time, this σύν connotes that the third group are not the first target of the letter, but rather supplementarily mentioned as a secondary readership.

Without assuming a later interpolation for catholicizing the address, which is not impossible but unnecessary here,[16] we can but regard this phrase as a reference to a further secondary readership of the letter. It is not convincing, for example, that this phrase is meant to remind the Corinthians that they are living jointly with all the other Christians.[17] Why should Paul mention such a thing at the very beginning of this letter? Rather, Paul is here apparently thinking of the possibility that his letter is also to be read by other Christians beyond the Corinthian church.

The expansion of readership can be read more clearly from the addressee of *2 Corinthians*: "to the church of God which is at Corinth, with all the saints who are in the whole of Achaia" (2 Cor. 1:1). While in *Galatians* the plural churches are treated as the primary recipients (see above), here the letter targets primarily the Corinthian church, without excluding the possibility of being forwarded to other Chris-

(13) So *e.g.* W. Schrage, *Der erste Brief an die Korinther* (Zürich—Braunschweig: Benziger — Neukirchen-Vluyn: Neukirchener, 1991) (Evangelisch-Katholischer Kommentar zum Neuen Testament, 7.1) 103; similarly A. Lindemann, *Der Erste Korintherbrief* (Tübingen: Mohr Siebeck, 2000) (Handbuch zum Neuen Testament, 9.1) 26 ("etwas plerophor").

(14) "...bisweilen ist σύν einem καί gleichwertig. Lk 20:1 οἱ γραμματεῖς σὺν τοῖς πρεσβυτέροις." (F. Blass, A. Debrunner, *Grammatik des neutestamentlichen Griechisch*, bearbeitet von F. Rehkopf (Göttingen: V&R, 1990[17]) § 221).

(15) With K. Tagawa, *Shinyaku-Seisho: Yaku to Chu (The New Testament: Translation and Notes)*, vol. 3 (Tokyo: Sakuhinsha, 2007) 228–229 (on 1 Cor. 1:2).

(16) Cf. Schrage, *Der erste Brief an die Korinther…*, 104–105 (p. 105: "Auszuschließen ist das nicht. Aber damit ist man die Schwierigkeiten doch auf recht gewaltsame Weise los").

(17) *Contra* Schrage, Der *erste Brief an die Korinther…*, 105; Lindemann, *Der erste Korintherbrief…*, 27.

tians in Achaia.[18] The connection with the preposition σύν ("with") denotes this (see above on 1 Cor.).

The letter to the *Romans* has a special character in that it is addressed to a place where Paul has never been (cf. 1:13). Though he wanted the letter to be read first in the churches there, as his admonition about the "weak in faith" (14:1–15:13) shows, he must have anticipated that the letter would reach not only those named in chapter 16,[19] but also other Christians whom he does not know yet. The somewhat vague address, "to all God's beloved in Rome, who are called to be saints," would suggest this. In this letter Paul unfolds his understanding of the gospel (Rom. 1:15: "so I am eager to preach the gospel to you also who are in Rome"), with an expectation of being read also by readers whom Paul does not have in sight; Paul undoubtedly wants to deliver his gospel to as many readers as possible.

So we can now summarize the intended readership of the Pauline letters as follows. In *1 Thessalonians* and *Philemon* Paul addresses his letters to a single church community without presupposing further circulations (category 1 = private letter). *Galatians* also falls under the same category, though it is a circulated letter within a group of churches in Galatia. These churches are altogether regarded by Paul as his primary readers.

On the other hand, *1 and 2 Corinthians* as well as *Philippians* are probably anticipated as being duplicated and forwarded to other churches, which do not necessarily share the situation described in the letters. These letters will belong to the second category (open letter). In *Romans* Paul is, in my opinion, more aware of being read by a wider circle of readers than he originally intended. His primary read-

(18) Cf. M. E. Thrall, *The Second Epistle to the Corinthians*, vol. 1 (Edinburg: T&T Clark, 1994) (International Critical Commentary) 88–89 (p. 89: "Paul's comprehensive form of address might be intended to ensure that all these other people should have the opportunity of hearing his response to the Corinthians' apparent misunderstanding — if not actual criticism — of the character of his ministry").

(19) Here we cannot go into details about the problem of Rom. 16, whether it is formerly a part of another letter directed to Ephesus and attached later to Romans. But we rather regard it as the original end of this letter. So e.g. P. Lampe, *Die stadtrömischen Christen in den ersten beiden Jahrhunderten* (Tübingen: Mohr Siebeck, ^{2}1989) (Wissenschaftliche Untersuchungen Zum Neuen Testament, 2.18) 124–135; U. Schnelle, *Einleitung in das Neue Testament* (Göttingen: V&R, ^{4}2002) (Uni-Taschenbücher, 1830) 138–141.

ers are clearly those who are facing the problem of the "weak" and the "strong" (Rom. 14–15), but he may think that his message would be more or less appropriate to other church communities, too.

Can we see here a development of the character of Pauline letters from private letter (category 1) to open letter (category 2)? Though there is no consensus on the chronology of the Pauline letters, almost all scholars acknowledge that *1 Thessalonians* is the earliest among the genuine Pauline letters and that *Romans* is one of the latest. Here we may assume that Paul did not think of the secondary readership of his letter at the beginning of his missionary work, but gradually became aware of it, as he wrote more letters to churches.

2. The Compilation of Pauline Letters

If our assumption is on the right track, it corresponds with the intention of Paul, that after his death people would compile his letters addressed to the same recipients into "the letter to the church A." This is most likely the case with *2 Corinthians*, while on the partition of *Philippians* scholars are still debating,[20] and the redaction or secondary expansion of *1 Corinthians* and *Romans* has, in my view, lower probability.[21] So it is safe to limit ourselves to 2 Cor. on this matter, without excluding the possibility that some of the other Pauline letters are also compilations.

Here we presuppose that the addressee of Pauline letters is an original part of each letter, or at least of one of the letters which were later

(20) Cf. R. E. Brown, *An Introduction to the New Testament* (New York et al.: Doubleday, 1997) (The Anchor Bible Reference Library) 497–498; Schnelle, *Einleitung…*, 158–160. Both of them stand for the original unity of the present Phil.

(21) On the partition-hypotheses of 1 Cor., cf. *e.g.* Schnelle, *Einleitung…*, 80–83; on the problem of Rom. 16, see ibid., 138–141. Schnelle is correct when he says: "Partition hypotheses are thus methodologically justified only when no explanation for the present form of the text can be given at Pauline level, proceeding on the principle of *textual coherence* and its different dimensions such as syntactical coherence, semantic coherence, and pragmatic coherence" (tr. by M. E. Boring, *The History and Theology of the New Testament Writings* [Minneapolis, MN: Fortress, 1998] 74). But Broer (I. Broer, *Einleitung in das Neue Testament*, B. 2 (Würzburg: Echter, 2001) (Die neue Echter-Bibel. Erg., 2/2) 414–415) goes too far when he says that the lack of coherence in 2 Cor. pointed out by modern scholars is attributed to Paul, who found no problem of coherence in writing the letter in this way.

compiled into a single letter (see below). We do not follow the hypothesis that it belongs to a later redaction (see above on 1 Cor.).

The purpose of the compilation is clear: People want to preserve the essential parts of correspondence between Paul and them, not only for their sake, but also for other Christian churches under the Pauline influence. They undoubtedly presuppose a practice of circulating the Pauline letters, as Col. 4:16 shows: "And when this letter has been read among you, have it read also in the church of the Laodiceans; and see that you read also the letter from Laodicea". For this purpose the original letters were edited and compiled into a single one, which is not only convenient for duplication and circulation, but also understandable to the secondary readers who are not familiar with the original context. Through the edited version they can grasp now in short the original situation and, at the same time, apply the statements of Paul to their own context.

The compilations presumably occurred quite early after the death of Paul.[22] This assumption is supported in that no reference to a lost part of the original Pauline letters is found in the early Christian literature.[23] After the death of Paul, people must have begun the compilation in order to make "the letter" available to be read beyond the original context.[24]

3. Corpus Paulinum

The collection of the Pauline letters, so called *Corpus Paulinum*, is a developed form of the Pauline letters for wider readership. The *Corpus Paulinum* is meant to be read and interpreted as "the statements of Paul" for every Christian under his authority. Thus each letter has

(22) Or was it already begun during his lifetime by himself (or somebody else under his authority)? So Trobisch, *Entstehung*…, esp. 123–128, on 2 Cor. (cf. further idem, *Die Paulusbriefe und die Anfänge der christlichen Publizistik* (Gütersloh: Chr. Kaiser, 1994) (Kaiser-Taschenbücher, 135) 106–124).

(23) Cf. also: "Die Tatsache, daß das Corpus Paulinum, wo wir ihm auch begegnen, den gleichen Text bietet […] ergibt ein weiteres entscheidendes Argument gegen die Teilungshypothesen" (K. Aland, Die Entstehung des Corpus Paulinum, in: idem, *Neutestamentliche Entwürfe* (München: Chr. Kaiser, 1979) (Theologische Bucherei, 63) 349; 302–350). But this would not necessarily exclude the possibility of compilation immediately after Paul's death.

(24) Cf. Gnilka, *Philipperbrief...*, 14–15, who divides *Philippians* into two letters: a captivity-letter (1:1–3.1a; 4:2–7,10–23) and a polemical letter (3:1b–4:1,8f) (cf. Gnilka, *Philipperbrief...*, 10).

now clearly the character of a message of Paul which is valid beyond its original context.

But the process of development from each letter to the *Corpus Paulinum* is quite complicated and difficult to be reconstructed. Anyway we cannot imagine a single, unified core of some letters as its starting point. There must be different small, local collections, each of which then developed in a complex and manifold way.[25]

While 1 Clem. in the 90s of the first century seems to know only 1 Cor. (cf. 1 Clem. 37:5; 38:1; 47:1; 49:1) and perhaps Rom. (and 2 Cor.? Cf. 1 Clem 30:6 // Rom 2:29b; 1 Clem. 61:1–2 // Rom. 13:1–7; 1 Clem. 36:2 // 2 Cor. 3:18),[26] the author of the Pastoral Letters (around 100 A.D.)[27] has undoubtedly more Pauline letters at hand: Rom., 1 Cor., Phil., Philemon (and Col.?).[28] Furthermore, Ignatius of Antioch († ca. 110–120) must have formed a group of letters to churches plus one letter to an office holder according to the model of the *Corpus Paulinum*, though the literary dependence on it can be proven only in limited cases.[29] Polycarp of Smyrna, a contemporary of Ignatius, knows not only

(25) Cf. Aland, Entstehung…, 348–349; H.-J. Klauck, *Die antike Briefliteratur und das Neue Testament* (Paderborn et al.: Ferdinand Schöningh, 1998) (Uni-Taschenbücher, 2022) 250.

(26) Cf. A. Lindemann, *Paulus im ältesten Christentum* (Tübingen: Mohr Siebeck, 1979) (Beiträge zur historischen Theologie, 58) 193, according to whom it is probable, but cannot be decided with certainty, whether there is a literary dependence between Rom and 1 Clem, while it must remain open, whether 1 Clem. also knows 2 Cor. Likewise, but somewhat more positively (on Rom., "very probably") A. F. Gregory, 1 Clement and the Writings That Later Formed the New Testament, in: A. F. Gregory and Chr. Tuckett (eds.), *The Reception of the New Testament in the Apostolic Fathers* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2005) 129–157, esp. 142–151 (cited p. 150).

(27) Cf. Schnelle, *Einleitung*…, 380.

(28) Cf. M. Tsuji, Der zweite Timotheus als letzter Gefangenschaftsbrief, *Kwansei Gakuin University Humanities Review* 11 (2007) 1–11; idem, Die Intertextualität von 1 Tim. 2:1–3/Tit. 3:1–2, in: P. Lampe et al. (eds.), *Neutestamentliche Exegese im Dialog. FS U. Luz* (Neukirchen-Vluyn: Neukirchener, 2008) 99–110, esp. 100. Cf. 1 Tim. 1:8 // Rom. 7:12,16; 1 Tim. 1:20 // 1 Cor. 5:5; 2 Tim. 1:7 // Rom. 8:15; 2 Tim. 1:8 // Rom. 8:16; 2 Tim. 2:11–13 // Rom. 6:3–4,8; 3:3; 2 Tim. 2:20 // Rom. 9:21; 2 Tim. 4:6–8 // Phil. 1:23; 2:17; 2 Tim. 4:10–12 // Pilemon 24; Col. 4:7–14.

(29) "The four epistles for which a strong case for Ignatius' usage can be supported are, in declining order of likelihood, 1 Corinthians, Ephesians, 1 Timothy, and 2 Timothy" (P. Foster, The Epistles of Ignatius of Antioch and the Writings That Later Formed the New Testament, in: Gregory and Tuckett,

1 Cor. and the Pastoral Letters, but probably also other Pauline letters.[30] These observations will lead to the conclusion that while some of the Pauline letters like Rom and 1 Cor. (and 2 Cor.?) came relatively early into circulation, the other ones came to be known widely only later, presumably around the end of the first century. Anyway, the Pauline letters were no longer read simply as occasional letters, but now as "the word of the apostle to the Gentiles," which is valid for any church under his authority.

4. The Deutero-Pauline Letters

The deutero-Pauline letters, i.e. *Colossians*, *Ephesians*, *2 Thessalonians*, and the *Pastoral Letters*, all belong to the third category, namely literary letter (Kunstbrief) (see above 1). They appear to be written by Paul for specific recipient(s),[31] but actually are not intended to be read by them. The (fictive) correspondence between Paul and the recipient(s) is one of the devices of forgery. Important is the "Pauline" message in the letter to be read beyond that fictive original context. This technique is only understandable under the circumstances that the genuine Pauline letters are already read in the same way. For the deutero-Pauline letters the "secondary" readers are de facto their first targets.

Reception…, 172, 159–186). That Ignatius cites the Pastoral Letters makes his knowledge of the *Corpus Paulinum* certain, because, as discussed below, they were written in order to complete the *Corpus* and to lead the readers to its correct interpretation.

(30) According to Lindemann, *Paulus*…, 229, Polycarp knew and used 1–2 Cor., Gal., Eph. and Past. (at least 1 Tim.), knew about the existence of Phil., which he however did not use. Holmes admits probable use of Rom., Gal., and Phil. in addition to 1 Cor., Eph., and 1–2 Tim. in PolPhil., but leaves it open whether these are only a circumstantial accumulation or have formed a deliberate collection or defined corps (M. W. Holmes, Polycarp's Letter to the Philippians and the Writings That Later Formed the New Testament, in: Gregory and Tuckett, *Reception*…, 226–227; 187–227). In my view, the first possibility is definitely excluded, and it is difficult to make a distinction between the second and the third.

(31) This is true even for Ephesians, which had originally no place name in 1:1 (but cf. 3:3; 6:21–22, where a direct relationship between "Paul" and recipients is suggested). On the strategy of this "imperfect" addressee, see M. Tsuji, Persönliche Korrespondenz des Paulus: Zur Strategie der Pastoralbriefe als Pseudepiprapha, *New Testament Studies* 56 (2010) 253–272, esp. 261–262.

It is to be noticed that each of the deutero-Pauline letters relates to an issue that was very controversial in the Pauline Christianity. The author of *Colossians* refutes a false teaching with ascetic practices:[32] "Therefore let no one pass judgment on you in questions of food and drink or with regard to a festival or a new moon or a sabbath" (Col. 2:16). This asceticism (cf. also 2:21,23) seems to have been adopted into the Christian church through Judaism, because it is connected with Judaic elements as circumcision (2:11,13), festival, new moon, and sabbath (2:16).

We know well that the controversy over the Judaic understanding of Christianity goes back to Paul himself. Yet, Paul seems somewhat ambiguous on this matter. On the one hand, Paul is definitely critical of the Judaic Law as a means of salvation: "For we hold that a man is justified by faith apart from works of law" (Rom. 3:28. Cf. also 3:21; Gal. 3:11). There is no special significance any more to clinging to Judaic tradition, because "there is neither Jew nor Greek" (Gal. 3:28. Cf. also 1 Cor. 12:13). But, on the other hand, he makes statements which seem to side with the Law and the salvation of all of Israel: "The law is holy, and the commandment is holy and just and good" (Rom. 7:12. Cf. 11:1,26). Thus it is not difficult to imagine that Paul's ambiguous attitude gave rise to contradictory positions to the Law and Judaic tradition in the post-Pauline Christianity.

The same is true in the case of asceticism. On marriage, for example, Paul gives a vague admonition: "It is well for a man not to touch a woman. But because of the temptation to immorality, each man should have his own wife and each woman her own husband" (1 Cor. 7:1–2), but "I say this by way of concession, not of command" (7:6). He himself is clearly ascetic, but he allows the Corinthians to live in another way (7:7: "I wish that all were as I myself am. But each has his own special gift from God, one of one kind and one of another"). Hence both ascetic and non-ascetic Christians have got a chance to base their practice upon Paul.

In this post-Pauline situation, the author of Colossians tries to put "the last word" on these issues into the mouth of Paul. So the letter is supposed to be read as a "self-reference" of Paul to the problems that

(32) On the opponents in Col. cf. *e.g.* R. E. De Maris, *The Colossian Controversy: Wisdom in Dispute at Colossae* (Sheffield: JSOT, 1996) (JSNTS, 96) 18–40.

he once left open.[33] It tells the readers how to understand the statements of Paul in his earlier letters.

Ephesians is known for its ecclesiological concern, especially for the unity of gentile Christians and Jewish Christians (Eph. 2:11–22): "And he came and preached peace to you who were far off and peace to those who were near; for through him we both have access in one Spirit to the Father" (2:17–18).

The coexistence of them was no doubt a big issue in the Pauline churches. It already began, as Gal. 2:11–14 shows, in the lifetime of Paul, and must have become more and more serious, as the number of gentile Christians increased. That is why Paul in Rom. 9–11 managed to explain how his gospel is reconcilable with God's promises to Israel: "Welcome one another, therefore, as Christ has welcomed you, for the glory of God" (Rom. 15:7). The author of Ephesians, as one of the Jewish Christians, tries to solve this problem by letting Paul once again insist on the unity of Jews and Gentiles in the Christian church. This letter testifies how this issue was widespread in the post-Pauline churches.

It would be unnecessary to describe how the author of *2 Thessalonians* relates its contents to *1 Thessalonians*. Regardless of whether "a letter purporting to be from us" in 2 Thess. 2:2 implies *1 Thessalonians*,[34] it is beyond doubt that a statement "to the effect that the day of the Lord has come" (2:2) goes back to the eschatology of Paul in 1 Thess. 4:13–5:2: "you yourselves know well that the day of the Lord will come like a thief in the night" (1 Thess. 5:2). Against a background of disputation on this issue, which must have been widespread and acute in the post-Pauline period because of delay of the parousia of Christ, *2 Thessalonians* was written in order to correct (or deny?)[35] the statement of *1 Thessalonians*.

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(33) On this function, which is essential to pseudepigraphy, see A. Merz, *Die fiktive Selbstauslegung des Paulus* (Fribourgh: Academic Press; Göttingen: V&R, 2004) (Novum testamentum et orbis antiquus, 52) esp. 232–242.

(34) Cf. H. Roose, "A Letter by Us": Intentional Ambiguity in 2 Thessalonians 2.2, *Journal for the Study of the New Testament* 29 (2006) 107–124, who rightly sees that here the relationship between both Thessalonian letters is intentionally left ambiguous. Cf. also Tsuji, Persönliche Korrespondenz…, 262–263.

(35) So M. Rist, Pseudepigraphy and the Early Christians, in: D. E. Aune (ed.), *Studies in New Testament and Early Christian Literature* (FS A. P. Wikgren) (Leiden: Brill, 1972) 75–91: 82; A. Lindemann, Zum Abfasssungszweck des

The *Pastoral Letters* are typical of deutero-Pauline letters, which try to show "the correct interpretation" of Paul on controversial matters. The form of letter-collection presupposes the already existing *Corpus Paulinum* and is meant to be accepted in connection with it.

But this collection, the so called *Corpus Pastorale*, was never intended to provide another Corpus Paulinum. It is rather a supplement and conclusion of "a Corpus Paulinum that is in a long process of development and should be completed by them [= Past]".[36]

The main function of the Pastoral Letters within this extended Corpus is as an "apparatus for interpretation." They present, as the other deutero-Pauline letters do, "the correct interpretation" of Pauline statements that caused dissent in post-Pauline churches.

This is favored by the observation, that the author of the Pastoral Letters addresses the issues which come from Paul; e.g. the Law (1 Tim. 1:6–11), obedience to rulers and authorities (1 Tim. 2:1–3; Tit. 3:1–2),[37] behavior of women (1 Tim. 2:8–15; 5:3–16[38]), the purity commandments (1 Tim. 4:1–5; Tit. 1:15), relationship between slaves and masters (1 Tim. 6:1–2), and the interpretation of the resurrection (2 Tim. 2:8–13,18).[39] On these points at issue the author of the Pastoral Letters tries to give "the last word" by a fictional device which represents Paul as referring to his earlier statements to try to clarify, or even correct them.[40]

But this task can be achieved only when the statements of the Pastoral Letters are accepted as universally valid beyond the original con-

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Zweiten Thessalonicherbriefes, in: IDEM, *Paulus, Apostel und Lehrer der Kirche* (Tübingen: Mohr Siebeck, 1999) 228–240.

(36) P. TRUMMER, Corpus Paulinum — Corpus Pastorale: Zur Ortung der Paulustradition in den Pastoralbriefen, in: K. KERTELGE (ed.), *Paulus in den neutestamentlichen Spätschriften* (Freiburg et al.: Herder, 1981) (Quaestiones Disputatae, 89) 133.

(37) Cf. TSUJI, Intertextualität…, 99–110.

(38) Cf. TSUJI, Zwischen Ideal und Realität: Zu den Witwen in 1 Tim 5.3–16, *New Testament Studies* 47 (2001) 92–104.

(39) The resurrection is also a matter of debate in Colossians and Ephesians (cf. Col. 2:12; Eph. 2:4–6).

(40) Cf. A. MERZ, Amore Pauli: Das Corpus Pastorale und das Ringen um die Interpretationshoheit bezüglich des paulinischen Erbes, *Theologische Quartalschrift* 187 (2007) 274–294, esp. 283.

text, i.e. correspondence between Paul and his coworkers.[41] It is for this purpose that the author proposes a collection of three letters, modeling it after the *Corpus Paulinum*.

Summary: The deutero-Pauline letters arose in the situation, where the genuine Pauline letters were widely circulated and read beyond their primary context. The more people read them, the more interpretation appeared. So the authors of the deutero-Pauline letters tried to present "the correct interpretation" as Paul's own voice and keep the readers on the right track.

5. The Catholic Letters

The influence of Pauline letters can be seen not only in the letters under his authority, but also in other streams of early Christianity. The so-called Catholic Letters, except for the Johannine Letters,[42] are here to be taken into consideration.

The *Letter of James*, a pseudonymous document of the Brother of the Lord, criticizes in 2:14–26 the idea of justification by faith, which originates from Paul: "You see that a man is justified by works and not by faith alone" (Jas. 2:24). Because the author of the letter undoubtedly knows this idea described in Romans (and maybe in Galatians),[43] it is highly improbable that 2:14–26 can be understood without the influence of Paul.[44] This passage is only understandable with the presupposition, that the Pauline idea of justification by faith unfolded in Romans

(41) The author of the Pastoral Letters wrote personal letters instead of church-letters because, in my view, it was not possible at the end of the first century to forge more Pauline letters to a certain church without raising doubts about their authenticity. Cf. Tsuji, Persönliche Korrespondenz…, 256–259.

(42) *1–3 John* no longer tends to be treated as part of the Catholic Letters anymore, but together with the Gospel of John as the "Johannine Writings" (see e.g. Schnelle, *Einleitung…*, 479–555).

(43) This is suggested by (1) correspondence of wording, (2) the example of Abraham (Jas. 2:21–23; cf. Rom. 4:1–12; Gal. 3:1–14), and (3) the statement "God is one" (Jas. 2:19; cf. Rom. 3:30; 1 Cor. 8:6). Cf. M. Tsuji, *Glaube zwischen Vollkommenheit und Verweltlichung* (Tübingen: Mohr Siebeck, 1997) (Wissenschaftliche Untersuchungen zum Neuen Testament, 2.93) 189–193.

(44) *Contra e.g.* T. C. Penner, *The Epistle of James and Eschatology* (Sheffield: Sheffield Academic, 1996) (JSNTS, 121) 63–65; D. J. Verseput, Reworking the Puzzle of Faith and Deeds in James 2:14–26, *New Testament Studies* 43 (1997) 97–115; D. H. Edger, *Has God Not Chosen the Poor*? (Sheffield: Sheffield Academic, 2001) (JSNTS, 206) 175 n. 58.

was widespread among the churches in the post-Pauline period.[45] That is exactly why the author of James felt it necessary to contradict it in a "letter to the twelve tribes in Dispersion" (Jas. 1:1).

James takes the form of a letter from a prominent leader of the earliest Christianity to an unspecified number of general Christian readerships. With the address "to the twelve tribes in Dispersion" (Jas. 1:1), which evidently takes over here the tradition of an early Jewish "Diaspora-letter,"[46] it aims to reach as many readers as possible. This is evidently one of the countermeasures against the widely known Paulinism.

While it is still debatable whether *1 Peter* is under the theological influence of Paul,[47] the author of *2 Peter* undoubtedly knows a collection of the Pauline letters, the interpretation of which seems to have caused dissension in the church (2 Pet. 3:15–16). These observations favor the view that behind the emergence of the Catholic Letters there exists the literary and theological influence of the Pauline letters, which were collected and widely read in the post-Pauline period.

Conclusion

We can now summarize our observations as follows:

(1) Among the three types of letter (private letter, open letter, and literary letter), the genuine Pauline letters belong to either the first (1 Thessalonians, Philemon, also Galatians) or the second category (1 and 2 Corinthians, Philippians, and Romans). At the beginning of

(45) The Letter of James was, in my view, probably written in the 70's or 80's of the first century A.D. Here we can leave the much debated question open, whether the author of Jas. intends to criticize Paul's idea itself, or only its "misunderstanding" (cf. Tsuji, *Glaube…* 194–195). That the author of James speaks of "works" instead of "works of the Law" as in Paul (cf. Jas. 2:14,24 with Rom. 3:28; Gal. 2:16), indicates the former is reading the Pauline letter(s) not in the original, but in another, secondary context. But this never excludes the possibility, which is in my view more likely, that he attacks Paul himself.

(46) Tsuji, *Glaube…* 18–21. The addresses of the other Catholic Letters (1 Pet. 1:1; 2 Pet. 1:1; Jude 1) can be regarded as developed, more Christianized forms of this diaspora-letter (cf. Tsuji, *Glaube…* 28–34).

(47) Negative: Brown, *Introduction* 716–718; J. Herzer, *Petrus oder Paulus?* (Tübingen: Mohr Siebeck, 1998) (Wissenschaftliche Untersuchungen zum Neuen Testament, 103); P. J. Achtemeier, *1 Peter* (Minneapolis, MN: Fortress, 1996) (Hermeneia) 15–19. Affirmative: Schnelle, *Einleitung…*, 456. Schnelle (together with exegetes named in n. 177) sees also in the opponents of Jude a "heritage of Pauline theology" (Schnelle, *Einleitung…*, 467).

his missionary activities Paul may not have thought of the possibility that his letters would be circulated and read by secondary readers who did not share the original context of the letter; but he gradually came to be aware of it, as he wrote more letters to churches.

(2) The Pauline letters which he addressed to the same church began to be compiled into a single letter. This presumably occurred quite early after the death of Paul, or maybe already in his lifetime. The compiled letter was convenient for the secondary readers as it enabled them to grasp the issue(s) in the original context and to apply the statements of Paul to their own context.

(3) The Corpus Paulinum reflects the situation, in which the Pauline letters came to be read more as "the statement of Paul" for every Christian under authority. While some of them, i.e. Rom., 1 Cor., and possibly 2 Cor., came relatively early into circulation, the other letters came to be known only later, presumably around the end of the first century.

(4) The deutero-Pauline letters were written in order to present "the correct interpretation by Paul himself" on the issues Paul left open to controversy. The more widely the Pauline letters were read, the more likely it was that variations of "Paulinism" would appear.

(5) That the Pauline letters could be known also to other streams in early Christianity is attested to by James and 2 Peter. The Catholic Letters, which take the form of a general letter from an authority of Jerusalem, may have arisen in view of the wide circulation of Pauline letters and theology.[48]

(48) This article goes back to my opening lecture at Asia-Pacific Early Christian Studies Society 5th Annual Conference, held at Tohoku Gakuin University (Sendai, Japan) from 10.9 to 12.9.2009.

SUMMARY

The Pauline letters represent as their primary context a correspondence from Paul to the addressed church, but they began to be read, already in the lifetime of Paul, also with a new context, in which the validity of their content was extended to other Christians and accepted as theological and ethical criterion of Pauline Christianity.

In this article we are dealing with a process of reception of the Pauline letters in the first century A.D. The focus is put on the way they came to be read more with the secondary context, and in the following manner: (1) In some of his letters Paul himself seemed to be aware that his letter would be read also by those who were not the original addressees. (2) The Pauline letters addressed to the same church began to be compiled into a single letter, e.g. 2 Cor. (3) The Corpus Paulinum reflects the situation, in which the Pauline letters were read more as 'the statement of Paul' for every Christian under his authority. (4) The deutero-Pauline letters were written in order to present 'the correct interpretation by Paul himself' on the issues Paul left open to controversy. (5) Some of the Catholic Letters attest the wide circulation of the Pauline letters, also in non-Pauline circles.

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THE RECEPTION OF THE PAULINE LETTERS AND THE FORMATION OF THE CANONICAL PRINCIPLE IN ORIGEN OF ALEXANDRIA

Now I am treating the Problem of poverty and wealth in the Alexandrian exegetical tradition, and at the last Conference in Melbourne, I read a paper on the theme of "Poverty and Asceticism in Clement and Origen of Alexandria." In tracing the problem of poverty and wealth in the Alexandrian exegetical tradition represented by Philo, Clement, and Origen, I recognize that they tackled this issue through biblical exegesis in their own concrete situation, and in doing so, there gradually appeared a distinction between them, concerning their hermeneutical method.[1]

Since "Letters in Early Christianity" is the main theme of the Sendai Conference, I would like to outline how the Pauline letters were accepted and used in the context of the formation of the Canonical principle in Origen of Alexandria, taking a new perspective on Pauline scholarship into consideration. First, I would like to place Origen's exegetical method within the Alexandrian exegetical tradition.

1. Origen and the Alexandrian Exegetical Tradition

In the *De Vita Contemplativa*, Philo described a sort of a monastic life practiced by an ascetic group of the so-called *Therapeutae* on the coast of Lake Mareotis in Alexandria. They were described as choosing voluntary poverty to live a philosophical contemplative life free from economical anxiety. Last year I visited this Lake and the remains of Abu Mena in the desert about 45 km southwest of Alexandria, which was a Christian Pilgrimage center dedicated to the martyr of the early

(1) Cf. M. Demura, Poverty and Asceticism in Clement and Origen of Alexandria, in: G. D. Dunn, D. Luckensmeyer, and L. Cross (eds.), *Prayer and Spirituality in the Early Church*, vol. 5: *Poverty and Riches* (Strathfield: St. Paul's Publications, 2009) 119–131.

4th century named Menas of Alexandria. If we allow for Philo's impact upon early Christian literature,[2] Philo's ideal of voluntary renunciation could have some impact on early Christian ascetic life. Virtually, we can recognize nearly the same attitude toward worldly goods in Clement of Alexandria.

In the *Quis dives salvetur*[3] Clement dealt with the difficult theme of how the rich could be saved according to the Gospel passages of Mark 10:17–31, in order to incorporate rich people into his church community. When Clement mentioned the antecedent example of the Greek philosophers' renunciation of their fortune,[4] he inherited a fundamental attitude toward worldly goods from Philo, because both followed the example of Anaxagoras who had abandoned his riches in order to devote himself to philosophy, and Democritus who had spent much money on travel for his intellectual investigation, denouncing them as prodigal with money.[5] But while Clement regarded wealth as an instrument (ὁ προῦτος ὄργανον ἐστι), he depended on the Stoic theory of being indifferent (ἀδιάφορα) to worldly goods, to strive for a condition totally free from the reign of passion (ἀπάθεια) as the ultimate goal in life.

But when we turn to Origen, we recognize a distinctive feature fundamentally different from these two Alexandrian predecessors, because Philo and Clement approached the Biblical passages about poverty and wealth allegorically with a philosophical and ascetical interest, whereas Origen opens a new stage when he uses the term poverty and wealth mainly from an exegetical viewpoint. When Origen often criticizes the Ebionites as being poor in connection with their literal understanding of the law, he focuses on the fact that the Ebionites rejected the Pauline letters and refused to interpret the Scriptures allegorically.

(2) For the influence of Philo upon Early Christianity see D. T. Runia, *Philo in Early Christian Literatur*e (Assen Van Gorcum, 1993) (Compendia Rerum Iudaicarum ad Novum Testamentum, 3.3).

(3) *Quis dives salvetur* in G. W. Butterworth, Clement *of* Alexandria: *The Exhortation to the Greeks* (Harvard University Press, 1960) (Loeb Classical Library) 270–377.

(4) Ibid., 11. 4.

(5) Philo, *De vita contemplativa*, 2. 11.

2. The Ebionites and Other Jewish Christians in Alexandria

Origen knows two sects who did not accept the Pauline letters, the Ebionites[6] and an ascetic group called the Encratites (*Contra Celsum* V, 65). The name, "Ebionites" means "the poor," and probably was used as a self-designation of one or several Jewish Christian sects. Paul knew the designation of "the poor" for the Jerusalem church (Gal. 2:10). According to H. Koester, "it is not impossible that by this self-designation the Jerusalem community identified itself with the elected poor, the people of God who were the recipients of the promises of the messianic time. It is, therefore, likely that the designation of Ebionites for later Jewish-Christian groups preserved a memory of their pristine origin from the Church in Jerusalem."[7]

Concerning the Jewish Christians in Alexandria, we have little evidence. The earliest document about the Jewish Christians was *the Acts of the Apostles* 18:24–25, which reported that a Jew named Apollos, a native of Alexandria, came to Ephesus. It is worth noticing that he was described as an eloquent man (ἀνὴρ λόγιος), well versed in the Scriptures (δυνατὸς ὢν ἐν ταῖς γραφαῖς). Howard C. Kee speculates about this passage and comments that Apollos "was a cultured person, presumably instructed in the Alexandrine method of scriptural interpretation best known from the works of Philo of Alexandria, whose allegorical exegesis was based on Platonic and Stoic philosophy,"[8] but this is merely an "argument from silence."[9] Concerning this testimony, we can add the evidence that Clement wrote a refutation against the

(6) According to Klijin and Reinink, Origen referred to the Ebionites in *De Principiis*, IV 3, 8; Homiliae in Lucam, XVII; *Homiliae in Genesim*, III, 5, *Homiliae in Ieremiam*, XIX, 12; *Commentarii in Matthaeum*, XI, 12; XVI, 12; ser. 79; *Commentarii in Lucam* 14, 18f; *Commentarii in Epistulam ad Romanos*, III, 11; *Commentarius in Titum*; *Contra Celsum*, II, 1; V, 61; V, 66 (A. F. J. Klijin and G. J. Reinink, *Patristic Evidence for Jewish-Christian Sects* (Leiden, 1973) 19–43; cf. 125–135).

(7) H. Koester, *History and Literature of Early Christianity* (Philadelphia, 1982) 200; G. Howard, Gospel of the Ebionites, in: W. Haase (hrsg.), *Vorkonstantinishes Christemtum: Leben und Umwelt Jesu; Neues Testament [Kanonische Schriften und Apokryphen]* (Berlin—New York: Walter de Gruyter & Co., 1988) (Aufstieg und Niedergang der Römischen Welt, 25. 5) 4034–4053.

(8) H. C. Kee, *Christian Origins in Sociological Perspective: Methods and Resources* (Philadelphia: Westminster Press, 1980) 98–99.

(9) C. Mihaila, *The Paul-Apollos Relationship and Paul's Stance toward Greco-Roman Rhetoric* (New York, 2009) 218.

Jews,[10] Origen criticized the Jewish custom of circumcision and fasting,[11] and stated that there were some Christians in Egypt who haunted synagogues and churches,[12] and both Clement and Origen knew the *Gospel of the Hebrews*.

Judging from this evidence, we may guess that the earliest Christian communities in Egypt felt the influence of Jewish traditions.[13] I would like to note that Origen again introduces the problem of Biblical exegesis by Jewish Christians in reference to the notion of poverty. In the *Peri Archon* IV Origen states concerning the Ebionites the following:

> *Peri Archon* IV, 3, 8: Now that we have learned from him (Paul), therefore, that there is one Israel according to the flesh and another according to the spirit, then when the Saviour says, "I am not sent but unto the lost sheep of the house of Israel" (Mt. 15:24), we do not take these words in the same sense as do they who "mind earthly things," that is, the Ebionites, who even by their very name are called poor — for in Hebrew the word *ebion* means poor, but we understand that it is a race of souls which is called Israel, as the meaning of the word itself indicates; for Israel means "the mind seeing God" or "man seeing God."[14]

G. W. Butterworth notes about the Ebionites the following: "The Ebionites were a sect of Jewish Christians, who kept the Law. Their name indicates that they practiced, at least originally, a voluntary poverty and simplicity of life, such as described in Acts 2:44–45. It has, of cause, no reference whatever to poverty of mind, as Origen declares."[15] If his suggestion is right, then Origen's polemical discussion against the Ebionites would be a sort of innovation in the Alexandrian tradition, because as I showed above, voluntary poverty or simplicity

(10) Eusebius, *Ecclesiastical History* VI, 13, 3.

(11) Origen, *Commentarii in Iohannem*, 114; *Homiliae in Leviticum*, 10. 2.

(12) Origen, *Homiliae in Leviticum*, 5. 8.

(13) Cf. S. G. F. Brandon, *The Fall of Jerusalem and the Christian Church* (London, 1951), J. Mélèze-Modrzejewski, *Les Juifs d'Égypte de Ramsès II à Hadrien* (Paris, 1997); A. Jakab, *Ecclesia alexandrina: Evolution sociale et institutionnelle du christianisme alexandrin (II^e et III^e siècles)* (Bern: Peter Lang, 2004) 24–34.

(14) H. Crouzel and M. Simonetti (eds.), Origène. *Traité des Principes IV, Commentaire et Fragments* (Paris, 1980) (SC, 269). I use the English version: G. W. Butterworth, Origen. *On the First Principles* (New York, 1966).

(15) Butterworth, *Origen On the First Principles...*, 300, n. 1.

of life was recommended as the ideal condition of life by Philo and Clement.

This passage is introduced by Origen in the context of the Pauline understanding of two kinds of Israel, one is the literal meaning (Israel according to the flesh) and another is the spiritual meaning (Israel according to the spirit). Although such an etymological interpretation (the mind seeing God or man seeing God) was known as an allegorical interpretation and found first in Philo and then in Clement[16] Origen cites this interpretation (*allegoria*) in a new context to reject the literal meaning of Israel by the Ebionites. To see the influence of Pauline letters upon Origen's texts, we turn our attention to his method of biblical interpretation unfolded in *Peri Archon* IV.[17]

3. Origen's Understanding of Allegorical Interpretation (*Peri Archon* IV, 2, 4)

Peri Archon IV, 2, 4 is a main text which caused long-standing hostile criticism against the exegetical method of Origen. He has been misunderstood or had a bad reputation, because his threefold exegetical method, especially his allegorical interpretation could be also found among Hellenistic philosophers and Gnostic groups to apply to various myths. Epiphanius of Cyprus "singles out Origen as the key representative of an entire strain of Alexandrian allegorical exegesis that provides a pattern of allegorizing to justify any heretical aberration and start a chain reaction affecting all Christian doctrine."[18]

It is noteworthy that before unfolding his threefold way, Origen shows his exegetical method as "being traced from the Words themselves", and besides he presents his triple exegetical method in the form of the biblical quotation from Prov. 20:20–21.

> *Peri Archon* IV, 2, 4: The right way, therefore, as it appears to us of approaching the scriptures and gathering their meaning, is the following, which is traced from the Words themselves (Ἡ τοίνυν φαινομένη ἡμῖν ὁδὸς τοῦ πῶς δεῖ ἐντυγχάνειν ταῖς γραφαῖς καὶ τὸν νοῦν αὐτῶν ἐκλαμβάνειν ἐστὶ τοιαύτη, ἀπ' αὐτῶν τῶν

(16) Philo, *De Abrahamo* 57; *Praemiis et Poenis* 44, and Clement, *Pedagogus* I, 7, 57; I, 9, 77. Cf. Crouzel and Simonetti, Origène. *Traité des Principes IV*, 66, n. 44.

(17) Ibid., 35.

(18) J. F. Dechow, The Heresy Charges against Origen, in: L. Lies (hrsg.), *Origeniana Quarta* (Innsbruck, 1985) 116.

λογίων ἐξιχνευομένη). We find some such rule as this laid down by Solomon in the Proverbs concerning the divine doctrines written therein: "Write down them threefold in counsel and knowledge, so that you might answer words of truth to those who ask you" (Prov. 20:20–21).

After stating thus his triple method, Origen continues to explain each exegetical method (flesh—soul—sprit) by means of citation from biblical passages in the *Peri Archon* IV, 2, 6. At first he treats "the flesh of scripture" which corresponds to a historical meaning, only to give a short explanation because the benefit of the historical meaning "is witnessed by the multitudes of sincere and simple believers". Then he shifts to the second method, "the soul of scripture" which corresponds to an ethical meaning and says; "But of the kind of explanation which penetrates as it were to the soul an illustration is found in Paul's first letter to the Corinthians". Origen presents only one example from 1 Cor. 9:9–10 which interprets the law about "the ox that is treading out the grain". But when he proceeds to a spiritual explanation or allegorical interpretation, he undertakes to explain in detail through several quotations from the Pauline letters (1 Cor. 2:7–8; 10:11; 10:4; Heb. 8:5; Gal. 4:21–24; Col. 2:16–17; Heb. 8:5; Rom. 11:4). It is quite evident that special importance is attached to this spiritual or allegorical sense of the scriptures.

Among these Pauline passages, Gal. 4:21–24 is the most important textual evidence for his exegetical method of spiritual explanation, because it serves as a model for allegorical interpretation. We can find Origen's basic understanding of his "allegory" based on the Pauline term ἀλληγορούμενα in *Peri Archon* IV, 2, 6, where he unfolds his exegetical method in detail.[19]

Peri Archon IV, 2, 6: And when writing to the Galatians and reproaching some who believe they are reading the law and yet do not understand it, **because they are unware that there are allegories in these writings** (μὴ ἀλληγορίας εἶναι ἐν τοῖς γεγραμμένοις νομίζοθσι), he addresses them in a tone of rebuke: "Tell me, ye that desire to be under the law, do ye not hear the law?" For it is written that Abraham had two sons, one by the handmaid and one by the

(19) Miyako Demura, The Resurrection of the Body and Soul in Origen's Contra Celsum, *SP* 9.3 (1991) 375–381; idem, The Biblical Tradition of the Resurrection in Early Christianity; Pauline Influence on Origen's Theology of the Resurrection, in: *Annual of the Japanese Biblical Institute* 26–26 (1999/2000) 135–151.

> free woman. Howbeit he who was born of the handmaid was born according to the flesh, but he of the free woman was born according to promise. Which things contain an allegory. For these are the two covenants, and what follows (Gal. 4:21–24).

Here we should keep in mind that the interpretation of ἀλληγορούμενα in Gal. 4:24 is unsettled among New Testament scholars and it has not been elucidated clearly, because an old controversy over allegorical interpretation has a lasting effect upon modern biblical exegesis. According to a recent study of Steven Di Mattei, Antiochene exegetes, quick to check and even chastise Origen's understanding and application of Gal. 4:24, claimed that what the apostle really meant to say was that "these things are τυποί" and he improperly called the 'type' 'allegory.'"[20] Di Mattei shows that modern critiques have more or less followed their Antiochene predecessors alleging that what Paul really intended to express in Gal. 4:21 is a typology, or an allegory which gives way to typology.[21] Against such a tendency Di Mattei suggests a new approach to clarify the Pauline ἀλληγορούμενα in Gal. 4:24 using the Alexandrian philological method by means of referring to Tryphon and Heraclitus who were Alexandrian grammarians of about the late first century AD.[22] He argues that the allegory works as a rhetorical trope as opposed to the apologetic aims of its usage, as seen in the case of Philo or Clement.

It is important to note that, as I have shown, Origen also adopted the allegorical interpretation based on the Alexandrian philological method (Scripture should be interpreted from Scripture) in contrast to the allegories of Greek philosophers and Gnostics of his time which had been developed as a philosophical interpretative method of ancient myth.[23] It is very likely that Origen would recognize and accept

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(20) S. Di Mattei, Paul's Allegory of the Two Covenants (Gal 4. 21–31) in the Light of First-Century Hellenistic Rhetoric and Jewish Hermeneutics, *New Testament Studies* 52 (2006) 102–122.

(21) Di Mattei, Paul's Allegory…, 103.

(22) Ibid., 105–106. Tryphon writes: "Allegoria is an enunciation which while signifying one thing literally, brings forth the thought of something else" (*De tropis* 1.1), and Heraclitus writes: "The trope that says one thing but signifies something other than what is said is called by the name allegoria" (*Allegoriae Homericae* 5. 2, F. Buffiere, Héraclite. *Allégories D'Homère* (Paris: Societe d'edition "Les Belles Lettres," 1962) 4).

(23) M. Demura, Origen as Biblical Scholar in his Commentary on the Gospel according to Matthew XII, 29, *Scr* 4 (2008) 23–31; idem, Origen's Allegorical

the contention to Paul's Letter to the Galatians that has been pointed out and illuminated by New Testament scholars, involved in the so-called new perspective on Paul.[24] According to James Dunn, what Paul denies is that God's justification depends on "covenantal nomism," that God's grace extends only to those who wear the badge of the covenant: to observe circumcision, food laws and the Sabbath.[25] If we presuppose such a viewpoint on Pauline theology, we can speculate that Origen argued on common ground with Paul when he made a controversy with Celsus.

In *Contra Celsum* II, 1, Origen replies to his opponent Celsus who regarded Jewish Christians as "deluded by Jesus, they have left the law of their fathers." Origen points out his misunderstanding and turns to a new understanding of the Mosaic law in a Christian context.

> *Contra Celsum* II, 1: For they live according to it, and **are named from the poverty of their interpretation of the law** (ἐπώνυμοι τῆς κατὰ τὴν ἐκδοχὴν πτωχείας τοῦ νόμου γεγενημένοι). The Jews call a poor man Ebion, and those Jews who have accepted Jesus as the Christ are called Ebionites.

Origen referred to Peter's vision from the Acts of the Apostles 10:9–15, and said that "Peter seems to have kept the customs of the Mosaic law for a long time, as he had not yet learnt from Jesus to ascend from the letter of the law to its spiritual interpretation."[26]

From these texts, we can see that Origen treats the problem of poverty in face of the literal interpretation of scriptures or the literal observance of particular regulations of the Mosaic Law among his contemporary Jewish Christians and sought to reach the spiritual meaning of the Bible through the allegorical method based on Pauline exegesis.

4. Reception of the Pauline Letters in early Christianity

Finally we will survey how the Pauline letters were received in early Christianity in order to answer the question as to why Origen's exegetical method has suffered from long-standing hostile criticism. First, we must see the fact that the Pauline letters were not so influ-

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Interpretation and the Philological Tradition of Alexandria, in: Gy. Heidl, and R. Somos (eds.), *Origeniana Nona* (Leuven, 2009) 149–158.

(24) See J. D. G. Dunn, *The New Perspective on Paul: Collected Essays* (Tübingen, 2005).

(25) Ibid., 101.

(26) H. Chadwick, Origen. *Contra Celsum* (Cambridge, 1953) 66.

ential in 2nd-century Christian writings. Scholars have explained one of the reasons for this in terms of the reaction against the tendency of the appropriation of Paul by the heretical side, i.e. Gnostics and Marcion. When Schneemelcher examined the Pauline influence on the Writings of the Apostolic fathers and Apologists such as Papias of Hierapolis, Justin, Tatian, Athenagorus, Theophilus, and Hegesippus, he concluded plainly that no citation or references to Pauline letters in them played a theologically important role at all because of their appropriation by the heretical side.[27] And Campenhausen asserted that the evaluation of Paul during the second century had been drastically underestimated because of the exclusive favoritism toward him among heretical groups like Marcion and other sects, and as a result, Paul had been disregarded entirely among devout orthodox circles.[28]

Generally speaking, Paul's theology had been ignored or misconstrued before or after Augustine because Pauline theology exercised great appeal among marginal or heretical sides as Babcock summarized.[29] In such a stream Origen seemed to hold a unique position, because before him exegetes preferred to concentrate on a few Old Testament books (Genesis, Exodus, Psalms, Isaiah and little else), and systematically only on parts of these. As for the New Testament, the object of study was almost solely Matthew, certain letters of Paul, and, in the Millenarian milieu, the Book of Revelation.

Origen, in contrast, understands the study of Scripture to mean the study of Scripture as a whole. He was the first to draw attention to cer-

(27) W. Schneemelcher, Paulus in der griechischen Kirche des zweiten Jahrhunderts, *Zeitschrift für Kirchengeschichte* 75 (1964) 1–20.

(28) H. von Campenhausen, *The Formation of the Christian Bible* (Philadelphia, 1972) 177f.

(29) Babcock pointed out four factors: first, Paul's theology exercised its greatest appeal and came closest to being rightly understood among the versions of Christianity that would turn out to be marginal or heretical by the standards of what would become the dominant tradition. Second, the tradition that did ultimately give Christianity its enduring shape either ignored or misconstrued Paul. Third, only with Augustine, in the Latin West and at the turn of the fourth to the fifth century, did there emerge something like a recovery of the genuine central motifs in Pauline thought and in particular, a true sense for the great Pauline theme of justification by grace and faith. Fourth, Greek Christian tradition never did — before or after Augustine — achieve an apt appreciation of Paul (W. Babcock, *Paul and the Legacies of Paul* (Dallas, TX, 1990) ix–xxviii; cf. Ch. Kannengiesser, *Handbook of Patristic Exegesis*, vol. 1 (Leiden, 2004) 354–361).

tain Books of the Wisdom literature (Ecclesiastes, Job); his exegesis of Joshua and the Judges has remained almost unparalleled in early exegetical literature.[30] As Manlio Simonetti stresses, "no one before him had made a commentary in any systematic way on an entire book either of the Old Testament or the New Testament," and recently Christoph Markschies maintained Origen's "Paulinism" and said, "Origen endeavored to understand Paul in the framework of the whole Bible (especially of the Old Testament) in an inclusively 'Canonical reading.'"[31] Origen not only undertook to make a commentary on all the Biblical books, but as we already recognized, the Pauline ἀλληγορούμενα in Gal. 4:24 has great influence on his exegetical method.

Conclusion

From this survey we confirm that Origen not only undertook to make a commentary on all the Biblical books, but Pauline letters greatly influenced his exegetical method of scriptures and the practical aspects of the Mosaic law. Origen characterizes his inquiry into the deeper meaning of the Biblical passage based on the Pauline term ἀλληγορούμενα in Gal. 4: 24 in contrast to the allegory used outside of Christianity.

SUMMARY

The reaction against the tendency of the heretics (such as the Gnostics or Marcion) to appropriate Pauline letters resulted in the fact that Pauline letters did not have great influence on second century Christian writings. However, Origen represents an exceptional position — no one before him had made a commentary in any systematic way on an entire book of the Old or the New Testament. This paper is an attempt to outline how the Pauline letters were accepted and used in the context of the formation of the Canonical principle in Origen of Alexandria from a new perspective of Pauline scholarship.

(30) Cf. Bruce M. Metzger, *The Canon of the New Testament Its Origin, Development, and Significance* (Oxford, 1987) 135–141.

(31) See the entry "Paul the Apostle" by C. Markschies in J. A. McGuckin (ed.), *The Westminster Handbook to Origen* (London, 2004) 167–169.

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EPHREM THE SYRIAN'S FICTITIOUS USE OF THE EPISTOLARY FORM IN HIS "FIRST DISCOURSE FOR HYPAṬIUS"

This paper investigates the style of Ephrem's first prose discourse against the false doctrines, and the reasons why he chose the form of a fictive letter to begin it with. It seems that Ephrem used this literary convention very cleverly to introduce the basic premises of his particular brand of symbolic theology. He used the antithesis of writing a letter to someone or paying a visit to that person as a directive for the way in which God should be approached. The epistolary style in particular also enabled him to express his perception that God gave us the freedom of choice in all our actions, and the faculty of discernment to be able to use free will wisely.

1. Introduction

In addition to his very extensive legacy of poetic theological texts and prose commentaries, Ephrem the Syrian (ca. 306–373) also wrote a series of five prose polemics, generally known as the "Prose Refutations." This name originated when the Syriac text of most of the collection was edited and published, together with an introduction to and a translation of the whole work, by C. W. Mitchell in 1912 as "S. Ephraim's Prose Refutations of Mani, Marcion, and Bardaisan."[1] The text of the first two discourses was not included in this edition, since they had already been published by J. Overbeck in 1865 from

(1) C. W. Mitchell, *S. Ephraim's Prose Refutations of Mani, Marcion, and Bardaisan*, vol. 1, *The Discourses Addressed to Hypatius* (Oxford: Williams and Norgate, 1912) of which most was transcribed from the palimpsest *B.M. add.* 14 623. Second volume has the sub-heading "Transcribed from the Palimpsest B.M. Add. 14 623," and in addition to Mitchell's name (who died in service as a chaplain at the Front on May 3, 1917), the names of A. A. Bevan and F. C. Burkitt are added. Its contents are "The Discourse called 'Of Domnus' and six other writings." It was published in 1921.

Ms. *B.M. add.* 14 574.[2] Mitchell used Overbeck's Syriac text of the first two of these prose polemics to make his translation, and also undertook the almost impossible task of retrieving the text of the remaining discourses from the underwriting of a palimpsest (Ms. *B.M. add.* 14623). This manuscript was originally copied in Edessa during the sixth century but was most unfortunately erased by a Mesopotamian monk with the name Aaron in the year 823 in Egypt. He considered the first part important enough to be retained, but erased the rest in order to record a number of monastic documents on it, turning the original writing upside down.[3] The two codices in the British Museum thus originally formed part of the same manuscript.

The first of these five prose polemics of Ephrem against the heresies is also known as the "First Discourse for Hypaṭius." The reason for this name is the Syriac title in manuscript 14 574[4] which reads (according to Beck): "Letters of Mar Ephrem to Hypaṭius composed according to the letters (of the alphabet) against the false teachings."[5] This first word of the first refutation does indeed begin with the letter *Alaph* (the name Ephrem), but when Wright deciphered the rest, it turned out to contain not 22 treatises in the form of a letter, each beginning with the next letter of the alphabet, but five long documents spelling the name Ephrem with the initial letters of the first word of each. This acrostic signature, in addition to the contents, has established the fact that these documents were written by Ephrem beyond all reasonable doubt.[6] But this title is misleading in another way as well: only the first

(2) J. Overbeck, *Sancti Ephraemi Syri, Rabulae episcopi Edesseni, Balaei aliorumque opera selecta* (Oxford, 1865) 21–58. He made use of the two available manuscripts to compile the Syriac text for the first Refutation (see below).

(3) Cf. E. Beck, Ephraems Brief an Hypatios übersetzt und erklärt, *Oriens Christianus* 58 (1974) 76–120, 77.

(4) Beck, Ephraems Brief…, 78 notes that the first Discourse was also preserved in a second, separate and old manuscript from Edessa, *B. M. add.* 14 570. In this manuscript, the heading reads "The collection of selected Memre of the Blessed Mar Ephrem," with the first one then the Letter to Hypaṭius. Overbeck made use of both manuscripts to prepare the Syriac text for publication (Beck, Ephraems Brief…, 78).

(5) Cf. Beck, Ephraems Brief…, 77. In Overbeck's edition of the text, the heading reads "The letter / writing / book (ܦܢܩܣ = πίναξ) of selected homilies / discourses of the blessed Mar Ephrem. The first of these is against the erroneous doctrines."

(6) Cf. K. den Biesen, *Simple and Bold, Ephrem's Art of Symbolic Thought* (Piscataway: Gorgias Press, 2006) (Gorgias Dissertations Series, 26, Early

half of the first of these treatises can be described as a "letter," one addressed to a certain "Hypatius." The epistolary form used here at the beginning turns out to be a literary fiction;[7] this discourse was not really sent to a friend with the name Hypatius.[8] The literary genre soon changes from a letter to that of a kind of homily or lecture, and the first discourse ends with the words: "Finished is the first discourse / homily (ܡܐܡܪܐ) against the treacherous (ܣܛܝܠܐ) teachings."[9]

To summarise then: Ephrem composed a set of five prose discourses in which he aimed to refute false doctrines. The first of these begins as if it were a letter to a friend, but the style of a letter is abandoned halfway through the discourse, so that it takes on from there the form of a doctrinal lecture. This adapted style is retained to the end of the fifth discourse despite any heading or subscript which would be later

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Christian Studies Series, 6) 211. Den Biesen notes that the document may have originated during Ephrem's years in Edessa, but that this cannot be proven.

(7) Beck explains that Ephrem chose the form since it made it possible for him to introduce "eine Reihe von einleitenden Fragen auf stilistisch wirksame Weise ... die auf das zentrale Thema der Eröterung der Willensfreiheit und ihrer Erhärtung in einer Auseinandersetzung mit Manichäern hinführen" (Beck, Ephraems Brief…, 78).

(8) The name Hypatios or Hypatius (Gr. Ὑπάτιος) seems to have been a popular one, and a number of aristocratic or otherwise prominent people with the name have made an impression on history. According to *The Abridged Liddell-Scott Greek-English Lexicon*, (public domain), ὕπατος, η, ον for ὑπέρτατος, is similar to Latin *summus* for *supremus,* "the highest", "uppermost."

(9) Beck refers to the confusion in manuscript Add. 14 623, where the second discourse has the heading "Second (letter) to Hypatius and (!) Mani and Marcion and Bardaisan" (Beck, Ephraems Brief…, 77). Only at the beginning of the third discourse do we find the more apt title "Third discourse against the doctrines." This is also the case at the beginning of the fourth and fifth discourses, but the last one is ended with one last reference to Hypatius: "End of the writing down of the five discourses to Hypatius against the false doctrines" (Beck, Ephraems Brief…, 78). In Mitchell's edition of the text, the second discourse has the misleading heading: "The letters of Mar Ephrem to Hypatius which are composed according to the letters ("signs") against the erroneous teachings." Cf. Mitchell, *Ephraim's Prose Refutations*, 1 (from the back). The subscript at the end of the five discourses in Mitchell's edition of the text reads: "Finished is the writing down of the fifth discourse to Hypatius against the erroneous teachings." Cf. Mitchell, *Ephraim's Prose Refutations…*, 185 (from the back). As Den Biesen observes, the prelude in the form of a letter was intended as a framework for the whole set of five essays (Den Biesen, *Simple and Bold…*, 211).

added by scribes and which would erroneously refer to the whole set or parts of it as "letters to Hypaṭius."

The questions with which the present paper is concerned include the following: Why does Ephrem begin his first discourse against false doctrines in the form of a letter?[10] To what extent does he comply with the form of letters, as they were composed in his time? Does he have any precursors to follow, or is this a novel idea of his? How does the epistolary form comply with his textual strategy, and how does it help him to introduce the doctrinal themes which he regards as the most important areas of contention?

Anyone who has met him through his poetic or prose compositions will know that Ephrem was extremely intelligent and versatile. A lack of understanding of what he was doing has proved time and again to be the result not of a lack of intelligence or resourcefulness on his part, but a lack of insight on the part of modern researchers.[11] It seems that the literary fiction of beginning a series of doctrinal discourses as though it were a letter to a friend enabled Ephrem to introduce the basic premises of his particular brand of symbolic theology one after the other. The rest of this paper will consist of an investigation into the history of the particular literary form; a description of Ephrem's use of the convention; a summary of his arguments in the first part of the first discourse; and an analysis of some paragraphs of this discourse in greater detail to show how the literary fiction of writing to a friend fit with his predilection for polarities and his belief that both nature and scripture are replete with symbolic pointers to theological truths.

In presenting the following analysis, I am very much indebted to those who have made translations and analyses of these discourses. I have consulted the translations of Mitchell (*Ephraim's Prose Refutations*), Beck (Ephraems Brief), and Den Biesen (*Simple and Bold*),[12]

(10) Beck's explanation (Beck, Ephraems Brief…, 78, and quoted above), that it enables him to introduce a series of introductory questions, will be investigated in greater detail.

(11) Cf. the criticism of Den Biesen, *Simple and Bold…*, 215–217 levelled against Beck's lack of appreciation of certain paragraphs in Ephrem's first discourse, and a similar criticism of Bundy on p. 221. See further also his notes on both of these investigators on p. 223.

(12) Den Biesen, *Simple and Bold…*, 207–279 makes a much more comprehensive analysis of the first part of the First Discourse for Hypaṭius in Part 3

but have made my own translation of certain passages, sentences or words.

2. The Genre of Ephrem's *First Discourse for Hypaṭius*

In the Ancient World, letters were used as a form of communication especially between people in authority, and it seems that private letters developed from this.[13] In the absence of an official postal system, one had to rely on private persons for the delivery of letters unless one had the authority and the means to communicate in this way.[14] The first letter about which we read in the Bible is the letter in which King David gave the orders for the execution of Uriah, a letter which the poor victim ironically had to deliver himself (2 Sam 11:14). It usually is kings or governors or their officials whom we encounter writing letters in the Old Testament. We do, however, also hear of a letter which a prophet (Elijah) wrote to a king (Jehoram, cf. 2 Chron 21:12) and one which another prophet (Jeremiah) wrote to representatives of God's people as a kind of prophetic sermon which had to be delivered far away (cf. Jer 29:1, and the contents of it in vv. 4–23). Reports in the Bible seem to suggest that official letters increased in number during the Persian Era, when most would have been written in Aramaic, the official language of the Empire (cf. the letters mentioned in Ezra, Nehemiah, and Esther).[15]

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of his book, and also provides a full translation with intelligent new demarcations of paragraphs at the end (pp. 344–72).

(13) J. L. White, *Light from Ancient Letters* (Philadelphia: Fortress Press, 1986) 191–192 refers to an unpublished essay of Luther Stirewalt in which he argues that official communiqués were the earliest form of written correspondence both in the ancient Near East and in Greece. According to him, the Greeks began using written correspondence under Persian influence in place of official oral communications. He bases this (inter alia) on statements by Herodotus which show that he (Herodotus) was impressed by the use of official letter writing in the East.

(14) Preserved Papyri letters of an unofficial type very often mention a mutual friend, a slave, the son of some official, a merchant, or the like as the carrier of the letter. The great quantity of Egyptian Papyri which survived from the reign of Ptolemy II Philadelphos (ca. 270 BCE) can be attributed to the climate of the localities where he allowed his soldiers to settle and cultivate land, but partly also to the development of state administration. Cf. White, *Light…*, 193.

(15) Ezra 4:7, 23; 5:5–6; 7:11; Neh 2:8; 6:5; Esther 9:26, 29. The Aramaic letters from Egypt (from Elephantine but also from Lower Egypt dating

According to White,[16] the similarity between a letter and an oral address, coupled with the democratisation of knowledge during the Hellenistic period, made it easy for the rhetorical schools to adapt the letter to wider ends than the usual purposes of private and official correspondence. It thus happened that the diatribe and oral address became encapsulated in the form of a letter, with the letters found in the New Testament displaying features of the diatribe.[17] A diatribe is characterised by a consciousness of the author's opponents. Late classical writers, however, also adapted the oration or discourse through the form of a letter which came to be known as a homily (ὁμιλία or *disputatio*).[18] This form presupposed an audience which had to be convinced

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from early Persian times, 4th century BC) and the small group of Aramaic letters from Simeon bar Kosibah or his colleagues, from Palestine in the early 2nd century AD serve as proof of how wide in a geographical and temporal sense the influence of Aramaic as lingua franca stretched. Cf. J. A. Fitzmeyer, Some Notes on Aramaic Epistolography, *Journal of Biblical Literature* 93 (1993) 201–225, 205–206. In the Hellenistic age, the official language of correspondence would be Greek, and it seems certain that the Greeks inherited the custom to write official and private letters from the Persians. Cf. White, *Light…*, 192.

(16) J. L. White, Saint Paul and the Apostolic Letter Tradition, *Catholic Biblical Quarterly* 45 (1983) 433–444, 435.

(17) Especially the Epistle of James and parts of the Epistles of Paul where he would quote a phrase of a possible opponent in order to refute it. The use of questions and answers, the play on sentiment, and the imitation of dialogue as a means of instruction serve as examples of such features of the diatribe (White, Saint Paul and the Apostolic Letter Tradition, 436; White, *Light…*, 192). Deissmann once made a sharp distinction between a "letter" and an "epistle," describing the latter as "an artistic literary form, a species of literature, just like the dialogue, the oration, the drama. It has nothing in common with the letter except its form; apart from that one might venture the paradox that the epistle is the opposite of a real letter. The contents of an epistle are intended for publicity — they aim at interesting 'the public.'" (A. Deissmann, *Light from the Ancient East: the New Testament illustrated by recently discovered texts of the Graeco-Roman world* (trans. by L. R. M. Strachan) (New York: Doran, 1927) 27). Doty has since pointed out that this sharp distinction cannot be made in the case of Paul's letters, and that subsequent scholarship has reached a kind of balance between treating Paul's letters as purely occasional, contextual writings and as theological expositions. Ephrem's letter to Hypaṭius, however, would fit Deissmann's description of an "epistle." (W. G. Doty, *Letters in Primitive Christianity* (Philadelphia: Fortress, 1973) 26).

(18) White, Saint Paul and the Apostolic Letter Tradition, 436.

rather than an opponent who had to be disproved.[19] In terms of argumentation, it seems that this genre could be exegetical as well as hortatory. White[20] describes parts of Paul's letters, notably in the Epistles to the Galatians and the Romans, as well as "portions of tightly-knit theological passages elsewhere," as partaking in the character of the oration. Thus, while Paul could be described as having popularised the letter as an authoritative form of communication in Christianity, it was already used in the Hellenistic world as a form of oration. Paul's letters in the New Testament are characteristically longer and more literary than ordinary correspondence.[21] They were intended to be read aloud in the Christian communities which he addressed, so that he kept a worship setting in mind when he adapted the common features of a letter (such as the customary formula of greeting and a wish for health at the end) to Christian liturgical purposes and perspectives, inserting also prayers, doxologies, witnesses, and hymns into the body of the letter.[22]

The Stoics and the Cynics used letters as a form of instruction, and many of these were written as fictitious letters in the name of earlier philosophers.[23] When Platonists took over from the Stoics and Cynics in late antiquity (from the second century AD onwards), they continued the tradition of giving instruction in the form of letters. Such philosophical letters were not only produced by the pagan Platonists, but Christians such as Gregory of Nyssa, Augustine, and Synesius also used letters as a form of instruction.[24] It can be deduced from this that, in the time of Ephrem, there probably already existed a corpus of fictitious letters containing both philosophical and Christian instruction. Ephrem certainly had precursors, but the way in which he uses the typical features of a letter of friendship does indeed seem highly creative and novel.

In view of the description above, it would perhaps be best to describe Ephrem's five discourses, including the first one with its epis-

(19) White, Saint Paul and the Apostolic Letter Tradition, 436.

(20) Ibid.

(21) Ibid.

(22) Cf. Ibid., 437.

(23) S. K. Stowers, *Letter Writing in Greco-Roman Antiquity* (Philadelphia: Westminster, 1989) (first paperback edition) (Library of Early Christianity Series) 40.

(24) Ibid.

tolary form, with the Syriac name *mimra* (ܡܶܡ̈ܪܳܐ, plural *mimre*). According to Payne-Smith's dictionary, this noun which is derived from the word for "speak," can have the following meanings: "speech;" "diction;" "a discourse;" "sermon;" "homily;" "a treatise;" "a proposition;" and (with ܕܰܬ̰ܪ̈ܥ) "a disputation." In English it can probably best be described as a "discourse." This was a known form of communication in the ancient world, and it often had epistolary features. What remains to be established, is how Ephrem used the fictitious epistolary form as part of his textual strategy.

3. Ephrem's "Letter" to "Hypaṭius:" Why the Form of a Letter?

The following is a translation of the opening paragraphs of Ephrem's first Discourse:

> Ephrem to Hypaṭius, my brother in our Lord: Peace! May peace with everybody increase for us, and may the peace between us abound. May we be firmly established in true peace, and may we make abundant use of the greeting ("peace") of a letter!
>
> Look here, I am writing while I want to, but (I write) what I did not want to write. For, I did not want a letter, which cannot ask or be asked, to be recited[25] between us. I instead wanted a word which asks and is asked, from mouth to ear, to minister between us. A written document is comparable to a body composed of many things, just as a free[26] tongue is comparable to a free mind. For a body cannot add anything to or subtract anything from the measure

(25) The form which is here translated with "be recited" is the Ethpaal of ܐܬܟܪ, and it is used in the following sentence again in the Pael in the sense "to minister." The intention was probably to create a passive-active antithetic parallel, similar to the "ask / be asked" antithesis which occurs twice.

(26) This is the passive participle of the Pael of ܚܠܦ, which can be translated with "authoritative." It can also be used in an absolute sense, however, and understood as "master of himself, having free-will, free" (Payne-Smith 579). Robert Murray argued that the word ܚܪܝܬܐ in Ephrem's view united the ideas of kingship; free will; and responsibility. Cf. R. Murray, The Ephremic Tradition and the Theology of the Environment, *Hugoye* 2.1 (1999), accessed at http://syrcom.cua.edu.Hugoye/ Vol2No1/HV2N1Murray.html on December 11, 2009. Cf. also the discussion of the relationship between Ephrem's and Chrysostom's representations of "authority" as the image of God in I. Kh. Maksutov, Greek (Chrysostom) and Syriac (Ephrem) Aspects of "Authority" as the Image of God, *Scrinium* 4 (2008) 311–317. Beck's translation (Beck, Ephraems Brief…, 79) with "selbstherrliche" ("autocratic") seems too strong, while "authoritative" (the word used by Den Biesen, *Simple and Bold…*,

> of its stature, nor can a document add to or subtract anything from the measure of what is written on it. But a word from the mouth can stay within the measure or go beyond the measure.

There is no doubt that Ephrem intended to create the impression that he was using the style of a letter, since in the address section (*praescriptio*) he refers to the "greeting of a *letter*" (ܫܠܝܚܐ),[27] and in line 9 of the Syriac text he again refers to a "letter" which will be "recited" (ܐܬܩܪܝ Ethpaal) between them. The elements used here, namely the name of the sender, the name of the addressee, the description of the addressee as "my brother in our Lord," and the word "peace" or "greeting" are all typical elements of the genre letter, and more specifically the Christian letter.[28] What I find very interesting, is that the Aramaic letters classified by Fitzmeyer would very often use forms of the stems שגא ("become great") or יתר ("increase"). Ephrem uses the Syriac form of the first stem (ܫܠܝܡ, "may peace *increase*") once and

346) misses the play of "will" on ܨܒ̈ܝ ("want to / do not want to") and ܡܨ̈ܝ ("can / cannot") above and below.

(27) This designation for (an official or commercial) letter already appears in the later books of the Old Testament, in both Hebrew and Aramaic contexts (2 Chr 30:1, 6; Neh 2:7ff; 6:5, 17, 19; Esther 9:26, 29) and was borrowed from Akkadian *egertu*. Cf. D. Pardee, An Overview of Ancient Hebrew Epistolography, *Journal of Biblical Literature* 97 (1978) 321–346, 331. For the use of the designation in extra-biblical Aramaic letters, cf. Fitzmeyer, Some Notes on Aramaic Epistolography, 210.

(28) Cf. the description in White, *Light*…, 198, 200, about the familial relation of correspondents in ancient letters. It seems that honorific descriptions of the relationship ("lady," "lord," "dearest," "my own") are more characteristic of the Roman era than the Ptolemaic era as far as Egypt is concerned. Pardee, Ancient Hebrew Epistolography, 332, lists the form "From X to Y, (greeting)" as typical of the Bar Kokhba correspondence (ca. 135 BC), especially the Aramaic letters (the Hebrew form from this time would begin with the preposition מִן "from"). Cf. Pardee, An Overview…, 333. Pardee also notes that all the Bar Kokhba letters (of which the relevant line is preserved) contain the noun שלום, "greetings" as a one-word greeting formula after the address (Pardee, An Overview…, 338). Interestingly enough, Fitzmeyer refers to the custom in Aramaic letters to refer to the addressee as "brother" or "sister" simply as a title with a more generic connotation, e.g., a father writing to a son would refer to him as "brother." (Fitzmeyer, Some Notes on Aramaic Epistolography, 213).

the Syriac forms of the second (ܫܠܡ, ܫܠܡܢ, "may peace *abound*," "may we make *abundant* use of peace") twice in his *praescriptio*.[29]

Quite a few epistles in the New Testament have most of these elements in their opening lines. I could not find examples of this, but I would imagine that the phrase, "Look here, I am writing…" could also be a typical way of introducing the body of a letter. But instead of explaining why he is writing, Ephrem immediately contrasts the act of writing a letter itself with the possibility of a visit to the addressee.

It is also interesting that the reference to a visit also seems to be a typical feature of ancient letters to friends or family members. In quite a number of the epistles in the New Testament, also, there is a reference to a future personal visit of the author to the addressee (or vice versa). Since one of the purposes of a letter is to make contact when it is not possible or feasible to pay a visit, the two modes of communication are often explicitly or implicitly compared to one another in ancient letters.[30] It is this convention which Ephrem uses to introduce the first of a series of polarities which basically sets out his premises for conducting a theological enquiry. After elaborating on each of these polarities, which in each case leads to some conclusion that it is important to preserve a balance between extremes, or at least not to fall into

(29) Examples from Fitzmeyer, Some Notes on Aramaic Epistolography, 214–215: "May all the gods be much (שגיא) (concerned) for the well-being (שלם) of my lord at all times" and "May the God of Heaven be much concerned (שגיא) for the well-being (שלם) of our lord at all times, and may he show you favour before Darius the King and the princes of the palace a thousand times more (יתיר) than now..."

(30) Cf. Rom 1:10, 13, 15:15, 22–32; 1 Cor 4:18–21; 2 Cor 1:13–16; Phil 1:8, 27; 2:24; 1 Thess 2:18; 1 Tim 3:14; 2 Tim 4:9; Titus 3:12; Rev 2:5, 16, 25, 3:11. White says that, "at best, the letter remained only a substitute, and consequently, we can understand how a visit became the ideal means of enhancing the correspondents' relationship with each other. In the case of familiar letters, almost all requested or projected visits appear to be mutually beneficial to the correspondents, and thus such conventions properly contribute to the general purpose of the letter opening and closing by furthering the correspondents' personal relationship." (White, *Light…*, 202). Many ancient Papyri letters record a communication between people who were not far removed from one another in distance, but there are many examples in which the author expresses the desire to visit the addressee as soon as circumstances allow. Cf., e.g., White, *Light…*, 166 (a letter from Julius Apollinarios to Julius Sabinus, 26 March 107 AD) and 177 (a letter from Terentianus to Tasoucharion, early 2nd century AD).

the trap of overemphasizing any of the two, he will again return to the initial antithesis between writing a letter and paying a visit in person. In a number of these polarities which develop from the initial antithesis, one cannot help but get the idea that the relationship between "Ephrem" and "Hypatius" basically reflects the relationship between humankind and God. Ephrem is explaining the dangers and joys of approaching God in theological reflection.[31]

The question used as a heading for this paragraph can therefore be easily answered. Ephrem uses the convention of writing a letter so that he can lay down the rules for any endeavour to conduct theology. The convention of letters to refer to the antithesis between writing to or visiting somebody in person serves for Ephrem as a symbolic directive of how to approach God: driven by love, but tempered by fear; avoiding audacity but motivated by boldness; guided by simpleness in order to avoid probing too deep; and aware of the fact that free choice rather than external influences regulate our life. This last opposition, between external determination and free will, is one of the main issues Ephrem has with the false teachings. After having investigated a number of reasons why he chose to write a letter to Hypatius instead of coming to visit him, he comes to the conclusion that none of these polarities played a role in his decision, that it was purely a matter of choice for him to write rather than pay a visit![32] It thus seems as if Ephrem is demonstrating certain basic theological truths in a playful way by simulating the form of a long letter to a dear friend. The purpose would be a strategy of enlivenment; a technique to present his material in a more interesting and humorous, and therefore memorable, way.

4. Stylistic Features of Ephrem's "Letter" to "Hypatius"

As has been explained in the previous paragraph, Ephrem refers to the antithesis of a letter versus a visit or, in different words, a (fixed) written document versus a (free) spoken word, a number of times in his opening paragraphs. After this opening dichotomy, he

(31) He compares his (unworthy) approach of Hypatius to Moses' being allowed to approach Mount Sinai; his desire to see his friend with Moses' desire to see God; and his fear of approaching his friend with Peter's dilemma over love for Christ and fear for the waves, as well as the fear and love of the tax-gatherer in the parable who went to pray in the temple, and the attitude of the "friend" in Jesus' parable of the man who went to ask his neighbour for bread in the middle of the night.

(32) In the Syriac text of Overbeck, 43 towards the middle of the page.

will return to this opposition about another eight times (depending on how one separates the topics from one another). He subsequently argues that he wanted to see his friend eye to eye, rather than letter to eye, but that he could not come because his face was not worthy of the pure sight of his friend's eyes. A little later, he mentions that his friend asked him to come even though he was unworthy, and that he would have come out of love, but that "discernment" prevented him from coming. This discernment turns out to be the balance between love and fear of the encounter, which would be a kind of contest. But, on the other hand, it would not matter who would "win" the encounter, since both would have benefited and "error" would have been overcome by truth. Even if neither of them gained anything from the conversation, it would have been enough to see his friend. He then compares this to Moses' desire to see God, noting that we do not have eyes to see God, but we do have a mind with which we can contemplate his beauty.

The opposition between "fear" and "love" is then explicated further, illustrating the opposition with three biblical examples: Peter overcame the fear of the waves through his love for Christ and walked on the water. Fear got the better of him, however, teaching us to be afraid of the waves of controversy, since bodies drown in the waves of the sea, but minds sink in the waves of investigation. The tax collector who went to the temple to pray in the parable of Jesus teaches us how beneficial a balance between love and fear can be, but the parable of the man who went to ask of his friend bread when he was already in bed teaches us that too much modesty could be harmful. We may approach the open door and the wakeful treasurer with much more boldness than the closed door of a sleeping neighbour. There should thus also be a balance between fear and boldness, since boldness is rewarded in the parable. Without explicitly referring again to the visit to his friend, he discusses the balance between simplicity and deep investigation before arriving at the main theme of the first Discourse, namely human free will. A final reference to the visit to his friend is made when he concludes that, if the will is one, with one part of it compelling and the other part being compelled, he was compelled not to come purely by his own free will.

The theme of human free will is, however, not only introduced halfway through the first Discourse. It is hinted at right at the beginning, and it is mentioned a number of times in the long discussions that ensue. I would like to point this out in the following stylistic analysis

of the opening paragraphs of the "letter" to "Hypaṭius," in order to elaborate somewhat on its literary and rhetorical features.

Look here, I am writing while I want to (ܟܬ݂), but (I write) what I did not want (ܟܬ݂ ܠ) to write. For, I did not want (ܟܬ݂ ܠ) a letter, which cannot ask or be asked, to be recited (ܐܬܐܡܪ) between us. I instead wanted a word (ܡܠܬܐ) which asks and is asked, from mouth to ear, to minister (ܐܡܫܟ) between us. A written document is comparable to a body composed of many things, just as a free tongue is comparable to a free mind. For a body cannot (ܟ݂ ܠ) add anything to or subtract anything from the measure of its stature, nor can a document add to or subtract anything from the measure of what is written on it. But a word from the mouth can (ܟ݂) stay within the measure or go beyond the measure. For Divinity gave us the word/speech (ܡܠܬܐ) which is free (ܚܠܦܬ) like herself, in order that free speech might serve (ܫܡܫ) our independent free will (ܚܠܦܬ ܪܥܝܢ). And through speech, too, we become the likeness of its Giver, inasmuch as by means of it we have impulse and thought about what is good; and not only about what is good, but also God, the fountain of good things we learn to know through speech, the gift which comes from him. For through this (speech) which is like God, we are clothed with the likeness of God. For, divine teaching is the seal of (human) minds, by means of which people who learn are sealed that they may become an image of him who knows all. For, if by free will Adam was the image of God, it is most praiseworthy when, by knowledge of the truth, and by true conduct, a human becomes the image of God. For, that independence exists in these things also.	• I want to write (+) : I did not want to write (–) • not want (–) a **letter** to *be recited* (cannot (–) ASK or BE ASKED) : rather (+) a **word** to *minister* (can (+) ASK and BE ASKED) • **document ≅ composite body** :: *free* tongue ≅ *free* mind • a **body** cannot (–) *add* or *subtract* ≅ **document** cannot (–) *add* or *subtract* :: a **word** can (+) *stay within the measure* or *go beyond* (a **word/speech** = *free*) • DIVINITY (*free*) gave **speech** (*free*) so that *free* **speech** can *minister* to our *free* WILL • **Speech** makes us the image of God (can think about GOOD THINGS; about God the fountain of GOOD THINGS) • **Speech** (like God) helps us to KNOW *God* who KNOWS *all*, to be CLOTHED with his likeness, to be SEALED with his image • **Adam** was the image of God *through* his FREE WILL. **We** become his image *through* KNOWLEDGE OF THE TRUTH and *through* TRUE CONDUCT

For, animals are not able (ܠܐ ܡܫܟܚ) to form in themselves a pure thought about God, because they do not have speech, that which forms in us the image (ܕܡܘܬܐ = εἰκών) of the truth. We have received the gift of speech not that we may be in our conduct as animals that do not speak, but that we may imitate in our actions God, the giver of speech. How great is speech, a gift which came to make those who receive it like its Giver! And because animals do not have speech, they are not able to be the likeness of our minds. For the mind then, because it has speech, it is a *great disgrace* when it is not clothed with the likeness of God. It is a still *more grievous shame* when animals resemble people, and people do not resemble God. But the *torture increases threefold* when this intermediate one (humanity) forsakes the good above him and degrades himself from his natural rank to put on the likeness of animals in his conduct.	• Animals have no **speech** (–), thus no **thought** (–) of God, and can thus not (–) be the IMAGE of the truth • **We** have (+) **speech** and must (+) IMITATE **God**, the giver of **speech** • **Animals** do not (–) have **speech**, thus they cannot (–) IMITATE **us** • It is a shame when **we**, who have (+) speech, do not (–) IMITATE **God**, the giver of speech • It is a greater shame when **animals** RESEMBLE (+) **people**, but **people** do not (–) RESEMBLE **God** • The biggest disgrace is when **people** IMITATE (+) **animals** instead (–) of **God**

The style of Ephrem's writing in this prose text resembles that of his poetic sermons in certain respects very closely.[33] We find in this small

(33) The following (brief) analysis of Ephrem's arguments and the use he makes of rhetorical figures shows that the Syriac-speaking church had a deep appreciation for such techniques. The similarity between the style of this prose refutation and Ephrem's *madraše* proves what M. F. BIRD has stated regarding the use of rhetorical techniques in Paul's letters, namely that "the prevalence of rhetoric as a feature of Greek education affected all genres of communication and so ancient rhetorical theory can contribute to an understanding of the letters written by ancient writers, especially those who were well educated like Paul, Luke, the writer to the Hebrews, and Ignatius of Antioch." See M. F. BIRD, Reassessing a Rhetorical Approach to Paul's Letters, *Expository Times* 119 (2008) 374–379, 376. BIRD makes the useful distinction between *functional* rhetoric and *formal* rhetoric (BIRD, Reassessing…, 379). For analyses of various *madraše* of Ephrem, see my articles: P. J. BOTHA, Antithesis and argument in the hymns of Ephrem the Syrian, *Hervormde Teologiese Studies* 44/4 (1988) 581–595; IDEM, The Rhetoric Function of Polarity in One of Ephrem the Syrian's Hymns on the Church, *Journal for Semitics* 3/2 (1991) 188–201, and

section of his first Discourse the same affinity for antitheses which serve to lay the foundations for his polarities in the *madraše*, and the same argumentative style. This section of text can be described (as is the case with the whole first half of the Discourse) as a kind of allegory in which the hypothetical dilemma of choosing whether to visit his friend or send a letter to him already teaches the reader that this is a matter of choice in which the free will of the author plays a decisive role. The repetitive use of "want" and "not want," "can" and "cannot" in this section of the text already plays on the human ability to choose freely. In fact, Ephrem's very first sentence after the *praescriptio*, "I write because I want to," hints at the conclusion about human free will which he only arrives at on p. 43 of the Syriac text in Overbeck's edition: "By whom was I compelled not to come except by my own will?"

Ephrem argues that a letter is like a body, fixed in stature. A conversation is as flexible as the mind of a person, for the ability to speak (and thus think) is the way in which God made us in his image. This ability thus gives us freedom to choose to imitate God, the fountainhead of goodness, and distinguishes us from animals which do not have speech, cannot think or know God, and thus only act from instinct. Ephrem does not fail to point out the moral responsibility this freedom brings with it: Humanity occupies the middle position between God and animals, and has not only the freedom, but also the responsibility to imitate God who is free and good, rather than the animals that have no idea about God or what is good.[34]

The ability to discuss the differences between a letter and free speech thus constitutes a (humorous or ironic) proof of the argument which Ephrem is subtly putting on the table (in a *written* document!), namely that the ability to speak is proof of free will, since this distinguishes humans from animals and must therefore define the way in which we were created in the image of God. As he himself confesses halfway through the first Discourse, Ephrem is writing for friends, not yet arguing with opponents.[35] And as is the case in his poetic discourses, which were intended for use in gatherings of like-minded Chris-

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Idem, Argument and Art in Ephrem the Syrian's Hymn "De Fide" LXXVIII, *Acta Patristica et Byzantina* 7 (1996) 21–36.

(34) Here he makes good use of the argument *a minori ad maius* — cf. the translation above for the words "a great disgrace," "still more grievous shame," and "the torture increases threefold."

(35) Cf. the Overbeck's edition of the text, p. 36 towards the end of the page. The enemies, as Den Biesen remarks, are the Manicheans (Den Biesen,

tians, he puts a number of rhetorical techniques to good use to sweep his audience along rather than to convince opponents with foolproof logical arguments that build on one another.

The listener is immediately drawn into the debate by the presentation of a well-known dilemma whether to pay a visit or post a letter. He or she would be sympathetically involved and predisposed towards the argument that a visit would have been better since a free discussion could then have ensued. Antitheses which are constructed with the help of the same words plus negations,[36] or with active and passive forms,[37] or with hypernyms and hyponyms,[38] or with subject and object descriptions,[39] lead the members of his audience into a mode of "either this or that" thinking. He further adorns the arguments with the help of comparisons,[40] metaphors[41] and exclamations.[42] He also manages to jump from one level of discussion to another through using the multiple references of the word ܡܠܬܐ which can designate "word" in Syriac, but can also refer to "the faculty of speech or thought" or even "reason."[43] He consequently moves from the concept of a "free word" to that of "free speech" without stopping to explain the shift. Biblical allusions with a symbolic interpretation are thrown in to further strengthen the argument.[44] In the end, there can be no

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Simple and Bold…, 212 n. 4); the Bardaisanites and Marcionites are only occasionally dealt with.

(36) E.g., "want" vs. "did not want," "able" vs. "not able."

(37) E.g., "be recited" vs. "minister" (using different stem formations of the same verb); "asks" vs. "is asked" (using a passive form).

(38) E.g. "what is good" vs. "the fountain of what is good;" "people who learn" vs. "him who knows all."

(39) E.g., the "gift" vs. the "giver."

(40) A document is like a body in that it cannot (–) add to or subtract from itself; a free tongue is like a free mind which can (+) keep to a measure or transcend it. Note the avoidance of any negative description when it comes to the tongue and the mind, in itself indicating the superiority of free speech.

(41) E.g., man as the "image" of God; divine teaching as a "seal."

(42) The one exclamation in this section of text is found near its end: "How great is speech, a gift which came to make those who receive it like its giver!"

(43) A "free tongue" becomes a "free word," and this in turn becomes "free speech."

(44) Adam as being created in the image of God. The image character is visible in the human ability to speak. Elsewhere, Ephrem makes a connection between God's breathing into the nostrils of the human which he made and

argument against such a master of language's assertion that language distinguishes us from animals and exemplifies the freedom of the human will! Demonstrating the freedom of speech, he produces a very convincing argument that we can choose and that we should choose to imitate God who gave speech.

5. Conclusion

The first half or so of Ephrem's "First Discourse for Hypatius" is a discourse on free will in which he also sets out the parameters for conducting a theological investigation. He would argue that the human faculty of intelligence cautions Christians to approach theology with a healthy balance between respect and love for God, between audacity and a fear of being bold, between a preference for ignorance and an unhealthy inquisitiveness to probe into that which should remain hidden for us. These polarities are formulated with the help of a fictive dilemma in which he would have his audience believe he was caught, namely to write a letter to his friend with whom he would discuss these things, or to pay a visit. But right from the opening paragraphs, from the first sentence of his "letter," he is using the epistolary form as an epistemological foundation for his perception that God gave us the freedom of choice in all our actions, and the faculty of discernment to be able to use free will wisely.

SUMMARY

This paper investigates the style of Ephrem's first prose discourse against the false doctrines, and the reasons why he chose the form of a fictive letter to begin it with. It seems that Ephrem used this literary convention very cleverly to introduce the basic premises of his particular brand of symbolic theology. He used the setting of writing a letter to someone or paying a visit to that person as a directive for the way in which God should be approached. The epistolary style in particular also enabled him to express his perception that God gave us the freedom of choice in all our actions, and the faculty of discernment to be able to use free will wisely.

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the human ability to speak (*Carmina Nisibena* 44:1, cf. Beck, Ephraems Brief…, 81, n. 12): Since God did not breathe into the nostrils of the animals, their mouth is mute. Later in this Refutation of Ephrem, he uses scenes from the Bible (Moses' desire to see God, Peter's walking on the water, etc.) in what can be described as "example stories," a feature of classical rhetorical discourse. See Bird, Rhetorical Approach…, 378 for examples from the Romans.

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CHRYSOSTOM ON LETTERS AND LETTER-WRITING

Introduction

Christianity was a movement of letter-writers.[1] More than nine thousand letters[2] written by Christians in antiquity have been preserved for us. More specifically, collections of extant letters from the patristic golden age are surprisingly numerous and large.[3] Yet, in 1973 Doty[4] said, "up to the present time epistolary research has remained scattered and fragmentary. There are few if any comprehensive treatments of the epistle in English, and to my knowledge there is no small but inclusive presentation of the epistolary literature of late Hellenism and primitive Christianity…". Since then several good publications in this field of study have come to light,[5] but the situation has still not improved drastically. There is therefore still much work to be done. Chrysostom, for example, was an ardent letter-writer, and we possess more than 240 letters of his.[6] However, these letters have not been properly studied to this day. But not only these letters, but also his oth-

(1) S. K. Stowers, *Letter Writing in Greco-Roman Antiquity* (Philadelphia: Westminster Press, 1989) 15.

(2) I will not make a distinction between a letter and an epistle. Adolf Deissmann was criticized for his sharp distinction between "letter" and "epistle"; cf. A. J. Malherbe, *Ancient Epistolary Theorists* (Atlanta: Scholars Press, 1988) 1.

(3) M. R. P. McGuire, Letters and Letter Carriers in Christian Antiquity, *The Classical World* 53 (1960) 152.

(4) W. G. Doty, *Letters in Primitive Christianity* (Philadelphia: Fortress Press, 1973) ix.

(5) For example the series: G. H. R. Horsley, and S. R. Llewelyn, *New Documents Illustrating Early Christianity* (Australia: Macquarie University, 1984–) and H.-J. Klauck, *Ancient Letters and the New Testament: A Guide to Context and Exegesis* (Waco: Baylor University Press, 2006).

(6) P. Allen and W. Mayer, John Chrysostom, in: P. F. Esler (ed.), *The Early Christian World* (London: Routledge, 2000) 1131. See also P. R. Coleman-Norton, The Correspondence of S. John Chrysostom (with special reference to his Epistles to Pope S. Innocent I), *Classical Philology* 24 (1929) 279.

er works give us valuable information on the art of writing letters, and also on the practice of the reading of letters of his time. In this paper we will discuss the place and function of letters in the ancient world based on what Chrysostom tells us about this issue. This information will open up for us interesting aspects of the social life of people in Chrysostom's society, since letters are, more than any other genre, embedded in the social contexts and interactions of particular historical moments.[7] We will also see how Chrysostom uses his knowledge on letter-writing to explain certain aspects of the New Testament letters.

One should remember that ancient societies were more stable than ours and were not subject to the same rapid changes that we are used to. That is why it is valid to use information that Chrysostom gives to interpret Biblical literature from four centuries earlier. Chrysostom, for example, would often refer to a New Testament practice and then add "as is the custom also now among us" (καθάπερ καὶ νῦν ἐφ' ἡμῶν ἐστιν).[8] This shows that there were still very many similarities between the world of the New Testament and the world of Chrysostom.

The Function of Letters

Letters played a very important role in the ancient world. Chrysostom tells us that the Athenians even made a public monument of the epistles of Plato.[9] It is, however, unclear what this monument looked like.

In the hands of someone who cannot read, an epistle is merely paper (χάρτην) and ink (μέλαν).[10] But a person who can read "will both hear a voice and will hold converse with the absent." The function of the letter is therefore to connect the author and the reader. But one could also ask someone else to write a letter on their behalf. One could then merely dictate one's message to that person. Chrysostom calls such a writer an *amanuensis* (ὑπογραφεύς).[11]

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(7) Cf. S. K. Stowers, Greek and Latin Letters, in: D. N. Freedman (ed.), *The Anchor Bible Dictionary* (New York: Doubleday, 1992) IV. 290.

(8) *In epistulam ii ad Thessalonicenses*, *PG* 62, 469. 42–43.

(9) The Greek says: καὶ τὰς ἐπιστολὰς ἀνέθεσαν δημοσίᾳ Ἀθηναῖοι τὰς Πλάτωνος. It is difficult to translate the Greek, but it seems that the meaning is that the Athenians erected a public monument of the epistles of Plato. Perhaps Chrysostom means that these letters were copied onto stone as inscriptions (cf. Stowers, Greek and Latin Letters, IV. 291).

(10) *In epistulam i ad Corinthios*, *PG* 61, 56. 14.

(11) *In epistulam ad Romanos*, *PG* 60, 677. 45–46.

Most people were eager to receive letters from friends.[12] Writers of letters always longed to receive a reply from their addressees.[13] And when they received a reply on their letter, they were even more willing to reply again and that led to a vital exchange of letters between correspondents.[14] Letters were also often read over and over again, with much thoroughness.[15]

Yet, people were not always eager to read or to listen to letters which were being read. It was much easier to listen to an orator. It therefore happened that people would often slight letters (πρὸς τὰ γράμματα καταφρονητικώτερον οἱ ἄνθρωποι ἔχουσιν).[16] Chrysostom therefore asked Olympias to "have a care for the letters" (φρόντισον τὰς ἐπιστολάς).[17]

Addressees and Subject Matter

Friends wrote letters to one another. Chrysostom sent a letter to his friend Theodore.[18] In this letter he pleaded with his friend Theodore to return to the monastic life. He also wrote several letters to Olympias to cheer her up.[19] And he also wrote another letter to check the excess of her distress (καταστεῖλαι σου τῆς ὀδύνης τὴν φλεγμονήν).[20] Chrysostom pleaded with Olympias that she write him a letter to inform him about her state of health.[21] He said that she should also write to him and tell him whether her despondency had left her.[22] She had told him that her sickness was caused by her despondency.[23] Later on Chrysostom emphasized that despondency could cause bodily infirmity.[24]

There was also a lively correspondence between church officials. We hear about the bishop Hilarius who asked Chrysostom permission to go to his own country to attend to matters and to come back there-

(12) *Epistulae ad Olympiadem* 17, 1. 44–48.
(13) *Ad Theodorum lapsum lib*. ii. sec. vi. 20–24.
(14) *Epistulae ad Olympiadem* 9. 5. 5–7.
(15) Ibid., 9. 4. 36–39.
(16) *In epistulam i ad Timotheum*, *PG* 62, 505. 58–59.
(17) *Epistulae ad Olympiadem* 9. 5. 51.
(18) *Ad Theodorum lapsum lib*. ii.
(19) *Epistulae ad Olympiadem* 17. 1. 44–48; 10. 1. 14–16.
(20) Ibid., 8. 1. 2.
(21) Ibid., 2. 1. 9.
(22) Ibid., 2. 1. 1112.
(23) Ibid., 17. 1. 44–48.
(24) Ibid., 17. 4. 43–47.

after.[25] Chrysostom wrote to him and also to the elder Helladius. We have also letters from Chrysostom to Innocent, bishop of Rome, and vice versa.[26] Chrysostom discussed ecclesiastical events in the Church at Alexandria with Innocent, bishop of Rome.[27] Stowers[28] says that the letter was an important tool for the changing church. It was not a matter of the lone itinerant apostle and his fellow workers struggling to build small churches over a large area. Letters even caused local disputes to become empire-wide theological controversies.

The Emperor and Letters

It was very common for people to write letters to the Emperor.[29] In the morning the king would sit on his throne in the royal courts. His officials would then bring to him innumerable letters which were sent to him from all quarters.[30] They could also send letters to the Emperor to ask him to show mercy. These letters to the Emperor would be read in the court.[31] The judges made notes and later on it was brought to the notice of the Emperor.

The Emperor also wrote letters to his people. He would, for example, announce new taxes by sending out letters.[32] He even wrote letters on ecclesiastical matters. Chrysostom tells us, for example, that they asked the Emperor to convene a synod. The emperor would then send out imperial letters (γραμμάτων βασιλικῶν) in every direction (πανταχοῦ διαπεμφθέντων), convoking men from all quarters (πάντοθεν πάντας συναγόντων).[33]

The Emperor could also send letters (γράμματα) to release prisoners in jail. These letters caused joy and gladness.[34] The letter (ἐπιστολή) of the Emperor needed only a few words (γράμματα) when he wanted to set free those who were liable to countless accusations.[35] Similarly,

(25) *Epistulae ad Olympiadem* 9. 5. 42–53.
(26) *Ad Innocentiam* 52. 530ff.
(27) *Ad Innocentium papam* 52. 530ff.
(28) Stowers, *Letter Writing...*, 44.
(29) *De sancton hieromartyre Babyla*, *PG* 50, 533. 14.
(30) *De profectu evangelii*, *PG* 51, 314. 32–36.
(31) *Ad populum Antiochenum* 49. 174. 58–175. 2.
(32) Ibid., 49. 73. 3–7.
(33) *Ad Innocentiam papam* 52. 532. 41–48.
(34) *In Acta apostolorum*, *PG* 60, 26. 10–11; cf. also PG 60, 365. 26–27.
(35) *Ad illuminandos catecheses*, *PG* 49, 227. 1–5.

with a mere letter consisting of a few words he could also assign the highest honour to other people.[36]

These letters of the Emperor obviously carried the authority of a decree, but they were nevertheless called letters. Paul's letters were also sometimes called both ἐπιστολαί and γράμματα.[37] Chrysostom uses the words ἐπιστολαί and γράμματα synonymously when he refers to his own letters[38] and when he refers to letters of other people.[39] The only difference between the use of these two words is that when the word γράμματα is used to refer to letters, it is always used in the plural, while the word ἐπιστολή can be used in both the singular or plural.

Chrysostom praised the Emperor for writing a letter at Easter-time to instruct the liberation of everybody in prison. He did this out of respect for Easter and said: "If only it were possible for me to raise even the dead" (εἴθε μοι δυνατὸν ἦν καὶ τοὺς νεκροὺς ἀναστῆσαι).[40] Later on in 387 at Antioch a mob threw down and demolished the statues of the Imperial family in a sedition caused by the imposition of extra tax. The Emperor was furious and considered destroying the city entirely. The people were in fear and Chrysostom then comforted them by telling them that when the Emperor arrives, the priest would read this self-same letter to the Emperor and remind him of his own philanthropy.

The Reception of Imperial Letters

When the letters (γράμματα) of a king were about to be read in a theatre, there had to be complete silence (σιγῆς πολλῆς γενομένης).[41] Elsewhere[42] he calls it a "most profound silence" (τῆς ἡσυχίας τῆς βαθυτάτης). Everybody had then to be composed (ἅπαντας δεῖ κατεστάλθαι) and had to stand "with soul and ear erect" (ὀρθαῖς ταῖς ψυχαῖς καὶ ταῖς ἀκοαῖς).[43] Chrysostom refers to this practice in his time in order to convince his

(36) *Ad illuminandos catecheses*, *PG* 49, 227. 1–5.

(37) *In epistulam ad Romanos*, *PG* 60, 671. 57–67; 395, 672. 5–7.

(38) *Ad Theodorum lapsum* lib. ii. sec. vi. 4–6; cf. also *Epistulae ad Olympiadem* 9. 4. 31–32.

(39) *De profectu evangelii*, *PG* 51, 314. 34–37; *Epistulae ad Olympiadem* 2. 1. 7–13; 2. 1. 19–20; 10. 1. 14–16.

(40) *Ad populum Antiochenum* 49. 84. 32–47.

(41) *In Matthaeum*, *PG* 57, 24. 18–19.

(42) Ibid., 285. 24.

(43) Ibid., 24. 18–19.

congregation that they too should maintain a mystic silence (σιγῆς μυ̃ τικῆς) in the Church if they wanted to listen to God's message.

Chrysostom lists all the people who had to stand up, namely the deputies, governors, senate and people (ὕπατοι καὶ ὕπαρχοι καὶ βουλὴ καὶ δῆμος). [44] It seems that he adheres to protocol since he names them from the highest to the lowest rank, from the deputies to the people! Chrysostom adds that if someone should suddenly leap up and cry out, he would suffer the utmost punishment, since such an action would be regarded as having been insolent (ὑβρικώς) to the Emperor.

It is not clear whether the people were summoned to the theatre primarily to listen to the reading of the emperor's letters, or whether the emperor's letters were read in the theatre since everybody was already in the theatre to watch another event. However, Chrysostom refers in another homily as well to the people in the theatre who had to maintain silence in order that the letters of the emperor could be read. In that homily he refers to the people in the theatre as οἱ θεαταί (the spectators).[45] One may perhaps deduct from this that the imperial authorities used the visitors to the theatre as a captive audience to listen to the message of the Emperor.

But letters from the Emperor were also read in the Church. Chrysostom says that when there were matters of importance (περί τινων ἀναγκαίων), the emperor would send a person wearing a golden girdle (ἔχων ζώην χρυσῆν).[46] People were always eager to come to the church to listen to what was written in these imperial letters. It was not even necessary for the deacon to ask them to be quiet when the person with the golden girdle stood up to read the letters. They paid attention to the message. Chrysostom says that he often noticed this when letters of the kings were read in his church. He then complains that his congregation was less eager to come to the Church to listen to the Word of God.

(44) *In Matthaeum*, *PG* 57, 285. 24.

(45) Ibid., 285. 20.

(46) *In epistulam ii ad Thessalonicenses*, *PG* 62, 484. 46–57.

Letter-Carriers

There was no public system for the conveyance of private letters in antiquity.[47] White[48] says that the best organized postal system in antiquity was the Roman *cursus publicus* which was established by Emperor Augustus. But this system could not be used for private letters. It was used to carry military dispatches and other official documents. There is little evidence for a private use of the Roman postal system. Private individuals used friends, casual acquaintances or servants as letter-carriers.[49] It was not always easy to find trustworthy letter-carriers (γραμαμτηφόρων).[50] Letter-writers always feared that letters would not be delivered quickly and safely (ταχέως καὶ ἀσφαλῶς) and that it would be cast aside (παραρριφῆναι). It was especially a problem if your letter-carrier arrived with a letter and the addressee was not on the spot. One would then expect the letter-carrier to at least take the letter to friends so that they would then take on the responsibility of delivering the letter to the addressee. That is why Chrysostom asks that his letter be delivered "by the hands of some discreet man, who has a head on his shoulders (διά τινος ἀνθρώπου συνετοῦ, ἐγκέφαλον ἔχοντος).[51] When one was lucky enough to find a letter-carrier, one would use the opportunity to write "thick and long letters" (πυκνὰς καὶ μακρὰς ἐπιστολάς).

Different kinds of people were used as letter-carriers. Chrysostom even asked proconsular soldiers (τῶν ἐπαρχικῶν) and Anatolius his servant to deliver letters to Olympias.[52] One could also ask the recipient of his letter to pass on other letters to other addressees.[53] Chrysostom asked the deacons Paul and Cyriacus to take his letter to Innocent, bishop of Rome.[54] And he asked the presbyter John and the deacon

(47) S. R. Llewelyn, Sending Letters in the Ancient World: Paul and the Philippians, *Tyndale Bulletin* 46.1 (1995) 339–340.

(48) J. L. White, *Light from Ancient Letters* (Philadelphia: Fortress Press, 1986) 214. See also S. R. Llewelyn, The Official Postal System of Antiquity, in: Idem, *New Documents Illustrating Early Christianity* (Australia: Macquarie University, 1994).

(49) E. M. Jersey and A. P. Kazhdan, Epistolography, in: A. P. Kazhdan (ed.), *The Oxford Dictionary of Byzantium* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1991) 719.

(50) *Epistulae ad Olympiadem* 8. 11. 15–17.

(51) Ibid., 9. 5. 51–53.

(52) Ibid., 9. 4. 32–33.

(53) Ibid., 9. 5. 5–6.

(54) *Ad Innocentiam papam* 52. 530. 38–42.

Paul to deliver the second letter which they had received from him to Bishop Innocent.[55]

Chrysostom tells us an interesting account about how a bishop returned to Antioch with a letter from the Emperor in which the Emperor granted them grace despite a sedition in the city. The bishop realized that his journey would take too long and he wanted the city to receive the good news. He therefore asked a man who was skilled in horsemanship (ἑτερόν τινα τῶν ἵππους ἐλαύνειν εἰδότων ἠξίωσε προλαβεῖν) to take the letter to the city so that the inhabitants could rejoice.[56]

Letter-Carriers Were Also Messengers

The writer of a letter would always like to keep his letter short, and would therefore not write everything in his letter. He would then give orally additional information to the letter-carrier and that would make the person even more respected (αἰδεσιμώτερον) because he too could relate some news and amplify the message.[57] Chrysostom says that is why Paul said to the Colossians that Tychicus would tell them all the news about him (Col. 4:7).

Jeffreys and Kazhdan[58] say that the real subject matter of a letter was often delivered orally by the courier, and that letters frequently contained generalities rather than specific details. I think Jeffreys and Kazhdan are wrong. If their assumption were correct, it would make letters superfluous. Chrysostom says that Paul conveyed all matters related to doctrine and exhortation by means of letters. But those which were matters of bare recital, he entrusted to the bearer of the letter. That is why we read in Ephesians 6: 21 that Paul says that Tychicus will make to them known all things.[59]

But letter-carriers could also endorse the contents of the letter which they carried. Judas and Silas, for example, spoke to the congregation after they had delivered their message (Acts 15:32). Chrysostom says that it was necessary for Judas and Silas to also exhort by word (παρακαλοῦσιτῷ λόγῳ) the people to ensure that nobody would be suspicious

(55) *Ad Innocentiam papam* 52. 535. 43–46.

(56) *Ad populum Antiochenum* 49. 220. 33–34.

(57) *In epistulam ad Colossenses*, *PG* 62, 374. 48–49; cf. B. Leyerle, Communication and Travel, in: Esler, *The Early Christian World...*, 470.

(58) Jersey and Kazhdan, Epistolography..., 720.

(59) *In epistulam ad Ephesios*, *PG* 62, 170. 10–15.

of Paul and Barnabas.[60] Paul and Barnabas could also have done that, but the fact that two respected people repeated the message, confirmed the credibility of Paul and Barnabas.

The Forging of Letters

It was easy to forge letters.[61] Both Josephus and Suetonius tell us about letters that were forged to do damage to someone.[62] An author would do everything possible to prevent the forging of his letters. He would, for example, personally sign the letter.[63] There were several attempts to pretend that letters were written by Paul.[64] That is why Paul refers to letters "supposed to have come from us" (2 Thess. 2:2). Regarding Acts 15:32 Chrysostom says that had Paul and Barnabas came alone with an oral message, the congregation in Antioch might have thought that they gave their account of the decision only. But if these two did bring a letter with them, it could still be doubted whether the letter was genuine. That is why two respected people, Judas and Silas, were sent with a letter, and with Paul and Barnabas![65]

Emotions

Chrysostom often refers to how difficult it is to express one's feelings in a letter. He, for example, wrote a letter to his friend Theodore, who later became bishop of Mopsuestia. Theodore had fallen in love with a certain Hermione and decided to give up the monastic life. Chrysostom wrote a letter to him, urging him to return to monasticism. He admits that it is very difficult to express one's emotions in a letter and says: "If it were possible to express tears and groans by means of writing I would have filled the letter..."[66]

He says that Paul too could not show his tears or cries of grief in his letters. That is why he ardently desired to be present with them (cf. Gal. 4:20). Paul says that if he were present with the Galatians, he would "change his voice" (ἀλλάξαι τὴν φωνήν μου). Chrysostom inter-

(60) *In Acta apostolorum*, *PG* 60, 243. 2.

(61) *In epistulam ii ad Thessalonicenses*, *PG* 62, 469. 30–31.

(62) Cf. G. J. Bahr, Paul and Letter Writing in the Fifth Century, *The Catholic Bible Quarterly* 28 (1966) 476.

(63) *In epistulam ii ad Thessalonicenses*, *PG* 62, 469. 36–42.

(64) Ibid., 481. 60–63.

(65) *In Acta apostolorum*, *PG* 60, 242. 38ff.

(66) *Ad Theodorum lapsum lib*. ii. sec i. 1.

prets it as "a change to lamentation, to shed tears, to turn everything into mourning" (ἀλλάξαι τὸν ὀλοφυρμὸν, ποιῆσαι καὶ δάκρυα, καὶ πάντα εἰς θρῆνον ἐπισπάσασθαι).[67]

The Length of Letters

There is an optimal length for a letter. Gregory Nazianzenus, for example, said that "one should not write on and on when the subject matter is limited, nor be stingy with words when there is much to say."[68] Chrysostom was very sensitive not to exceed the normal length of a letter, and he would even omit important matters in order to stay within the conventional length of a letter.[69] However, when Chrysostom passionately pleaded with his friend Theodore to return to the monastic life, he admitted that he had "exceeded the due measure of a letter" (τὸ μέτρον ἐξελθὼν τῆς ἐπιστολῆς) and had written too long a letter.[70] It was also Chrysostom's intention to send long letters to Olympias. He said that he would send her letters that would exceed the limits (ὑπερβαινούσας μέτρον) of former communications.[71] Elsewhere he asks her to inform him whether she likes long letters, and promises her that if she does, he would definitely write longer letters.[72] It is interesting to see how often Chrysostom writes about the length of letters. In his letter to bishop Innocent about the events in Alexandria, Chrysostom says that he could not give too much detail in his letter, since he would then exceed not only the limits of a letter (ἐπιστολῆς), but even of the history (ἱστορίας).[73]

Paul too did not put everything in his letters, but only matters which were necessary (τὰ ἀναγκαῖα) and urgent (τὰ κατεπείγοντα).[74] He did not want to draw his letters out. It is clear that it was a τόπος in ancient letter-writing to say something about the length of your letter.

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(67) *In epistulam ad Galatas commentarius*, *PG* 61, 660. 54–55.

(68) Gregory Nazianzenus, *Epistula* 51.

(69) *Epistulae ad Olympiadem* 10. 14. 56–59; cf. also *Epistulae ad Olympiadem* 15. 1. 27–28.

(70) *Ad Theodorum lapsum lib*. ii. sec vi. 1.

(71) *Epistulae ad Olympiadem* 17. 4. 55.

(72) Ibid., 2. 1. 15–16.

(73) *Ad Innocentium papam* 52. 536. 19–20.

(74) *In epistulam ad Colossenses*, *PG* 62, 374. 46.

Analysis of Letters

Trapp[75] believes that Christian epistolography was strongly influenced by the schools of rhetoric and as a literary genre assumed all the formal characteristics of literary prose.[76] It is clear that the ancients made a proper study of letters as a genre. Chrysostom regards letters as a separate genre, alongside other genres such as histories (ἱστορίας) or biographies (βίους ὁλοκλήρους).[77] It is also interesting to see how Chrysostom analysed Paul's letters: He calls the beginning of Paul's letter the προοίμιον (introduction),[78] and he says that Paul always closes his letters with a δοξολογία (doxology), while he calls the argument or the subject theme of the letter the ὑπόθεσις.[79] He also refers to the προοίμιον (introduction) as a πρόσρησις (salutation).[80] The end of the letter is called the τέλος.[81]

Chrysostom says that usually Paul divides his letters into two sections: He devotes the first section to doctrine (τοῖς δόγημασιν), and the second section to the care of moral instruction (τῇ τῶν ἠθῶν ἐπιμελείᾳ).[82] Elsewhere[83] he repeats that Paul divided his letters into two parts, and then he says that the first part is concerned with doctrine (περὶ δογμάτων), and the second part with the rule of life (περὶ βίου διαλεγόμενος). In the book of Romans, however, Paul mixes these two features and he continually digresses into exhortation (εἰς τὸν ἠθικὸν συνεχῶς ἐκβαίνει λόγον).

(75) M. B. Trapp, Letters, Greek, in: S. Hornblower and A. Spawforth (eds.), *The Oxford Classical Dictionary* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2003[3]) 847.

(76) M. P. Ciccarese, Letter, Epistle, in: A. Di Bernardino (ed.), *Encyclopedia of the Early Church* (Cambridge: James Clarke & Co.) 483.

(77) *In epistulam I ad Corinthios*, *PG* 61, 56. 13.

(78) *In epistulam I ad Corinthios*, *PG* 61, 215. 45; 384. 7; *In epistulam ad Galatas commentarius*, *PG* 61, 611. 13–15.

(79) *In Matthaeum*, *PG* 58, 547. 37–41; *In epistulam ii ad Corinthios*, *PG* 61, 384. 5.

(80) *In epistulam ii ad Corinthios*, *PG* 61, 384. 8.

(81) Ibid., 417. 55; 605.10.

(82) *In epistulam ad Romanos*, *PG* 60, 483. 330–336.

(83) *In epistulam ad Galatas commentarius*, *PG* 61, 669. 38–41.

Chrysostom says that when Paul speaks, he applies the same technique as in his letters, namely he exhorts people and then he ends with prayer (ἀπὸ παραινέσεως εἰς εὐχὴν τελευτᾷ).[84]

The Character of Paul's Letters

Each letter has its own tone. Chrysostom made a careful study of Paul's letters, including the book of Hebrews which he also regarded as a letter by Paul.[85] Chrysostom identified and discussed the character and tone of each letter. He noticed, for example, that in Paul's First Letter to the Corinthians, Paul started with accusations which were leveled against the Church, and thereafter Paul moved to milder themes. He then shows that in Paul's Second Letter to the Corinthians, Paul started with milder themes, and then moved over to more distressing topics.[86] Chrysostom says that one would not be wrong to style the Second Letter to the Corinthians as an eulogium (ἐγκώμιον) of Paul, since he makes such large mention of his grace and patience.[87]

However, he says that Paul's Letter to the Galatians is characterized by a "vehement and lofty spirit" (θυμοῦ καὶ μεγάλου φρονήματος). Elsewhere he refers to Paul's grave indignation (τὴν πολλὴν ἀγανάκτησιν) when he wrote the letter.[88] Paul's Second Letter to Timothy is full of consolation (παραμυθίας ἐστὶ πλήρης). He even characterizes it as "a sort of Testament" (ὡσανεὶ διαθήκη τίς ἐστι).[89] Paul's letter to the Romans is meant to exhort (παραινέω) his readers.[90]

Chrysostom characterizes the letter in Acts 15 as "short" (βραχεῖαν), with "nothing more in it than was needed, neither arts of persuasion, nor reasonings, but simply a command" (οὐδὲν πλέον ἔχουσαν, οὐδὲ κἂ τασκευὰς οὐδὲ συλλογισμοὺς ἀλλ᾽ ἐπίταγμα).[91] He also regards the letter in Acts 23 as a defence (ἀπολογίαν) of Paul, as well as an accusation (κατηγορίαν) against the readers.[92]

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(84) *In Acta apostolorum*, *PG* 60, 313, 33.

(85) *In Acta apostolorum*, *PG* 60, 327. 12; *In epistulam ad Romanos*, *PG* 60, 395. 15.

(86) *In epistulam i ad Corinthios*, *PG* 61, 151. 25–41.

(87) Ibid., 541. 23–24.

(88) *In epistulam ad Galatas commentarius*, *PG* 61, 616. 43.

(89) *In epistulam ii ad Timotheum*, *PG* 62, 652. 46–48.

(90) *In Matthaeum*, *PG* 57, 411. 22.

(91) *In Acta apostolorum*, *PG* 60, 242. 60–62.

(92) Ibid., 341. 17–19.

Chrysostom believed that Paul was not skilled in writing. He argues that Paul's reference to the size of his letters (Gal. 6:11) refers not to the magnitude (τὸ μέγεθος) of the letters, but to the misshapen appearance thereof (τὴν ἀμορφίαν τῶν γραμμάτων).[93] He believes that these words signify that Paul himself wrote the whole letter in order to prove his sincerity, while in other epistles he dictated his message to somebody else to write it down.[94] But Paul would always sign his letters to prove the authenticity thereof.[95] Bahr[96] says that ancient writings show that sometimes more than just the signature of the sender was added to the letter. Often there was a kind of postscript in the sender's own hand.

Spiritual Meaning

With all his knowledge of letters and letter-writing, Chrysostom was able to interpret Paul's remark that the Corinthians are his epistle. By reading an epistle, one gains knowledge about the author of the epistle. Thus Chrysostom says that the Corinthians are an epistle, since they are able to show to all people by their own virtue the high worth of their teacher.[97] But they are also called an "epistle of Christ" since they have the Law of God written in their hearts. Just as Moses hewed the stones and prepared the tables for the law, similarly Paul prepared the Corinthians to receive the writing. God wrote the laws of Moses, but in the case of the Corinthians, the Holy Spirit was the author. The former was written with ink, the latter with the Spirit of the Living God. The former was written on tables of stone, the latter in hearts of flesh.[98]

Conclusion

Chrysostom never wrote a detailed essay on the art of letter-writing as did Gregory Nazianzenus.[99] Yet his works are full of information regarding the nature and function of letters in the ancient world. Much of this information can indeed be used in modern-day research on the epistles in the New Testament. Most studies on ancient letters

(93) *In epistulam ad Galatas commentarius*, *PG* 61, 678. 19–20.
(94) Ibid., 677. 55 – 678. 12.
(95) *In epistulam ii ad Thessalonicenses*, *PG* 62, 469. 33–43.
(96) Cf. Bahr, Paul and Letter Writing in the Fifth Century..., 467.
(97) *In epistulam ii ad Corinthios*, *PG* 61, 436. 25–43.
(98) Ibid., 437. 17–39.
(99) Gregory Nazianzenus, *Epistula* 51.

are based on the letters of the classical writers. It is a pity that the letters of the ancient theologians are so neglected in modern studies. It is not only the letters of the ancient Fathers that give us insight into letter-writing in the ancient world, but their other writings are also full of references to this issue. Moreover, these letters can give us valuable information regarding the social life of the ancients.

SUMMARY

Much information regarding letter-writing and the function of letters in the ancient world can be deduced from the works of the early theologians. In this paper the works of Chrysostom will be scrutinized for statements regarding the writing and reading of ancient letters. This information will also be used to reveal something about the social lives of the ancients. It is also relevant for the interpretation of the New Testament letters.

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'L'ÉVERGÈTE PAUVRE' DANS LA LITTÉRATURE HAGIOGRAPHIQUE

Comment pourrait-on exprimer la différence essentielle, s'il y en a une, entre la charité chrétienne des trois premiers siècles et celle datant de l'époque de la paix constantinienne ? Le christianisme qui était, au point de vue des activités charitables, héritier de la morale juive, avait, dès son origine, une foi avérée dans le soutien et l'aide aux pauvres.[1] Cet aspect est devenu plus important à partir du IV[e] siècle dans un nouveau cadre historique où l'Etat protégea l'Eglise et où l'Eglise orthodoxe fournit une théologie politique pour l'Etat. Le christianisme favorisé par le pouvoir suprême, qui était auparavant son adversaire, disposait donc désormais de ressources beaucoup plus généreuses pour s'adonner à l'aumône.

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(1) Adolf von Harnack a bien presenté les activités charitables des chrétiens des trois premiers siècles. A. von Harnack, *Mission et expansion du christianisme dans les trois premiers siècles*, pour l'édition originale : *Mission und Ausbreitung des Christentums in den drei ersten Jahrhunderten* (Leipzig, 1924), traduit de l'allemand par J. Hoffmann, Préface par M. Tardieu, Postface par P. Maraval (Paris : Les Editions du CERF, 2004) 215–270. L'auteur a divisé la charité chrétienne en dix catégories. Néanmoins les activités charitables des trois premiers siècles n'étaient pas fondamentalement différentes de celles des païens. Pour cela, voir G. Hamel, *Poverty and Charity in Roman Palestine, First Three Centuries C.E.* (Berkeley—Los Angeles—Oxford, 1989) 240. Pour l'orientation de la charité et l'*euergesia* dans la société païenne, voir P. Veyne, *Le pain et le cirque, Sociologie historique d'un pluralisme politique* (Paris : Seuil, 1976).

Les écrits appartenant aux trois premiers siècles comme Clément I et le Pasteur Hermas attribuent un caractère rédempteur aux activités charitables. Cette charité rédemptrice dépend de la tradition juive ou néotestamentaire. Sur l'interprétation rédemptrice des activités charitables, voir R. Garrison, *Redemptive Almsgiving in Early Christianity* (Sheffield: JOST Press, 1993) (Journal for the Study of the New Testament, Supplement Series, 77) 38–133 et aussi L. Wm. Countryman, *The Rich Christian in the Church of the Early Empire: Contradictions and Accommodations* (New York—Toronto: The Edwin Mellen Press, 1980) 108–114 et également Hamel, *Poverty and Charity*…, 216–219.

Néanmoins, il serait un peu téméraire de dire que la charité chrétienne du IVe siècle très élargie par rapport aux siècles précédents n'a été soutenue, d'une manière fondamentale, que par le statut politique de l'église ou le patronage de ses représentants éminents.[2] On ne peut pas nier que l'autorité de l'église et de son chef s'accrue de jour en jour parmi les institutions de l'Empire chrétien. Pourtant il y a, à cette période, me semble-t-il, un esprit chrétien de nouveauté qui permet aux patrons ecclésiastiques ou, évergètes chrétiens, de se consacrer, d'une façon plus chaleureuse, à la charité. C'est une nouvelle sensibilité spirituelle, c'est-à-dire, monastique ou ascétique : on abandonne les biens pour le royaume des cieux.[3] Il ne serait pas tout à fait improbable que les activités charitables importantes de l'église dans l'Antiquité tardive doivent au fond moins aux personnages ecclésiastiques cultivés et chargés de patronages de la société qu'à cet esprit évangélique prompt à abandonner les biens pour le salut.

Il existe une grande différence entre l'action de 'donner' des biens aux pauvres et celle de les 'abandonner'.[4] L'aide des chrétiens aux

(2) Pour les activités charitables favorisées par les évêques, l'ouvrage de Peter Brown est important. P. Brown, *Poverty and Leadership in the Later Roman Empire*. *The Menahem Stern Jerusalem Lectures* (Hanover—London: University Press of New England, 2002) 1–112. L'étude de Lepelley consacrée au patronat épiscopal est aussi utile : Cl. Lepelley, Le patronat épiscopal aux IVe et Ve siècles. Continuités et Ruptures avec le patronat classique, dans : E. Rebillard et C. Sotinel (éds.) *L'Evêque dans le cité du IVe au Ve siècle, Image et autorité* (Rome, 1998) (Collection de l'école française de Rome, 248) 17–33.

(3) La *Vie d'Antoine* écrite en 357 par Athanase d'Alexandrie fait de l'ermite égyptien le fondateur de la vie anachorétique. G. J. M. Bartelink, Athanase, *Vie d'Antoine* (Paris, Editions du CERF, 1994) (SC, 400). Pour la vie générale des Pères du désert, voir R. Regnault, *La vie quotidienne des Pères du désert en Egypte au IVe siècle* (Paris : Hachette, 1990). Quant à la vie commune, Pachôme est connu comme son fondateur en Egypte, tandis que Basile de Césarée l'est en Asie-Mineure. Pour mieux comprendre les sources et l'évolution historique des cénobitismes primitifs, voir S. H. Nam, *Les Cénobitismes primitifs de Pachôme et de Basile de Césarée*, thèse de doctorat présentée à l'Université de Strasbourg (Strasbourg, 2004). Une partie de cette thèse est publiée en français à Séoul, en Corée : S. H. Nam, Traces Historiques des Onze Monastères fondés par Pachôme, Père du Coenobium, un essai de synthèse des sources variées, *Korea Journal of Christian Studies* 51 (2007) 177–202.

(4) En ce qui concerne la distinction entre les conceptions de 'donner' et d''abandonner', je me suis inspiré d'un ouvrage de P. Veyne : « Or si l'on durcit les choses, on estimera que l'ascèse n'a rien de commun avec la philanthropie. Celui qui donne ses biens aux pauvres pour fuir le monde se soucie moins

pauvres et misérables correspondait toujours, depuis les origines du christianisme jusqu'à la naissance du monachisme, à l'idée de donner *quelque chose* aux pauvres. Mais à partir d'Antoine le Grand qui était, depuis la première moitié du IVe siècle, suivi de tant de chrétiens fervents, la spiritualité chrétienne se tourne vers l'ascèse monastique. Les chrétiens fuient le monde, en abandonnant leur propre possession, pour vivre avec Dieu. C'est un phénomène nouveau et étrange aux yeux des contemporains païens, voire chrétiens accoutumés à la vie de l'église. Dans la notion de donner, la possession reste toujours quelque chose d'utile, mais Antoine le Grand et ses successeurs qui ont décidé de l'abandonner croyaient qu'elle était inutile, même nuisible au *miles christi*. 'There was no living tradition', écrit L. Wm. Countryman, dans son livre intitulé *The Rich Christian in the Church of the Early Empire*, 'within the early church (c'est-à-dire durant les trois premiers siècles) that new converts should abandon their wealth'[5] et encore 'Abandonment of property was thus never a norm for the lay christian during the period of our study'.[6]

Il est vrai qu'on ne connait pas, avant la paix de l'Eglise, d'anecdotes où les chrétiens se débarrassent volontiers de possessions terrestres, sauf quelques cas connus fragmentairement par Eusèbe de Césarée ou bien encore, les cas de Cyprien de Carthage ou Grégoire de Thaumaturge, mais cas qui ne sont pas parallèles à la *Vie d'Antoine*. En principe la fraternité charitable des chrétiens à l'égard des misérables ne cesse pas de se développer au cours des IVe–VIe siècles à la suite de la période précédente, et l'action de donner et d'offrir quelque chose d'utile à ceux qui ont besoin n'arrête pas de grandir quantitativement. Pourtant l'abandon total et brutal d'Antoine le Grand rapporté par Athanase constitue un model hétérogène pour les fidèles de l'église de l'époque précédente. Abandonner les biens matériaux dans la vocation

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de secourir son prochain que de se débarrasser de ses biens pour son salut » (Veyne, *Le pain et le cirque*..., 62). Néanmoins je ne suis pas tout à fait d'accord avec lui, car il y a eu une tendance monastique qui a considéré la philanthropie de manière aussi importante que le dépouillement des biens, comme on le voit dans les Grandes Règles 8–9 de Basile de Césarée (L. Lebe, Basile de Césarée, *Les Règles Monastiques* (Tournai : Editions de Maredsous, 1969) 68–74). On va voir plus tard que la conception d' 'abandonner' est typique dans les milieux anachorétiques dont le point de départ est Antoine le Grand.

(5) Countryman, *The Rich Christian in the Church of the Early Empire*…, 185.

(6) Ibid., 118.

monacale (Mt 19,21 ou Luc 14,33) se rattache toujours dans l'hagiographie, à la conception de les donner et de les distribuer aux autres et, en conséquence, le mot d'abandon devient synonyme d'aumône ou de distribution (Mt 25,35ss). D'un coup, la forme extérieure de la pauvreté volontaire des moines et la charité traditionnelle de l'église se mêlent, s'unissent, d'une manière variée, l'une à l'autre, d'autant plus que la vie monastique née au IV^e^ siècle est rapidement absorbée dans l'ordre de l'église.

La distribution, basée sur l'inspiration monastique est loin de la philanthropie païenne et l'évergétisme grecs ou romains, et elle est également différente de l'aumône traditionnel de l'église.[7] Laissons de côté l'aspect de l'évergétisme (*euergesia*) de l'église devenue une institution importante de l'Empire depuis la paix constantinienne, dans la mesure où les évêques pouvaient être chargés, entre autres, d'un rôle d'évergète gréco-romain. Ce qui importe, c'est de distinguer, si possible, l'esprit de renoncement évangélique et son influence charitable sur les chrétiens contemporains de la charité traditionnelle de l'église, très élargie depuis le règne de Constantin. Car l'esprit charitable orienté par la motivation monastique d'abandon du monde est, me semble-t-il, différent de l'aumône actif de tendance plus ou moins sectaire notable durant les trois premiers siècles ou celui de l'époque de l'église impériale, plus élargi par rapport à l'époque précédente ; ces deux derniers dépendant de la conception du don.

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Une anecdote relatée par l'ascète et évêque St. Augustin dans ses *Confessions* est digne d'attirer notre attention. Ponticianus, chrétien pratiquant qui appartenait au rang des *agentes in rebus* du palais royal, rend visite à St. Augustin durant son séjour milanais et lui raconte (ainsi qu'à son ami Alypius) la Vie d'Antoine.[8] Finalement, le narrateur et ses deux interlocuteurs, restèrent « tous dans l'étonnement,

(7) Les classes aisées de la société grecque et romaine contribuaient, pour le prestige, à la construction ou au réaménagement des temples, routes ou bâtiments publics dans leurs villes. Pour l'évergétisme grec et romain, voir Veyne, *Le pain et le cirque*..., 183–475. Même les divertissements publics étaient considérés, à Rome, comme des fondements sociaux au même titre que les ponts, routes et bâtiments publics et ils ont été favorisés par la classe des sénateurs ou les empereurs (Veyne, *Le pain et le cirque*..., 359–368 et 660–665).

(8) P. de Labriolle, Saint Augustin, *Confessions*, t. 1 (Paris : Les Belles Lettres, 1996) 187.1–26.

nous (Augustin et Alypius), devant des faits si extraordinaires (d'Antoine), lui (Ponticianus), devant les lacunes de notre (Augustin et Alypius) information. » St. Augustin insinue par cette anecdote le fait que la *Vie d'Antoine* était mal connue alors dans les milieux milanais. Puis Ponticianus continua de raconter à ses deux collaborateurs du palais royal ce qui s'est passé à Trèves.[9] Deux amis de Ponticianus sont entrés par hasard dans une demeure d'acètes et l'un d'eux a trouvé et lu un manuscrit, celui de la *Vie d'Antoine*. Très touché par la vie évangélique d'Antoine il a décidé d'embrasser la vie ascétique à l'instar de l'ascète égyptien suite à une angoisse intérieure où il compara une carrière périlleuse au palais impérial avec la grâce de devenir « *amicus Dei* » dans le renoncement évangélique. Au final, tous les deux devinrent ascètes « en abandonnant tout » pour servir Dieu. Leurs fiancées se consacrèrent également à la virginité.

Il est intéressant de relever dans ce récit court mais édifiant un processus remarquable de la conversion monacale : renseignement d'une vie nouvelle par la *Vie d'Antoine*, conflit intérieur en vue d'un choix, enfin renoncement au monde. Il semble qu'en général ces trois étapes sont sensibles dans la vocation ascétique de la littérature hagiographique, bien qu'elles varient selon chaque cas. Le prototype de la vocation monacale est conservé dans la *Vie d'Antoine*.[10] Vers 270 ayant entendu le verset de Mathieu (19,21) dans une église, Antoine distribua son héritage immobilier aux villageois. D'autre part, le jeune homme égyptien vendit ses biens meubles et s'en servit pour les pauvres, en laissant une somme pour sa sœur. Mais plus tard, il écouta dans l'église le verset de Mathieu (6,34) : « Ne vous mettez pas en peine du lendemain » et il distribua aux pauvres ce qu'il avait réservé pour sa sœur. Ainsi, il se dépouilla totalement des soucis terrestres et se consacra à la vie angélique.

En ce qui concerne l'étape initiatique dans la vocation monacale, la référence au verset de Mathieu 19,21 (ou Luc 14,33) ou d'autres semblables comme Mathieu 25,34–46 est beaucoup plus fréquente que le verset relatif au renoncement à la famille comme chez Luc 14,26 (ou Mathieu 10,37). Il n'y a que la première catégorie qui joue un rôle important ou qui précède la deuxième dans les *Vies* d'Antoine, Macaire de Scété, Hilaire de Gaza, Martin de Tours, Honorat d'Arles, Hilaire

(9) De Labriolle, Saint Augustin, *Confessions*, t. 1..., 188–189.

(10) Bartelink, Athanase, *Vie d'Antoine*..., 135.

d'Arles.[11] Même dans les *Vies* de Saintes comme celles de Mélanie la Jeune et d'Olympias, le renoncement aux biens est beaucoup plus pesant que le thème du mariage, alors que Grégoire de Nysse, auteur de la *Vie* de Macrine n'insiste pas outre mesure sur le renoncement matériel à une possession immense en se référant au mot de « philosophie » pour décrire la transformation de l'ascèse familiale en communauté monastique. Le renoncement aux biens est globalement dominant dans la littérature hagiographique, car l'abandon de la possession s'associe à la distribution aux pauvres en une sens plus large, ce à plusieurs reprises dans chaque *Vie*.

Il serait utile d'analyser les formes du conflit dans la vocation ascétique. Honorat, évêque d'Arles a conseillé, vers 426, à Hilaire de prendre l'habit monacal. Celui-ci a beaucoup hésité à suivre la proposition d'Honorat, son parent. L'auteur de la *Vie* d'Hilaire d'Arles rapporte le conflit intérieur de son héros face à la vie évangélique : « J'hésitais, dit-il, alors que le Dieu bon m'invitait, le monde entier était là, avec ses voluptés. Ce que, semblait-il, il fallait abandonner, ce qu'il fallait rechercher, mon esprit le remuait, comme dans une discussion avec un ami. Combien de fois, dans mon esprit, le vouloir succéda au refus ! ».[12] Il est naturel qu'un jeune homme riche, d'origine noble et disposé de talent rhétorique, oscille entre la vie aisée et celle dépourvue d'éléments économiques. Basile de Césarée devait passer par cette même expérience de conflit intérieur entre « la philosophie » et le professeur de rhétorique après avoir fait ses études à Athènes.[13] Saint Augustin a lui

(11) Ibid. Pour Macaire de Scété, voir Pl. Deseille, *Les Homélies spirituelles de Saint Macaire*, *Le Saint-Esprit et le Chrétien* (Bégrolles-en-Mauges : Abbaye de Bellefontaine, 1984) (Spiritualité Orientale, 40) 62–63. Et pour d'autres personnages, voir Jerome, *The life of Hilarion of Gaza*, http://www.ccel.org/ccel/schaff/npnf206.vi.ii.html, chap. 3; M.-D. Valentin, Hilaire d'Arles, *Vie de Saint Honorat* (Paris : Editions du CERF, 1977) (SC, 235) 127 ; P.-A. Jacob, Honorat de Marseille, *La Vie d'Hilaire d'Arles* (Paris : Editions du CERF, 1995) (SC, 404) 103 ; D. Gorce, *Vie de Saint Mélanie* (Paris : Editions du CERF, 196) (SC, 90) 145.

(12) Jacob, Honorat de Marseille, *La Vie d'Hilaire d'Arles*..., 101.

(13) Macrine, soeur de Basile de Césarée, a pensé que son frère était « dédaigneux » de son talent rhétorique, lui qui avait gagné son pays après avoir passé cinq ans d'études à Athènes (P. Maraval, Grégoire de Nysse, *Vie de Sainte Macrine* (Paris : Editions du CERF, 1971) (SC, 178) 163.1–5). Selon Grégoire de Nazianze, Basile de Césarée s'est adonné, pendant une période assez courte, à la rhétorique à Néocérsarée, sa ville natale (J. Bernardi, Grégoire de Nazianze, *Discours 42–43* (Paris : Les Belles Lettres, 1992) 181). Pourtant, le jeune

aussi détaillé sa propre souffrance interne à la suite du témoignage de Ponticianus sur ses deux amis devenus ascètes (*Confessions* VIII, 18–21, 25–30), tandis que Possidius, biographe d'Augustin, l'a omis délibérément dans sa *Vita*.[14]

Cet élément de souffrance intérieure, marquée soit par l'hésitation soit par la conviction est, en général, propre aux débuts de l'ascèse dans les récits hagiographiques. Si le héros est résolu dans sa conviction, on trouve des conflits extérieurs provenant de la famille (Martin, Honorat, Macaire, Macrine, Mélanie) ou de la même classe sociale (Mélanie, Olympias), sinon du statut social (Martin, l'ermite Jonas).[15]

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rhéteur qui a été déjà influencé par Eustathe de Sébaste et sa soeur Macrine, s'est consacré tôt à la vie évangélique après un voyage dans des berceaux monastiques, comme il l'a avoué dans sa lettre 223 écrite environs 20 ans après : « Donc, ayant lu l'Evangile et y ayant observé qu'un moyen très efficace d'atteindre à la perfection était de vendre ses biens, d'en partager le produit avec ses frères pauvres, d'être complètement affranchi des soucis de cette vie, et de ne permettre à aucune complaisance de tourner notre âme vers les choses d'ici-bas, je souhaitais trouver parmi les frères quelqu'un qui eût choisi ce chemin de la vie » (Y. Courtonne, Basile de Césarée, *Lettres*, t. 1 (Paris : Les Belles Lettres, 1966) 10.12–19).

(14) Augustin a, à ma connaissance, témoigné le plus longuement sous forme littéraire de sa souffrance interne avant d'embrasser la vie monastique par rapport aux autres personnages du IV^e^–V^e^ siècle. De Labriolle, Saint Augustin, *Confessions*..., 191–194 et 197–201. Possidius ne mentionne jamais le conflit interne de Saint Augustin détaillé dans les *Confessions*. Simplement, écrit-il, « Ac placuit ei percepta gratia cum aliis civibus et amicis suis Deo pariter servientibus ad Africam et propriam domum agrosque remeare. Ad quos veniens et in quibus constitutus ferme triennio et a se iam alienatis, cum his qui eidem adhaerebant Deo vivebat... » (Y. H. Lee et W. O. Choe, Possidius, *Vita Augustini* (Waegwan : Benedict Press, 2008) 36).

(15) Mélanie la Jeune qui, à cause de son statut sénatorial, avait des difficultés pour vendre ses biens selon Mt. 19.21, n'est parvenue à ses fins qu'en faisant appel à l'impératrice Serena (Gorce, *Vie de Saint Mélanie*..., 131–167). Par contre, Olympias devenue veuve très tôt après son mariage a été contrainte de se marier de nouveau, alors qu'elle aurait voulu, selon l'idéal évangélique de Mt. 19,21, vendre ses biens pour les distribuer. C'est par son appel à Théodose I qu'elle a obtenu la liberté de disperser sa propre fortune (A.-M. Malingrey, Jean Chrysostome, *Vie anonyme d'Olympias* (Paris : Editions du CERF, 1968) (SC, 3 bis) 409–419). Dans les cas de Martin et de l'ermite Jonas dans la vie d'Hypatios, leur désir pour la vie monastique se heurte au système social de l'armée (J. Fontaine, Sulpice Sévère, *Vie de Saint Martin*, t. 1 (Paris : Editions du CERF, 1967) (SC, 133) 261–263 ; G. J. M. Bartelink, Callinicos, *Vie d'Hypatios* (Paris : Editions du CERF, 1971) (SC, 177) 81–83).

On peut dire que l'étape de conflit vise non seulement à la simple narration de ce qui s'est passé mais aussi vise à attirer l'attention des ascètes potentiels, c'est-à-dire des lecteurs, pour leur montrer comment l'idéal de la vie céleste se heurte à la vie matérielle et sociale, comment le héros l'emporte sur les tribulations terrestres. Dans le cas de la *Vie* de Martin de Tours, son auteur, Sulpice Sévère, fait son héros demander audacieusement à l'empereur Julien de sortir de l'armée pour être moine, ceci juste avant le combat contre les Goths. Martin est arrêté et jeté en prison, mais le lendemain la négociation de la paix se fait en lieu et place des terribles combats. L'auteur a pour interprétation que « cette victoire est véritablement due aux bienheureux » (ch. 4,7).[16] La structure du conflit, surtout extérieur, se caractérise assurément par des éléments antisociaux au nom d'un appel venu d'en haut. Plus ils sont vifs et invraisemblables, plus la vertu du héros est grande et le récit est intéressant. Très souvent se référant d'une façon tacite à Luc (14,26) qui demande le renoncement à la famille, ils favorisent l'estime et le respect des lecteurs chrétiens qui vivent dans le monde mais aspirent à l'ascèse parfaite comme on le voit dans le cas de Ponticianus.

Après les conflits divers s'impose la vie ascétique dont les aspects sont variés. En effet ce processus ne se présente pas toujours dans un ordre chronologique. Certains auteurs passent directement à l'ascèse en omettant les conflits de leurs héros (Vie d'Augustin, Vie d'Hilaire de Gaza), ou les mélangent avec l'ascèse déjà commencée de manière résolue (Vie de Mélanie la Jeune, Vie d'Olympias). Néanmoins, généralement le processus des trois étapes est très caractéristique dans les *Vies*. Les auteurs des *Vies* tente de décrire, entre autres, les activités charitables de ces 'hommes fous de Dieu'. L'auteur anonyme de la *Vie* d'Olympias énumère les listes concrètes consacrées auprès de l'archevêque Jean Chrysostome pour l'église d'Alexandrie. Gerontius, de son côté, explique d'une manière détaillée les dons pour des églises et des monastères de Mélanie la Jeune ainsi que son aide aux pauvres. Il en est de même dans une petite *Vie* de Mélanie l'ancienne.[17] Les auteurs mentionnent sans oubli les activités charitables de leurs héros Martin, Honorat, Hilaire d'Arles, Hypatios, Macrine avec Pacôme et Basile de

(16) Fontaine, Sulpice Sévère, *Vie de Saint Martin*, t. 1..., 261.29–30.

(17) N. Molinier, Pallade d'Hélénopolis, *Histoire Lausiaque* (Bégrolles-en-Mauges : Abbaye de Bellefontaine, 1999) (Spiritualité Orientale, 75) 182–186 et 196–199.

Césarée, fondateurs du cénobitisme. La charité est une des vertus indispensables aux héros hagiographiques.

D'autre part les biographes essayent d'accentuer le fait que leurs héros gardent toujours l'esprit évangélique après leur élection épiscopale. Honorat d'Arles a vendu les métaux précieux que son prédécesseur, Patrocle, avait accumulés. « On vit », écrit l'auteur, « croître en elle (l'église d'Arles) les grâces, décroître les richesses en métaux précieux : ainsi l'ascèse, ayant fait son entrée comme une maîtresse dans sa maison, en chassa le 'Mammon d'iniquité' et ce qui était resté longtemps amassé sans servir trouva par ses soins des utilisations enfin pertinentes ».[18] Hilaire d'Arles oppose le Mammon d'iniquité de Patrocle assassiné en 425, à l'ascèse de son successeur immédiat. L'ascèse d'un moine-évêque doit être supérieure, aux yeux de l'auteur, à celle d'un simple évêque.

L'élection épiscopale de Martin de Tours en 370 fournit encore un autre exemple où son apparence misérable d'ascète due à la pauvreté volontaire, est supérieure à l'autorité des évêques.[19] Quelques évêques suffragants étaient contre l'élection de Martin parce qu'il était « un homme à la mine pitoyable, aux vêtements sales, aux cheveux en désordre ». Sulpice Sévère insiste sur le fait que l'opinion publique l'a estimé comme « plus sainement ». Le principal opposant de Martin était un *defensor*, probablement évêque d'Angers.[20] Mais son attitude récalcitrante est ridiculisée et reçoit un coup décisif lorsqu'un lecteur lu par hasard le Psaume 8,3 : « Par la bouche des enfants et des nourrissons; tu t'es rendu gloire à cause de tes ennemis, pour détruire l'ennemi et le défenseur ».[21] L'évêché était au pauvre moine et le moine de Ligugé devenu évêque, a vécu dans la même pauvreté qu'auparavant. Le charisme et la vie selon l'Evangile sont supérieurs, aux yeux de

(18) Valentin, Hilaire d'Arles, *Vie de Saint Honorat*..., 149.

(19) Fontaine, Sulpice Sévère, *Vie de Saint Martin*, t. 1 ..., 271–273.

(20) Cette opinion appartient à Jacques Fontaine (Fontaine, Sulpice Sévère, *Vie de Saint Martin II*..., 653). L'évêque en question aurait été *defensor ecclesiae*. Le *defensor ecclesiae* qui a pour rôle de protéger les droits de l'église, provient de la situation où l'Eglise et l'Etat se rapprochent l'un de l'autre. Il est connu déjà en 367 à l'époque de Damase de Rome (Cl. Sotinel, Le personnel épiscopal, dans : E. Rebillard, Cl. Sotinel (éds.), *l'Evêque dans la cité du IV^e^ au V^e^ siècle, image et autorité* (Rome, 1998) (Collection de l'école française de Rome, 248) 110–112).

(21) Fontaine, Sulpice Sévère, *Vie de Saint Martin*, t. 1..., 273.18–20.

l'auteur, à l'épiscopat, bien que Martin soit enfin subordonné à l'ordination épiscopale.

Honorat de Marseille rapporte un cas particulièrement intéressant dans sa *Vie* d'Hilaire d'Arles. Celui-ci devenu évêque d'Arles en 428 à la suite d'Honorat, son prédécesseur, a vendu, pour racheter des captifs, des vases sacrés et tout ce que les basiliques possédaient. « Et lorsqu'il eut appris que *tout* avait été dépensé, il exultait et se félicitait, car il voyait les offrandes des fidèles dépêchées par ses soins *au séjour céleste* » (ch. 11).[22] L'idée que tout doit être dépensé permet de nous rappeler l'appel évangélique de Mathieu (19,21). En réalité beaucoup de textes évoquent des trésors de l'église vendus lorsque les communautés doivent faire face à des situations difficiles. Puis l'auteur décrit Hilaire comme prédicateur habile à favoriser les dons. « Avec un louable savoir-faire, il excita le zèle des donateurs : il ne craignit pas de les lasser, mais il les incita toujours davantage à renouveler leurs dons. Les donateurs, eux, souhaitent, au gré de leur dévotion, que leur offrande servit d'abord aux saints autels, et ensuite au rachat des membres du Christ. »[23] Le fait que le moine-évêque peut librement exhorter aux dons se fonde plus sur ses pouvoirs charismatiques ou de mortification que sur son statut officiel.[24] Dans sa biographie il veut montrer Hilaire d'Arles davantage comme moine-évêque que comme évêque-moine.[25] On sait que l'ordre des moines a été absorbé assez rapidement dans la fonction des clercs. Pourtant les *Vies* des Saints considèrent l'esprit monastique basé sur la pauvreté et les éléments charismatiques comme des puissances thaumaturgiques plus importantes que les fonctions cléricales. L'autorité cléricale dépend de l'esprit ascétique, sinon elle est de temps en temps l'objet de raillerie, voire suspecte de démonisation, comme on le voit dans le cas des *Vies* de Martin et d'Honorat d'Arles. Ces scènes ne doivent pas être estimée historiquement pour toutes improbables, car les évêques peuvent être recrutés dans les rangs des *curiales*, *senatores* et même des contrôleurs des impôts.[26]

(22) Jacob, Honorat de Marseille, *La Vie d'Hilaire d'Arles*..., 117.19–22.

(23) Ibid., 117.26–31.

(24) Ibid., 129–133.

(25) Cf. C. Rapp, *Holy Bishops in Late Antiquity*, (Berkeley—Los Angeles—London : University of California Press, 2005) (The Transformation of the Classical Heritage, 37) 137.

(26) Lepelley, Le patronat épiscopal aux IV^e^ et V^e^ siècles..., 17–33.

Quant aux dons des fidèles, la tradition d'Antoine est radicalement différente de l'attitude des moines-clercs. Antoine reste inébranlable face à la tentation des démons 'déguisés' en or ou en argent (ch. 11–12).[27] Parallèlement à la démonisation de l'or et de l'argent, on ne trouve pas mention des dons faits à l'égard d'Antoine. Cette tradition était vivante dans les milieux anachorètes, plus ou moins littéraires. Mélanie la Jeune, lors de sa visite en Egypte, a caché de l'or dans la cellule de l'anachorète Héphestion qui l'avait refusé, mais Héphestion a rattrapé la donatrice pour le lui rendre ; celle-ci refusant, l'anachorète a jeté l'or dans le Nil (ch. 38).[28] Plusieurs apophtegmes conservent des exemples semblables (collection systématique VI, 1;14;17;18;23). La démonisation de l'or qui reste grossière dans la *Vie* d'Antoine devient plus raffinée dans la théorie du démon de *philargyria* par Evagre le Pontique (*Traité pratique* 6, 8, 18, 97, 99). Ainsi la tradition des Pères du désert a tendance à condamner la richesse ou la possession elle-même et à ne pas la considérer comme quelque chose d'utile. Dans le fil de cette tradition, l'attitude défavorable de Héphestion aux aumônes à son égard est compréhensible. Il en va de même pour le récit d'un ascète nitriote qui a laissé, en mourant, 100 pièces d'or qui ont été ensevelies dans la terre avec le mort (Jérôme, lettre 22,2) et de Philoromos qui quoique dans une pauvreté parfaite « n'a pas mangé le pain reçu d'autrui en aumône » (HL 45,3).[29]

Pourtant cette démonisation de la richesse ou de la possession est toute différente dans d'autres biographies étrangères à la tradition anachorétique. Callinicos, auteur de la *Vie* d'Hypatios fait recevoir à son héros, higoumène-prêtre de Rouphinianes, les aumônes des fidèles pour les distribuer aux pauvres (ch. 18,1), ceci bien que son œuvre soit rédigée dans la sensibilité antonienne (cf. ch. 53,6). Au surplus, Hypatios finit même par emprunter de l'argent pour distribuer des provisions à ceux qui sont affamés (ch. 31,4). Hilarie d'Arles exhorte ses auditeurs d'Arles à renouveler leurs dons (ch. 11). Honorat, fondateur de la communauté de Lérins, avait en plusieurs lieux de nombreux hommes chargés de distribuer les aumônes que les chrétiens lui apportaient, car « il ne pouvait pas, de sa propre main, distribuer », les aumônes étant « en abondance » (ch. 21,2). Ce fait de charité active pu être très favorable à l'élection de l'évêque d'Arles en 426. Ce

(27) Bartelink, Athanase, *Vie d'Antoine* ..., 166–173.

(28) Gorce, *Vie de Saint Mélanie*..., 199.

(29) Molinier, Pallade d'Hélénopolis, *Histoire Lausiaque*..., 181.

qui est intéressant, c'est que son auteur révèle la raison pour laquelle Honorat, père de Lérins, pouvait être qualifié d'évergète chrétien. « Il avait, en effet, » écrit-il, « répondu de grand cœur à l'appel : « Vends tous tes biens et donne-les aux pauvres, puis viens, suis-moi », et de très grand cœur, tout homme qui avait décidé de faire don de ses biens par esprit de charité, les lui apportait à distribuer et, en pleine sécurité les confiait tous à celui dont il avait suivi l'exemple en abandonnant tout. »[30] L'hagiographe mentionne que le verset de Mathieu (19,21) s'était solidement imposé dans l'esprit d'Honorat et pour cette raison il devint un exemple à imiter par ces donateurs, ceux-ci qui pouvaient lui confier leurs biens « en pleine sécurité » (ch. 20,3). C'est pour la même raison que Basile de Césarée, encore moine-prêtre, a pu forcer, de tout son cœur, les riches à ouvrir leurs greniers à blé pour en distribuer le contenu aux pauvres lors d'une famine en 368–369.[31]

Les milieux anachorétiques avaient tendance à condamner les biens eux-mêmes. En revanche, dans la plupart des *Vies* de moines-clercs, le renoncement à la possession permet aux héros de se consacrer pleinement, entre autres, à leur tour, à une nouvelle sorte d'*euergesia*, charité chrétienne, se servant des dons et autres aumônes. Une des images idéales à laquelle visent les *Vies* de Saints est un évergète pauvre. On trouve là un paradoxe que la société païenne ne connaissait pas : l'évergète est grand, parce qu'il est pauvre ! Ce n'est pas par hasard que dans les milieux de Constantinople et la Cappadoce, un groupe d'ascètes-évêques comme Macedonius, Marathonius, Eustathe et Basile gardaient l'initiative sur la fondation des premiers hospices à multifonction.[32] On peut également comprendre qu'Isidore, ancien moine de Nitrie (HL 1),[33] Aère (Panarion 75), disciple d'Eustathe de Cébaste,[34] étaient à la tête des institutions charitables et que Mélanie la Jeune a confié à de saints personnages comme Paul, moine-prêtre, le ministère de l'aumône.[35]

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(30) Valentin, Hilaire d'Arles, *Vie de Saint Honorat*..., 127–129.

(31) Bernardi, Grégoire de Nazianze, *Discours 42–43*..., 201–203.

(32) J. Gribomont, Saint Basile, *Evangile et Eglise*, Mélanges t. 1 (Bellefontaine, 1984) (Spiritualité orientale, 40) 47–48.

(33) Molinier, Pallade d'Hélénopolis, *Histoire Lausiaque*..., 65–68.

(34) F. Williams, Epiphanius, *Panarion,* (Leiden—NewYork, 1994), Chap. 75. 2–3.

(35) Molinier, Pallade d'Hélénopolis, *Histoire Lausiaque*..., 208.

Assurément 'l'évergète pauvre' est un nouveau type d'homme dans l'Antiquité tardive, que ne connaissaient pas les communautés chrétiennes d'autrefois et jamais la société païenne. Il n'est pas synonyme de l'évêque, dans la mesure où il existait beaucoup d'évêques qui n'ont pas choisi la pauvreté volontaire et qu'il y avait également des évergètes comme Hypatios qui n'étaient pas évêques. 'L'évergète pauvre' est favorisé, au point de vue législatif, depuis la fin du IV^e^ siècle. Le Code théodosien conserve une série de lois religieuses qui prescrivent à la classe des *curiales* de ne pas entrer dans le clergé afin de protéger l'économie des cités. La fin de cette série est une loi promulguée en 398 qui interdit à la même classe de choisir des clercs (CTh XVI 2,32).[36] Il est probable que celle-ci a pu contribuer à lier l'eucharistie à l'habit monacal. Pourtant cette observation ne nous conduit pas à conclure que 'l'évegète pauvre' doit d'abord à l'église impériale, car son leadership est basé essentiellement sur la pauvreté évangélique.

Gerontius écrit que les membres du groupe de Mélanie la Jeune, ayant vendu leurs biens d'Italie, d'Espagne et d'Afrique et les ayant distribué aux églises, monastères et pauvres, avait le projet de s'inscrire sur le registre de la Basilique du Saint-Sépulcre pour être nourri officiellement avec les pauvres (ch. 35).[37] Martinus donne à Sulpice Sévère pour enseignement de suivre l'exemple de Paulin : « Paulin (...) s'étant débarrassé de biens immenses pour suivre le Christ, avait été presque le seul en notre temps à pratiquer complètement les préceptes de l'Evangile. (...) ce riche qui possédait tant de biens, en vendant tout et en donnant aux pauvres selon la parole du Seigneur, avait rendu possible par son exemple ce qu'il était impossible de faire. » (ch. 25,4)[38] Un grand évergète est celui qui se contraint volontairement à la pauvreté extrême. Un homme ou une femme, qui répond à la vocation ascétique est digne d'être un chef de communauté chrétienne. L'image du 'grand pauvre' que l'hagiographie tente de façonner, constitue donc une des caractéristiques principales de l'époque allant du règne de Constantin à la fin de l'Antiquité.

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(36) E. Magnou-Nortier, *Le Code Théodosien, Livre XVI et sa réception au Moyen âge* (Paris, 2002) 150–151 ; Th. Mommsen, J. Rouge, R. Delmaire et F. Richard, *Code Théodosien XVI, Les lois religieuses des empereurs romains de Constantin à Théodose II*, vol. 1 (Paris, 2005) (SC, 384) 184–185 ; C. Pharr, *The Theodosian Code* (New Jersey, 2001) 446.

(37) Gorce, *Vie de Saint Mélanie*..., 195.

(38) Fontaine, Sulpice Sévère, *Vie de Saint Martin*, t. 1..., 311.

SUMMARY

POOR EUERGETES IN THE HAGIOGRAPHIC LITERATURE

The pagan euergesia which focused around the prosperity of the cities and their civic life has a common point with Christian almsgiving: to give something useful to others. Nevertheless, the monastic spirit is completely different from this kind of notion ("to give") because it begins with the idea of how "to abandon" things. The distinction between "giving something useful" and "abandoning all possessions" is very important because it explains more relevantly the reason why Christianity was very active since the Peace of Constantine. I think that Christian almsgiving since the fourth century was due less to the formation of the Imperial Church or bishops in the sense of a formal class or hierarchy than to the monastic spirit based on Matt. 19:21. If we can agree with the common sense notion that literature represents a symbolic image revealing its time, the hagiographic literature of the fourth–fifth centuries is likely to be an useful instrument by which we can learn the contemporaries' desire to highlight what kind of personages of this period were shown as protagonists and the reasons why.

Hagiography since the Life of Anthony has a general structure of three steps leading to the beginning of monastic life of the heroes: a call from the heavens principally based on Matt. 19:21, internal and external sufferings and overcoming them, in general, tacitly indirectly referring to Luke 14:26, and finally the monastic life associated very frequently with the ecclesiastical order. The authors try to stress the voluntary poverty of their heroes, even after Episcopal election, as we can see in the Life of Martin or in the Life of Honoratus of Arles. Interestingly, very often, devotees give donations to heroes who have renounced their property and the latter become Christian euergetes, whereas there were ascetics like Melania the Young who relied on her own property. The 'poor euergetes' who do not correspond exactly to the ecclesiastical order of bishops is a new type of man in late Antiquity. The ideal connection of the poor and the great in hagiography represents one of the most significant characteristics of the period.

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JEROME ON LETTERS AND LETTER-WRITING

Introduction

"Jerome's extensive collection of letters, which are the finest of Christian antiquity, is of the greatest historical importance for his life and times."[1] A conference on letters and letter-writing of the early Christian and patristic era should therefore include a paper on the contribution of Jerome. He wrote his letters during the second half of the fourth and first decades of the fifth centuries; which falls in the period which Stowers[2] calls the golden age of Christian letter writing. Many works have recently been published on Jerome's letters[3] and it is impossible to give a detailed account of Jerome's contribution in this regard in a conference paper — in Jerome's own words: *dies me deficiet*.

In order to give a brief overview on "Jerome on Letters and Letter-writing," I will be looking at Jerome's *Letter 57* in the light of Julius Victor's[4] precepts for letter-writing, as stated in his *Ars Rhetorica* 27.[5] Julius Victor was the first rhetorician to include letter-writing as part of the *ars rhetorica*. According to Sykutris[6] this work of Julius Victor

(1) S. Rebenich, *Jerome* (London, 2002) (ECF) 79.

(2) S. K. Stowers, *Letter Writing in Greco-Roman Antiquity* (Philadelphia, 1989) 45.

(3) B. Conring, *Hieronymus als Briefschreiber: Ein Beitrag zur spatantiken Epistolografie* (Tübingen, 2001); Rebenich, *Jerome*; A. Cain, *The Letters of Jerome: Ascetiscism, Biblical Exegesis, and the Construction of Christian Authority in Late Antiquity* (Oxford, 2009) (The Oxford Early Christian Studies); A. Cain and J. Lössl, (eds.) *Jerome of Stridon: His Life, Writings and Legacy*. (Surrey—Burlington: VT, 2009).

(4) Apart from his handbook on rhetoric, not much is known about this (probably) fourth century author. Trapp mentions that Victor possibly draws on the work of the third century rhetorician, Julius Titanus (M. Trapp, (ed.), *Greek and Latin Letters, An Anthology with Translation* (Cambridge, 2003) 321).

(5) R. Giomini and M. S. Celentano, C. Iulius Victor. *Ars rhetorica* (Leipzig, 1980) (BSGRT).

(6) J. Sykutris, Epistolographie, in: *Paulys Realencyclopädie der classischen Altertumswissenschaft, Supplementband* 5 (Leiden, 1931) 190.

represents "the best theoretical work on the letter that we possess from antiquity."

Letter 57[7] which is also known as the "*Liber de optimo genere interpretandi*"[8] is one of Jerome's longer letters[9] and in this letter he defends his approach to translation, but it is more than a treatise on translation. It is in the first place a letter which must be studied with full regard to its historical situation and because of Jerome's vigorous reaction.[10] According to Bartelink this work only partially shows the characteristics of a letter and it is especially the introductory and concluding paragraphs[11] which correspond to the form of a letter.[12] The letter has a strong rhetorical character and displays the structure of a court speech, to be more specific, that of the "*genus iudiciale*."[13] The vocabulary used in the introductory and concluding paragraphs[14] of the letter typically belongs to legal discourse and reminds us more of a court room than a private letter. From the comparison Jerome

(7) Bartelink wrote a comprehensive commentary on this letter: G. J. M. Bartelink, *Liber de Optimo Genere Interpretandi (Epistula 57) Ein Kommentar* (Leiden,1980)

(8) Despite the fact that Jerome himself refers to this work as *liber* or *libellus*, in the work itself the word *epistula* is used (*Ep*. 57. 1. 2 and 57. 13. 1). For Jerome's letters I used the edition of I. Hilberg (ed.), Sanctus Eusebius Hieronymus *Epistulae*. *Partes I–III* (Wiesbaden, 1961) (CSEL, 54–56).

(9) "Not all of the letters are of equal interest or importance. Some are only brief notes, running but a few lines; others amount to pamphlet-length tracts" (C. C. Mierow (trans.), T. C. Lawler, (intr. and notes), *The Letters of St. Jerome*, vol. 1 (New York, 1963) (ACW, 33) 4).

(10) Cf. " ... ist er doch an erster Stelle als ein Gelegenheitsschreiben anlässlich der dem Hieronymus gemachten Vorwürfe zu betrachten ..." (Bartelink, *Liber de Optimo Genere…*, 1).

(11) These paragraphs are attached as an appendix.

(12) "*Ep*. 57 hat teilweise einen Briefcharakter ..." (Bartelink, *Liber de Optimo Genere…*, 26).

(13) The structure of the letter then looks as follows: Par. 1 *Exordium*; par. 2 *Narratio*; parr. 3–11 *Argumentatio* and parr. 12–13 *Conclusio*. (See J. P. K. Kritzinger, Vergelyking en kontras: 'n hermeneutiese sleutel vir die interpretasie van Brief 57 van Hieronymus, *Acta Classica* 34 (1991) 65–82).

(14) "de criminibus responsurus; accusor; sim ... defendendus; iudicis; error; crimen; accusator; argueret; criminatus est; interrogare and defensio, and from par. 13: falsarius vocor; crimen abluere, non referre, arbitrio tuo cuncta permitto; accusatorum meorum; iudicii and adversarii" (*Ep*. 57, par. 1; CSEL, 54).

draws between his own situation and that of Paul, appearing before Agrippa, we can infer that this letter is meant as a defense of charges brought against him. The medium of the letter is used here to address the judge *in absentia*.

Next we look at Julius Victor's *Ars Rhetorica* (*De Epistolis*)[15] and at Jerome's *Epistula* 57.[16]

"There are two types of letter, official and private" (*Ars Rhetorica* 27)

There are so many different ways in which authors categorize letters into different types,[17] but this distinction between official and private seems useful. *Letter 57* would fall into the second category: it is addressed to a friend of Jerome and doesn't deal with official business. If we classify this letter according to its contents, it can certainly be regarded as a didactic letter, containing elements of "polemics" and "personal invective."[18] Lawler[19] mentions *Letter 57* as one of Jerome's essay-letters. Jerome announces his purpose for this letter in the introduction and again in the conclusion of the letter:

- "... I send this letter to inform you — and through you others who think me worthy of their regard — of the true order of the facts."[20]

(15) See appendix 1 for the text of Julius Victor's *Ars Rhetorica* 27.

(16) All the translations from Jerome's work are from Fremantle, unless otherwise indicated: W. H. Fremantle (trans.), The Principal Works of St Jerome, in: H. Wace and P. Schaff (eds.), *A Select Library of the Nicene and Post-Nicene Fathers of the Christian Church*, vol. 6 (2nd series) (New York, 1912).

(17) See H. J. Klauck, D. P. Bailey (trans.), *Ancient Letters and the New Testament: A Guide to Content and Exegesis* (Waco, 2006) 194–205. The author refers to Pseudo-Demetrius' list of 21, and Pseudo-Libanius' list of 41 different letter types.

(18) Cf. "Jerome's epistles comprise a wide range of subjects: ascetic exhortation, theological polemics, defense of orthodoxy, consolation, monastic advice, pedagogical discourse, scriptural exegesis, historical digressions, ecclesiastical politics, moral edification, and personal invective" (Rebenich, *Jerome...*, 79). He adds to this list the "cultivated letter of thanks". Trapp groups Jerome's letters as follows: "They can be roughly categorized as eleven on points of dogma, twenty four exegetic, thirty on moral issues, eleven funeral orations (obituaries), thirty-one polemical, and a few private letters to friends" (Trapp, *Greek and Latin Letters…*, 20)

(19) Mierow, Lawler, *The Letters of St. Jerome*, vol. 1..., 10.

(20) "... hanc epistulam misi, quae te et per te alios, qui nos amare dignantur, rei ordinem doceat" (*Ep*. 57. 1; CSEL, 54).

- "For the rest, I am satisfied to have instructed one of my dearest friends ..."[21]

From his word choice — especially *rei ordinem doceat* and *instruxisse* it seems as if his main purpose is to teach and to instruct, which points to the didactic purpose of the letter.

Official Letters

Victor only briefly touches on the precepts for official letters. He mentions the inclusion of historical matter in a letter but warns that it should not diminish the epistolary charm. Although *Letter 57* is not an official letter, Jerome does include three historical *exempla* in the third paragraph to point out the integrity and honesty of the pagan Romans in contrast to the corrupt conduct of his Christian opponent(s). He integrates these stories very well into his argument and manages to keep it short and to the point.

Private Letters

"In private letters the first rule to follow is brevity"
(Ars Rhetorica 27)

In *Letter 57* we find the following indications that Jerome is well aware of this rule:

- "Let us pass on to other passages, for the brief limits of a letter do not suffer us to dwell too long on any one point"[22]
- "It would be tedious now to enumerate, what great additions and omissions the Septuagint has made, ..."[23]
- "I have exceeded the limits of a letter, but I have not exceeded in the expression of my chagrin."[24]

There are so many references to this precept for letter-writing in the other letters of Jerome, but I mention only a few of them:

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(21) "Porro mihi sufficit amicum instruxisse carissimum ..." (*Ep*. 57. 13; CSEL, 54).

(22) "... neque enim epistulae brevitas patitur diutius in singulis morari" (*Ep*. 57. 8; CSEL 54).

(23) "Longum est nunc evolvere, quanta Septuaginta de suo addiderint, quanta dimiserint ..." (*Ep*. 57. 11; CSEL, 54).

(24) "Excessi mensuram epistulae,sed non excessi doloris modum" (*Ep*. 57. 13; CSEL, 54).

- "I may perhaps have been tedious, and have said more than the short compass of a letter usually allows ..."[25]
- "The brief limits of a letter compel me to be silent; my affection for you urges me to speak."[26]
- "You see how, carried away by my love of the Scriptures, I have exceeded the limits of a letter yet have not fully accomplished my object."[27]
- "That I may not make myself tedious or exceed the due limits of a letter by repeating old stories, I will briefly relate to you an incident which happened in my childhood."[28]

"The next requirement is clarity" (*Ars Rhetorica* 27)

> "Letters ought to be crystal clear, except when the writing is secret by deliberate design, and such writing, even though cryptic to everyone else, should nevertheless be clear as day to its recipients" (*Ars Rhetorica* 27).

If we read *Letter 57*, we can surely say that he generally does comply with the condition of clarity. There are however two images / proverbs used in paragraph 12, which are not one hundred percent clear. On a first reading, it doesn't really make sense, but I believe that the addressee Pammachius understood it without difficulty, since he knew the author and the historical background. In the first instance Jerome says: "The common proverb is true of me: 'He who trains an ox for athletics loses both oil and money."[29] This common proverb[30] seems to be not that common after all, but would surely have been understood

(25) "Plura fortasse, quam epistulae brevitas patiebatur, longo sermone protraxerim ..." (Ep. 3. 6; CSEL, 54).

(26) "Epistulae brevitas conpellit tacere, desiderium vestri cogit loqui" (*Ep*. 7. 6; CSEL 54).

(27) "Cernis me scripturarum amore raptum excessisse modum epistulae et tamen non inplesse, quod volui" (*Ep*. 53. 9; CSEL, 54).

(28) "Et ne veteres replicando historias longum faciam et excedam mensuram epistulae, brevem tibi fabellam referam, quae infantiae meae temporibus accidit" (*Ep*. 68. 2; CSEL 54).

(29) "Conpletur in me tritum vulgi semone proverbium: oleum perdit et inpensas, qui bovem mittit ad ceroma" (*Ep*. 57. 12; CSEL, 54).

(30) Bartelink points to the fact that the first part of the proverb was known since Plautus' time, but that there are no parallels for the second part and he does not offer any explanation for the saying (Bartelink, *Liber de Optimo Genere...*, 114).

by Pammachius and Jerome's opponent(s) against whom this letter was aimed. Another, equally obscure sentence follows: "Still he is not to blame who merely puts on the mask and plays the tragedy for another: his teachers are the real culprits; since they for a great price have taught him — to know nothing."[31] Again Bartelink[32] fails to provide a satisfactory explanation. In this case I believe that Jerome intentionally hides the meaning, in a passage in which he seriously questions his opponent's training and literary ability. By using sarcasm and irony he is mocking his opponent, who has questioned his abilities as a translator. With regard to the precept not to use less well-known proverbs, we have seen that Jerome refers to a common proverb, just to quote a somewhat obscure combination of two seemingly unrelated sayings. It thus seems if Jerome generally adheres to the principle of clarity, but that he sometimes deliberately obscures the meaning. There is a hint in the first paragraph that everything might not be lucid to all readers. By stating that the success of the orator's presentation depends on the intelligence of the judge,[33] he implies that the reader should be erudite to follow the writer's communication.

Victor here also mentions the fact that the person to whom you are writing a letter is not with you and that he cannot ask you to explain something more clearly. The concept of the absent addressee is an epistolary commonplace, which features strongly in Jerome's letters. In the first paragraph of *Letter 57* Jerome mentions that Paul considered himself fortunate to appear before (in the presence of) King Agrippa (*praesente Agrippa rege*) to respond to the charges of the Jews. In comparing himself to Paul, Jerome also regards himself fortunate to plead his case before the learned ears of someone, (Pammachius)

(31) "haec non est illius culpa, cuius sub persona alius agit tragoediam, sed magistrorum eius, qui illum magna mercede nihil scire docuerunt" (*Ep*. 57. 12; CSEL, 54).

(32) Bartelink and Kelly think that the *magistrorum eius*, refers to "their 'instructors', presumably Rufinus and Melania, whose names appear in some Mss" (Bartelink, *Liber de Optimo Genere...*, 115; J. N. D. Kelly, *Jerome. His Life, Writings and Contoversies* (London, 1975) 203), but this doesn't really make sense (See J. P. K. Kritzinger, Die vertaling en interpretasie van twee beelde in Brief 57 van Hieronymus, *Acta Classica*, (1998) 119–130 for possible translations and explanations of these two images).

(33) "Legerat enim illud Esaia: Beatus, qui in aures loquitur audientis, et noverat tantum oratoris verba proficere, quantum iudicis prudentia cognovisset" (*Ep*. 57. 1 ; CSEL, 54).

who however is not present and therefore he has to send him a letter. The letter has to bridge the gap and represent the author to the absent recipient.[34]

The Style of Private Letters

In describing the appropriate style for private letters, Victor again emphasizes clarity; neither the important ideal of brevity, nor the tendency to compose in an ornate style should obscure the meaning. Jerome comments on style in *Letter 57* and advocates holy simplicity (*sancta simplicitas*) against loquacious rudeness (*verbosa rusticitas*).[35] He skillfully plays with the double meanings of *simplicitas* and *rusticitas*, which can both refer to either a style of writing or a style of living.[36] In the rest of the letter, Jerome promotes his '*sensus de sensu*' approach to translation, which also takes the style of the target language into consideration; something which a '*verbum e verbo*' (word for word) approach is unable to achieve.[37]

Gregory of Nazianzus wrote a letter[38] in which he discusses the art of letter-writing under the categories of brevity, clarity and grace. He advocates a natural style which leans towards conversational.[39] If we

(34) For a fuller discussion of this topic, see Trapp, *Greek and Latin Letters…*, 38–39 and Klauck, *Ancient Letters...*, 192–193.

(35) "... venerationi mihi semper fuit non verbosa rusticitas, sed sancta simplicitas: qui in sermone imitari se dicit apostolos, prius imitetur in vita" (*Ep*. 57. 12; CSEL, 54).

(36) See J. P. K. Kritzinger, Vergelyking en kontras: 'n hermeneutiese sleutel vir die interpretasie van Brief 57 van Hieronymus, *Acta Classica* 34 (1991) 65–82 for a fuller discussion of Jerome's use of contrast and comparison in *Letter 57*, which includes a discussion of *simplicitas* and *rusticitas* in this context.

(37) "If anyone imagines that translation does not impair the charm of style, let him render Homer word for word into Latin, nay I will go farther still and say, let him render it into Latin prose, and the result will be that the order of the words will seem ridiculous and the most eloquent of poets scarcely articulate (Quodsi cui non videtur linguae gratiam interpretatione mutari, Homerum ad verbum exprimat in Latinum — plus aliquid dicam —, eundem sua in lingua prosae verbis interpretetur: videbit ordinem ridiculum et poetam eloquentissimum vix loquentem)" (*Ep*. 57. 5; CSEL, 54).

(38) For Letter 51 to Nicoboulus (384–390 CE) see B. E. Daley, *Gregory of Nazianzus* (London, 2006) (ECF) 177–178.

(39) "As far as clarity is concerned, the main point to notice is that one must avoid sounding like a speech, and lean rather in the direction of the

judge *Letter 57* of Jerome according to Gregory's guidelines, it would certainly be regarded as pretentious and affected. We should however remember that Jerome is defending his literary abilities in this letter. It is an important part of his defense to show off his literary skill and proficiency. There are, however, many letters which have a more personal tone and which are written in a more natural conversational style.[40]

The Addressees of the Letter

> "If you are writing to a superior, your letter should not be droll; if to an equal, it should not be cold; if to an inferior, it should not be too haughty; nor carelessly written if to a learned correspondent, nor cursorily written if to a close friend, nor lacking warmth if to someone not so close" (*Ars Rhetorica* 27).

Here Victor addresses the issue of adapting the style according to the recipient. As stated above, Jerome writes this letter to Pammachius, whom he called the "most Christian of nobles, and most noble of Christians" (*vir omnium nobilium Christianissime, Christianorum* nobilissime) and "dearest friend" (*amicum carissimum*).[41] In other writings Pammachius is called "s*anctus Pammachius*", "*admirabilis sanctusque vir Pammachius*", "*eruditissimo viro fratri tuo Pammachio*", "*sancto atque eruditissimo viro fratri tuo Pammachio*" and "*vir eruditissimus frater tuus*".[42] He is writing to a learned man in a learned style and here it seems that he is in line with Victor's guidelines.

"Be profuse in congratulating someone on a success, so as to increase his joy" (*Ars Rhetorica* 27)

There are no congratulations in *Letter 57*, and Jerome's letter corpus does not contain a group of letters that can be categorized as congratulatory letters. Letter 86 can certainly been seen as a letter of congratulation, in which Jerome congratulates Theophilus with his success against Origenism and also mentions the good work of Priscus and

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conversational" and "One should especially aim at this in letters, too: to be unadorned, and as near as possible to what is natural" (Daley, *Gregory of Nazianzus...*, 178).

(40) E. g. *Epistulae*. 4; 5; 6; 7; 11, 12, 13, 23; 24; 31, 32, 71, etc.

(41) *Ep*. 57. 1; 57. 13; CSEL, 54.

(42) See Bartelink, *Liber de Optimo Genere...*, 122.

Eubulus.[43] In *Letter* 141 he likewise congratulates Augustine for his hard work as restorer of the ancient faith against heresy.[44]

"When you encounter someone who is grieving, console him in few words" (*Ars Rhetorica* 27)

"Ten letters in Jerome's *opera omnia* are written to offer words of comfort to friends afflicted by grief"[45], but *Letter 57* is not one of them. With regard to these consolatory letters, Rebenich mentions that "Jerome varied his composition with regard to the individual addressee, specific situation of the case, and the persons involved."[46] Scourfield[47] wrote an excellent commentary on Letter 60 and in his introduction he gives an overview of the consolatory tradition; both pagan and Christian.[48] He indicates "how Jerome intertwines the two traditions, and how he employs originally pagan ideas for a Christian end."[49] Letter 60 is one of the longer letters and in this case Jerome does not "console him in few words".

(43) "unde, licet per sanctos fratres Priscum et Eubulum tuus ad nos sermo cessaverit, tamen, quia videmus illos zelos fidei concitatos raptim Palaestinae lustrasse regiones et dispersos regulos usque ad suas latebras persecutos, breviter scribimus, quod totus orbis exultet et in tuis victoriis glorietur .... Macte virtute, macte zelo fidei! (So, though the reverend brothers Priscus and Eubulus have been slow in bringing me your letters, yet, as they are now hastening in the ardour of faith from end to end of Palestine and scattering and driving into their holes the basilisks of heresy, I write a few lines to congratulate you on your success. The whole world glories in your victories. ... Blessings on you courage! blessings on your zeal!)" (*Ep*. 86; CSEL 55).

(44) "Macte virtute, in orbe celebraris. Catholici te conditorem antiquae rursum fidei venerantur atque suspiciunt et — quod signum maioris gloriae est — omnes heretici detestantur ..." (*Ep*. 141; CSEL, 56).

(45) Rebenich, *Jerome,* 119.

(46) Ibid.

(47) J. H. D. Scourfield, *Consoling Heliodorus, A Commentary on Jerome, Letter 60* (Oxford, 1993) esp. 15–33

(48) Cf. "These writers achieved a synthesis of classical rhetoric and Christian traditions best exemplified in the East by Gregory of Nazianzus and in the West by Jerome and Augustine" (Stowers, *Letter Writing...,* 45).

(49) Scourfield, *Consoling Heliodorus…*, 23.

"It is never right to be abusive, but least of all in a letter" (*Ars Rhetorica* 27)

If we look at this precept of Victor, we realize that many of Jerome's letters do not comply with it. The following quotations from *Letter 57* serve as an indication of how he describes his opponents and of what he accuses them:[50]

- "For a rash tongue charges me with ignorance or falsehood ..."[51]
- "For a pretended monk — either bribed as there is much reason to believe or actuated by malice of his own as his tempter vainly tries to convince us — showed himself a second Judas by robbing Eusebius of his literary property and gave to the adversary an occasion of railing against me."[52]
- "I wish to ask those persons who confound wisdom with cunning some few questions."[53]
- "A strange plea truly to defend a fraud as though robbers, thieves, and pirates did not do the same. Certainly, when Annas and Caiaphas led hapless Judas astray, they only did what they believed to be expedient for themselves."[54]

(50) For a fuller picture of Jerome as satirist and polemicist, see D. S. Wiesen, *Saint Jerome as a Satirist. A Study in Christian Latin Thought and Letters* (Ithaca, 1964).

(51) "... **inperitae linguae** responsurus sum, quae obicit mihi vel ignorantiam vel mendacium ..." (*Ep*. 57. 1; CSEL, 54; emphasis by the author here and in the rest of the footnotes).

(52) "Nam quidam **pseudomonachus** vel accepta pecunia, ut perspicue intellegi datur, vel gratuita malitia, ut incassum **corruptor** nititur persuadere, conpilatis chartis eius et sumptibus **Iudas** factus est **proditor** deditque adversariis **latrandi** contra me occasionem ..." (*Ep*. 57. 2; CSEL, 54). Cf. also: "latrare wird mehrmals von Hieronymus verwendet, wenn es sich um heftige Invektiven handelt ... In der christlichen Literatur findet es sich besonders als Charakterisierung häretischer Angriffe ..." (Bartelink, *Liber de Optimo Genere*, 35).

(53) "... volo interrogare eos, **qui malitiam prudentiam vocant** ..." (*Ep*. 57. 3; CSEL, 54).

(54) "Mira **sceleris** defensio! Quasi non et **latrones** et **fures** ac **piratae** faciant, quod sibi prodest. Certe Annas et Caiphas **seducentes** infelicem Iudam fecerunt, quod sibi utile existimabant" (*Ep*. 57. 3; CSEL, 54).

- "One man inveighs against you as a heretic, another as a perverter of doctrine ..."[55]
- "I refer to these passages ... to bring home to my critics their own want of knowledge ..."[56]

Jerome reverses the charges against him (a *crimen* and an *error*) and accuses his opponents likewise of a crime (bribing and stealing) and an error (their ignorance about the best method of translation) and he further implies that they are heretics.

This precept of Victor relates to the idea that the letter is basically a friendly form: "Letters have an important role to play in creating and sustaining friendships, whether between private individuals, or in contexts in which friendship has some larger public or organizational importance."[57] But it is also a reality that there are many letters which lack this friendly character. It seems as if the strong rhetorical influence also poses a threat to the conversational style and the friendly character of the letter.

"Headings and conclusions to letters should be calculated according to the differences in the degree of friendship or of rank involved, with due regard for conventional practice" (*Ars Rhetorica* 27)

Jerome does adapt greetings according to the rank or status of the addressees. Fürst discusses in great detail the different greeting forms and honorary titles which Jerome and Augustine use in their correspondence. [58] He contends that their different greeting forms demonstrate that Augustine was more positive towards their friendship[59], and he also points out how Jerome's use of the titles change as their relationship weakens.

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(55) "Alius te **hereticum**, alius insimulat **dogmatum perversorum** ..." (*Ep*. 57. 4; CSEL, 54).

(56) "Haec replico ... ut reprehensores meos arguam **inperitiae** ..." (*Ep*. 57. 9; CSEL, 54).

(57) Trapp, *Greek and Latin Letters*..., 40

(58) A. Fürst, *Augustins Briefwechsel mit Hieronymus* (Münster, 1999) (Jahrbuch für Antike und Christentum, Ergänzungsband, 29) 119–130.

(59) "Daß das Freundschaftsabstraktum *caritas tua*, wofür einmal bedeutungsgleich *dilectio tua* steht, bei Augustinus weitaus am haüfigsten vorkommt, signalisiert sein aufrichtiges Interesse an einer freundschaftlicher Beziehung, während die steife Standestitulatur bei Hieronymus eine höfliche, aber bestimmte Reserviertheit verrät" (Fürst, *Augustins Briefwechsel…*, 122).

"When replying, you should do so with the letter you are replying to before you, in case anything that needs an answer escapes your memory" (*Ars Rhetorica* 27)

Jerome mentions the letter which he translated from Greek into Latin and on account of which he was accused of a bad translation, either out of ignorance, or with malevolent intent. He only refers to one specific charge though, where he allegedly made a mistake in his translation:

> "But to pass by this limitless field of discussion and to show you, most Christian of nobles, and most noble of Christians, what is the kind of falsification which is censured in my translation, I will set before you the opening words of the letter in the Greek original and as rendered by me, that from one count in the indictment you may form an opinion of all."[60]

Jerome then continues to give the Greek text and his Latin translation as well as the commentary of his opponent(s) on his free translation. After this he gave a very literal, word for word rendering and compliments it with great sarcasm as: "Here, indeed we have eloquence worthy of Plautus, here we have Attic grace, the true style of the Muses."[61]

It seems, from his reaction, as if he has the letter with him and in the final paragraph he says that Pammachius should read the letter itself, both the Greek original and his Latin translation, and that he would then see the dissatisfaction of his accusers for what it is.[62] Here again Jerome's practice seemingly corresponds to Victor's guideline.

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(60) "Sed ut infinita praetéream et ostendam tibi, vir omnium nobilium Christianissime, Christianorum nobilissime, cuius modi falsitates in epistulae translatione reprehendant, ipsius epistulae ponam cum Graeco sermone principium, ut ex uno crimine intellegantur et cetera ..." (*Ep*. 57. 12; CSEL, 54).

(61) "Haec est Plautina eloquentia, hic lepos Atticus et Musarum, ut dicunt, eloquio conparandus" (*Ep*. 57. 12; CSEL, 54).

(62) "Unde arbitrio tuo cuncta permitto, ut legas ipsam epistulam, tam Graecam quam Latinam, et ilico intellegas accusatorum meorum nenias et pretiosas querellas" (*Ep*. 57. 13; CSEL, 54).

"The ancients were in the habit of writing to their closest friends, or at least in most cases of adding a subscription, in their own hand" (*Ars Rhetorica* 27)

We know that Jerome used stenographers[63] to whom he dictated his letters. There is no indication that *Letter 57* was an exception and there is also no reference to a subscription in his own hand here. In a detailed note on "*accito notario*" Bartelink says that it is apparently only for his early letters which Jerome did not use "*notarii*".[64] There are also references to his practice of dictating his letters with great speed, apparently to serve as an excuse for any mistakes or omissions.[65]

"Letters of recommendation should be written honestly or not at all; this condition will be met if you write them in the warmest terms to a very close friend, and if what you are asking for is reasonable and realistic" (*Ars Rhetorica* 27)

There are no recommendations in *Letter 57*, but Letter 103 is a short letter of introduction in which Jerome commends the deacon Praesidius to Augustine and there is no reason to believe that it was not written in honesty.[66] In Letter 147.11 however, Jerome complains about a dishonest recommendation of Sabinianus, written by a priest: "Who could refuse to welcome one who declared himself to be a monk; especially if he were ignorant of your tragic career and had read the letters of commendation which your bishop had addressed to other

(63) For a useful discussion of the practice of dictating letters, use of secretaries and the employment of a Latin shorthand system, see G. J. Barr, Paul and Letter Writing in the Fifth Century, *The Catholic Bible Quarterly* 28 (1966) 465–477.

(64) The term dictare is used from Letter 18 onwards (Bartelink, *Liber de Optimo Genere...*, 31).

(65) "... si celeritate dictantis aliqua verba dimiserim" (*Ep*. 57. 10; CSEL, 54).

(66) "Nunc quoque per sanctum fratrem meum Praesidium diaconum obsecro primum, ut memineris mei, dein, ut baiulum litterarum habeas commendatum et mihi scias germanissimum et, in quibuscumque necessitas postularit, foveas atque sustentes, non quo aliqua re Christo tribuente indigeat, sed quod bonorum amicitias avidissime expetat et si in his coniungendis maximum putet beneficium consecutum" (*Ep*. 103. 1; CSEL, 55).

prelates?"[67] In the same paragraph Sabinianus is described as a wolf in sheep's clothing.

"Adding a phrase or two in Greek to a letter is an elegant touch, provided that you do not do it in the wrong place or too often" (*Ars Rhetorica* 27)

Letter 57 contains a few Greek words and phrases, and they fit well into the context of the whole:[68]

- "Quam vos veritatem interpretationis, hanc eruditi κακοζηλίαν nuncunpant."[69]
- "... sed ut ἐμφατκώτερον faceret et sensum vocantis et imperantis exprimeret, addidit *tibi dico*."[70]
- "... in Hebraeo iuxta linguae illius ἰδίωμα ita scriptum est: ..."[71]
- "... et tamen apostolus non verbum expressit e verbo, sed παραφραστικώς eundem sensum aliis sermonibus indicavit."[72]

It is clear from the above that Jerome employs single Greek words sparingly and to good effect.

"[It] is also very suitable to use a well-known proverb, or a line or phrase of poetry" (*Ars Rhetorica* 27)

Jerome uses a number of proverbs and proverbial expressions in *Letter 57*. A few examples will suffice:

(67) "Quis non susciperet eum, qui se monachum promittebat, praesertim ignorans tragoedias tuas et episcopi tui commendaticias ad ceteros sacerdotes epistulas legens?" (*Ep*. 147. 11; CSEL, 56).

(68) Some of the Greek words and phrases in Letter 57 however, form a part of Jerome's discussion concerning his Latin translation of the mentioned Greek letter of Epiphanius.

(69) "What men like you call fidelity in transcription, the learned term pestilent minuteness" (*Ep*. 57. 5; CSEL, 54).

(70) "To emphasize this and to give the impression of one calling and commanding he has added 'I say unto thee'" (*Ep*. 57. 7; CSEL, 54).

(71) "... in the Hebrew idiom it is written thus ..." (*Ep*. 57. 7; CSEL, 54).

(72) "... and yet the apostle has not rendered his original word for word, but, using a paraphrase, he has given the sense in different terms" (*Ep*. 57. 9; CSEL, 54).

- "You may as the fable has it, penetrate by means of your gold to the chamber of Danaë."[73]
- "And care not thou with over anxious thought to render word for word."[74]
- "It is all for nothing then that I have studied so long; that, as Juvenal says, "I have so often withdrawn my hand from the ferule."[75]
- "The moment I leave the harbour I run aground."[76]
- "Well, to err is human and to confess one's error wise."[77]
- "The common proverb is true of me: 'He who trains an ox for athletics loses both oil and money.' Still he is not to blame who merely puts on the mask and plays the tragedy for another: his teachers are the real culprits."[78]
- "... and I heartily wish that we can all say with Socrates 'I know that I know nothing;' and carry out the precept of another wise man, 'Know thyself.'"[79]
- "Still it would be absurd for one of us — living as we do amid the riches of Croesus and the luxuries of Sardanapalus — to make his boast of mere ignorance"[80]

As stated earlier, it is important to know that Jerome wants to prove to the reader that the charge of ignorance is unfounded;[81] he has to

(73) "... ut in fabulis legimus, auro ad Danaen penetres ..." (*Ep*. 57. 4; CSEL, 54).

(74) "nec verbum verbo curabis reddere fidus interpres" (*Ep*. 57. 5; CSEL, 54). This is a quotation from Horace's *Ars Poetica* 133.

(75) "Ergo frustra tanto tempore studuimus et saepe manum ferulae subduximus?" (*Ep*. 57. 12; CSEL, 54). This is a quotation from Juvenal, 3. 10. 2.

(76) "Egredientes de portu statim impegimus" (*Ep*. 57. 12; CSEL, 54). See Bartelink, *Liber de Optimo Genere...*, 112–113 for a discussion of Jerome's use of ship and sea images.

(77) "Igitur, quia errare humanum est et confiteri errorem prudentis ..." (*Ep*. 57. 12; CSEL 54).

(78) *Ep*. 57. 12; CSEL, 54. See the discussion of this passage above.

(79) "... atque utinam Socraticum illud haberemus: 'scio, quod nescio' et alterius sapientis: 'te ipsum intellege'! ..." (*Ep*. 57. 12; CSEL, 54).

(80) "Ceterum ridiculum, si quis e nobis inter Croesi opes et Sardanapalli delicias de sola rusticitate se iactet, ..." (*Ep*. 57. 12; CSEL, 54).

(81) Rebenich says about the letter of thanks that "[s]uch a letter offered the golden opportunity of displaying classical and biblical erudition" (Rebenich, *Jerome...*, 79). This is also true of *Letter 57*. Jerome argues that in his "*sensus de sensu*" approach to translation he is following the classical tradition

convince his readers of his literary skill and in my opinion he succeeds in doing so. Jerome's *Letter 57* complies with the precept of Victor in this instance, although he might have objected that there are too many quotations or proverbial expressions, especially in paragraph 12.

"It is elegant sometime to address your correspondent as if he were physically present, as in 'hey, you!' and 'what's that you say?' and 'I see you scoff'" (*Ars Rhetorica* 27)

In paragraph 12. 2 Jerome uses the rhetorical figure of speech, exclamation, to address his opponent directly. Although the letter is first of all addressed to his friend, Pammachius, it is also second of all aimed at his opponent(s). His tone is highly sarcastic when he praises his opponent as follows:

> "What is this you are saying, O pillar of learning and latter day Aristarchus, who are so ready to pass judgment upon all writers?"[82]

"In conclusion, remember to cultivate a good style not only in your letters but in everything that you write" (*Ars Rhetorica* 27)

In this last sentence, Victor again touches on the relationship between (letter-) writing and conversation and it can be linked with his opening sentence, in which he said that many of the instructions given for conversation are also applicable to letters. In *Letter* 57 we have also seen a similar strong relationship between court speech and a didactic letter.

Conclusion

Regarding the relationship between rhetoric and letter-writing Klauck[83] says: "There are affinities, but also divergences, and the relationship changes with the passing of time, from a striking reservation of rhetoric with regard to epistolary theory to the beginnings of an integration of letters into rhetoric" and he adds that "... the converging lines of the oration and the letter did not actually cross in theoretical

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as well as the Christian tradition, followed by the authors of the New Testament, the Septuagint translators and other Christian authors.

(82) "Quid ais, o columen litterarum et nostrorum temporum Aristarche, qui de universis scriptoribus sententiam feras?" (*Ep*. 57. 12; CSEL, 54).

(83) Klauck, *Ancient Letters…*, 208–210.

reflection until late antiquity." He refers to Ottmers[84] who said that the letter was not treated as a rhetorical genre in its own right until the Middle Ages. From the discussion above it seems that Jerome's *Letter 57* represents an important development towards the integration of letters into rhetoric.

Rousseau says that "... Jerome established himself as above all a correspondent, whether by letter or by commentary, marrying distance with instruction."[85] We have seen that he has also succeeded in *Letter 57* in marrying oratory and letter-writing very naturally into a masterpiece; he composed to a learned friend an exceptional letter with a strong rhetorical character.

In his *Ars Rhetorica,* (*De Epistolis*), Julius Victor incorporated (in an appendix) letter-writing into rhetorical theory; in his *Liber de Optimo Genere Interpretandi* Eusebius Hieronymus likewise incorporated rhetoric into letter-writing.

Julius Victor
***Ars Rhetorica* (*De Epistolis*) 27**

Epistolis conveniunt multa eorum, quae de sermone praecepta sunt. Epistolarum species duplex est; sunt enim aut negotiales aut familiares. Negotiales sunt argumento negotioso et gravi. In hoc genere et sententiarum pondera et verborum lumina et figurarum insignia conpendii opera requiruntur atque omnia denique oratoria praecepta, una modo exceptione, ut aliquid de summis copiis detrahamus et orationem proprius sermo explicet. si quid historicum epistola conprehenderis, declinari oportet a plena formula historiae, ne recedat ab epistolae gratia. si quid etiam eruditius scribas, sic disputa, ut ne modum epistolae corrumpas. In familiaribus litteris primo brevitas observanda: ipsarum quoque sententiarum ne diu circumferatur, quod Cato ait, ambitio,

sed ita recidantur ut numquam verbi aliquid deesse videatur: unum 'te' scilicet, quod intellegentia suppleatur, in epistolis Tullianis ad Atticum et Axium frequentissimum est. lucem vero epistolis praefulgere oportet, nisi cum consulto [consilio] clandestinae litterae fiant, quae

(84) "Aber als eigene rhetorische Gattung wird der Brief erst im Mittelalter behandelt ..." (C. Ottmers, *Rhetorik* (Stuttgart, 1996) 35).

(85) P. Rousseau, Jerome's Search for Self-Identity, in: P. Allen, R. Canning, L. Cross, B. J. Caiger (eds.), *Prayer and Spirituality in the Early Church*, vol. 1 (Everton Park, 1998) 142.

tamen ita ceteris occultae esse debent, ut his, ad quos mittuntur, clarae perspicuaeque sint.

solent etiam notas inter se secretiores pacisci, quod et Caesar et Augustus et Cicero et alii plerique fecerunt. Ceterum cum abscondito nihil opus est, cavenda obscuritas magis quam in oratione aut in sermocinando: potes enim parum plane loquentem rogare, ut id planius dicat, quod in absentium epistolis non datur. Et ideo nec historia occultior addenda nec proverbium ignotius aut verbum cariosius aut figura putidior: neque dum amputatae brevitati studes, dimidiatae sententiae sit intellegentia requirenda, nec dilatione verborum et anxio struendi labore lux obruenda. Epistola,

si superiori scribas, ne iocularis sit, si pari, ne inhumana; si inferiori, ne superba; neque indocto indiligenter, nec coniunctissimo translatitie, nec minus familiari non amice. Rem secundam prolixius gratulare, ut illius gaudium extollas: cum offendas dolentem, pauculis consolare, quod ulcus etiam, cum plana manu tangitur, cruentatur. Ita in litteris cum familiaribus ludes, tu tamen cogites posse evenire, ut eas litteras legant tempore tristiore. Iurgari numquam oportet, sed epistolae minime.

Praefationes ac subscriptiones litterarum computandae sunt pro discrimine amicitiae aut dignitatis, habita ratione consuetudinis. Rescribere sic oportet, ut litterae, quibus respondes, prae manu sint, ne quid, cui responsio opus sit, de memoria effluat. Observabant veteres karissimis sua manu scribere vel plurimum subscribere. Commendatitias fideliter dato aut ne dato. Id fiet, si amicissime dabis ad amicissimum, et si probabile petes et si impetrabile. Graece aliquid addere litteris suave est, si id neque intempestive neque crebro facias. Et proverbio uti non ignoto percommodum est, et versiculo aut parte versus. Lepidum est nonnumquam quasi praesentem alloqui, uti 'heus tu' et 'quid ais' et 'video te deridere': quod genus apud M. Tullium multa sunt. Sed haec, ut dixi, in familiaribus litteris; nam illarum aliarum severitas maior est. In summa id memento et ad epistolas et ad omnem scriptionem bene loqui.

Hieronymus
Epistula 57. 1 and 13 (CSEL, 54)

1. Paulus apostolus **praesente** Agrippa rege de **criminibus responsurus**, quae posset intellegere, qui auditurus erat, securus de causae victoria statim in principio gratulatur dicens: *De omnibus, quibus* ***accusor*** *a Iudaeis, o rex Agrippa, aestimo me beatum, cum apud te sim hodie* ***defendendus****, qui praecipue nosti cunctas, quae in Iudaeis sunt, consuetudines*

et quaestiones. Legerat enim illud Esaia: *Beatus, qui in* ***aures loquitur audientis***, et noverat tantum **oratoris verba proficere**, quantum **iudicis prudentia** cognovisset.

Unde et ego beatum me in hoc dumtaxat negotio iudico, quod **apud eruditas aures** inperitae linguae **responsurus sum**, quae **obicit** mihi vel ignorantiam vel mendacium, si aut nescivi alienas litteras vere interpretari aut nolui: quorum alterum error, alterum **crimen** est. Ac ne forsitan **accusator** meus facilitate, qua cuncta loquitur, et inpunitate, qua sibi licere omnia putat, me quoque apud vos **argueret**, ut papam Epiphanium **criminatus** est, **hanc epistulam misi**, quae **te per te alios**, qui nos amare dignantur, **rei ordinem doceat**.

13. **Excessi mensuram epistulae**, sed non excessi doloris modum. Nam qui **falsarius vocor** et inter muliercularum radios et textrina dilanior, contentus sum **crimen abluere**, **non referre**. Unde **arbitrio** tuo cuncta permitto, ut legas ipsam epistulam, tam Graecam quam Latinam, et ilico intellegas **accusatorum** meorum nenias et pretiosas querellas. Porro mihi sufficit **amicum instruxisse carissimum** et in cellula latitantem diem tantum exspectare **iudicii**. Optoque, si fieri potest, etis **adversarii** saevierint, commentarios potius scripturarum quam Demosthenis et Tullii Philippicas scribere.

SUMMARY

In this article Jerome's *Letter 57* is discussed in the light of Julius Victor's precepts for letter-writing, as stated in his *Ars Rhetorica 27*. The different precepts for private letters, such as brevity, clarity, adapting the style according to the recipient, adding a phrase or two in Greek, the use of proverbs or a line of poetry, etc., are discussed with reference to Jerome's letter. It is shown that this letter of Jerome which displays the structure of a court speech, still largely complies with the precepts given by Julius Victor. The strong rhetorical character of *Letter 57* is pointed out and it is concluded that, just as Julius Victor had incorporated letter-writing into rhetorical theory, Jerome had skilfully incorporated oratory into letter-writing.

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LETTERS OF EUSEBIUS OF VERCELLI AND THE AUTHORSHIP OF THE DE TRINITATE: DID EUSEBIUS OF VERCELLI WRITE THE PSEUDO-ATHANASIAN *DE TRINITATE*?

Who wrote the pseudo-Athanasian *De Trinitate*? This question is still an utter mystery. Nowadays, the traditional ascription to Athanasius supported by the majority of manuscripts has no followers at all. Several proposals starting in the 17th century (Vigilius of Thapsus, Eusebius of Vercelli and Gregory of Elvira), faced serious opposition and failed to draw a universal scholarly consensus. The Vigilian authorship proposed first by Chifflet was refuted by Ficker (1897) and no one followed it thereafter.[1] The Eusebian authorship was first proposed by Morin (1898) and rejected by the same author two years later.[2] The Gregorian authorship followed almost the same fate as the Eusebian proposal. It was first proposed by Morin (1900) and refuted by the same author two years later.[3] Unlike the Vigilian and Gregorian authorship, however, the Eusebian authorship has attracted supporters intermittently over a century. As Dattrino rightly observes, on the matter of the authorship of the *De Trinitate*, one can divide previous scholarship into two groups: those who support the Eusebian authorship and those who oppose it.[4] I side with those scholars who find se-

(1) For an introduction to the origin of the Vigilian authorship and its refutation, see Gerhard Ficker, *Studien zu Vigilius von Thapsus* (Leipzig: Johann Ambrosius Barth, 1897) 42–79.

(2) D. G. Morin, Les douze livres sur la Trinitaté attribués à Vigilie de Thapse, *Revue Bénédictine* 15 (1898) 1–10.

(3) D. G. Morin, Les Nouveaux *Tractatus Origenis* et l'Héritage Littéraire de l'Évêque Espagnol Grégoire d'Illiberis, *Revue d'Histoire et de littérature religieuse* 2 (1900) 145–161.

(4) Dattrino provides a helpful list of a number of scholars and their works on this very question in L. Dattrino, *Pseudo-Atanasio: La Trinità* (Roma: Città Nuova Editrice, 1980) 8–9.

rious problems with the Eusebian authorship such as Künstle, Saltet, Dattrino, Simonetti, etc.

The aim of this essay is to demonstrate that Eusebius probably did not produce the pseudo-Athanasian *De Trinitate*.[5] This essay has been divided into four parts. Part One will provide a brief introduction to the text in question, namely, the seven books of the pseudo-Athanasian *De Trinitate*. Part Two will examine the origin and history of the Eusebian authorship. Here we will summarize several arguments for the Eusebian authorship and at the same time, point out how shaky and fragile these arguments are. Finally and most importantly, Parts Three and Four will compare and contrast the surviving writings about and of Eusebius of Vercelli with the *De Trinitate* to see any affinity between them on historical as well as theological grounds. As a final remark before the discussion, anyone who deals with fundamental questions concerning the pseudo-Athanasian *De Trinitate*, must bear in mind that it is always a matter of probability, not of certainty. There is no one single piece of evidence that will silence all debates. Sometimes there is need for much inference due to the scantiness of relevant information. A number of arguments for or against each issue are not conclusive for either position when they are individually considered. They are to be regarded as a whole. If all sources and arguments are considered comprehensively, the present author will argue that they orient us toward a certain specific direction rather than another one.

Part One. Brief Introduction to the Text in Question[6]

When one picks up a Latin Migne vol. 62, there is found a treatise entitled "On the Trinity Twelve Books written by Vigilius of Thapsus under the name of Saint Athanasius Bishop of Alexandria." This treatise, however, was not written by Vigilius, nor are the twelve books (I–XII) the work of one single author. According to contemporary scholarly consensus, only the first seven books (I–VII) comprise a unit written by one author and the remaining books (VIII–XII) share noth-

(5) What can be said positively about the identity of the pseudonymous author will be outside the scope of this essay.

(6) A comprehensive introduction to the *De Trinitate* is Lorenzo Dattrino, *Il De Trinitate Pseudoatanasiano* (Roma: Institutum Patristicum Augustinianum, 1976) 1–132. The only available English text that deals with the pseudo-Athanasian *De Trinitate* to any significant degree is by Daniel H. Williams, *Ambrose of Milan and the End of the Nicene-Arian Conflicts* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1995) 96–103. See also Appendix III (239–242) of the same book.

ing in common with the first seven books or among themselves. Each of the five books differs from one another in style and theological expressions. Only later were they added to the first seven. Though this enigmatic treatise has been attributed to several figures such as Athanasius, Ambrose, Augustine, Eusebius of Vercelli and Vigilius throughout history, nothing is certain about who wrote it, when it was written and where it was written. In addition to the uncertainty in relation to the authorship and date and place of writing, the pseudo-Athanasian treatise comes down to us in two recensions; Recension I is shorter and unanimously considered prior to the second recension. Recension II is longer due to its correction and expansion of Recension I. When we speak of the pseudo-Athanasian *De Trinitate* and its authorship, we are referring not to the last five books (VIII–XII) but to the first seven books (I–VII) which "form a cohesive ensemble attributable to a single author."[7] The remaining five books are outside of the present study.

Part Two. Origin of the Eusebian Authorship

It was D. G. Morin who first proposed the Eusebian authorship of the *De Trinitate* in 1898.[8] He proposed his hypothesis predominantly based upon viewing *one* manuscript (Vat. Lat. 1319) which contains the following note: SANCTI EUSEBII DE PROPRIIS PERSONIS ET UNITO NOMINE DIVINITATIS. EXPLICIT LIBER II. In addition to poor manuscript support, this Eusebian hypothesis faces serious opposition because the manuscript Vatican 1319 belongs to the 13th century. If one has to draw a conclusion on the question of authorship solely on the basis of manuscript traditions (as Morin himself admits), it is Athanasius who receives the almost unanimous attestation as the author.[9] Morin is also aware of the problem of "the famous verse of three heavenly testimonies," that is, the Johannine Comma, in terms of his Eusebian hypothesis.[10] This Johannine Comma which the author of the *De Trinitate* cites twice in its complete form,[11] Morin notes, "appears for the first time … in the recently discovered writings of the Spaniard

(7) Williams, *Ambrose of Milan...*, 97.

(8) Morin, Les douze livres..., 1–10.

(9) "De nombreux manuscrits donnent un nom, et ce nom est presque invariablement le même: Athanase" (Ibid., 4).

(10) Tres sunt, qui testimonium dicunt in caelo, pater et uerbum et spiritus, et in Christo Iesu unum sunt [1 John 5:7].

(11) *De Trinitate* 1. 50, 69.

Priscillian."[12] This suggests that the *De Trinitate* comes from Spain, not from Northern Italy. He further acknowledges another difficulty which his Eusebian hypothesis produces in relation to the Johannine Comma, that is, why after Eusebius no Italian bishop or even before him cites this text and why none of his contemporaries (Hilary and Lucifer of Caliari), nor later key Latin Fathers (Ambrose, Jerome and Augustine) have ever appealed to it.[13] Two years later in 1900, Morin withdrew completely from the Eusebian hypothesis and came up with the suggestion that Gregory of Elvira might have been the author.

But the Eusebian authorship did not disappear with Morin. Unlike Morin, some scholars who returned to the question of the authorship of the *De Trinitate* were sympathetic with this hypothesis among whom we have to mention Prosper Schepens. Schepens deserves our attention not because he deepened the discussion, but mainly because later V. Bulhart, the editor of the most recent critical edition of the *De Trinitate* (CCSL 9) adopted wholeheartedly his view with respect to the authorship and date of the treatise. Schepens expressed his opinion regarding the authorship of the *De Trinitate* in two places. In his first article (1936), Schepens expresses his long-held "conviction" that the *De Trinitate* is from the pen of Eusebius, yet he fails to provide any evidence for it:

> Bien que j'aie acquis depuis longtemps la conviction que les huit premiers livres du traite susdit de la Trinitate sont l'oeuvre de saint Eusebe de Verceil, je n' oserais revendiquer pour lui le symbole [= Quicumque].[14]

His delayed answer appeared in his second article 15 years later. In this extremely brief essay,[15] he offers two pieces of evidence to demonstrate the Eusbebian authorship of the *De Trinitate*. The first is what Morin had already presented, namely, the testimony of Ms. Vatican

(12) Morin, Les douze livres..., 8. Priscillian cites it in his *Liber Apologeticus* 4 (G. Schepps (hrsg.), Priscillianus. *Tractatus, Canones* (Wien, 1899) (CSEL, 18) 6).

(13) Morin, Les douze livres..., 8.

(14) P. Schepens, Pour l'Histoire du Symbole Quicumque, *Revue d'Histoire Ecclesiastique* 32 (1936) 548–569. The main thesis of this article is that the Athanasian Creed "can come from the hand of the great bishop of Milan (566)" which was originally proposed by Henri Brewer in 1909. Only incidentally (2 pages) does he touch upon our pseudo-Athanasian treatise.

(15) P. Schepens, L'Ambrosiastre et Saint Eusebe de Verceil, *Recherches de science religieuse* 37 (1950) 295–299.

1319. As we have shown above, this argument based upon manuscript traditions, in fact, goes against what Schepens tried to prove. All I need to say is that even those who support the Eusebian authorship recognize how fragile it is. The second is the testimony of *Question 125* of Ambrosiaster which speaks of "a certain Eusebius" whom Schepens believes to be none other than Eusebius of Vercelli. Here is the text:

> Memini me in quodam libello Eusebii quondam egregii in reliquis uiri legisse quia nec Spiritus sanctus sciat mysterium natiuitatis domini Jesu Christi; et admiror tantae doctrinae uirum hanc maculam sancto Spiritui inflixisse. Hoc enim dicens degenerem illum significauit. Neque enim potest dici de Deo esse, si nescit quae Dei sunt… Sin uero substantiae est eiusdem et diuinitatis, quomodo potest nescire quae sua sunt?... Quod plus est concedes et quod minus est retines.
>
> (*PL* 35: 2373; CSEL, 50: 384–385)

According to Schepens, this distinguished man of so great learning (egregii uiri…tantae doctrinae uirum) can only be the famous Eusebius of Vercelli in the West during the latter half of the 4th century because it is typical that only the most renowned are mentioned with a simple name.[16] I completely agree with Schepens that this "certain Eusebius" refers to the first bishop of Vercelli as the laudatory statements indicate. However, the same text which Schepens relies upon goes against his hypothesis that this Eusebius is the author of the *De Trinitate*.[17] The text of Ambrosiaster says that this Eusebius holds that the Holy Spirit is "of the same substance and divinity" (substantiae eiusdem et diuinitatis) with the Father, on the one hand, and the same Spirit does not know "the mystery of the birth of Lord Jesus Christ" (mysterium nativitatis domini Jesu Christi), on the other hand.[18] When

(16) Schepens, L'Ambrosiastre et Saint Eusebe de Verceil..., 296.

(17) Like Schepens, those Eusebian scholars who cite this text of Ambrosiaster as a proof for their hypothesis selectively make use of it, dismissing the Pneumatological statement.

(18) The application of "homoousios" (substantiae eiusdeum) to the Holy Spirit matches what we know about Eusebius of Vercelli. He must have learned this theological move from Athanasius whom he met in person at the Council of Alexandria in 362. In addition, the Pneumatological subordinationism can also be explained from Jerome's comment that the bishop of Vercelli translated into Latin one of the works of Eusebius of Caesarea whose Pneumatology leaves no doubt about that heretical tendency. For a discussion on historical references to Eusebius of Vercelli, see below Part Three. For a

one compares this Pneumatological statement with the *De Trinitate*, one can come to a conclusion without much difficulty that the *De Trinitate* teaches exactly the opposite: there is no sign of subordinationism at all in relation to the Holy Spirit. The pseudonymous author repeatedly states that the Holy Spirit is divine as much as the Father and the Son are divine. This full divinity enables the third person of the Trinity to possess the same divine prerogatives and to do the same works of the Father and the Son, including *the mutual revelation* of the divine persons among themselves. One passage from the *De Trinitate* will suffice to show the dissimilarity between what "a certain Eusebius" taught and what the author of the *De Trinitate* declares:

> Nam sicut pater declarat filium suum in deitate sua, quoniam deus uerus est, ita et filius demonstrat patrem in substantia sua, quoniam deus uerus est; sic et *spiritus sanctus revelat patrem et filium in unita natura sua {aeterna}, quoniam deus uerus est*. Haec est, inquam, unita omnipotens sempiterna trinitas.[19]

Not only are both arguments of Schepens too weak to support his Eusebian position but his dating of the *De Trinitate* also has a serious problem. As for the dating of the *De Trinitate*, Schepens abruptly closes his second article with a short statement that the first recension is written between 345 and 347 and the second sometime (immediately) after the second synod of Sirmium (357) without providing any evidence except that he will offer reasons for his conviction elsewhere.[20] Unfortunately, he did not have a chance to touch on this enigmatic issue once again.

Surprisingly, Vincent Bulhart accepts this extremely shaky, poorly argued position of Schepens without any criticism or modification and published a critical edition of the *De Trinitate* under the name of Eusebius of Vercelli.[21] He says,

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discussion on the doctrine of the Holy Spirit of the bishop of Caesarea, see R. Hanson, *Search for the Christian Doctrine of God* (Grand Rapids, MI: Baker Academic, 2005) 740–741.

(19) *De Trinitate* 5. 33. Emphasis is mine.

(20) "La second édition mentionnant le deuxième synode de Sirmium tenu en 357 ne peut être antérieure à cette date. Quanta à la première édition, je suis convaincu qu'on n'en peut fixer la composition au delà de l'an 347, ni en decà de 345. J'en donnerai ailleurs les raisons" [This is the ending of his essay] (Schepens, L'Ambrosiastre et Saint Eusebe de Verceil..., 299).

(21) V. Bulhart (ed.), *Eusebii Vercellensis Episcopi Quae Supersunt* (Turnholt: Brepolis Press, 1957) (CCSL, 9).

> Synodorum Ariminensis et Sirmiensis secundae a. 357 habitae tantum rec. II mentionem fecit; recensio igitur I ante hunc annum conscripta esse uidetur, intra a. 345 et 347, *ut Schepens putat*. Recensionem II haud ita multo post annum 357 factam esse crediderim animis adhuc excitatis rebus in synodo Sirmiensi gestis.
>
> (CCSL, 9: vii) [Emphasis is mine.]

On this important issue of the authorship and date, the above four lines is all that Bulhart provides us. It is indeed puzzling why he echoes almost *verbatim* the poorly argued proposal of Schepens without further reflection on his part. In any case, his critical edition under the name of Eusebius of Vercelli gives a misleading impression that the question of the authorship has been settled and that Eusebius is the real author of the pseudo-Athanasian *De Trinitate*.

Unlike Schepens and Bulhart whose reflection on the Eusebian authorship is rather disappointing, Daniel H. Williams presents a most complex, tightly argued case for it in his *Ambrose of Milan and the End of the Nicene-Arian Conflicts*.[22] Since Turner and Burn, it took almost a century for another English scholar to take a serious look into Eusebius of Vercelli and the *De Trinitate*. Williams' contribution definitely deserves our recognition. He not only has brought a neglected bishop back into his rightful place but also has succeeded in demystifying the role of Eusebius as a mere assistant to Hilary when the latter was engaged in restoring the West back to the Nicene orthodoxy after his return from exile. The present author completely agrees with his judgement that one major reason for the lack of attention with relation to the bishop of Vercelli "is undoubtedly due to the tiny literary heritage [= three surviving letters] which is connected to [him]."[23] I again agree with him that "*[i]f* this work [= the seven books of the *De Trinitate*] is *correctly* attributed to him, the tendency to underrate his role in this period can be more effectively challenged."[24] Then he actually attempts to make a case for the Eusebian authorship of the *De Trinitate* with which I sharply disagree. He states that "no conclusive argument can be marshalled

(22) D. H. Williams, *Ambrose of Milan and the End of the Nicene-Arian Conflicts* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1995) 96–103 and 239–242.

(23) Williams, *Ambrose of Milan…*, 50. Williams holds that all three letters are authentic.

(24) Ibid., 51. Emphasis is mine.

against the view which names Eusebius as the writer of the (shorter recension) first seven books of [the] *De Trinitate*."[25]

Agreeing with Bulhart and other Eusebian scholars before him, Williams holds that the first seven books of the *De Trinitate* comprise a unified whole and the remaining five books have nothing to do with the first seven. He also adopts Bulhart's proposal that the author of the first seven is Eusebius of Vercelli. Yet he finds Bulhart's chronology (345–347 for the first recension and sometime after 357 for the second recension)[26] quite troublesome and comes up with his own, which was, in fact, first proposed by Morin (1898). He dates the mysterious treatise to be some time between Eusebius' return from exile and his death, that is, between "late 362/early 363" and 370/1, preferably close to the latter date.[27] Here are Williams' main arguments which have led him to conclude that the *De Trinitate* was probably written by Eusebius of Vercelli during the latter years of the 360s. Williams' hypothesis that "there is nothing in the *De Trinitate* which Eusebius could not have said" begins with two solid historical facts; the bishop of Vercelli had been exiled in the East "for over seven years;" he also participated in the Council of Alexandria in 362 before his return to the West.[28] From the first historical datum, he theorizes that a long stay in the East might have provided the bishop of Vercelli with "a broadened theological perspective." His theorizing continues:

> Like Hilary of Poitiers, Eusebius would have become much more informed as to the complexity of certain contemporary issues, Trinitarian and Christological, at a date probably earlier than his western colleagues.[29]

From the second historical reference, he argues that Eusebius may have been well aware of "such theological developments" found in the *Epistola Catholica* and the *Tomus*, documents produced at the Council of Alexandria whose theological assertions, he believes, find "some re-

(25) Williams, *Ambrose of Milan…*, 51. See also page 98 where he says: "Eusebian authorship is just as likely."

(26) As we have seen above, it is, in fact, a proposal by Schepens.

(27) Williams, *Ambrose of Milan...*, 98, no. 198. Elsewhere he dates the treatise somewhat differently: "there is no reason why the first recension could not have been written between the years 365–80" (p. 240).

(28) Ibid., 241.

(29) Ibid.

semblance" with "the theological ideas expressed in the *De trinitate*."[30] Then he lists several theological expressions common to both *De Trinitate* and two documents of Alexandria.

This brief survey on the Eusebian authorship with respect to the *De Triniate* is to point out, perhaps apart from Williams, how little this hypothesis is based upon solid arguments. Now I will provide my case against the Eusebian authorship on two grounds. In Part Three, I will discuss a number of difficulties the Eusebian authorship has to face on historical grounds. Part Four will provide a theological comparison between the authentic writings of Eusebius and the *De Trinitate* which is my response to the theological comparison of Williams.

Part Three. Historical Comparison

What we know about Eusebius in history does not correlate well with Eusebian authorship. The first issue to consider is Hilary's comment on the behaviour of Eusebius at the council of Milan.[31] According to him, Eusebius, when he was forced to sign the condemnation of Athanasius by Valens and his group, said that it is necessary first to examine the faith of bishops at the council because some of them are found corrupt by heretical stain. Then he brought forth a copy of the Creed of Nicaea and said that he would do everything the leaders of the council would demand of him if they all signed the Nicene Creed.[32] This abrupt yet shrewd movement on the part of Eusebius,

(30) Williams, *Ambrose of Milan…*, 241.

(31) Historians find some difficulty reconstructing the ecclesiastical career of Eusebius immediately before and during the council of Milan. One such question, as Williams (*Ambrose of Milan*, 55) notes, is "when did Eusebius actually arrive at the council and find himself at odds with Valens and other anti-Athanasian bishops?" According to the traditional view, Eusebius arrived quite late, after the council had already begun, only at the request of his friends, enemies and even the emperor. Williams provides a new interpretation that "Eusebius came to Milan at the beginning of the council, but once he experienced the conflict with Valens and his allies…he left the city and returned to Vercelli (Williams, *Ambrose of Milan...*, 57). For a rebuttal to this new interpretation, see M. Simonetti, Eusebio nella controversia ariana, in: E. dal Covolo, R. Uglione, and G. M. Vian (a cura di), *Eusebio di Vercelli e il Suo Tempo* (Roma: Libreria Ateneo Salesiano, 1997) 170–172. Whatever view is taken, the discussion that follows is not affected by it.

(32) "...conuentus, ut in Athanasium subscriberet, ait: de sacerdotali fide prius oportere constare; compertos sibi quosdam ex his, qui adessent, heretica labe pollutos. expositam fidem apud Niceam, cuius superius meminimus,

drawing the attention of the participants away from the disciplinary plane (condemnation of Athanasius) to the doctrinal one by the introduction of the Nicene Creed, was no ordinary routine at that time. In the West, as in the East, the Nicene Creed and its watchword had been virtually ignored as the symbol of orthodoxy until the middle of the 350s.[33] Though it had been set aside from the life and theological reflection of the Church for almost three decades since its creation, the Nicene Creed "formalmente concervava ancora valore ufficiale" because it was never rejected in an explicitly official manner.[34] It was Eusebius together with Pope Liberius who brought out this forgotten Creed publicly at the center of these theological controversies as the test and rule of orthodoxy in the West. If this Creed was so dear to Eusebius,[35] it is strange to find that the author of the pseudo-Athanasian *De Trinitate* shows virtually no interest in the Creed of Nicaea as well as in the term "homoousios." The Nicene watchword "homoousios" appears only once at the closing moment of his entire treatise.[36] Its Latin equivalent "unius substantiae (cum patre)" does not appear at all in Recension I. It appears once in Recension II in a substantially modified version of the Creed of Nicaea.[37] Likewise, the term "Nicaea" is also mentioned only once in Recension II. Even there it is not used to underscore its authority as the symbol of orthodoxy, but is only mentioned in passing *as a part of a polemic against Hosius* who revoked the Creed which he signed at Nicaea.[38] Throughout the entire treatise, the

posuit in medio spondens omnia se, quae postularent, esse facturum, si fidei professionem scripsissent" (Hilary, *Apendix ad Coll. Antiar. Par*., II. 3; A. Feder (ed.), Hilarius Pictaviensis. *Tractatus mysteriorum, Fragmenta, Ad Constantium Imperatorem, Hymni*; Pseudi-Hilarius. *Epistula ad Abram filiam, Hymni* (Wien, 1916) (CSEL, 65) 187).

(33) For a brief history on how the Creed of Nicaea and its watchword were received by the participants in the Arian controversies after 325, see Williams, *Ambrose of Milan…*, 12–18.

(34) Simonetti, Eusebio nella controversia ariana…, 158.

(35) Concerning how dear Nicaea was to Eusebius, see the discussion below on the council of Alexandria (362) and its *Tomus*.

(36) *De Trinitate* 7. 30.

(37) Ibid., 6. 9. II.

(38) "Sicut tu, Osi, iam in aetate prolixa, qui [non] per rudimenta in sinodo Syrmiensi catholicae auctor fuisti, ubi fidem tuam, quam in Nicaea conscribseras, irritam fecisti dum regiae potestati famularis, praeterea qui morti esses perquam uicinus" (*De Trinitate* 1. 60. II). A portion of the Creed of Nicaea also appears once in Recension II (6. 9. II).

pseudonymous author relates the basis of his orthodoxy as well as the Catholic faith again and again to Scripture (scriptura) alone; the Arian opponent constantly asks the author of the *De Trinitate* to demonstrate that the latter's theological argument is in line with the authority (auctoritas), that is, Scripture. No council is mentioned to function as authority over theological debates between the "catholic" writer and his Arian opponent. On the contrary, the pseudonymous author discredits the authority of an Arian council by the authority of Scripture.[39] If one is reminded of the fact that due attention was granted to the authority of the Council of Nicaea and its watchword by most Latin writers contemporary with Eusebius (Lucifer,[40] Gregory,[41] Phoebadius,[42] and

(39) *De Trinitate* 5. 7. II.

(40) Lucifer asserts numerous times throughout his treatises that he upholds the faith proclaimed at Nicaea (apud Niciam) as the apostolic and evangelical faith (apostolica atque evangelica fides): *De non Conveniendo* 12; *De Regibus* 1, 9, 10 (twice); *De Athanasio* 1. 20, 1. 27, 1. 36, 1. 40, 2. 6, 2. 7, 2. 8; *De non Parcendo* 26, 32; *Moriundum* 4. At the same time, on several occasions he quotes the actual Creed of Nicaea: *De Athanasio* 1. 40, 2. 11; *De non Parcendo* 18. Hanson misquotes the first reference (*De Athanasio* 1: 40) in: R. Hanson, *Search for the Christian Doctrine of God,* 513, no. 31. His reference to "*De Ath*. I. x. I (68. 69)" must be changed into "*De Ath*. I. xl (68. 69)." The same reference mistake is on p. 514, no. 35 where he gives "*De Ath*. I. x.1 (69)" instead of "*De. Ath*. I. xl (69)." The reference to the texts of Lucifer for Hanson as well as the present author is based upon G. F. Diercks (ed.), *Lucifer Calaritanus. Opera quae supersunt* (Turnhout, 1978) (CCSL, 8).

(41) Gregory begins his *De Fide* with a full quotation of the Creed of Nicaea (V. Bulhart, J. Fraipont, M. Simonetti (eds.), Gregorius Iliberritanus, Gregorius Iliberritanus (Ps.), Faustinus Luciferianus. *Opera quae supersunt. Dubia et spuria; Opera* (Turnhout, 1967) (CCSL, 69) 221) and ends the treatise with an assertion that he embraces and observes the text of the Nicene Council with all faithfulness and vigour: "Nicaenae autem synodi tractatum omni animi nisu ex tota fide seruantes amplectimur" (Ibid., 247). Furthermore, the major part of his treatise (ch. 20–95; Ibid., 225–246) is a detailed explication and defence of three interrelated expressions drawn from the Creed: 1) the Nicene watchword "homoousios," 2) the phrase "deus de deo" and 3) the sentence that the Son of God is "mutabilis" and "conuertibilis."

(42) Phoebadius, a contemporary of Eusebius wrote his treatise *Contra Arianos* without explicitly citing the actual content of the Nicene Creed or its watchword. But unlike the author of the *De Trinitate*, he certainly regards it as the symbol of orthodoxy. He portrays those who gathered at Nicaea as "men of blessed memory" (beatae memoriae viri) and asserts that they wrote "the perfect rule of the catholic faith" (perfectam fidei catholicae regulam) (*Contra Arianos* 6; *PL* 20, 17). Although he does not mention the Nicene watchword

Hilary[43]), little interest in the Creed of Nicaea by the pseudonymous author of the *De Trinitate* suggests that Eusebius is not a likely candidate for the authorship of the pseudo-Athanasian treatise. He who first re-introduced the Creed of Nicaea to the public arena as the basis of orthodoxy even at the cost of his being exiled should have affirmed the authority of Nicaea far more than what is said in the *De Trinitate*. He should have shown at least the same interest as his contemporary bishops did, if not more.

Secondly, Jerome's account of the bishop of Vercelli also puts in doubt the Eusebian authorship. According to Jerome, Eusebius of Vercelli translated into Latin *Commentaries on the Psalms* written by Eusebius of Caesarea.[44] This is the only work Jerome mentions with respect to the literary work of Eusebius. First of all, his silence on the *De Trinitate* in the *De Viris Illustribus* 96 as a work of the bishop of Vercelli is worthy to note.[45] If we take into account that in his own time Eusebius together with Hilary was regarded as the champion and ardent defender of Nicene orthodoxy as well as the leading authority in matters of doctrine, it is hard to understand why Jerome who was well informed of affairs in Rome and Northern Italy would have omitted mentioning a doctrinal treatise of the *De Trinitate* if Eusebius had actu-

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"homoousios," the fact that he defends vigorously the use of the term "substantia" immediately after praising the Fathers of 325 (*Contra Arianos* 7; *PL* 20, 17) indicates that he is, in fact, defending the Nicene watchword in his treatise. In the case of Phoebadius, we may argue that the absence of the term "homoousios," while his defending its theology, probably derives from the fact that his treatise is written immediately after the blasphemy of Sirmium (357) which prohibits the use of "homoousios" and other substance language. In the case of Eusebius, he was already exiled in the East since 355 and there is no reason for him to be cautious about speaking explicitly of the authority of Nicaea and the controversial term "homoousios."

(43) Even Hilary who is not a rigid, recalcitrant defender of the Nicene Creed like Athanasius or Lucifer, regards "homoousios" and the Fathers of Nicaea as the symbol of orthodoxy in his *De Trinitate* 4. 4–7 (P. Smulders (ed.), Hilarius Pictaviensis, *De trinitate. Praefatio. Libri I–VII* (Turnhout, 1979) (CCSL, 62) 103–106) and gives extensive attention to the Nicene Creed and its watchword in his *De Synodis* 77–92 (*PL* 10, 530–546).

(44) Jerome, *De Vir. Ill*. 96; *Epistula* 61. 2.

(45) Williams does not take this argument seriously: "Of course the strength of this argument is only as good as the general accuracy of Jerome's notices, which is of itself a questionable assumption, and must not be given undue weight" (Williams, *Ambrose of Milan…*, 239).

ally written it, especially when the pseudonymous treatise excels all the dogmatic writings between 360s and 380s in terms of theological maturity.[46] It is possible that either he was not aware of the treatise or he knew of its existence but did not wish to include it in his description of the bishop of Vercelli. The case that he might not have known the treatise is not convincing if one considers the fame and respect he had enjoyed as bishop. The other case, that the book was not worthy to be mentioned, is not a solid argument either. If Eusebius had written the treatise in question sometime after his return from exile before his death (370), this treatise must have been considered unique and found no equal for its extraordinary maturity of the Trinitarian theology. I do not see any reason why Jerome would have omitted it if Eusebius had actually written one.[47]

With regard to his knowledge of Greek, Jerome indicates that the Latin bishop most certainly knew Greek very well. With that historical fact in mind, let us turn to the pseudo-Athanasian *De Trinitate*. The treatise is written in Latin but there are instances, though extremely rare, where the pseudonymous author employs Greek terms. One such case is found in Book VII which he ends as follows: "ac per hoc unita est patris et fili et sancti spiritus substantia, quam Graeci dicunt omousion (usiam), sed et unita est eorum (eiusdem trinitatis) operatio in factura."[48] He equates the Latin "substantia" with the latinized Greek term "omousion." This wrong equation causes Recension II to correct "omousion" into "ousiam."[49] This translation slip is something we should not expect from someone whose competence in Greek enabled him to translate a Greek text into Latin and who certainly knew the Latin version of the Nicene Creed. Even the contemporaries of Eusebius such as Lucifer and Gregory of Elvira whose knowledge of Greek may not have been as great as Eusebius, introduce the Nicene Creed and its watchword and translate the latter with a proper Latin phrase,

(46) No other Catholic author in the 4th century has cited this text, either.

(47) Is it not because Jerome knew some dogmatic works of the bishop of Vercelli and found them controversial like Ambrosiaster (*Question* 125) that he omitted mentioning them in his *De Viris Illustribus*?

(48) *De Trinitate* 7. 30. The sign ( ) signifies the change that Recension II made of the original work.

(49) In Recension II, another example of corresponding the Latin substantia to 'usia' is found in 2. 44. II: "[hoc] quod sentitur ueritas ac dealitas siue substantia, de qua graece [*sic*] dicunt usia, quae est manifeste unita plenitudo diuinitatis."

"unius substantiae."[50] If Eusebius of Vercelli had written the pseudo-Athanasian *De Trinitate*, he probably would not have made such an obvious mistake in the first place. Furthermore, the Latin phrase "quam Graeci dicunt omousion" is an exact wording of the Latin version of the Nicene Creed in order to render "unius substantiae (cum patre)." That is to say, this interpretive sentence is located in the Christological context of the Nicene Creed and all the Latin writers from 355–370 do not go beyond this credal understanding. The pseudonymous author of the *De Trinitate*, however, seems to take the same phrase from the Creed and applies it to the Trinitarian context (of the Father, the Son and the Holy Spirit) which is more evidence that the *De Trinitate* does not follow the typical patterns of Latin Trinitarian theology between 355 and 370.

Part Four: Doctrinal Comparison

In Part Three, I have pointed out two historical facts regarding Eusebius of Vercelli and how they are in conflict with the Eusebian authorship. Here we are to make a doctrinal comparison of the *De Trinitate* and Eusebius' own writings, namely, three letters and a short note in the *Tomus ad Antiochenos*. I begin with the latter which contains the very words of Eusebius despite its briefness.

1. *Tomus* and *De Trinitate: Christology*

After the death of Constantius, Julian issued an edict to make all exiled bishops under the rule of his predecessor return to their sees. Eusebius, who had been exiled in upper Egypt at the time of Constantine's death, participated in the Council of Alexandria (362) headed by Athanasius before his return to the West. At the latter part of the *Tomus*, it is reported that Eusebius signs the document *yet* with the following note:

> I Eusebius, according to your exact confession made on either side by agreement concerning the Subsistences, also add my agreement; further concerning the Incarnation of our Saviour, namely that the Son of God has become Man, taking everything upon Himself wi-

(50) Lucifer, *De Athanasio* 2. 11; *De non Parcendo* 18 (…deum verum de deo vero, natum non factum, unius substantiae cum patre, quod graeci dicunt homoousion (g)…), 24 (…homoousion to patri (g), quod dicunt Graeci, nos vero Romani dicimus 'unius substantiae cum patre'…); *Moriundum* 4; Gregory of Elvira, *De Fide* 1 (…unius substantiae cum patre, quod Graeci dicunt omoousion…), 32–33 (Sed dicis mihi, omoousion id est unius substantiae nomen...), 53–55.

> thout sin, like the composition of our old man. I ratify the text of the letter. And whereas the Sardican paper is ruled out, to avoid the appearance of issuing anything beyond the creed of Nicaea, I also add my consent, in order that the creed of Nicaea may not seem by it to be excluded, and [I agree] it should not be published. I pray for your health in the Lord.[51]

This concluding note speaks of three things, all of which have been discussed one way or the other in the preceding part of the *Tomus*: 1) the profession of faith articulated in Sardica (343), 2) the question on the one or three subsistences (hypostasis) and finally 3) the question on the incarnation of our Saviour. The setting aside of the profession of faith of Sardica (343) by Eusebius to have the authority of the Nicene Creed unchallenged is in harmony with Hilary's account that it was the bishop of Vercelli who, for the first time in the three decades after the Council of Nicaea, put forward the Creed of Nicaea which had kept an official yet peripheral position in the West, to the center of the theological arena during the Council of Milan (355). This high regard of Eusebius for the Nicene Creed as the symbol of orthodoxy also agrees with a general acknowledgement of the *Tomus* which considers Nicaea as the only authority on the matters of "faith and religion."[52]

On the second question of "hypostasis," Eusebius states that he agrees with the *Tomus*' position on the question of one subsistence (hypostasis) and three subsistences in the Godhead. Since the first two questions in his personal note are completely in line with what precedes it, it is most likely that the real reason Eusebius added his own note when he was signing the *Tomus* lies in his dissatisfaction with the Christological formulation of the *Tomus*. According to Simonetti, the Christology of the *Tomus* is expressed "in terms intentionally ambiguous" not to offend both Antiochene delegates of Paulinus and those of Apollinarius both of whom were present at the Council:

> Atanasio non era uomo da abandonare un amico fedele in difficoltà e d'altro canto non poteva vedere di buono occhio l'insorgere di

(51) *Tomus ad Antiochenos* 10 (P. Schaff and H. Wace (eds.), Athanasius, *Select Writings and Letters*, in: *A Select Library of the Nicene and Post-Nicene Fathers of the Christian Church*, second series, vol. 4 (Buffalo, NY: Christian Literature Publishing Co., 1892) 486).

(52) The *Tomus* frequently mentions the sufficiency and unique authority of Nicaea: 3 (twice), 4, 5 (3 times), 6, 8, 9, 10 (twice), 11 (twice).

una nuova questione che minacciava di dividere ulteriormente i già largamente minoritari niceni di Antiochia.[53]

The *Tomus* says that "the Saviour had not a body without a soul [apsychon], nor without sense [anaistheton] or intelligence [anoeton]; for it was not possible, when the Lord had become Man for us, that His body should be without intelligence [anoeton]."[54] Despite the fact that the *Tomus* begins with a declaration that it was drafted by Athanasius together with Eusebius and Asterius, it is more likely that it was predominantly from the pen of Athanasius. Even if we take the text at face value that all three bishops are responsible for the making of the *Tomus*, Eusebius' personal clarification with respect to the Incarnation seems to tell us that the bishop of Vercelli was not fully satisfied with what was expressed in the *Tomus*. The phrase "soma apsychon" can mean "a body without a soul" like the above translation. It can also be rendered as "a body without life or vitality" in a more general sense.[55] In the latter's case, Apollinarius and his party would have accepted it without much difficulty. This ambiguity seems to be what Athanasius wanted and what Eusebius did not wish to see. Then it follows that the additional note is a doctrinal clarification on the part of Eusebius without repudiating openly the patriarch of Alexandria.[56] In stating that "the Son of God has become Man, taking everything upon Himself without sin, like the composition of our old man," Eusebius makes it absolutely clear that what the Son of God took is a complete human being (Man) exactly like the first Adam except sin. His emphasis on the complete humanity of Christ in the *Tomus* is in total agreement with the doctrine of Christ which he expressed in his own second letter, which we will see shortly. Both the phrases "perfect man" of *Letter 2* and "Taking everything…our old man" of the *Tomus* demonstrate how central the integrity of the humanity of Christ was to the bishop of Vercelli.

Now when we attempt to compare what we found in the *Tomus* with the pseudo-Athanasian *De Trinitate* with regard to Christology, we see little resemblance. Of the seven books of the *De Trinitate*, the entire Book III is devoted to Christology proper. The predominant theme is the double condition of the Mediator (true God and true man)

(53) Simonetti, Eusebio nella controversia ariana..., 164.

(54) *Tomus ad Antiochenos* 7 (Schaff and Wace, Athanasius, *Select Writings and Letters...*, 485).

(55) Simonetti, Eusebio nella controversia ariana, 164.

(56) Ibid., 164–165.

and a thorough distinction between God and man. Even if it discusses the theme of Incarnation at length, the pseudonymous author, however, does not discuss at all the complete humanity of the assumed man. Certainly it was outside of his theological concerns while he was composing Book III. Elsewhere, there is one specific reference to the humanity of Christ, mentioning explicitly that Christ is "totus homo" who has both soul and body. But even here its significance is minimal. It is found once in Recension II of Book IV as *just one* of a number of anathema lists. From this near silence one may infer that the integrity of human Christ does not concern the pseudonymous author of the *De Trinitate* at the time of his writing it. If Eusebius were the author of the *De Trinitate*, this lack of interest in the full humanity of Christ which is undeniably clear in all his surviving documents is hard to explain, especially if one considers that the Apollinarian controversy became more and more intensified after the Council of Alexandria (362) and during the latter part of Eusebius' life. The fact that the *De Trinitate* neither mentions Apollinarius nor indicates a sign of any Apollinarian threat seems to lead us to the conclusion that probably the *De Trinitate* is not from the hand of Eusebius.

2. The *Letters* of Eusebius and *De Trinitate*

Now we will turn to the three extant letters attributed to Eusebius of Vercelli among which the first two are unanimously regarded as authentic.[57] The first letter written around late 354/355 is a short reply to Emperor Contantius, that he would appear at the upcoming Council of Milan (355). The second is a rather lengthy letter written sometime between 355–359 during his first exile while he was kept in prison under the supervision of the Arian bishop, Patrophilus in Palestine.[58] If we first compare these authentic letters of Eusebius with the pseudo-Athanasian *De Trinitate* in terms of literary style and vocabulary,

(57) V. Bulhart et al. (eds.), Eusebius Vercellensis, Filastrius Brixiensis, Hegemonius (Ps.), Isaac Iudaeus, Archidiaconus Romanus, Fortunatianus Aquileiensis, Chromatius Aquileiensis. *Opera quae supersunt.; Diversorum hereseon liber.; Adversus haereses.; Opera quae supersunt.; De reconciliandis paenitentibus.; Commentarii in evangelia.; Opera quae supersunt* (Turnhout, 1957) (CCSL, 9) 103–109. Bulhart believes the third letter to be also from the hand of the bishop of Vercelli (CCSL, 9: 110). For literature on the question of authenticity of the third letter, see Williams, *Ambrose of Milan…*, 50, n. 65.

(58) For the dating of the letters of Eusebius and the others related to him, see Williams, *Ambrose of Milan...*, 238.

there is little commonality found between the two writings. Bulhart has noted a number of "remarkable linguistic particularities" of the *De Trinitate* in his preface and the lists take up 22 pages of his edition.[59] Strangely, none of them appear in the surviving letters of Eusebius.[60]

When we move to the doctrinal comparison between the two, the result is same. Though both letters are almost exclusively historical in nature, *Letter 2* which he wrote to his congregation from Sythopolis in Palestine contains a brief doctrinal note which runs as follows:

> Nouit hic omnipotens deus, nouit et eius unigenitus inenarrabiliter de ipso natus filius, qui salutis nostrae causa deus sempiternae uirtutis hominem perfectum induit, pati uoluit, morte triumphata tertio die resurrexit, ad dexteram patris sedet uenturus iudicare uiuos et mortuos, nouit et spiritus sanctus, testis est ecclesia catholica, quae sic confitetur.[61]

The context suggests that the phrase "omnipotens deus" must refer to the Father. This description of the Father as "omnipotens deus" and the Son as "unigenitus deus" and the Holy Spirit with no further qualification is in perfect harmony with the contemporary status of the Latin Trinitarian theology between the late 50s and early 60s of the 4th century found in Phoebadius, Hilary, Gregory and Lucifer. It is also the same traditional pattern we find in the Creed of Nicaea which Eusebius cherished dearly.[62] In stark contrast, the author of the pseudo-Athanasian *De Trinitate*, even without a hint of ambiguity, states the full divinity and complete equality of all three members of the Trinity. He says, "qualem et quantum in diuinitate confiteris esse patrem, talem et tantum dicas et filium, sic et spiritum sanctum."[63] The rest of the book is a demonstration of his audacious claim. Except

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(59) Bulhart, Eusebius Vercellensis, Filastrius Brixiensis... (CCSL, 9) vii–xxviii.

(60) B. Botte, review of: Bulhart et al. (eds.), Eusebius Vercellensis, Filastrius Brixiensis, Hegemonius (Ps.), Isaac Iudaeus, Archidiaconus Romanus, Fortunatianus Aquileiensis, Chromatius Aquileiensis, *Recherches de Théologie Ancienni et Médiévale* 25 (1958) 365; Hanson, *The Search for the Christian Doctrine of God...*, 508.

(61) *Epistula* 2.5.1 (CCSL, 9:106). The predominantly historical nature of the letter keeps all previous scholars including Williams who propose the Eusebian authorship from making a doctrinal comparison with the *De Trinitate*.

(62) I owe this observation to Michael Slusser who chaired my presentation at the North American Patristic Conference, Chicago, in 2009.

(63) *De Trinitate* 2. 46.

for the personal property, he ascribes all the paternal titles to the Son and the Holy Spirit. The Son and the Holy Spirit possess the same common name (unitum nomen) with the Father such as "uerus deus," "dominus" and "spiritus."[64] In addition, he does not hesitate to assign the title "creator" to all three persons.[65] Even the term "omnipotens" which traditionally has been regarded as an exclusive title of the Father is equally dedicated to the Son *and* the Holy Spirit.[66]

In addition to the sharp divergence with respect to the maturity of the Trinitarian reflection, there is also a noticeable difference between *Letter 2* and the *De Trinitate* in the doctrine of Christ. According to *Letter 2*, Eusebius describes the incarnation as God clothing the perfect man (deus sempiternae uirtutis hominem perfectum induit). He seemed to use "hominem perfectum" to highlight that, in the incarnation, God put on the complete human being who possesses both soul and body, as the adjective "perfectum" indicates. On the contrary, as noted above, the *De Trinitate* as a whole pays little attention to the full humanity of the Mediator. As Williams correctly notes, Book III of the *De Trinitate* which is exclusively devoted to the theme of Christology and contains "a lengthy discussion of the [I]ncarnation" does not deal with the full humanity of Christ at all.[67] Both the verb "induit" and the noun phrase "hominem perfectum" of *Letter 2* do not appear at all in the pseudo-Athanasian *De Trinitate*. Instead, the favourite expression to describe the Incarnation for the author of the *De Trinitate* is "deus hominem adsumpsit."[68] Except for rare instances of verbal forms such as "accepisse" and "suscepisse (suscepit),"[69] the verb "adsumpsit" is predominant. If we search an expression of anything equivalent to "hominem perfectum" of *Letter 2*, it would be "uerus homo." However, the latter almost always appears paired with "deus uerus" as a doctrinal formula to signify the dual condition of the Mediator (mediator est deus uerus et homo uerus), not to highlight the complete humanity of the Mediator. There is, however, one expression in Book VI

(64) *De Trinitate* 1. 11–14, 1. 51; 2. 5; 6. 5.

(65) "Vae uobis, qui absque (non per) *hunc factorem deum* patrem et filium et spiritum sanctum cuncta, quae in caelis sunt et in terra, id est uisibilia et inuisibilia, facta esse creditis" (Ibid., 6. 16. 10). Emphasis is mine.

(66) Ibid., 1. 12, 18; 5. 29–33; 6. 5. 2.

(67) Williams, *Ambrose of Milan…*, 241.

(68) *De Trinitate* 3. 22–25.

(69) Ibid., 3. 23, 27.

of the *De Trinitate* which explicitly underscores this full humanity of the Mediator and which can be compared with "hominem perfectum" in *Letter 2* of Eusebius. It reads, "Maledictus, qui hunc totum hominem, id est animam et corpus quod adsumpsit… non confitetur."[70] This is the only instance that the author of the *De Trinitate* uses "totum hominem" and it appears in Recension II.[71] To show the full humanity of Christ, *Letter 2* uses "hominem perfectum" and the *De Trinitate* "totum hominem" which is another proof that the two documents seem not to come from the same author.

Finally, both the *De Trinitate* and *Letter 2* differ from each other even in doxology. The former is completely Trinitarian: "Ipsi trinitati unitae inenarrabili honor et gloria in saecula saeculorum. Amen."[72] On the contrary, the authentic letter of Eusebius betrays a completely Christological pattern:

> ... et ut nos, qui deprimimur, possimus uobiscum liberati gaudere; quod praestare dignabitur dominus petentibus uobis per dominum nostrum Iesum Christum, qui est secum benedictus a saeculis et in omnia saecula saeculorum. Amen.[73]

Some might object that the comparison is not worthwhile because *Letter 2* is thoroughly Christological without mention of the Father and the Holy Spirit and the *De Trinitate* is Trinitarian. Of course, one wishes to know what doxological form Eusbeius would have produced if he added the Father and the Holy Spirit into his surviving letter. That could have given more credit to the above comparison.[74] With all its shortcomings, one wonders who in the West between 362 and 370 would have used such a mature doxology of the *De Trinitate* where all three persons are equally adored. In short, this Trinitarian, Christological and doxological comparison between *Letter 2* of Eusebius of Vercelli and the *De Trinitate* of the pseudonymous author leads to a tentative conclusion that there is little resemblance between the two treatises.

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(70) *De Trinitate* 6. 15. 30b. II.

(71) If one allows that the second edition is also by the same author.

(72) *De Trinitate* 4.24.

(73) *Epistula* 2.10. 2 (Bulhart, Eusebius Vercellensis, Filastrius Brixiensis... (CCSL, 9) 109).

(74) Led by Ambrosiaster's criticism of Eusebius and his Pneumatology (*Question* 125), I am of an opinion that Eusebius could not have managed to produce the mature doxology we find in the *De Trinitate*.

3. Doctrinal Content of the *De Trinitate*

No source can bring up a more fruitful result regarding the authorship and date of the *De Trinitate* than the theological content of the treatise itself because each page of the seven books is full of doctrinal points that the pseudonymous author believes to be orthodox and catholic. Of course it requires a careful analysis of the theology of the text and its rightful positioning in Latin Trinitarian literature of the 4th and 5th centuries. Though both macro and micro approaches to the text will complement each other in narrowing down the question of whether Eusebius could have written such a text, we pass over the micro approach for the sake of brevity, that is to say, an examination of the details of its Trinitarian theology. Rather, we will briefly touch upon the macro approach to the text, namely, an examination of the overall structure of the treatise in question in relation to the Latin Trinitarian literature of the late 4th century and the 5th century.

The overall structure of the seven books can be summed up as Trinity followed by Christology and Blessings/Curses. The pseudo-Athanasian *De Trinitate* consists of seven books. The first two books are completely dedicated to the doctrine of the Trinity. Book III is exclusively Christological. Thus a clear structural pattern of Trinity-Christology emerges in the first three books. Books IV and V, overall, repeat and expand the Trinitarian and Christological subject-matters found in the first three books. Book VI introduces a new element to the structural pattern of the *De Trinitate*, that is, Blessings and Curses. And Book VII closes the entire treatise with the doctrine of the Trinity. What concerns us is that the pseudo-Athanasian *De Trinitate* displays three key structural elements in order: Trinity-Christology-Blessings/Curses.

As we have observed above, the overall structure of the seven books can be summed up as Trinity-Christology-Blessings/Curses. Then the question we should ask is "Where does one find a similar structure in Latin dogmatic history?" If we examine the overall structure of Latin dogmatic literature in the 350s and 360s, whether that of Hilary, Phoebadius, Gregory of Elvira or Lucifer, the fundamental theological frame still centers around the Father and the Son while the Holy Spirit is put aside, enjoying only a peripheral status. Williams also comes to a similar conclusion with regard to the anti-Homoian writings between the 360s and 370s.[75] It is Ambrose who first approached the doctrine of God comprehensively, including the Holy Spirit at the center of his theologi-

(75) Williams, *Ambrose of Milan...*, 83–103.

cal discussion together with the Father and the Son, around 380. It is also found in Augustine's *De Trinitate* in a most explicit fashion. It is true that, like the dogmatic treatises published between the 350s and 370s, the main concern of the pseudo-Athanasian *De Trinitate* is Arianism. The notable difference, however, is that the former refutes Arianism in a Christological context, but the latter treats it in a fully Trinitarian context. Again we begin to see this similar pattern of the Arian polemics in a Trinitarian framework in Ambrose's *De Spiritu Sancto*[76] and find its full-blown shape in Augustine's *De Trinitate*[77] and *Collatio Augustini cum Maximino Arrianorum episcopo/Contra Maximinum*.[78]

Furthermore, this structure of Trinity-Christology-Blessings/Curses is virtually the same as that of the *Quicumque*. In addition to the overall structural resemblance of the *De Trinitate* to the *Quicumque*, the Trinitarian theology of the *De Trinitate* reveals the same maturity and same theological pattern as the *Quicumque* though the precise wordings are different from each other. The following is excerpts from each writing regarding the doctrine of the Trinity.

Quicumque (Kelly, *Athanasian Creed…*, 129–130)	*De Trinitate* (CCSL, 9)
Increatus pater. increatus filius. increatus et spiritus sanctus. Inmensus pater. inmensus filius. inmensus et spiritus sanctus. Aeternus pater. aeternus filius. aeternus spiritus sanctus (8–10). Et tamen **non tres aeterni**. Sed unus aeternus. Sicut **non tres increati nec tres immensi**. sed unus increatus et unus inmensus (11–12). Similiter omnipotens pater. omnipotens filius. omnipotens	Nam si haec una adque eadem ipsa est multiplex praesaga sapientia patris et fili et spiritus sancti, quae est una uirtus siue una forma magnitudinis siue una maiestas siue una claritas, quae in hanc unitam deitatem plenitudinis secundum scribturae regulam in hoc loco conlecta repperiuntur, numquid sic in eadem deitate trinitatis potest aduersus scribturas referri ut **tres sapientias** aut **tres uirtutes** aut **tres imagines** aut … **tres claritates**

(76) O. Faller (ed.), Ambrosius. *De spiritu sancto, De incarnationnis dominicae* (Wien, 1964) (CSEL, 79) 15–222.

(77) W. J. Mountain and F. Glorie (eds.), Augustinus, *De trinitate libri XV* (Turnhout: 1968) (CCSL, 50–50A).

(78) *PL* 42, 709–814. See also Fulgentius' *Contra Fabianum* (J. Fraipont (ed.), Fulgentius Ruspensis, *Opera* (Turnhout, 1968) (CCSL, 91A) 763–866) and *De Fide ad Petrum* (Ibid., 711–760).

spiritus sanctus. Et tamen non **tres omnipotentes**. sed unus omnipotens. (13–14)	aut **tres plenitudines diuinitatis** uel cetera huiuscemodi pluraliter Arriomanitarum more dicamus? (1.58–59)
Ita **deus** pater. **deus** filius. **deus** spiritus sanctus. Et tamen **non tres dii**. sed unus est deus. Ita **dominus** pater. dominus filius. dominus spiritus sanctus. Et tamen **non tres domini**. sed **unus est dominus**. Quia sicut singulatim unam quamque personam deum et dominum confiteri christiana veritate conpellimur. ita **tres deos aut dominos** dicere catholica religione prohibemur. (15–20)	An ignoras, quia pater **unus deus** est et filius **unus deus** est et spiritus sanctus **unus deus** est? … Sic et **unus spiritus** est, quia unita est eorum [pater/filius/spiritus sanctus] deitas. Nam si tu … **unitum nomen spiritus ter** designasti, numquid **tres spiritus** edicere oportebit? Absit …. Nonne quia **unitatis nomen** per personas **ter** designaui, numquid **tres deos** potero confiteri? … Idcirco nos, qui fidem euangelicam adque apostolicam patrum tenemus, **nec tres deos nec tres dominos nec tres spiritus** uel cetera ad huiuscemodi pluralitatis dicta nec tenemus nec in corde nostro suscipimus. (1.23–27)

Though it is hard to pinpoint the exact dating of the composition of the Athanasian Creed, it is generally agreed upon that it was written sometime between c. 435 and c. 535.[79] The pattern of Trinity and Christology is also contained in the Creed of the First Council of Toledo which was held in 400[80] and in a group of several Latin creeds whose dating is generally put sometime after 380: *Fides Romanorum*, *Fides Catholica*, *Libellus Fidei*, and *Fides Damasi*.[81] Then, this affinity with the *Quicumque* and other Latin creeds brings us to a position that the pseudo-Athanasian treatise was definitely written after 380. That is to say, the structural pattern of Trinity followed by Christology is a

(79) J. N. D. Kelly, *The Athanasian Creed* (London: Adam and Charles Black, 1964) 112–114. Kelly prefers "the latter decades of the 5th century" (p. 114).

(80) J. Vives (ed.), *Concilios Visigóticos e Hispano-Romanos* (Barcelona: Consejo Superior de Investigaciones Científicas, 1963) 19–33.

(81) K. Künstle, *Eine Bibliothek der Symbole* (Mainz: Verlag von Franz Kirchheim, 1900) 43–45; *Antipriscilliana* (Freiburg: Herdersche Verlagshandlung, 1905) 46–58.

post-381 (more preferably 5th century and thereafter) *topos* in the theological writings of the West and the *De Trinitate* undoubtedly reflects that pattern.

We have compared the two surviving letters of Eusebius, his Christological note in the *Tomus* and historical references to Eusebius with the pseudo-Athanasian treatise and we have found little resemblance between them. In addition, an examination of the theological content of the *De Trinitate* on the macro level again indicates that the pseudo-Athanasian treatise shows little likeness to Latin theology during the lifetime of Eusebius of Vercelli. Rather, it reveals that the theological pattern of the *De Trinitate* shares a close affinity with the theological documents written after 380, preferably near the end of the 4th century or in the 5th century. This comparative examination together with an extremely shaky foundation for the hypothesis of Eusebian authorship leads the present author to the conclusion that Eusebius probably did not write *De Trinitate*.

SUMMARY

A number of studies have been undertaken concerning the pseudo-Athnasian *De Trinitate* since the late 19th century. Almost all of them, however, were directed toward solving *who* and *when* of the text with little attention to the content of the treatise itself. In this essay I have attempted to fill this scholarly gap by returning to the question of authorship/date with a theological analysis of the *De Trinitate.* We have contrasted salient features of the Trinitarian theology of the pseudo-Athanasian treatise with those of Latin Trinitarian texts produced in the 4th and 5th centuries, with the surviving documents written by Eusebius of Vercelli and with historical references to the bishop of Vercelli. This comparative study has oriented us to a position that the pseudo-Athanasian *De Trinitate* most likely did not derive from the bishop of Vercelli. I want to end this essay by repeating what I have indicated in the beginning of this essay: "What can be said positively about the identity of the pseudonymous author will be outside of the scope of this essay (footnote 5)." Indeed, the scope of this essay was modest and very limited, "Did Eusebius write the pseudo-Athanasian *De Trinitate*?" If the present author has succeeded in stating *negatively* that Eusebius is not the author of the treatise in question, our next step is to return to the question of the authorship in a more *positive* way: "Who wrote the *De Trinitate*?" There is also a need for returning to the question of the date. The rather broad conclusion of the present author that the pseudo-Athanasian *De Trinitate* is a post-380 product requires more precise definition.

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ON THE CONTEXT AND DEVELOPMENT OF AUGUSTINE'S EARLY COMMENTARIES ON THE PAULINE LETTERS

Among the great number of letters written in early Christian times, the letters of St. Paul had the most significant role and the greatest influence on the development of the Church, but their evaluation and interpretation differed from time to time throughout these early centuries. We learned about the reception of Pauline letters in the first and second centuries from Professor Manabu Tsuji's opening lecture at the APECSS Conference in Sendai, 2009.[1] We know that Pauline letters were included into the Canon of the New Testament and read within Church communities; it can also be detected that Marcion, the Gnostics, and the Manicheans used Pauline letters in order to support their dualistic perspective.[2] In this developing period of the assessment of Paul, Origen of Alexandria had a decisive role in the first half of the third century, exercising a strong influence on Athanasius of Alexandria in the early fourth century and on the establishment of the Canon of the New Testament.[3]

Here I would like to turn to the Latin West and to consider a remarkable fact, that the commentaries on the Pauline letters were produced one after another in the late fourth and early fifth century: Marius Victorinus, Ambrosiaster, Jerome, Tyconius as well as Rufinus' translation of Origen's *Commentaries on Romans* were produced in this period. Peter Brown impressively pointed out that "the last decades of the fourth century in the Latin Church, could be well called the 'generation of St. Paul'."[4] Augustine of Hippo (354–430) was among the authors following the same trend. When Augustine was still a young

(1) See Manabu Tsuji, Beyond the Original Context: Reception of Pauline Letters in the First Century, in this volume.

(2) Cf. W. S. Babcock, *Paul and the Legacies of Paul* (Dallas, TX, 1990) xx.

(3) This point is clarified by Miyako Demura in her paper: M. Demura, Reception of Pauline Letters and the Formation of the Canonical Principle in Origen of Alexandria, in this volume.

(4) P. Brown, *Augustine of Hippo: A Biography* (Berkeley, CA, 2000) 144.

presbyter (391–395) and newly ordained bishop (395/6–) in the 390s, he wrote at least five works intensively dealing with the Pauline letters, and focused especially on the Epistle to the Romans and the Epistle to the Galatians:

1) Questions 66–74, and 82 from *On Eighty-three Questions (De diversis quaestinonibus octoginta tribus)* in 391–395,

2) *Commentary on Romans* (*Expositio quarundam preapositionum ex epistola ad Romanos)* in 393–394,

3) *Commentary on Galatians (Expositio epistolae ad Galatas)* in 394,

4) *Unfinished Commentary on Romans* (*Epistolae ad Romanos inchoate exposition)* in 394–345, and

5) *Response to Simplician (Ad Simplicianum de diversis quaestionibus)* in 396.

The Commentary on Galatians and the unfinished *Commentary on Romans* are the commentaries intending to explain the whole text, while the other three commentaries pick out some passages which Augustine considered to be significant and difficult to understand, and tried to clarify their meaning. In the case of the first book of *Ad Simplicanum*, Augustine especially focused on Rom. 7:7–25 (the first question) and Rom. 9:10–29 (the second question). He says in the preface:

> But still I am not satisfied with my previous research and explanation, since I may have negligently overlooked something pertinent, and I have gone through the Apostle's words and the sense of his statement more carefully and attentively. For, if it were a quick and easy matter to understand them, you would not consider that they should be investigated.[5]

The method of raising some questions on a particular passage and proposing the answer to that question is something like a discussion or dialogue in going over the text. Augustine used this method in replying to inquiries that he was asked by his fellow clergy and elder bishops like Simplician through the form of letters. He must have intended to involve the addressee(s) into this dialogue with St. Paul and the Scriptures in general. For example, in the first reply in *Ad Simplicianum*, Augustine commented on Rom. 7:24–25, "Wretched

(5) A. Mutzenbecher, Augustinus. *De diversis quaestionibus ad Simplicianum* (Turnholt: 1970) (CCSL, 44) 7; English translation is in R. Canning (trans.), B. Ramsey (ed.), *Responses to Miscellaneous Questions: Introduction, Translation and Notes, in: The Works of Saint Augustine: A Translation for the 21th Century* (Hyde Park, NY: 2008) 175.

man that I am! Who will liberate me from the body of my death? The grace of God through Jesus Christ our Lord." Augustine explains, "in this text, it seems to me that the Apostle has put himself in the place of someone who is under the law, whose words he speaks in his own person."[6] Augustine understands this passage as relating to anyone who is under the Law. And through this, he makes the relationship between Paul and the people very intimate, trying to urge the people to decide whether they themselves are under the Law. Here he uses the Pauline framework of law and grace, not to demonstrate a general theological theory but to clarify a human condition he and his congregations have to struggle with and manage to achieve. This passage presents a characteristic method of Augustine's commentaries on the Pauline Letters.

In the chapter "Lost Future" in *Augustine of Hippo: A Biography*, Peter Brown emphasised that "for the first time, Augustine came to see man as wholly dependent on God."[7] According to Brown's view, in the past Augustine had interpreted Paul as a Platonist, seeing Paul as the exponent of spiritual ascent, but now, in the 390s, Augustine saw in Paul nothing but a single, unsolved tension between "flesh" and "spirit," and exposed a realization of states of awareness in this tension. Augustine expresses this tension as a development of the four stages of the human condition: the first stage is ignorance of its existence "before the Law (*ante legem*)," the second stage is helpless realization of the extent of the tension between good and evil "under the Law (*sub lege*)," the third stage is a stage of utter dependence on a Liberator "under Grace (*sub gratia*)," and the fourth stage comes only after this tension in life is resolved "in peace (*in pace*)." In the beginning of *Ad Simplicianum* Augustine presupposes these famous four stages or phases in a single man, which was firstly pointed out in *Commentary on Romans*.[8] Brown emphasises that this understanding and awareness of human condition came to Augustine's mind never before the 390s.

In his earlier Commentaries on the Pauline letters, Augustine had still entertained the idea of some merit of faith on the human side;[9]

(6) *Ad Simplicianum* 1, 1. 1 (CCSL, 44) 8; English translation see in: Canning and Ramsey, *Responses…*, 175.

(7) Brown, *Augustine of Hippo…*, 148.

(8) J. Divjak, S. Aurelii Augustini *Expositio quarumdam propositionum ex epistola ad Romanos* (Wien, 1971) (CSEL, 84) 12.

(9) Ibid, 36–37.

however, he changed his mind in *Ad Simplicianum* so that he just became aware of the absolute primacy of God's grace. In view of such a clear-cut division between divine grace and human sinful incompleteness, Paula Fredriksen emphasises the novelty of *Ad Simplicianum.*[10] Van Fleteren argues that Augustine's theology of Grace was fully expressed in the Pelagian Controversy of the fifth century, but its essence was formed in these early Commentaries on the Pauline Letters and especially in *Ad Simplicianum.*[11] In contrast, Carol Harrison in her new book turns our attention to many pieces of evidence that Augustine believed in the absolute primacy of divine grace in his early days of conversion, ten years before he wrote the *Ad Simplicianum.*[12] Carol Harrison argues that "*ad Simplicianum* therefore represents less a revolution in his thought as its natural evolution in the light of Pauline theology."[13]

In this paper, taking into consideration the recent research on Augustine's exegesis of the Pauline letters, I would like to examine the context of his intensive commentaries on the Pauline letters as a young clergyman and a monk in 390s and argue that his development of the understanding of the human condition should be understood not through a narrow focus on the theology of divine Grace and human merit, but in a wider view of the mutual intimate relationship between God and human beings, that was needed for Augustine in his new position of a pastor and a preacher.

In his introduction to a new translation of Augustine's *Commentary on Galatians* written towards the end of Augustine's priesthood (394–395), Eric Plumer emphasises that "Augustine's purpose in commenting on Galatians was very different from Jerome's and cannot be adequately understood apart from the context of Augustine's priestly

(10) P. Fredriksen, Paul and Augustine: Conversion Narratives, Orthodox Traditions, and the Retrospective Self, *JTS*, n. s. 37 (1986) 3–34; Idem, *Augustine's Early Interpretation of Paul* (Ph.D. Dissertation, Princeton University, 1979), and P. Fredriksen Landes, *Augustine on Romans: Propositions from the Epistle to the Romans & Unfinished Commentary on the Epistle to the Romans* (Scholars Press, CA, 1982) (Texts and Translations, 23. Early Christian Literature Series, 6).

(11) F. Van Fleteren, Augustine's Evolving Exegesis of Romans 7: 22–23 in its Pauline Context, *Augustinian Studies* 32.1 (2001) 89–114.

(12) C. Harrison, *Rethinking Augustine's Early Theology: An Argument for Continuity* (Oxford, 2006).

(13) Ibid., 151.

and monastic life."[14] His suggestion casts new light on Augustine's reception of the Pauline letters. He pointed out a close similarity of the usage of language between the *Commentary on Galatians* and the *Monastic Rules*, and argued that both Paul and Augustine had a keen interest in fraternal correction within a community life. The pastoral intention of his interpretation of Rom. 7 and 9 in *Ad Simplicianum* was also pointed out by T. G. Ring.[15] Plumer emphasises the connection between Paul's theology and his ethics. Plumer's suggestion forces us to take into consideration the demands of Augustine's readers and gives us a clue to understanding Augustine's intention when he answers in a certain way to such and such colleagues.

It is true that in the 390s Augustine held the concept of the four stages of the human condition. *ante legem, sub lege, sub gratia*, and *in pace*. And in *Ad Simpliciaum*, he accepts that "*all die in Adam* (1 Cor 15:22)" and says, "all human beings — from whom origin of the offence against God spread through the whole human race — are a kind of single mass of sin owing a debt of punishment to the divine and loftier justice."[16] This passage sounds like a very dark form of pessimism and a determinist interpretation of the human condition. However, Augustine continues, commenting on Rom. 9:20–21, "...Or does the potter not indeed have the power to make from the same lump of clay one vessel for honour and another for reproach," and says:

> …with those very words he seems to show with sufficient clarity that he is speaking to fleshly man, because the mire itself alludes to that from which the first man was formed... He [the Apostle. — *K. D.*] says that there is a single lump for all. And although one vessel is made for honour and another for reproach, nonetheless even the one that is made for honour has to begin in fleshly fashion and from there rise up to spiritual maturity, since they had already been made for honour and already been reborn in Christ.[17]

(14) E. Plumer, *Augustine's Commentary on Galatians. Introduction, Text, Translation, and Notes* (Oxford, 2003) 72.

(15) T. G. Ring, Die pastorale Intention Augustins in *Ad Simplicianum de diversis quaestionibus*, in C. Mayer and K. H. Chelius (eds.), *Homo Spiritualis*: *Festgabe für Luc Verheijen OSA zu seinem 70 Geburtztag* (Würzburg, 1987) 171–184.

(16) *Ad Simplicianum* 1, 2. 17 (CCSL, 44) 43–44; English translation is in Canning and Ramsey, *Responses…*, 199.

(17) Ibid.

We should not forget that in the *De Doctorina Christiana,* written in the same period or even a little later in 396–397, Augustine did not give up his earlier framework of the seven grades of spiritual ascent (2, 7. 9–11) that were mentioned in *On the Sermons of the Lord on the Mountain* (*De sermone Domini in monte*) in 393. These grades are: 1) *timor Dei*, 2) *pietas*, 3) *scientia*, 4) *fortitudo*, 5) *consilium,* 6) *intellectus,* and 7) *sapientia*. Augustine requires humility as the beginning of the spiritual ascent. He combines the first grade from Isaiah 11:2 and the Lord's first beatitude in Matthew 5:3, "Blessed are the poor in spirit, for theirs is the kingdom of heaven." In both cases, the climax of ascent is wisdom (*sapientia*). Thus we can safely say that even in *Ad Simplicianum* the possibility of the ascent towards wisdom still remains as long as one has started his ascent from the humble fear of God. In doing so, Augustine criticises the lack of humility and self satisfaction of wise men of this world. Their will is diverted from God to worldly matters by the habit of flesh.

Here we have to pay attention to Augustine's basic notion of Christian philosophy. *Philosophia* for him means the love of wisdom (*amor sapientiae*). For Augustine, a true philosopher is a true lover of true wisdom (*sapientia=sophia*). And the true wisdom is certainly Jesus Christ, the Son of God. Referring to Paul, Augustine's understanding of the Incarnation of the Son is nothing but the incarnation of "Christ the power of God and the wisdom of God" (1 Cor 1:24), whether or not Paul himself understood the incarnation as the Incarnation of Wisdom. So for Augustine it is indispensable that the goal of human life is to have an intimate relationship with wisdom even if our life is totally filled with sin. Since Augustine accepts Rom. 5:5 "the Love of God has been poured into our hearts through the Holy Spirit which has been given to us,"[18] as the basis of his investigation and consistently interprets this Love of God as loving God by human beings which is enabled through the gift of the Holy Spirit. If so, the love of wisdom (*philosophia*), that is, the love of Christ Incarnated, is offered to all human beings by God himself. In this context, we cannot separate philosophy as a loving search for wisdom from the so-called "theology of Grace" in Augustine.

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(18) Rom. 5:5 is a key passage for Augustine since his very early days (A.-M. La Bonnardière, Le verset paulinien Rom., V. 5 dans l'oeuvre de saint Augustin, in: *Augustinus Magister* (Paris, 1954) 658–665). Augustine always understands *amor Dei* as the love of God and not as God's love (J. Burnaby, *Amor Dei: A Study of the Religion of St. Augustine* (London, 1938) 99).

It is remarkable that throughout Augustine's early *Enarrationes in Psalmos* 1–32, written in 392 at almost the same period as his Pauline commentaries, every time that he mentions Christ Incarnate, he adds to Christ the title of the Wisdom of God (*Sapientia Dei*). For example, when he makes a figurative interpretation of a tree planted alongside running waters in Psalm 1, he says, "This may refer to Wisdom itself, who deigned to assume humanity for our salvation..." (1, 3).[19] Augustine thus comments on Psalm 8, verses 6–7, "the 'son of man' is visited in the first instance in the person of the Lord-Man himself, born of the Virgin Mary. On account of his fleshly weakness, which the wisdom of God condescended to bear, and on account of the humility of his suffering, scripture rightly says of him...."[20] Augustine says thus in his commentary on Psalm 9: 16: "Then there follows, I will rejoice over your salvation, that is to say, in happiness shall I be held by your salvation, which is our Lord Jesus Christ, God's power and wisdom."[21]

Another interesting point is that Augustine's soteriology is combined with ecclesiology throughout his interpretation of the Psalms and the Gospel. He has a keen interest in the methodology of Scriptural exegesis. Augustine thinks that the Psalms represent their message in six voices: *vox ad Christum*, *vox de Christo*, *vox de ecclesia*, *vox Christi*, *vox ecclesiae*, and *vox totius Christi*.[22]

This means that according to Augustine's exegetical method every word and phrase in the Psalms should be read in the light of Christ Incarnate and this Christ is dwelling in the Church as the Body of Christ. It is certain that the Psalms in the Old Testament were accepted from the viewpoint of the coming of Jesus Christ in the New Testament according to the typological exegesis in Early Christianity. But in addition to this we may find here a characteristic tendency of Augustine's exegesis. He strongly relies on Pauline theology when he interprets

(19) D. E. Dekker and I. Fraipoint, Augustinus. *Enarrationes in Psalmos I–L* (Turnholt, 1990) (CCSL, 38) 2; English translation is in M. Boulding (trans.), J. E. Rotelle (ed.), *Expositions of the Psalms*, vol. 1., in: *The Works of Saint Augustine: A Translation for the 21th Century* (Hyde Park, NY: 2000) 68.

(20) *Enarrationes in Psalmos*, 8, 11 (CCSL, 38) 54, English translation is in Boulding and Rotelle, *Expositions...*, vol. 1, 135.

(21) *Enarrationes in Psalmos,* 9, 15 (CCSL, 38) 54, English translation is in Boulding and Rotelle, *Expositions...*, vol. 1, 149.

(22) Cf. M. Fiedrowicz, General Introduction, in: *Expositions of the Psalms, The Works of Saint Augustine: A Translation for the 21st Century* (Hyde Park, NY, 2000) 44ff.

the Scriptures. Jesus Christ of the Gospels in this context is interpreted from the viewpoint of specific passages of the Pauline letters, namely, 1 Cor. 1:24, "Christ is the power of God and Wisdom of God" and 1 Cor. 12:12, "All the members of the body, though many, are one body, so it is with Christ," as well as 1 Cor. 12:27, "Now you are the body of Christ and individually members of it." I think that these passages are the keys on how to read the Scriptures for Augustine.

If so, how did he read the Pauline letters? As I pointed out above, he raises some questions on a particular passage and proposes his answer to that question which is something like a discussion or dialogue through the text. In doing so, he focuses on the life activities of St. Paul. Thus, it must have been important for Augustine to comment on the passage of Rom. 7 referring to the condition of Paul closely connected with the general condition of human beings. Pauline letters are the very testimonies of the work of divine grace that made it possible for Paul to go over from life under the law to life under grace.[23]

For Augustine in this period Paul is the ideal preacher (*praedicator*). And Augustine sincerely accepts his preaching job as the essential ministry (*ministerium*) of a Christian bishop at the latest in 396/7 (as the conjunct Bishop since 395, and exceptionally in the Latin tradition he, still a presbyter, was engaged in preaching on behalf of Bishop Valerius since 391). This pastoral experience is the basis of his Pauline expositions and the results of these considerations are fruitfully elaborated in his masterpiece the *Confessions* (397–401).

He concludes the beginning paragraph of *Confessions* Book 1, in the following way, "May faith call upon you, Lord, this faith which is your gift to me, which you have breathed into me through the humanity

(23) *Ad Simplicianum* 1, 1. 1 (CCSL, 44) 8. Later in his *Retractationes* 2, 2 (426), he criticises his own earlier position that "I explained those words of the Apostle — The law is spiritual, but I am fleshly (Rom. 7:14) and so forth by which the flesh is shown to struggle with the spirit — in such a way as to see humankind described as being *still under the law* and *not yet under grace* (Rom. 6:14). For it was not until long afterwards that I realized that those words can as well — and this is more likely — pertain to the spiritual person" (Canning and Ramsey, *Responses…*, 169). This may suggest that in the 390s Augustine maintained the universal sinfulness of human beings not so strongly and that his understanding of divine grace has some continuity throughout his Pauline expositions, not so clear-cut as in *Ad Simplicianum.* This may support Carol Harrison's position. The date of his later change of his mind is discussed in Van Fleteren, Augustine's Evolving Exegesis, 89–114, esp. 95–113.

of your Son and the ministry of your preacher."[24] Scholars think that the preacher mentioned by Augustine, was probably St. Paul.[25] It is very characteristic here that a combination of the Son Incarnate and the ministry of a preacher can be found here. Both are functioning as tools of divine grace to make Augustine's faith realized. We must understand that grace was not only effective in his conversion ten years before but also even more effective in his office of Bishop in 397. Here Paul and Augustine are assimilated within his understanding of a preacher's mission.

If this is the case, we can say that the narrative on Augustine's life before his baptism, from 354–387, in *Confessions* I–IX, and the reflection on his life as a bishop in 397 in *Confessions* X, correspond to the life *sub lege* and the life *sub gratia*. And throughout this tension, we can discern that the requirement of humility and love toward the wisdom of God is the key momentum in the Christian life.

In conclusion, I would like to propose a rather simple claim. We need to read Augustine's Pauline Commentaries not by drawing a narrowly focused theological interpretation of the concept of divine grace and human sinfulness, but trying to understand the commentaries from the perspective of Augustine's community life as well as the situation in his congregations and among his fellow monks. In doing so, we can understand Augustine's criticism of boastful self-satisfaction and claim to possess intellectual, moral, and religious fullness like the Manichaean elected, the Platonist intellectuals, the Donatist sectarians, and the Pelagian groups. This is the basis, on the other hand, for his merciful acceptance of humble converts into his Church. It is just like Paul that Augustine himself was and is accepted by divine mercy into his position in this world.

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(24) L. Verheijen, Augustinus, *Confessionum libri XIII* (Turhnout, 1981) (CCSL, 27) 1; English translation is in M. Boulding, Augustine. *The Confessions*, in: *The Works of Saint Augustine: A Translation for the 21th Century* (Hyde Park, NY, 1997) 39.

(25) For example, Paul is said to be "transformed ... to its still more famous preacher (*mirabilior praedicator effectus est*)" in *Ad Simplicianum* 1, 2, 22 (CCSL, 44) 23, Canning and Ramsey, *Responses…*, 207. See J. J. O'Donnell, *Augustine Confessions II Commentary on Book 1–7* (Oxford, 1992) 17.

SUMMARY

Taking into consideration the recent research on Augustine's exegesis of the Pauline letters, this article examines the context of his intensive commentaries on the Pauline letters as a young clergyman and a monk in 390s. The author argues that Augustine's development of understanding the human condition should be viewed not through a narrow focus on the theology of divine Grace and human merit, but in a wider view of mutual intimate relationship between God and human beings, that was needed for Augustine in his new position of a pastor and a preacher. It is concluded that Paul the preacher is the key figure for Augustine in interpreting the Scriptures.

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HOW TO STUDY EPISCOPAL LETTER-WRITING IN LATE ANTIQUITY: AN OVERVIEW OF PUBLISHED WORK ON THE FIFTH AND SIXTH CENTURIES

In this paper I shall be dealing with episcopal correspondence in Greek and Latin from the fifth and sixth centuries, a topic which has not been investigated in its entirety. Rather the tendency has been to address several authors individually, instead of studying overarching epistolary theories, concerns, or trends. This state of affairs means that if we are to begin to determine the worth and significance of our fifth- and sixth-century episcopal materials, we are thrown back on general works on letter-writing in other periods, on theoretical studies, on books or articles dealing with the specifics of letter-writing in different centuries from classical to mediaeval and Byzantine, and on introductions to anthologies. However, we cannot extrapolate from these other secondary works *ad libitum*, but rather we must be selective, and open to possible developments from classical antiquity and the Pauline letters onwards. Here I give an overview of literature on the topic, an inventory of the main fifth- and sixth-century episcopal letter-collections, and a brief introduction to a new project being conducted by Bronwen Neil and myself on crisis management in late antiquity as evidenced in the edited Greek and Latin letters of fifth- and sixth-century bishops.

1.

At the outset I mention a repertorium, the second and third parts of which are a useful tool for the study of fifth-century letters.

> *Epistolari cristiani (secc. I–V). Repertorio bibliographico,* Parte prima. *Epistolari greci e latini (secc. I–III),* a cura di C. Burini, introd. di M. Naldini; Parte secunda. *Epistolari latini (secc. IV–V)*, a cura di G. Asdrubali Pentini e M. C. Spadoni Cerroni, introd. di M. Naldini; Parte terza. *Epistolari greci (secc. IV–V)*, a cura

di F. Silliti, introd. di M. Naldini (Roma, Abbazia di S. Paolo: Benedictina Editrice 1990).

2.

Next, in chronological order, I give a review of general works on letter-writing that may assist us in our study of late antiquity. Like the other lists in this paper this is intended to be indicative rather than exhaustive.

Some of the following works are too general to be of much assistance; others, while not dealing with the fifth and sixth centuries, often give us good insights into the genre.

W. G. Doty, *Letters in Primitive Christianity* (Philadelphia: Fortress Press, 1973) (Guides to Biblical Scholarship: New Testament Series). Analyses the form and structure of the Pauline letters and their importance in shaping Christian letter-writing.

G. Constable, *Letters and Letter-Collections* (Turnhout: Brepols, 1976) (Typologie des Sources du Moyen Âge Occidental, fasc. 17). Focuses on western and early/late mediaeval, with applications to earlier letters.

P. Hatlie, Redeeming Byzantine Epistolography, *Byzantine and Modern Greek Studies* 20 (1996) 213–248. An important article dealing with methodological issues in the study of epistolography.

M. Zelzer, Die Briefliteratur. Kommunikation durch Briefe: Ein Gespräch mit Abwesenden, in: L. J. Engels, H. Hoffmann (hrsg.), *Neues Handbuch der Literaturwissenschaften* 4. *Spätantike, mit einem Panorama der byzantinischen Literatur* (Wiesbaden: AULA-Verlag, 1997) 321–353. An overview article, with a section dealing briefly with fifth- and sixth-century writers such as Theodoret, Cyril of Alexandria, Sidonius Apollinaris, Procopius of Gaza, Cassiodorus, and Gregory the Great.

J. T. Reed, The Epistle, in: S. E. Porter (ed.), *Handbook of Classical Rhetoric in the Hellenistic Period, 330 B.C. – A.D. 400* (Leiden—New York—Köln: Brill, 1997) 171–193. Argues for the close connection between rhetoric and epistolography.

H.-J. Klauck, *Die antike Briefliteratur und das Neue Testament: ein Lehr- und Arbeitsbuch* (Paderborn: Ferdinand Schöningh, 1998). This was superseded by the English trans., *Ancient Letters and the New Testament: A Guide to Context and Exegesis* (Waco, TX: Baylor University Press, 2006). Deals with general epistolary and rhetorical theory, early Jewish, Classical, and New Testament letters. Includes excellent bibliographies, exercises, and an epilogue on letters in the early church.

P. A. Rosenmeyer, *Ancient Epistolary Fictions: The Letter in Greek Literature* (Cambridge—New York: Cambridge University Press, 2001). After a good introduction on epistolarity, the book deals with fictitious letters from Homer to Philostratus. The author argues that the letter is a construction, not a reflection, of reality.

R. Morello, A. D. Morrison (eds.), *Ancient Letters: Classical and Late Antique Epistolography* (Oxford—New York: Oxford University Press, 2007). Predominantly Latin and Classical, with some good insights into the genre.

C. Poster, L. C. Mitchell (eds.), *Letter-Writing Manuals and Instruction from Antiquity to the Present* (Columbia, SC: University of South Carolina Press, 2007) (Historical and Bibliographic Studies). As the title suggests, the contents are wide-ranging; most germane to our purposes is the chapter by C. Poster, A Conversation Halved. Epistolary Theory in Greco-Roman Antiquity (pp. 21–51).

J. R. Walker, Letter Writing in the Late Age of Print: Electronic Mail and the Ars dictaminis, in: Poster, Mitchell, *Letter-Writing Manuals*…, 230–243. Assesses the place of electronic mail and text messaging in the epistolographical genre, and discusses "Netiquette".

J. Muir, *Life and Letters in the Ancient Greek World* (Abingdon—New York: Routledge, 2009) (Routledge Monographs in Classical Studies). Contains a good general introduction to letter-writing. The chapter on letters in early Christianity is confined to the Pauline writings.

3.

Next we move to theories of letter-writing.

A. Deissmann, *Licht vom Ostern. Das Neue Testament und die neuentdeckten Texte der hellenistisch-römischen Welt* (Tübingen: Mohr, ^{2}1923). English trans., *Light from the Ancient East. The New Testament Illustrated by Recently Discovered Texts of the Graeco-Roman World*, new rev. ed. (London: Hodder and Stoughton, 1927). Drew distinction between the un-literary or pre-literary "Brief" and the literary "Epistel" on the basis of the Pauline letters.

J. Sykutris, Epistolographie, *RE* Suppl. 5 (1931) 186–220. Mostly Hellenistic and early Roman empire, dealing with i) conciseness and simplicity; ii) orientation within friendship. Sykutris' study, which retained Deismann's distinction between "Brief" and "Epistel", was influential because he emphasised the philological and formal aspects of epistolography, stressing the need to edit texts, date letters correctly, and study the genesis of letter-collections.

J. Schneider, Brief, *Reallexikon für Antike und Christentum* 2 (1954) 564–585. An overview of the letter from Assyrian, Egyptian and Babylonian times, through Judaism, paganism, and the New Testament to early Christian letter-writing, including a brief section on papal letters.

H. Koskenniemi, *Studien zur Ideologie und P* Mitchell *hraseologie des griechischen Briefes bis auf 400 n. Chr*. (Helsinki: Akateeminen Kirjakauppa, and Wiesbaden: Otto Harrassowitz, 1956). Investigated the connection between epistolary theory and practice, including the content of letters and the relationship between letter-writer and recipient.

G. Luck, Brief und Epistel in der Antike, *Das Altertum* 7 (1961) 77–84. A short overview that follows Deissmann's distinction between "Brief" and Epistel".

W. G. Doty, The Classification of Epistolary Literature, *Catholic Biblical Quarterly* 31 (1969) 183–199. Provides an overview of Deissmann's theories and their reception or non-reception. Discards the "Brief"/"Epistel" distinction and argues that letters are either more, or less, private.

A. Garzya, L'epistolografia letteraria tardoantica, in: idem, *Il mandarino et il quotidiano: Saggi sulla letteratura tardoantica e bizantina* (Naples: Bibliopolis, 1985) 115–148. A general consideration of Greek, Latin, and pagan literature in late antiquity, organized according to letter-types, themes, and tropes.

A. Malherbe, *Ancient Epistolary Theorists* (Atlanta, GA: Scholars Press, 1988). A standard work on the topic, it offers an anthology of ancient literary criticism/theory.

M. L. Stirewalt, Jr., *Studies in Ancient Greek Epistolography* (Atlanta, GA: Scholars Press, 1993). See further below.

M. Mullet, *Theophylact of Ochrid. Reading the Letters of a Byzantine Archbishop* (Aldershot—Brookfield, VT: Ashgate, 1997) (Birmingham Byzantine and Ottoman Monographs, 2). Although dealing with a later period, it includes good illustrations of how epistolary networks functioned.

P. Allen, The Late-Antique Letter as a Sermo cum Absentibus, in: P. Allen, B. Neil, W. Mayer, *Preaching Poverty in Late Antiquity: Perceptions and Realities* (Leipzig: EVA, 2009) (Arbeiten zur Kirchen- und Theologiegeschichte, 28) 44–53. Assesses *inter alia* why writers chose the epistolary genre, and discusses the cross-over from letter to treatise.

See also essays in Morello, Morrison, *Ancient Letters*….

We begin with the research of the biblical scholar Adolf Deissmann (1923), who, basing himself on the Pauline letters, maintained a distinction between on the one hand an everyday, "true" letter, basically

on papyrus, which he termed a "Brief", and on the other hand the more literary composition, in his word the "Epistel". Deissmann's theory was at once too limiting and too influential. Patricia Rosenmeyer, one of the scholars at the forefront of contemporary studies in antique epistolography, sums up the damage as follows:

> [Deissmann's] main goal was a reevaluation of the epistolary writings of Paul in the New Testament (which he argued were true letters), but his views strongly influenced contemporary classical scholarship. He identified spontaneity as the defining characteristic of the true ancient letter, and created a Paul who was a champion of the lower classes, passionately arguing directly from the heart, his reported speech untouched by literary or rhetorical conventions. In his zeal to recover the "true" Paul, he molded the evidence to suit contemporary German tastes.[1]

Is it no exaggeration to say that the study of letter-writing in Christian antiquity and indeed in classical studies took decades to recover from Deissmann's theory. Shortly after Deissmann, in a magisterial article on ancient epistolography Sykutris (1931) added categories of letters—an easy enough task since ancient literary theorists themselves distinguished multiple kinds of letters, as many as forty-two in some cases.[2] However, whether the extension of categories assisted us to understand better the nature the genre or the dynamic between letter-writer and recipient is questionable. In any case, little or no attention was paid to our fifth- and sixth-century letter-writers in the course of this debate.

A break was made from the private/public function of the letter by Stirewalt, who preferred to concentrate on what he called "letter-settings", which could be "normative" (official and personal), "extended" (letters which are passed around), or "fictitious" (not necessarily sent).[3] This did not really help either, because as scholars after Stirewalt have pointed out, every letter requires the writer to enter into a persona, a fact that does not have to render a particular letter normative, extended, or fictitious.[4]

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(1) Rosenmeyer, *Ancient Epistolary Fictions*…, 6. Cf. M. Trapp (ed.), *Greek and Latin Letters. An Anthology with Translation* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2003) 9.

(2) See further Malherbe, *Ancient Epistolary Theorists*…, 12–13.

(3) *Studies in Ancient Greek Epistolography*…., 1–3.

(4) See e.g. Rosenmeyer, *Ancient Epistolary Fictions*…, 10.

There has been a great deal of activity over the past ten years on the subject of ancient letter-writing, which, while acknowledging our debt to classical epistolographical secondary works, has pushed both our knowledge and our scepticism of the genre further.

In his anthology of Greek and Roman letters which contains some Christian examples, from Basil of Caesarea, Gregory of Nyssa, Augustine, and Jerome, Trapp decided to get back to basics. In answer to the question "What is a letter?" he replied:

> A letter is a written message from one person (or set of people) to another, requiring to be set down in a tangible medium, which itself is to be physically conveyed from sender(s) to recipient(s). Formally, it is a piece of writing that is overtly addressed from sender(s) to recipient(s), by the use at beginning and end of one of a limited set of conventional formulae or salutation (or some allusive variation on them) which specify both parties to the transaction.[5]

This somewhat minimalistic definition has found favour in recent scholarship,[6] indicating how difficult it remains to define the nature and function of the letter, whether in classical antiquity, early Christianity, or beyond. Trapp's definition, probably wisely, also does not pronounce on what is a letter and what does not quite fit into the genre. The widespread use of email and instant messaging has further complicated definitions within the epistolographical genre, although it has also been applauded as a development which has rescued the letter from oblivion. With the advent of the electronic letter there came also a revised set of rules within the epistolary genre, so-called Netiquette. The chapter by Walker and the bibliography there are an excellent introduction for those wishing to pursue the antecedents of this modern aspect of letter-writing, which, she argues, is distinguished by the incorporation of oral elements into the written text.[7] Here, of course, we could add that the ancient letter was usually accompanied by an oral component, that of the letter-bearer who passed on private greetings and information not included in the letter itself.

One striking trend in modern scholarship is an openness to the versatility of the epistolographical genre. So in their book of essays Morel-

(5) Trapp, *Greek and Latin Letters...*, 1.

(6) See e.g. R. K. Gibson, A. D. Morrison, in: Morello, Morrison, *Ancient Letters*…, 3; and Muir, *Life and Letters*…, 1.

(7) See e.g. Walker, Letter Writing in the Late Age of Print, in: Poster, Mitchell, *Letter-Writing Manuals*…., 231–233.

lo and Morrison adopt what they call a "generous and inclusive definition of the letter",[8] and their volume "urges discussion of technical or philosophical letters alongside high-flown literary letters and suggests that we should consider differences between them to be matters of degree not of kind".[9] In this approach we are less concerned with "what is a letter?" than with "why letters?" Asking "what is a letter?", argue Gibson and Morrison, is like asking "what is a work of art?"[10] — it can be very subjective. The same authors consider the problem from the Wittgensteinian idea of the "family resemblance concept", which results in viewing letters as a genre connected with other, non-epistolary genres. From a different starting-point, namely rhetoric, Reed comes to more or less the same conclusion regarding cognate genres:

> …the rhetorical and epistolary genres have been betrothed, but they were never wed. Nevertheless, classical and modern theories of rhetoric, when used judiciously and mostly descriptively, may often provide heuristic tools for the analysis and understanding of ancient letters.[11]

One of the closest relationships which the epistolographical genre has is with that of didactic traditions, particularly the philosophical/ethical strand. Hence Morrison[12] maintains that regular epistolary contact is necessary because philosophy needs to be done every day between correspondents: this is then the counterpoint to the idea of friendship which lay behind much ancient letter-writing.

4. Particular aspects of letters

Most of these are too specific to be used except in passing. Their titles speak for themselves.

L. Dinneen, *Titles of Address in Christian Greek Epistolography* (Washington: Catholic University of America Press, 1929; repr. Chicago, 1980) (Catholic University of America, Patristic Studies, 18).

M. B. O'Brien, *Titles of Address in Christian Latin Epistolography* (Washington: Catholic University of America Press, 1930) (Catholic University of America, Patristic Studies, 21).

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(8) *Ancient Letters*…, 1.

(9) *Ancient Letters*…, 2.

(10) In: Morello, Morrison, *Ancient Letters*…, 9.

(11) J. T. Reed, The Epistle, in Porter (ed.), *Handbook of Classical Rhetoric*…, 192.

(12) In: Morello, Morrison, *Ancient Letters*…, 131.

G. Karlsson, *Idéologie et cérémonial dans l'epistolographie Byzantine. Textes du X^e siècle analysés et commentés*, (Uppsala: Almquist & Wiksells, 1959) (Acta Universitatis Upsaliensis. Studia Graeca Upsaliensia, 3).

K. Thraede, *Grundzüge griechisch-römischer Brieftopik* (München: C. H. Beck, 1970) (Zetema. Monographien zur Klassischen Altertumswissenschaft, 48).

C. D. Lanham, *Salutatio Formulas in Latin Letters to 1200: Syntax, Style, and Theory*, (München: Die Arbeo-Gesellschaft 1975; Eugene, OR: Wipf and Stock, ²2004) (Münchener Beiträge zur Mediävistik und Renaissance-Forschung, 22).

M. Grünbart, *Formen der Anrede im byzantinischen Brief vom 6. bis zum 12. Jahrhundert*, (Wien: Verlag der Österreichischen Akademie der Wissenschaften, 2005) (Wiener Studien, 25).

5. Anthologies

M. Hofmann, *Antike Briefe. Im Urtext mit Übertragung* (München: Ernst Heimeran Verlag, 1935). Classical, New Testament, and late-antique texts, arranged according to themes.

S. K. Stowers, *Letter Writing in Greco-Roman Antiquity*, (Philadelphia: Westminster Press, 1986) (Library of Early Christianity, 5). General comments; Classical, New Testament, and some Christian examples, arranged according to letter-type.

F. Hooper, M. Schwartz, *Roman Letters. History from a Personal Point of View* (Detroit: Wayne State University Press, 1991). Classical and Christian as far as Cassiodorus. Fairly superficial.

Trapp, *Greek and Latin Letters*.... Classical, with the exceptions of Basil, Gregory of Nyssa, Augustine, and Jerome. Good general introduction.

P. A. Rosenmeyer, *Ancient Greek Literary Letters. Selections in Translation* (London—New York: Routledge, 2006). Classical.

6.

What follows is a register of main fifth- and sixth-century episcopal letter-writers in Greek and Latin. Here I include only substantial letter-collections.

a) eastern bishops (10)

Theophilus of Alexandria, d. 412; Synesius of Cyrene, d. c. 414; Nestorius of Constantinople, d. 451; John of Antioch, d. 441; Cyril of

Alexandria, d. 444; Theodoret of Cyrrhus, d. c. 460; Severus of Antioch, d. 538; Theodosius of Alexandria, *sedit* 535–566; Paul of Antioch, *sedit* 564–577; and Jacob Baradaeus, d. 578.

b) Roman bishops (17)

Anastasius I, *sedit* 399–401/2; Innocent I, *sedit* 401/2–417; Zosimus, *sedit* 417–418; Boniface I, *sedit* 418–422; Celestine I, *sedit* 422–432; Sixtus III, *sedit* 432–440; Leo I, *sedit* 440–461; Hilary, *sedit* 461–468; Simplicius, *sedit* 468–483; Felix III, *sedit* 483–492; Gelasius, *sedit* 492–496; Anastasius II, *sedit* 496–498; Symmachus, *sedit* 498–514; Hormisdas, *sedit* 514–523; Vigilius, *sedit* 537–555; Pelagius I, *sedit* 556–561; and Pelagius II, *sedit* 579–590.

c) other western bishops (11)

Augustine of Hippo, d. 430; Aurelius of Carthage, d. 429/430; Paulinus of Nola, d. 431; Sidonius Apollinaris, fl. 450; Peter Chrysologus, sedit c. 425–450; Ruricius of Limoges, d. c. 507; Alcimus Avitus of Vienne, d. 518; Ennodius of Pavia, d. 521 or 524; Fulgentius of Ruspe, d. c. 533; Remigius of Rheims, d. 533; and Caesarius of Arles, d. 543.

7.

Finally I mention select studies on episcopal authors from fifth- and sixth-century Christian antiquity. These studies are confined to recent books/articles/works in progress which specifically address the letter-writing genre.

Augustine

Les Lettres de saint Augustin découvertes par Johannes Divyak. Communications présentées au Colloque des 20 et 21 septembre 1982 (Paris: Études Augustiniennes, 1983) (Études Augustiniennes).

F. Morgenstern, *Die Briefpartner des Augustinus von Hippo. Prosopographische, sozial- und ideologiegeschichtliche Untersuchungen* (Bochum: Universitätsverlag Dr. N. Brockmeyer, 1993).

R. Hennings, *Der Briefwechsel zwischen Augustinus und Hieronymus und ihr Streit um den Kanon des Alten Testaments und die Auslegung von Gal. 2.11–14* (Leiden—New York—Köln: Brill, 1994) (*VC* Supp., 21).

A. Fürst, *Augustinus Briefwechsel mit Hieronymus* (Münster: Aschendorffsche Verlagsbuchhandlung, 1999) (Jahrbuch für Antike und Christentum Ergänzungsband, 29).

J. Divyak, Epistulae, in: C. Mayer et al. (hrsg.), *Augustinus-Lexikon* 2 (Basel: Schwabe, 1996) 893–1057.

Avitus of Vienne

I. Wood, Letters and Letter-Collections from Antiquity to the Early Middle Ages: The Prose Works of Avitus of Vienne, in: M. A. Meyer (ed.), *The Culture of Christendom. Essays in Medieval History in Commemoration of Denis L. T. Bethell* (London—Rio Grande: The Hambledon Press, 1993) 29–43.

Cyril of Alexandria

W. H. Burns (ed. and trans.), *The Festal Letters of Saint Cyril of Alexandria. The Manuscript Tradition, Text, and Translation*, 2 vols, PhD Diss., University of Southhampton, 1998.

W. H. Burns (éd.), L. Arragon, M.-O. Boulnois, P. Évieux, M. Forrat et B. Meunier (traduction et annotation), *Cyrille d'Alexandrie. Lettres Festales I–VI* (Paris: Cerf, 1991) (SC, 372).

W. H. Burns (éd.), L. Arragon, P. Évieux et R. Monier (traduction et annotation), *Cyrille d'Alexandrie. Lettres Festales VII–XI*, (Paris: Cerf, 1993) (SC, 372).

W. H. Burns (éd.), M.-O. Boulnois et B. Meunier (traduction et annotation) *Cyrille d'Alexandrie. Lettres Festales XII–XVII* (Paris: Cerf, 1998) (SC, 434).

P. R. Amidon (trans.), J. J. O'Keefe (ed., intro. and notes), *Festal Letters 1–12. Saint Cyril of Alexandria* (Washington, DC: Catholic University of America Press, 2009) (The Fathers of the Church, 118).

John Chrysostom

R. Delmaire, Les „lettres d'exil" de Jean Chrysostome. Études de chronologie et de prosopographie, *Recherches Augustiniennes* 25 (1991) 71–180.

Paulinus of Nola

D. Trout, *Paulinus of Nola. Life, Letters, and Poems* (Berkeley—Los Angeles: University of California Press, 1999).

C. Conybeare, *Paulinus Noster. Self and Symbols in the Letters of Paulinus of Nola* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2001) (Oxford Early Christian Studies).

S. Mratschek, *Der Briefwechsel des Paulinus von Nola. Kommunikation und soziale Kontakte zwischen christlichen Intellektuellen* (Göttingen: Vandenhoeck & Rupprecht, 2002) (Hypomnemata, 134).

Popes

D. Jasper, H. Fuhrmann, *Papal Letters in the Early Middle Ages* (Washington, DC: The Catholic University of America Press, 2001).

J. R. C. Martyn (trans., intro. and notes), *The Letters of Gregory the Great*, 3 vols (Toronto: Pontifical Institute of Medieval Studies, 2004) (Medieval Sources in Translation, 40).

B. Neil, *Leo the Great* (London—New York: Routledge, 2009) (ECF).

G. D. Dunn, Letters of Innocent I, text edition in preparation.

Ruricius of Limoges

R. W. Mathisen (trans.), *Ruricius of Limoges and Friends. A Collection of Letters from Visigothic Gaul* (Liverpool: Liverpool University Press, 1999) (Translated Texts for Historians, 30).

Severus of Antioch

Y. N. Youssef (ed. and trans.), Letter of Severus to Anastasia the Deaconess, *Bulletin de la Société d'Archéologie Copte* 40 (2001) 126–136.

F. Alpi, *Recherches sur l'Administration et la pastorale de Sévère d'Antioche (512–519)*, diss. Université de Lille III, 2003 (microfilm) (Forthcoming in print in two volumes).

P. Allen, C. T. R. Hayward, *Severus of Antioch* (London—New York: Routledge, 2004) (ECF).

Sidonius Apollinaris

M. Zelzer, Der Brief in der Spätantike. Überlegungen zu einem literarischen Genos am Beispiel der Briefsammlung des Sidonius Apollinaris, *Wiener Studien* 107–108 (1994/1995) 541–551.

J. Harries, *Sidonius Apollinaris and the Fall of Rome, A.D. 407–485* (Oxford: Clarendon, 1994).

Synesius of Cyrene

D. Roques, *Études sur la Correspondance de Synésios de Cyrène* (Bruxelles: Revue des études latines, 1989) (Collection Latomus, 205).

Theodoret of Cyrrhus

I. R. Tomkins, Problems of Dating and Pertinence in Some Letters of Theodoret of Cyrrhus, *Byz* 65 (1995) 176–195.

P. Allen, The Syrian Church through Bishops' Eyes: The Letters of Theodoret of Cyrrhus and Severus of Antioch, *SP* 42 (2006) 3–21.

As can be seen, while several letter-writing bishops in our chronological period have received some attention, there are still many gaps. Several bishops of Rome, for example, need to be studied closely, as do some sixth-century eastern bishops. I have included John Chrysostom and Gregory of Rome in the above list for the sake of completeness, although we are not including them in our study.

Conclusion

What remains to be done? As in the time of Sykutris, we still need text editions of (episcopal) letters; an anthology of and commentary on fifth- and sixth-century bishops' letters illustrating their management style is also a *desideratum*. These letters are foundational for our project on episcopal crisis management, which I outline briefly as follows.[13]

In late antiquity there is no body of written evidence more informative on the subject of crisis management than the letters which bishops exchanged with other bishops, with imperial administrators, local officials, monastics, and lay correspondents. By analysing a large corpus of some 1600 letters (over 790 western, c. 800 eastern) dating from the fifth and sixth centuries in relation to social, economic and religious crises over a period of two hundred years, we shall produce the first comprehensive treatment of this topic. We shall identify the different interpretative strategies employed by bishops confronting local or larger crises (e.g. divine providence, divine retribution, a call to repentance) as well as the practical measures and religious policies they adopted to deal with them. Examples of crises to be studied are:

1. population displacement, including refugees and asylum-seekers
2. natural disasters and climate change
3. the cycle of poverty, including changes in the structure of dependence
4. religious disputes and the perception and treatment of "extremists"
5. violent conflict, including barbarian invasions and gang violence

(13) I gave a more extensive outline of our project in March 2009 at a public lecture at Okayama University, kindly facilitated by Kazuhiko Demura and translated into Japanese by Naoki Kamimura. See further P. Allen, B. Neil, *Episcopal Crisis Management*, forthcoming. The whole project is funded by the Australian Research Council (2010–2012).

6. social abuses
7. crises of an overloaded legal system.

We shall also investigate documented crises where there was no evidence of episcopal management in the bishops' letters themselves, which will allow us to assess whether letters are slanted towards particular kinds of representation in relation to crises. In addition, we shall be looking for any changes in representation or management strategies that occurred over the 200-year period, and the reasons for such changes, as well as considering possible differences between the Roman, Greek, and Syrian churches. We shall be in constant contact with our Japanese colleagues as they pursue their handsomely funded project, "Augustine's Understanding and Practice of Poverty in an Era of Crisis".

SUMMARY

In this paper I deal with episcopal correspondence in Greek and Latin from the fifth and sixth centuries. I give an overview of literature on the topic, including works on the theory of ancient letter-writing, an inventory of the main fifth- and sixth-century episcopal letter-collections, and a brief introduction to a new project being conducted by Bronwen Neil and myself on crisis management in late antiquity as evidenced in episcopal correspondence.

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PETER THE IBERIAN AND DIONYSIUS THE AREOPAGITE: HONIGMANN — VAN ESBROECK'S THESIS REVISITED*

In two papers published in 1993 and 1997[1] Michel van Esbroeck explained his reasons for "revisiting" the idea of Shalva Nutsubidze

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* Abbreviations:

Lourié 2001 — В. М. *Лурье*, Время поэтов, или *Praeparationes Areopagiticae*: к уяснению происхождения стихотворной парафразы Евангелия от Иоанна [An Epoch of the Poets, or *Praeparationes Areopagiticae*: Toward a Comprehension of Origin of the Versified Paraphrase of the Gospel of John], in: *Д.* А. Поспелов (отв. ред.), Нонн из Хмима, *Деяния Иисуса* (Москва, 2002) (Scrinium Philocalicum, I) 295–337; reprinted on-line, with some corrections, under the title «Дионисийский субстрат в византийском юродстве. Время поэтов, или *Praeparationes Areopagiticae*» in *Amsterdam International Journal for Cultural Narratology* (2005) N 1, Spring: The Many Faces of Narratological Agenda. Research Application to Literatures and Cultures vis-à-vis History and Tropology: http://cf.hum.uva.nl/narratology/lurie.htm;

Lourié 2007 — B. Lourié, L'*Histoire Euthymiaque* : l'œuvre du patriarche Euthymios/Euphemos de Constantinople (490–496, † 515), *Warszawskie Studia Teologiczne* XX/2 (2007) [Miscellanea Patristica Reverendissimo Domino Marco Starowieyski septuagenario professori illustrissimo viro amplissimo ac doctissimo oblata] 189–221;

Perczel 2008 — I. Perczel, The Earliest Syriac Reception of Dionysius, *Modern Theology* 24 (2008) 557–571 (the whole issue 4 of vol. 24 dedicated to Dionysius is now reprinted as: S. Coakley, Ch. M. Stang (eds.), *Re-thinking Dionysius the Areopagite* (Chichester—Oxford, 2009) (Directions in Modern Theology), Perzcel's paper on p. 27–42);

van Esbroeck 1993 — M. van Esbroeck, Peter the Iberian and Dionysius the Areopagite: Honigmann's thesis revisited, *OCP* 59 (1993) 217–227

van Esbroeck 1997 — M. van Esbroeck, La triple préface de Phocas, in: Y. de Andia (éd.), *Denys l'Aréopagite et sa postérité en Orient et en Occident. Actes du colloque international, Paris, 21–24 septembre 1994* (Paris, 1997) (Collection des Études Augustiniennes. Série Antiquité, 151) 167–186.

(1) van Esbroeck 1993, van Esbroeck 1997.

(1942)[2] and Ernst Honigmann (1952)[3] that Peter the Iberian was the main author of the *Corpus Areopagiticum* in the 460s, after about 465 (the *Corpus* being expanded, especially by short letters, and reattributed to Dionysius after Peter's death in 491). Since then, van Esbroeck's study has been mostly ignored, with rare exceptions such as A. M. Ritter (1994, critically)[4] and me (additional proofs).[5] However, some other relevant publications have appeared, without referring to van Esbroeck.[6] It seems that now is the time to reopen the discussion.

Part One: From Honigmann to van Esbroeck

1.1. Honigmann's Thesis

Nutsubidze's hypothesis, as it appeared in 1942, was rather a vague intuition than a scholarly hypothesis in the proper sense. Thus, van Esbroeck starts from Honigmann who put forward the same hypothesis independently a bit later (1952) but with scholarly grounding. Honigmann based his argument on two elements:

1. the vision of John the Eunuch (close friend and spiritual companion of Peter the Iberian),
2. the commemoration days of Dionysius the Areopagite and Hierotheos of Athens in the calendars.

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(2) Ш. Нуцубидзе, *Тайна Псевдо-Дионисия Ареопагита* [Mystery of Pseudo-Dionysius the Areopagite] (Тбилиси, 1942); it should not be confused with its reprint in: *Известия Института языка, истории и материальной культуры АН Грузинской ССР имени академика Н. Я. Марра*, № 14 (1944) 1–55 (in Russian, English summary). After the WWII, Nutsubidze widely published on the topic and became the main promoter of Honigmann's works in the USSR, especially in Georgia.

(3) E. Honigmann, *Pierre l'Ibérien et les écrits du pseudo-Denys l'Aréopagite* (Bruxelles, 1952) (Académie royale de Belgique. Classe des lettres et des sciences morales et politiques. Mémoires, 47, fasc. 3).

(4) A. M. Ritter, Vorwort, in: A. M. Ritter, Pseudo-Dionysius Areopagita, *Ueber die Mystische Theologie und Briefe.* Eingeleitet, übersetzt und mit Anmerkungen versehen (Stuttgart, 1994) (Bibliothek der griechischen Literatur, 40) 16–17.

(5) Lourié 2001.

(6) Moreover, Cornelia Horn in her recent publications (both her monograph on Peter the Iberian and notes to the translation of the *Life of Peter the Iberian* — see below) points out some features which could be relevant for verification of the hypothesis of Peter's authorship of the *Corpus*. She seems to be in favour of such a possibility but does not enter into discussion.

His reasoning was the following. The vision of John Eunuch in about 444, as described in the *Vita* of Peter the Iberian by John Rufus, contained a revelation of the heavens opening with the angelical hierarchies. It is likely that this was the core of the future hierarchical speculations in the *Corpus Areopagiticum*, where the author (Dionysius the Areopagite) refers to the revelation attained by his teacher, the holy Hierotheos. The mutual relationship between Hierotheos and Dionysius in the *Corpus* is similar to that of Peter the Iberian and John the Eunuch.

The commemorations of Dionysius and Hierotheos in some Syrian (Jacobite) calendars are October 3 and 4, respectively. It is unlikely that this is not because of some mutual relationship between the two which is known from the *Corpus Areopagiticum* only. Most important, John the Eunuch died on October 4, the commemoration day of Hierotheos (*Life of Peter the Iberian*, § 171). Therefore, one can suggest that under the names of Dionysius and Hierotheos, it is the pair of the cell-mates Peter the Iberian and John the Eunuch that are commemorated on October 3 and 4.

This opinion of Honigmann should be understood properly within the context of his studies on Church history of fifth century Palestine. Honigmann's Palestine that emerges from his different studies was more like a populated world than a schematic reconstruction, and so, an adequate comprehension of his thesis would imply sharing with him this or another, but not less vivid vision of historical reality. Nevertheless, at least, one of his critics, Irénée Hausherr, did share his historical vision but categorically rejected his thesis.

1.1. Honigmann's Critics

The main critics of Honigmann were the three: Irénée Hausherr,[7] Hieronymus Engberding,[8] and René Roques.[9] Their main arguments are the following (van Esbroeck's enumeration of their arguments is not absolutely exhaustive, but some parts of their argumentation are

(7) I. Hausherr, Le pseudo-Denys est-il Pierre l'Ibérien ?, *OCP* 19 (1953) 247–260.

(8) H. Engberding, Kann Petrus der Iberer mit Dionysius Areopagita identifiziert werden?, *Oriens Christianus* 38 (1954) 68–95. This article is, regardless of its direct purpose, an important study in the development of the September and October calendar throughout the Byzantine Commonwealth.

(9) R. Roques, Pierre l'Ibérien et le « Corpus » dionysien, *Revue d'histoire des religions* 145 (1954) 69–98.

similar,[10] and so, it is enough to consider only the most elaborated version of a given argument):

Hausherr was an eminent specialist in Christian oriental mystical and ascetical literature. According to him, Peter the Iberian belonged to an ascetic milieu strictly opposed to profane philosophy: indeed, his teacher was, for some time, Isaias of Gaza known by his idiosyncrasy toward worldly wisdom. Being a disciple of Isaias, Peter could not be a likely author of the *Corpus Areopagiticum*.

Engberding, being an outstanding liturgical scholar, corrected Honigmann in the liturgical part of argumentation. The memories of Dionysius and Hierotheos on 3 and 4 October, as he rightly pointed out, did not emerge within the Monophysite tradition because their sources are the Greek Chalcedonian calendars where these memories are preserved until now. Their appearance in some Syrian Monophysite calendars is secondary, under the Byzantine influence. So, they have nothing to do with the Monophysite saints Peter the Iberian and John the Eunuch.

Roques, the author of the now classical *L'Univers dionysien* (1954), explored the contents of the vision of John the Eunuch in the context of the visions of the heavens available in Christian literature to the end of the fifth century. He concluded that the vision of John presupposes another type of the arrangement of heavenly hierarchies than that of the *Corpus Areopagiticum*. It was especially important that John saw seven angelic ranks instead of nine, and that he saw, among them, the figures of holy humans as separate ranks of heavenly beings.

This threefold attack was enough to bury Honigmann's thesis for a while.

1.2. van Esbroeck's Apology of Honigmann

Michel van Esbroeck answered the three critics of Honigmann and provided a further development of Honigmann's argumentation. In his replies to Hausherr and Engberding he introduced some important new data.

(10) *E. g.*, Hausherr, too, compared the contents of the vision of John the Eunuch with that of the Areopagitic hierarchies, but not in such an elaborated manner as Roques.

1.2.1. van Esbroeck's Reply to Hausherr

Peter the Iberian's attitude toward the secular philosophy of his time, especially the Platonic philosophy, must be very familiar, despite his close ties with Isaias of Gaza. The Empress Eudocia, being the daughter of an Athenian pagan philosopher and also being a poet and philosopher herself, was not only the *de facto* stepmother of Peter, but also a person deeply involved in the Palestinian monastic circles connected with Melania the Younger (*ca* 382–439) and subsequently opposed to the Council of Chalcedon. Peter's monastic formation (and not only his young years in the Emperor's palace) was deeply influenced by the concept of monasticism acknowledged in the entourage of Melania and formulated by Eudocia in the words of Plato "So for those who despise the vain appearance, that is the deadly cloth which the soul is born to leave, according to the sayings of Plato" (Οὕτω τὴν κενὴν δόξαν περιφρονοῦσιν, ὃν τελευταῖον χιτῶνα Πλάτων ὁ φιλόσοφος φησιν ἡ ψυχὴ πέφυκεν ἀποτίθεσθαι ; quoted in Nicephorus Callistus, *PG* 146, 1237A; tr. by van Esbroeck, and also, in a slightly different form, in Evagrius Scholasticus, I, 22; ed. Bidez, p. 31, the latter being — very probably but not certainly — the source of the former).

For the sake of space, I summarised this argument of van Esbroeck-taking into account my own addition (Lourié 2001) when introducing the figure of Melania the Younger (however, my 2001 paper was written in close contact with van Esbroeck, and so, even this detail was found under his direction).[11] Eudocia, too, characterised Melania as her "true spiritual mother" (*Life of Melania the Younger*, 58).[12]

Eudocia's quotation from Plato is not a free periphrasis of *Phaedo* 87DE (*pace* van Esbroeck) but more an exact quote from a lost work preserved in Athenaeus (XI, 116, l. 29–31).[13] One should note (*pace* van Esbroeck) that neither Nicephorus Callistus nor Evagrius attribute this quotation to Eudocia explicitly, but it appears in the description of some peculiar kind of Palestinian asceticism at Eudocia's time. Any-

(11) For the role of Melania the Younger as spiritual teacher of Peter the Iberian see now: C. B. Horn, *Asceticism and Christological Controversy in Fifth-Century Palestine: The Career of Peter the Iberian* (Oxford, 2006) (The Oxford Early Christian Studies) 138–141.

(12) D. Gorce, *Vie de sainte Mélanie* (Paris, 1962) (SC, 90) 242.

(13) G. Kaibel, Athenaei Naucratitae *Deipnosophistarum libri XV*. Vol. 3 (Lipsiae, 1890; reprint: Stuttgart, 1966) 507d.

way, I think[14] the ultimate source of the Platonic quotation belongs to the same monastic milieu as Eudocia when she became monastic.

I think that we have to conclude that, despite these minor corrections, this argument of van Esbroeck still holds. Moreover, it is now enforced by taking into account the role of Melania the Younger as the figure who shaped the relevant milieu of Palestinian monasticism.

Therefore, *pace* Hausherr, Peter the Iberian had sufficient background in the Christian rethinking of Hellenic philosophy to not to be excluded, on this ground, from the possible authors of the *Corpus Areopagiticum*. Indeed, Hausherr wrote himself: "Jusqu'à nouvelles preuves, Pierre l'Ibérien n'est pas le pseudo-Denys. Mais le pseudo-Denys se dissimule dans ce milieu où M. Honigmann le cherche."[15] "Jusqu'à nouvelles preuves" does not mean "jamais."[16]

1.2.2. van Esbroeck's Reply to Engberding

To meet Engberding's objection, van Esbroeck elaborates on the possibility of reconciliation of Peter the Iberian with the followers of the Chalcedon, and thus, the possibility of his recognition as a Chalcedonian saint. His main arguments here are the following three:

1. the hard anti-Chalcedonian bias of John Rufus, Peter's hagiographer, which makes his information about Peter's continuous anti-Chalcedonian stay somewhat unreliable,

2. Peter's rejection of the Christological Trisagion of Peter the Fuller, which is testified to indirectly by John Rufus in his *Plerophoriae*, ch. 22,[17]

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(14) Cf. analysis in Lourié 2001.

(15) Hausherr, Le pseudo-Denys..., 260.

(16) Moreover, Hausherr and Roques put forward an argument that the relationship between Peter the Iberian and John the Eunuch was not the same as that of Dionysius and Hierotheos, that is, not the relationship of disciple and teacher (Hausherr, Le pseudo-Denys..., 248–250; Roques, Pierre l'Ibérien..., 77–78). This observation is, indeed, right. Nevertheless, it does not affect the prophetic and apocalyptic sense of the vision of John the Eunuch. In the scene of this vision, it was certainly John who was the spiritual leader among both. This would be enough — and especially in conformance with the universal ascetic principle of humility — to develop, in another context, the story of Dionysius as an Aaron with Hierotheos as his Moses.

(17) Moreover, van Esbroeck was referring to a Chalcedonian source as a direct witness, Theodorus of Petra, *Panegyricon* on Theodosius Cenobiarchos [H. Usener, *Der heilige Theodosios. Schriften des Theodoros und Kyrillos*

3. the example of Eudocia who was converted to the Chalcedonian faith by Symeon the Stylite in about 456, not long before her death (460).

These arguments and especially the second one are much important in view of further argumentation for the authorship of Peter the Iberian, but I would consider all of them rather superfluous when answering Engberding (and so, I will return to them later).

Peter the Iberian died in 492[18] and was widely considered a saint. This was the epoch when the *Henotikon* of Zeno (482) was in force throughout the Orient. All the saints of this period, starting from Daniel the Stylite — the spiritual leader of the epoch of *Henotikon*, like prophet Daniel during the rule of Zeno and early (pacific) part of the rule of Anastasius — entered the Eastern Christian synaxaries without problems. It was only after 505, after the reinterpretation of the *Henotikon* in a militant monophysite sense in a sermon of John III Niceotes, patriarch of Alexandria,[19] and especially after 512 (forced change of the leading figures in the Eastern episcopate) that the *Henotikon* became deeply controversial not only in Rome but in the Orient too.

The attitude of Peter toward the Council of Chalcedon simply did not matter in the period when he died (492), between 482 and 505/512. Doubts concerning his loyalty toward the *Henotikon* have no grounds except a purely hypothetical interpretation of some facts and ignoring others.[20] Therefore, he had to take, after 482, an "irenic" attitude towards those who did not anathematize Chalcedon providing that they did confess that it was God who was born and crucified.

It is an attitude that is too Chalcedonian, which would prevent the acceptance of a Church leader of this epoch as a Byzantine saint. I think that this is the real cause of the almost complete oblivion of the memory of the patriarch of Constantinople Euthymius/Euphemius (490–496,

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(Leipzig, 1890) 66.8–10]: ἐπιτιμάτω τούτοις ὁ μακάριος Πέτρος *Χριστοῦ παθόντος ὑπὲρ ἡμῶν σαρκί* οὐχί δὲ καὶ *θεότητι* ἀποφηνάμενος. However, this "fine praise of Peter in a thoroughly Chalcedonian context" (van Esbroeck 1993, 223, n. 20) belongs to the apostle Peter, and even the source of the quote (1 Pet 4:1) is indicated by the editor in the apparatus. This reference of van Esbroeck is due to a misunderstanding but is, unfortunately, repeated in van Esbroeck 1997, 185.

(18) Not in 491; see below, section 3.1.

(19) M. van Esbroeck, Le manifeste de Jean III le Nicéote en 505 dans le *Livre des Lettres* arménien, *Revue des études arméniennes* 24 (1993) 27–46.

(20) See Note 2 below this section.

† 515) who was deposed for his attempt to interpret the *Henotikon* in an openly Chalcedonian sense, even if without rejecting it formally.[21]

The acceptance of an anti-Chalcedonian saint of this epoch in the Byzantine Orthodox calendars could be seen as problematic only if the whole situation is seen from Rome, then separated from the whole remaining Church and accusing the other patriarchates of the "Acacian schism." Normally, the cults established in this epoch were preserved in the Eastern Churches after the restoration of official Chalcedonism in 518 (among the most known examples are St Daniel the Stylite, the "prophet Daniel" of Zeno's Constantinople,[22] the feast of the Robe of the Theotokos in Blachernae on July 2,[23] and Vakhtang Gorgasali, the king of Georgia who received the revelation of the *Henotikon* faith[24]). The abrogation of the *Henotikon*, already reinterpreted in a strongly monophysite sense, under Justin I (518) was compensated by the "neo-Chalcedonian" reinterpretation of the Chalcedonian *horos* (leading to further conflicts with Rome known as the theopaschite controversy and the schism of Pope Vigilius) that was, in fact, a restoration of the mainstream theology of the epoch of Zeno.

Of course, the attitude of John Rufus when he wrote his *Life of Peter the Iberian* around the year 500 was closer to the militant anti-Chalcedonian reinterpretation of the *Henotikon* given by John Niceotes in 505.

The memory of Peter the Iberian as a saint was preserved in the Georgian Church when it became Chalcedonian in the early seventh century[25] but seems to be suppressed in the mainstream Byzantine tradition. These topics still need to be studied properly. Peter the Iberian

(21) Lourié 2007.

(22) On this cult, see H. Delehaye, *Les saints stylites* (Bruxelles—Paris, 1923) (SH, 14), on his prophetic and spiritually leading role in the epoch of *Henotikon* see especially Delehaye's remarks on p. LI–LIV.

(23) This cult was established earlier but only in this epoch received its normative (since then) hagiographic legend, when the Robe was stolen from a Jewish woman by the noblemen Galbas and Candidus. In its genuine sense, this legend was anti-Chalcedonian where the old Jewish woman was an allegorical image of Empress Pulcheria; cf. Lourié 2007.

(24) M. van Esbroeck, La Vision de Vakhtang Gorgasali et sa signification, in: E. Khintibidze (ed.), *Proceedings of the First International Symposium in Kartvelian Studies* (Tbilisi, 1988) 181–191; idem, La portée politico-religieuse des visions pour la conversion des peuples, *Revue de l'Institut Catholique de Paris* 53 (1995) 87–104.

(25) Of course, not without "rewriting" his *Life* in its anti-Chalcedonian parts. Cf. Horn, *Asceticism...*, 47–49.

is listed among the leaders of heretics in the *Synodical Epistle* of Sophronius of Jerusalem (634)[26] published as the first reaction to the ongoing monothelite union. This letter became a first-value dogmatic document after the definitive condemnation of monothelitism (not earlier than after 715). However, the diothelite doctrine of Sophronius himself was then not quite common in the Orient where verbal "monothelitism" seems to me to have prevailed.[27] It is likely that, in his condemnation of Peter the Iberian, Sophronius was depending on a marginal Palestinian tradition whose legacy he was sharing, but even this tradition did distinguish Peter as the head of a separate movement within the Monophysite milieu. M. van Esbroeck argues that the corresponding part of the *Synodical Epistle* is simply copied from a Chalcedonian document of the early sixth century.[28] Be this as it may, such a suppression of Peter's name in the lists of saints could not affect his "indirect" veneration under the name of Dionysius the Areopagite. And this is the only point that is needed to answer Engberding.

However, my own conclusion in the analysis below will be different from that of Honigmann. I do not see any trace of the veneration of Peter under the name of Dionysius. Instead, I do see that their liturgical memories were interconnected, in one way or another.

Note 1: Peter the Iberian and the Trisagion Controversy

Cornelia Horn in her very important monograph on Peter the Iberian treats at some length the role of the Trisagion controversy in the life (and the *Life* by John Rufus) of Peter.[29] The controversy started between 468 and 470 when Peter the Fuller, patriarch of Antioch, introduced the words "crucified for us" in the Trisagion hymn. John Rufus, of course, is quite supportive of this innovation. Horn thinks that Peter's attitude was the same. However, she does not mention van Esbroeck's arguments and, what is more important, confuses in her theological analysis two different matters: the claim that it is God who was crucified for us (so-called "theopaschism") and the meaning of the Christological Trisagion at the time of

(26) Sophronius of Jerusalem, *Epistula synodalis ad Sergium*, *PG* 87/3, 3192B.

(27) B. Lourié, Un autre monothélisme : le cas de Constantin d'Apamée au VI[e] Concile Œcuménique, *SP* 29 (1997) 290–303; idem [В. М. *Лурье*], *История византийской философии. Формативный период* [*History of the Byzantine Philosophy. Formative Period*] (Санкт-Петербург, 2006).

(28) van Esbroeck 1997, 185–186.

(29) Horn, *Asceticism...*, 391–395.

the controversy. Moreover, Horn refers to but seems to not really take into account the study of Janerás[30] demonstrating that the Christological Trisagion was — and still is — familiar to the Byzantine (Chalcedonian) liturgy, however, without addition. It is the addition only that made a problem.

There is no doubt that Peter the Iberian shared the "theopaschite" convictions, but he has here on his side such prominent Chalcedonians as Emperor Justinian and the fathers of the Fifth Ecumenical Council. It was not the "theopaschism" that made the Trisagion controversy of the late fifth and early sixth centuries so acute but especially the role of Peter the Fuller during his second tenure (485–488) when the addition was made the slogan of radical Monophysitism aiming at the genuine "irenic" spirit of the *Henotikon*. In the epoch of the *Henotikon*, both main sides of the Trisagion controversy were "theopaschite," but they did differ in the matter of the subject of the passion in God. Horn does not take into account the letter of Peter to John Rufus quoted in the *Plerophoriae* (ch. 22)[31] where Peter suggests to him to decline the invitation to Antioch on the part of Peter the Fuller in the 480s ("...si tu vas à Antioche, tu seras troublé, puis convaincu par tes amis et par celui qui est maître là-bas; [et alors] ou bien tu te joindras à lui, ou bien tu tomberas dans [son] inimité s'il te renvoie").

One can mention here an interesting hypothesis of van Esbroeck — that Demophilus, the addressee of the eighth letter of the *Corpus Areopagiticum*, has his prototype in the person of Peter the Fuller. "The author of the letter sees himself as sharing Demophilus's views, but urges him not to innovate in the liturgy: one thinks immediately of the famous expression 'one of the Trinity has been crucified'."[32] His argumentation is based on a parallel with the *Laudatio Barnabaei* ab Alexandro Cyprio (*BHG* 226), and I will try here to explain in more detail his rather blind reference.

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(30) V.-S. Janeras, Les Byzantins et le Trisagion christologique, in: *Miscellanea liturgica in onore di Sua Eminenza il Cardinale Giacomo Lercaro*, II (Roma, 1967) 468–499.

(31) F. Nau, Jean Rufus, évêque de Maïouma, *Plérophories. Témoignages et révélations contre le concile de* Chalcédoine. Version syriaque et traduction française (Paris, 1912) (PO, 8, 1) 49–50. Cf. Horn, *Asceticism...*, 27, n. 87: only a mention of this letter as an evidence that Peter did write, at least, something by his own hand.

(32) van Esbroeck 1993, 227. It is interesting that the final part of the *Letter* VIII (§ 6), the story of Carpus with his unmerciful attitude toward those fallen from the Church, could explain the reasons of Peter the Iberian not to accept the addition to the Trisagion. Such an addition was too harsh for the people disposed toward the Chalcedon.

Alexander of Cyprus (527–565) includes in his encomium a digression on Peter the Fuller.[33] Alexander writes that some people "from ours" (ἐκ τῶν ἡμετέρων) accepted this addition "out of simplicity of reason but not out of evil will" (ἁπλώτητι λογισμοῦ καὶ οὐ κακίας γνώμης). Alexander does not treat the innovation as heretical *per se*. Instead, he defends the original text as revealed in a miracle under Proclus of Constantinople, and thus, unliable to changes: "Because we are not correctors of Christ but obedients of Christ" (Οὐ γάρ ἐσμεν διορθωταὶ τοῦ Χριστοῦ, ἀλλ᾽ ὑποτακτεῖται τοῦ Χριστοῦ), and, moreover, "...it is an extreme stupidity to accept an innovation of an heretic even if without thinking heretically" (...ἰδιωτία ἐσχάτη ἐστὶ τὸ παραδέξασθαι τὴν καινοτομίαν τοῦ αἱρετικοῦ, κἂν μὴ φρονῶσι τὰ τοῦ αἱρετικοῦ).[34] Alexander's degree of aversion to Peter the Fuller seems to be, naturally, higher than that of Peter the Iberian but the general attitude is the same: the addition *per se* is not heretical but, nevertheless, unacceptable.

No doubts, "Peter had every reason to trust in Christ, the crucified God, without any hesitation."[35] However, this fact is not especially relevant to his attitude toward the addition of Peter the Fuller. Such a "theopaschite" confession was shared by the Patriarchates of the whole Orient in the epoch of *Henotikon* and will be confirmed even during the Chalcedonian restoration in the sixth century, when the hymn Ὁ Μονογενής, being a theopaschite liturgical confession, was attributed to Severus of Antioch by the Severians and to Emperor Justinian by the Chalcedonians. Thus, van Esbroeck's observation of the importance of the *Plerophoriae*, 22 testimony still holds. Peter the Iberian was not an ally of Peter the Fuller.

Note 2: Alleged Rejection of the **Henotikon** *by Peter the Iberian*

Peter's acceptance of the *Henotikon* was taken as granted by Honigmann[36] and, after him, by van Esbroeck. However, van Esbroeck did not answer the criticisms put forward against this point of Honigmann's argumentation.

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(33) *AASS*, Iunii II (1698) 447–449.

(34) *AASS*, Iunii II (1698) 448DE. Thus, Horn's statement (with reference to Schulz) that "...Chalcedonian theologians, applying the Trisagion to the Trinity, rejected the insertion as heretical" (Horn, *Asceticism...*, 394) is an oversimplification. Cf. also the actual Byzantine matins of the Great Saturday (Christ's burial rite), its burial procession with Trisagion chant applied to Christ. On the history of this rite and its parallels in liturgics and homiletics see Janeras, Les Byzantins et le Trisagion christologique…

(35) Horn, *Asceticism…*, 395.

(36) Honigmann, *Pierre l'Ibérien…*, 13.

The first critique was provided by René Roques in consultation with Antoine Guillaumont.[37] Roques proposes here three arguments against Honigmann:

1. "En réalité, les *Plérophories* de Jean Rufus <...> ne semblent guère autoriser cette supposition." — This seems to be an argument *ex silentio* but, in fact, as we shall see, the *Plerophories* are not absolutely silent on this matter.

2. "De plus, Pierre, comme l'abbé Isaïe et Théodore d'Antinoé, s'est dérobé devant l'invitation de l'Empereur Zénon, qui n'était probablement pas sans rapport avec la signature de l'*Hénotique.*" — This argument is the most serious, and we will meet it in a more elaborated form in Cornelia Horn, when it will be discussed.

3. Sophronius of Jerusalem in the *Synodical Epistle* (mentioned above) calls Peter's monophysite faction ἀκέφαλοι (Peter and Isaias, "...qui parmi les acéphales enseignaient une autre hérésie acéphale"; Roques' translation), but, according to the heresiological treatise ascribed to Timotheos of Constantinople (second half of the sixth cent.), this name belongs to those who broken communion with Peter Mongos when he accepted the *Henotikon*.[38] — This argument is based on a misunderstanding of Timotheos' terminology in particular and of the terminology of the epoch in general. First of all, it ignores Sophronius' terminology in the quote translated by Roques himself where Sophronius uses the term "acephaloi" as a general term for the anti-Chalcedonians: Peter's and Isaias' kind of "acephalian heresy" emerged among the "Acephals." Moreover, Timotheos of Constantinople provides a common heading to his list of the anti-Chalcedonian factions: "A brief explanation for knowing in how many parts is divided the heresy of the Acephals or Theopaschites."[39] Thus, the term "Acephals," especially in Sophronius of Jerusalem, has nothing specific to conclude, on these grounds, that Peter was with those who broke communion with Peter Mongos because of the *Henotikon*.

Cornelia Horn provides the most elaborated argumentation in favour of the view that Peter rejected the *Henotikon*. Her main arguments are based on two facts:

(37) In a large footnote 5, Roques, Pierre l'Ibérien..., 70–71, where he expresses his gratitude to Guillaumont for his consultation concerning Timotheos of Constantinople.

(38) *PG* 86/1, 45A. This reference is pointed out to Roques by Guillaumont.

(39) *PG* 86/1, 41B.

1. Peter the Iberian was the leader of the anti-Chalcedonian "monastic committee" in Egypt which examined the orthodoxy of Peter Mongus when he accepted the *Henotikon*,

2. Peter and Isaias were reluctant to accept an invitation of Zeno to Constantinople (the same argument as that of Roques, nr 2).[40]

Indeed, the reason for the invitation of two authoritative monastic leaders to the capital was, most probably, an attempt to obtain additional confirmation of the religious policy of *Henotikon*. However, this does not mean that their reluctance to accept the invitation is proof that they themselves did not accept the *Henotikon*. Many other reasons are not less possible, especially those connected with the evading of vainglory. Moreover, as it seems, there was no serious problem with acceptance of the *Henotikon* in the Orient outside Egypt.[41] Thus, Horn's and Roques' second argument is by no means decisive.

Horn's first argument must be considered in more detail. In Horn's résumé of the story, it looks like Peter the Iberian was among those monks who, finally, rejected communion with Peter Mongus and were expelled by the latter.[42] But, in fact, the story (Zachariah Rhetor, *Chronicle*, VI, 1) runs as follows: "Then Peter the Iberian, the bishop of Gaza, who was sojourning there, and Elijah the monk, surnamed *the potter*, were appointed to consider and examine into these matters. And having examined into them, together with the council of the monks, they selected four of Peter's [Peter Mongus'] discourses concerning the faith, and they said to him, 'If thou dost agree to these, sign them'; and he signed them. Whereupon several of them entered into communion with him, because he thereby anathematised the Synod and the Tome, when he delivered those discourses in the ears of the people. However, the others remained unwilling to hold communion with Peter [Mongus]. And the latter, seeing this, took away the monastery of Bishop Theodore, and thrust out that wonderful man..." Then, Zachariah mentions one more name of an expelled monastic leader, Nephalius.[43]

(40) Horn, *Asceticism...*, 104–105, with no reference to Roques.

(41) At least, the only schism that we know (outside Rome) provoked by acceptance of the *Henotikon* took place in Egypt, see above.

(42) Horn, *Asceticism...*, 105: "In front of that committee, Mongus defended his orthodoxy on the basis of four of his homilies, thus condemning Chalcedon with his own signature. Yet *in the eyes of the committee and especially in Peter's eyes that was insufficient*. Apparently, Peter showed in this situation his most irreconcilable side. When Peter Mongus expelled the monks, who refused communion with him, it only made matters worse." (Italics mine. — *B.L.*)

(43) Translation according to F. J. Hamilton, E. W. Brooks, *The Syriac Chronicle known as that of Zachariah of Mitylene.* Translated into English (Lon-

It is never stated, in Zachariah, that Peter the Iberian was among the monks who rejected communion with Peter Mongus. Instead, it is rather the opposite that is said. Peter the Iberian and the monk Elijah were the authors of the compromise idea to obtain from Peter Mongus his signature under his four earlier homilies containing anathematisation of Chalcedon. Peter Mongus did accept this condition which was proposed by none other than Peter the Iberian and Elijah. Thus, to count Peter the Iberian and Elijah among those who rejected communion with Peter Mongus would say that they suddenly changed their mind, apparently with no reason. Such a supposition seems to me absolutely without basis. The whole story from Zachariah Rhetor confirms nothing but acceptance of the *Henotikon* on the part of Peter the Iberian.

After having taken Zachariah's story as the first evidence of Peter's acceptance of the *Henontikon*, we are able to add, at least, two others:

1. The attitude of Severus of Antioch, the, future patriarch, toward Peter the Iberian.[44] Severus was always among those who accepted the *Henotikon*. Nevertheless, he, very probably, met Peter the Iberian personally and, in any case, esteemed him very much. Severus' monastic tonsure was performed in Peter's monastery, even if (soon) after the death of Peter. All this would be impossible if Peter was, from Severus' viewpoint, a schismatic.[45]

2. Peter the Iberian's letter to John Rufus (*Plerophoriae*, 22) quoted above (Note 1): "...si tu vas à Antioche, tu seras troublé, puis convaincu par tes amis et par celui qui est maître là-bas; [et alors] ou bien tu te joindras à lui, ou bien tu tomberas dans [son] inimité s'il te renvoie." Only disadvantages of Peter the Fuller are discussed but, nevertheless, it goes as self-evident that it is he who is the legitimate patriarch of Antioch. This is the only reason why, from Peter the Iberian's viewpoint, subordination to him is theoretically possible, even if not reasonable. If Peter the Iberian had not accepted the *Henotikon*, his evaluation of

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don, 1899) 134. Original: E. W. Brooks, Zachariah Rhetor, *Historia ecclesiastica* (Louvain, 1953) (CSCO, 84; Syr 39) 3.

(44) On this, see especially Horn, Asceticism..., 108–109.

(45) Roques, Pierre l'Ibérien..., 76–77, erroneously considers one place in Zachariah's *Life of Severus* as having relation to Peter the Iberian. When Severus became patriarch, all the inhabitants of Antioch "considered him as second Peter" (M.-A. Kugener, Zacharie le Scholastique. *Vie de Sévère* (Paris, 1907) (PO, 2, 1) 114). "L'éloge ne devait pas être médiocre, car ce même biographe rapproche Sévère des plus grands noms de la théologie et de l'éloquence, de Jean Chrysostome notamment," wrote Roques. However, it is clear that it is apostle Peter, the first bishop of Antioch, who is meant.

Peter the Fuller would have been quite different, excluding the very possibility of any subordination and communion.

Therefore, Honigmann's conviction that Peter the Iberian did acknowledge the *Henotikon* is in perfect accord with the historical evidence.[46]

1.2.3. van Esbroeck's Reply to Roques

The reply to Roques is the most succinct. Indeed, the vision of John in about 444 showed not the exactly same heavens that are described in the *Corpus Areopagiticum*.[47] However, the distance between the vision and the formation of the earliest layer of the *Corpus* is not less than 20 years. Peter could reshape the earlier mystical experience of his friend. Therefore, Roques' considerations are not especially relevant to the problem of the authorship of the *Corpus*.

1.3. van Esbroeck's Main Contributions to the Issue

Having answered the criticisms put forward against Honigmann, van Esbroeck smoothed the way for himself. His own investigations were concentrated on two different fields: the first appearance of the *Corpus* and its further reshaping that resulted in the actually known collection of the 14 epistles, four long and ten short, patterned after the 14 epistles of Paul. The very idea that the *Corpus* passed through different editorial stages until appearing in its present shape was established before van Esbroeck[48] and now is without doubts.[49]

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(46) In her Introduction to the *Life of Peter the Iberian*, Horn rightly states that "Peter's followers were increasingly isolated after Sabas's appointment" (C. B. Horn, R. R. Phenix Jr, John Rufus: *The* Lives *of Peter the Iberian, Theodosius of Jerusalem, and the Monk Romanus.* Edited and Translated with an Introduction and Notes (Atlanta, GA, 2008) (Writings from the Greco-Roman world, 24) lvi). Such a step-by-step isolation was possible only if both monastic communities were initially in canonical communion with each other, that is, if both acknowledged the *Henotikon* and the patriarchs accepting it.

(47) Honigmann tried to interpret the structure of hierarchies seen by John the Eunuch as exactly the same as depicted by Dionysius. Thus, Roques' and Hausherr's criticism against this part of his argumentation was basically justified.

(48) Cf. especially B. Brons, Sekundäre Textpartien im Corpus Pseudo-Dionysiacum: Literarkritische Beobachtungen zu ausgewähiten Textstellen, *Nachrichten von der Akademie der Wissenschaften in Göttingen. Philos.-hist. Kl.* 5 (1975) 99–140.

(49) Cf. especially van Esbroeck 1997 and Perczel 2008.

1.3.1. van Esbroeck's "Hagiographical Argument"

The main argument of van Esbroeck could be called "hagiographical" Indeed, the *Corpus Areopagiticum* contains a hagiographical legend and served to establish a new cult (at least, a specific cult of Dionysius and Hierotheos). Therefore, apart from other equally legitimated viewpoints, the *Corpus* could be analysed by the methods of critical hagiography. I share van Esbroeck's conviction that such an approach is the best way to reach the *Sitz im Leben* of the collection. I will consider van Esbroeck's "hagiographical argument" at length in the final part of the present study. It is sufficient now to state that, according to van Esbroeck, the vision of John the Eunuch took place on the very day of the feast of the Dormition of the Virgin, when the heavens opened and Christ descended to receive the soul of the Theotokos, and the feast of Dormition itself subsequently was a major point in Peter the Iberian's personal piety. Thus, after the death of John in about 464, Peter wrote the core of the future *Corpus Areopagiticum* considering himself as a mere interpreter, if not simply a scribe of the teaching of his cellmate.

The "hagiographical argument" was immediately attacked by Ritter[50] who reacted to the first unpublished communication of van Esbroeck at the Eleventh Oxford Patristic Conference in 1991 (thus, without the full text of the article, he simply misunderstood him in several other points). Ritter pointed out that it is only a scholion of John of Scythopolis that is the earliest explanation of the scene in *DN* 3:2 as the Dormition, and so, we simply do not know what was meant by the author. We will return to this argument later.

1.3.2. Early Editorial History of the *Corpus Areopagiticum*

The names of Dionysius and Hierotheos appeared in the text of the *Corpus* at a later stage, when also the "Dormition account" in *DN* 3:2 was added (this account was pointed out among the "secondary parts" of the text already by Brons in 1975) as well as most (if not all) short letters. At least, the tenth letter (to John the Theologian) must be considered as an attempt to explain an "anachronistic" quotation from Ignatius of Antioch in *DN* 4:12: a reaction to an objection posterior even to the *Preface* of John of Scythopolis.[51] It is very likely that the scholies of John were added to a recension that did not contain most (if not all) short letters.

(50) Ritter, Vorwort..., 16–17.

(51) Thus according to van Esbroeck 1997, 180.

John of Scythopolis, according to van Esbroeck (1997), had a hand in the early distribution, if not early reshaping of the *Corpus*. Thus, van Esbroeck established a chronology of his life in contrast with the commonly accepted one (see Note 3, "John of Scythopolis' chronology," below).

The purpose for the radical reshaping of Peter the Iberian's work that resulted in our *Corpus Areopagiticum* was, according to van Esbroeck (1993), the need to answer the Palestinian monastic Origenism as it was formulated in the so-called *Book of Hierotheos* in the 490s. Of course, this time, once more, van Esbroeck goes against the scholarly consensus considering the *Book of Hierotheos* as exploiting the already established reputation of the teacher of the author of the *Corpus Areopagiticum*.[52] However, van Esbroeck's appreciation of the *Book of Hierotheos* could be reconciled with different hypotheses of its provenance, including the authorship of Stephen bar Sudaili. There is here a lot of room for further research.

Note 3: John of Scythopolis' Chronology

Van Esbroeck published his study (1997) almost simultaneously with that of Rorem and Lamoreaux,[53] and so, there was no reference to each other in their analyses. Rorem and Lamoreaux repeated the arguments of Honigmann (in a work with no relation to his thesis on Dionysius[54]) allowing to situate the start of John of Scythopolis' literary activity as being not earlier than the early sixth century. The difference is in the interpretation of the same documents: Photius, *Bibliotheca*, codd. 95 and 107.

Cod. 107 is a detailed summary of the work *Against John of Scythopolis* written by some Basil of Cilicia. Photius said that he was writing under the patriarch of Antioch Flavian (498–518). Rorem and Lamoreaux rightly observe that his own attitude was not Nestorianism but some sort of strict

(52) Cf. K. Pinggéra, *All-Erlösung und All-Einheit. Studien zum ‚Buch des heiligen Hierotheos' und seiner Rezeption in der syrisch-orthodoxen Theologie* (Wiesbaden, 2002) (Sprachen und Kulturen des christlichen Orients, 10) 25.

(53) P. Rorem, J. C. Lamoreaux, *John of Scythopolis and the Dionysian Corpus. Annotating the Areopagite* (Oxford, 1998) 28–32.

(54) E. Honigmann, *Évêques et évêchés monophysites d'Asie antérieure au VI^e siècle* (Louvain, 1951) (CSCO, 127; Subs, 2) 81; cf. L. Perrone, *La chiesa di Palestina e controversie christologiche, dal concilio di Efeso (431) al secondo concilio di Constantinopoli (553)* (Brescia, 1980) (Testi e ricerche di scienze religiose, 18) 244.

Chalcedonism.[55] However, following Honigmann and Perrone, they think that the date under Flavian is fictive: the author was writing much later, during the theopaschite controversy that started in 519. "...Basil was attempting to arrogate to himself the authority of Flavian, the resolute opponent of Philoxenus, the same Flavian who was eventually exiled (512) to Petra for his defence of Chalcedon."[56]

Now we know, and not least of all due to the studies of van Esbroeck, that the strict Chalcedonian party continued to exist in the epoch of the *Henotikon*,[57] and thus, such polemics as we see in the *Against John of Scythopolis* would be appropriate even then. Moreover, Rorem and Lamoreaux themselves have made an important observation: "Neo-Chalcedonian objections to the theology of Basil and others like him may perhaps explain two peculiar passages in the *Scholia* (*SchEH* 181.10, *SchCH* 72.5) which mention a sect associated with the Nestorians and called 'Basileans'".[58] Such a sect, if it was Chalcedonian, would be especially probable before the abrogation of the *Henotikon* under Justin I.

Thus, the arguments against the date stated explicitly in our source are too stretched. And so, van Ebroeck is right in taking the data of Cod. 107 at face value. Moreover, it is important to him that only the patriarch of Antioch is mentioned: this suggests that the polemics between Basil of Cilicia and John of Scythopolis took place in Antioch.

Cod. 95 is John of Scythopolis' own work (*Against the Aposchists*) written as a reply to an anonymous author who entitled his treatise *Against Nestorius* but, in fact, according to John, aimed at the doctrine of the Council of Chalcedon. John wrote a detailed refutation of the followers of Eutychius and Dioscorus in twelve books. This work was commissioned to him by a bishop (ἀρχιερεύς) named Julian. Indeed, to van Esbroeck, this Julian is the patriarch of Antioch (471–475) alternative to Peter the Fuller who was certainly in need of such antimonophysite works. Honigmann, Perrone, and Rorem and Lamoreaux are forced to opt for either some Julian of Bostra (opposed to Severus' consecration in 512, fled to Palestine in 515, and restored to his see in 518) or a completely unknown person. Needless to say that it is only van Esbroeck's solution that I consider natural and verisimilar. Rorem and Lamoreaux seem to miss the point, in particular, because they pose an irrelevant question as to whether "Pho-

(55) Rorem, Lamoreaux, *John of Scythopolis…*, 31–32.

(56) Ibid., 31, n. 42.

(57) Cf. Lourié 2007.

(58) Rorem, Lamoreaux, *John of Scythopolis…*, 31, n. 46.

tius meant the patriarch of Antioch" or rather somebody else,[59] while we need to know what was meant in the source of Photius, regardless of what meant Photius.

The chronology of John of Scythopolis' life is important for dating his *Scholies* to the *Corpus Areopagiticum*, even if the decisive argument for their dating is the date of John's *Preface* whose genuine recension is preserved only in Syriac.[60] This *Preface* was added to a recension earlier than what we know in Greek. Its date is presumably the same as the date of the scholies of John and it must be very close to the date of the first publication of the *Corpus* after its pseudonymisation. While van Esbroeck was reluctant to propose a specific date for the scholies, we can apply his approach to the data collected by Rorem and Lamoreaux.[61] Thus, we have to accept their first *terminus post quem* 518 as the date of the beginning of the schism between Severus and Julian of Halicarnassus (mentioned two times in the scholies) but reject their second *terminus post quem* 532 (beginning of the Origenist quarrels in the Laura of St Sabbas) taking into account another Origenist quarrel in Palestine in about 500 connected with the appearance of the *Book of Hierotheos*. Their third *terminus post quem*, 537/8, based on John's quotation from the anti-Origenist works of Antipater of Bostra (*fl ca* 460) seems to me equally unsubstantiated. "This [quotation from Antipater. — *B. L.*] makes it possible to be even more precise," said Rorem and Lamoreaux, "for at the beginning of the hegumenate of Gelasius (537/8) Antipater's anti-Origenist treatises first appear in the sixth century fight against Origen, being supported by the monks of the monastery of St Sabas."[62] Their reference here to the *Life of Sabbas*, 84, by Cyril of Scythopolis says nothing about any rediscovering of Antipater's works but simply about reading of them. Nothing is mentioned in this source that would prevent John from reading them earlier.

Another line of argumentation for the late chronology of John's life follows from the chronological data collected by Rorem and Lamoreaux concerning the date of John's alleged episcopate.[63] Leontius of Jerusalem and Sophronius of Jerusalem call John *bishop* of Scythopolis. If he actually was the bishop, our early chronology is impossible. Indeed, for the period up to about 530 we know, from different sources, that John certainly was a layman. The name of the bishop of Scythopolis between *ca.* 518 and some

(59) Rorem, Lamoreaux, *John of Scythopolis…*, 29–30.

(60) van Esbroeck 1997.

(61) Rorem, Lamoreaux, *John of Scythopolis…*, 37–38.

(62) Ibid., 38.

(63) It is Gregory Benevitch who drew my attention to this problem.

date after 536 is Theodosius. The next known bishop of Scythopolis was Theodore (*ca* 548 – *after* 558/559). Rorem and Lamoreaux opt for the period from a date after 536 up to *ca* 548 as the time of John's episcopacy.[64] This date is too late if we accept that John was an authoritative theologian in the early 470s, more than 60 years earlier, when Julian of Antioch asked him to write a theological treatise. It is theoretically possible but unlikely that he was in his twenties in the early 470s and it is even more unlikely that he was in his eighties when he was consecrated bishop in about 560 (the probability of the latter event is equal to the product of the probability of the former and the probability of John's consecration in about 560 in the hypothetical case if his age was then appropriable for consecration). However, the witnesses of John's episcopacy are not as reliable as it seems.

Recently, Dirk Krausmüller proposed to return to a seventh-century date for Leontius of Jerusalem, making him a contemporary of Sophronius of Jerusalem, and so, not a contemporary of John of Scythopolis.[65] Therefore, Leontius' witness is not of any exceptional value. Both seventh-century authors refer to John as to a bishop of Scythopolis who wrote against the Monophysites in defence of the Chalcedon. Leontius of Jerusalem is more precise attributing to this bishop John disclosure of the Apollinarian forgeries used by the Monophysites among their *testimonia*. Sophronius (or, maybe, Photius in his paraphrase of this lost Sophronius' work known in his paraphrase only[66]) calls John "the bishop of Scythopolis, who is among the saints." The first fact (anti-monophysite literary activity) is compatible with our John of Scythopolis as well as with many other figures, the second fact (disclosure of the Apollinarian forgeries) is quite peculiar but not known from any other source in relation to our John of Scythopolis even if it is easily compatible with his image, the third fact (veneration as a saint) is unique to Sophronius (or Photius) but could

(64) Rorem, Lamoreaux, *John of Scythopolis…*, 23–26. Their argument against a post-558/559 period is the date of Leontius of Jerusalem's witness in his *Against the Monophysites* (*PG* 86/2, 1865BD): they follow Patrick T. R. Gray's dating of the latter as between 538 and 544. This argument is, in my opinion, wrong (see below). In any case, however, it is out of probability that John, if he was a renowned theologian already in the 470s, was still a bishop in 560s. Such a late date of his episcopacy is unlikely even if Rorem and Lamoreaux's chronology of his life is correct.

(65) D. Krausmüller, Leontius of Jerusalem, a theologian of the 7th century, *JTS* 52 (2001) 637–657, and, for a discussion (taking into account Gray's criticisms), Lourié, *История византийской философии…*, 517–521.

(66) A patristic florilegium added to Sophronius' *Epistula synodalis ad Sergium*, is known from Photius' *Bibliotheca*, cod. 231.

be implied in Leontius of Jerusalem's reference, too. Thus, it is theoretically acceptable that both Sophronius and Leontius refer to a bishop of Scythopolis named John whose episcopacy took place either in between of *ca* 536 and *ca* 548 or after *ca* 560, different from our John of Scythopolis while possibly already confounded with him. However, the most natural solution is to accept that John of our seventh-century authors is the same theologian as the author of the *scholia*, and to consider John's alleged episcopacy as a post-mortem addition to his biography, which was made out of reverence to his person as an authoritative teacher.[67] In both cases, there is no necessity to reconsider the chronology of John's life with the purpose of giving him some time for remaining a bishop.

Therefore, we have to date the *scholia* to the period shortly after 518, most probably, somewhere in the 520s, but not in between 537 and 543, as Rorem and Lamoreaux thought.

1.4. van Esbroeck's Ideas in the Light of New Facts

From this section on I will sketch the scholarship after 1997 related to Honigmann's and van Esbroeck's thesis directly or indirectly and add some of my own, previously unpublished, considerations.

1.4.1. The Date of the *Historia Euthymiaca* as the *Corpus' terminus ante quem*

The so-called *Historia Euthymiaca* is preserved in several fragments of unequal length and even more unequal fame among scholars. The most famous fragment deals with a legend of the Dormition put in the mouth of the patriarch of Jerusalem Juvenal at the time of the Council of Chalcedon (451). When Pulcheria and Marcian ask him about the Dormition, he refers to Dionysius the Areopagite and quotes *DN* 3:2.

The *Historia* has been dated by Wenger (1955) to a large interval from the sixth to the eighth century, but van Esbroeck (1975–1976) opted for the sixth century (on the ground of a new document in Arabic). In my 2007 paper I attributed the whole work to the patriarch of Constantinople Euthymius/Euphemius (490–496, †515), most likely, after his deposition.[68]

(67) As it seems, in the seventh century, the cult of John of Scythopolis as a saint was a *fait accompli*. Pope Agatho, too, refers to him in his letter to the Sixth Ecumenical Council (680); cf. Rorem, Lamoreaux, *John of Scythopolis…*, 23.

(68) Lourié 2007.

This date fits perfectly the time of publication of the pseudonymised recension of the *Corpus Areopagiticum*, but obliges one to reconsider its *terminus ante quem*. So far, the *terminus ante quem* was established by Honigmann on the grounds of the earliest quotation from the *Corpus* in a Syriac translation of anti-Julianistic works of Severus (*Adversus Apologiam Iuliani* and *Contra Additiones*) whose manuscript is dated to 528 according to the colophon. Indeed, these works of Severus were translated into Syriac by Paul of Callinicium almost immediately, but, nevertheless, this date of the manuscript of the Syriac version would presuppose a date between 520 and 525 for the Greek original (and certainly not earlier than 518, the date of the start of the anti-Julianistic polemics). My attribution of the *Historia Euthymiaca* leads to the *terminus ante quem* 515 for the *Corpus Areopagiticum*, that is, closer to van Esbroeck's dating (*ca* 500).

1.4.2. *DN* 3:2 as a Dormition Scene

Is *DN* 3:2 describing the Dormition? I was a witness of vehement polemics between van Esbroeck and Ritter at the Twelfth Oxford Patristic Conference in 1995, but, unfortunately, it has never resulted in further publications.

After Ritter (1994), several scholars supported his doubts.[69] However, nobody proposed any alternative. The only exception is István Perczel[70] with ingenuity so characteristic of him. His idea is the following.

> "Consider for example the famous story from *DN* 3.2, which is allegedly the author's eyewitness account of the Dormition of Mary, the Mother of God, in Jerusalem. The text, however, does not say anything like this. It only speaks about an event where "Dionysius," "Timothy" the addressee of his treatises, "many of their holy brethren," as well as "James the Brother-of-God" and "Peter, the coryphee and most venerable Head of the theologians," as well as the author's teacher, the "holy Hierotheus," all "gathered together to contemplate the Body that is Principle-of-Life and Receiver-of-God." After this contemplation, "it was judged just that all the high-priests celebrate, according to their capacities, the infinitely powerful Goodness of the weakness of the Principle-of-Divinity." In his commentary on this passage, John hazards a guess: "perhaps he [Dionysius] calls 'Body that is Principle-of-Life and Receiver-of-

(69) *E. g.*, Pinggéra, *All-Erlösung und All-Einheit…*, 25.

(70) Perczel 2008, 558–559.

> God' that of the holy Mother-of-God at her Dormition." From this hypothesis, however, grew the whole legend of Dionysius' and Hierotheus' presence at the Dormition, finally canonised in the service to Saint Dionysius on October 3 by Theophanes the Confessor.[71]
>
> My reading of this text is that here "Dionysius" is not inventing a fictitious story but is encoding a real one; the gathering was that of bishops contemporary to "Dionysius," who are mentioned under pseudonyms, too, so that "James the Brother-of-God" should be the bishop of Jerusalem and "Peter," apparently adorned by the attributes of the "Apostolic See," the bishop of Rome, while the contemplation of the Lifegiving and Godbearing Body is a concelebration of the Eucharist followed by the "celebration of the powerful Goodness of God's weakness," that is, a discussion on the Incarnation. So I believe that here Dionysius describes a council in which he took part, possibly the Council of Chalcedon."

I certainly do agree with Perczel's approach when he treats this legend as an allegoric presentation of apostolic sees, even if I do not agree that Peter is here presenting Rome. I think he presents Antioch, a not less "Petrine" see, quite actual to the historical context of the *Corpus Areopagiticum*. Even in the case that we reject van Esbroeck's hypothesis completely, we have to take into consideration that the four large treatises of the *Corpus*, including *DN*, are addressed to Timotheos, that is, to the see of Ephesus, within the patriarchate of Antioch. Moreover, in any case, the *Corpus* is to be dated to a period when Rome was separated from the whole East (482–519) and could hardly be any concern to a more or less important Eastern Church faction. The history of patriarch Euthymius of Constantinople who failed to re-establish communion with Rome because of his refusal to break the policy of the *Henotikon* is a demonstration of the real (minor) value of Rome even in the eyes of the most Chalcedonian groups.

Perczel's identification of the "Lifegiving and Godbearing Body" (τοῦ ζωοαρχικοῦ καὶ θεοδόχου σώματος) as the Eucharist is highly problematic. In our passage, the author clearly distinguishes the "contemplation" of this Body and the liturgy that took place only "after"

(71) In fact, Theophanes (ninth cent.) wrote the liturgical canon (hymn) that implies that the commemoration was already existing, because Theophanes' large canon-writing program was a part of a liturgical reform and by no means an introduction of cults of dozens of new saints. Thus, Perczel's dating of Dionysius' commemoration to October 3 is not correct.

the contemplation (εἶτα ἐδόκει μετὰ θεὰν ὑμνῆσαι τοὺς ἱεράρχας...). If the "Body" here is the Eucharist, one should expect rather the reverse sequence.

In the situation of the Council of Chalcedon one could expect to see here a specific role of the body (holy relics) of the martyr Euphemia, but epithets like "lifegiving" and especially "Godbearing" [lit., "God-accepting"] are, in this case, unlikely.

Therefore, it would be safer to return to the previous hypothesis of John of Scythopolis that it is the body of Theotokos that is meant. It would be especially safer now, when we can accept for John of Scythopolis, an earlier date, closer to the appearance of the *Corpus*. Indeed, Perczel has a point when he says: "This example serves to illustrate how remote we are with John's edition from the original context of the *CD*."[72] I agree here with Perczel while, unlike him, I think that John's guess about the "Body" is right; nevertheless, John already needs to guess instead of being certain. But I would mean here not the distance between John and the earliest pseudonymised edition of the *Corpus*, but that between John and the *Urtext* of Peter the Iberian.

Now we have other reasons to confirm John of Scythopolis' guess and to resolve the doubts of Ritter.

The testimony of the *Historia Euthymiaca* is to be considered now as another witness of an early tradition of the comprehension of *DN* 3:2, even earlier than the "re-dated" John of Scythopolis. Moreover, the agreement between both *Historia Euthymiaca* and John would reveal their common roots in an even earlier tradition of the exegesis of Dionysius. But "earlier" than 515 means "contemporaneous" to the publication of the *Corpus*. There could be nothing earlier than that.

Finally, the monograph by Stephen Shoemaker on the Dormition accounts[73] could help to reveal some of van Esbroeck's too succinct formulations. This monograph illustrates at length the context that remained implicit — despite being of great importance — in van Esbroeck's papers (which are so "esoteric" and almost unreadable to those who do not consider the work of van Esbroeck as a whole).

(72) Perczel 2008, 559.

(73) S. J. Shoemaker, *The Ancient Traditions of the Virgin Mary's Dormition and Assumption* (Oxford, 2002) (Oxford Early Christian Studies).

Starting from the middle of the fifth century and up to the time of Justinian, different Dormition accounts appeared in significant numbers (see Shoemaker's 2002 monograph following the earlier studies of van Esbroeck and Wenger). The earliest preserved accounts datable to the fourth century were rescued from almost complete obscurity, and a large amount of new accounts appeared. All this was in connection with the establishment and further development of the new feast of the Dormition in Palestine. This new form of the cult of Theotokos, established sometime on the eve of the Council of Chalcedon in the context of competition between Constantinople and Ephesus in the 440s,[74] became especially important as a mean of the hagiographic expression of the post-Chalcedonian Christological discussions. Therefore, any legendary scene conforming to the accounts of the gathering of apostles before the deathbed of Theotokos would be comprehended, if it occurs in a text in the second half of the fifth century or the early sixth century, as the Dormition scene. This was the context of the hagiographical literature of the epoch.

Part Two: van Esbroeck's Ideas on the Crossroad of Different Approaches

There recently have been several studies once again searching the *Sitz im Leben* of the *Corpus Areopagiticum* from the beginning. Some of them went against van Esbroeck's and Honigmann's thesis, without any direct polemics or even mention of it.

2.1. Theological Approach

The approach that I call "theological" was and still is presented by István Perszel who published a long series of papers on the *Corpus Dionysiacum* starting from, as early as, 1999 until now (his latest 2008 article was reprinted in 2009). Perszel scanned the theological doctrines which appeared over one hundred years from the middle of the fifth century to the middle of the sixth century and pointed out any parallels or sharp oppositions to those of Dionysius. I would admit that he has been extremely successful in such a search, to the extent that no theological study of the *Corpus* could be possible now without taking into account his observations. Moreover, he contributed to the study of the text of the earliest pseudonymised recension in Greek that

(74) See on this especially Lourié 2007.

is partially accessible through the earliest Syriac version[75] and to the study of the text of the *Letter* IV.[76]

All this said and despite my admiration of Perczel's ability to find theological correspondences between the texts of the relevant epoch, I think that his historical reconstruction contains a serious methodological flaw. Dealing with the theological texts in general and especially with such texts as the *Corpus Areopagiticum* that was infinitely reread and rethought by almost all theological parties since the very moment of its appearance, we need some firm extra-theological landmarks allowing to locate its genuine theological sense within a large continuum of possibilities. This is why I think that it is the hagiographical approach that could be here the most effective. And this is why I think that the theological approach has to be applied only after all other approaches have been applied.

Otherwise, as we see in these studies of Perczel, we can obtain a more or less plausible explanation of mutual relations of some texts, but we will still be unable to obtain a demonstration of the uniqueness of such a decision. And this is a methodological and simply logical flaw.

Such demonstrations of uniqueness are, in patristic studies, very often obvious and, thus, could remain implicit. Such is the case when we know well the historical circumstances of the time when our theo-

(75) I. Perczel, Une théologie de la lumière: Denys l'Aréopagite et Evagre le Pontique, *Revue des études Augustiniennes*, 45 (1999) 79–120; idem, Denys l'Aréopagite, lecteur d'Origène, in: W. A. Bienert, U. Kühneweg (hrsg.), *Origeniana Septima. Origenes in den Auseinandersetzungen des 4. Jahrhunderts* (Leuven, 1999) 673–710; idem, Sergius of Reshaina's Syriac Translation of the *Dionysian Corpus*: Some Preliminary Remarks, in: C. Baffioni (a cura di), *La diffusione dell'eredità classica nell'età tardo-antica e medievale. Filologia, storia, dottrina* (Alessandria, 2000) 79–94; idem, Once Again on Dionysius the Areopagite and Leontius of Byzantium, in: T. Boiadjiev, G. Kapriev, A. Speer (hrsg.), *Die Dionysius-Rezeption im Mittelalter* (Turnhout, 2000) 41–85; idem, "Théologiens" et "magiciens" dans le *Corpus dionysien*, *Adamantius* 7 (2001) 54–75; idem, Pseudo-Dionysiusand Palestinian Origenism, in: J. Patrich (ed.), *The Sabbaite Heritage in the Orthodox Church from the Fifth Century to the Present* (Leuven, 2001) 261–282, and in a number of other publications; cf. bibliography in Perczel 2008. Perczel is now working on a monograph dedicated to Dionysius and Origenism.

(76) I. Perczel, The Christology of Pseudo-Dionysius the Areopagite: the *Fourth Letter* in Its Indirect and Direct Text Traditions, *Le Muséon* 117 (2004) 409–446.

logical documents were produced. Sometimes, however, they turn out to be an important part of the whole theological investigation. This is especially true in the case of the *Corpus Areopagiticum*. However, this component of Perczel's studies is meagre and not convincing (as we have seen above in the case of the Dormition scene). The author of the *Corpus* as the object of Perczel's reconstruction does have very elaborated theological views, but we do not know any landmark of his life on the earth, outside his Platonic world of ideas. Perczel produces, so to say, some kind of Platonic idea of the author rather than an image of a man in blood and flesh. This forms to me enough grounds not to accept his reconstruction even on the level of ideas.

Beside these grounds "not to accept," there are some grounds to reject his reconstruction. According to Perczel, the author of the *Corpus* is an Origenist representing the kind of Origenism condemned by the Constantinople councils of 543 and 553 and very close to that of the *Book of Hierotheos*. His Christology was that of the strict Chalcedonians, influenced by Theodore of Mopsuestia, that is, crypto-Nestorian from a "neo-Chalcedonian" point of view.[77]

Karl Pinggéra in a recent article[78] addressed the whole cycle of Perczel on the Origenism of the *Corpus*. In particular, he explained, once more, a sharp distinction between the latter and the *Book of Hierotheos* which is really Origenistic and falls under the sixth century condemnations of Origenism. Here I am not in a position to undertake a similar analysis of Perczel's Christological studies of the *Corpus*. It seems to me enough now to note that the legacy of the Antiochean theologians of the fourth century (among whom Theodore of Mopsuestia was the leading figure) has never been usurped by the open or "crypto-" Nestorians. It was shared by them with the Monophysites, especially Severus of Antioch. For instance, in Severus' treatment of the humanity of Christ before the resurrection, there were obvious parallels with Nestorian (and, of course, Theodore of Mopsuestia's) treatment of the humanity of Christ, and such facts were pointed out by the Julianists. I suspect that Perczel's criteria, if they were applied to Severus of

(77) Indeed, let us add, it would be difficult to imagine any Origenist Christology that would be not, in some sense, "Nestorian"; cf., for the sixth – 9th centuries material, Lourié, Un autre monothélisme..., and idem, Le second iconoclasme en recherche de la vraie doctrine, *SP* 34 (2000) 145–169.

(78) K. Pinggéra, Die Bildwelt im „Buch des heiligen Hierotheos" — ein philosophischer Mythos?, in: M. Tamcke (hrsg.), *Mystik — Metapher — Bild. Beiträge des VII. Makarios-Symposiums* (Göttingen, 2008) 29–41.

Antioch, would reveal him to be a crypto-Nestorian. In fact, this is the methodology already applied to Severus by Julian of Halicarnassus, and so, it is far from being senseless.

In some way, all of them — Theodore of Mopsuestia, "open" and "crypto-" Nestorians, and Severus — considered the humanity of Christ to be the part of Christ that forms, in some way, another subject in Christ beside God (in the case of Severus, such was his doctrine of the corruptibility of the body of Christ, rejected, in this sense, by both Chalcedonians and later Severians[79]). All the species of Origenists were in the same camp. In the opposite camp, however, there was a tradition of rethinking and reusing the passages of the earlier "two subject Christology" authors in a "one subject Christology" sense. I do not see how to unravel such confusion without setting landmarks on the ground of the real historical earth.

Instead of criticizing every detail in Perczel's Christological conclusions I will limit myself to the history of only one but absolutely key term in Dionysius' allegedly crypto-Nestorian Christology, θεανδρικὴ ἐνέργεια (see the section 2.3.3 below).

2.2. Philosophical Approach

It was the philosophical approach that made it possible to discover, in the late nineteenth century, close parallels and even quotes in Dionysius from Proclus.[80] Recently it resulted in discovering many correspondences with Damascius[81] which has culminated in the attempt

(79) Cf. Lourié, Un autre monothélisme..., with further bibliography.

(80) Cf. also, in recent scholarship, H. D. Saffrey's search of "lien objectifs" between Dionysius and Proclus: H. D. Saffrey, Un lien objectif entre le Pseudo-Denys et Proclus, *SP* 9 (1966) (TU, 94) 98–105 [reprint: idem, *Recherches sur le Néoplatonisme après Plotin* (Paris, 1990) (Histoire des doctrines de l'antiquité classique, 14) 227–234]; idem, Nouveaux liens objectifs entre le Pseudo-Denys et Proclus, *Revue des Sciences philosophiques et théologiques* 63 (1979) 3–16 [reprint: idem, *Recherches sur le Néoplatonisme...*, 235–248]; idem, Le lien le plus objectif entre le Pseudo-Denys et Proclus, in: J. Hamesse (éd.), *Roma, magistra mundi. Itineraria culturae medievalis, Mélanges offerts au Père L. E. Boyle à l'occasion de son 75e anniversaire* (Louvain-la-Neuve, 1998) (Textes et études du Moyen Age, 10) 791–810 [reprint: idem, *Le Néoplatonisme après Plotin* (Paris, 2000) (Histoire des doctrines de l'antiquité classique, 24) 239–252]. Saffrey believes that the author of the *Corpus* is an otherwise unknown Christian neoplatonic whose mind has been shaped by Proclus through reading.

(81) S. Lilla, Pseudo-Dénys l'Aréopagite, Porphyre et Damascius, in: de Andia (éd.), *Denys l'Aréopagite et sa postérité…*, 117–152, here 135–152, but also

to identify the author of the *Corpus* with Damascius by Carlo Maria Mazzucchi.[82] The very idea that Dionysius the Areopagite could be none other than Damascius was first proposed by Alexandre Kojève (Kozhevnikov), a French specialist in Hegel, in a personal letter to Mazzucchi in 1964.

The lists of parallels between Dionysius and Damascius, especially that presented by Lilla, are, indeed, impressive. Salvatore Lilla and Rosemary Griffith take for granted that the direction of borrowing was from Damascius to Dionysius and not *vice versa*. Perczel has rightly noted[83] that such a way of thinking is a *petitio principii* unless one has first demonstrated that Damascius' activity took place earlier than the publication of the *Corpus*. Perczel himself believes that Dionysius was earlier than Damascius[84], who died after 532 and wrote his academic writings before 529 (according to Westerink, mostly in the 520s[85]). Lilla is imprecise about the date of Dionysius which he accepts. Griffith would like "to push the date of the Dionysian corpus even further forward," including such a date as 529 AD[86] (that betrays her unawareness of the Monophysite theological traditions where a reference to the *Corpus* appeared first).

Mazzucchi resolved the debate on the priority between Damascius and Dionysius seemingly in the most economic way, but, in fact, at the cost of a fantastic portrait of Damascius as a pagan spy-subversive acting in the Christian camp. Indeed, the Ockham razor is not the best tool for writing fiction.

Perczel's interpretation of the parallels between Dionysius and Damascius seems to me the only realistic one: "the similaritites...

R. Griffith, Neo-Platonism and Christianity: Pseudo-Dionysius and Damascius, *SP* 29 (1997) 238–243.

(82) C. M. Mazzucchi, Damascio, autore del Corpus Dionysiacum, e il dialogo *Περὶ Πολιτικῆς Ἐπιστήμης*, *Aevum* 80 (2006) 299–334.

(83) Perczel, The Christology of Pseudo-Dionysius the Areopagite..., 421, n. 27.

(84) Cf. an explication of his reasons in Perczel 2008.

(85) L. G. Westerink, Damascius, commentateur de Platon, in: C. J. de Vogel, H. Dörrie, E. Zum Brunn (éds.), *Le Néoplatonisme. Actes du colloque international du Centre National de la Recherche Scientifique, Royaumont, 9–13 juin 1969* (Paris, 1971) 253–260 [reprinted in: idem, *Texts and Studies in Neoplatonism and Byzantine Literature. Collected Papers* (Amsterdam, 1980) 271–278].

(86) Griffith, Neo-Platonism and Christianity..., 243.

should be attributed to the general atmosphere of the school to which both authors belonged, rather to any literary dependence".[87]

Seconding Perczel, I think that there is no need to reconsider the previously established dates of the *Corpus* on the grounds of these newly detected parallels with Damascius.

2.3. Philological Approach

I define here "the Philological Approach" as a study of the *Corpus Areopagiticum* in the context of non-theological and non-philosophical literature. Indeed, regardless to its theological and philosophical contents, the *Corpus* can be considered as a high-quality literary work. Such studies became important to the search of the *Sitz im Leben* of Dionysius after keen observations of the late Sergei S. Averintsev, a brilliant Russian scholar in classic philology.[88]

In the late Roman Empire, "[t]o capture a clever and able poet like Claudian was like gaining control of a leading newspaper."[89] Church politics were not exempt from this rule. This is why the history of the poetry of this time could not be less important for patristic studies, than the history of hagiography.

2.3.1. Dionysius and Nonnus: a Fundamental Stylistic Unity

Averintsev set the *Corpus* into the context of two large poems of the middle of the fifth century, one of a pagan poet, another of a Christian poet. One poem is dedicated to the god Dionysus (and its title is *Διονυσιακά*), another one is a paraphrase of the Gospel of John. However, both poems are ascribed to the same author, Nonnus of Panopolis (*fl ca* second quarter of the fifth cent.[90]). And this is not all: the gos-

(87) Perczel, The Christology of Pseudo-Dionysius the Areopagite…, 421, n. 27.

(88) С. С. Аверинцев, *Поэтика ранневизантийской литературы* [*Poetics of Early Byzantine Literature*] (Москва, 1977) 137–140 [the monograph is available in several reprints and in Italian translation: S. S. Averincev, *L'anima e lo specchio: l'universo della poetica bizantina*. Tr. G. Ghini (Bologna, 1988) (Collezione di testi e di studi)]. Unfortunately, this work remains unknown to the Western students of Areopagite.

(89) A. Cameron, Wandering Poets. A Literary Movement in Byzantine Egypt, *Historia* 14 (1965) 470–509, here 502.

(90) Cf. A. Cameron, The Empress and the Poet, in: J. J. Winkler, G. Williams (eds.), *Later Greek Literature* (Cambridge—New York, 1982) (Yale Classical Studies, 27) 217–289.

pel paraphrase quotes extensively from the poem on Dionysus, sometimes in a rather risky manner (*e.g.*, the words shown to describe Peter swimming are taken verbatim from a voyeuristic scene depicting Zeus looking at Semela swimming *Gospel paraphrase* 21:45–46 = *Dionysiaka* 7:185–187,189).

Averintsev managed to demonstrate a fundamental stylistic unity between the two poems ascribed to Nonnus, on the one hand, and the *Corpus Areopagiticum*, on the other. All of them, according to Averintsev, share the following fundamental feature: they are not trying to find out precise and graphic descriptions but, instead, try to describe their objects through enumerating things that are *not* these objects. These things form a circumference whose centre is the object to be described. This procedure is by no means trivial. Everyone can easily recall how important this manner is in Dionysius' way of expressing his idea of "apophatic theology." Stylistic differences between Dionysius and neoplatonic philosophers explaining their ideas on the "apophatic" way of knowledge are obvious. The corresponding feature of Dionysius' style is preceded by Nonnus and not by philosophers. So far I have summarized the main lines of Averintsev's argument.

2.3.2. Nonnus' Literary Network

Going further, we meet Nonnus in close connection with the milieu of Empress Eudocia. I wrote on this in detail in Lourié 2001, but now I will add to the data from this article some new facts.

Eudocia was a poet herself,[91] and even an author of another gospel paraphrase (in Homeric centons). However, the most brilliant Christian poet of the epoch was Cyrus Panopolitanus, a native of the same Egyptian town as Nonnus and his (most probably, a bit younger) con-

(91) Cf. now M. D. Usher, *Homeric Stitchings: The Homeric Centos of the Empress Eudocia* (Lanham, MD, 1998). The same author republished Eudocia's works based on a new and quite important manuscript evidence: M. D. Usher, *Homerocentones* Eudociae Augustae (Stuttgart—Leipzig, 1999) (BSGRT), replacing the earlier edition of A. Ludwich in the same series [Eudociae Augustae, Procli Lycii, Claudiani *carminum graecorum reliquiae accedunt Blemyomachiae fragmenta* (Lipsiae, 1897) 1–114]. Cf. also M. D. Usher, Prolegomenon to the Homeric Centos, *American Journal of Philology* 118 (1997) 305–321; P. Van Duen, The poetical writings of the Empress Eudocia: An evaluation, in: J. den Boeft, A. Hilhorst (eds.), *Early Christian poetry: a collection of essays* (Leiden—New York—Köln, 1993) (*VC* Supp., 22) 273–282.

temporary, deeply influenced by Nonnus in his poetic work.[92] At the same time, Cyrus was a high imperial official close to Eudocia. He is known as one of the most energetic prefects of Constantinople, even while his tenure was relatively short, from 439 (or, maybe, 437) to his sudden fall in 441, when Eudocia's court party was been destroyed. It is worth noting that Cyrus occupied the position of prefect, probably, either in 438 (when the historical visit of Eudocia to Palestine took place) or, at least, a bit later when she pursued her policy in establishing a new Marial cult distributed between Jerusalem and Constantinople and opposed to the Marial cult of Ephesus.[93]

Indeed, it is the prefect Cyrus who is reputed to have constructed (between 438 and 441) the first church in the capital dedicated to the Virgin, lately known under the name τὰ Κύρου.[94] Here, ἐν τοῖς Κύρου, Romanos the Melodos (before 493–551/555) received his famous revelation from Theotokos that made him the Melodos — already as a young man, in the years of the monophysite Emperor Anastasius (491–518). Romanos lived, died, and was buried here, and this was the central place of his cult. Thus, under Anastasius, this church continued to exist as a major place of the Theotokos cult.

After 441, Cyrus followed an extremely exotic career pattern as a bishop but left his see after the death of Theodosius II (450). He returned to the capital to live as a private person under the spiritual guidance of Daniel the Stylite (who accepted the Council of Chalcedon but subsequently accepted the *Henotikon* supporting it to a very large extent by his authority). Cyrus wrote a poetical inscription that decorated his pillar. Cyrus died about 470, certainly under Leo (457–474) and, thus, before the *Henotikon*.

As a bishop, Cyrus became famous for his unprecedentedly short Nativity sermon containing only one meaningful sentence before the concluding doxological phrase. However, in this sentence he managed to quote Evagrius and to allude to the polemical sermon of Proclus of

(92) See now, on all this, Cameron, The Empress and the Poet…; M. van Esbroeck, La pomme de Théodose II et sa réplique arménienne, in: C. Sode, S. Takács (eds.), *Novum Millenium. Studies in Byzantine History and Culture dedicated to Paul Speck* (Ashgate, 2001) 109–111.

(93) On the role of Eudocia in establishing of the Marial cult in Palestine, see Lourié 2007.

(94) R. Janin, *Le siège de Constantinople et le Patriarcat Oecuménique. Les églises et les monastères* (Paris, 1969) (Géographie ecclésiastique de l'Empire Byzantin) 193–195.

Constantinople on the Theotokos, against Nestorius.[95] Thus, he presented himself as a partisan of philosophical monasticism (inevitably connected, more or less, with the Origenist tradition) and the Theotokos cult with a strong anti-Nestorian inspiration.

These mutual links between Nonnus, Cyrus, Eudocia, and, finally, Daniel the Stylite — the further prophet Daniel of the epoch of the *Henotikon* — could explain the stylistic kinship between Nonnus and Dionysius noticed by Averintsev. The author of the *Corpus*, if all these names are related to his own milieu, must have been inspired by the Marial cult centred in Jerusalem (thus, implicitly opposed to the Marial cult of Ephesus) and having strong anti-Nestorian connotations, and, moreover, he must have been an admirer of neoplatonic philosophy and of the poetry of Nonnus' school. His asceticism is not exempt from the Evagrian influence, so transparent in the *Corpus Areopagiticum* and quite natural for the milieu of Eudocia (let us recall that Eudocia's spiritual mother was Melania the Younger, the granddaughter of Melania the Elder who, in turn, was the spiritual mentor of Evagrius himself).

Such an identification of the milieu of the origin of the *Corpus* is extremely favourable in the attribution to Peter the Iberian.

2.3.3. Θεανδρικὴ ἐνέργεια *vs* Θεανδρίτης

In his *Letter* IV, to Gaius, Dionysius says that, in Christ, "God became male" (ἀνδρωθέντος θεοῦ) and "lived among us according to certain new theandric energy (καινήν τινα τὴν θεανδρικὴν ἐνέργειαν)."[96]

The first "objective link" between Dionysius and Proclus pointed out by Henri-Dominique Saffrey was that between Areopagite's expression θεανδρικὴ ἐνέργεια and the name of an Arabian god Θεανδρίτης, mentioned by Damascius in his *Life of Isidore* (fr. 198) and known as an addressee of a lost hymn composed by Proclus. John of Scythopolis elaborated on this similarity of words in his scholion *SchEP* 536.1[97] trying to reject any suspicion of connection between Christ and Theandrites. Saffrey considers this scholion as evidence among others of the independent knowledge of Proclean Neo-Platonism by John of Scythopolis.[98]

(95) Cameron, The Empress and the Poet…, 243–245.

(96) G. Heil, A. M. Ritter, *Corpus Dionysiacum* II: Pseudo-Dionysius Areopagita, *De coelesti hierarchia, de ecclesiastica hierarchia, de mystica theologia, epistulae* (Berlin, 1991) (PTS, 36) 161.

(97) *PG* 4, 536A.

(98) See Saffrey, Un lien objectif entre le Pseudo-Denys et Proclus…, and the whole series of Saffrey's studies on Dionysius.

Rosemary Griffith considers the very epithet "theandric" as going back to Damascius.[99] However, the word is to be found already in Pindarus, *Nemean Odes* 4:10, who expressed intention to sing "Theandrides" (Θεανδρίδαισι). The word itself was nothing but a common legacy of the Ancient Greek culture.

The only interesting aspect seems here its Christological use considered unprecedented before Areopagite's *Letter* IV.

John of Scythopolis comments: "Let nobody, fallen into foolish talk (εἰς μωρολογίαν τραπείς), say that he [Dionysius] called the Lord Jesus 'Theandrites.' Because he did not say 'theandritic' (θεανδριτικήν) derived from 'Theandrites' (ἀπὸ τοῦ ὁ Θεανδρίτης σχηματίσας), but 'theandric energy,'in the sense of interwoven energy of God and male (οἷον Θεοῦ καὶ ἀνδρὸς συμπεπλεγμένην ἐνέργειαν). This is why he said 'God became male' instead of 'male became God' (ἀντὶ τοῦ, Θεὸν ἄνδρα γενόμενον)."

Thus, John of Scythopolis establishes a connection between believing in the Theandrites and an opinion that some 'male' became God. Saffrey thinks that it is Proclean Neo-Platonism that John bears in mind here. Very probably, he is right. Nevertheless, this is not the whole picture.

There is a precedent to Areopagite's Christological formula in the *Gospel paraphrase* ascribed to Nonnus. Here, the author uses the term "God male" (θεὸς ἀνήρ) when one could anticipate "God man" (θεὸς ἄνθρωπος): there are two occurrences, A 39 and A 157, with no occurrence of "God man."[100] This peculiarity of Nonnus' Christological terminology has so far no explanation except a guess that "[t]he main reason for this choice is probably poetic metre."[101]

This terminology of the *Gospel paraphrase* has, I think, its own conceptual background as opposed to the perverse androgyny of the god Dionysus of another poem of Nonnus, *Διονυσιακά*, and of the corresponding late Roman cult of Dionysus. Probably, even the apparent

(99) *Pace* Griffith, Neo-Platonism and Christianity..., 241.

(100) A. Scheindler, Nonni Panopolitani *Paraphrasis S. Evangelii Ioannei* (Lipsiae, 1881) (BSGRT) 5 and 12–13, correspondingly. The recent critical edition was unavailable to me: C. De Stefani, Nonno di Panapoli, *Parafrasi del Vangelo di S. Giovanni. Canto I.* Introduzione, testo critico, traduzione e commento (Bologna, 2002) (Eikasmós — Studi, 6).

(101) A. Grillmeier with Th. Hainthaler, *Christ in Christian Tradition*. Vol. 2/4. *The Church of Alexandria with Nubia and Ethiopia after 451.* Tr. O. C. Dean Jr (London—Luisville, KY, 1996) 98.

correspondence of the names between Dionysus and Dionysius is not a mere coincidence.[102]

In turn, *Διονυσιακά* touches on the topic of "god male" in its own way. In canticle XX the poem describes a war between Dionysus and some Lycurgus. Unlike Homeric myths on the rivalry between Dionysus and Lycurgus, this Lycurgus is a ruler in "Arabia" (not Thrace); his capital is Arabian Nysa, that is, Scythopolis. Long ago, on the grounds of Greek and Nabatean inscriptions found in the lands of the ancient Nabatean kingdom, this Arabian Lycurgus was identified with the Arabian god Šiᶜa al-Qaum (*šyᶜlqwm*), "guide of troop" (or maybe "leader of the people"), god "who does not drink wine," according to one Nabatean inscription.[103] Recently, Jan Retsö continued this identification of Šiᶜa al-Qaum and Lycurgus by adding Theandrites as the third name of the same god. Retsö considers the whole story in Nonnus as having a historical background in the competition between two groups of Arabian tribes within the Nabatean kingdom, one of them being wine-drinkers and the other one non-drinkers.[104]

The word "Theandrites" is never mentioned in Nonnus, however. Nevertheless, it was well-known to John of Scythopolis, whose town Scythopolis/Nysa was, in Nonnus' *Διονυσιακά*, the capital of Lycurgus/Theandrites. Thus, the rivalry between Dionysus and Lycurgus has some parallel in contraposition of the "theandric" Christ and Theandrites in John of Scythopolis' scholion.

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(102) Cf., on these topics, Lourié 2001. On perversions in the *Διονυσιακά*, see especially R. Newbold, Fear of Sex in Nonnus' *Dionysiaka*, *Electronic Antiquity* 4.2 (1998) 1–15 [online http://scholar.lib.vt.edu/ejournals/ElAnt/V4N2/newbold.html]. For a more general context, cf. D. Lyons, *Gender and Immortality: Heroines in Ancient Greek Myth and Cult* (Princeton, 1996), esp. 69–133 (ch. 3–4); H. Jeanmaire, *Dionysos: Histoire du culte de Bacchus* (Paris, 1951) 417–482; A. Henrichs, Changing Dionysiac Identities, in: B. F. Meyer, E. P. Sanders (eds.), *Jewish and Christian Self-definition*. Vol. 3: *Self-Definition in the Graeco-Roman World* (London, 1982) 137–160, 213–236.

(103) R. Dussaud, *Les Arabes en Syrie avant l'Islam* (Paris, 1907) 153–156. Cf. also F. R. Trombley, *Hellenic Religion and Christianisation, c. 370–529* (Leiden—New York—Koln, 1993) (Religions in the Graeco-Roman World, 115/1, 2) 360–361 (the cult of Theandrites was quite strong in the fifth century but was abolished in the early sixth century).

(104) J. Retsö, *The Arabs in Antiquity: Their History from the Assyrians to the Umayyads* (London, 2003) 610–614, 620–621. I owe this reference to Carlos A. Segovia, to whom I express my deep gratitude.

All this is of importance anyway, at least, as an additional link between the *Corpus Dionysiacum* and John of Scythopolis, on the one hand, and Nonnus, on the other. For the reasons explained above this indicates the direction of Eudocia's circle in our search of the author of the *Corpus*. In a sense, the closer to Nonnus, the closer to Peter the Iberian.

Be that as it may, it is clear that Dionysius' idea of God as "male" and the corresponding term "theandric energy" has a conceptual (Christological) precedent in the poetry of the *Gospel paraphrase*.

Let us recall that the Christology of the *Gospel paraphrase* has strong anti-Nestorian overtones, and its exegesis depends on Cyril of Alexandria's *Commentaries on the Gospel of John*.[105] Therefore, this text was conceptually close to the milieu of Dionysius.

2.3.4. Attitude toward Wine as a Marker

It is tempting to ask whether the attitude toward wine could help to identify the opponents of Areopagite. Those who would be treated by John of Scythopolis as the worshipers of the Theandrites, "who does not drink wine," could be principal non-drinkers, too.

Indeed, in the *Corpus*, the attitude toward wine is quite positive: the whole *Letter* IX is dedicated to the wine in the Chalice of Wisdom and the sober inebriation from it. The same was the attitude of both Peter the Iberian[106] and Proclus.[107] It is important that, in all these milieus, wine was considered a symbol of something good.

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(105) Grillmeier with Hainthaler, *Christ in Christian Tradition…*, 95–99.

(106) Cf., in the *Life of Peter the Iberian*, § 137, a miracle by Peter for some orthodox named Dionysius (!) the Scholastic (ܕܝܘܢܣܝܘܣ ܣܟܘܠܣܛܝܩܐ; Horn and Phenix translate "lawyer") near Gaza: Peter's blessing of Dionysius' vineyards makes their yield "many times double"; Horn, Phenix Jr, John Rufus…, 198/199–200/201 (txt/tr.), with notes by Cornelia Horn who refers to Ph. Mayerson, The Wine and Vineyards in Gaza in the Byzantine Period, *Bulletin of the American Schools of Oriental Research* 257 (1985) 75–80 [reprint in: idem, *Monks, Martyrs, Soldiers and Saracens: Papers on the Near East in Late Antiquity (1962–1993)* (Jerusalem, 1994)]. Horn in her study dedicated to the activity of Peter the Iberian among the Arabs does not pay much attention to the Arabian paganism; cf. C. B. Horn, A Chapter in the Pre-History of the Christological Controversies in Arabic: Readings from the Works of John Rufus, *Parole de l'Orient* 30 (2005) 133–156.

(107) Cf., *e. g.*, Proclus' *In Cratylo*, CLXXXII, on the theme of the wine of Dionysus as a symbol of the individual intellect: R. M. van den Berg, *Proclus' Commentary on the Cratylus in Context. Ancient Theories of Language and Naming* (Leiden, 2008) (Philosophia antiqua, 112) 190–191.

Were there any factions who use wine as a symbol of something negative *per se*, not by misuse only? Presently I am unable to answer definitively. Of course, abstinence from wine unless you are sick or elderly is a very common monastic practice and certainly not grounds for far-reaching speculations.

Nevertheless, there is a peculiar pair of biblical quotes in Evagrius repeated by him from one work to another, a combination of Deut 32:33 ("Their wine is the wrath of dragons") and Num 6:3 (the Nazirites abstained from wine) — "[c]ombinaison ingéneuse de deux textes scripturaires pour assimiler vin et colère," as Antoine Guillaumont commented on the Evagrian scholion 206 to *Proverbs* (on Prov 20:1 "Wine is an intemperate thing"), where Evagrius concluded: "Thus, the Law ordained to the Nazirites to be without wrath."[108] Here, Evagrius provides the reason for this correspondence between wine and wrath: "for the same inebriation used to become from flushing with wrath (αὕτη γὰρ ἡ μέθη ἀπὸ ζέοντος τοῦ θυμοῦ πέφυκε γίνεσθαι)."[109] The same pair of quotes reappears in *De malignis cogitationibus*, 5 (chapter consecrated to control of irascibility)[110] and in *Kephalaia Gnostica*, V, 44.[111]

The case of the two recensions of the *Kephalaia Gnostica* is of special interest. The genuine recension S_2 has nothing to add to the Evagrian scholion to *Proverbs*. But the recension S_1, the fruit of the efforts of censorship to reduce Evagrian Origenism, adds some attenuation: "Si 'la colère du dragon est un vin' mauvais..." The word "bad" (ܒܝܫ) is here added deliberately by the editor while Evagrius himself meant wine in general. It is not Evagrian at all, as the above parallels from other Evagrian works show clearly.

Thus, there was something peculiar in the Evagrian attitude toward wine. Wine is not a polemical topic in Areopagite; however, the camp of his adversaries — connected with the non-drinking god Theandrites

(108) A. Guillaumont, *Un philosophe au désert Évagre le Pontique* (Paris, 2004) (Textes et traditions, [8]) 314.

(109) Text according to P. Géhin, Évagre le Pontique, *Scholies aux Proverbes* (Paris, 1987) (SC 340), quoted according to *TLG* 4110.030.

(110) Text according to A. Guillaumont, C. Guillaumont, P. Géhin, Évagre le Pontique. *Sur les pensées* (Paris, 1998) (SC, 438), quoted according to *TLG* 4110.034.

(111) A. Guillaumont, *Les six centuries des « Kephalaia Gnostica » d'Évagre le Pontique.* Édition critique de la version syriaque commune et édition d'une nouvelle version syriaque, intégrale, avec une double traduction française (Paris, 1958) (PO, 28, 1) 194 (version S_1 "commune"), 195 (version S_2 "intégrale").

by John of Scythopolis — was presumably inclined to reject wine to a higher extent than the usual monastic asceticism requires. Therefore, the Evagrian attitude toward wine corroborates with the idea that the adversaries meant, at least, in the pseudonymised *Corpus Areopagiticum* were Evagrian Origenists.

2.4. Hagiographical Approach

Finally, we have to look at van Esbroeck's hagiographical approach.

Honigmann's thesis that the vision of John the Eunuch could be related to the Dormition is now much more substantiated. This vision, presented by John Rufus as an eschatological revelation on the eve of the catastrophe of Chalcedon, taken in the genuine historical context of the development of the Dormition cult in Palestine exactly in the 440s, is easily interpretable in connection with the Dormition scene.

Nevertheless, van Esbroeck's arguments in favour of this thesis sometimes are not without problems. I think that there are two major difficulties: van Esbroeck's treatment of the feast of August 7 as the date of the Dormition and his explanation of the Coptic Dormition feast on January 16.

Nevertheless, the hagiographical approach seems to me still far from being exhausted. Several links between the feast of the Dormition, on the one hand, and the *Corpus Areopagiticum*, the *Life of Peter the Iberian*, and the liturgical commemoration of Dionysius the Areopagite, on the other, are still unexplored.

2.4.1. The Dormition on August 7 and Opening of the "Latrocinium" of Ephesus on August 8

Peter the Iberian starts his liturgical services as a bishop on the day of a great feast[112] that is, according to van Esbroeck, Dormition. However, its date is August 7, and not August 9 that we know as an early date of Dormition. Thus, van Esbroeck goes into long speculations based on a hypothetical use of the calendar of the *Book of Jubilees* in Jerusalem during the anti-Chalcedonian patriarch Theodosius (451–453).[113]

(112) *Life of Peter the Iberian*, § 79: "Yet once he had arrived at the holy Church of Maiuma, being carried about by all, he sat on the throne on the seventh of the month of Ab [= August], when there took place a great, holy, and heavenly feast (ܥܝܕܐ ܪܒܐ ܩܕܝܫܐ ܘܫܡܝܐ ܕܝܢ ܕܚܝܐ) and life for the souls of each of them" (Horn, Phenix Jr, John Rufus…, 118/119).

(113) van Esbroeck 1993, 223–225.

This I think, is not a good idea, because all known Christian 364-day calendars have different structures than the old calendar of the *Jubilees*.[114] Worst of all, van Esbroeck arrives, with all these speculations, to a reconciliation of the date August 7 with the date August 8, but not 9: "...August 7th in Peter's *Life* is really August 8. Since Peter celebrates at sunset on the 8th, he is already celebrating the Assumption of the Virgin on the 9th." [115] However, the beginning of the day in the evening and not in the morning would contradict to van Esbroeck's "sacerdotal calendar," where the day starts in the morning. This reconstruction seems neither precise nor consistent. Fortunately, it is superfluous.

In the 450s, only the earliest recension of the Transitus story was available (*e. g.*, such as preserved in the Ethiopic *Liber Requiei*, *CANT* 154) where the Dormition and Assumption cycle is shaped as a *triduum*: annunciation from the Angel (first day), gathering of apostles (second day), Dormition, deposition, and Assumption (third day).[116] In the Ethiopian rite, this cycle is still partially preserved, while not reflected in the Ethiopian *Synaxarium*, already influenced by the later Coptic rite. In the Ethiopian hymnary, *Deggwa*, before the feast of Assumption on August 9 (Naḥasē 16), there is, on August 8 (Naḥasē 15), a feast of the "Gathering" (*Gubbaᶜe*) that means the gathering of apostles in Sion before the deathbed of the Theotokos.[117] The same feast was also pre-

(114) B. Lourié, Les quatre jours « de l'intervalle » : une modification néotestamentaire et chrétienne du calendrier de 364 jours, in: M. Petit, B. Lourié, A. Orlov (éds.), *Église des deux Alliances : Mémorial Annie Jaubert (1912–1980)* (Piscataway, NJ, 2008) (Orientalia Judaica Christiana, 1) 103–133; idem, Calendrical Implications in the *Epistle to the Hebrews*: Seven questions concerning the liturgy of the Sabbath rest, *Revue biblique* 115 (2008) 245–265; idem, Calendrical Elements in *2 Enoch*, in: G. Boccaccini, A. Orlov (eds.), *Proceedings of the Fifth Enoch Seminar, Naples, 2009* (forthcoming).

(115) van Esbroeck 1993, 223; van Esbroeck supposed that the date of Assumption in the Coptic rite, August 9 (Mesore 16) is the earliest and genuine date of the Dormition.

(116) For the chronology of the earliest *Transitus*, see now Shoemaker, *The Ancient Traditions of the Virgin Mary's Dormition and Assumption*; for different types of the early Dormition cycles (*triduum* or more complicated), see Lourié 2007.

(117) P. Jeffery, The Liturgical Year in the Ethiopian *Deggwa* (Chantbook), in: E. Carr (ed.), *ΕΥΛΟΓΗΜΑ: Studies in Honor of Robert Taft, S.J.* (Rome, 1993) (Studia Anselmiana, 110) 199–234, here 233. Jeffery's reference to Budge's translation of the Ethiopian *Synaxarium* is here misleading. In fact, not only Budge's translation but even the whole manuscript evidence used for the criti-

served in the medieval recension of the Georgian rite, while with an appropriate shift of dates (August 13, because of the different organisation of the whole cycle).[118] Thus, the earliest Dormition *triduum* was placed on the days from August 7 to August 9, because the gathering of apostles (August 8) is the second day of the earliest *triduum*, not the first. The date of the "great feast" on August 7 in the *Life of Peter the Iberian* is the first day of Dormition celebrated according to the Transitus tradition as it is in the *Liber Requiei*.

The appearance of this liturgical cycle can be dated. The 449 Council of Ephesus (subsequently called *Latrocinium* in Rome) broke the trend (not always strict but quite clear) established by the three previous Ecumenical Councils to match the opening with Pentecost. Instead, the Council of Ephesus was opened on August 8. The purpose of the council was to defend the Theotokos, and so, this date is hardly explicable otherwise than within the *triduum* from 7 to 9 of August, where August 8 corresponds exactly to the gathering of apostles.

This date has nothing to do with the local tradition of the Theotokos cult in Ephesus (where we know the date of Dormition to be May 23), but the council of Ephesus was gathered not by the local clergy but by Emperor Theodosius. However, the Emperor together with his sister Pulcheria and his wife Eudocia were preoccupied in establishing another Theotokos cult, located in Palestine and connected to Constantinople and not to Ephesus. This was the time when a new family of Transition accounts emerges, "Bethlehem and Incenses," whose main representative is the Syriac "Dormition in Six Books" (*CANT* 123, 140, 150). It starts with a preface explaining how the truth about the Dormition in Palestine and deposition in Gethsemane was brought from Ephesus, where the Transitus account was preserved in secret by the heirs of John Theologian. It is clearly an attempt to create an alternative to the local Ephesian tradition that the Theotokos died in Ephesus

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cal edition say nothing about Dormition/Assumption on Naḥasē 15 (Julian August, 8); cf. I. Guidi, S. Grébaut, *Le Synaxaire éthiopien. Mois de Nahasè et de Pâguemèn* (Paris, 1913) (PO, 9, 4) 325–335.

(118) M. van Esbroeck, Ein georgischer liturgischer Kanon für Maria Himmelfahrt, in: R. Schulz, M. Görg (hrsg.), *Lingua restituta orientalis. Festgabe für Julius Assfalg* (Wiesbaden, 1990) (Ägypten und Altes Testament, 20) 89–110; French tr.: idem, *Aux origines de la Dormition de la Vierge. Études historiques sur les traditions orientales* (Aldershot, 1995) (Variorum Reprints. Collected Studies Series CS, 380) ch. XIV.

and was buried by John Theologian, according to her will, in an unknown place (with no assumption at all).[119]

The establishment of the earliest form of the Dormition cycle in Palestine (7 to 9 August) is datable to the 440s, after 438 (the first solemn visit of Eudocia to Jerusalem) and before 449 (the Council of Ephesus).

2.4.2. The Vision of John the Eunuch

The new data concerning the early Dormition feast require a fresh look at the vision of John the Eunuch, which is the core of the Areopagitic revelation, according to the Honigmann—van Esbroeck hypothesis.

The vision is described by John Rufus in the *Life of Peter the Iberian* (§ 61)[120] outside its biographical context. After having mentioning a miraculous healing of John by the prayers of Peter the Iberian when God promised to add twelve years to his life (§ 60), John Rufus proceeds as follows: "Once this blessed John beheld in a vision, for three whole days without talking to anyone at all, the fearful and glorious Second Coming of our Lord, the heavens suddenly being opened…" After having finished his account, John Rufus concludes: "This vision indeed took place a long time later, at the end [of his life]." Cornelia Horn is convincing, in her note,[121] that the vision took place in about 463, shortly before the death of John the Eunuch in 464 (no more than twelve years after the miraculous healing which took place shortly after 451[122]).

The content of the vision is the Second Coming of Christ, and this is not simply an interpretation of the hagiographer; the details are quite recognisable in and of themselves.[123] Indeed, the descending of Christ for Assumption might look similar but, nevertheless, the vision as it is

(119) See, on all this, Lourié 2007.

(120) Horn, Phenix Jr, John Rufus…, 88/89–90/91.

(121) Ibid., 91, n. 6.

(122) I am not absolutely sure as to the latter date, because the consequence of events in John Rufus could be confused. Nevertheless, this does not affect the rough date of the vision, given that it took place short before the death of John the Eunuch.

(123) They are mostly indicated by Horn in the footnotes, but I would like to add that the appearance of the Cross before Christ himself is also a classical sign; see, *e. g.*, *Apocalypse of Peter* [*CANT* 317 and D. D. Buchholz, *Your eyes will be opened: a study of the Greek (Ethiopic) Apocalypse of Peter* (Atlanta, GA, 1988)].

seems to have nothing specific which would be related to the feast of the Dormition/Assumption of the Virgin.

However, things are not so simple. According to all Transitus, Dormition/Assumption is not only an account of an event, but a liturgy of the eschatological Judgment, Yom Kippur. Despite the fact that the liturgical structure of this early Christian Yom Kippur remains mostly unclear, predominance of the Yom Kippur symbolism is without of doubts.[124] Thus, the Second Coming of Christ and His coming to His Mother falling asleep are not so different.

The vision has some peculiarities, too. One is connected with the use of an altar, another one with Moses and Isaias symbolism, and third one with its internal chronology.

2.4.3. The Altar in the Vision of John and the Evodius Transitus Tradition

John the Eunuch saw "only one altar, standing on the earth" whose appearance was the same as of that at which John and Peter were serving, and a multitude of holy monks around it. Then, all these saints were snatched away from this altar to the meeting of the Lord. Thus, it was some kind of earthly altar and not a heavenly one.

Despite the fact that the word used there for "altar," ⲑⲩⲥⲓⲁⲥⲧⲏⲣⲓⲟⲛ, is the exact calque of the Greek θυσιαστήριον, one of the most frequently used words in the Apocalypse of John, our "the only θυσιαστήριον *on the earth*" is not the same as the *heavenly* θυσιαστήριον of the Apocalypse.

The only parallel to this kind of altar known to me is contained in one of the very early traditions of Transitus, namely, in the Coptic tradition under the name of Evodius, "second bishop of Rome" (fictive figure, probably, going back to Evodius of Antioch as the prototype).[125] Unlike other traditions, here, on the very day of Dormition (Tobe 21, as usual for the Coptic rite), "...the Savior (σωτήρ) gathered (συνάγω) us

(124) F. Manns, *Le Récit de la Dormition de Marie (Vatican grec 1982). Contribution à l'étude des origines de l'exégèse chrétienne* (Jérusalem, 1989) (Studium Biblicum Franciscanum. Coll. maior, 33).

(125) The entry "Evodius of Rome" by Tito Orlandi in the *Coptic Encyclopaedia* 4 (New York *etc.*, 1991) 1078–1079 and the entries *CANT* 133 and 134 are now outdated. See now: S. J. Shoemaker, The Sahidic Coptic Homily on the Dormition of the Virgin Attributed to Evodius of Rome. An Edition from Morgan MSS 596 & 598 with Translation, *AB* 117 (1999) 241–283, and idem, *The Ancient Traditions of the Virgin Mary's Dormition and Assumption…*, 57–62.

together by his own hands, us and the women who were with us. Then (εἶτα) he said to Peter, 'Arise and go onto the altar (θυσιαστήριον), beside which I have now gathered (συνάγω) you together, and bring me these linen garments (ἔνδυμα) that I have brought from the heavenly things (ἐπουράνιος),which my Father has sent to you to bury my beloved mother in them...'" (§ 18)[126] For this Sahidic recension the *terminus ante quem* is, according to Shoemaker, the middle of the sixth century, because this text does not know Assumption on August 9.[127]

The theme of this earthly altar of apostle Peter and the other apostles is even more elaborated in the Bohairic recension of Evodius of Rome. This recension already knows Assumption on August 9, and thus, its date is later than about 550. This date does not prevent some details of this account from being even earlier than those of the Sahidic recension. Namely, the gathering of apostles on Tobe 20, not on Tobe 21, that is, on the eve of Dormition instead of on the very day of Dormition, is certainly a genuine detail coinciding with all other Transitus traditions. Thus, Bohairic Evodius says: "Now it came to pass on the twentieth of the month Tobi, we were gathered together according to the command of the Lord, in the place where the holy Virgin was, and were still preparing the altar (ⲙⲁⲛⲉⲣⲱⲟⲩⲱ[128]), to receive *a* blessing; and there came unto us our Lord Jesus Christ, and stood in our midst, and saith unto us, Peace *be* unto you all..." (§ 6).[129]

This tradition of a specific altar on the earth is obviously in parallel with the reference of John Rufus to the altar of John the Eunuch and Peter the Iberian as to the "divine authorization and confirmation" of anti-Chalcedonism,[130] which most likely, goes back to the tradition of the anti-Chalcedonian shrine in Gethsemane. In the Coptic tradition consolidated in the *Panegyric of Macarius of Tkow* by Pseudo-

(126) Shoemaker, The Sahidic Coptic Homily..., 274/275 (txt/tr.).

(127) In fact, there is no precise date for this innovation in the Coptic rite but there is a *terminus ante quem*, a genuine homily of Theodosius of Alexandria on the Dormition.

(128) On this word which is also an exact calque of Greek θυσιαστήριον, see: W. E. Crum, *A Coptic Dictionary* (Oxford, 1939 [reprint: 2000]) 601b, *s. v.* ⲱⲏⲧⲉ.

(129) Translation: F. Robinson, *Coptic Apocryphal Gospels. Translations together with the Texts of Some of Them* (Cambridge, 1896) (Text and Studies, IV, 2) 51; original: P. de Lagarde, *Aegyptiaca* (Gottingae, 1883) 46.

(130) As Horn said in her footnote to the vision of John the Eunuch: Horn, Phenix Jr, John Rufus…, 90, n. 2.

Dioscorus,[131] the feast of Dormition on Tobe 21 in this shrine became the last heroic page of the anti-Chalcedonian résistance in Palestine under Patriarch Theodosius.

Thus, in the vision of John the Eunuch, the Second Coming of Christ quite unusual detail, an earthly altar with the saints gathered before it, has an obvious connection with the very peculiar Transitus tradition going back to early anti-Chalcedonism. This is an argument *pro* for placing the vision on the Dormition/Assumption feast, at least, on the level of a working hypothesis. This hypothesis could be verified using the internal chronology of the vision account.

2.4.4. Hagiographical Substrate: *The Ascension of Isaias*

The vision itself occupied three days. Then, "...when he came to himself afterwards, he remained for about thirty (ܬܠܬܝܢ ܝܘܡ) days as one dazed, not wanting to say anything to anyone, or rather he was unable to [speak], for in his mind he was wholly there [at the scene of the vision], and he was supposing that he was no longer dwelling on earth. His face was like the face of an angel, and his whole appearance was different from that of a human being." A reminiscence of Moses who saw the heavenly realms on Sinai is obvious, and is rightly noted by Horn.[132] But Mosaic parallels say nothing about the inability of the visionary to speak. Moses is here an archetype, indeed, but the direct prototype is a later avatar of Moses, Isaias from the *Ascensio Isaiae*.

The most relevant scene is the *Ascension of Isaias* 6:7–13:[133] "And the king [Hezekiah] summoned all the prophets and all the people who were to be found there, and they came. And Micah, and the aged Ananias, and Joel, and Josab were sitting on his right. And when they all heard the voice of the Holy Spirit, they all worshiped on their knees, and they praised the God of righteousness, the Most High, the One who [dwells] in the upper world and who sits on high, the Holy One, the One who rests among the holy ones, and they ascribed glory to the One who had thus graciously given a door in an alien world, had graciously given it to a man. **And while he was speaking with the Holy Spirit in the hearing of them all, he became silent, and his mind was taken up from him, and he did not see the men who were standing**

(131) Cf., in the section 2.4.7, on the Coptic *Panegyric of Macarius of Tkow*.

(132) Horn, Phenix Jr, John Rufus…, 91, n. 5.

(133) M. A. Knibb's translation, according to J. H. Charlesworth (ed.), *The Old Testament Pseudepigrapha*, vol. 2 (Garden City, NY, 1985) 164–176.

before him. His eyes indeed were open, but his mouth was silent, and the mind in his body was taken up from him. But his breath was [still] in him, for he was seeing a vision. And the angel who was sent to show him [the vision] was not of this firmament, nor was he from the angels of glory of this world, but he came from the seventh heaven."

The underlined words are a rather exact parallel to the mutism and being out of this world of John the Eunuch. Needless to say this parallel is quite relevant because the vision of Isaias is, too, a vision of heavenly hierarchies (seven heavens).

Moreover, the vision of Isaias was an elaborated, so-to-say, Sinai revelation of Moses. In the *Matryrium of Isaias* Isaias is accused for positioning himself as someone greater than Moses (*Ascension of Isaias* 3:8–9). The tradition of Isaias as a New Moses is, however, much earlier and goes back to the canonical books of the Old Testament.[134]

Thus, the scene of the vision of John the Eunuch is not simply a scene of the *imitatio Mosis* topics which is a leitmotif of the *Life of Peter the Iberian*.[135] This is a scene of the *imitatio Isaiae* who, in turn, imitated Moses. *Ascensio Isaiae* is the hagiographical substrate[136] for this scene.

2.4.5. *The Ascension of Isaias* and the *Corpus Dionysiacum*

Cornelia Horn has already noted that the Moses typology of the *Life of Peter the Iberian* recalls the Moses typology of the *Corpus Dionysiacum*.[137] But, in fact, in the *Corpus*, too, the Moses typology is intermediated by the typology of Isaias, especially Isaias from the *Ascension of Isaias*. This intermediation is not limited to the parallel in contents, that both are dealing with a vision of heavenly hierarchies.

The problem of breaking the hierarchical order in the process of revelation to a human, just mentioned in the *Ascension of Isaias* ("And

(134) M. O' Kane, Isaiah: A Prophet in the Footsteps of Moses, *Journal for the Study of the Old Testament* 21 (1996) 29–50.

(135) Horn, *Asceticism...*, 238–244.

(136) For this theoretical concept of critical hagiography, see M. van Esbroeck, Le substrat hagiographique de la mission khazare de Constantin-Cyrille, *AB* 104 (1986) 337–348.

(137) Horn, *Asceticism...*, 248, n. 49. She refers to P. Rorem, Moses as the Paradigm for the Liturgical Spirituality of Pseudo-Dionysius, *SP* 18.2 (1989) 275–279, but see now a more detailed exposition in P. Rorem, *Pseudo-Dionysius: A Commentary on the Texts and an Introduction to Their Influence* (New York—Oxford, 1993), *passim*, but especially on the pages dedicated to *Mystical Theology*.

the angel who was sent to show him [the vision] was not of this firmament, nor was he from the angels of glory of this world, but he came from the seventh heaven"), is dealt with at length in *De coelesti hierarchia*, chapter 13. Here, Dionysius insists that the angel seen by Isaias was, indeed, a seraphim, that is, a member of the highest angelic hierarchy and not an angel from the lowest hierarchy.

Moreover, the scene of revelation to Isaias when other prophets were standing around has striking resemblance with the Dormition scene in *DN* 3:2. Dionysius mentions by name only four: himself and Timotheos (his addressee), Peter, and James. Similarly, in the *Ascension of Isaias*, only four prophets are explicitly mentioned: Micah, Ananias, Joel, and Josab. The prophets were standing before the motionless and speechless body of Isaias, while the apostles were gathered around the body of the Theotokos, whose condition was similar: this body was apparently death but containing in itself the "principle of life" (being ζωαρχικός).

Thus, the *Ascension of Isaias* is a common background for both the vision of John the Eunuch and the *Corpus Areopagiticum*. The topics borrowed from this source are dealt with in both the description of the vision by John (from the mouth of Peter the Iberian who was here the source of John Rufus) and in the *Corpus*.

This is an important argument for both interpreting the vision of John as related to the Dormition/Assumption and, especially, for attributing the core of the *Corpus* to the vision of John as explained by Peter the Iberian.

2.4.6. Internal Chronology of the Vision Account and the Nativity of the Theotokos Feast

The vision of John the Eunuch itself occupied three days, and the subsequent "out of this world" condition of John — "about thirty" days more. It is unlikely that there is no symbolism here. We are in the hagiographical realm, though. Given that three days are, very likely, some liturgical *triduum* — that of the Dormition/Assumption, as I supposed above — it is likely, too, that 30 days are some other liturgical cycle. Thus, we have to find out, within the Palestine liturgical year of the second half of the fifth century, a pair of feasts where the first feast contains three days and the second one starts approximately the thirtieth day after the third day of the first feast.

At the time when John Rufus wrote, in about 500, the main day of the Dormition/Assumption Feast in the Palestinian liturgical rite was

August 15,[138] 30 days before September 14, the Exaltation of the Holy Cross. But the feast of August 15 in the lifetime of John the Eunuch was a quite another feast of the Theotokos, incorporated into the cycle of the Nativity of Christ (the ancient Palestinian feast of Annunciation).[139]

Here, we need to take into account two important facts:

- the Dormition cycle during the lifetime of John the Eunuch was from August 7 to 9,
- John Rufus describes John the Eunuch's vision out of its biographical context, certainly with no understanding of the genuine liturgical content.

Very probably, the figure "30" was of no specific value for John Rufus; thus, he wrote "about" thirty. However, let us put his data in the context of the Dormition feast from August 7 to 9.

August 9 plus 30 days results in September, 8, another Theotokos feast while of uncertain origin, the Nativity of the Theotokos. Its existence in both Byzantine and anti-Chalcedonian rites gives the *terminus ante quem* of about 518, but its most likely date of origin is somewhere in the second half of the fifth century. The earliest datable document connected with this feast is a *kontakion* by Romanos the Melodos whose two first strophes are still in liturgical usage (before 548, the death of Empress Theodora: Romanos mentions "emperors" in plural, which leads to the period from 527 to 548).[140] Let us recall that Romanos, still under the Monophysite Emperor Anastasius, became a clergyman in the Church of the Theotokos constructed by Cyrus Panopolitanus. His

(138) Probably, with the *triduum* occupying August 13, 14, and 15. The reconstruction of this phase of evolution of the feast is highly conjectural. Its main witness is a Georgian canon for the gathering of the apostles, see van Esbroeck, Ein georgischer liturgischer Kanon... Moreover, the date August 15 is the normative date of Dormition in the Western Syrian rite (attested to, among others, in the Jacobite calendars having no sign of later Byzantine influence). Thus, it goes back to the epoch of the full liturgical communion between the future Jacobites and the Chalcedonian Byzantines, that is, to the epoch of the *Henotikon*.

(139) On the evolution of this feast, see, first of all, Walter D. Ray, *August 15 and the Development of the Jerusalem Calendar.* A Dissertation. Directors: Paul F. Bradshaw, Maxwell E. Johnson. Notre Dame University, Department of Theology (Notre Dame, IN, 2000). A large article of the same author is forthcoming.

(140) P. Maas, C. A. Trypanis, Sancti Romani Melodi *Cantica. Cantica genuina* (Oxford, 1963; reprint: 1997) 276–280.

background was in a liturgical tradition still shared with the Monophysite world.

In the Western Syrian rite, as well as in the Byzantine one, its date is September 8, with no further explanation. In the Coptic rite, there are two alternative traditions, Thout 10 (September 8) and Pashons 1 (April 26). The latter appears in some liturgical books but is never used *de facto*.[141] The Ethiopic *Synaxarium* on Maskaram 10 (September 8) refers to the two different traditions of celebration, on Maskaram 10 and on Genbot 1 (April 26) considering both of them as equally actual while based on different liturgical books.[142] Thus, the Nativity of Theotokos on September 8 is a mainstream tradition of the epoch preceding the anti-Monophysite policy of Justin I (since 518), and its dating to the fifth century is most likely.

The internal chronology of the vision of John the Eunuch can be interpreted as covering the three-day Dormition/Assumption feast from August 7 to 9 and, then, a 30-day period up to the Nativity of the Theotokos feast on September 8. Our interpretation of the vision as taking place on the three days of Dormition/Assumption becomes much stronger now, when it covers the whole internal chronology of the vision account.

2.4.7. Problem of the Origin of the Coptic Dormition on January 16

Our explanation of the feast of August 7 is in contradiction with van Esbroeck's explanation of the date of August 9 as appearing already in the Jerusalem of Theodosius in connection with another date of the Dormition cycle, January 16. According to the Coptic Dormition cycle attested to not later than in the sixth century, the Theotokos reposed and was buried on January 16, but the Assumption took place 206 days later, on August 9 (and, thus, January 16 is the Dormition, and August 9 is the Assumption). The festal date August 9, according to van Esbroeck's reconstruction, could never exist outside this connection with January 16.

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(141) U. Zanetti, *Les lectionnaires coptes annuels. Basse-Égypte* (Louvain-la-Neuve, 1985) (Publications de l'Institut orientaliste de Louvain, 33) 44.

(142) G. Colin, *Le Synaxaire éthiopien. Mois de Maskaram. Édition critique du texte éthiopien et traduction* (Turnhout, 1986) (PO, 43, 3, N 195) 68/69–70/71. The entry for Genbot 1 is of no specific interest. The origin of the date Pashons/Genbot 1 is unclear.

Our reconstruction of the Dormition cycle from August 7 to August 9 contradicts this thesis. The Western Dormition tradition of January 18, with no connection to August, could be another argument against the earlier date of the Coptic Dormition cycle.

The most important arguments are, however, historical ones. The Coptic *Panegyric of Macarius of Tkow* describes the armed attack of Juvenal of Jerusalem against the shrine of Gethsemane on January 16. This was the initial event of the return of Juvenal to Jerusalem and the fall of Theodosius in 453. This chronology contradicts, however, the Byzantine historians who say that Juvenal returned in the summer (after 20 months of the rule of Theodosius). There is no possibility to accept the exact chronology of the Coptic panegyrist even if his account is basically realistic.[143] Therefore, this Coptic text does not explain the origin of the date January 16, but, on the contrary, tries to inscribe this already existing date into the frame of the Coptic 206-day Dormition cycle.

Fortunately, the history of January 16 as a Dormition date is hardly relevant to the origin of the *Corpus Areopagiticum*.

2.4.8. What Do Timotheos and Gaius Mean as the Addressees?

The four long treatises are addressed to apostle Timotheos and the four first short letters to apostle Gaius ("To Gaius therapeutes"). Both names are taken from the close entourage of apostle Paul and both point out bishops of Ephesus, its first bishop Timotheos and its second bishop Gaius.[144]

Now we are in a position to judge why it was so important. If the hagiographical legend in the core of the *Corpus Areopagiticum* is that of the Dormition, then, as it was necessarily in the fifth century, it must to establish some link with Ephesus, that is, with the previously widely known but now replaced cult of the Theotokos.

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(143) See, on all this, Lourié 2007.

(144) This Gaius is never mentioned by Dionysius as a bishop (and, as it seems, his title "therapeutes" means "monk" — see esp. *Letter* VIII to "therapeutes" Demophilos) but his name is borrowed from the narrow circle of "Pauline" names and, as an addressee of Areopagite, his place is second after Timotheos, in correspondence with the succession of the two first bishops of Ephesus. Dionysius is addressing Timotheos as his "co-presbyter," "confrere," "concelebrant," that is, as a bishop like himself, and to Gaius as not a bishop yet, which corresponds to the whole imaginative "historical" situation.

Dionysius' strategy was different from that of the roughly contemporaneous Syriac "Transition in Six Books" with their Preface explaining how the book containing the story of the Transition was found in Ephesus. The "Six Books" were pretending to discover some hidden information in Ephesus (nevertheless, in Ephesus, not otherwise). Instead, Dionysius prefers to appear as a teacher to Timotheos and Gaius, that is, to Ephesus.

2.4.9. Who is Sosipater, the Addressee of *Letter* VI?

The name of Sosipater is mentioned by apostle Paul in Rom 16:21 and, what is more important, his name figures among those of companions of Paul in Acts 20:4, together with Gaius (here most manuscripts have "Sopater" but many others "Sosipater"). The later legends on the apostolic career of Sosipater are hardly of relevance here but his proximity to Paul and Gaius certainly is.

The letter to "Sosipater the presbyter" is a short exhortation to avoid discussions and to prefer defending the truth independently of the polemical context. Already Paul Rorem suggested that such advice could be timely in the context of the epoch of the *Henotikon*. Concerning this epoch, he wrote: "It is entirely possible that someone would attempt to resolve these difficulties with an authoritative word from the apostolic age, to go back 'behind' the controversial language by attempting to avoid all the polemical terms and by stating the issue affirmatively without any denunciations or refutations. While this speculative scenario for the origins of the corpus is certainly a possibility, it applies only to certain of the Dionysian comments on Christology, which constitute but a few lines among thousands on other topics."[145]

2.4.10. Commemoration Dates of Hierotheos and Dionysius

Engberding, in his recension of Honigmann's work, was the first scholar who paid serious attention to the commemoration dates of Dionysius and Hierotheos within different liturgical traditions. He limited his observations to the need of discussing with Honigmann, who thought that both dates of commemoration, October 3 and October 4, have a Monophysite origin, and the commemoration of Hierotheos/John the Eunuch on October 4 is the historical one and, thus, the most important liturgically. These suppositions were basically erroneous, as it was shown by Engberding. Namely, he demonstrated that both

(145) Rorem, *Pseudo-Dionysius...*, 12.

October 3 (Dionysius) and 4 (Hierotheos) go back to the Byzantine Chalcedonian tradition, and it is Dionysius' commemoration on October 3 that is the most important feast among the two.[146] To this, van Esbroeck answered that even the Byzantine Chalcedonian tradition could preserve a commemoration day for Peter the Iberian and his cellmate. Above, I have added to van Esbroeck's reasons that, in about 500, the Byzantine tradition was still not so much Chalcedonian: it was the epoch when the *Henotikon* of Zeno was in force. Therefore, the attitude of Peter the Iberian toward Chalcedon had no decisive value for his commemoration in the Byzantine tradition in about 500.

However, van Esbroeck made an important observation concerning the Coptic tradition (known to Engberding as well but left by him without an explanation). This observation made by van Esbroeck[147] concerning the Coptic commemoration of Hierotheos on April 16 (Parmoute 21) still holds. This day is the exact middle of the 206-day period of the Coptic Dormition cycle (between the Dormition on January 16 and the Assumption on August 9). This date of commemoration is unnoticed in either the Chalcedonian or Western Syrian milieu, and so, presents an alternative to the commemoration dates in October that those who accepted (or, maybe, created) the pseudonymised recension of the *Corpus* used.[148]

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(146) Engberding, Kann Petrus der Iberer…

(147) van Esbroeck 1993, 225–226.

(148) For the sake of completeness, let us note that, in the Coptic rite, the commemoration of Dionysius "the Astronomer" (Areopagite who saw the solar eclipse during the Crucifixion, according to *Letter* VII, but his reputation as "the Astronomer" is due to "his" later astronomical treatise *CPG* 6634 written in Syriac and very popular among the Jacobites) or "the Head of Philosophers" on Paopi 23 (October 20) is by no means genuine. According to the Coptic Synaxarium (supported by the Ethiopian one as well as some Coptic calendars), this is the day of Dionysius of Corinth (historically a second century bishop, but a martyr under Diocletian according to the Ethiopian Synaxarium). Cf. F. Nau, *Les ménologes des évangéliaires coptes-arabes édités et traduits* (Paris, 1913) (PO, 10, 2) 27; E. Tisserant, *Le calendrier d'Abu'l Barakât. Texte arabe édité et traduit* (Paris, 1913) (PO, 10, 3) 13; R. Basset, *Le Synaxaire arabe jacobite (rédaction copte). Texte arabe publié, traduit et annoté* (Paris, 1904) (PO, 1,3) 150; G. Colin, *Le Synaxaire éthiopien. Mois de Ṭeqemt. Édition critique du texte éthiopien et traduction* (Turnhout, 1987) (PO, 44, 1, N 197) 134/135–136/137 (txt/tr.). The commemoration of Dionysius the Areopagite in the Ethiopian Synaxarium is on October 3 (Ṭəqəmt 6), where the Synaxarium places an epitome of the so-called Autobiography of Areopagite *CPG* 6633 (*ibid.*, 26/27–30/31).

However, the October commemoration dates are also placed in the middle of some other Theotokos liturgical cycle. October 3 is the exact middle between August 15 (main date of the Byzantine Dormition feast in about 500) and November 21 (the Presentation of Theotokos; on the origin of this feast see Note 3 below). It is especially important that all the three feasts are connected within a pentecontad cycle: October 3 is the fiftieth day after August 15, and November 21 is the fiftieth day after October 3.

August 15 is the day of an earlier Palestinian feast of Mary that was rethought of as the main day of the Dormition cycle in the late fifth century. The Marian feast of the Presentation on November 21 is datable to the patriarchate of Elias (494–516), a pro-Chalcedonian patriarch still loyal to the *Henotikon* (see Note 4 below). Its date, in about 500, is the same as that of the pseudonymised *Corpus Dionysiacum*, and its tradition is exclusively Chalcedonian, like that of the October commemoration of Dionysius and Hierotheos.

Indeed, it is the late fifth century when we see, instead of the early 3-day cycle, a 7-day cycle of the Dormition: the Dormition and Assumption are now divided by an additional three days. This cycle that I call (3+4) is already widespread in about 500 and is presented, among others, in the *Historia Euthymiaca* (the earliest document quoting our *Corpus*).[149]

Moreover, we know judging from the formation of the Coptic Dormition cycle, that the *triduum* from August 7 to 9 is replaced by August 9 alone. Superposing on this 9 August 9 the cycle (3+4) we arrive at August 15 as the final date of the Dormition/Assumption festival.

This festival (while normally on August 9) was sometime called "Pascha" ("patterned after Pascha" as is said in a homily of Benjamin

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As it seems, the older memory of Dionysius of Corinth on October 20 was transformed into the memory of another Dionysius, the Areopagite. The Ethiopic epitome of *CPG* 6633 contains a strange addition: the day of the Crucifixion, unspecified in the other recensions, is indicated exactly as "in the sixth day, in the month Adār," which is "translated" as Maggābit 27 (*ibid*., 30/31). Maggābit 27 is March 24, an acceptable date for the Crucifixion, but Adar 6 is March 6 (in Syriac). As it seems, the Ethiopic text ultimately goes back to a Syriac original (most probably, through an Arabic intermediary) relying on an unknown tradition. On the value of the sixth day of different months as a "messianic date" in the Jewish and early Christian traditions, see Lourié, Calendrical Elements in *2 Enoch*.

(149) Lourié 2007.

of Alexandria, in the seventh century, preserved in Ethiopic only,[150] but in an Ethiopic chronicle of the seventeenth century I found the Assumption called merely "Pascha"[151]). This Coptic usage is hardly a seventh-century innovation.

To count 50 days from the feast of Dormition/Assumption to arrive at a kind of Pentecost would be quite harmonic to the *Zeitgeist*. Before 519, the feast of the Apostles (now the feast of Peter and Paul on June 29) was in Byzantium a movable feast celebrated on the fiftieth day after the Pentecost (second Pentecost),[152] in the same way as the late Jewish feast of New Wine (*e.g.*, in the *Temple Scroll*).

The commemoration dates October 3 and 4 are chosen to show that Dionysius and Hierotheos are the apostles of the Theotokos. Indeed, Engberding was right in his conclusion that the commemoration of Hierotheos on October 4 is a "Nebenfest" while the commemoration of Dionysius on October 3 is a "Hauptfest" of the same liturgical micro-cycle,[153] which became, however, a remote part of the liturgical macro-cycle of the Dormition/Assumption feast. The feast of the Presentation of the Theotokos on November 21 is a creation of the same epoch and the same milieu. It is the next, second Pentecost after the feast of Dormition. The commemoration of Dionysius on October 3 is in the middle between the two Theotokos feasts in the same manner, as it is in the Coptic rite where the commemoration day of Hierotheos is in the middle between the Dormition and another but closely connected to the Dormition feast of the Theotokos (Assumption).

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(150) §§ 28 and 37; V. Arras, *De Transitu Mariae apocrypha aethiopica*, II (Louvain, 1974) (CSCO, 351–352; Aeth., 68–69) 69, 71/53, 55 (txt/tr.).

(151) In the royal chronicle of Iyasu I (1682–1705), regarding the Dormition feast on August 9, 1686 (Russian translation by S. B. Chernetsov: С. Б. Чернецов, *Эфиопские хроники XVII–XVIII веков* (Москва, 1989) 96, according to the edition in I. Guidi, *Annales Iohannis I, 'Iyāsu I et Bakāffā* [f. 2] (Paris, 1903) (CSCO, Aeth. II, 5 = 24 / Aeth., 7).

(152) A. Baumstark, *Festbrevier und Kirchenjahr der syrischen Jakobiten. Eine liturgiegeschichtliche Verarbeit auf Grund hslicher Studien in Jerusalem und Damaskus, der syrischen Hsskataloge von Berlin, Cambridge, London, Oxford, Paris und Rom und des unierten Mossuler Festbrevierdruckes* (Paderborn, 1910) (Studien zur Geschichte und Kultur des Altertums, III, 3–5) 265–266. On the origin of the Byzantine feast on June 29, see В. Лурье, *Введение в критическую агиографию* [B. Lourié, *Introduction to the critical hagiography*] (Санкт-Петербург, 2009) 141–142 (in Russian).

(153) Engberding, Kann Petrus der Iberer…, 91–95.

The cycle of the two pentecontads from August 15 to October 3 and from October 3 to November 21 was created over a short time in the late fifth — early sixth century. The whole cycle was dedicated to the Theotokos, with Dionysius the Areopagite together with Hierotheos, as witnesses of Her acceptation into the heavenly Temple. The date of October 3 is the middle between the two Temples that were accepting the Theotokos, the heavenly one and the earthly one on Sion.

Note 4: The Origin of the Feast of the Presentation of the Theotokos on November 21

The feast of the Presentation of the Theotokos on November 21 does not belong to the well studied ones. Its appearance in Constantinople is testified to in the early eighth century by two homilies of patriarch Germanos (715–730)[154] but even after this date it does not figure in some important Constantinopolitan liturgical documents.[155] Its origins, however, are to be searched for in Jerusalem, in connection to the dedication of the Church of the Theotokos called *Nea* that took place in November, 543.[156]

The exact date of the encaenia of the *Nea* is known from the Georgian Palestinian documents only where it is one of the annual commemorations, November 20,[157] that is, on the eve of the feast of Presentation. The analogy with another pair of feasts, the encaenia of the Anastasis on September 13 and the Exaltation of the Holy Cross on September 14 is striking. The problem is, however, how to interpret it. What is primary, the date of the encaenia or the date of the subsequent feast?

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(154) *CPG* 8007, 8008; *PG* 98, 292–320.

(155) L. Brubaker, M. Cunningham, Byzantine Veneration of the *Theotokos*: Icons, Relics, and Eighth-Century Homilies, in: H. Amirav, R. B. ter Haar Romeny (eds.), *From Rome to Constantinople: Studies in Honour of Averil Cameron* (Leuven, 2007) (Late Antique History and Religion, 1) 235–250, here 241.

(156) See, for the *status quaestionis* that is still actual in our days, H. Chirat, ΨΩΜΙΑ ΔΙΑΦΟΡΑ. II. Les origines de la fête du 21 novembre : Saint Jean Chrysostome et Saint André de Crète ont-ils célébré la Présentation de la Théotocos ?, in: *Mélanges E. Podechard. Études de sciences religieuses offertes pour son éméritat au doyen honoraire de la Faculté de Théologie de Lyon* (Lyon, 1945) 127–134. The monograph I. E. Αναστασιου, *Τὰ Εἰσόδια τῆς Θεοτόκου. Ἡ ἱστορία, ἡ εἰκονογραφία καὶ ἡ ὑμνογραφία τῆς ἑορτῆς* (Θεσσαλονίκη, 1959) does not add anything to the early history of the feast.

(157) See esp. G. Garitte, *Le calendrier palestino-géorgien du* Sinaiticus 34 *(X^e siècle). Édité, traduit et commenté* (Bruxelles, 1959) (SH, 30) 389.

It seems to me theoretically unacceptable to think that the date of encaenia could have been chosen arbitrarily, and that the date of the corresponding feast was chosen as the following day after the encaenia. However, such a discussion in the theory of liturgics would be here out of place. Therefore, I will limit myself to the demonstration for the case of the feast of the Presentation only.

Now, especially after Chirat's 1945 article which, in turn, followed the early papers of Simon Vailhé,[158] there is a kind of consensus that it is the date of the encaenia of the *Nea* that defined the date of the Presentation. There were, nevertheless, some voices for the opposite point of view.[159] Chirat disproved them saying that they are based on the identification of the spot of the *Nea* with that of the historical Temple of Solomon but this identification is wrong (even if it was frequent in nineteenth century scholarship).[160] In the 1970s, the localisation of the *Nea* was established archeologically, and so, is now without of doubts.[161] The *Nea* church was localised on the slope of Mount Sion opposite the historical Temple Mount.

However, for the Christian tradition, the historical Temple Mount and the spot of the Herod Temple were not a holy place. Instead, the Christian holy place of the Temple was Mount Sion only. Here, the Sion basilica dedicated in 394 was an already established representation of the Temple.[162] The *Nea* church became the second Christian avatar of the Temple of Solomon. Procopius' account of *Nea* in *De Aedificiis*, V, 6 is patterned

(158) S. Vailhé, La dédicace de Sainte-Marie la Neuve. Origine de la fête de la Présentation, *Revue Augustinienne* 2 (1903) 136–140; idem, La fête de la Présentation de Marie au Temple, *Échos d'Orient* 5 (1902–1903) 221–224.

(159) Chirat refers to J. Pargoire, *L'Église byzantine de 527 à 847* (Paris, 1905²) 115, but, in fact, Pargoire follows Vailhé in priority of the date of the encaenia, while he partially identifies the spot of the *Nea* with that of the ancient Temple. I have no possibility to check the two other Chirat's references, "E<chos d'> O<rient>, 25 (1926), p. 293" and an unpublished dissertation of Sister M.-J. Kishpaugh, O. P., *The Feast of the Presentation of the Virgin Mary* (Washington, 1941), p. 35, note 44.

(160) Chirat, ΨΩΜΙΑ ΔΙΑΦΟΡΑ…, 134.

(161) The archaeologist Yoram Tsafrir shows basic agreement of the data of excavations with Procopius' account in *De Aedificiis* V, 6. See Y. Tsafrir, Procopius and the Nea Church in Jerusalem, *Antiquité tardive* 8 (2000) 149–164.

(162) See, for all these topics with further bibliography, B. Lourié, Calendrical Implications in the *Epistle to the Hebrews*: Seven questions concerning the liturgy of the Sabbath rest, *Revue biblique* 115 (2008) 245–265.

after the biblical account of the building of the Temple; many constructional details of its architectural project have had correspondences with those of the biblical Temple. Such was the official ideology lying behind the Justinianic edifice.[163]

Thus, the *Nea* is localised and was constructed as a new Temple of Solomon, while this Temple of Solomon was not that of our archaeologists or the Hebrew tradition but specific to the Christian tradition only, with a different localisation. At the same time, the *Nea* was dedicated as a church of Mary. Therefore, a connection between Mary and the Temple is here deliberate and obvious. It is hardly possible to avoid the conclusion that the *Nea* was constructed as the holy place for commemoration of the Presentation of the Theotokos. This, in turn, is an important argument for existence of the feast of the Presentation (in Jerusalem) before 543 and for the priority of the date of November 21 in the liturgical micro-cycle of the two feasts on November 20 (encaenia) and 21.

This interpretation is corroborated by the fact that the *Nea* was founded (θεμελιωθεῖσαν) by patriarch Elias (494–516), as it is stated by Cyril of Scythopolis in his paraphrase of Sabas' petition to Emperor Justinian in 531.[164] It is the period of Elias' patriarchate when the establishment of the feast of Presentation is the most likely. Elias' Chalcedonian sympathies made him a rather unpopular figure in the sixth-century anti-Chalcedonian camp, and this is an enough explanation why the feast of the Presentation is absent in the genuine Western Syrian tradition (while it is mentioned in several Western Syrian calendars under Byzantine influence[165]).

Patriarch Elias was eventually deposed for his Chalcedonism but, nevertheless, he was following the policy of the *Henotikon* and was in communion with the Eastern patriarchs and not with Rome. The years of his patriarchate cover the date of appearance of the pseudonymised recension of the *Corpus Areopagiticum*, *ca* 500. Thus, the commemoration

(163) On the *Nea* as a (new) Temple of Solomon, see now S. Graham, Justinian and the Politics of Space, in: J. L. Berquist, C. V. Camp (eds.), *Constructions of Space* II: *The Biblical City and Other Imagined Spaces* (New York, 2008) (The Library of Hebrew Bible / Old Testament Studies, 490) 53–77. I am grateful to Susan Graham for providing me a copy of her paper.

(164) *Vita Sabae*, 72; E. Schwartz, *Kyrillos von Skythopolis* (Leipzig, 1939) (TU, 49.2) 175.13.

(165) *E. g.*, in the calendars Nau VI, IX, XI, XII; F. Nau, *Un martyrologe et douze ménologes syriaques, édités et traduits* (Paris, 1912) (PO, 10, 1) 66, 102, 105, 128.

of Dionysius on October 3 (the earliest commemoration date connected to the *Corpus* in the Chalcedonian tradition) could be dated to the same period.

As it seems, there is only one natural explanation for the facts reviewed facts, namely,

- rethinking of the August 15 Marian feast as the main (final) date of the Dormition/Assumption cycle in the late fifth century (possibly even before Elias),
- the appearance of the pseudonymised *Corpus Areopagiticum* in about 500,
- the establishment of the Presentation feast on November 21 in about 500 as well,
- parallelism between anti-Chalcedonian and Chalcedonian dates of liturgical commemoration of the *Corpus Areopagiticum* (Coptic commemoration of Hierotheos at the exact middle of the Coptic Dormition — Assumption cycle and Byzantine commemoration of Dionysius at the exact middle between two Marian feasts one of them also being Dormition/Assumption).

This explanation consists of the following: under Elias of Jerusalem, the feast of Dormition/Assumption on August 15 was expanded by two pentecontads up to the macro-cycle ending with the feast of Presentation on November 21. The middle-point of this cycle, the end of the first pentecontad, is October 3, the commemoration day of Dionysius. Dionysius' feast and the Presentation were established simultaneously as an expansion of the Dormition/Assumption cycle.

Part Three: Calendaric Matters and the Origin of the Pseudonymised *Corpus*

The next section will continue the hagiographical approach, but will be focused on topics almost unexplored in previous scholarship. Most of them are directly connected to liturgical calendars.

3.1. The Exact Dates of the Deaths of Abba Isaias and Peter the Iberian and the Dates of Peter's Commemoration

The traditionally accepted date of the death of Peter the Iberian is December 1, 491. The date December (First Kanon) 1 is stated explicitly in the *Life of Peter the Iberian*, and the year 491 follows from chronological evaluations made by scholars. However, both the *Life of Peter the Iberian* and Syrian calendars give somewhat contradictory informa-

tion. This fact was recently noticed but never explained by Cornelia Horn.[166]

The chronology of the death and the burial of Peter the Iberian according to his *Life* is the following:

- Abba Isaias died on August (Ab) 11, the year is not specified (§ 167),[167]
- the commemoration day of John the Eunuch, October (First Teshrin) 4, passed (§ 171),[168]
- the vision of an Egyptian monk Athanasius who lived with Peter as his disciple, that took place ten days before the death of Peter: the bishop-martyr Peter of Alexandria will arrive for the soul of Peter the Iberian; the commemoration day of Peter of Alexandria was to take place in seven days (§ 173),[169]
- the liturgical service of Peter on the commemoration day of Peter of Alexandria (§ 175),[170]
- an account of some "blessed Stephen" who died after Peter the Iberian; his commemoration day is First Kanon (December) 4, "three days after the memorial of Abba Peter, our bishop" (§ 177),[171]
- another vision of the same Athanasius, a priest-monk from Egypt: the death of Peter the Iberian will occur on that same day which is the third day of the feast of Peter of Alexandria, "according to the

(166) In her analysis, Horn interprets the dates according to the Alexandrian (Coptic) calendar without discerning properly between the Julian calendar and the Gregorian one. Thus, she rightly states that the commemoration date of Peter of Alexandria is November 25 (Julian calendar) but, then, translates the same date, Hator 29 (= Julian November 25), as December 8 (Gregorian calendar from March 1900 till February 2100), which produces a series of chronological confusions in Horn's commentaries. Cf. Horn, Phenix Jr, John Rufus…, 263, n. 6, and 264, n. 2.

(167) Horn, Phenix Jr, John Rufus…, 242/243. The *Life of Abba Isaias* by Zacharias gives no chronology at all; cf. E. W. Brooks, Vita Isaiae monachi auctore Zacharia Scholastico, in: *Vitae virorum apud monophysitas celeberrimorum*, I (Parisiis, 1907) (CSCO, Ser. III; Syr 25 [7–8, Syr 7–8]) 1–16 (txt) / 1–10 (versio).

(168) Horn, Phenix Jr, John Rufus…, 248/249.

(169) Ibid., 252/253–254/255.

(170) Ibid., 256/257.

(171) Ibid., 258/259.

custom that one adopted in Alexandria, that his memorial was [to be celebrated] for three days" (§ 180),[172]

- Peter the Iberian died on that same day (§ 181),[173]
- "It was then late evening, [near] dawn on Friday;" the body of the saint was wrapped and prepared to the burial (§ 182),[174]
- Peter's burial in his monastery in Maiuma at the evening of the second day after his death (§§ 186–188),[175]
- the translation of Peter's relics to the new monastery building "during the following year, one day before [the anniversary] of his departure" (§ 191),[176]
- a kind of summary of the chronological data in the final chapter of the *Life*: Peter died on First Kanon (December) 1, "when Sunday was dawning" [cf. Friday in § 182 above[177]], on the third day of the memorial of Peter of Alexandria, five months after the departure of Abba Isaias [cf. August as the month of Isaias' departure in § 167 above: from August to December there are only four months], the *translatio* of his relics took place in the second year, one day before Peter's memorial; Peter's first deposition took place on First Kanon (December) 2; thus, we celebrate Peter's commemoration over three days: the day of his *translatio*, the day of his death, and the day of his first deposition (§ 193).[178] Horn already noticed that "[t]his description conflicts with the dating of the commemoration of the Peter of Alexandria indicated above at *Vit. Pet.* § 182"[179] but one can see some other contradictions as well.

(172) Horn, Phenix Jr, John Rufus…, 262/263.

(173) Ibid., 262/263–264/265.

(174) Ibid., 264/265–266/267; Horn's note (p. 264, n. 2; see above) that it is December 10 is wrong, unless we adopt the Gregorian calendar when its difference with the Julian one is 13 days.

(175) Horn, Phenix Jr, John Rufus…, 270/271–274/275.

(176) Ibid., 278/279.

(177) This contradiction was noticed by R. Raabe, *Petrus der Iberer. Ein Charakterbild aus Kirchen- und Sittengeschichte des fünften Jahrhunderts. Syrische Übersetzung einer um das Jahr 500 verfassten griechischen Biographie. Herausgegeben und überstetzt* (Leipzig, 1895) 132, n. 2.

(178) Horn, Phenix Jr, John Rufus…, 278/279–280/281.

(179) Ibid., 279, n. 6.

Despite its unawareness of the exact date of the death of Abba Isaias, the last chapter of the *Life of Peter the Iberian* is quite precise in its justification of the commemoration cycle of Peter constructed around December 1 as its main date. Indeed, we can see this date as that of the commemoration of Peter in some Syrian calendars.[180] December 1 fell on Sunday in 491. This seems to me to be the main argument for dating the deaths of both Peter the Iberian and Abba Isaias to 491. However, it is difficult to avoid the impression that the whole final chapter of the presently accessible text of the *Life of Peter the Iberian* is a later addition. In fact, it does not have any support in the bulk of the text. The note in § 177 that the commemoration of blessed Stephen on December 4 is "three days after the memorial of Abba Peter" could also be a later gloss, if it contradicts the other relevant data.

According to the main text of the *Life*, Peter's death took place on November 27, the third day of the feast of Peter of Alexandria which started on November 25. Indeed, this date is also known to Syrian calendars.[181] November 27 fell on Friday in 492. It seems to me, thus, beyond any reasonable doubt that the exact dates of Abba Isaias' and Peter the Iberian's departures are August 11, 492, and November 27, 492, respectively.

As it is stated in the *Life of Peter the Iberian* (§ 180), his death took place within a liturgical cycle of Egyptian origin, the three-day feast of Peter of Alexandria. According to the Egyptian calendar, the date of Peter the Iberian's death is Koiak 1. This fact is the obvious source of confusion in a part of the Syrian liturgical tradition. In the Middle Ages as well as in Antiquity, it was rather customary to "translate" the dates from one calendar to another without any exact formulas but simply on the grounds of identification of the months which roughly correspond to each other. Thus, the Egyptian Koiak is to be interpreted as the Julian December (First Kanon, in Syriac), and Koiak 1 becomes December 1 instead of November 27. The final chapter of the presently accessible text of the *Life of Peter the Iberian* is an elaborated attempt to

(180) Calendar Nau VI; Nau, *Un martyrologe et douze ménologes…*, 67. The calendar of Rabban Sliba gives Peter's commemoration two times, on December 1 and on November 25 (instead of the commemoration of Peter of Alexandria that is to be expected on this day); P. Peeters, Le martyrologe de Rabban Sliba, *AB* 27 (1908) 129–200, here 142, 143/168, 169 (txt/tr.).

(181) Calendars Nau III; Nau, *Un martyrologe et douze ménologes…*, 48, and Nau X; *ibid.*, 108.

justify an already established liturgical cycle based on such a mistake. This chapter is a later addition with no historical value.[182]

3.2. Connected Peter the Iberian, Dionysius the Areopagite, Polycarp of Smyrna, and some Carpus

Now, knowing the origins of the two main commemoration dates of Peter the Iberian (November 27 and December 1), we are in position to revisit Honigmann's (and van Esbroeck's) thesis that there is a connection between some memorials of Peter and/or John the Eunuch, on the one hand, and some people mentioned in the *Corpus Areopagiticum*, on the other.

What does it mean that the commemoration of Hierotheos of Athens, in the Chalcedonian tradition, coincides with the day of departure of John the Eunuch, October 4? Is it a mere coincidence or something more, as Honigmann and van Esbroeck thought? To answer, we need to recheck the available data on the memorial days of Peter the Iberian and the personages mentioned in the *Corpus Areopagiticum*.

There are some "anomalous" commemoration dates which escaped scholarly attention. The most important is the only day of commemoration of both Peter the Iberian and his teacher Abba Isaias in the Copto-Ethiopian rite, October 13 (Coptic Paopi = Arabic Babeh or, dialectal, Baba = Ethiopic Ṭ'əqəmt 16). This rite does not know such commemoration days as August 11, November 27, and December 1. As to November 27, it is rather natural: in the Coptic rite, this date was already occupied by the third day of the three-day festival of Peter of Alexandria. As for December 1, it is a purely Syrian invention impossible outside of the realm where the Julian calendar is at work.

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(182) The trace of its liturgical cycle from November 30 to December 2 was preserved in the Georgian tradition only where the memory of Peter the Iberian was December 2. According to the Georgian version of the *Life of Peter the Iberian*, this is the day of Peter's death (§ 68). However, the medieval Georgian calendars are not studied sufficiently so far, and so, we cannot judge with certainty whether December 2 is the only memory date of Peter in the Georgian rite or not. Cf. Н. Марр, Предисловие [N. Marr, Preface], in: idem, *Житие Петра Ивера, подвижника и епископа майюмского V века* [*Life of Peter the Iberian, Ascetic and Bishop of Maiouma*] (Санкт-Петербург, 1896) (Православный палестинский сборник, 16.2) XIII–XIV, XVI. The date of this Georgian version is uncertain; it goes back, in turn, to a Syriac version but distinct from the known text of John Rufus. For the *status quaestionis*, see Horn, *Asceticism...*, 47–49.

Normally, October 13 is the commemoration day of bishop Carpus, deacon Papylas and those with them killed at Pergamum in Asia Minor under Decius. This is an ancient memorial common to the Byzantine, Copto-Ethiopian, and Western Syrian rites. In the Copto-Ethiopic rite only, to these commemorations, a commemoration of Peter, the disciple of Abba Isaias (and sometime of Abba Isaias himself) are added. Very often the original connection between Carpus and his companions is broken: in many Coptic and Ethiopic documents the names of his companions are lost, and even the name of Carpus is corrupted.[183] This Carpus seems to be rather a companion of Abba Isaias and Peter his disciple or, at least, an independent person.

At the same time, there is an "anomalous" commemoration of Dionysius the Areopagite on December 3 connected with the commemorations of both Carpus and Polycarp on this same day. The calendar Nau III (Western Syrian going back to the eighth century) has on December 3 Dionysius the Areopagite, some unspecified Carpus, and

(183) Basset, *Le Synaxaire arabe jacobite…*, 128 (Carpus is rendered as *Qarbū* قربوا, and Papylas as *Abdalū* ابدلوا. These names are often distorted in Arabic; thus, in the variant readings, Basset quotes other manuscripts where these names are rendered as *Aylū* (ايلوا) and *Tarbus* (for Carpus) and *Apollo* (for Papylas). A Coptic calendar in Arabic, fouteenth century (ms F; the calendar occupies several leaflets binded together with a five-language Psalter of the sixteenth cent.), gives, after Agathon of Alexandria, "...and saint *Wrnwʾ* (ورنوا) and Abba *Blwʾ* (بلوا) and Peter" [F. Nau, *Les ménologes des évangéliaires coptes-arabes…*, 59 (txt) / 27, n. 2 (tr.) among the variant readings; Nau recognizes in "saint Warnoua" Carpus and in "Anba Bloua et Pierre" Papylas and Peter the Iberian, cf. his index of names, *ibid.*, 68 and 75]. The Ethiopian Synaxarium on Ṭəqəmt 16 (Colin, *Le Synaxaire éthiopien. Mois de Ṭeqemt*, 90/91) gives, among others, the commemoration of "...Holy Father Abba Ablo [*ms D*: Ablu] and Saint Peter, the disciple of Abba Isaias the Anchorite; and the commemoration of Saint Fārbu [*ms E*: Fāfbu*; an obvious error due to the similarity of the corresponding letters in Ethiopic*] <...> and Qarbul [*ms E*: Qarbu] and Anālyu..." Colin rightly translates "Ablo" as "Apollo" but, in fact, this is a distortion of the name Papylas through an Arabic intermediary (in Arabic, the form "Apollo" for "Papylas" is attested, see above). Fārbu (Fāfbu) and Qarbul (Qarbu) are both different renderings of "Carpus" due to the similarity between *fa* and *qaf* in Arabic (these letters differ only by the number of dots, and so, are very often confused). "Anālyu" is another avatar of "Papylas," after confusing *ba* and *nun* in an Arabic intermediary (these letters also differ only by dots). Thus, the Ethiopian Synaxarium contains two sequences with the names of Carpus and Papylas on the same day, and the first of them contains also the names of Peter the Iberian and his teacher Isaias.

Polycarp of Smyrna. Dionysius, while without Carpus and Polycarp, is repeated on December 3 by the late Western Syrian calendar Nau X. Finally, Qarpus (reconsidered as a Syrian martyr bishop of the fourth century whose cult was especially popular in the fifth and sixth centuries) with a "bishop Polycarp" are mentioned without Dionysius on December 3 in the late calendar Nau VI (ms A), while the same calendar (ms A) does mention Polycarp of Smyrna once more on his legitimate date February 23.[184]

It is likely that the calendar Nau VI (ms A) represents the same tradition where the commemoration of Dionysius the Areopagite was on December 3 together with Carpus and Polycarp of Smyrna. Indeed, such a group of the three names corresponds to the realities of the *Corpus Areopagiticum* where Polycarp of Smyrna is the addressee of the *Letter* VII, and Carpus is a bishop or priest in Crete who reported to Dionysius his mystical vision of the torments of apostates (*Letter* VIII, 6). John of Scythopolis identifies him with a companion of Paul mentioned in 2 Tim 4:13[185] but without any explication of localization in Crete.

Thus, the commemoration of the group of Dionysius, Carpus, and Polycarp of Smyrna on December 3 is testified to directly by two calendars (one of them, Nau III, being relatively ancient) and indirectly by one more calendar. Among these calendars, the two former contain the memory of Peter the Iberian on November 27 and the latter one on December 1. One has to conclude that it was on November 27 in their common archetype.

The date December 3 is close to both alternative dates of Peter's memory: it is the seventh day after November 27 and the next day after the liturgical cycle November 30 – December 2 within which the commemoration on December 1 was introduced. It is *a priori* likely that the commemoration of Dionysius, Carpus, and Polycarpus was

(184) Nau, *Un martyrologe et douze ménologes…*, 36, 108, 67, and 72, correspondingly. The genuine Julian date of the martyr death and the commemoration of Polycarp of Smyrna is February 23 (and, thus, his commemoration in different Christian traditions is February 23 or in a near vicinity of this day), while his historic *Acta* date this event according to some Jewish-Christian calendar as a "Great Sabbath;" cf., for all this, W. Rordorf, Zum Problem des "Grossen Sabbats" im Polykarp- und Pioniusmartyrium, in: E. Dassmann, K. S. Frank (hrsg.), *Pietas. Festschrift für Bernhard Kötting* (Münster, 1980) 245–249.

(185) *SchEp* 553.8; *PG* 4, 553 C.

introduced on December 3 in some connection with the commemoration of Peter the Iberian. So far, our main argument for this is the cluster of the same commemoration of Peter the Iberian and Carpus on October 13 in the Copto-Ethiopian rite. The mutual connection of the commemoration of Peter the Iberian and Carpus mentioned by Areopagite can be proved by examination of Cretan connections of the pseudonymised *Corpus Areopagiticum*.

3.3. Cretan Connections of Carpus and Sitz im Leben *of the* Corpus Areopagiticum

Apostle Paul mentions Carpus as a resident of Troas, and the further mainstream Byzantine tradition (known in the Oriental languages, too) adds that the place of his apostolic mission was Thrace.[186] No legend is known about Carpus' preaching in Crete. According to the mainstream tradition, there is only one apostle of Crete, Titus. Nevertheless, some traces of a legend on apostolic mission in Crete of both Titus and Carpus are preserved. I found these traces in the hymnography of the Cretan feast of the Ten Holy Martyrs of Crete, December 23.

One anonymous canon, currently not in use, addresses Titus and Carpus in the beginning (Ode 1, Troparion 2)[187] as the founders of the Cretan diocese:

Ἱερομύστα Τῖτε	O Titus, initiated in holy mysteries,
καὶ θεοφόρε Κάρπε,	and god-bearing Carpus,
οἱ ἀκλινεῖς θεμέλιοι	the unshakable foundations
τῆς Κρητῶν ἐπαρχίας,	of the eparchy of Cretans,
Θεῷ παριστάμενοι	standing before God
σὺν πολλῇ παρρησίᾳ	with a great franchise,
ὑπὲρ ἡμῶν δεήθητε	pray for us
σὺν τοῖς ἁγίοις μάρτυσι	with the holy martyrs
κινδύνων λυτρωθῆναι ἡμᾶς.	to release us from the evils.

(186) The earliest source is probably Pseudo-Epiphanius of Salamine in his *Index discipulorum*: νη'. Κάρπος, οὗ καὶ αὐτοῦ ὁ Παῦλος μέμνηται, ἐπίσκοπος Βερ̣ρ̣οίας τῆς Θρᾴκης ἐγένετο (T. Schermann, *Prophetarum vitae fabulosae* (Lipsiae, 1907) (BSGRT) 125.7–8).

(187) Canon XLVIII (1): In sanctos X martyres Cretenses, in: A. Kominis, G. Schirò, *Analecta hymnica graeca e codicibus eruta Italiae inferioris*, vol. 4 (Roma, 1976) 587–598; quoted according to *TLG* 4354.004.

Another anonymous canon which is now printed in the Greek menaion addresses the ten martyrs as "Τίτου καὶ Κάρπου κλήματα" ("branches of Titus and Carpus"). This Troparion is borrowed in another anonymous canon, now not in liturgical use, which could be more ancient.[188]

It is extremely unlikely that these canons echo Dionysius the Areopagite, especially given that Areopagite said nothing about the apostolate of Carpus in Crete. On the contrary, if those who were pseudonymising the *Vorlage* of the *Corpus* and their audience were not acquainted with an already existing tradition on the apostolate of Carpus in Crete, the mention of Crete would be senseless. Crete itself does not play any role in the account on Carpus in the *Letter* VIII.

The only reasonable conclusion is that both the *Corpus Dionysiacum* and our Cretan canons reflect a pre-Arabian Cretan local tradition of the double apostolate in Crete of Carpus and Titus. This tradition vanished during the centuries of separation of Crete from the rest of Byzantium.

The pseudonymised recension of the *Corpus* shows clear Cretan connections. Apart from the mention of Dionysius' visit to Carpus in Crete, there is an important implicit indication, the "Titus hierarch" as the addressee of *Letter* IX. Titus is the apostle of Crete according to both our local Cretan and mainstream Byzantine traditions.

It is interesting that there is a parallel with the two apostles of Ephesus. Dionysius addresses each of them according to their status: Timotheos is the addressee of the long treatises while Gaius is that of the short ones. As for the two apostles of Crete, the picture is analogous: Titus as the addressee of a relatively long letter while Carpus appears as the hero of a story addressed to a third person.[189]

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(188) The canon presently in use is that published as Canon XLVIII (3): In sanctos X martyres Cretenses in: *ibid.*, 614–622, see ode 5, troparion 2; cf. a probably older canon XLVIII (2), *ibid.*, 599–613, ode 5, troparion 4.

(189) The names which appear in the *Corpus Areopagiticum* still need to be studied properly. The line of Timotheos, Gaius, and Sosipater points out Ephesus which is important in the context of the Dormition tradition. The line of Titus and Carpus points out Crete. The names of Polycarp of Smyrna and John the Theologian (the addressee of the *Letter* X) are used to fit Dionysius into the historical frame, especially after an apparently anachronistic quotation from Ignatius of Antioch (cf. Rorem, *Pseudo-Dionysius...*, 12–14, and 27–28, and cf. above, section 1.3.2). The sense of the names of Dorotheus (the addressee of the *Letter* V) and Demophilus are still not understood (however,

Neither Peter the Iberian nor John the Eunuch visited Crete but the role of the Cretan anti-Chalcedonian diaspora within Peter the Iberian's Palestinian milieu is firmly attested to. John Rufus in the *Plerophoriae*, 44, records the history of the monastery established by Urbicia and her brother Euphrasius who were children of an unnamed bishop of Crete.[190] In the time of persecution they fled to Palestine and founded a monastery there. Sometime in the late 470s, their monastery joined Epiphanius, an exiled bishop of Pamphylia, one of the most celebrated confessors of the anti-Chalcedonism. Then, a new wave of persecutions forced them to leave their monastery and to go to Alexandria. In her reply to the Chalcedonian authorities of Palestine, Urbicia referred to her late spiritual father, "the holy monk Timotheos" in Crete. Then (apparently, after the proclamation of the *Henotikon* in 482) they all returned to Palestine, in Maiouma, where Urbicia and Euphrasius died (before *ca* 500 when John Rufus wrote his *Plerophories*) preserving their anti-Chalcedonian faith. This bishop Epiphanius gave a priestly ordination to Severus, the future patriarch of Antioch, then a monk in the monastery founded by Peter the Iberian, several years after the death of the latter.[191]

This milieu connected to the monastery of Urbicia and Euphrasius in Maiuma, well-known to John Rufus, was both that of the disciples of Peter the Iberian and that of the mainstream (Severianist) anti-Chalcedonism of the reign of Anastasius (through bishop Epiphanius and Severus himself). If the pseudonymised recension of the *Corpus Dionysiacum* was prepared here, it has a good chance of containing the hallmarks of Cretan connections. the same time, such a milieu of origin opens the broadest perspective for integration into the mainstream Church tradition through Severus of Antioch.

The same milieu was (in the epoch of the *Henotikon*) in Eucharistic communion with and theologically not too far from that of John of Scythopolis, if it is John of Scythopolis portrayed by van Esbroeck and not by Rorem and Lamoreaux.

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the hypothesis that the prototype of Demophilus is Peter the Fuller allows understanding of his name as "populist").

(190) Nau, Jean Rufus, évêque de Maïouma, *Plérophories…*, 94–97.

(191) Kugener, Zacharie le Scholastique, *Vie de Sévère…*, *Sévère…*, 100.

3.4. Hallmarks of the Origin and the Liturgical Calendar

As we have seen, there are different traditions regarding the commemoration of Dionysius the Areopagite, Hierotheos of Athens, Carpus and Polycarp of Smyrna, and Peter the Iberian. Some of them are connected to the main topic of the *Corpus Dionysiacum*, the revelation of hierarchies during the Dormition of the Theotokos. Thus, these commemorations of Dionysius and Hierotheos (studied in the previous sections of this article) say nothing about the authorship. Therefore, I am hesitating even to accept that the commemoration of Hierotheos on October 4 was established by those who were keeping in mind the commemoration day of John the Eunuch.

However, the situation with the Copto-Ethiopian commemorations on October 13 and the Syrian commemorations on December 3 is quite different. Let us recall that these commemorations were never studied by the historians of hagiography.

The commemorations of October 13 give us a connection between Peter the Iberian some Carpus, already having lost his original connection with Papylas and those with them. If we take into account that the name of Carpus is a hallmark of the milieu where the pseudonymised *Corpus* emerged, such a coincidence with the commemoration of Peter the Iberian, absolutely unjustified by his biography or that of his teacher Abba Isaias, is significant. It is to be interpreted as homage of the editors of the pseudonymised *Corpus* to the author of the core of their work.

The coincidence of the commemorations of Dionysius the Areopagite, Carpus, and Polycarp of Smyrna on December 3 is even more revealing. Moreover, this date is not far from the two Syrian commemoration dates of Peter the Iberian, November 27 and December 1 (and especially close to the memorial cycle from November 30 to December 2 described in the additional final chapter of the *Life of Peter the Iberian*).

Both the commemorations of October 13 and December 3 reveal different attempts to inscribe a connection between Peter the Iberian and the *Corpus Dionysiacum* into the liturgical calendars. These attempts were different because the followers of the late Peter the Iberian in Maiuma were dealing with different liturgical traditions of Egypt and Palestine. Their Palestinian legacy was never accepted by the Chalcedonians but partially preserved in the Western Syrian rite. In the anti-Chalcedonian milieu of Egypt, it was, of course, never challenged.

RECAPITULATIO

The thesis of Honigmann — van Esbroeck is now the most plausible explanation of the different chains of data, which were never reconciled otherwise.

Honigmann's thesis that the core of the *Corpus* was written by Peter the Iberian was rejected by most scholars already in the 1950s, but was rescued from oblivion by Michel van Esbroeck in the 1990s.

My own elaboration on van Esbroeck's arguments could be summarized as the following (omitting criticisms of some of his particular arguments).

1. In the *Corpus* itself there are clear signs that it was produced in the milieu of ex-Empress Eudocia. This could by demonstrated by an approach that I call "philological." More than thirty years ago, a brilliant Russian philologist Sergei Averintsev pointed out that there is quite specific stylistic correspondence between the *Corpus* and the two poems of Nonnus of Panopolis, one of these poems being pagan and dedicated to the god Dionysus and another one being a Christian paraphrase of the Gospel of John. However, the author of the Christian poem borrowed verbatim from the pagan one. Both Nonnus and the author of the *Corpus* are describing their object not by indication of what it is but by indication of what it is not. Thus, they enumerate, in very long chains, that something is not that, not that, not that, and so on.

I have added to this observation of Averintsev the known fact that Nonnus has severely influenced one of the leading persons of the milieu of Eudocia, Cyrus of Panopolis — a poet (probably, the most important poet of this whole epoch), prefect of Constantinople who was helping to Eudocia to reshape the cult of Theotokos, then bishop and theologian and disciple of Daniel the Stylite. It is also important that the *Gospel Paraphrase* as well as Cyrus and Eudocia — and as well as Peter the Iberian — were inspired by the Christology of Cyril of Alexandria. After the promulgation of the *Henotikon* of Zeno, Daniel the Stylite was one of the principal spiritual authorities approving this act. Peter the Iberian was loyal to the *Henotikon*. *Henotikon* resolved, during Peter's lifetime, the problems related to the Council of Chalcedon in the East. This Council was not a pretext for Church division until the time of the "monophysite revolution" after 505.

2. The famous expression θεανδρικὴ ἐνέργεια is a hallmark of the milieu of Eudocia. The wording of "god male" instead of "god man" goes back to Greek poetry, up to Pindarus. However, such terminology as applied to Christ is known, before Dionysius, from one source only, the *Gospel Paraphrase* of Nonnus. This paraphrase never uses the term "God man", but, instead, uses two times the term "God male" applied to Christ.

3. The feast of the Dormition was even more important for Eudocia's milieu than van Esbroeck thought. It was established in Palestine after 438 and, most probably, after 443 and certainly before 449, therefore, about the date when John the Eunuch saw his vision of hierarchies, in about 444. It is very likely that this vision pertained to the first celebration of the Dormition feast in Gethsemane.

4. That the vision of John the Eunuch is, indeed, a Dormition scene is corroborated, among others, by an important fact that both this vision as it is described in the *Life of Peter the Iberian* and Areopagite's account on hierarchies have in their hagiographical substrate the scene of the vision of hierarchies in the *Ascension of Isaias*. Moreover, the scene of John the Eunuch's vision has specific common features with one roughly contemporaneous Dormition tradition (the Coptic tradition of Transitus under the name of Evodius of Rome).

5. The *Life of Peter the Iberian*, despite the fact that its author, John Rufus, places his account of the vision of John the Eunuch out of its biographical context, still preserves the traces of the liturgical localisation of this vision (three days corresponding to the early date of the Dormition feast, from August 7 to 9, and, then, the 30-day period up to another newly established Marian feast on September 8, the Nativity of Theotokos; this early date of the Dormition feast seems to be unknown to John Rufus who was writing more than half a century later).

6. Moreover, I have added some data to the history of the liturgical commemorations of Hierotheos and Dionysius. Already van Esbroeck pointed out that, in the Coptic tradition, the commemoration of Hierotheos on April 16 is inscribed in the Coptic Dormition cycle: it is exactly the middle between the Coptic date of Dormition and deposition (January 16) and the Assumption (August 9). I could add that the dates of the Byzantine tradition, October 3 and 4, are connected to the Byzantine date of Dormition on August 15 (actual, in my evaluation, since about 500, the date of appearance of the pseudonymised *Corpus*) in an analogous manner: October 3 is the fiftieth day after August 15, a kind of Pentecost, given that Dormition is a kind of Easter (indeed, we have some documents attesting to the existence of a tradition of calling the Dormition "Easter"). Moreover, another Palestinian feast, the Presentation of the Theotokos in the Temple on November 21, goes back to the same epoch, *ca* 500. The commemoration of Dionysius on October 3 is the middle point between the Dormition on August 15 and the Presentation on November 21. The Presentation is the second Pentecost after the Dormition.

7. So, my most important conclusion is that we have to look for the author of the Corpus in the milieu connected with ex-Empress Eudocia.

8. It is always probable that such an author is an otherwise unknown person. However, in our case we have to look not for a single man but for a pair of visionary teacher and his cellmate, like Hierotheos and Dionysius. Therefore, the number of possibilities is severely restricted. It is not so likely that the figure of such visionary could pass unnoticed.

9. In the pertinent milieu, we have several reputed visionary teachers, *e.g.*, apart from John the Eunuch, Peter the Iberian himself, Daniel the Stylite, and, probably, even Melania the Younger (who died before the Dormition feast was established, and so, could be excluded, anyway). However, in their hagiographical dossiers we have nothing similar to the vision of hierarchies and to the Dormition scene as it is in the vision of John the Eunuch. Therefore, I think the most natural solution is to accept that it was, indeed, John the Eunuch who had a spiritual experience described in the Platonic terms by the author of the *Urtext* of the *Corpus*, who, in this case, could be only Peter the Iberian.

10. The pseudonymised recension of the *Corpus* that was produced *ca* 500 goes back to the Palestinian monastic milieu close to the monastery established by Peter the Iberian in Maiuma and to the monastery founded by the Cretan émigrés Urbicia and Euphrasius, in Maiuma as well. To this milieu belonged such important figures of anti-Chalcedonism as confessor bishop Eusebius and Severus of Antioch (who was the first referring to the *Corpus* as an authoritative source). To the same milieu go back several liturgical traditions connecting the liturgical commemorations of Dionysius, Peter the Iberian, and some Carpus (considered the second apostle of Crete, together with Titus, and the hero of a story in *Letter* VIII of Dionysius).

I have to acknowledge that my argumentation will be unconvincing for those who take as granted that the author of the *Corpus* was originally a neoplatonic philosopher and direct disciple of the pagan teachers. I would say about this attitude that there are several reasons not to accept it, one of which is methodological: the *Corpus* could be read (and historically, indeed, was read) in a dozen of internally non-contradicting manners, and so, its philosophical and theological reading will be never able to lead to define which of these readings is that of the author. This is why, I think, that we have to start from the definition of the *Sitz im Leben* by other means, including those of philology and critical hagiography.

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THE SYNODICAL LETTER FROM SEVERUS TO JOHN OF ALEXANDRIA

Introduction

Letters are one of the most important sources of the life of Severus of Antioch.[1] Synodical Letters are those written by a patriarch soon after his consecration, conveying the news of his election by the Synod which presided over it. The purpose of these instruments of ecclesial communion was to prove the orthodoxy of the writers. They contain a profession of faith, a statement by the new Patriarch, etc.[2] In his monumental study, J. M. Fiey highlights the importance of the Synodical Letters between the Patriarchs of Alexandria and Antioch especially starting at the time of Severus of Antioch.[3]

After the election of Dioscorus II as new Patriarch, he wrote to Severus and received from him a reply (515–517).[4] It seems that Timothy III[5] (517–535) did not write a Synodical Letter to Severus, since Severus was hiding. However, according to the *History of the Patriarchs*[6] and the *Synaxarium*[7], he welcomed Severus while exiled and escaping

(1) P. Allen and C. T. R. Hayward, *Severus of Antioch* (London—New York, 2004) 4.

(2) P. Allen, *Sophronius of Jerusalem and Seventh-Century Heresy. The Synodical Letter and Other Documents. Introduction, Texts, Translation and Commentary* (Oxford: Oxford University Press 2009) (Oxford Early Christian Texts) 47–48.

(3) J. M. Fiey, Coptes et Syriaques, contacts et échanges, *Studia Orientalia Christiana Collectanea* 15 (1972–1973) 295–366 and esp. 310–316.

(4) E. R. Hardy, Discorus II, in: *Coptic Encyclopedia* 3, 915b.

(5) Idem., Timothy III, in: *Coptic Encyclopedia* 7, 2268a–b; E. W. Brooks, *The Sixth Book of the Select Letters of Severus Patriarch of Antioch*, vol. 2, part 2 (London, 1904) 257–260.

(6) C. F. Seybold, *Severus Ben El-Moqaffa', Historia Patriarcharum Alexandrinorum* I, 1 (Louvain 1962) (CSCO, 52; Scriptores Arabici, 8) 87–89.

(7) I. Forget, *Synaxarium Alexandrinum I* (Louvain: Peeters, 1963) (CSCO, 47, 48, 49; Scriptores Arabici 3, 4, 5) 266.

from one place to another. His successor Theodosius I[8] (535–567) was a disciple of Severus; however, neither the *Synaxarium* nor the *History of the Patriarchs* mention a Synodical Letter to Severus. The Letter of Severus to Theodosius is attested to by several sources.[9]

John II (506–515 AD) 27 Bashans[10]	Severus Patriarch 512–538, exiled in 518AD	Synodical Letter from Severus and a fragment of reply survived
Dioscorus II (515–517) 7 Babah		Synodical Letter from Severus and a quotation in the *Synaxarion* and the *Antiphonarion* (for the reply from Timothy to Severus)
Timothy III (517–535) 13 Amshir		No Synodical Letters survived; Severus was exiled
Theodosius (535–567) exiled 537 28 Baunah	535–567	Synodical Letter from Theodosius to Severus and reply

The Importance of these Letters

Despite the fact that the Synodical Letter is mentioned in the *History of the Patriarchs*[11] as well as in the *Synaxarium*, very few historians have paid enough attention to the patriarchate of John II and his relations with Severus of Antioch.[12] These letters between the two prelates are

(8) E. R. Hardy, Theodosius I, in: *Coptic Encyclopedia* 7, 2241a–b.

(9) E. W. Brooks, *Historia Ecclesiastica, Zacharias Rhetori vulgo adscripta* (Louvain: Peeters, 1953) (CSCO, 88; Syri, 42) liber IX, ch. XXIII, pp. 105–107; I. B. Chabot, *Documenta ad origines monophysitarum illustrandas* (Louvain: Peeters, 1908) (CSCO, 17) 16–22 (text); *Documenta ad origines monophysitarum illustrandas* (Louvain: Peeters, 1963) (CSCO, 103) 9: 11–14: 2 (translation); Youhanna Nessim Youssef, The Quotations of Severus of Antioch in the Book of the *Confessions of the Fathers*, *Ancient Near Eastern Studies* 40 (2003) 178–229.

(10) E. R. Hardy, John III, in: *Coptic Encyclopedia* 4, 1337.

(11) See below.

(12) He is mentioned only a few times in the main reference books, such as J. Maspero, *Histoire des Patriarches d'Alexandrie depuis la mort de l'empereur Anastase jusqu'à la réconciliation des églises Jacobites 518–616* (Paris: Librairie Ancienne Edouard Champion, 1923) (Bibliothèque de l'école des hautes études sciences historiques et philologiques, 237) 72, n. 3; 84, n. 1; 220, n. 2;

very important, as they are the most ancient witnesses known about the correspondence between the ecclesiastical seats.[13] They became therefore the model or the pattern to be followed by the followers of John and Severus.

Historical Context

By the end of the sixth century, Evagrius Scholasticus affirmed the existence of Synodical Letters between Severus of Antioch and John II, the successor of John I, Dioscorus, and Timotheus.

> "He sent (letters) to all the patriarchs, though they were received only at Alexandria, by John, the successor of the former John, and by Dioscorus and Timotheus: which epistles have come down to our time."[14] [The source of Evagrius, for this chapter is not clear].[15]

We have another letter from Severus to John, Patriarch of Alexandria.[16] The first Letter to John II was written while Anastasius, an anti-Chalcedonian[17] Emperor, was reigning.

Severus was succeeded by Flavian of Antioch, who broke communion with John II of Alexandria when the latter denounced Chalcedon;[18] hence it is logical that Severus, wishing to resume this relationship, insisted that his faith was the same as that of the fathers, and rejected the faith of Chalcedon.

W. H. C. Frend, *The Rise of the Monophyite Movement* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press 1972) 83, 193, 216–219.

(13) We have other examples from the seventh century (see Allen, *Sophronius of Jerusalem...*).

(14) Cf. Evagrius Scholasticus, *History of the Church in Six Books, Ecclesiastical History* (London, 1896) 191, ch. IV; M.-A. Kugener, Vie de Sévère par Jean, Supérieur de monastère de Beith Aphthonia, in: *PO* 2/3 (Turnhout: Brepols, 1971) 379.

(15) P. Allen, *Evagrius Scholasticus, the Church Historian* (Louvain: 1981) (Spicilegium Sacrum Lovaniense. Études et Documents, 41) 6–11 and esp. 7.

(16) Cf. E. W. Brooks, *The Sixth Book of the Select Letters of Severus Patriarch of Antioch in Syriac Version of Athanasius of Nisibis* (Oxford: Text and Translation Society, 1903) 98–99.

(17) We will follow P. Allen in using this term rather than the contentious word "monophysite" (cf. Allen, *Sophronius of Jerusalem...*, 4, n. 2).

(18) Frend, *The Rise of the Monophyite Movement...*, 216.

Theological Context

Severus repeated the Creed more or less verbally, and turned to the nature of Christ. This statement is close to the theological statement in the life of Severus on the affairs of Macedonius. The same themes occurred nearly word for word in the Biography of Severus by Athanasius, which had the same purpose of clarifying the faith.

The reply of John II relates to the same issue.

Letter to John II[19]	The affairs of Macedonius
He also said in his Synodical Letter written to saint John, the Patriarch of Alexandria.	
"For us, *we do not come up with a new faith, but in everything we are conservatives as we have said preserving the holy faith which handed down to us by our holy Fathers, and we refuse what had been established by the others in Chalcedon*.	**76** "We believe and confess, *the straight faith of our holy fathers the three hundred and eighteen bishops assembled at Nicaea by the power of the Holy Spirit present with them and who declared it to them. And this was accepted by their successors, our preceding fathers like a holy heritage. And also (those that had been established) by the hundred and fifty assembled, in the city of Constantinople and the two hundred assembled in the first council at Ephesus against the mad Nestorius.* We believe in one *God, the Father* and we confess also the Only *Son of God who was incarnated for our sake. He is One and cannot be divided or separated neither before nor after the incarnation*.
We believe in one God, the Father the Almighty. We believe *also in one Lord, Jesus Christ, begotten from the Father before all ages*, consubstantial with the Father before all ages and in the fullness of time, *He was incarnated by the Holy Spirit and from the ever Virgin, Saint*	

(19) The text here is taken from the book of the Profession of the Fathers (cf. Youhanna Nessim Youssef, The Quotations of Severus of Antioch, 178–229; G. Graf, Zwei dogmatische Florilgien der Kopten, *OCP* 3 (1937) 345–402 and esp. 393.

Mary, the God-bearer. He became man for our sake. We believe in the Holy Spirit, the Eternal, and consubstantial with the Father and the Son.	*We believe in the Holy Spirit*, the Lord, the life-giver by the Lord. (God) is sanctified in Three distinct and perfect hypostases, three equal hypostases without any difference in glory or brightness; one nature, one substance, one lordship, and one confession worship.[20] The faithful should confess thus: We confess that the Father is in the rank * of Fatherhood He is not a Son. The Son is in the rank of Sonship and He is not a Father. The Holy Spirit is a holy spirit that proceeds from the Father. The Son shall not change to Fatherhood nor the Father shall not change to Sonship. Three existing and established hypostases, each has his own personality yet they are united, without separation one divinity, one nature, one action, one authority, one power. There is no slavery or submission in the Trinity and no (one) is inferior to the other nor one is whole and the other has less authority. The honour of the divinity unique is one, Lordship where there is no master and servant but all equal in honour, lordship, One light brightness and splendour. The Father has never been without the Son and the Holy Spirit for a

(20) It seems that there is an error in the Arabic text — it is very hard to understand the passage.

	second or even for the twinkling of an eye, but the Holy Trinity exists without a beginning or an end.
We also confess One Son, our Lord Jesus Christ, *before the incarnation and after the incarnation, the unchangeable and who is beyond impossibility, neither brought the body with Him from Heaven nor being anything else like a ghost or fantasy, but He took flesh, which means He was incarnated and He became man without alteration, for He is the bodiless God the Word, He took a body from our own substance, from the God-bearer, the ever Virgin*. He has a rational soul and became One with it in her womb as the hypostasis. This whom Gabriel, the angel, who had been entrusted with the great mystery, announced it to her, saying: "Hail to you, full of grace, The Lord is with you."[21] *He took flesh with blood, like ours, and became man like us without* sin, He endured the birth of the flesh in order that the flesh might become one with Him. He was conceived and born by the flesh to obliterate the grief of the children's birth and free the human race from the first curse.[22] For this, we say that the holy Virgin, is truly the God-bearer, for God the Word took flesh from her and she had	We should believe in God the Word as having two births one unperceptive birth from the Father, before the ages and the other one in the fullness of the time from the holy Virgin Mary without male intercourse, an incomprehensible and unperceptive birth that only He knows. "The Word became flesh and dwelt among us (Jn 1:14), which we have seen with our eyes and touched with our hands (1 Jn 1:1). The Father did not create Him like the angels or like the Cherubim and the Seraphim, or any one of the ranks, * but He is born from His essence, and His Nature. He is higher than the rulers and all the authorities, and all the lords and all names called in this generation and in the coming one. He is equal to the Father and the Holy Spirit, being in one divinity. Therefore, He said 'the Holy Spirit will take what is mine and declare it to you' (Jn 16:15). The same we saw on the Jordan (river) descending like a dove upon the Incarnated Son. *When God the Word saw that sin has*

(21) Lk 1:28.

(22) Gn 4:16.

conceived and brought Him forth. One Person of two: Divinity and Humanity, as the true saying. We confess the Unique Emmanuel as One Lord, One Christ, God the Word became flesh.	*increased greatly, He descended from the heaven and came to the womb of the Virgin Mary. He took flesh*[23] *from her, by an imperceptible and incomprehensible mystery. He dwelt in her womb for nine months and He created for Himself a body from her. The Father was not in the womb of the Virgin*, so that, no one can, neither say that the Father passes from fatherhood to sonship, nor the Son passes from sonship to fatherhood, and also the Holy Spirit cannot pass to fatherhood or to sonship. But there is one will and one wish in the Holy Trinity, so no one will dare estrange Him from the divinity. But He is the only one who took flesh *and endured undoubtedly*[24] *the sufferings. He did not descend from heaven with a body, but He took it from the Virgin Mary, the Mother of God*, * without human intercourse. It was not a phantom birth but really a natural one. This is our faith, and what we believe that He is God and He is Man in an indescribable union. He, Emmanuel, ate and drank what was offered to Him. He ascended to the cross by His own will to offer an acceptable pure sacrifice to His Father. His hands and feet were nailed to the cross, and he was pierced by a

(23) A and P omit "flesh" which occurs in Ethiopic version. The word "flesh" occurs in the parallel part, quoted in the History of the Patriarchs (cf. Yassa Abd Al-Masîh and O. H. E. Burmester, *History of the Patriarchs of the Egyptian Church*, vol. 2, part 3 (Le Caire, 1959) (Textes et Documents, 3) 238 (text), 379 (translation) and the *Book of the Confessions of the Fathers*).

(24) Cf. § 48. This means that He suffered the passion really and not as a fiction.

	spear, He (who is) God, for He is one, not two. He who is by His nature immortal, He accepted death by His own will. The immortal and the mortal had been united in one person. Blood and water came out from His side (cf. Jn 19:34) as the economy of the holy mysteries. Someone might say; it is only the humanity that was made to suffer and it was separated from the divinity — God forbade — but undoubtedly the divinity accepted[25] the sufferings of the body, for they are united with a singleness in everything. One nature and not two separated natures; whatever the Word had performed was by one single economy without separation from his humanity, either in the deeds that is exclusively Divine or that which is purely human. Do not go astray like Qndyānūs[26] and the rest of the opponents who said impiously that the divinity was separated from the humanity at the time of crucifixion. By saying this, those apostates indicated that God had feared from what was to befall on the humanity so He was separated from it and left it on its own. Thus is their blasphemous statement * and their false wisdom as well as their insolence and their blasphemy towards God."

(25) Cf. §48.

(26) A reads "Mndnāyūs, the Ethiopic version has "Cyprian" Cf. infra §66 "Odnāyūs, §75 Fndyānūs. This name is disfigured and it is hard to identify.

Commentary

1. Although the Synodical Letters between Severus of Antioch and the Coptic prelates are very well attested to, our text seems to be the unique witness of this letter. The corpus of letters of Severus did not survive, only the sixth book of his letters is known.[27] It seems that a Corpus of the letters of Severus had existed in Coptic and was translated to Arabic.

2. It is known that John II demanded from Timothy of Constantinople (511–518) the formal condemnation of Chalcedon as a prerequisite for ecclesiastical communion.[28]

3. As we can see the Synodical Letter, which could be dated to 512 AD has many similarities with the Letter sent by Severus to Anastasius regarding the faith of Macedonius. However the Synodical Letter is more concise than the Letter concerning the faith of Macedonius. It is safe to say that this quotation from the Life of Severus reflects well his theological thoughts.

4. This Synodical Letter is mentioned in *The History of the Patriarchs*. Most of the biographical section of Severus, *i.e*. Biography 30–42, is attributed to George the Archdeacon of Alexandria:[29]

واظهر الله في ايامه امرا عجيبا واقام مملكة وكهنوت معا للبيعة وهو الملك انسطاسيوس المؤمن النقي والبطرك ساويرس الفاضل اللابس النور صاحب كرسي انطاكية الذي صار قرن خلاص للبيعة الارتدكسية الذي جلس على كرسي الكبير اغناطيوس وكتب سنوديقا الى الاب يوحنا بالاتحاد في الامانة ويبشر بالاتفاق بينهما بالامانة الواحدة الارتدكسية التي اللآباء القديسين... كتب يوحنا البطرك القديس الى الكبير ساويرس جوابها بكلام قانوني مملوءا من الامانة المستقيمة التي لمعلمي البيعة كما كتب اليه المغبوط ساويرس

"And God showed forth in his days a wonderful thing, and raised up royalty and priesthood together for the Church, in the persons of the prince Anastasius, the pure believer, and the excellent patriarch Severus, clothed with spirit, occupant of the see of

(27) See above.

(28) O. C. Dean (trans.), A. Grillmeier and T. Hainthaler, *Christ in Christian Tradition*, vol. 2, part 4 (London: Mowbay 1996) 41.

(29) For the sources of this part, see J. Den Heijer, *Mawhub ibn Mansur ibn Mufarrig et l'historiographie Copto-Arabe,* (Louvain: Peeters, 1989) (CSCO, 513) 142–143.

Antioch, who became a horn of salvation to the orthodox Church, and who sat upon the throne of the great Ignatius. And he (Severus) wrote a Synodical Letter to Father John, the Patriarch, concerning the unity of the faith, wherein he announced the agreement between them in the one orthodox creed of the holy fathers... And John, the holy patriarch wrote to the great Severus an answer to his letter in canonical language full of the orthodox faith, which is that of the doctors of the Church, as the blessed Severus[30] had written to him."[31]

In the biography of Severus, the author insisted on enumeration of ecumenical councils accepted.

5. The *Synaxarium* of the Coptic Church[32] repeats what is written in *The History of the Patriarchs,* we read for the commemoration of John II on 27 Bashans:

فكتب الاب ساويرس سنوديقا الى هذا الاب يوحنا بالاتحاد في الامانة يصف له فيها ان المسيح الهنا من بعد الاتحاد طبيعة واحدة مشيئة واحدة من غير افتراق وانه يؤمن بأمانة الأب كيرلس والأب ديسقورس.

"So the father Severus wrote a Synodical (Letter) to this father John concerning the unity of faith and wherein he described Christ our God, after the union became one nature without separation and he believed in the faith of father Cyril and father Dioscorus."[33]

(30) Apparently different than that which we have (cf. Brooks, *The Sixth Book of the Select Letters...*, 98–99).

(31) B. Evetts, History of the Patriarchs of the Coptic Church of Alexandria, in: *PO* 1/4 (Paris: Firmin-Didot, 1947) 449–450 [185–186]. C. F. Seybold, *Severus Ben El-Moqaffa' Historia Patriarcharum Alexandrinorum* I, 1 (Louvain: Peeters, 1962) (CSCO, 52; Scriptores Arabici, 8) 86–87.

(32) For the Synaxarium, see J. M. Sauget, *Premières recherches sur l'origine et les caractéristiques des Synaxaires Melkites* (Bruxelles: Société des Bollandistes, 1969) (SH, 45); R. G. Coquin, Le synaxaire des Coptes: un nouveau témoin de la recension de Haute Egypte, *AB* 96 (1978) 351–365; idem, Quelle est la date possible de la recension de Basse Egypte du Synaxaire des Coptes, in: *Etudes Coptes IV, Cahiers de la Bibliothèque Copte 8* (Louvain: Peeters, 1994) 10–16; G. Colin, Le Synaxaire Ethiopien, Etat actuel de la question, *AB* 106 (1988) 273–317.

(33) Forget, *Synaxarium Alexandrinum II* (Louvain, 1954) (CSCO, 67; Scriptores Arabici 11) 141.

ثم كتب به الاب انبا يوحنا جواب الرسالة بالفاظ مملوءة من نعمة الايمان شاهدة بواحدانية جوهر الله وتثليث خواصه وبتجسد الابن الازلي بالطبيعة البشرية وصيرورتهما بالاتحاد واحد لا اثنين ومبعدا كل من يفرق المسيح أو يمزج طبيعته ولكلمن يقول ان المتالم المصلوب المائت عن البشر انسانا ساذجا او يدخل بالام والموت على طبيعة اللاهوت وبل الايمان المستقيم هو أن نعترف أن الله الكلمة تألم عنا بالجسد الذي خذه منا وهذه هي الطرق الملوكية التي لا يضل ولا يعثر من سلك فيها

"Then father John wrote a reply to the letter using words full of the grace of faith and testifying the unity of substance of God and the Trinity of His Hypostases and the incarnation of the Eternal Son in the human nature and by union it became one not two. He excommunicated all whoever separated Christ or mixing His nature and all who said that that who suffered and was crucified, dying for the human kind was a simple man, or whoever entered the passion and death to the divine nature. But the straight faith is to confess that God the Word suffered for us in flesh, which he took from us. These are the royal paths, which whoever followed would not go astray or be scandalized."[34]

In the quotation of the *Profession of the Fathers*, we find in his Synodical Letter to John II, Severus is clearly mentioned:

"we refuse what had been established by the others in Chalcedon"

6. Nothing is known about the literary activity of John II in order to compare with the quotation in the Synaxarium, however the *Antiphonarion*, (Difnar)[35] of this Patriarch makes allusion to teaching for his flock. It is not sure whether this is a stereotype text or the author of this had came across a text attributed to him.

7. Hence our unique witness of the reply of John II is only the quotation of the *Synaxarium*. The topic treated in the reply of John II corresponds exactly to the Synodical Letter of Severus, i. e.:

(34) I. Forget, *Synaxarium Alexandrinum II* (Louvain, 1954) (CSCO, 67. Scriptores Arabici, 11) 141–142.

(35) Cf. Gawdat Gabra, Untersuchungen zum Difnar der koptischen Kirche. I Quellenlage, Forschungsgeschichichte und künftige Aufgaben, *Bulletin de la Société d'Archéologie Copte* 35 (1996) 37–54; idem., Untersuchungen zum Difnar der koptischen Kirche. II zur Kompilation, *Bulletin de la Société d'Archéologie Copte* 37 (1998) 49–68; De Lacy O'Leary, *The Difnar (Antiphonarium) of the Coptic Church*, vol. 3 (London, 1928) 11–12, جبرائيل الانبا بيشوي، كتاب الدفنار الجزء الثاني، مارس 1984 صـــ 184.

The Unity of God and the trinity of His Hypostases;

The incarnation of the Eternal Son and His unique Nature without separation or mixing;

The Divinity of the Crucified and passion of God the Word incarnated with a flesh like us.

Lost Parts

Our text survives in a theological book of the Coptic Church; therefore, other parts of the letters were intentionally omitted. We may assume that the beginning of the text, which contains a greeting did not survive, and also the conclusion. We do not know the length of these parts but by comparison, in the letter from Severus to Dioscorus archbishop of Alexandria, we find about 25 lines of greetings and introduction to the theological part, we find also four Biblical quotations, two Patristric quotations of which one was from Timothy and one from Saint Basil, which are absent from our text. It is hard to guess that there were other theological parts not included in our quotation.

Conclusions

1. The Synodical Letter of Severus of Antioch to John II is the first Synodical Letter known to us. It is only attested to in the Arabic text of the book of the *Profession of the Fathers.*

2. It became the model to follow in all Synodical Letters between Antioch and Alexandria.

3. It corresponds to the Letter sent by Severus to Anastasius the Emperor concerning the faith as mentioned in the biography of Severus by Athanasius.

4. The *Synaxarium* provides a quotation of the reply of John II to Severus where we find the main points treated in the Synodical Letter of Severus.

5. This study shows once more the importance of compiling the data concerning Severus of Antioch in all languages.

6. This study provides us with a supplementary source of the Life of Severus attributed to Athanasius.[36]

(36) A. Delattre, Une allusion à la *République* de Platon dans la version Copte de la *Vie de Sévère d'Antioche* attribuée à Athanase, *L'Antiquité Classique* 86 (2007) 189–193.

Appendix 1

76 نومن ونعترف بالامانة المستقيمة امانة ابائنا القديسين الثلثماية وثمانية عشر المجتمعين بنيقية بقوة روح القدس الحاضر معهم الذي اظهر لهم ذلك وهو * الذي قبله خلفاهم مقدمينا في ميراثهم المقدس وايضا المايه وخمسين الاباء المجتمعين بقسطنطينية المدينة المايتين الذين اجتمعوا بافسس في المجمع الاول الذي كان على نسطور المجنون نومن بالله الواحد الاب ونعترف بابن الله الوحيد الذي تجسد ⌜من اجلنا انه لا ينقسم ولا يفترق هو قبل تجسده واحد وهو ايضا واحد بعد تجسده ونومن بروح القدس الرب المحي بالرب يتقدس ثلثة اقانيم ثابتة كاملة * ثلثة اقانيم متساوية غير مختلفة في المجد ولا في الضيا طبيعة واحدة جوهر واحد ربوبية واحدة سجدة اعتراف واحد هكذا يجب ان يكون اعتراف المومن نعترف ان الاب في طقس الابوية وليس هو ابن والابن في طقس البنوة وليس هو اب والروح القدس روح قدس منبثق من الاب فلابن لاينتقل الى الابوية ولا الاب الى البنوة ثلاثة اقانيم موجودة ثابتة كل منها بشخصه مرتبطة متحدة بغير افتراق بلاهوتية واحدة طبيعة واحدة فعل واحد سلطان واحد * قوة واحدة ما في الثالوث عبودية ولا خضوع ولا ينقص واحد عن واحد ولا واحد تام واخر دونه في سلطانه بل رتبة اللاهوتية رتبة واحدة ربوبية واحدة ليس فيها خادم ومخدوم بل متساوية في الكرامة * والربوبية وبها النور وضيا واحد لم يكن الاب لحظة ولا طرفة عين بلا ابن ولا روح القدس بل الثالوث المقدسة موجود بلا ابتدا ولا نهاية ويجب لنا ان نومن بالله الكلمة ان له ولادتي ولادة من الاب قبل كل الدهور غير مدروكة وولادة في اخر الازمان من مريم العذرى بغير مضاجعة بشر دقيق لا يدرك ولا يفحص ولا يعرفه الا هو.

وقال ايضا في رسالة سنوديقن منه يكتب الي القديس يوحنا بطريرك الاسكندريه اما نحن فانا لا ناتي بامانة جديدة بل نتأرب في كل شي كما قلنا نحفظ الامانة الجليلة التي سلمها الينا اباونا الاطهار **ونرفض ما قرره غيرهم في خلقدون** ونومن بالاله واحد الاب ضابط الكل ونومن هكذا برب واحد يسوع المسيح المولود من الاب قبل كل الدهور المساوي للاب قبل كل الازمان وفي اخر الايام تجسد من الروح القدس ومن مريم العدرى فى كل حين والدة الاله المقدسة وصار انسانا لاجلنا ونومن بالروح القدس الدايم المساوي مع الاب والابن ونعترف ايضاً بابن واحد سيدنا يسوع المسيح من قبل ان يتجسد ومن بعد ايضاً وهذا الغير متغير ولا مستحيل لم يات بالجسد معه من السما ولا من شي اخر كخيال او فنطسة بل صار جسداً اى انه تجسد وصار انسانا من غير استحالة وهو الاله الكلمة

77 والكلمة صار جسداً وسكن فينا وراته اعيننا وجسته ايدينا ليس الاب خلقه مثل الملايكة ولا مثل الكاروبيم والساروفيم ولا واحد من المراتب بل هو مولود من جوهره وطبيعته هو ارفع من الروساء وكل السلاطين ومن كل الارباب ومن كل اسم يعرف في هذا الزمان وفي الاتي هو مساوي الاب والروح القدس موجود في * لاهوتية * واحدة لاجل هذا قال ان روح القدس ياخذ مما لي ويخبركم هذا الذي راينا اياه على الاردن ونزوله على الابن المتجسد مثل الحمامة لما راى الاله الكلمة ان الخطية قد تعاظمت نزل من السماء وصار في بطن العذرى مريم واخذ منها جسدا بالسر العظيم الذي لا يفحص ولا يدرك ومكث في بطنها تسعة اشهر وصنع هو له جسد منها ليس الاب الذي كان في بطن العذرى ليلا يقول انسان ان الاب ينتقل من الابوية الى البنوة ولا ان الابن ينتقل من البنوة الى الابوية وذلك الروح القدس لا ينتقل الى الابوية ولا البنوة بل مشية واحدة وارادة للثالوث المقدس ليلا يجسر احد فيجعله غريب من اللاهوت بل هو وحده الذي تجسد كما اراد وصبر على الالام التي لا شك فيها * ولم يات بجسده معه من السماء بل اخذه من مريم العذرى والدة الاله بغير مضاجعة بشر ليس ولادة خيال بل بالحقيقة طبيعية وهذه امانتنا الذي نومن بها هو الله هو الانسان باتحاد لا يوصف * لانه عمانويل اكل وشرب ما قدم له حمل ايضا على الصليب بارادته ليكون قرباناً نقياً للاب سمرت يداه ورجلاه وطعن بحربة هو الله وانه احد وليس اثنين الذي لا يموت بطبيعته قبل الموت بارادته الذي لا يموت مع الميت شخص واحد هو خرج من جنبه ماء ودم تدبير للسرائر المقدسة ليس هو للناسوت فقط فعل بها هذا ليلا يقول انسان انها افترقت من اللاهوت معاذ الله بل اللاهوت قبل الالام للجسد بلا شك لانه بوحدانية في كلما صنعه طبع واحد * لا طبيعتين متفردين وجميع ما صنعه الكلمة

الغير جسد قبل جسد من جوهرنا الواحد من مريم والدة الاله العدرى القديسة فى كل زمان وله نفس عاقلة وصيره واحد معه فى احشاها كالاقنوم هذا الذى بشر العدرى به جبراييل الملاك الذى اوتمن على السر العظيم قايلا لها السلام لك ايتها الممتلية نعمة الرب معك اخذ جسد بدم ولحم مثلنا وصار انسانا كشبهنا ماخلا الخطية وصبر للولادة بالجسد ليصير الجسد واحد معه معاً حبل به وولد بالجسد ليزيل الحزن الذي لولادة الابناء ويعتق جنس البشر من اللعنة الاوله ولاجل هذا نقول ان العذرى المقدسة والدة الاله بالحقيقة لان الله الكلمة تجسد منها وحبلت به وولدته هو شخص واحد من اتنين لاهوت وناسوت كقول الحق ونعترف بعمانويل انه الوحيد رب واحد مسيح واحد الله الكلمة صار جسداً.

في تدبيره بلا افتراق من ناسوته لا في القوات التي تليق باللاهوت ولا في الالام التى تليق بالناسوت اياكم تضلوا مثل قنديانوس وبقية المخالفين الذين يقولوا بنفاق ان اللاهوت انعزل عن الناسوت في وقت الصلبوت هذا يقولوه اوليك الكفرة يوجدونا ان الله خاف مما ينال الناسوت فانعزل عنه وتركه هذا قولهم بكفرهم وحكمتهم الكاذبة وشتمهم لله وتجديفهم عليه. **78** لا يحل بنا نحن هذا ان يجدف على ملك بل نومن الغير متجسد تجسد * والذي ليس له دم اتحد من دم العذرى مثل طفل والغير متالم قبل الالام في جسده كما قال الحكيم بولس انه شبه اخوته في كل شي ما خلا الخطية لينقذ من كان في سلطان * الموت في ذلك الزمان العظيم بموته خلصنا وبتدبيره نجانا.	

Appendix 2

The *Antiphonarion*[37] of the Coptic Church for 17 Babah, the commemoration of Dioscorus II, mentions also the Synodical Letter to Severus of Antioch[38]

ⲁⲗⲏⲑⲱⲥ ϯⲛⲁⲉⲣⲧⲟⲗⲙⲁⲛ ⲉⲥⲁⲭⲓ ⲙⲉⲛ ⲡⲁⲗⲗⲁⲥ ⲉⲑⲏⲉⲩ ⲏⲥⲱⲕ ⲉⲑⲃⲉ ⲡⲓⲣⲱⲙⲓ ⲏⲧⲉ ⲫϯ ⲛⲉⲛⲓⲱⲧ ⲁⲃⲃⲁ ⲇⲓⲟⲥⲕⲟⲣⲟⲥ	I *truly* will *dare* to speak, with my tongue full of abomination, about this man of God, our father Abba Dioscorus
ⲡⲓⲙⲓⲱϯ ⲏⲁⲣⲭⲏⲉⲣⲉⲩⲥ ⲏϯⲡⲟⲗⲓⲥ ⲁⲗⲉⲝⲁⲛⲇⲣⲓⲁ ⲉⲧⲁϥϩⲉⲙⲥⲓ ϩⲓⲭⲉⲛ ⲡⲓⲑⲣⲟⲛⲟⲥ ⲛⲉⲛⲉⲛⲥⲁ ⲁⲃⲃⲁ ⲓⲱⲁⲛⲛⲏⲥ	The great *high priest* of the *city* Alexandria, when he sat on the *throne* after Abba John
ⲡⲁⲓⲣⲱⲙⲓ ⲛⲉ ⲟⲩⲉⲡⲓⲥⲕⲟⲡⲟⲥ ⲟⲩⲟϩ ⲏⲣⲉⲙⲣⲁⲩϣ ⲉⲛⲁϣⲱ ⲟⲩⲙⲓⲱϯ ⲏⲛⲁⲓⲁⲥⲕⲁⲗⲟⲥ ⲙⲉⲛ ⲧⲉϥϩⲱⲃ ⲛⲉⲙ ⲧⲉϥⲥⲟⲫⲓⲁ	This man being a *bishop*, very humble and great *Master* in his work and his *wisdom*

(37) For the *Antiphonarion* see Gawdat, Untersuchungen zum Difnar I, 37–52; idem, Untersuchungen zum Difnar II, 49–68.

(38) O'Leary, *The Difnar (Antiphonarium) of the Coptic Church*, vol. 1 (London, 1926) 38–39.

ⲟⲩⲧⲉⲗⲓⲟⲥ ϩⲉⲛ ⲡⲉⲕⲅⲉⲛⲉⲁ ⲙⲙⲟⲛ ⲫⲛⲉⲧⲟⲙⲓ ⲙⲙⲟⲩ ⲁⲩⲥⲱⲧⲡ ⲙⲙⲟⲩ ⲛⲥⲉ ⲡⲓⲡⲛ̄ⲁ ⲉ̄ⲑ̄ⲩ̄ ⲉⲑⲣⲉⲕϣⲁⲡⲓ ⲛⲁⲣⲭⲓⲉⲣⲉⲩⲥ	A *perfect* in his *generation*, no body resembled to him, the Holy *Spirit* chose him in order to become *high priest*
ⲁⲩⲉⲣϩⲏⲧⲥ ⲟⲩⲟϩ ⲁⲩⲥϩⲁⲓ ⲛⲟⲩⲥⲩⲛⲟⲇⲓⲕⲁ ⲛⲥⲧⲟⲗⲏ[39] ⲁⲩⲟⲩⲟⲣⲡⲥ ϣⲁ ⲥⲉⲩⲏⲣⲟⲥ ⲡⲓⲡⲁⲧⲣⲓⲁⲣⲭⲏⲥ ⲉⲑⲟⲩⲁⲃ	He (Disocorus) started and wrote a *synodical letter*. He sent it to Severus the holy *patriarch*
ⲉⲧⲟⲩⲱⲛϩ ⲛⲁⲩ ⲉⲃⲟⲗ ⲛϩⲏⲧⲥ ⲛⲫⲛⲉⲩⲓ ⲛ̀ⲧⲑⲣⲓⲁⲥ ⲉ̄ⲑ̄ⲩ̄ ⲉⲥⲟⲓ ⲛⲟⲩⲙⲟⲩⲟⲥⲓⲟⲥ ϩⲉⲛ ⲧⲟⲥⲓⲁ ⲙⲉⲛ ⲧⲙⲉⲑⲙⲟⲩⲧ	Wherein he revealed to him the thought of the holy *Trinity* being *equal* in *substance* and divinity
ⲓⲧⲁ ⲁⲩⲥⲁϫⲓ ⲛϩⲏⲧⲥ ϩⲉⲛ ⲡⲓϫⲓⲛⲇⲓⲥⲁⲣⲝ ⲛ̀ⲡϣⲏⲣⲓ ⲙ̀ⲫⲧ ⲁⲩϩⲟⲧⲡ ⲙⲉⲙ ⲟⲩⲥⲁⲣⲝ ⲛ̀ⲣⲱⲙⲓ	*Then* he spoke in it about the *incarnation* of the Son of God joining to the human *flesh*
ⲉⲩϫⲛⲕ ⲉⲃⲟⲗ ϩⲉⲛ ⲣⲏⲧ ⲛⲓⲃⲉⲛ ϩⲉⲛ ⲟⲩⲧⲩⲭⲏ ⲛⲗⲟⲅⲓⲕⲟⲛ ⲉⲩⲟⲓ ⲛⲟⲩⲙⲟⲟⲩⲥⲓⲟⲥ ⲙⲉⲙⲁⲛ ϫⲱⲣⲓⲥ ⲛⲟⲃⲓ ⲙⲙⲁⲩⲁⲧⲥ	Perfect in every aspect with a *rational soul* being *equal* to us *except* only sin
ⲉⲧⲁⲩⲱϣ ⲛ̀ⲧⲉⲡⲓⲥⲧⲟⲗⲏ ⲉϫⲉⲛ ⲡⲓⲗⲁⲟⲥ ϩⲉⲛ ⲁⲛⲇⲓⲟϫⲓⲁ ⲁⲩⲣⲁϣⲓ ⲛ̀ϩⲉ ⲡⲓⲡⲁⲧⲣⲓⲁⲣⲭⲏⲥ ⲓⲧⲁ ⲁⲩⲧⲁⲙⲟⲩ ⲉⲩϫⲱ ⲙⲙⲟⲥ	When he read the *epistle* to the *people* in Antioch, the *patriarch* rejoiced *then* he informed him saying:
ϫⲉ ⲙ̀ⲡⲉⲣⲣⲓⲕⲓ ϩⲓϫⲉⲛ ⲡⲓⲛⲁϩⲧ ⲛⲟⲩⲙⲁⲛ ⲟⲩⲇⲉ ϫⲏⲇⲓ[40] ϫⲉ ⲫⲁⲓ ⲡⲉ ⲡⲓⲛⲁϩⲧ ⲛ̀ⲧⲉ ⲛⲉⲛⲓⲟⲧ ⲉⲧⲁⲩⲑⲱⲟⲩⲧ ϩⲉⲛ ⲛⲓⲕⲉⲁ	"Do not bend upon the faith right or left for this is the faith of our fathers who assembled in Nicaea"
ⲁⲩⲥϩⲁⲓ ⲛⲁⲩ ⲛⲟⲩⲉⲡⲓⲥⲧⲟⲗⲏ ⲁⲩⲥϩⲁⲓ ⲙⲙⲟⲥ ⲙⲡⲁⲓⲧⲩⲡⲟⲥ ⲁⲩⲱϣ ϩⲓϫⲉⲛ ⲧⲕⲁⲑⲉⲇⲣⲁ ⲁ ⲛⲓⲡⲓⲥⲧⲟⲥ ⲣⲁϣⲓ ⲉⲃⲏⲧⲥ	He wrote to him a *letter*, he wrote it in the same *manner*, he read on the *Cathedra*, the *faithful* rejoiced because of it
ⲉⲧⲁⲩϫⲱⲕ ⲉⲃⲟⲗ ⲙⲡⲉⲩϣⲉⲛϣⲓ ϩⲉⲛ ⲧⲙⲉⲧⲁⲣⲭⲏⲣⲉⲩⲥ ⲁⲩⲙⲧⲟⲛ ⲙⲙⲟⲩ ϩⲉⲛ ⲟⲩϩⲓⲣⲏⲛⲏ ⲁⲩϣⲉⲛⲁⲩ ϣⲁ ⲓ̄ⲏ̄ⲥ̄ ⲡ̄ⲭ̄ⲥ̄	When he accomplished his service in the *high priesthood* he rested in *peace*, he went to Jesus *Christ*
ⲧⲱⲃϩ ⲙⲡⲛ̄ⲁ̄ⲥ̄ ⲉϩⲣⲏⲓ ⲉϫⲱⲛ	Pray for us

(39) Read ⲙ̀ⲛⲉⲡⲓⲥⲧⲟⲗⲏ

(40) Read ϫⲁⲗⲓ

The commemoration of Timothy II, on 13 Amshir contains only a few words about Severus

ⲅⲉⲛ ⲡⲁⲓⲉϩⲟⲟⲩ ⲉⲑⲟⲩⲁⲃ ⲁⲫⲏⲧⲟⲛ ⲛⲏⲟⲩ ⲛⲓⲭⲉ ⲡⲉⲛⲓⲱⲧ ⲡⲓⲡⲁⲧⲣⲓⲁⲣⲭⲏⲥ ⲉⲑⲟⲩⲁⲃ ⲡⲁⲡⲁ ⲁⲃⲃⲁ ⲧⲓⲙⲟⲑⲉⲟⲥ	In this holy day our father the holy *patriarch* papa abba Timothy rested
ⲡⲁⲓⲣⲱⲙⲓ ⲙⲙⲁⲕⲁⲣⲓⲟⲥ ⲁⲫⲭⲓⲙⲓ ⲛϩⲁⲛⲇⲓⲱⲅⲙⲟⲥ ⲛⲉⲙ ϩⲁⲛⲛⲓⲱϯ ⲛϩⲟⲭϩⲉⲭ ⲉⲭⲉⲛ ⲡⲓⲛⲁϩϯ ⲉⲧⲥⲟⲩⲧⲱⲛ	This *blessed* man found *persecutions*, and great sufferings for the straight faith
ⲡⲁⲫⲧⲁⲝⲣⲟ ⲙⲙⲓⲡⲓⲥⲧⲟⲥ ⲛⲉⲙ ⲥⲉⲩⲏⲣⲟⲥ ⲡⲓⲡⲁⲧⲣⲓⲁⲣⲭⲏⲥ ⲉⲧⲫⲓ ⲉⲃⲣⲏⲓ ⲉϫⲏⲙⲓ ⲛⲁⲫⲟⲱⲓ ⲉⲃⲟⲗ ⲅⲉⲛ ⲟⲩⲛⲉⲙⲁ[41]	He was strengthening the *faithful* with Severus the *Patriarch* who came to Egypt and he walked from one place to another
ⲁⲫⲭⲱⲕ ⲉⲃⲟⲗ ⲙⲡⲉⲫⲇⲣⲟⲛⲟⲥ ⲁⲫⲏⲧⲟⲛ ⲙⲙⲟⲩ ⲅⲉⲛ ⲟⲩϩⲓⲣⲏⲛⲏ ⲁⲫϩⲉⲙⲥⲓ ϩⲓⲝⲉⲛ ⲡⲑⲣⲟⲛⲟⲥ ⲙ̄ⲍ̄ ⲛⲣⲟⲙⲡⲓ ⲛϫⲣⲟⲛⲟⲥ	he accomplished his *course*, he rested in *peace*, he sat on the *throne* for 17 years
ⲧⲱⲃϩ ⲙⲡ̄ⲥ̄ⲥ̄ ⲉϩⲣⲏⲓ ⲉϫⲱⲛ	Pray for us

SUMMARY

Excellent relations between Alexandria and Antioch after the Council of Chalcedon are reflected by the exchange of Synodical Letters between both prelates. In this paper, we will highlight the Coptic Patriarchs with whom Severus of Antioch exchanged Synodical Letters. In addition, we will study his Synodical Letter to John Nicaiotes, which survives only in an Arabic translation in the book of the *Profession of the Fathers.* We will compare the biography of Severus of Antioch attributed to Athanasius, and will mention what is known about the reply of John to Severus.

(41) Read ⲅⲉⲛ ⲟⲩⲛⲁ ⲉⲟⲩⲛⲁ

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CONSTRUCTING THE UNDERGROUND COMMUNITY: THE LETTERS OF THEODORE THE STUDITE AND THE LETTER OF EMPERORS MICHAEL II AND THEOPHILOS TO LOUIS THE PIOUS

The Letter of the Iconoclastic Emperors Michael II and Theophilos to Louis the Pious[1] (dated to 824) contains a list of offences that were allegedly committed by the Iconodules against what they considered the right practices of the Church. Their list includes the substitution of images in churches for crosses, taking images as godparents, using images to perform the cutting of children's hair and monastic habit, scraping paint of images to be added to the Eucharist or distributing the Eucharistic bread from the hands of images, as well as using panel images as altars for serving the Liturgy in ordinary houses and churches.[2] Of course, these might have been easily treated as fiction and pro-

(1) Emperor Theophilus (b. 812/813) was crowned co-Emperor in 821 by his Father Michael II (820–829), and this is why his name appears on the Letter. However, since in 824 he was only a 12-year old boy, for the Letter I will use the short title "Letter of Michael II."

(2) The Letter is preserved in the MGH, Leg. Sect. III, *Concilia*, tomus II, pars 2, *Concilia aevi Karolini* I (Hannover—Leipzig, 1908, repr. 1979) 475–480; Mansi, XIV, 417–422; the pertinent passage is translated in C. Mango, *The Art of the Byzantine Empire 312–1453: Sources and Documents* (Toronto: University of Toronto Press, 1986) 157–158. On the historical context of the Letter, see: T. Noble, *Images, Iconoclasm, and the Carolingians* (Philadelphia, PA: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2009) 260–263. The contents of the Letter are analyzed in C. Sode, Der Brief der Kaiser Michael II und Theophilos an Ludwig den Frommen, in: L. Hoffmann (hrsg.), *Zwischen Polis, Provinz und Peripherie. Beiträge zur byzantinischen Geschichte und Kultur, Festschrift für Günther Prinzing* (Wiesbaden: Harrassowitz Verlag, 2005) 138–154, esp. 148–150, where the author concludes that the Letter, in fact, does not reflect Byzantine practices and was later interpolated as a part of the collection (p. 158).

paganda used for political victory in an informational war that is too familiar to any person of our time. Yet we have several independent corroborations as to the validity of the charges from the Letter, coming from standing monuments of Iconodules themselves. This includes evidence testifying to the actual replacement of images by crosses in the apses of several Byzantine churches, and a corroboration of the charge of using an icon as a Godfather in an ardently Iconophile source — a letter of the Iconodulic champion and confessor Theodore the Studite. In a Letter to John the Spatharios he praises the addressee for his decision to take the icon of St. Demetrios as a godparent of his child:

> We have heard that your lordship had done a divine deed and we have marveled at your truly great faith, O man of God. For my informer tells me that in performing the baptism of your God-granted child, you had recourse to a holy image of the great martyr Demetrius instead of a godfather. How great is your confidence! "I have not found so great faith, no, not in Israel" — this, I believe Christ to have said not only at that time to the centurion, but even now to you who are of equal faith. The centurion found what he sought; you, too, have won what you trusted in. In the Gospel the divine command took the place of bodily presence, while here the bodily image took the place of its model; there the great Logos was present in His word and invisibly wrought his incredible miracle through His divinity, while here the great martyr was spiritually present in his own image and so received the infant. These things, being incredible, are unacceptable to profane ears and unbelieving souls, and especially to the iconoclasts; but to your piety clear signs and token have been revealed.[3]

If, then, two of the charges are actually true, maybe the rest are also true, and the Iconodules were merely fanatics sacrificing any rationality for the sake of their cause, and the Iconoclasts only tried to put an end to excesses of the icon cult, in their zeal, perhaps, sometimes pushing it too hard?

The idea of the "excessive Iconodulia" as a reason for the emergence of Iconoclasm has entered in nearly all standard literature on the period to the extent that even authors with a clearly defined Ortho-

(3) G. Fatouros (hrsg.), *Theodori Studitae Epistulae*, B. 2 (Berlin: Walter de Gruyter, 1992) (CFHB, 31) 17, 1–16 [hereafter Fatouros, letter no., line]); trans. C. Mango, *The Art of the Byzantine Empire 312–1453: Sources and Documents* (Toronto: University of Toronto Press, 1986) 174–175.

dox agenda are forced to take an apologetic stance.[4] However, it seems to be a methodological mistake to perceive Iconodules in a generic fundamentalist way as customarily performing all the above, causing a justified and enlightened response in the form of the Iconoclastic reform. In other words, we should not treat all the accusations as a "package deal," and need to consider all the charges one-by-one trying to put them, if possible, in their historical setting. This study will try to demonstrate that the Iconodulic practices revealed in the Letter of Michael II can reflect the situation of an underground Iconodulic movement that emerged under the second Iconoclasm and attempted to provide at least some kind of religious life in the absence of churches and clergy, defiled by the Iconoclasts. This movement was organized and managed by way of systematic letters and personal envoys from exiled Iconodulic leaders, which provided a communication network through which the spiritual and religious guidance was ensured between the underground, exiled, and escaped Iconodules. In this article, the charges in the Letter of Michael II will be examined within the wider context of the Corpus of Letters, written by the exiled Theodore the Studite both at the time of the Moechian schism and the following outbreak of the second Iconoclasm. I will attempt to show that the practices described in the Letter of Michael II and Theophilos fit well into the circumstances of a struggling community of Iconodules at the time of the second Iconoclastic persecution.

The substitution of images for crosses in churches:

> Primum quidem honorificas et vivificas cruces de sacris templis expellebant et in eadem loca imagines statuebant ponebantque lucernas coram eis, simul et incensum adolebant atque eas in tali honore habebant sicut honorificum et vivificum lignum, in quo Christus, verus Deus noster, crucifigi dignatus est proper nostram salutem.
>
> (p. 478, 38–42)

In the *Definition* of Nicaea II, the veneration of icons is justified on the basis of their antiquity and the icon's equal honor with the Gospels

(4) L. Ouspensky, *Theology of Icon* (Crestwood, NY: Saint Vladimir's Seminary Press, 1978) 128–129; A. Schmemann, *The Historical Road of Eastern Orthodoxy* (New York—Chicago—San Francisco: Holf, Rinehart and Winston, 1963) 203–204. Notably, both authors ascribe the practices from the Letter of Michael II to the time *before* the outbreak of Iconoclasm as one of its causes.

and the image of the Cross.[5] The above passage most likely testifies to the practice of renovating the churches during the Iconodulic interlude (786–815), when many churches with purged decoration during the previous Iconoclastic period were restored. Instances of changing the program of apse decoration are still visible in the church of Hagia Sophia of Constantinople,[6] and on the photographs of the church of the Dormition in Nicaea. Although we can judge its decoration only on the basis of photographs taken in 1907 before the church's complete destruction in 1922, we can see that the initial iconographic program of the church was changed several times. Thus, during the time of Iconoclasm, an image of the Cross was inserted into the original mosaic of the apse. This Cross was removed and a representation of the Theotokos was put in the apse after the Restoration of Icons in 843.[7]

(5) Cf. the *Horos* of Nicaea II: "We keep unchanged all the ecclesiastical traditions handed down to us, whether in writing or verbally, one of which is the making of pictorial representations… We, therefore, following the royal pathway and the divinely inspired authority of our Holy Fathers and the traditions of the Catholic Church (for, as we all know, the Holy Spirit indwells her), define with all certitude and accuracy that just as the figure of the precious and life-giving Cross, so also the venerable and holy images, as well in painting and mosaic as of other fit materials, should be set forth in the holy churches of God, and on the sacred vessels and on the vestments and on hangings and in pictures both in houses and by the wayside" (Mansi, XIII, 377CD).

(6) Contrary to the common opinion dating the current mosaic of the seated Virgin in the apse of Hagia Sophia to the time of Patriarch Photios, N. Oikonomides proposes that the Iconoclastic Cross was replaced by the current mosaic and anti-Iconoclastic inscription during the first Iconodulic interlude (N. Oikonomides, Some Remarks of the Apse Mosaic of St. Sophia, *DOP* 39 (1985) 111–115).

(7) P. Underwood, The Evidence of Restorations in the Sanctuary Mosaics of the Church of Dormition at Nicaea, *DOP* 13 (1959) 235–243; on the original program in the apse of the church, see: F. De'Maffei, L'Unigenito consustanziale al Padre nel programma trinitario dei perduti mosaici del bema della Dormizione di Nicea e il Cristo trasfigurato del Sinai. I, II, *Storia dell'arte* 45–46 (1982) 91–116, 185–200; and Ch. Barber, The Koimesis Church, Nicaea: The Limits of Representation on the Eve of Iconoclasm, *Jahrbuch der Österreichischen Byzantinistik* 41 (1991) 43–60. On the church, see O. K. Wulff, *Die Koimesiskirche in Nicäa und ihre Mosaiken* (Strassburg, 1903); T. Schmit, *Die Koimesis-Kirche von Nicaia, das Bauwerk und die Mosaiken* (Berlin—Leipzig, 1927); G. Peers, *Subtle Bodies: Representing Angels in Byzantium* (Berkeley University of California Press, 2001) 61–88; and Ch. Barber, *Figure and Likeness: On the Limits of Representation in Byzantium* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 2002) 63–69.

However, the outline of the Cross is still visible on the photographs of the mosaic due to the clear border between the *tessarae* belonging to the former Cross and the tessarae in those parts which were added after the figure of the Theotokos was inserted after the Restoration of Icons in 843 (Fig. 1). Similarly, the outline of the Cross is visible on the golden background in the churches of Hagia Sophia in Constantinople. The Cross in the apse of the church of Hagia Irene in Constantinople, made during the first Iconoclastic period under Emperor Constantine V, serves as an analogy of what those crosses might have looked like (Fig. 2). The main problem with this decoration is that we do not know exactly the scale of replacement and restoration, the original pre-Iconoclastic program, or the exact dynamics of the Cross-Image interchange during the two Iconoclasms and the Iconodulic interlude.

As I have argued elsewhere, the Cross in the apse in the Iconoclastic church program was a symbol of the undepictable Resurrected Christ in a subtle "God-like" body,[8] whereas the Iconodules with their stress on Christ's genuine and depictable humanity chose to represent the Theotokos with the Christ-child instead of Crosses. However, the change of imagery in the most sacred and semiotically loaded zone of the church meant that, in fact, for both parties the two images were interchangeable both being of Christ. Both the Iconoclasts changing the previous programs to Crosses, and the Iconodules, changing the Crosses to Theotokos with Christ the Child tried to convey in a visual and most powerful form the most important message of their different theologies — Christ in the state of the glorious Resurrection in His Kingdom, and Christ as truly God and man with His human mother.[9]

Thus the allusion in the Letter of Michael II seems to refer to the campaign of Iconodulic redecoration, including restoration of anthropomorphic images both in mosaics and on panels. Restored religious

(8) V. Baranov, The Theological Background of the Iconoclastic Church Programmes, *SP* 40 (2006) 169–175.

(9) Cf. the insistence of John of Damascus that the Cross with an anthropomorphic representation of Crucified Christ is absolutely equivalent to the plain Cross (B. Kotter (hrsg.), *Johannes von Damaskos. Expositio fidei*, *Die Schriften des Johannes von Damaskos*, B. 2 (Berlin—New York: Walter de Gruyter, 1973) (PTS, 12) 207, 42–208, 43). In this case, the graphic sign of the Cross becomes interchangeable with the Crucifixion as its abbreviation.

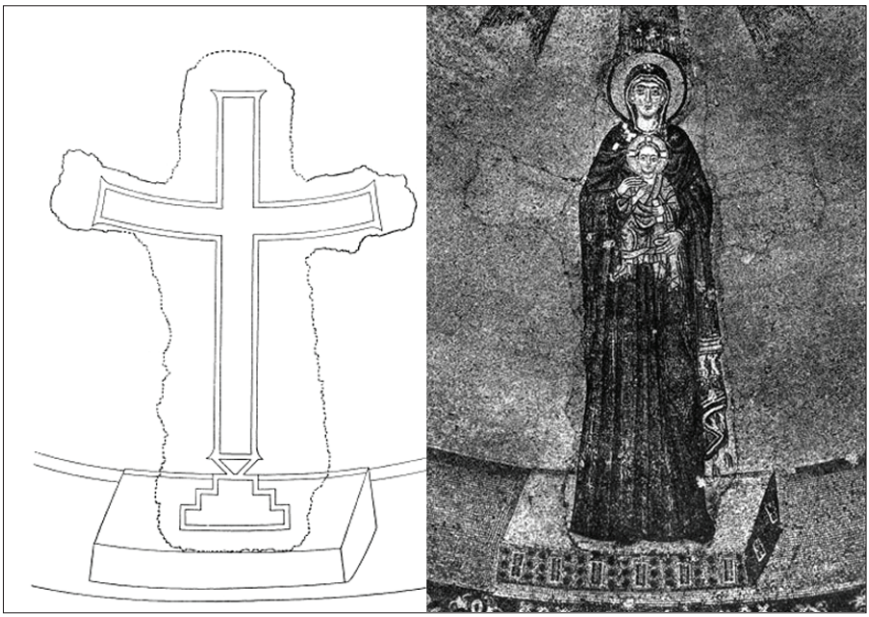

Figure 1.
Two phases of apse decoration in the church of the Dormition in Nicaea (after Underwood).

images entailed as its integral part burning incense and setting candles in front of them according to the Definition of Nicaea II.[10]

Taking images as Godparents and using images to receive hair from the first haircut of a child or to perform monastic tonsuring:

> Plerique autem linteaminibus easdem imagines circumdabant et filiorum suorum de baptismatis fonte susceptrices faciebat. Similiter et in tonsura puerorum, cum capillos praeciderent, eosdem capillos desinere super imagines sinebant. Alii vero, religiosum habitum monasticum sumere volentes, religiosiores personas postponebant, qui prius comam capitis eorum suscipere solebant, adhibitis imaginibus quasi in sinum earum decidere capillos illorum sinebant.
>
> (p. 479, 1–6)

The world that emerges from the Letters of Theodore the Studite of both the period of the Moechian and second Iconoclastic Controversies does, perhaps, look somewhat familiar to anybody coming from a country with harsh state ideological control. Every controversy sharply delineates the previously blurry border between the friend and the foe and thus preconditions the measures and the degree of separation from the latter. Theodore the Studite was sent to exile three times. First, from 795/6–798 he was exiled to Thessalonica; then in 809 he was briefly exiled to the Princes' Islands, and the third time he was exiled in 815 initially to Metope in Bythinia, then to a remote fortress in the same area, and finally to Smyrna. He was recalled from this third exile in 821. The main challenge that Theodore the Studite faced, was to safeguard his community from doctrinal and liturgical contamination with canonical and, later, heretical transgressions committed by the ecclesiastical and civic hierarchy. The core problem that an "underground" Christian (or a Christian of the "dissident" party as opposed to the "official" party) faced during the time of official persecution was

(10) "We, therefore, ... define with all certitude and accuracy that just as the figure of the precious and life-giving Cross, so also the venerable and holy images, as well in painting and mosaic as of other fit materials, should be set forth in the holy churches of God, and on the sacred vessels and on the vestments and on hangings and in pictures both in houses and by the wayside […]. To these, as to the figure of the precious and life-giving Cross and to the Book of the Gospels and to the other holy objects, incense and lights may be offered according to ancient pious custom" (Mansi, XIII, 377CD).

Figure 2.
Iconoclastic Cross in the apse of the church of Hagia Eirene,
Istanbul (church of the 6th C., mosaic decoration of 740s).

not so much the overt repressive measures but the access to church services and, especially, communion. In many letters[11] Theodore the Studite provides practical advice to his perplexed disciples as to how to lead a Christian life at the time when they had to stay away from canonical communication with the hierarchy and clergy that complied with the official line. Such communication was considered unacceptable by Theodore the Studite and his followers for different reasons, canonical, in the case of the Moechian schism, which arose when Joseph, who performed an unlawful wedding of Emperor Constantine VI with Theodota while his lawful wife Mary was sent to a monastery, was officially accepted back to performing his priestly duties, and doctrinal, after the outbreak of the second Iconoclasm. Thus Theodore the Studite pledges to stay away from communion not only performed by a priest who complied in writing with the official policy, but also from a priest who commemorated the bishop who complied. The church where the heretics served as well could not be used by the Orthodox until the time of a future Council that would make canonical decisions on the case.[12] We should not forget that religious and political were not separated by the Byzantines and as soon as the official religious policy was promulgated by the Emperor, the dissidents were persecuted according to all harshness of the law, including flogging, exile and confiscation.[13] Being himself an exiled and arrested spiritual leader of his persecuted flock, Theodore the Studite is always cautious in writing, being aware that the letters could fall into hostile hands. Through the letters, Theodore the Studite tries to establish a communication network and code that would maintain the Studite community and the community of his secular followers and disciples.[14] He transmits some

(11) Between 815 and 818 Theodore the Studite wrote 309 letters to his disciples, friends, civic and ecclesiastical hierarchs. In one of the Letters to Naukratios he mentions his desired frequency of correspondence with the same person — at least one letter every two weeks (Fatouros, 119, 21).

(12) Letter to Makarios (Fatouros, 294, 14–20), Letter to Theodore the Monk (Fatouros, 446, 11–29).

(13) On varying degrees of effectiveness of the government's persecution during the second Iconoclasm, see I. Ševčenko, Was There Totalitarianism in Byzantium? Constantinople's Control over its Asiatic Hinterland in the Early Ninth century, in: C. Mango and G. Dagron (eds.), *Constantinople and Its Hinterland* (London: Variorum, 1995) 95–98.

(14) Ševčenko, Was There Totalitarianism…, 103–105.

advice orally with the trusted carrier,[15] and uses encoded letters of the alphabet for naming the persons involved (including his key disciples, the archbishop and the Emperor).[16]

Thus it is quite possible to imagine the situation when in the absence of tested and trusted Orthodox clergy or candidates to become God-parents,[17] the Iconodule father of a child named Demetrios decides to take an icon of his heavenly patron as the Godparent of the boy. Theodore the Studite was the theologian who very strongly insisted on the presence of the hypostasis of the depicted person in his or her icon,[18] and must have been especially happy that St. Demetrios of

(15) Cf. the Letter to Archimandrite Ilarion where Theodore the Studite complains about the difficulties in finding a trusted carrier (Fatouros, 90, 4–5); in the Letter to Eythymios (Fatouros, 343, 4–5) and in the Letter to Aphrodisios (Fatouros, 345, 7), St. Theodore mentions oral information that the carrier of the letters should pass to the addressees. Cf. one of the Letters to Naukratios where St. Theodore instructs his disciple on being cautious concerning whom to send to him (Fatouros, 108, 23–26).

(16) On the system of encoding, see the whole Letter to Silouanos and Euprepianos (Fatouros, 41), the encoding with letters of alphabet was used, for example, in the Letters to Naukratios (Fatouros, 107, 22; 118, 15; 119, 5, 10; 120, 9, 23, 30–31) and in many other Letters of the Corpus. On the life of St. Theodore in exile in the Iconoclastic period, see Ševčenko, Was There Totalitarianism…, 91–105. On the role of Theodore the Studite during the Moechian controversy, see P. Karlyn-Hayter, A Byzantine Politician Monk, St. Theodore Studite, *Jahrbuch der Österreichische Byzantinistik* 44 (1994) 217–232.

(17) See the question on baptism in St. Theodore the Studite's Letter with Various Questions: in the absence of Orthodox church it is better to perform baptism at home; God-parents should be Orthodox (Fatouros, 552, 111–119). On the practice of receiving children after baptism, see R. Macrides, The Byzantine Godfather, *Byzantine and Modern Greek Studies* 11 (1987) 139–162.

(18) "…It is not a different hypostasis from that of Christ in his icon, but clearly it is the same hypostasis or character which, by the form of his appearance is revealed and venerated on the icon." (Fatouros, 528, 60–63. Cf. Ibid., 528, 23–25). This doctrine is essential for Theodore the Studite, cf.: "when we venerate the icon of Christ, we venerate Christ Himself through one veneration [given] to both, which does not differ because of different natures, appropriating the opposites in virtue of the union of the same hypostasis" (Theodore the Studite, *PG* 99, 497C). Cf. also the *Definition* of the Second Council in Nicaea: "The one who venerates the icon venerates the hypostasis of the person depicted on it" (Mansi, 13, 377E). See Ch. von Schönborn, *L'icône du Christ: Fondaments théologiques* (Paris: Éditions du Cerf, 1986) 223–227 on this teaching of Theodore the Studite with more references. This doctrine, expressed as a "petrified" theological definition, can be found in a later treatise, *Ex Nicephoro et*

Thessalonika, the heavenly patron of the child bearing the same name, became the Godparent of the child through his icon. St. Theodore had been in Thessalonika and knew the city;[19] his brother Joseph was the Archbishop of the city, and Theodore must have been well aware of the various miracles of St. Demetrios which came down to us in the Collection *Miracula sancti Demetrii* (7th C.) and describe the Saint as a quick and efficient protector and helper. In three instances among the miracles, St. Demetrios was identified through his icons.[20]

One of the miracles is directly focused on marvelous appearances and the effective help of St. Demetrios. The African bishop Cyprian on a trip was captured and enslaved by the Slavs. In deep sorrow for his orphaned flock, he appealed to God. A beautiful young man in a military garment appeared to him, introduced himself as Demetrios, whose house was in the middle of Thessalonika, led the bishop out of the barbarian slavery to the gates of the city and disappeared. The bishop tried to find his helper and friend, and kept asking the city residents where was the house of Demetrios the soldier, getting an answer that there were many discharged soldiers named Demetrios in the city. Finally, the inhabitants of the city led the bishop to the church of the martyr, where after prayer he saw an image of the martyr Demetrios in the clothing of his companion and guide. Eventually the bishop returned to his homeland taking with him an image of the martyr Demetrios. St. Demetrios appeared several times in a dream and assisted the bishop in building a ciborium and ambo similar to those which were in his church in Thessalonica.[21] James Skedros convincingly argues that in the absence of St. Demetrios' relics, his church, with its mosaics and *ciborium* became the

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Photio Patriarchis Constantinopolitanis et magno Theodoro Studita contra Iconomachos, 2–4 (ed. J. Hergenroether, *Monumenta graeca ad Photium ejusque historiam pertinentia quae ex variis codicibus manuscriptis* (Ratisbonae, 1869) 53–55).

(19) See the description of the arrival of exiled St. Theodore and his companions in Thessalonika and their two-day stay in the city (Fatouros, 3, 104–122) from the third Letter to Plato; the prayer in the basilica of St. Demetrios is explicitly mentioned (Ibid., 118–119).

(20) P. Lemerle, *Les plus anciens recueils des miracles de saint Démétrius et la pénétration des Slaves dans les Balkans*, vol. 1 (Paris: Centre National de la Recherche Scientifique, 1979) § 70, 89, 167.

(21) Ibid., § 307–317; 237–240 for the Greek text, 234–236 for the French translation. On the cult of St. Demetrios in Thessaloniki, see James C. Skedros, *Saint Demetrios of Thessaloniki: Civic Patron and Divine Protector 4th–7th Centuries CE* (Harrisburg, PA: Trinity Press International, 1999) (Harvard Theological Studies, 47).

Figure 3.
Mosaics of St. Demetrios as patron of children
in the church of St. Demetrios in Thessaloniki (7th C.)

focus of the saint's cult in the City, in a way substituting for his relics.[22] Two among the few surviving pier mosaics of the seventh century depict St. Demetrios as a patron and protector of children (Fig. 3–4).[23]

The practice of taking an icon of the Theotokos as a God-parent during baptism is attested to among the charges against the Greeks from the treatise of Leo of Toscana, *On the Heresies and Hypocrisy of the Greeks* (12th C.). Leo was the interpreter for the Byzantine Emperor Manuel I and was familiar with the religious practices of the Eastern Church of his time. In sections 41 and 42 of his treatise, he accuses the Greeks of using icons in religious rituals instead of living persons. He states that the Greeks connect the icon and the shroud so that the Theotokos received the baptized after the immersion, becoming the God-parent of the baptized (section 41), and perform the rite of *adelphopoeia* with icons: after the special prayers are recited, two candles are lit, the person is anointed by holy oil, he embraces the icon and becomes the saint's "brother."[24]

These practices indeed are very close to the practice praised by Theodore the Studite in his letter to John the Spatharios. It is notable, that St. Theodore does not recommend introducing this practice but merely acknowledges that the fact which occurred was a praiseworthy deed. The practice that is reflected in the treatise of Leo of Toscana could have been the echo of the single action endorsed and propagated by Theodore the Studite, which might have become widespread during times of Iconoclastic persecution among the Iconodules. However, the same practice of taking icons as godparents is attested to in the tradition that parted with the Byzantine Iconodules much earlier: the Syrian tradition of the Church of the East. Question 10 in an un-

(22) Skedros, *Saint Demetrios...*, 104.

(23) For the description of the mosaic decoration, see Skedros, *Saint Demetrios...*, 94–102; C. Hennessy, Children as Iconic Images in S. Demetrius, Thessaloniki, in: A. Eastmont and L. James (eds.), *Icon and Word: The Power of Images in Byzantium* (Aldershot: Ashgate, 2003) 157–172. On the general background of children in Byzantine art, see: C. Hennessy, *Images of Children in Byzantium* (Farnham—Burlington, VT: Ashgate, 2008). For the comprehensive study of childhood in Late Antiquity, see: C. B. Horn and J. W. Martens, *"Let the Little Children Come to Me": Childhood and Children in Early Christianity* (Washington, D.C: The Catholic University Press, 2009).

(24) А. В. Бармин, *Полемика и схизма. История греко-латинских споров IX–XII веков* (Москва: Институт философии, теологии и истории св. Фомы, 2006) 584–585.

Figure 4.
Mosaics of St. Demetrios as patron of children
in the church of St. Demetrios in Thessaloniki (7th C.)

published set of 23 liturgical questions to Isho Bar Nun (823–828), in the manuscript *Vatican Borg. Syr*. 81 (fol. 371b) is related to the case of a priest who, in an emergency, has to baptize his own child when no one except the mother of the child (the wife of the priest) was available to become child's godparent. Isho Bar Nun suggests that the child should be placed on "the icon of our Lord" in the case of a boy, or on the icon of the "Blessed" (Mary), in the case of a girl, and thus the depicted person would become the Godparent.[25]

It is extremely hard to believe in any impact of Theodore the Studite on contemporaneous practices of the Church of the East, which then existed not only in a geographically different area, but in the area of firm control of the Moslem Abbasids. Rather, it is more plausible to suggest that some practices of taking an icon instead of a godparent existed in various milieu from the pre-Iconoclastic time, but indeed, their spread in the Byzantine Church must have been fostered by the Iconoclastic persecution and the need to lead an underground religious life for the Iconodules, both monastic and secular. Since monastic tonsuring in many ways parallels baptism in respect to "dying" to one's previous life and resurrecting spiritually with renewed vows and a new name, it is not surprising that icons could have been used in these rituals, as well as for receiving a child's first hair.

Distributing the Eucharistic bread from the hands of images, as well as using panel images as altars for serving the Liturgy in ordinary houses and churches:

> Alii autem corpus Domini in manus imaginum ponebant, unde communicare volentes accipere fecerunt. Nonnulli vero spreta ecclesia in communibus domibus tabulis imaginum pro altariis utebantur et super eas sacrum ministerium celebrabant…
>
> (p. 479, 9–11)

The Christian community is not only the community of the baptized; it is centered around the Eucharist. In his Letters from exile St. Theodore advises his faithful priests to rather serve the Liturgy in the houses of the faithful Christians on portable altars or *antimensia* (on boards or cloth). It is probable that such priests, local or wandering,

(25) S. Brock, Gabriel of Qatar's Commentary on the Liturgy, *Hugoye* 6.2 (2003) 4; repr. S. Brock, *Fire from Heaven. Studies in Syriac Theology And Liturgy* (Ashgate: Variorum, 2006) #17; also accessible at http://syrcom.cua.edu/Hugoye/Vol6No2/HV6N2Brock.html.

could celebrate the Eucharist in trusted houses and give communion to Christians of the underground party. From the letters of St. Theodore we get the impression that the apostasy was predominant and even some of his former disciples and close friends split away and complied with the official line.[26] Moreover, the outspoken opponents of the Imperial policy were well known and well watched. We may assume that the practice of self-communion with the Holy Gifts presanctified by an Orthodox priest, that was known both well before and after the Controversies of the early ninth century, became the way of receiving spiritual help and binding the persecuted community together.[27]

The practice of reserving the Holy Gifts at home and self-communion is attested to in many pre-Iconoclastic sources, and was very widespread.[28] The *Spiritual Meadow* of John Moschos (d. 619) describes two cases related to self-communion (chapters 30 and 79).[29] The first case relates the story of a non-Chalcedonian who witnessed the private reservation of the Gifts and then communion of his non-Chalcedonian wife in the neighboring house of a Chalcedonian. Realizing that his wife had already received the Gifts, the angry husband grabbed her throat, made her spit out the Gifts, and knocked them aside into the mud, where a light appeared that swallowed the particle, upon which the husband became Chalcedonian. The second story tells us about a pious merchant from Seleucia in Mesopotamia, who followed "the heresy of Severus" and had a servant, a Chalcedonian. "According to the custom," on Great Thursday the servant received the Holy Gifts, enveloped them into a clean fabric and put them in a closet. After Easter the servant was sent to Constantinople on business, but forgot the Gifts in his closet, the key from which he had given to his master. One day the merchant found the Gifts but, being non-Chalcedonian, could not consume them. After the next Great Thursday, when the servant

(26) See Fatouros, 223, 1–8, 81–84; 73, 25–33; 244, 5–8; 267, 16–31.

(27) Fatouros, 215, 22–24; 462, 31–34; 552, 35–44.

(28) See the overview in G. Snoek, *Medieval Piety from Relics to the Eucharist: A Process of Mutual Interaction* (Leiden: Brill, 1995) 75–81; taking the Eucharist on journeys: Ibid., 81–83. See also O. Nussbaum, *Die Aufbewahrung der Eucharistie* (Bonn: Hanstain, 1979) 266–274; R. Taft, Home Communion in the Late Antique East, in: Cl. V. Johnson (ed.), *Ars Liturgiae. Worship: Aesthetics and Praxis. Essays in Honor of Nathan D. Mitchell* (Chicago: Liturgy Training Publications, 2003) 1–25.

(29) M. J. Rouët de Journel, *Jean Moschus. Le pré spirituel* (Paris: Éditions du Cerf, 1946) (SC, 12) 70–71, 124–126.

had still not returned, the merchant decided to burn the Gifts as they would not keep for another year, but when he opened the closet, he saw that all the particles had brought forth a stalk and a wheatear. With fear he took the particles, brought them to the bishop to reveal the miracle.[30] The Monophysites living among the Chalcedonians experienced the same difficulties and had to revert to the same methods of taking pre-sanctified Communion.[31] Alexander Alexopoulos provides ample evidence of the widespread practice of private reservation of the Gifts and private communion in his research on the origins of the Liturgy of the Presanctified Gifts.[32]

Private communion is also attested to in the ninth century in the Letters of Theodore the Studite. St. Theodore tells us that in the hard conditions of life in exile, daily Holy Communion was his only source of consolation.[33] Since St. Theodore was ordained, it is possible that he would serve the liturgy himself in his dwelling. In another letter that constitutes a set of questions and answers to various practical issues of religious life, he gives an answer to Question 4, "Regarding self-communion of monks or nuns from the sanctifying elements," that, although an unconsecrated person should not touch the Gifts, out of necessity one may place the Bible and cover it with a clean fabric or holy vestment, put the Host there and "after the hymnody with fear the gift is received by the mouth through the hand. Then the one that receives washes his mouth with the wine."[34]

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(30) A. Alexopoulos, *The Presanctified Liturgy in the Byzantine Rite: A Comparative Analysis of its Origins, Evolution, and Structural Components*, Ph.D. Dissertation, University of Notre Dame (Notre Dame, IN, 2004) 21–23 [hereafter Alexopoulos, *Diss*.]; the published dissertation is S. Alexopoulos, *The Presanctified Liturgy in the Byzantine Rite: A Comparative Analysis of its Origins, Evolution, and Structural Components* (Leuven: Peeters, 2009) (Liturgia Condenda, 21).

(31) See Taft, Home Communion…, 4.

(32) On private daily Communion among monks (with a priest bringing the Gifts), see Alexopoulos, *Diss*., 23–28; on the Eucharist as a *phylakterion*, see Alexopoulos, *Diss*., 33–34; for a Table with nineteen cases of private reservation and communion among lay people, and eleven cases among the monastics, see Alexopoulos, *Diss*., 38.

(33) Fatouros, 555, 48–56; on the position of Theodore of Studite concerning the Eucharist and the Communion, see: Alexopoulos, *Diss*., 34–37.

(34) Fatouros, 552, 42–43, cited in Alexopoulos, *Diss*., 36; see also Taft, Home Communion.., 11–13.

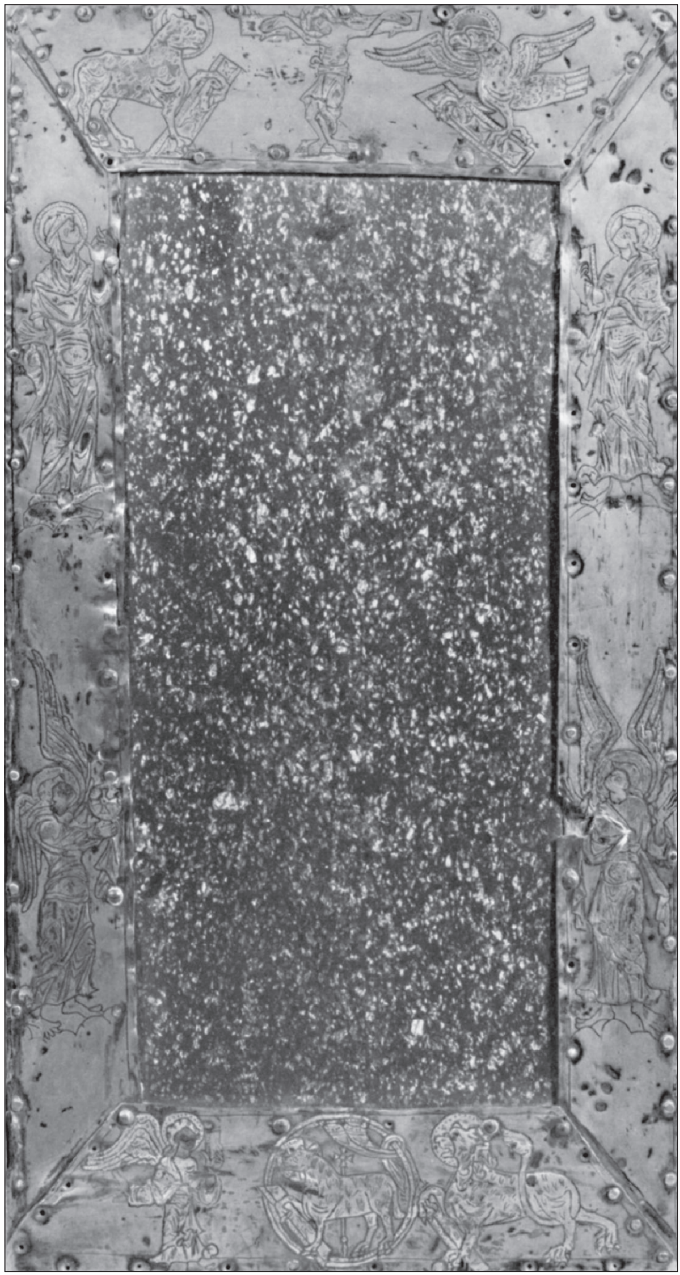

Figure 5.
Portable altar, 11th–12th C. Museum of Cluny
(after Okasha and O'Reilly).

What could be the circumstances for procuring the Orthodox Eucharist for the underground communities, whether they had an Orthodox priest for celebrating the Liturgy or received the Gifts from someone else? The Liturgical service must have occurred in private houses on portable altars or *antimensia*. In fact, in one of the early Letters to Naukratios (dated to 809), Theodore the Studite advises his disciple to rather serve the Liturgy in a private house than in a church where the priest commemorates the heretic.[35] In the same passage Theodore the Studite mentions consecrated portable altars on wood or cloth (ὁ ὀρθόδοξος θυσιαστήριον καθηγιασμένον ἐν σινδόνι ἢ ἐν σανίσι).[36] Patriarch Nikephoros and later writers call these portable altars "antimensia." The issue of valid church altars had already been considered in 787 at the Seventh Ecumenical Council (rule 7), since during the Iconoclastic time churches were consecrated without putting relics in altar tables, and relics were taken out from some existing altar tables. Thus, during the Iconodulic period of the late eighth-early ninth century and after the final restoration of icons in 843, to be on the safe side, the Iconodules had to use *antimensia* for serving the Liturgy not only in private houses but on church altars with dubious history,[37] whereas the altars consecrated properly did not require *antimensia* for several centuries that followed.[38] The earliest Byzantine specimens of the *antimensia* from the time of the second Iconoclastic Controversy did not survive, and in the later practice of the Eastern Church, the *antimensia* are made of linen or silk cloth with the image of the Cross or, later, with Christ Resurrected, the Evangelists or the Entombment of Christ. Yet some surviving portable altars from the Western tradition may serve as a possible analogy for Byzantine portable altars of the

(35) Fatouros, 40, 103–108; on the Letter, see Fatouros, B. 1, p. 184. See A. Raes, Antimension, Tablit, Tabot, *Proche Orient Chretien* 1 (1951) 60.

(36) Fatouros, 40, 104–105.

(37) "To alleviate all difficulties [of churches without relics in their altars or churches, defiled by the heretics. — *V. B.*], antimensia, since they had been properly consecrated and contained relics of martyrs, were used on all altars which were uncanonical or at least suspect as such" (J. Izzo, *The Antimension in the Liturgical and Canonical Tradition of the Byzantine and Latin Churches: An Inter-Ritual, Inter-Confessional Study* (Rome: Pontificum Athenaeum Antonianum, 1975) 31).

(38) М. С. Желтов, И. О. Попов, Антиминс, in: *Православная Энциклопедия*, vol. 2 [Orthodox Encyclopedia] (Москва: Церковно-научный центр «Православная энциклопедия», 2000) 490.

early period: they were made of wood[39] or stone, and were sometimes framed by engraved mounts with figural images, as is testified by the red porphyry portable altar from the Museum of Cluny (11th–12th C.), containing images of the Apostles, saints, prophets, and Christological scenes (Fig. 5).[40] Another example is the Hildesheim altar from the British Museum. The stone slab is mounted in gilt copper engraved with the four symbols of the Evangelists and Saints Peter, Andrew, Stephen and Lawrence. Above the stone there is an ivory of the Crucifixion and below it the Virgin and Child enthroned with two bishop saints. Painted miniatures on vellum under crystal are located on the either side depicting Saints Godehard (right) and Bernard (left), both bishops of Hildesheim. Beneath the ivory of the Virgin and Child is an inscription mentioning Theodoric, who might have been the abbot at Hildesheim, between 1181 and 1204[41] (Fig. 6).

It is quite possible that the Letter of Michael II in fact alludes to the practices connected to serving the Liturgy in private houses and private communion by the underground party at the time of the Moechian schism and second Iconoclasm. It is likely that the Letter testifies to certain practices that were developed to allow the persecuted Christians to partake in the Eucharist. It is a strong possibility that the Liturgy was served by the Orthodox priests on wooden portable altars which might have possessed some figural decoration[42] and which were confused with icons by the Iconoclastic adversaries. Another, second

(39) C. Ralegh Radford, The Portable Altar of St. Cuthbert, in: C. F. Battiscombe (ed.), *The Relics of St. Cuthbert* (Durham: Durham Cathedral, 1956) 328–329.

(40) E. Okasha and J. L. O'Reilly, An Anglo-Saxon Portable Altar: Inscription and Iconography, *Journal of Warburg and Courtauld Institutes* 47 (1984) 32–51.

(41) On this portable altar, see S. H. Steinberg, A Portable Altar in the British Museum, *Journal of the Warburg Institute* 2.1 (1938) 71–72.

(42) Wooden altar boards have survived in the traditions of the Coptic and Ethiopian Churches. On Coptic altar boards, see: Hishmat Messiha, Portable altars — Luxor treasure (1893), *Bulletin de la Société d'Archéologie Copte* 31 (1992) 129–134; O. H. E. Burmester, *Egyptian or Coptic Church: A Detailed Description of her Liturgical Services and the Rites and Ceremonies Observed in the Administration of her Sacrament* (Cairo, 1967) 21–22; on the tabots of the Ethiopian Church, see: Agostinos Tedla da Hebo, Il Tabot: la sua importanza religiosa e giuridico–cultuale nella Chiesa etiopica, *OCP* 60 (1994) 131–157. However, all the tabots bear the representation of the Cross (J. M. Hanssens and A. Raes, Une collection de tâbots au Musée Chrétien de la Bibliothèque Vati-

possibility is that, indeed, the Liturgy was served on icons as the Letter of Michael II says, but it is quite probable that those icons might have contained relics and imagery appropriate for the Iconodulic Eucharistic theology and ritual, and functioned as portable altars. For we know that in the earlier period the liturgy could be served without church buildings or properly consecrated altars: in the tent during military campaigns, on the chests of Christians in prisons, on the hands of deacons, or on Stylite's column,[43] which might justify the decision of a priest to bend some existing regulations out of necessity to provide his struggling community with Eucharistic spiritual nourishment.

There is another, third possibility for interpreting the charge of using icons in the Eucharistic context from the Letter of Michael II. It is possible that the testimony of *taking communion* from the icon was expanded by our hostile source as *serving Liturgy* on the icon as on the altar board. We should recall the advice of Theodore the Studite concerning private communion from the Bible. It is possible that in some occasions the Bible was used as a stand for the Host in private communion, and in some cases icons were used.[44] For the Iconodules there was no contradiction in function and meaning of the two, since Iconodule theologians paralleled the Bible or the Book of Gospels to images as both proclaiming the same message of divine dispensation and redemption.[45] In their anti-Iconoclastic polemics, the Iconodulic

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cane, *OCP* 17. 3–4 (1951) 345–350). I am very grateful to Youhanna Nessim Youssef and Denis Nosnitsin for their bibliographical advice.

(43) For references, see A. Raes, Antimension, Tablit, Tabot, *Proche Orient Chrétien* 1 (1951) 59–60. There exist many accounts of the Liturgy secretly celebrated by Christian prisoners of the Soviet GULAG in difficult conditions of camps and persecutions without a properly consecrated altar table, vestments or even wine (juice was used instead) or white bread (dark prison bread was used).

(44) The *Vita* of Luke the Younger (d. 953), the founder of the Monastery of Hosios Loukas, contains the instruction of the Bishop of Corinth who stopped in the monastery, concerning self-communion. The vessel with the Presanctified Gifts should be placed the on the holy table if it is a chapel or on a very clean bench if it is a cell; a small veil should be spread, and the holy particles should put on it. After burning incense and praying, the Holy Bread should be taken with the mouth, and instead of the Holy Wine the communicant can drink ordinary wine (Taft, Home Communion…, 11–12).

(45) Cf. John of Damascus: "And what the book is for those who are initiated into letters, that is the icon for the illiterate, and what is word for hearing, that is the icon for sight..." (Apology I, 17, 1–7, [B. Kotter (hrsg.), *Johannes*

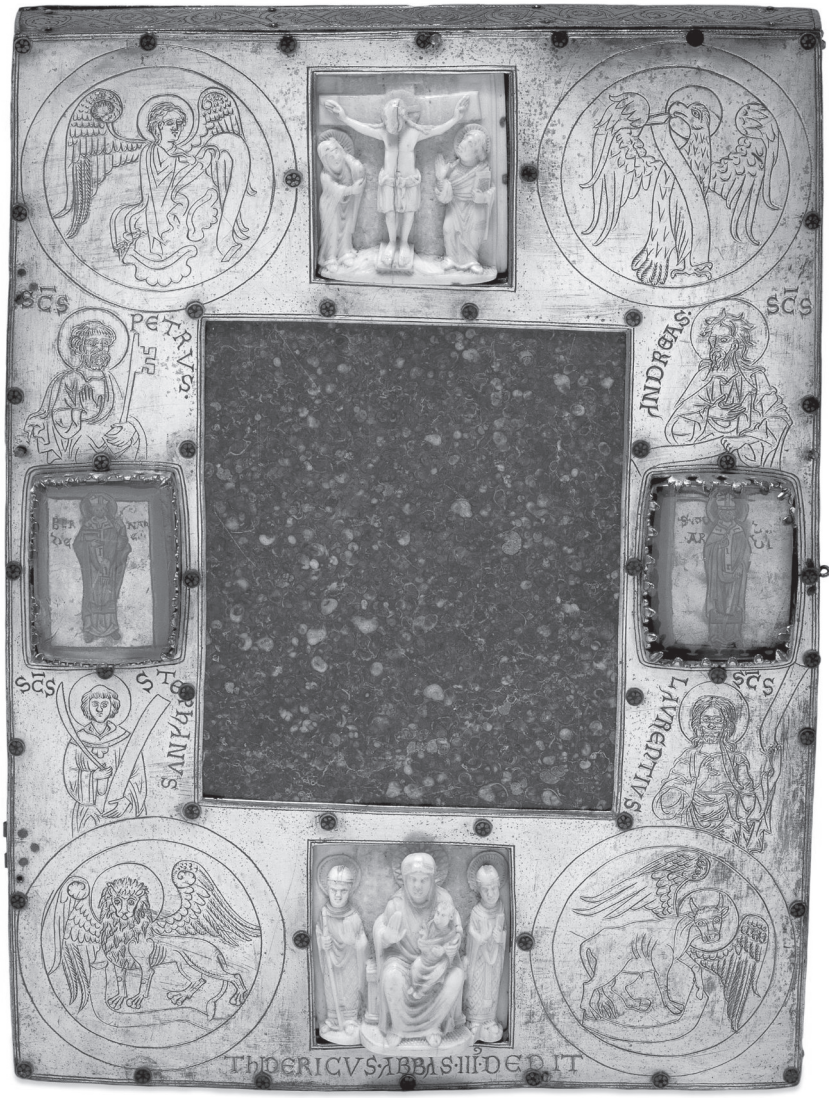

Figure 6.
Portable altar from Hildesheim, Lower Saxony, Germany, ca. 1200.
The British Museum (courtesy of the British Museum).

theologians stressed the equal honor and equal message of the Scripture and the icon,[46] making both functionally in some contexts as interchangeable both being images of Christ the Incarnated Word.

Scraping paint of images to be added to the Eucharist:

> Quidam vero sacerdotum et clericorum colores de imaginibus radentes inmiscuerunt oblationibus et vino et ex oblatione post missarum celebrationem dabant communicare volentibus.
>
> (p. 479, 6–9)

The final and the most perplexing case is the testimony of the Letter of Michael II concerning scraping paint and adding it to the Eucharist. Indeed, for everyone who is familiar with the Eucharistic doctrine of the Eastern Church it seems just logical that the Eucharistic Gifts are the ultimate and self-sufficient sacrament that does not require any addition. Yet it seems that it is also possible to put this testimony in a certain historical context. In our quest for the context, we need to view the practice described above from two points of view: other "non-standard" uses of the Eucharist, and the parallel use of consumable non-Eucharistic substances. We should especially look at the cases where the Eucharist was primarily used for healing, and could be possibly "reinforced" by other material substances applied for similar purposes.

In early times the Eucharist was often treated as a means for protection and healing. Hyppolitus says that even poison cannot harm a

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von Damaskos. Contra imaginum calumniatores orationes tres. In *Die Schriften des Johannes von Damaskos*, B. 3 (Berlin: Walter de Gruyter, 1975) (PTS, 17) 93]. Cf. Apology III, 12 [Kotter, p. 123], Mansi, XIII, 249DE).

(46) Thus, the author of the Iconodulic treatise *Adversus Constantinum Cabalinum* reproaches the Iconoclasts' inconsistency: "And why do you venerate the Bible, yet spit on the boards? Tell me, oh heretic, what is the difference between the two, since both proclaim the same message; and how do you venerate the one, but spit upon the other? (...) Tell me, what do you venerate in the Gospels, the matter or the interpretation? Of course you tell me: the interpretation of Christ's economy" (*PG* 95, 316C, 317A). Cf. Theodore the Studite: "Should we not conceive of his corporeal appearance on the board as of the divinely engraved Gospels? Has [Scripture] not said that the 'concise Word' is engraved? And indeed, it is being engraved from the [time] of the Apostles until now. And what in this case is engraved by paper and ink, is in the same way engraved in the case of the icon by varied pigments, or whatever other materials that happen [to be used]" (*PG* 99, 340D).

person who has appropriately received the Eucharist at home.[47] The Eucharistic Host sometimes was sewn into a cloth, or worn on a body in a bag like a *phylakterion*,[48] especially as a protection on a journey.[49] In the late fourth century, Gregory Nazianzen tells us that his sick sister suffering from pain, mixed the Eucharistic bread with her tears and applied the ointment to her wounds, receiving consolation.[50] Augustine says that he was told about a case of healing a blind man with a poultice from Eucharist bread applied to his eyes.[51] Jacob of Edessa (d. 708) answers the question as to whether the Eucharistic Bread should be given for taking home, and lists the practices that should not be permitted: wearing the Eucharist around the neck, placing it in a bed or wall, burying it in vineyards or other places for protection.[52] In the ninth century, we hear that the ecclesiastical documents of special importance were sometimes signed using ink, to which a few drops of consecrated wine were added.[53] Leo Allatius in his treatise, *On the Beliefs of the Greeks* (1645) describes the practice of distributing water that

(47) B. Botte, Hippolyte de Rome. *La Tradition apostolique : d'après les anciennes versions* (Paris: Editions du Cerf, 1984) (SC, 11bis) 118; Snoek, *Medieval Piety...*, 78.

(48) E. Dekkers, De reservatie der Eucharistie in de Oudheid, in: *Pro regno, pro sanctuario. een bundel studies en bijdragen van vrienden en vereerders bij de zestigste verjaardag van Prof. Dr. G. Van Der Leeuw* (Nijkerk: Callenbach, 1950) 144.

(49) Snoek, *Medieval Piety...*, 81–83.

(50) *PG* 35, 810D–811A.

(51) *PL* 45, 1315.

(52) C. Kayser (ed.), *Die Canones Jacob's von Edessa* (Leipzig, 1886) 13–14. Canon 145 from the *Nomocanon* forbids anyone to keep the Gifts in his mouth after communion and save it for blessing livestock or bees which testifies to the perseverance of the practice at least until the moment of the composition of the *Nomocanon* (dated to the first half of the 15th C.) (А. С. Павлов, Номоканон при большом требнике. Его история и тексты, греческий и славянский, с объяснительными и критическими примечаниями. Опыт научного разрешения вопросов об этом сборнике, возникавших в прошлом столетии в Святейшем Правительствующем Синоде, *Ученые записки Императорского Московского Университета. Отдел юридический*, 14 (Москва: Типография Г. Лисснера и А. Гешеля, 1897) 284; for the dating of the collection, see Ibid., 2.

(53) Pope Theodore I signed the excommunication of Pyrrhus (de Boor (ed.), Theophanes, I, p. 331, 20; II, p. 207, 29). Similarly, Photios' condemnation at the Council of Constantinople in 870 was signed the same way (Mansi, XVI, Constantinopolitanum IV, 263E).

was used to wash the Eucharistic chalice after the liturgy to children and the sick, who drank it for its healing powers.[54] It is evident, that in Byzantium of the Late Antiquity and Middle Ages the practices associated with the Eucharist extended far beyond the modern usage of the Eucharist for abolishing sins and spiritual nourishment.

The practice of using material substance connected with the local cults of saints is also attested to long before Iconoclasm. Pilgrimage *eulogia*,[55] associated with several important sites of pilgrimage, such as tokens of two Symeons the Stylites from the Wondrous Mount, flasks with water or oil from the shrine of St. Menas in the Maryut desert south-west from Alexandria, flasks with dust of St. John the Evangelist from Ephesus, and *ampullae* with oil from the Church of the Holy Sepulchre, were extremely popular from the sixth century until the Arabic conquest. Until now a fair amount of St. Symeon the Stylite's tokens have survived, which were made of earth from the site where St. Symeon the Stylite lived on a pillar, with his stamped image, and were used for a whole variety of purposes, including protection during journey, restoring the productivity of a farmer's field, repelling rats, mice or man-eating animals, returning water to a dry well or healing.[56] In case of illness, the dust of which the tokens were made, was applied externally, but occasionally, mixed with water or saliva to produce an ointment.[57] However, the miracles were performed not only through the substance of the token. Its image, the visitation of the site with a gift of incense, the prayers of the pilgrim and the saint — all played a part in particular miraculous event. Besides the power of the material substance of the *eulogion*, the Vita of St. Symeon recognizes the power

(54) K. Hartnup, *'On the Beliefs of the Greeks.' Leo Allatius and Polular Orthodoxy* (Leiden: Brill, 2004) 257–258.

(55) A eulogia, or "blessing", could be immaterial in venerating a relic or reenacting an event near a holy place, or it could be a material object or substance (earth, water, wax or oil) that became "secondary relics" through contact with a holy place, person or "primary" relic (G. Vikan, Byzantine Pilgrim's Art, in: L. Sabran (ed.), *Heaven on Earth: Art and Church in Byzantium* (University Park, PA: Pennsylvania State University Press, 1998) 234.

(56) G. Vikan, 'Guided by Land and Sea.' Pilgrim Art and Pilgrim Travel in Early Byzantium, in: *Tesserae. Festschrift für Joseph Engemann* (Münster: Ascherdorf, 1991) (Jahrbuch für Antike und Christentum. Ergänzungsband 18) n. 5, 75. The article is reprinted in Idem., *Sacred Images and Sacred Power in Byzantium* (Ashgate: Variorum, 2003) #8.

(57) For the cures from St. Symeon's dust, see G. Vikan, Art, Medicine, and Magic in Early Byzantium, *DOP* 38 (1984) 68–69.

of the saint's image: St. Symeon casted a demon out of a woman from Cilicia, she returned home and set up the icon of the saint that itself performed miracles and cures (chapter 118 of the *Vita*).[58]

St. Symeon was not the only saint who performed miracles through his consumable *eulogia.* Wax seals of St. Artemios were also used for healing. In Miracle 16 of St. Artemios, the saint appears to a sick person in a dream and gives him his seal "to drink." The next night, the sick person wakes up with a wax seal with the saint's image, and receives healing through the application of the melted wax.[59] The image of the saint also performs miracles on its own: in Miracle 31, a woman gets the icon of the saint and at home the saint appears in a vision and heals her sick child.[60] A remarkable miracle of Saint Cosmas and Damian from the Collection of miracles from the sixth- or seventh century was quoted at the Seventh Ecumenical Council of 787. The story told of a woman with stomach pain, who was cured by scraping plaster from the images of the saints which were painted on the wall of her bedroom, and drinking the paints with water.[61] All the above testify to the trust that the Byzantines had in the effectiveness of the saints' help and to equal importance of some kind of physical contact and material mediator for the process of intercession and subsequent healing.[62]

The custom of using the substance of paints from the images of holy men must have survived through the ages: the damage of the lower row of frescoes on the west wall of the nave of the Virgin's church in Studenica (13th C.) is significantly more substantial as opposed to a very well preserved upper row of frescos (Fig. 7). This damage is

(58) "Much of the art associated with early Byzantine pilgrim eulogia fulfilled one of two basic functions: either it reflected and facilitates the devotion dynamic in which the power of the eulogia was put to use, or else, it contributed its own iconic power in a way complimentary to the power of the sanctified material that bore it." (Vikan, Byzantine Pilgrim's Art…, 243).

(59) V. Crisafulli, J. Nesbitt and J. Haldon, *The Miracles of St. Artemios: A Collection of Miracle Stories by an Anonymous Author of Seventh Century Byzantium* (Leiden, 1996) 106–109.

(60) Ibid., 162–165.

(61) Miracle 15 (Ed. L. Deubner, *Kosmas und Damian* (Leipzig, 1907) 137–138, trans. C. Mango, *The Art of the Byzantine Empire*, 139); Mansi, XIII, 68.

(62) Also shown in the *Laudatio Therapontis* of the late seventh – early eighth century (J. Haldon, 'Tortured by my Conscience.' The *Laudatio Therapontis*: A Neglected Source of the Later Seventh or Early Eighth Centuries, in: Hagit Amiraw and Bas ter Haar Romeny (eds.), *From Rome to Constantinople. Studies in Honor of Averil Cameron* (Leuven: Peeters, 2007) 277–278).

specifically localized in the areas of the eyes of the saints. It is very probable that people used paints from the representations of saints in the lower accessible areas for healing. They must have specifically valued paints from the eyes, which were semantically significant for their diseases.[63] We cannot know the exact reasons of each person who used the paints for healing but, I think, that in this context the term "sympathetic magic" should be avoided as misleading, since in the Christian understanding, the healing was not expected from manipulations with the healing substance itself and from magic associated with it (in that case the modality of the relationship would be: "if I do A, I expect to be cured"), but from the intercession of saints, to whom the substance of paints being linked to the saint's image and person, provided a closer access (the modality of the relationship would be "if I do A and pray with faith, I hope to have a better chance to be cured").

Due to the first Iconoclastic Controversy and the stress that the Iconodulic theologians put both on the holiness of material substance (in particular, icons and relics), on the efficacy of the saints' protection, and the real presence of the depicted person in his or her image, it is possible to propose a gradual evolution, boosted by the Iconoclastic debates. The material substance that had performed miracles being connected with a certain holy place, for which the image was a mark of provenance and was not of primary importance (being itself destroyed in the process), becomes dispensable and the miracle was expected from the image itself, and, paradoxically, by the substance of the image, that is, the paints. It was especially handy in the cases when proper material substance was absent — for obtaining the help of those saints that did not possess a particular geographically centered cult or the Theotokos or the holy angels. Yet even in this case we should not understand this custom as simple "Christian magic" but as particular cases of folk piety, that accepted the Eucharist as the key sacrament but simultaneously

(63) Б. Цветковић, Икона у контексту: ка њеној функционалној прилагодљивости, in: М. *Детелић* (ed.), *Култ светих на Балкану* II (Крагујевац, 2002) (*Лицеум* 7) 46, and n. 23, p. 46 with reference to Реља Катић, *Српска медицина од 9. до 19. века* (Београд 1967) 47. I am very grateful to Branislav Tsetkovich for suggesting this parallel and references during the field trip to Studenica in the summer of 2009. On eye healing in Byzantium, see: J. Lascaratos and S. Marketos, Ophthalmological Therapy in Hospitals (xenones) in Byzantium, *Documenta Ophthalmologica* 77.4 (1991) 377–383; J. Lascaratos, Miraculous Ophthalmological Therapies in Byzantium, *Documenta Ophthalmologica* 81.1 (1992) 145–52.

Figure 7.
Fragment of fresco decoration on the west wall of the nave of the Virgin's church in Studenica, Serbia. 13th C.

honored the cult of the saints, angels or the Theotokos (the Letter of Michael II does not specify whose images were used) through the material substance of their images.[64] This practice, as pious as it was meant to be, must have caused some problems even among the Iconodules, and it is notable that, when the production of the tokens of St. Symeon was revived after the re-conquest of the region of Antioch by the Byzantines in the tenth century with conscious imitation of the earlier iconography, they were made in the form of a cast lead pendant, whose material substance could not be used anymore.[65]

Thus it seems that the charges against the "abusive" practices of the Iconodules from the Letter of Michael II and Theophilos to Louis the Pious fit well into the Byzantine context of the ecclesiastical turmoil of the early ninth century. An important point should be made. How did the Imperial powers get the information about the practices of the Iconodules? We can assume that intelligence was gathered though several channels: information from Iconodulic renegades, information received for money or under duress, and, probably in rarer cases, from undercover agents implanted into closed Iconodulic communities. In most cases information must have been biased, unreliable and second-hand; moreover, the charges are contained in a hostile source, aimed at political purposes with all the exaggerations and manipulations of the genre. Yet even if it is impossible to tell exactly to which extent each of the testimonies from the Letter of Michael II is reliable, it is possible to discern a historic and religious kernel. The Iconodulic community in the lack of canonical hierarchy and churches had to exist in the underground, inevitably developing the methods of survival, which were based on its Iconodulic identity. In doing so, the Iconodules, being true Byzantines, derived their specific ways of religious life through looking back to the previous traditions and modifying them, if and when necessary, to their pressing needs.

(64) Cf. "what may initially seem to be little more that religiously sanctioned 'contagious magic' is actually an eloquent expression of New Testament incarnation theology." (Vikan, Byzantine Pilgrim's Art…, 235).

(65) Vikan, Art, Medicine, and Magic…, 74.

SUMMARY

The Letter of the Iconoclastic Emperors Michael II and Theophilos to Louis the Pious (824) contains a list of offences that were allegedly committed by the Iconodules against the right practices of the Church. It includes the substitution of crosses in churches for images, taking images as godparents and using images to perform the monastic habit, scraping paint of images to be added to the Eucharist or distributing the Eucharistic bread from the hands of images, as well as using panel images as altars for serving the liturgy in ordinary houses and churches. These accusations are compared with the corpus of Letters by the Iconodulic champion Theodore the Studite, written in the same period. This helps us to reconstruct the context for the accusations: although the charges appear as authentic, some of them reveal traditional practices of that time, and some can be explained by the conditions of the underground Iconodulic community struggling to perform its religious practices in the absence of non-Iconoclastic hierarchy, clergy and church buildings.

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THE HOLY SEPULCHRE OF JERUSALEM AND ST SOPHIA OF CONSTANTINOPLE: AN ATTEMPT AT DISCOVERING A HAGIOGRAPHIC EXPRESSION OF THE BYZANTINE ENCAENIA FEAST

Constantine the Great and the Foundation of the Holy Sepulchre

For a student of Late Antiquity and Byzantine civilization, Constantine the Great is known, first and foremost, as the ruler who introduced Christianity as an official religion of the Roman Empire. Apart from that, his name is firmly associated with the foundation of the eponymous city of Constantinople, which was to become a centre of the Eastern Christian civilization. A closer look at the contemporary sources, however, suggests that the first Christian Emperor did not give the newly-founded city of Constantinople priority in his policies and building projects. During his reign, Constantine the Great displayed extraordinary interest in Jerusalem, leaving Constantinople rather overshadowed.

One may puzzle why Eusebius, who is the main contemporary source for the reign of Constantine the Great, gave but cursory treatment to the foundation and dedication of Constantinople while dwelling upon the subject of Palestinian church-building — and especially the foundation and dedication of the Holy Sepulchre church in Jerusalem[1] — so exten-

(1) The Holy Sepulchre is a later name for the complex erected by Constantine at the allegedly historical places of Golgotha and the tomb where Christ was buried. In the early sources the two buildings were differentiated: the church of Anastasis, built over the Christ's tomb to commemorate it rather as a scene of his resurrection, and the Martyrium Basilica, which was a construction incorporating the rock of Calvary. Besides the rotunda and basilica, there was an inner *atrium* where the huge gemmed cross was erected in remembrance of Jesus' crucifixion. The literary and archaeological evidence suggests that the first building at the site was the Basilica. Apparently, it was already at the place when the pilgrim from Bordeaux was passing through

sively.[2] Yet, the correct perspective on the prominence of Jerusalem in the Constantinian policy of building the Christian empire clarifies why, in his *Vita Constantini*, Eusebius described imperial foundations in Jerusalem and the Holy Land at length[3] but accorded only marginal attention to the staple historical event (or at least viewed as such by later Byzantine historians as well as modern Byzantinists) of the foundation of Constantinople and the construction of churches in Con-

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Jerusalem in 333: "…a sinistra autem parte est monticulus Golgotha, ubi dominus crucifixus est. Inde quasi ad lapidem missum est cripta, ubi corpus eius positum fuit et tertia die resurrexit; ibidem modo iusso Constantini imperatoris basilica facta est, id est dominicum, mirae pulchritudinis..." (P. Geyer and O. Cuntz (eds.), Itinerarium Burdigalense, in: Idem., *Itineraria et alia geographica* (Turnhout: Brepols: 1965) (CCSL, 175) 593.4–594.5, p. 17). The Anastasis Rotunda was built a few years later. Yet, as a record in Egeria's diary points out, it was consecrated on the same day as the Basilica: "Item dies enceniarum appellantur quando sancta ecclesia, quae in Golgotha est, quam Martyrium uocant, consecrata est Deo; sed et sancta ecclesia, quae est ad Anastase, id est in eo loco ubi Dominus resurrexit post passionem, ea die et ipsa consecrata est Deo" (P. Maraval (ed.), *Égérie: Journal de Voyage (Itinéraire)* (Paris: Les Éditions du Cerf, 1982) (SC, 296) 316). Eusebius, however, reserved the term *martyrium* (μαρτύριον) for the tomb itself. For a fuller analysis of the terminology, see P. W. L. Walker, *Holy City, Holy Places? Christian Attitudes to Jerusalem and the Holy Land in the Fourth Century* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1990) 237, 268–269; R. Ousterhout, The Temple, the Sepulchre, and the Martyrion of the Saviour, *Gesta* 29/1 (1990) 44–53, esp. 50–51. For the architectural history of the Holy Sepulchre see Ch. Coüasnon, *The Church of the Holy Sepulchre in Jerusalem* (London: Oxford University Press, 1974); V. Corbo, *Il Santo Sepolcro di Gerusalemme. Aspetti archeologici dalle origini al periodo crociato* (Jerusalem: Franciscan Printing Press, 1981).

(2) This rather striking omission of specific treatment of the foundation and inauguration of Constantinople as opposed to a lengthy account of the building projects in the Holy Land is noted in the commentary on the *Vita Constantini* by Av. Cameron and S. G. Hall, *Eusebius. Life of Constantine* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1999) 274. The most recent edition of the *Life of Constantine*, which is used in the present study, was produced by F. Winkelmann, *Über das Leben des Kaisers Konstantin* (Berlin: Akademie Verlag, 1975) (Die griechischen christlichen Schriftsteller der ersten Jahrhunderte, Eusebius I/I). All the following references to the *Vita Constantini* will be made in the form of an abbreviated title (*VC*) with indication of chapters and sections according to Winkelmann's edition, which is also preserved in the translation by Cameron and Hall, *Eusebius. Life of Constantine...*

(3) *VC* III, 25–47. 3.

stantine's new city.[4] For, as accurately noted by Dagron, the "Christian capital" of Constantine's creation was not so much Constantinople as Jerusalem.[5]

Prior to being raised to the position of prominence in the reign of Constantine the Great, Jerusalem had little importance in Christian eyes, as a historical site of biblical events. During the first three centuries of the Christian era, the city of Jerusalem or, rather, Aelia Capitolina, as it was better known after having been rebuilt by Hadrian in the second century, had a humble status in the Christian world. Before it attracted the attention of the first Christian ruler, Jerusalem was merely an insignificant city in the Roman province of Palestine. Largely due to Constantine's efforts and investment in the physical re-building and construction of Jerusalem as a Christian city and to the enthusiasm of its bishops to establish symbolical and theological pre-eminence, it became a place of major significance for all Christendom. It took less than a century to transform a negligible city into the Christian centre and one of the most important Christian holy places, attracting pilgrims from all over the Roman Empire.

The extraordinary grandeur and imperial munificence displayed in the building works and embellishments of the city conveyed the transparent message of Jerusalem's official pre-eminence. In fact, the Jerusalem so eagerly promoted by Constantine was not an old historical city but a new, Christian Jerusalem, created through an intensive church-building program in general, and particularly by the construction of the central monument at the place of Christ's resurrection.[6] As Eusebius explicitly stated in his account of Constantine's life,

> New Jerusalem was built at the very Testimony to the Saviour, facing the famous Jerusalem of old, which after the bloody murder of the Lord had been overthrown in utter devastation, and paid the penalty of its wicked inhabitants. Opposite this then the Emperor erected the victory of the Saviour over the death with rich and abundant munificence, this being perhaps that fresh new Jerusalem

(4) *VC* III, 47. 4–49.

(5) G. Dagron, *Naissance d'une capitale : Constantinople et ses institutions de 330 à 451* (Paris, Presses universitaires de France, 1974) (Bibliotheque byzantine. Etudes, 7) 389.

(6) Eusebius' attempts to vest the Holy Sepulchre with the biblical and eschatological significance of a New Jerusalem are discussed by R. C. Wilken, *The Land Called Holy: Palestine in Christian History and Thought* (New Haven, Conn.: Yale University, 1992) 93–100.

proclaimed in prophetic oracles, about which long speeches recite innumerable praises as they utter words of divine inspiration.[7]

The earthly physical Jerusalem was crowned with the greatest of Constantine's building achievements — the Holy Sepulchre, designed by its architecture and embellishments to surpass not only all other basilicas but indeed any sort of beautiful foundation ever built.[8] It was this complex — and more specifically the inner *atrium* of the Holy Sepulchre — that came to be identified with the *omphalos*, that is the navel of the world.[9]

The most evident sign of Jerusalem's superiority over Constantinople, manifested particularly clearly towards the end of Constantine's reign, was the celebration of the *tricennalia* event. Jerusalem was chosen as the venue for the main celebration in September 335, whereas Constantinople had to rest content with the second stage of the ceremonies, which took place in July of the following year.[10] The celebration of the third decade of the imperial reign, which was undisputedly of great political importance, acquired an increasingly Christian character. In addition to being marked by the assembly of bishops, similarly to the preceding anniversary at Nicaea a decade earlier, the *tricennalia* festivities included the inauguration of the Christian buildings at the Golgotha site.

The date of the *tricennalia*, as Fraser reasonably argued, was carefully chosen and planned by Constantine to correspond with important

(7) "... καὶ δὴ κατ᾽ αὐτὸ τὸ σωτήριον μαρτύριον ἡ νέα κατασκευάζετο Ἱερουσαλήμ, ἀντιπρόσωπος τῇ πάλαι βοωμένῃ, ἣ μετὰ τὴν κυριοκτόνον μιαιφονίαν ἐρημίας ἐπ᾽ ἔσχατα περιτραπεῖσα δίκην ἔτισε δυσσεβῶν οἰκητόρων. Ταύτης δ᾽ οὖν ἄντικρυς βασιλεὺς τὴν κατὰ τοῦ θανάτου σωτήριον νίκην πλουσίαις καὶ δαψιλέσιν ἀνύψου φιλοτιμίαις, τάχα που ταύτην οὖσαν τὴν διὰ προφητικῶν θεσπισμάτων κεκηρυγμένην καινὴν καὶ νέαν Ἱερουσαλήμ, ἧς περὶ μακροὶ λόγοι μυρία δι᾽ ἐνθέου πνεύματος θεσπίζοντες ἀνυμνοῦσι." (*VC* III, 33.1–3; trans. by Cameron and Hall, *Eusebius. Life of Constantine…*, 135).

(8) *VC* III, 31.1.

(9) Already in the fourth century Cyril of Jerusalem wrote in his *Catechetical lectures*, XIII, 28: "…for this Golgotha is the very centre of the earth. This is not my saying; it is the prophet who has said: 'You wrought salvation in the midst of the earth.'" (L. P. McCauley and A. A. Stephenson (trans.), *The Works of Saint Cyril of Jerusalem*, vol. 2 (Washington, D. C.: The Catholic University of America Press, 1970) (The Fathers of the Church, 64) 22).

(10) H. A. Drake, When was the *De laudibus Constantini* delivered? *Historia* 24 (1975) 345–356.

Roman and Jewish feasts.[11] The dedication of the Holy Sepulchre was introduced into the festivities of the *tricennalia* and was meant essentially for glorification of Constantine's rule. However, this occasion of state gained a special religious significance and was destined to firmly enter the liturgy of the Jerusalem church as an annual anniversary of the Encaenia, which is the festival of the church dedication.

One might wonder how much of the interest in the promotion of the Holy Land, and particularly of Jerusalem, as a Christian holy place arose from Constantine's own intentions and desires. A famous legendary tradition attributed a leading role behind the building achievements in the Holy Land to Constantine's mother, Helena, who was long considered to be responsible for construction of a series of churches in Jerusalem and Palestine. Her historical part, however, has been deemed more modest than depicted in the legendary cycle and her involvement into building projects in the Holy Land quite insignificant.[12]

As a matter of fact, it is Eusebius of Caesarea who has come to be credited with radical transformations of the Christian Empire under Constantine.[13] If Eusebius was indeed an inspiration and, often, a driving force of Constantinian religious policies, might he have exerted some influence on Constantine in his development of the building programme in the Holy Land and, particularly, in Jerusalem? Close

(11) Fraser pointed out that the celebration of the Encaenia in 335 was connected with the cult of Jupiter, Roman non-Christian celebrations of the *Ludi Romani* and *Ludi Triumphales*, and Jewish day of Atonement and the feast of Tabernacles (M. Fraser, Constantine and the Encaenia, *SP* 39 (1997) 25–28).

(12) A medieval tradition ascribed a key significance to Constantine's mother Helena as an initiator of the building programme in Jerusalem and other places of the Holy Land. This fictitious material was for a long time used by historians without proper discrimination. For recent studies on the role of Helena in the construction of basilicas in the holy places of Palestine, and especially in Jerusalem, drawing a clear line between legendary and historical material see E. D. Hunt, *Holy Land Pilgrimage in the Later Roman Empire AD 312–460* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1982) 28–49; J. W. Drijvers, *Helena Augusta. The Mother of Constantine the Great and the Legend of her Finding of the True Cross* (Leiden: Brill, 1992) (Brill's Studies in Intellectual History, 27); cf. also the commentary by Cameron and Hall, *Eusebius. Life of Constantine*, 296.

(13) This traditional view has been challenged by Barnes, who cast doubts on the fact that Eusebius was a close adviser of Constantine (T. D. Barnes, *Eusebius and Constantine* (Cambridge, Mass.: Harvard University Press, 1981) 266–267).

study of the personal attitudes of Eusebius to the Biblical sites of the Holy Land and, particularly, the city of Jerusalem revealed that the bishop of Caesarea could hardly have been involved in the enormous transformations that started to take place during his time. Thus, it is very unlikely that Eusebius somehow initiated or eagerly supported Constantinian efforts to construct a Christian Holy Land, since his views and convictions concerning these places were significantly different from Constantine's.[14]

Important in this regard is a monograph of Walker.[15] He showed that Eusebius' attitude towards the issue of *loca sancta* was far from positive, especially in the earlier stage of his life. The negative approach to Jerusalem and other Christian holy places, as scholars argued, stem from Eusebius' theological convictions and from the tensed relations between the sees of Caesarea and Jerusalem.[16] His restrained stance on the significance of the Holy Land underwent little change even as Eusebius faced a strongly emerging interest in Christian Jerusalem and holy places during the later stage of his career (after 325).

Eusebius did not attribute any prominent status to the city of Jerusalem; rather, it was the whole land of Palestine that attracted his attention. He recognized that several places connected with the earthly life of Christ had some special distinction. Eusebius demonstrated considerable concern for just a few particular places, which are known as the "triad" of churches built over the 'mystic caves,' that is the churches constructed at Bethlehem, on the Mount of Olives, and over the cave of Christ's resurrection.[17] Walker's meticulous analysis, therefore, substantiated a view that it was not Eusebius but Constantine himself who promoted the city of Jerusalem with convinced devotion.

Eusebius' *Vita Constantini* on the Building and Dedication of the Holy Sepulchre

Despite the fact that Eusebius had a somewhat cool attitude towards Jerusalem, he was enthusiastic about the discovery of Christ's tomb and positively disposed to the foundation of the church of Holy

(14) E. J. Yarnold, Who Planned the Churches at the Christian Holy Places in the Holy Land? *SP* 18 (1989) 105–109.

(15) Walker, *Holy City, Holy Places*…

(16) Z. Rubin, Church of the Holy Sepulchre and the Conflict between the Sees of Caesarea and Jerusalem, *Jerusalem Cathedra* 2 (1982) 79–105.

(17) Walker, *Holy City, Holy Places*…, 110.

Sepulchre. The amount of space and emphasis given by Eusebius to the discovery and foundation of the Holy Sepulchre in the *Vita Constantini* has struck modern scholars. Eusebius' meticulous description testifies, at the very least, to his great excitement about the revelation of the Saviour's cave and subsequent construction of the church, which was destined to become one of the major shrines of the whole Christendom.

The excavation of the site around the rock of Golgotha, building of the church of the Holy Sepulchre and especially, the finding of the True Cross, have all been connected with Constantine's mother, Helena, in later hagiographical traditions and accounts.[18] Yet, it is only in the later tradition that she would gain fame as the founder of many edifices of the new Christian Jerusalem. Eusebius does not introduce Helena into his description of the building scheme of the churches in Jerusalem; apparently, she had no significant role to play in Constantine's principal building programme at the Golgotha site. Eusebius, while crediting Helena with the initiative to build churches at Bethlehem and on the Mount of Olives,[19] attributes the excavations, discovery of Christ's tomb and the subsequent construction of the Basilica solely to Constantine. Eusebius takes care to ensure that Constantine receives all the credit for this building achievement.

According to Eusebius, it is the emperor who was divinely inspired to start the excavations at the place of the Tomb. Eusebius regards it as a demonstration of God's favour that Constantine was moved to discover the site of Christ's Tomb which, it is worth noting, he refers to not as a place of burial but of resurrection:

> He decided that he ought to make universally famous and revered the most blessed site in Jerusalem of the Saviour's resurrection. So at once he gave orders for a place of worship to be constructed,

(18) There are a number of studies devoted to the subject of Helena's legendary discovery of the Cross with the subsequent foundation of churches and to hagiographical variations of the *inventio crucis* account both in the West and East. For details, see the classical studies by Borgehammar, *How the Holy Cross was Found*; Drijvers, *Helena Augusta…*; and H. J. W. Drijvers and J. W. Drijvers, *The Finding of the True Cross. The Judas Kyriakos Legend in Syriac* (Leuven: Peeters, 1997) (CSCO, 565); as well as a recent comprehensive work by B. Baert, *A Heritage of the Holy Wood: The Legend of the True Cross in Text and Image* (Leiden—Boston: Brill, 2004) (Cultures, Beliefs, and Traditions, 22).

(19) *VC* III, 43.

> conceiving this idea not without God, but with his spirit moved by the Saviour himself.[20]

At the divine incentive, Eusebius continues, the emperor engaged in clearing the spot. The divine monument had lain hidden under a heap of soil and all sorts of rubbish. What is more, the holy place was polluted by an idolatrous temple that had been constructed over Christ's tomb — the sanctuary to Aphrodite — where pagan sacrifices were offered.[21] The pious efforts of the emperor did not end with the total demolition of Aphrodite's shrine and "houses of error." Constantine ordered all the rubble of stones and timbers remaining after the demolition to be carried away and dumped far from the site and the area to be excavated to a great depth, so that even the pavement and soil stained by the bloodshed of idol-worship would be cleared and removed.[22] Eusebius' description of the clearing process, which is loaded with sacred vocabulary, culminates in the revelation of the cave of Christ's resurrection.

> As stage by stage the underground site was exposed, at last against all expectation the revered and all-hallowed Testimony (μαρτύριον) of the Saviour's resurrection was itself revealed, and the cave, the holy of holies, took on the appearance of a representation of the Saviour's return to life.[23]

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(20) "Τὸν ἐν τοῖς Ἱεροσολύμοις τῆς σωτηρίου ἀναστάσεως μακαριστότατον τόπον ἐδόκει δεῖν αὐτῷ προφανῆ καὶ σεπτὸν ἀποφῆναι τοῖς πᾶσιν. Αὐτίκα γοῦν οἶκον εὐκτήριον συστήσασθαι διεκελεύετο, οὐκ ἀθεεὶ τοῦτ᾽ ἐν διανοίᾳ βαλὼν ἀλλ᾽ ὑπ᾽ αὐτοῦ τοῦ σωτῆρος ἀνακινηθεὶς τῷ πνεύματι." (*VC* III, 25–26.1; trans. by Cameron and Hall, *Eusebius. Life of Constantine…*, 132).

(21) The church of Holy Sepulchre was doubtless built at the place of a pagan temple, which, however, may not be necessarily that of Aphrodite. The coins of Aelia Capitolina contain the representation of two temples of Tyche, whereas Jerome (*Ep.* 58.3) refers to the statue of Jupiter. Cf. the commentary by Cameron and Hall, *Eusebius. Life of Constantine…*, 278–279; M. Biddle, The Tomb of Christ: Sources, Methods and a New Approach, in: K. Painter (ed.), *Churches Built in Ancient Times: Recent Studies in Early Christian Archaeology* (London: Society of Antiquaries of London, 1994) 96.

(22) *VC* III, 27.

(23) "Ὡς δ᾽ ἕτερον ἀνθ᾽ ἑτέρου στοιχεῖον ὁ κατὰ βάθους τῆς γῆς ἀνεφάνη χῶρος, αὐτὸ δὴ λοιπὸν τὸ σεμνὸν καὶ πανάγιον τῆς σωτηρίου ἀναστάσεως μαρτύριον παρ᾽ ἐλπίδα πᾶσαν ἀνεφαίνετο, καὶ τό γε ἅγιον τῶν ἁγίων ἄντρον τὴν ὁμοίαν τῆς τοῦ σωτῆρος ἀναβιώσεως ἀπελάμβανεν

Further on, Eusebius attributes the building of the Holy Sepulchre wholly to the initiative and efforts of Constantine himself. Following imperial orders, various supplies and materials were collected and the basilica was built. Eusebius underlines the emperor's munificence in building and embellishing works at the tomb, which he decorated "with superb columns and full ornamentation, brightening the solemn cave with all kinds of artwork."[24] The emperor adorned the entire shrine erected at the place of Christ's resurrection with rich craftsmanship skillfully wrought of gold, silver and precious stones. Eusebius has recourse to a conventional rhetorical formula to express his fascination with the exceeding beauties of the newly-built complex — he claims the magnificence of the church is beyond any description.[25]

A full literary treatment of the extraordinary ceremonies surrounding the celebration of the inauguration of the Holy Sepulchre follows,[26] somewhat separated from the account of the revelation of the site and the church's foundation. A gap in the narrative apparently reflects the chronological distance between the two events: several years elapsed after the foundation of the Holy Sepulchre until it was dedicated.

The splendour of the dedication of the Holy Sepulchre was enhanced by the assembly of bishops, who were urged by Constantine to come hastily to Jerusalem after the Council of Tyre.[27] The vast body of ecclesiastical dignitaries attending the festival of the Encaenia was honoured with "a friendly reception, with brilliant banquets and merry parties."[28] The person appointed by Constantine to be in charge of the celebration did not leave the less dignified participants unattended either: on behalf of the emperor, who was actually absent at the Jerusalem celebration, he made lavish distributions of clothing, money and food to the multitudes of the poor and destitute.[29]

εἰκονα." (*VC* III, 28; trans. by Cameron and Hall, *Eusebius. Life of Constantine…*, 133).

(24) "... ἐξαιρέτοις κίοσι κόσμῳ τε πλείστῳ κατεποίκιλλεν ἡ βασιλέως φιλοτιμία, παντοίοις καλλωπίσμασι τὸ σεμνὸν ἄντρον φαιδρύνουσα." (*VC* III, 34; trans. by Cameron and Hall, *Eusebius. Life of Constantine…*, 135).

(25) *VC*, III, 40.

(26) *VC* IV, 43–48.

(27) *VC* IV, 43.

(28) ". . . φιλοφρόνῳ δεξιώσει ἑστιάσεσί τε λαμπραῖς καὶ συμποτικαῖς εὐωχίαις." (*VC* IV, 44. 1; trans. by Cameron and Hall, *Eusebius. Life of Constantine…*, 170).

(29) *VC* IV, 44.2.

The feast was enriched with various prayers, sermons, readings and expositions of the Scriptures. Eusebius himself made a number of addresses to those assembled for the Encaenia and, according to his own witness, delivered a speech where he set down "a description of the Saviour's church, of the salvific cave, of the Emperor's works of art and large number of offerings made of gold, silver and precious stones."[30] Eusebius closes his report of the Encaenia festival with a traditional comparison of Constantine's accomplishing and consecrating the church to a pleasant peace-time offering to God.

The Feast of the Encaenia of the Holy Sepulchre in the Christian East

Besides the main witness of Eusebius on the historical foundation and dedication of the Holy Sepulchre, there are a few other sources shedding light on further development of the festival — its institution and celebration within the annual liturgical cycle.

One of the best surviving witnesses describing the celebration of the Encaenia shortly after its institution is the diary left by Egeria.[31] This late fourth-century record shows that soon after the actual dedication feast of the Constantinian buildings at the Golgotha site, this magnificent occasion of the State celebrating imperial achievements entered the purely ecclesiastical realm and was incorporated into the Byzantine liturgical cycle. Already by the end of the fourth century, festivities connected with the dedication of the Holy Sepulchre were regarded as one of the most important celebrations in the liturgical year of Jerusalem. The commemoration of Jerusalem Encaenia devel-

(30) "Οἷος δ᾽ ὁ τοῦ σωτῆρος νεώς, οἷον τὸ σωτήριον ἄντρον, οἷαί τε αἱ βασιλέως φιλοκαλίαι ἀναθημάτων τε πλήθη ἐν χρυσῷ τε καὶ ἀργύρῳ καὶ λίθοις τιμίοις πεποιημένων, κατὰ δύναμιν ἐν οἰκείῳ συγγράμματι παραδόντες αὐτῷ βασιλεῖ προσεφωνήσαμεν." (*VC* IV, 46; trans. by Cameron and Hall, *Eusebius. Life of Constantine…*, 171). This reference of Eusebius to a certain speech which he promised to append to his *Vita Constantini* does not seem to be reconcilable with the surviving oration on the dedication of the Holy Sepulchre. The known work on the Holy Sepulchre does not really give any physical description of the church but contains a rather sophisticated theological exposition. Was it indeed this speech that Eusebius meant here in the *Vita Constantini*? For an exhaustive treatment of this problem, see H. A. Drake, *In Praise of Constantine: A Historical Study and New Translation of Eusebius' Tricennial Orations* (Berkeley—Los Angeles—London: University of California Press, 1975) (University of California Publications in Classical Studies, 15).

(31) Egeria, *Journal de voyage*, 316–319.

oped into a major festival on a par with Easter and Epiphany, these three being the only feasts marked with the eight-day festivities at the early Byzantine liturgy.[32]

By the time the Jerusalem feast of dedication is first witnessed as an annual celebration, it has acquired a new element — the motif of the finding of the True Cross. The extant sources suggest that the liturgical celebration of the Discovery of the Cross was already integrated into the octave of the Encaenia in the second half of the fourth century.[33] The appearance and development of the feast of the Cross — first as an integral part of the liturgical celebration of Encaenia and later as an independent feast — is a rather intricate issue and has been the focus of a lively discussion for quite some time.[34] The majority of scholarly interest in this area, however, has been sparked by the legend connected with the feast of the Cross, the story of the *inventio crucis* that allegedly happened during Helena's visit to the Holy Land. The discovery of the True Cross, which was presented in the context of the building programme in Jerusalem with, often, a cursory glance onto the Encaenia, deserves a more detailed treatment and will be discussed in the next section.[35]

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(32) "His ergo diebus enceniarum ipse ornatus omnium ecclesiarum est, qui et per pascha uel per epiphania, et ita per singulos dies diuersis locis sanctis proceditur ut per pascha uel epiphania." (Egeria, *Journal de voyage*, 318). That the feast of the Cross, having originated from the Encaenia, was of the major importance is explicitly pointed out in Pseudo-Cyril's discourse on the Cross: "Now the Lord said unto Moses, 'Make a feast to Me three times each year.' Which then of your festivals is the greatest today, O my beloved? [Is it not] this which taketh place in the first month of each year, that is to say, the festival of the Manifestation of the Cross?" (trans. E. A. Wallis-Budge, *Miscellaneous Coptic Texts in the Dialects of Upper Egypt* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1915) 780).

(33) The pilgrim Egeria, writing at the end of the fourth century, is the first one to note the celebration of the invention of the Cross within the framework of the Encaenia festival (Egeria, *Journal de voyage*, 316).

(34) One of the most recent studies of the feast of the Exaltation of the Cross with a comprehensive bibliography of earlier scholarship is published by L. van Tongeren, *Exaltation of the Cross: Towards the Origins of the Feast of the Cross and the Meaning of the Cross in Early Medieval Liturgy* (Leuven: Peeters, 2000) (Liturgia condenda, 11).

(35) A concise yet useful summary of the problem of historicity of the *inventio crucis* legend presenting the most recent consensus on the issue is given by J. W. Drijvers, *Cyril of Jerusalem: Bishop and City* (Leiden—Boston: Brill, 2004) (*VC* Supp., 72) 167–175.

First, however, it is necessary to look at the formation, early development and nature of the liturgical feast of the Encaenia in Jerusalem which was instituted, first and foremost, as a commemoration of the dedication of the churches at the Golgotha site.

The earliest stage of the Byzantine liturgy, that is its Jerusalemite epoch, has been a subject of numerous studies and reconstructions. Since most of the original Greek works from that period have been lost, our knowledge of the early Byzantine liturgy is derived, as a rule, from later Oriental translations. In this respect, Old Georgian and Armenian literature is invaluable. It has preserved a considerable number of translations of the early Byzantine sources the significance of which is generally recognized, especially with regard to those falling into the sphere of liturgy and homiletics. It has been possible to reconstruct the liturgy of the Jerusalemite Encaenia quite accurately based on the Georgian and Armenian lectionaries[36] and a partial record in the diary of the fourth-century pilgrim from Gaul Egeria.[37]

The liturgical celebration of the Encaenia in Jerusalem, starting on 13 September, lasted for eight days and was a major pilgrims' festival. These particular details invited modern scholars to compare it with the Jewish feast of Tabernacles which, arguably, was one of the models that influenced the dedication festival.[38]

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(36) For lections used during the octave of the Encaenia, see M. Tarchnischvili (trans.), *Le Grand Lectionnaire de l'Église de Jérusalem (V^e–VII^e siècle)*, vol. 2 (Louvain: Secrétariat du CSCO, 1960) (CSCO, 205 ; Scriptores Iberici, 14) 36–40; A. Renoux (ed.), Le codex Arménien Jérusalem 121. II. Édition comparée du texte et de deux autres manuscrits, in: *PO* 36/2, 361–363; Idem, La croix dans le rite arménien: histoire et symbolisme, *Melto* 5/1 (1969) 141–144; S. Verhelst, The Liturgy of Jerusalem in the Byzantine Period, in: O. Limor and G. Stroumsa (eds.), *Christians and Christianity in the Holy Land: From the Origins to the Latin Kingdoms* (Turnhout: Brepols, 2006) (Cultural Encounters in Late Antiquity and the Middle Ages, 5) 444–445; J. Wilkinson, *Egeria's Travels to the Holy Land.* Revised edition (Jerusalem: Ariel Publishing House — Warminster: Aris & Phillips, 1981) 274–275; M. Fraser, *The Feast of the Encaenia in the Forth Century and in the Ancient Liturgical Sources of Jerusalem.* Ph.D. diss. (University of Durham, 1996) 184–216.

(37) Egeria, *Journal de voyage*, 318. Egeria indicates the stations for each day of the Encaenia. Her description of the Octave, unfortunately, is cut off in the surviving manuscripts of the diary. The record is interrupted on the fourth day of the festivities.

(38) For a detailed discussion of the Jewish influences on the formation of the early Christian Jerusalemite rite and of the resemblance of the Encae-

According to the journal of a fourth-century pilgrim, great numbers of monks and *apotactites*[39] from all the provinces and regions drew to Jerusalem for the festival of the Encaenia.

> At the time of Encaenia they keep festival for eight days, and for many days beforehand the crowds begin to assemble. Monks and apotactites come not only from the provinces having large numbers of them, such as Mesopotamia, Syria, Egypt, and the Thebaid, but from every region and province. Not one of them fails to make for Jerusalem to share the celebrations of this solemn feast. There are also lay men and women from every province gathering in Jerusalem at this time for the holy day. And although bishops are few and far between, they never have less than forty or fifty in Jerusalem at this time, accompanied by many of their clergy. In fact I should say that people regard it as a grave sin to miss taking part in this solemn feast, unless anyone had been prevented from coming by an emergency.[40]

Egeria emphasizes the significance of the Encaenia by indicating that missing the festival, unless somebody was prevented by an emergency, was reputed as a grave sin.

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nia with the feast of Tabernacles, which is especially manifested in the time framework and character of the festival, see M. Black, The Festival of Encaenia Ecclesiae in the Ancient Church with Special Reference to Palestine and Syria, *Journal of Ecclesiastical History* 5 (1954) 78–85; Wilkinson, Jewish Influences on the Early Christian Rite of Jerusalem, *Le Muséon* 92 (1979) 347–359.

(39) The name *apotactites*, meaning literally "people set apart," was used to refer to both monks and nuns. Cf. Wilkinson, *Egeria's Travels...*, 35.

(40) "Hi ergo dies enceniarum cum uenerint, octo diebus attenduntur. Nam ante plurimos dies incipiunt se undique colligere turbae, non solum monachorum uel aputactitum de diuersis prouinciis, id est tam de Mesopotamia uel Syria uel de Egypto aut Thebaida, ubi plurimi monazontes sunt, sed et de diuersis omnibus locis uel prouinciis; nullus est enim, qui non se eadem die in Ierusolima tendat ad tantam laetitiam et tam honorabiles dies; seculares autem tam uiri quam feminae fideli animo propter diem sanctum similiter se de omnibus prouinciis isdem diebus Ierusolima colligunt. Episcopi autem, quando parui fuerint, hisdem diebus Ierusolima plus quadraginta aut quinquaginta sunt; et cum illis ueniunt multi clerici sui. Et quid plura? Putat se maximum peccatum incurrisse, qui in hisdem diebus tante sollennitati inter non fuerit, si tamen nulla necessitas contraria fuerit, quae hominem a bono proposito retinet." (Egeria, *Journal de voyage*, 316–318; trans. Wilkinson, *Egeria's Travels...*, 146–147).

The *Ecclesiastical History* of Sozomenus presents the best available historical record of the institution of the annual feast of the Encaenia. After describing the inauguration of the church at the Golgotha site which he calls the "great martyrion," Sozomenus writes that

> Since that period the anniversary of the consecration has been celebrated with great pomp by the church of Jerusalem; the festival continues eight days, initiation by baptism is administered, and the people from every region under the sun resort to Jerusalem during this festival, and visit the sacred places.[41]

The eighth-century Syriac chronicle conventionally attributed to Pseudo-Dionysius of Tel-Mahre makes mention of the feast of the Encaenia as well. In the lemma for the year 516/517, a chronicler recounts a certain extraordinary incident that happened during the celebration of the Jerusalem Encaenia. This brief reference to the Encaenia shows that in the sixth century the feast continued to be a significant pilgrims' festival attracting many people from different provinces. It was also an occasion when the setting of the Cross was celebrated.[42]

Medieval homiletic and hagiographic literature usually discussed the theme of the building and consecration of the Holy Sepulchre in association with the famous legendary episode of the finding of the True Cross, but there are also some occasional references to the festival of Encaenia in Jerusalem scattered in saints' *Vitae*. For example, the enduring importance of the Jerusalemite Encaenia in the sixth century can be gleaned from the *Vita Sabae*.[43] The hagiographer Cyril of Scythopolis relates that the approaching Encaenia was faced with sad-

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(41) "Ἐξ ἐκείνου δὲ ἐτήσιον ταύτην τὴν ἑορτὴν λαμπρῶς μάλα ἄγει ἡ Ἱεροσολύμων ἐκκλησία, ὡς καὶ μυήσεις ἐν αὐτῇ τελεῖσθαι, καὶ ὀκτὼ ἡμέρας ἐφεξῆς ἐκκλησιάζειν, συνιέναι τε πολλοὺς σχεδὸν ἐκ πάσης τῆς ὑφ᾽ ἥλιον, οἳ καθ᾽ ἱστορίαν τῶν ἱερῶν τόπων πάντοθεν συντρέχουσι κατὰ τὸν καιρὸν ταύτης τῆς πανηγύρεως." (Sozomène, *Hist. Eccl.* II, 26.4; trans. Ph. Schaff and H. Wace, *A Select Library of Nicene and Post-Nicene Fathers of the Christian Church*, Second Series, vol. 2 (Michigan: Eerdmans Publishing Company, 1979) 276–277).

(42) "The year 828 (A.D. 516/517): many people of (Upper) Egypt, Alexandria and Transjordania — Edomites and Arabs — gathered and came to the feast of the Encaenia, of the setting up of the Cross in Jerusalem, which took place on the 14th September." (Pseudo-Dionysius of Tel-Mahre, *Chronicle*; trans. with notes and intro. W. Witakowski (Liverpool: Liverpool University Press, 1996) (Translated Texts for Historians, 22) 16).

(43) *CPG* 7536; *BHG* 1608.

ness; because of the lasting draught in Palestine there was no water left and secular officials of the province of Palestine feared a revolt of the people. After an unsuccessful attempt to reach water by digging ditches, the officials recurred to the help of St. Sabas and implored him to pray for rain. In response to the prayer of the Holy Man, the abundant rain poured down and the feast of the *Encaenia* was celebrated with great joy. The beginning of September is mentioned as the time of the draught. Although no precise date is given, this chronological detail would allow placing the approaching Encaenia at the mid-September, which is entirely consistent with other sources.[44] The same text also corroborates evidence that the Jerusalemite feast attracted many visitors, since St. Sabas is said to have attended the feast "as was customary for superiors," and to have been accompanied by some brothers from the monastery near Nicopolis.[45]

In his homily on the Cross,[46] most likely composed in the sixth or seventh century,[47] Pseudo-Cyril of Jerusalem relates a few episodes from the legends of the Constantinian cycle and the stories of the Cross. A substantial part of the homily is devoted to the events that took place under Constantine the Great, his foundations in Jerusalem and the invention of the Cross. It is interesting to note that the Coptic homily makes a clear distinction between the two events: the discovery of the Cross and the excavations of the Tomb.[48] Thus, according

(44) E. Schwartz (ed.), *Kyrillos von Skythopolis* (Leipzig: J. C. Hinrichs Verlag, 1939) (TU, 49/2) 168–169.

(45) "Τῆς οὖν ἡμέρας τῶν ἐγκαινίων φθασάσης κατὰ τὴν τῶν ἡγουμένων συνήθειαν ἀνέρχεται εἰς τὴν ἁγίαν πόλιν μετά τινων ἀδελφῶν τοῦ περὶ Νικόπολιν μοναστηρίου." (*Kyrillos von Skythopolis*, 121; trans. R. M. Price, *Cyril of Scythopolis: The Lives of the Monks of Palestine* (Kalamazoo, Mich.: Cistercian Publications, 1991) (Cistercian Studies Series, 114) 130).

(46) *In sanctam crucem*, *CPG* 3602.

(47) Campagnano fixes the date of the final redaction of the Coptic cycle of homilies traditionally attributed to Cyril of Jerusalem, including the homily on the Cross, in the first half of the seventh century (A. Campagnano (ed., intro., and trans.), *Ps. Cirillo de Gerusalemme. Omelie copte sulla Passione, sulla Croce e sulla Vergine* (Milan: Cisalpino-Goliardica, 1980) (Testi e documenti per lo studio dell' antichità, 65) 14). See also T. Wilfong, Constantine in Coptic. Egyptian Constructions of Constantine the Great, in: S. N. C. Lieu and D. Montserrat (eds.), *Constantine: History, Historiography and Legend* (London—New York, 1998) 181.

(48) Remarkably, it is only in Coptic literature that a unique legend of the discovery of the Tomb, as opposed to the discovery of the Cross, is preserved.

to Pseudo-Cyril, when Constantine started his search for the spots of Christ's crucifixion and burial, he questioned the leaders of the Jews in Jerusalem for both of them,[49] contrary to the mainstream tradition of the *inventio crucis* legend, wherein Helena is told to enquire for the place of the crucifixion only. Since his whole exposition was aimed to give an explanation of the feast of the Holy Cross, which was the occasion when the homily was delivered, Pseudo-Cyril stresses the twofold subject of the feast: "And the day whereon they consecrated the holy church was the seventeenth day of the month of Thoth [14 September], which is the day of the manifestation of the Holy Cross and the Holy Tomb."[50] At the end of his homily, Pseudo-Cyril makes his point all the more clear; the feast they are celebrating commemorates both the Holy Cross and the foundation of the churches (referred to as the "new city" and implying, doubtless, the foundation of the Holy Sepulchre as a New Jerusalem).

> Io ho detto tutto ciò alla vostra benevolenza volendo spiegare questo, cioè quale sia la ragione per cui facciamo festa per la santa croce oggi. Ecco dunque, la cosa è chiara: questa è la santa croce, ed è anche il giorno della consacrazione dei santi templi e della nuova città che il pio imperatore Costantino fondò.[51]

This legend will be given more detailed analysis below in the part dealing with the hagiographical expression of the feast of the Encaenia.

(49) "And Constantine rose up quickly, and he took with him his mother, and his sister, who was a virgin, and a large quantity of baggage, and a large escort of soldiers and slaves, and manly holy bishops, and he departed with them to Jerusalem. And he caused to be brought before him the chief Jews, and he asked them questions, saying, 'I wish you to show me the place where [stood] the Cross whereon Jesus was hung, and the tomb wherein His Divine Body was laid, for the glorification of my kingdom" (trans. Wallis-Budge, *Miscellaneous Coptic Texts…*, 794).

(50) Trans. Wallis-Budge, *Miscellaneous Coptic Texts…*, 804.

(51) Campagnano, *Ps. Cirillo de Gerusalemme. Omelie copte...*, 145. Wallis-Budge, however, gives a somewhat different version in his English translation: "I have related all these things to your beloved persons, and I have revealed them onto you, for it is right so to do, so that we may keep the feast of the manifestation of the Cross, that is to say, the seventeenth of the month Thoth. Behold now the matter is manifest to us, through all the proofs [which we have adduced concerning] the manifestation of the Cross, and the dedication of the Holy Church of the Resurrection, which is [commemorated] on the seventeenth day of the month Thoth, according to the [reckoning of the] Egyptians" (trans. Wallis-Budge, *Miscellaneous Coptic Texts…*, 805).

According to the explanation of Ps.-Cyril of Jerusalem, the feast of the Cross was tightly connected with the dedication of the churches — the key association that was there nearly from the beginning of the Encaenia but, with time, loosened and gradually disappeared.

One of the earliest Byzantine accounts recreating hagiographical history behind the festival of the Invention of the Cross[52] — and touching marginally upon the festival of the Encaenia — was produced by the sixth-century author, Alexander the Monk.[53] Although the author was primary commissioned to compose an historical narrative of the discovery of the life-bringing Wood,[54] he could not avoid relating in some detail the Constantinian foundations and subsequent celebration of the dedication at the Golgotha site, since it constituted a relevant

(52) *De inventione sanctae crucis*, *PG* 87/3:4016–4076. *CPG* 7398; *BHG* 410–410c, 411. A diplomatic edition of Alexander the Monk's *Inventio Crucis* discourse was made by C. Pennacchini, *Discorso storico dell'invenzione della croce* (Grottaferrata: Tipografia Italo-Orientale "S. Nilo," 1913). At present, J. W. Nesbitt is preparing a critical edition of the *De inventione crucis* for the *CCSG.*

(53) Kazhdan doubted the early dating of Alexander's tract (conventionally placed in the sixth century) and denied the possibility of any dating more precise than the period between the sixth and the ninth centuries (A. P. Kazhdan, "*Constantine imaginaire.*" Byzantine Legends of the Ninth Century about Constantine the Great, *Byz* 57 (1987) 199–200; idem, s.v. Alexander the Monk, in: *Oxford Dictionary of Byzantium*, vol. 1 (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1991) 60). The arguments of van Esbroeck, placing the text between 543 and 553, seem to be more convincing (cf. M. van Esbroeck, L'opuscule "sur la Croix" d'Alexandre de Chypre et sa version géorgienne, *Bedi Kartlisa* 37 (1979) 102–132. See the section on the authorship and dating of the Encomium of the Apostle Barnabas, which came from the pen of Alexander the Monk too: P. Van Deun (ed.), *Hagiographica Cypria. Sancti Barnabae laudatio auctore Alexandro Monacho* (Turnhout: Brepols, 1993) (CCSG, 26) 15–21. The discussion of dating is resumed by J. W. Nesbitt, Alexander the Monk's Text of Helena's Discovery of the Cross (*BHG* 410), in: Idem (ed.), *Byzantine Authors: Literary Activities and Preoccupations. Texts and Translations Dedicated to the Memory of Nicolas Oikonomides* (Leiden—Boston: Brill, 2003) (Medieval Mediterranean: Peoples, Economies and Cultures, 400–1453, 40) 29–33, who also argues for the sixth century as a date of the composition of the treatise. Seeing the work of Alexander as a coherent example of pilgrim propaganda, he assumes that it was written before the reign of Heraclius which witnessed the disruption of pilgrimage traffic (Ibid., 39).

(54) "Ἐκελεύσατε γὰρ τῇ ἐμῇ οὐδενείᾳ, ἱστορικόν τινα λόγον ποιήσασθαι περὶ τῆς εὑρέσεως τοῦ ζωοποιοῦ ξύλου, τοῦ πανσέπτου καὶ σεβασμίου σταυροῦ" (*PG* 87/3: 4016A3–5).

context of the *inventio*. Very likely, Alexander composed the narrative specifically to be read at the liturgical celebration of the discovery of the Cross, as his own reference to the feast as "the famous day of our festival" would suggest.[55] A later Georgian translation of Alexander's story was inserted into the liturgical collection and meant as *lectio hagiographica* for the celebration of the feast of the Cross on 14 September further suggesting that this was the text's originally intended purpose.[56]

In his exposition of the discovery of the Cross, Alexander makes a specific comment on the establishment of the liturgical feast.

> After receiving her [Helena] with joy and placing the piece of the honoured Cross in a golden chest he [Constantine] handed it over to the bishop for safe-keeping, commanding that the discovery of the Cross be celebrated at commemorations annually.[57]

Similarly, at the end of his narrative, Alexander indicates the precise date of the newly established feast of the Cross: "By imperial command the Fathers determined to celebrate the revered day of the exaltation of the honoured Cross and of the consecration [τῶν ἐγκαινίων], annually on the fourteenth of the month of September..."[58] In this way, Alexander reveals the history of the appearance of the Encaenia feast, meant to commemorate both the Cross and the church dedications.

The ceremony of the dedication of the holy sites — which the narrative calls a New Jerusalem, undoubtedly referring to the Holy Sepulchre — is discussed merely as a background episode for the discovery of the Cross. It seems that at the time of account's composition the

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(55) "Ἐπειδὴ δὲ χάριτι Θεοῦ κατηντήσαμεν τῷ λόγῳ εἰς τὴν εὔσημον ἡμέραν τῆς ἑορτῆς ἡμῶν ἥτις ἐστὶν ἀνάδειξις τοῦ ζωοποιοῦ σταυροῦ, φέρε καθὼς οἷόν τέ ἐστιν, μικρά τι χαιρετήσαντες τὸν σταυρὸν, καταπαύσωμεν τὸν λόγον" (*PG* 87/3: 4072B3–7).

(56) Van Esbroeck, L'opuscule "sur la Croix"..., 106.

(57) "Ὁ δὲ μετὰ χαρᾶς αὐτὴν ὑποδεξάμενος, τὴν μὲν τοῦ τιμίου σταυροῦ μερίδα ἐν χρυσῇ θήκῃ ἀποθέμενος παρέδωκε τῷ ἐπισκόπῳ εἰς τήρησιν, ἐνιαυσιαίαις μνήμαις ἑορτάζειν τὴν ἀνάδειξιν τοῦ σταυροῦ προστάξας" (*PG* 87/3:4064A15–B4; trans. R. Scott, Alexander the Monk, *Discovery of the True Cross*, in: M. Mullett (ed.), *Metaphrastes, or Gained in Translation* (Belfast: Belfast Byzantine Enterprises, 2004) 179).

(58) "Τὴν δὲ σεβάσμιον ἡμέραν τῆς ὑψώσεως τοῦ τιμίου σταυροῦ, καὶ τῶν ἐγκαινίων ὡρίσαντο οἱ Πατέρες μετὰ βασιλικοῦ προστάγματος τελεῖσθαι ἀνὰ ἔτος ἕκαστον τῇ τεσσαρεσκαιδεκάτῃ τοῦ Σεπτεμβρίου μηνός. . ." (*PG* 87/3: 4072A11–15; trans. R. Scott, 182 with my correction).

event of the Encaenia was not accorded much significance. This lack of interest in the dedication of the Holy Sepulchre could imply that the narrative was written at the stage when the commemoration of the Encaenia, while still lingering in the religious memory, was being superseded by the celebration of the Invention of the Cross. Thus, in Alexander's times the celebration of the discovery of the Cross may have been the main element of the feast, the dedication of the churches having already only the secondary role.

Therefore, it is possible to observe that through time the connection between the two feasts was obliterated and the feast of the Cross became entirely detached from the Encaenia, having lost its original association with the foundations at the Golgotha site. This process of detachment of the Feast of the Cross from the Encaenia, the latter apparently falling into complete disuse, can be well observed in the writings of Sophronius, the seventh-century patriarch of Jerusalem, who exhibits surprising ignorance of the historical relation between the Encaenia and the feast of the Cross. In his homily on the dedication of the Anastasis church and the Exaltation of the Cross[59] Sophronius expressed his astonishment at the order of the two feasts. He wondered why the feast of the Anastasis, having its roots in the historical dedication of the church of the Resurrection, preceded the feast of the Cross. Sophronius searched in vain for a reasonable explanation in the Biblical narrative of the Christ's passion and resurrection.[60]

In the *Vita S. Mariae Aegyptiae*, spuriously ascribed to a pen of the same Sophronius,[61] the dedication festival is passed in silence altogether in the narrative of Mary's journey to Jerusalem: she is told to travel to Jerusalem solely for the feast of the Exaltation of the Cross, not the Encaenia.[62] As it is already known from other sources, in the forth century, the alleged life time of Mary, the Encaenia was a major pilgrim festival, the feast of the Cross being only a secondary element of it. Another apparent chronological incongruity lies in the fact that the feast

(59) *Oratio in exaltationem venerandae crucis, et in sanctam resurrectionem PG* 87/3: 3301–3309; *CPG* 7639; *BHG* 444.

(60) *PG* 87/3: 3304D–3305B.

(61) The *Vita S. Mariae Aegyptiae* (*CPG* 7675; *BHG* 1042) is considered to be wrongly attributed to Sophronius of Jerusalem and claimed unreliable as a historical source (Tongeren, *Exaltation of the Cross*, 36, n. 89; M. B. Von Strytzky, Maria v. Ägypten, in: W. Kasper (hrsg.), *Lexikon für Theologie und Kirche*, vol. 6. (Freiburg: Herder, 1997) Cols. 1343–1344).

(62) *Vita Mariae Aegyptiae*, *PG* 87/3: 3712–3713.

of the Cross was enhanced with the motif of exaltation only in the sixth century.[63] Although Mary is alleged to have lived in the fourth century, however, the evidence of the *Vita* cannot be taken at face value to present an historical picture of fourth-century society; rather, it reflects the state of knowledge and perceptions of the contemporary milieu of the hagiographer. One may conclude that the celebration of the Encaenia as a pilgrim festival, so significant in the time of Egeria's pilgrimage, lost its importance by the time the *Vita* was composed. The author of the *Vita* may have simply retrojected the contemporary liturgical practices onto his exposition of remote events. It appears that at the time of composition of St Mary of Egypt's *Vita*, the dedication of the Holy Sepulchre had already been separated from the feast of the Exaltation of the Cross; the work reflects the period when the relationship between the Encaenia and the feast of the Cross became reversed, and the latter was considered as the central celebration, with the Encaenia assuming a subordinate position.[64]

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(63) The feast of the Invention of the Cross is referred to as that of the "elevation/exaltation" (ὕψωσις) only from the sixth century onward. Alexander the Monk is considered to be the first to mention the title of the feast as the *Exaltation of the Holy Cross* (*PG* 87/3: 4072A11–15). This is reputedly the first reference to the feast of the Cross as the Exaltation. Nevertheless, the rite of the elevation or the showing of the Cross to the multitudes had been an element of the liturgical celebration of the feast of the Cross before it was transformed into the *exaltatio crucis.* The ritual showing of the Cross in the Holy Sepulchre is first attested, also in the sixth century, by Theodore of Petra in the *Life of Theodosius* (*BHG* 1776): "…ἐν τῷ ἱερατείῳ ἅμα καθιζομένων τῷ ὑπὸ Κωνσταντίνου τοῦ μεγάλου κατασκευασθέντι βασιλέως ἐν ᾧ εἰς ὕψος αἴρεσθαι κατ᾽ ἔτος ὁ τίμιος εἰώθει σταυρός…" (H. Usener (ed.), *Der Heilige Theodosios. Schriften des Theodoros und Kyrillos* (Leipzig: Teubner, 1890) 71; cf. A. Stylianou and J. Stylianou, *By This Conquer* (Nicosia: Zavallis Press, 1971) 14–17; P. Bernardakis, Le culte de la croix chez les Grecs, *Echos d'Orient* 5 (1902) 195–198). Despite the change of the name of the feast of the Cross from εὕρεσις to ὕψωσις the readings for the feast remained the same and were applicable to both the Finding of the Cross and its Exaltation (Fraser, *Feast of the Encaenia...*, 203).

(64) "If the central focus in the celebration [Encaenia] was originally the annual commemoration of the dedication of Jerusalem basilica, in which the ὕψωσις or σταυροφάνεια was a subordinate part recalling the discovery of the Cross, in the course of time this subordinate part developed into central, and ultimately only element of the celebration" (Tongeren, *Exaltation of the Cross...*, 35).

On the Encaenia of the precious and life-giving Cross (*CPG* 4270), a spurious homily attributed to Severian, bishop of Gabala (died before 430), reports an interesting instance that witnesses to the process of amalgamation of the Dedication and the Feast of the Cross.[65] The title[66] and some allusions in the text of the homily[67] show how the two conceptually different feasts were blended into one. The homily expressly confirms that the Encaenia festival lost its historical association with the buildings and regained a new function of the renovation of life and human souls through the Cross, the *encaenia* of which was being celebrated. If the homily were written by Severian of Gabala, it must have been produced at the end of the fourth or beginning of the fifth century. Yet, the conflation of the two separate feasts into one, the loss of the double commemoration implied in the Encaenia, and the reference to the feast as the Exaltation of the Cross,[68]point to a considerably later date of composition. Thus, the homily cannot have been composed before the mid-sixth century, when the theme of the elevation of the Cross pushed to the background the earlier *inventio* motif, and the feast was transformed into the Exaltation of the Holy Cross. The text reflects the tradition that celebrated the Encaenia as the Exaltation of the Cross, a tradition that gained new vigour after the restoration of the Cross by the emperor Heraclius (631).[69]

Apparently, a tight association of the feast of the Encaenia of churches with the feast of the Cross remained a source of recurrent confusion of the two feasts, especially, when the Dedication proper went out of use. The title of the Encaenia continued to be attached to the feast of the Cross, which sprang some new avenues of theological

(65) J. Zellinger (ed.), *Studien zu Severian von Gabala* (Münster: Aschendorff, 1926) 129–137. This homily is placed among the *Incerta* by Zellinger.

(66) *Σευηριανοῦ ἐπισκόπου Γαβάλων εἰς τὰ ἐγκαίνια τοῦ τιμίου καὶ ζωοποιοῦ σταυροῦ* (Ibid., 129, l. 5–6).

(67) "Σήμερον τὴν τῶν ἐγκαινίων τοῦ ζωηφόρου σταυροῦ ἑορτάζομεν πανήγυριν..." (Ibid., 129, l. 8–9).

(68) "Δεῦτε τοίνυν ἑορτάσωμεν κοινῇ τὴν τοῦ σταυροῦ ὕψωσιν" (Ibid., 136, l. 7).

(69) The feast of the Exaltation of the Cross received a new impetus with the triumphant restoration of the Cross to Jerusalem that followed the victory of Heraclius over the Persians. On the date of the restoration of the Cross by the emperor Heraclius, see V. Grumel, La reposition de la Vraie Croix à Jérusalem par Héraclius. Le jour et l'année, *Byzantinische Forschungen* 1 (1966) 139–149.

interpretation of the latter. Besides the discourse ascribed to Severian of Gabala, there is another early Byzantine homily, edited among the *pseudochrysostomica*, that is a vivid example of similar confusion.[70] In this case, however, the confusion did not go further than the title of the homily (εἰς τὰ ἐγκαίνια τοῦ τιμίου σταυροῦ), the content being untouched and clearly dealing only with the theme of *encaenia* viewed in a broader perspective of the holy places. The Latin rendering of the title, *Ita dicta oratio in exaltationem crucis revera*, which obviously departs from the Greek, misleadingly implies the homily is composed for the feast of the Exaltation of the Cross. The Greek title, however, suggests that the homily must have been originally composed for the feast of the Encaenia, as its content explicitly shows. The addition of the τοῦ σταυροῦ to the εἰς τὰ ἐγκαίνια might have happened due to a gradual disappearance of the feast of the Encaenia, as it became overshadowed by the Exaltation of the Cross.

Later on, the Encaenia was apparently revived with its initial significance of a church dedication feast; some surviving homilies from the mid-Byzantine period celebrate the Encaenia as the dedication of the Anastasis rotunda. For example, there is a Georgian translation of the homily of John of Damascus on the Dedication of the Anastasis church.[71] The Greek homily was rendered into Georgian by Ep'rem Mcire, who worked on his numerous translations in the second half of the eleventh century. The Georgian version of the homily is preserved in eleven codices and, in some of these, it is inserted into Georgian metaphrastic collections under the date of 13 September. This liturgical arrangement points to the fact that the homily was meant precisely for the feast of the Encaenia in Jerusalem. The original homily was delivered by John of Damascus for the feast of the dedication of churches at the end of the seventh century, when he was already a priest of the Anastasis church.[72] However, it dwells upon both the Encaenia and the Exaltation of the Cross. The main themes of the homily are framed

(70) *Ita dicta oratio in exaltationem crucis revera in Ioh. 10, 22–25*, in: K.-H. Uthemann, R. F. Regtuit, J. M. Tevel (eds.), *Homiliae pseudo-Chrysostomicae. Instrumentum studiorum*, vol. 1 (Turnhout: Brepols, 1994) 80–83; *CPG* 4927.

(71) M. van Esbroeck, Le Discours de Jean Damascène pour la Dédicace de l'Anastasis, *OCP* 63 (1997) 53–98; *CPG* 8095.

(72) M. van Esbroeck suggests that the composition of the homily on the Dedication of the Anastasis church should be situated between 690 and 692 (Van Esbroeck, Le Discours de Jean Damascène..., 68–70).

within a historical discourse on the preceding pagan rites and Jewish foundations and with an explanation of the feast's theological significance with reference to cosmological and eschatological fulfilment of the Exaltation and Renovation.

The Medieval Georgian literature's value for filling gaps in the Byzantine liturgical tradition is commonly recognised. Besides the Byzantine homily for the feast of the Encaenia that survives only in Georgian translation, there is also an example of the original Georgian homiletics. It is the homily on the Encaenia of the churches in Jerusalem attributed to the seventh-century Georgian bishop John of Bolnisi.[73] The beginning of this homily is another rare record of the liturgical order of the octave of the Encaenia; it notes, however, only the first three days of the octave. The first and second days mark the dedication of the Anastasis church and the Holy Catholic Church (*Katholike*), that is Martyrium,[74] respectively. The second day, in addition, was the day celebrating the "vision and adoration of the Cross," and the third day is said to commemorate the dedication of the church of Holy Sion, called also "the mother of all churches," built under John II of Jerusalem (387–417).[75]

After the subject of the celebration is introduced, the author delves into a discussion of the feast's theological significance. The chain of

(73) The description of the inedited homily was made by M. van Esbroeck, *Les plus anciens homéliaires géorgiens. Étude descriptive et historique* (Louvain-la-Neuve: UCL. Institut orientaliste, 1975) (UCL. Publications de l'Institut orientaliste de Louvain, 10) 314–315. The beginning of the homily has been also discussed in some of his articles, see M. van Esbroeck, Jean II de Jérusalem et les cultes de S. Étienne, de la Sainte-Sion et la Croix, *AB* 102 (1984) 107–108; Idem, Le Discours de Jean Damascène..., 56–57. The homily on the Encaenia in Jerusalem has been recently published in the collection M. Maisuradze et al. (eds.), *The Athos Polycephalon: Homilies of John of Bolnisi* (Tbilisi: Georgian Academy of Sciences, K. Kekelidze Institute of Manuscripts, 1999) 250–257.

(74) Garitte, *Le calendrier palestino-géorgien...*, 230.

(75) The dedications of the first two days, 13 and 14 September, agree with the evidence of the Armenian and Georgian lectionaries (Renoux, Le codex Arménien Jérusalem 121. I. Introduction, in: *PO* 35/1, 171–175; Idem, Le codex Arménien Jérusalem 121. II. Édition..., 360–363; Tarchnischvili, *Le Grand Lectionnaire...*, 36–38; Garitte, *Le calendrier palestino-géorgien...*, 328–331. The commemoration of the dedication of Holy Sion, mentioned in the homily as being celebrated on 15 September, is placed on 16 September in some of Georgian documents (Van Esbroeck, *Les plus anciens homéliaires géorgiens...*, 314–315).

quotations from the New Testament is woven into interpretation of the "new consecration," which is taken to refer to the Church which Christ promised to build on the rock, meaning his disciple, the Apostle Peter. John of Bolnisi does not fail to mention the dedication of the Temple, although considered through the prism of the New Testament. The conventional passage in the liturgy of church dedication was John 10:22,[76] which John of Bolnisi, rather ignorantly, associates with the dedication of the Temple by King Solomon. The winter, which was the season of the dedication of the Temple by Judas Maccabeus and not the dedication by Solomon, which was conducted in autumn, is inferred to mean the "winter of the great disbelief." John of Bolnisi concludes his exegetical exposition of the feast of the Encaenia with an emphasis on the momentousness of the new dedication as opposed to the dedication of the Old Testament Temple.[77]

In addition to these sermons transmitted in Greek and Georgian, there seems to be but one homily associated with the dedication of churches in Jerusalem. The Greek title of this homily, listed among the *spuria* of John Chrysostom, declares the sermon is for the Pentecost,[78] and its content does not show much relevance to the feast of the church dedication. However, the Georgian translation, entitled "On the Encaenia," makes it clear that the homily was meant for the celebration of the dedication of the churches in Jerusalem on 13 September.[79]

The commemoration of the Encaenia eventually found its way into the Byzantine *Heortologion*; yet, it is reduced to a very insignificant position of less than the *festa minora*.[80] In the Byzantine calendar the Encaenia is limited to the commemoration of the dedication of the Anastasis rotunda; no reference to the consecration of the Martyrion basilica or the whole complex is ever made. The Constantinopolitan *Synaxarium*

(76) Cf. Tarchnischvili, *Le Grand Lectionnaire...*, 37; J. Mateos S. I (ed.), *Le Typicon de la Grande Église. Ms. Sainte Croix n° 40, X^e siècle*, vol. 2: *Le Cycle des Fêtes mobiles* (Rome, 1963) (OCA, 166) 186–187.

(77) The translation of the Georgian homily "On the Encaenia" by Levan Gigineishvili follows this article.

(78) *Εἰς τὴν Πεντηκοστήν*. *PG* 52: 803–808; *CPG* 4536.

(79) Cf. van Esbroeck, *Les plus anciens homéliaires géorgiens...*, 97–98, 129. In the Syriac translation, on the other hand, the homily has a title equivalent to Greek version, "On the Pentecost" (J.-M. Sauget, Deux homéliaires syriaques de la Bibliothèque Vaticane, *OCP* 27 (1961) 409, 422).

(80) N. Nilles, *Kalendarium Manuale utriusque ecclesiae orientalis et occidentalis*, vol. 1 (Oeniponte: Rauch, 1897) 18, 274.

(S) merely mentions the commemoration of the dedication of the Anastasis church on 13 September, attaching no explanatory article. The *μνήμη τῶν ἐγκαινίων τῆς ἀναστάσεως* is the last of several commemorations on that day, which displays its relative unimportance.[81] The main manuscripts of the *Typicon* of the Great Church (H and P) entirely replace the celebration of the Encaenia with the preparation for the feast of the Cross.[82] The dedication of the Anastasis church, however, is mentioned in some provincial copies of the *Typicon*, especially those of the Palestinian provenance.[83] Another instance of divergent practices in the Palestinian monastic rite can be found in the twelfth-century manuscript from the monastery of St Sabba, where the feast of the Encaenia of the Anastasis church is celebrated along with the commemoration of the martyr Cornelius and the preparations for the feast of the Exaltation of the Cross.[84] Therefore, diminished significance of the Encaenia is traced predominantly to the liturgical collections that transmit the Constantinopolitan tradition, while the provincial variants show persistence in retaining the feast and according it considerable weight.

This difference suggests the suppression of the feast in the Byzantine capital and its continual thriving in the liturgy of Palestine, where the celebration was more at home, apparently, because of the physical closeness of the monuments commemorated. One reason for this obvious abandonment of the celebration of the dedication of the Holy Sepulchre in Constantinople may be that the Jerusalemite shrine was viewed as a rival in the Byzantine capital. The Constantinopolitan church promoted its own feast of the *encaenia*, the dedication of the Great Church of St Sophia, which by its topicality and significance was meant to replace and eclipse the Jerusalemite counterpart. The suppression of the Jerusalem Encaenia in the Constantinopolitan cal-

(81) H. Delehaye (ed.), *Propylaeum ad Acta SS., November* (Brussels, 1902) Col. 42, l. 23–24 (hereafter: Delehaye, *Synaxarium)*.

(82) J. Mateos S. I (ed.), *Le Typicon de la Grande Église. Ms. Sainte Croix n° 40, X^e siècle*, vol. 1: *Le Cycle des douze mois* (Rome, 1962) (OCA, 165) 26–29.

(83) For different traditions see the variant readings in the edition of Mateos, *Typicon…*, I, 27.

(84) "Τὰ ἐγκαίνια τῆς ἁγίας Χριστοῦ τοῦ Θεοῦ ἡμῶν Ἀναστάσεως καὶ τοῦ ἁγίου ἱερομάρτυρος Κορνηλίου τοῦ ἑκατοντάρχου· προεόρτια τῆς ὑψώσεως τοῦ τιμίου Σταυροῦ" (А. А. Дмитриевский, *Описание литургических рукописей, хранящихся в библиотеках Православного Востока*, Т. 3: *Typika* (Киев, 1917) 29).

endar must be placed in the context of a deliberate process of *translatio* of Jerusalem and its Temple aimed at the establishment of Constantinople and its Great Church as a place of primary significance for the Christians, the centre of religious pilgrimage, and a New Jerusalem. It is unlikely that the complete abandonment of the celebration of the Encaenia of the Holy Sepulchre in the office of the Great Church was due to a mere lack of interest in mid-Byzantine Constantinople. I believe that the Encaenia fell into disuse as a result of conscious ideological propaganda that endowed Constantinople and St Sophia with the eschatological significance of a New Jerusalem and a New Temple, which were to be viewed as the place of God's abode, thus according Constantinople special status in the divine plan of salvation. Consequently, the Holy Sepulchre outshone by St Sophia, did not need to be longer remembered. Hence the feast of its dedication must have been discarded as unnecessary to the liturgy of Constantinople.

The printed *Menaia*, however, contain an extensive office for the celebration of the Encaenia, which, similarly to provincial variations of mid-Byzantine liturgy, is mixed with the offices of the preparation for the feast of the Exaltation of the Cross and commemoration of the martyr, Cornelius the Centurion.[85] The office of the Encaenia in the *Menaia*, however, shows that the feast has been given a new spiritual dimension: "thus we celebrate spiritually the present Encaenia."[86] It is no longer the celebration of the physical inauguration of the churches but a metaphor of the renewal of both the Church and the individual through Christ.[87]

Byzantine hymnographic compositions for the feast of the Encaenia clearly show the celebration of the Dedication of the Anastasis church was conflated with that of the Exaltation of the Cross and, as other Byzantine liturgical collections bear out as well, consequently lost its significance as an independent feast. Although the name of the

(85) *Μηναῖον τοῦ Σεπτεμβρίου* (Athens: Apostolike Diakonia tes Ekklesias tes Hellados, 1959) 83–93.

(86) "Διὸ καὶ ἡμεῖς, τὰ παρόντα Ἐγκαίνια, πνευματικῶς πανηγυρίσωμεν." (Ibid., 83).

(87) "Ἐγκαινίζεσθαι ἀδελφοί, καὶ τὸν παλαιὸν ἄνθρωπον ἀποθέμενοι, ἐν καινότητι ζωῆς πολιτεύεσθε, πᾶσι χαλινὸν ἐπιθέντες, ἐξ ὧν ὁ θάνατος· πάντα τὰ μέλη παιδαγωγήσωμεν, πᾶσαν πονηρὰν τοῦ ξύλου βρῶσιν μισήσαντες, καὶ διὰ τοῦτο μόνον μεμνημένοι τῶν παλαιῶν, ἵνα φύγωμεν. Οὕτως ἐγκαινίζεται ἄνθρωπος· οὕτω τιμᾶται ἡ τῶν Ἐγκαινίων ἡμέρα." (Ibid., 83).

Encaenia feast is mentioned in the titles of the canons, the content of the hymns develops the theme of the Cross instead. The Byzantine hymns for the Feast of the Dedication do not commemorate the Constantinian foundations at all but rather serve to mark the introduction (προεόρτιον) of the feast of the Exaltation of the Cross.[88] Having evolved from a secondary element of the Encaenia, the celebration of the discovery of the Cross was destined to play the central role at the festival. Ultimately, it became an autonomous celebration and lost any original association with the celebration of the dedication of the Martyrium and Anastasis churches in Jerusalem.[89]

It is worthwhile to note that existing Medieval Oriental calendars strongly evidence that the celebration of the feast of the Encaenia, the name of which was often somewhat modified, was a common practice in the churches of the Christian East.[90] Nearly every liturgical collection of the Christian Orient indicates the commemoration of the dedication in Jerusalem, sometimes conflated with the feast of the Cross.[91]

Thus, for instance, a Syriac calendar,[92] transmitted in British Library manuscript *Add.* 14504 and dated to the ninth century, mentions the dedication of the holy Catholic Church, i.e. Martyrium, on 12 September.[93] The eleventh-twelfth century manuscript of the British Library

(88) See the canons for the feast of dedication and the commentary in I. Schirò (ed.), *Analecta Hymnica Graeca e codicibus eruta Italiae inferioris. I. Canones Septembris* (Rome: Istituto di studi bizantini e neoellenici, Università di Roma, 1966) 236–242, 438.

(89) Tongeren, *Exaltation of the Cross*, 15–39.

(90) A rather complex development of the Encaenia feast in some traditions of the Eastern Christianity is discussed by Black, The Festival of Encaenia Ecclesiae.

(91) Majority of these collections appeared in the series of the *Patrologia Orientalis.* Many of these editions, although with numerous imperfections, are the only publications of the manuscript material so far available.

(92) The collections containing lists of martyrs, saints and events commemorated on successive days of the liturgical year that are usually referred to as "menologes" by the editors, in fact are equivalents to calendars by their nature (R. Aigrain, *L'hagiographie: Ses sources — Ses méthodes — Son histoire*, with a complementary bibliography by R. Godding (Brussels: Société des Bollandistes, 2000) (SH, 80), 85. For clarification of the terminology, see J. Noret, Ménologes, synaxaires, ménées, Essai de clarification d'une terminologie, *AB* 86 (1968) 21–24; Delehaye, *Synaxarium*, cols. iv–v.

(93) F. Nau (ed.), Un Martyrologe et douze ménologes syriaques, in: *PO* 10/1, 46.

Add. 14519, in the caption for 14 September, conflates the feast of the dedication with the feast of the Cross — the Encaenia is transformed into "Anâbânîa" (according to the transliteration given by F. Neu) and explained as "that is the dedication of the Cross."[94] The Copto-Arabic calendar attached at the end to the Coptic Gospel of the Catholic Institute of Paris, which constitutes the basis for Nau' s edition of Copto-Arabic menologies, indicates the commemoration of the dedication of Anastasis on 16 Tout (13 September), as do the majority of other manuscripts.[95] Furthermore, the variety of Arab calendars show that the feast of the church dedication of Anastasis was kept on 13 Eiloul (13 September) in Melkite and Maronite traditions of the Eastern Christianity.[96]

The list need not be continued — for, several adduced examples verify that there was a strong tradition of keeping the feast of the dedication of the Holy Sepulchre, mentioned specifically as the Anastasis church, in the Christian East. Although the calendars demonstrate that the practice of celebration of the feast was widespread, they give no explanation of the event. Such is discovered in other types of Oriental collections, the *Synaxaria* and *Menologia*, to be considered later on.

It is possible to notice that the development of the feast of the dedication of the Holy Sepulchre is tightly connected with the history of the building. The disappearance or revival of the Encaenia feast can often be explained by historical events that influenced the fate of the monument. Thus, the capture of Jerusalem by the Persians in 614 led to the decline of the celebration of the Encaenia feast, which later was further suppressed by the thriving of its twin-feast, the Exaltation of the Cross. Numerous restorations undertaken to partially repair or rebuild the Holy Sepulchre on a larger scale would sprout renewed interest in the Encaenia as celebration of church renovation. The available evidence is too scant to fill all the gaps in the history of the Encaenia feast and to trace continual development of the feast, yet, a few elements treated thus far provide some insight into the nature and significance of the feast of the Encaenia in Jerusalem which, doubtless, was the most significant dedication feast in all of Byzantine history.

(94) Nau, Un Martyrologe et douze ménologes syriaques..., 52.

(95) F. Nau (ed.), Les Ménologes des Évangéliaires coptes-arabes, in: *PO* 10/2, 174, 179, 188, 225.

(96) R. Griveau, Les fêtes des Melkites, des Coptes, des Maronites, in: *PO* 10/4, 312, 353.

The later *encaenia* of the churches in Byzantine culture were profoundly influenced by the Jerusalemite feast. The Encaenia of the Holy Sepulchre remained a model dedication for other church dedications, often on a par with, or even exceeding in significance, because of its Christian character, the classical example of the Dedication of the Temple by King Solomon. The liturgical and hagiographical expression of the Encaenia often served as a prototype for Byzantine church dedication feasts. Falling within the Byzantine tradition of church dedication, the *encaenia* of St Sophia also inherited some features of the Encaenia of Jerusalem churches, manifested especially in the realm of the liturgical celebration. In terms of the legendary (as viewed by modern readers, but certainly not by the Byzantines themselves) history of the church as described in the *Diegesis*,[97] to which we shall return later, the dedication of St Sophia was indebted to accounts of the Encaenia of the Holy Sepulchre no less than to the Old Testament pattern of the dedication of Solomon's Temple.[98]

The Feast of the Encaenia and the Invention of the Cross

The commemoration of the invention of the Holy Cross that allegedly happened during the foundation of the Holy Sepulchre was celebrated as an integral part of the festival of the Encaenia on the second day of the octave, 14 September. With time, it became an independent feast and, in some Christian traditions, entirely overshadowed and replaced the Encaenia.[99] The finding of the True Cross, in its turn, was

(97) A critical edition of the *Diegesis* of St Sophia in Constantinople is made by E. Vitti, *Die Erzählung über den Bau der Hagia Sophia in Konstantinopel. Kritische Edition mehrerer Versionen* (Amsterdam: A. M. Hakkert, 1986). See also an earlier edition by Th. Preger, *Scriptores originum constantinopolitanarum* (Leipzig: Teubner, 1901–1907), vol. 1, 74–108; vol. 2, 284–289. In the present study, this legend of the foundation of St Sophia in Constantinople is conventionally referred to as the *Diegesis*.

(98) The importance of the Old Testament narrative of the foundation and dedication of the Temple as a model for the description of the building and *encaenia* of St Sophia in the *Diegesis* has been emphasised and elaborated by G. Dagron, *Constantinople imaginaire. Études sur le recueil des Patria* (Paris, 1984) 293–309.

(99) Only some Eastern Christian traditions have preserved the feast of the Encaenia, as testified by liturgical books. The Roman calendar, which had instituted the feast of the Exaltation of the Cross on 14 September, had no commemoration of the dedication of the Holy Sepulchre: the church played only incidental role in the feast of the Cross (Fraser, *Feast of the Encaenia…*,

transformed into the feast of the Elevation or Exaltation of the Cross and was destined to become one of the greatest feasts throughout all the Christendom.[100]

It should be noted that the discovery of the Cross has only marginal importance for the present investigation, which focuses primarily on the feast of the Encaenia as the celebration of the consecration of the Constantinian buildings. However significant for the modern scholarship the issues of authenticity of the discovery and the emergence and development of the legend of the *inventio crucis* may be, a solution of these problems has little repercussion on the flow of the main line of the present argument. Yet, because the alleged discovery, which sprouted a lasting and widespread commemoration, was originally firmly associated with the feast of the Jerusalem Encaenia, both in liturgy and hagiography, it is accorded rather close attention in the present study.

Several liturgical sources reflecting the pre- Byzantine office of Jerusalem attest that the finding of the Cross was celebrated on the second day of the Encaenia.[101] It is not, however, altogether clear when exactly the feast commemorating the discovery of the Cross emerged.

217–218; Tongeren, *Exaltation of the Cross…*, 41–78; T. Orlandi, A. Pearson and H. A. Drake, *Eudoxia and the Holy Sepulchre: A Constantinian Legend in Coptic* (Milan: Cisalpino-Goliardica, 1980) (Testi e documenti per lo studio dell' antichità, 67) 147).

(100) It should be mentioned, that the feast of the Cross that developed from the Jerusalem Encaenia and was celebrated on 14 September was actually just one of a few feasts devoted to the Cross. Throughout the Middle Ages and well into our own days there have been other feasts commemorating different events connected with the Cross. For instance, Eastern traditions also commemorated the return of the relic from the Persian captivity (6 March), the appearance of the Cross in the sky over Jerusalem (7 May), whereas the Roman rite celebrated another feast of the finding of the Cross (3 May) which probably is older than the Exaltation of the Cross (14 September) that was introduced in the West only in the seventh century. For an exhaustive discussion of history and liturgy of the feast of the Exaltation of the Cross in the West, with an excursus into the Eastern origins of the feast, see Tongeren, *Exaltation of the Cross*; also, Baert, *A Heritage of the Holy Wood…*

(101) Fraser, *Feast of the Encaenia...*, 206–208; Renoux, Le codex Arménien Jérusalem 121. II. Édition..., 362–363; Tarchnischvili, *Le Grand Lectionnaire...*, 39, (the readings for the feast of the Cross are found only in the manuscript of Lathal); Garitte, *Le calendrier palestino-géorgien...*, 90; A. Wade, The Oldest *Iadgari*: The Jerusalem Tropologion, V–VIII c., *OCP* 50 (1984) 452.

The conviction that the finding of the Cross is related to the feast of the Encaenia is found at the end of the fourth century. A pilgrim from Gaul, Egeria, is the first person known to connect the feast of the Cross with the Encaenia. This pious lady, who visited Jerusalem around 380, recorded in her diary:

> The Encaenia of these holy churches is a feast of special magnificence, since it is on the very date when the cross of the Lord was discovered. So they arranged that this day should be observed with all possible joy by making the original dedication of these holy churches coincide with the very day when the cross had been found.[102]

In scholarly circles there is an ongoing debate as to the historical validity of the discovery of the Cross: did the event indeed happen in the reign of Constantine, or was it a later fabrication aimed at the promotion of Jerusalem and its Holy Places? Scholars have puzzled over the fact that the finding of the Cross, already connected with the Constantinian building activities in the Holy Land by the end of the fourth century, finds no reflection in the ecclesiastical authors contemporary with the alleged discovery. It has been observed that there is a strange silence as to the discovery of the Cross in the notes of a pilgrim from Bordeaux and in all writings of Eusebius. The Bordeaux pilgrim who visited Jerusalem in 333 lists in his travel report several sights connected with the life and Passion of Christ.[103] However, he does not make any mention of the Cross having been discovered in any of the locations. Some scholars did not consider this surprising: they have explained the traveller's silence by his lack of interest in relics and miracles. His failure to refer to the Cross is therefore taken rather lightly and is not given much value in scholarly discussions of the historicity of the invention of the Cross.[104]

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(102) "Harum ergo ecclesiarum sanctarum encenia cum summo honore celebrantur, quoniam crux Domini inventa est ipsa die. Et ideo propter hoc ita ordinatum est, ut quando primum sanctae ecclesiae suprascriptae consecrabantur, ea dies esset qua crux Domini fuerat inuenta, ut simul omni laetitia eadem die celebrarentur" (Egeria, *Journal de voyage*, 316; trans. Wilkinson, *Egeria's Travels...*, 146–147).

(103) *Itinerarium Burdigalense*, 588.2–599.6.

(104) Borgehammar, *How the Holy Cross was Found…*, 92; Drijvers, *Helena Augusta...*, 84. Hunt, however, accords more significance to the silence of the Bordeaux pilgrim (cf. E. D. Hunt, Constantine and Jerusalem, *Journal of Ecclesiastical History* 48/3 (1997) 415).

The omission of any reference to the finding of the Cross in Eusebius, on the other hand, is more inexplicable and enigmatic. Eusebius, who took such care to describe the discovery of the Tomb and the foundation and subsequent dedication of the Holy Sepulchre in detail, has been mysteriously reticent about the allegedly contemporary discovery of the True Cross. His silence has often been questioned; however, for some scholars, it was never sufficiently persuading.[105] They put forward the arguments aimed to show that Eusebius' silence does not necessarily mean he was unaware of the Cross' discovery and managed to interpret it in such a way, that the event could be read into the context of the foundation and building of the Holy Sepulchre. Those wishing to find historical evidence for the discovery of the Cross centred much of their scholarly discussion on the word *gnorisma* used in Constantine's letter to bishop Macarius of Jerusalem, which was fully cited by Eusebius.

> So great is our Saviour's grace, that no words seem enough to match the present miracle. For the evidence of his most sacred passion, long since hidden under the ground, to have remained unknown for such a long period of years, until through the removal of the enemy of the whole republic it was ready to be revealed, once they were set free, to his servants, truly surpasses all marvels.[106]

This passage came to be interpreted as an oblique reference to the relic of the Cross. Yet, some scholars persuasively demonstrated that such an interpretation of this passage as if speaking of the discovery of the cross is invalid. The whole discourse of Eusebius focuses on

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(105) Some scholars believe that Eusebius, for some theological and political reasons, intentionally omitted the story of the finding of the Cross. Most recently, Tongeren, *Exaltation of the Cross…*, 24–25, reiterates this argument, following the opinion of Rubin, The Church of the Holy Sepulchre…, 79–105; Drijvers, *Helena Augusta...*, 83–87; Borgehamar, *How the Holy Cross was Found…*, 93–122. The opposite view is expressed by Cameron and Hall, *Eusebius. Life of Constantine…*, 282–283, who refute that there would be political reasons for such an omission.

(106) The letter is quoted by Eusebius in the *Life of Constantine*: "Τοσαύτη τοῦ σωτῆρος ἡμῶν ἐστιν ἡ χάρις, ὡς μηδεμίαν λόγων χορηγίαν τοῦ παρόντος θαύματος ἀξίαν εἶναι δοκεῖν· τὸ γὰρ γνώρισμα τοῦ ἁγιωτάτου ἐκείνου πάθους ὑπὸ τῇ γῇ πάλαι κρυπτόμενον τοσαύταις ἐτῶν περιόδοις λαθεῖν, ἄχρις οὗ διὰ τῆς τοῦ κοινοῦ πάντων ἐχθροῦ ἀναιρέσεως ἐλευθερωθεῖσι τοῖς ἑαυτοῦ θεράπουσιν ἀναλάμπειν ἔμελλε, πᾶσαν ἔκπληξιν ὡς ἀληθῶς ὑπερβαίνει" (*VC* III 30.1; trans. Cameron and Hall, *Eusebius. Life of Constantine…*, 134).

the site and meaning of Christ's resurrection. In this context, it would have been out of place to insert a reference to the Cross so subtle that it could hardly have been grasped by his audience. The term *gnorisma*, therefore, should be taken to refer to the tomb rather than to the relics of the True Cross.[107] Thus, I agree with those who believe that Eusebius' silence should be taken to point to his ignorance of the *inventio*, for had he known of the discovery he was quite capable of referring to it and would have mentioned it at least in some of his writings.[108]

The silence of Eusebius and the Bordeaux pilgrim clearly shows they did not know anything about the finding of the Cross, and this ignorance can only be explained if the event did not actually take place. If the Cross had been found in their time, they would certainly have been aware of such a significant event and would have referred to it. Therefore, the conclusion drawn form their silence is that the finding of the Cross did not occur in the Constantinian times but is a legendary motif that appeared later, after the actual foundation and dedication of the Martyrion and Anastasis churches.

Significantly, shortly after the composition of Eusebius' *Vita Constantini*, Cyril of Jerusalem, in his *Catechetical Lectures* (*c*. 350), thrice refers to the presence of the Holy Wood in Jerusalem and the spread of its relics all over the world.[109] He also was familiar with the finding

(107) Hunt, Constantine and Jerusalem…, 415; Wilken, *The Land Called Holy…*, 90; Cameron and Hall, *Eusebius. Life of Constantine…*, 282–283. In another work, *Laus Constantini*, Eusebius refers to the basilica in Jerusalem as dedicated to the saving sign, apparently meaning the Cross (Cf. H. A. Drake, Eusebius on the True Cross, *Journal of Ecclesiastical History* 36/1 (1985) 14; Rubin, The Church of the Holy Sepulchre…, 83; Drijvers, *Helena Augusta...*, 84–86). Frequent references to the symbolism of the Cross as the "saving sign" in Eusebius' writings, however, cannot be interpreted to mean the actual relics of the True Cross.

(108) Cameron and Hall, *Eusebius. Life of Constantine…*, 283. Yet, in some of the most recent studies, the probability of Eusebius' deliberate silence about the Cross is still upheld: Drijvers, *Cyril of Jerusalem…*, 19–20.

(109) W. K. Reischl and J. Rupp (eds.), *Cyrilli Hierosolymorum archiepiscopi opera quae suprsunt omnia*, 2 vols. (repr. Hildesheim: Georg Olms, 1967). "And already the whole world is filled with fragments of the wood of the Cross" (*Catechesis* 4. 10); "The holy wood of the Cross gives witness: it is here to be seen in the very day, and through those who take [pieces] from it in faith, it has from here already filled almost the whole world" (*Catechesis* 10. 19); "…the wood of the Cross which from this place is spread all over the world." (*Catechesis* 13. 4; trans. Drijvers and Drijvers, *The Finding of the True Cross…*, 17).

of the Cross that allegedly happened in Jerusalem during the reign of Constantine the Great, which he mentions in a letter to the emperor Constantius II (351).[110] Yet, he does not seem to be aware of any other details of the finding of the Cross. If he had known of any, it is hardly possible he would have missed the chance to relate them. Until recently, Cyril's writings were taken to indicate the *terminus post quem* the legend of the finding of the Cross originated.[111]

Although not yet known in the first half of the fourth century,[112] the story of the invention of the Cross spread widely in a very short time. From the end of the fourth century onwards, the *inventio crucis* was frequently brought up in various historical works, letters and accounts of pilgrims, homilies and orations.[113] Many hagiographers attempted to describe in detail the imaginative version of how the discovery must have happened. The written sources vividly reflect the process by which the miraculous finding of the Cross rapidly came to overshadow that of the discovery of the Christ's Tomb. Sometimes a few short pas-

(110) Critical edition of the Greek version (*CPG* 3587; *BHG*[3] 413) by E. Bihain, L'Épître de Cyrille de Jérusalem à Constance sur la vision de la Croix (BHG[3] 413), *Byz* 43 (1973) 264–296.

(111) "Since Cyril's *Letter to Constantius* does not mention how the Cross was found, the *terminus post quem* for the legend must be 351. A precise *terminus ante quem* is harder to establish but the year 390 is very likely. This means that the legend had its origin during the episcopate of Cyril." (Drijvers, *Cyril of Jerusalem…*, 172).

(112) It first appeared in the *Church History* of Gelasius of Caesarea, whose work is known to have been written around 390 at the behest of his uncle, Cyril of Jerusalem. The relation of the *inventio crucis* legend in Gelasius' work was reconstructed by Borgehammar, *How the Holy Cross was Found…*, 31–55, on the basis of some surviving fragments of Gelasius history. The story of Helena's discovery of the Cross can be found in the book III 6, 1–8 of the recent critical edition of the *Church History* by Pseudo-Gelasius: G. Ch. Hansen (ed.), *Anonyme Kirchengeschichte (Gelasius Cyzicenus, CPG 6034)* (Berlin—New York: Walter de Gruyter, 2002) 118–121.

(113) The elements of the *inventio crucis* legend appear in 395 in the funerary oration delivered by Ambrose of Milan on the occasion of the death of the emperor Theodosius (O. Faller (ed.), Ambrose of Milan, *De obitu Theodosii* (Vienna: Hoelder-Pichler-Tempsky, 1955) (CSEL, 73) 394–397). It is likely that John Chrysostom also knew some details of the legend, as his commentary on the Gospel of John, written around 390, would suggest (John Chrysostom, *In Iohannem*, hom. 85. *PG* 59: 461). A little later, the legend is attested in the writings of Rufinus, Jerome, and Paulinus of Nola. For an extensive treatment of the sources see Borgehammar, *How the Holy Cross was Found…*, 7–76.

sages dwelling upon the revelation of the burial site were incorporated into accounts of the finding of the Cross. Besides that, there seems to be no narrative, save for Eusebius' *Vita Constantini*, which dwelt at length upon the discovery of the Holy Sepulchre and the subsequent foundation and inauguration of the church at that site. The events that were, doubtless, of major significance to contemporaries, apparently ceased to intrigue subsequent generations. Despite giving rise to a momentous feast, the occasions of the building and the Encaenia of the Holy Sepulchre were usually merely touched upon in the context of the discovery of the Cross, and they functioned as a background rather than a primary element in the hagiographical narratives.

The fact that there were a great many versions of the legend of the *inventio crucis* demonstrates the immense interest in the finding of the Cross. The survival of versions in many different languages suggests the legend circulated in all parts of Christendom.[114] Modern scholars have tried to disentangle the legend's complex origins and development. Despite disagreements about the reasons the legends sprang to life and the time of composition, the majority of scholars agree concerning its provenance. The conventional view is that the legend of the finding of the Cross originated in Jerusalem during Cyril's episcopate. Hunt was the first scholar to argue for the connection between several almost contemporaneous factors — the Constantinian buildings in Jerusalem, the remembrance of Helena's presence in Jerusalem c. 327, the attestation of the relics of the Cross in Jerusalem around the same time, the growing numbers of pilgrims to the Holy Land, and especially Jerusalem, and the formation of the legend of how the Holy Cross was found.[115] The connection between the buildings of Constantine on Golgotha and the discovery of the Cross has been generally recognised by scholars researching the *inventio crucis* legend. As to the questions of how and why the legend appeared, opinions differ.

Most recently, Jan Willem Drijvers revisited the question of the legendary discovery of the Cross in his study on Cyril, the bishop of Jerusalem.[116] He contends that the origin of the legend should be located in the context of Cyril's efforts to gain prominence for Jerusalem not

(114) There are versions of the legend of the finding of the Cross in Syriac, Greek, Latin, Armenian, Georgian, Arabic, Ethiopic, and Hebrew.

(115) Hunt, *Holy Land Pilgrimage…*, 28 ff, especially 38–39; also see Drijvers, *Helena Augusta...*, 81–83.

(116) Drijvers, *Cyril of Jerusalem…*, 158–159.

only in the province of Palestine, but in the Christian world in general. According to the opinion of J. W. Drijvers, the relic of the Cross was a major symbol employed by Cyril to establish the supremacy of Jerusalem. He emphasises the fact that various martyr cults and religious symbols could lend great prestige and authority, if cleverly exploited, to the city and its bishop. Thus, bishops resorted to cults and symbols as means to consolidate and enlarge their influence in an endeavour to anchor their see or city in a "power network."[117] The emergence of the legends connected with the Cross and its miraculous discovery, therefore, is considered as a powerful device for the promotion of Cyril's bishopric, the city of Jerusalem. J. W. Drijvers further suggests Cyril may have been directly involved in composing the legend of the invention of the True Cross.[118]

While J. W. Drijvers believes the legend of the True Cross was initially designed during Cyril's episcopacy to promote the supremacy of the see of Jerusalem, Heid supposes its origin is connected with the pilgrims' devotion for the True Cross.[119] He assumes the legend of the Cross was initially meant to be read during the liturgical celebration of the Cross on 14 September and that this liturgical version of the Helena legend was later incorporated by Gelasius into his *Church History*. Although H. J. W. Drijvers and J. W. Drijvers dismiss Heid's assumption that the legend was part of the Jerusalem liturgy,[120] in his recent study on Cyril of Jerusalem, J. W. Drijvers is open to viewing the legend of the Cross in context of the liturgical celebration of the Encaenia in fourth-century Jerusalem. He suggests Rufinus' familiarity with the story of the discovery of the Cross, which he included in

(117) Drijvers, *Cyril of Jerusalem…*, 159.

(118) "It is not improbable that Cyril was responsible for the origin and composition of the legend of the Cross and that he suggested to Gelasius that he include the story in his *Church History*. The aim of the legend is obviously to sustain the authenticity of the Cross present in Jerusalem but also, and perhaps primarily, to establish a relationship between Jerusalem, its bishop and the imperial rule of Rome. In this respect the purpose of the legend is remarkably consistent and comparable with that of Cyril's *Letter to Constantius*. It was the perfect myth to promote Jerusalem" (J. W. Drijvers, "Promoting Jerusalem: Cyril and the True Cross, in: J. W. Drijvers and W. Watt (eds.), *Portraits of Spiritual Authority: Religious Power in Early Christianity, Byzantium and the Christian Orient* (Leiden: Brill, 1999) 91–92).

(119) S. Heid, Der Ursprung der Helenalegende im Pilgerbetrieb Jerusalems, *Jahrbuch für Antike und Christentum* 32 (1989) 44.

(120) Drijvers and Drijvers, *The Finding of the True Cross…*, 18.

his *Church History*, might not have necessarily come from Gelasius, as is commonly held in modern scholarship, but from another oral or written source of Jerusalem origin.

> [Rufinus] may very well have become acquainted with the legend of *inventio crucis*, either in written or oral form, while he was living in Jerusalem between 381 and 397. The story undoubtedly was popular there and may have had a connection with the veneration of the Cross during the liturgical celebrations, in particular the Encaenia, in Jerusalem.[121]

In my opinion, the legend of the Cross, very likely in a more primitive form than known nowadays, indeed functioned in the liturgy of the Encaenia, even if not designed specifically for that purpose. It may already have been featured in the festive liturgy on the second day of the octave (14 September) by the end of the fourth century. I believe there was a need for such a legendary (or rather historical, for early communities of the Christians) narrative explaining the meaning of the celebration of the Encaenia to the visitors who swarmed into Jerusalem for the festival. The initial, probably rather unsophisticated, story could be aimed to satisfy the curiosity of the multitudes of pilgrims and the local faithful, who, as time passed by, lost a clear grasp of the original significance and background story of the festival. At first, this hypothetical narrative may have dealt with the two main and intrinsically associated themes of the festival, foundation of churches and the discovery of the Cross. Towards the end of the sixth or beginning of the seventh century, however, the motif of the foundation and dedication of the Holy Sepulchre must have been reduced and was gradually replaced by the increasingly dominant story of the finding of the Cross.

Another factor in favour of the view that the legend of the Cross was connected with the liturgical celebration of the Encaenia from the very beginning of its creation may be inferred from the legend's later tradition. The revised version of the *inventio crucis*, that is the "Judas Kyriakos" legend (named for the main character of the story), became a historical account of the finding of the Cross, and in the Middle Ages it functioned, though it was probably never intended as such, as a "liturgical legend" for the feast of the Cross.[122]

(121) Drijvers, *Cyril of Jerusalem...*, 171–172.

(122) Borgehammar, *How the Holy Cross was Found…*, 181.

Even if there was no clear-cut hagiographic narrative used at the pre-Byzantine stage of Jerusalem liturgy (it is known that the *lectio hagiographica* was introduced at the later stage) the legendary episodes connected with the feasts celebrated could be made known to the wide audience of local Christians and the multitudes of pilgrims through homiletic discourses delivered on specific days of the Encaenia octave. Such examples of the *inventio crucis* legend incorporated into homiletic discourse survive from a period somewhat later than the assumed introduction of the ecclesiastical feast, which is known to have been commemorated at the end of the fourth century. For instance, the homily of Pseudo-Cyril of Jerusalem on the Cross, treated above, was composed specifically for the feast of the Cross. It contains a significant portion of the legendary material connected with the *inventio crucis*, as well as the discovery of the Tomb. Since the Encaenia was naturally associated with the feast of the Cross, the homily also recounts numerous details of the dedication story. It is possible that this discourse is not an exception and there were other similar homiletic compositions dealing with the legendary history of the discovery of the True Cross, the story of Constantinian foundations and the Encaenia at Golgotha, along with theological expositions and moral exhortations.[123]

(123) It is only my assumption that early homilies could contain some legendary material on the discovery of the Cross as well as, quite possibly, relating details of the building and dedication of the Holy Sepulchre. For various examples of texts used in the liturgical context of the feast of the Cross, see the summary by Borgehammar, *How the Holy Cross was Found…*, 185–194. The practice of delivering various orations, exegetical speeches and homilies on such festive occasions as the celebration of the Encaenia is recorded by Eusebius, *VC* IV, 45. Though this particular passage refers to the main event of the church dedication, and not its annual liturgical commemoration, there is evidence suggesting that the practice of delivering speeches on the commemorative feasts of *encaenia* existed in Byzantium. Whether or not it was a regular annual custom is impossible to establish from the scarce texts that came down to us; yet, we can state that it was a rather common practice (cf. C. Mango and J. Parker, A Twelfth-Century Description of St. Sophia, *DOP* 14 (1960) 234). Leo the Wise is known to have composed some homilies for church dedications (see Th. Antonopoulou, *The Homilies of the Emperor Leo VI* (Leiden—New York: Brill, 1997) (The Medieval Mediterranean: Peoples, Economies and Cultures, 400–1453, 14); A. Frolow, Deux églises byzantines d'après des sermons peu connus de Léon VI le Sage, *Études Byzantines* 3 (1945) 43–91).

Hagiography of the Encaenia

Whereas the liturgical aspect of the Encaenia is relatively well attested in the sources and the system of festive lections can be reconstructed with a great degree of reliability, its hagiographical expression has been lurking in darkness. It seems rather startling that the main part of the Encaenia feast, the actual foundation and dedication of the Anastasis rotunda and the Martyrium basilica, escaped the attention of Byzantine hagiographers, while the element that was initially secondary, the legendary event of the discovery of the Cross, was extensively developed in hagiographical literature. These extremely popular accounts of the *inventio crucis* accord a marginal role to the foundation and dedication of the Holy Sepulchre, which is usually given disproportionately little attention. Yet, it would be logical to expect that such a widely celebrated feast as the festival of the Encaenia would receive an appropriate hagiographical expression, similarly to a number of other liturgical celebrations traditionally furnished with relevant accounts. Particularly if we consider the tight liturgical association of the dedication of the churches in Jerusalem with the discovery of the True Cross, it could be expected that the two events would have been given equal attention in literary records, at least at the early stages when the Encaenia was still considerably important.

In general practice, from the mid-Byzantine period, hagiographic legends that had been composed as larger independent accounts were abridged for public reading in the festive liturgy. These shortened versions were incorporated into hagiographical collections of *Synaxaria* while longer accounts were reserved for the *Menologia.* Besides festive hagiographical readings, however, some legendary details could be utilised in homiletic compositions to be delivered on particular occasions; legends were woven into the context of homiletic discourse and enriched with some edificatory elements.

It has been already shown that some authors touched upon the dedication of the Holy Sepulchre, often integrated into a larger canvas of the legend of the finding of the True Cross, in their homilies. Some homilies on the Cross contain nothing more than scattered details about the grand dedication in Jerusalem, apparently intended to serve as background material for the account of Helena's discovery of the Cross. A few surviving homilies on the Encaenia of the Anastasis church, however, deal with the theme of the renovation in theological terms, rarely being interested in the historico-hagiographical basis of the feast. It is also a curious fact that the Byzantine *Synaxaria* and

Menologia do not offer anything more than a simple caption referring to the date and name of the Encaenia, and there is no known independent narrative suitable for the celebration. Thus, there is no significant Byzantine source of hagiographical material meant for the Encaenia.

On the other hand, the *lectio hagiographica* for the Encaenia did find its way into some of the Eastern Christian collections. A few liturgical collections of Christian Orient include relevant hagiographical articles commemorating the foundation and dedication of the churches in Jerusalem. These brief summaries explaining the topographical and historical context of the feast play an invaluable role for reconstruction of a possible hagiographical account for the Jerusalemite Encaenia.

Out of the range of Eastern versions of *Synaxarium*, published mainly in the series of *Patrologia Orientalis* but also in some other editions, a few collections contain a separate brief account of the commemoration of the Encaenia. Thus, the story of the Encaenia is found in Copto-Arabic, Ethiopic and Armenian *Synaxaria*. A longer narrative for the feast was also included into Armenian *Menologium*, which remains unpublished.[124]

When dealing with these textual sources, however, one is greatly inhibited by the lack of reliable critical editions or, as in the case of the Armenian *Menologium* article, the lack of any edition at all. The existing editions and translations of the Copto-Arabic, Ethiopic and Armenian *Synaxaria* are notorious for their imperfections, confusion of different versions, and often poor rendering into European languages.[125] Being aware of all the problems connected with the existing editions of this

(124) This is a legend briefly mentioned by Conybeare in his reference to the manuscript of the Bodleian Library *Arm. c.* 3 (F. C. Conybeare, *Rituale Armenorum* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1905) 76). This text remains ignored by scholars thus far — it is unedited and, probably that is why, totally overlooked in the scholarship of the legends of the Constantian cycle, where it clearly belongs. There is another manuscript (University of Oxford, Bodleian Library, *Marsh*. 438) that contains a somewhat modified and, likely, later version of the text than the one indicated by Conybeare.

(125) A rather deplorable situation concerning the editions of Coptic and Ethiopic *Synaxaria* is signalled in the articles: R.-G. Coquin, Synaxarion, Copto-Arabic, and Synaxarion, Ethiopian, in: A. S. Atiya (ed.), *The Coptic Encyclopedia*, vol. 7 (New York—Oxford: Macmillan, 1991) 2172–2173; 2190–2192. See also articles: G. Colin, L'édition indigène du synaxaire éthiopien, *AB* 119 (2001) 48–58; idem, Le synaxaire éthiopien. État actuel de la question, *AB* 106 (1988) 294–299. The Armenian *Synaxaria* are discussed in the following studies: U. Zanetti, Apophtegmes et histories édifiantes dans le synaxaire arménien,

Oriental material, lack of relevant comparative scholarly study of the versions, and numerous ambiguities as to their original composition and sources, I recognize that I am greatly limited in my argument. Yet, with the above reservations in mind, I accord considerable importance to the parallels the *Synaxaria* entries exhibit when compared with the *Diegesis*, even though any conclusion based on such a comparison has only limited plausibility.

The Copto-Arabic *Synaxarium* and the Ethiopic *Synaxarium*, also derived from the Arabic Synaxarium of the Coptic Church, have a number of commonalities. The accounts for the feast of the Encaenia in the Coptic and Ethiopian *Synaxaria* clearly reflect some common source. All of them, as a matter of fact, are related versions springing from the same branch of *Synaxaria*, which must have been initially inherited from the Greek church of Alexandria.

The short entry for the commemoration of the dedication of Anastasis in the Coptic *Synaxarium* introduces the familiar legend of Helena setting out to Jerusalem with the intention of looking for the Holy Cross. According to the text, her journey to Jerusalem ended with the successful invention of the Cross, which was followed by the foundation of the churches in Palestine and dedication festivities. The version in the Ethiopic *Synaxarium* closely resembles the Coptic summary, and the text for the Encaenia in the Armenian *Synaxarium* abridges essentially the same legend. The version in the unpublished Armenian *Menologium* highlights dedication of the churches in Jerusalem in a manner slightly different from other *Synaxaria* versions. Yet, all of the stories recreate the same basic *inventio crucis* legend. Some textual details and points of deviations, though not significant for the general rendering of the story, have important implications for a subsequent investigation of the sources and models of the *Diegesis* of St Sophia. These are given due attention in the section focusing on literary parallels of the "foundation-dedication stories" that follows.

The presence of related texts for the Jerusalemite feast of the dedication in the Armenian, Coptic and its later derivative Ethiopic *Synaxaria* and Armenian *Menologium* strongly suggests that they originated from a Greek source, or possibly, different redactions of the same Greek text. The survival of parallel Armenian, Coptic and Ethiopic narratives leads to the conclusion that there was once a Byzantine text, which has

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AB 105 (1987) 167–199; J. Mécérian, Introduction à l'étude des synaxaires arméniens, *Mélanges de l'université Saint Joseph, Beyrouth* 30/4 (1953) 88–188.

since been lost. In comparing these Oriental texts with the Byzantine *Diegesis*, it is my assumption that they are the translations of an earlier Byzantine account of the feast of the Encaenia, most likely produced in Byzantine Jerusalem. The original locale where the legend of the Cross originated, which was arguably the urban milieu of early Byzantine Jerusalem, points at the same dirrection. It may well be that the *inventio crucis* story and other legendary episodes connected with the discovery, building and dedication of the Jerusalemite churches were but parts of a larger cycle originally connected with the octave feast of the Encaenia.

After all, the texts for the feast of the Encaenia could hardly be more relevant elswhere than in Jerusalem: it was in Jerusalem that the feast sprouted and was celebrated, although with some interruptions, with great festivities. Thus, Jerusalem was the most appropriate milieu for production, even if initially in oral form, of relevant accounts recording the history and meaning of local traditions. Therefore, the texts for the feast of the Encaenia transmitted in Oriental collections, although completely lacking in extant Byzantine Greek literature, must be traces of the archaic literary stratum originally present in the early Byzantine tradition of Jerusalem.

There must have been important reasons why no comparable legend survived in the Greek language. The rapid development of the cult of the True Cross that supplanted the Encaenia may have contributed to the disappearance of further interest in the dedication of the Holy Sepulchre. That is one of the reasons why, the most likely, the Encaenia feast of the Holy Sepulchre is not reflected in the later Byzantine literary tradition. Besides that, Byzantine attempts to accord to Constantinople the dominant position in the Christian world may also have been a significant factor leading to the suppression and eventual disappearance of Greek texts relating to the Jerusalem Encaenia. The celebration of the great Jerusalemite feast may have been seen to undermine the prestige of the Capital. It was Constantinople itself that was promoted, especially in the middle Byzantine period, as a New Jerusalem. There was no need, therefore, to look back to the glorious past of Jerusalem as a centre of the Christian religion; Constantinople was gradually establishing itself as a new centre of Christianity and the reinvention of its own glorious past became a popular trend in the mid-Byzantine epoch.

The Greek legend of the foundation of the Holy Sepulchre, if we assume such an account existed, could have been intentionally suppressed due to the increasing importance of another Byzantine shrine,

the Great Church of St Sophia in Constantinople. From the time of Justinian, the image of St Sophia was recurrently constructed as the most important church in Christendom, a successor to the Temple of Solomon. In this way, the Holy Sepulchre was viewed as a rival, and a text recording its glories and describing the exceptional significance of the monument would create an unwanted threat for the Justinianic Great Church, which was promoted to the key position in the Christian Ecumene and meant to overshadow even the Temple of Solomon (as can be concluded from Justinian's famous exclamation, "Solomon, I have outdone you!" — his great achievement was also viewed as surpassing that of Solomon). For the church of St Sophia of Justinian to be embued with the eschatological significance of a New Jerusalem, the importance of the Holy Sepulchre had to be consciously downplayed in Medieval Byzantium.

In this way, a complex paradigm of both politically and theologically coloured imitations and appropriations was constructed on the basis of intricate symbolism and significance of the major religious monuments: the Temple, the Holy Sepulchre, and St Sophia. Literary compositions played a significant role in promulgating and establishing this system of ideologically connoted comparisons. The *Diegesis*, through its parallels with the accounts of the Holy Sepulchre, may be argued to represent a text with a subtle reflection of the ideological trends that sought to establish the church of St Sophia in its status of the New Temple and New Jerusalem — a status formerly enjoyed by the Holy Sepulchre.

In anticipation of uncovering a deeper significance in any literary resemblance between the church foundation accounts, let us now turn to the detailed study of those few, yet noteworthy, common motifs found in the *Diegesis* and the accounts recording both historical and hagiographical versions of the building and dedication of the Holy Sepulchre.

Building and Dedication of the Holy Sepulchre and St Sophia: Comparison of Literary Accounts

The literary version of the construction of the Holy Sepulchre in Jerusalem and the subsequent dedication of the complex, recounted in the Eusebius' *Vita Constantini*, differs considerably from episodes found in later hagiographical legends of the *inventio crucis* and, especially, from the short accounts transmitted in the Oriental *Synaxaria* and *Menologia*. Yet, despite contextual and stylistic variations that are

easily noticed, all the stories of the building and dedication of the Holy Sepulchre manifest close affinities with the narrative of the building of the Great Church in Constantinople.

Surprisingly, the *Diegesis* shows almost no resemblance to other known literary works describing the same church, St Sophia in Constantinople. Neither historical descriptions of Justinian's building project by Procopius,[126] Agathias,[127] Evagrius[128] nor the rhetorical composition of Paul the Silentiary,[129] written for the dedication of St Sophia, can be rewardingly compared with the *Diegesis*. Indeed, the legendary account of St Sophia demonstrates no trace of relationship to the given sources. Instead, striking similarity is found between the accounts of the foundations of St Sophia and the Holy Sepulchre. The following detailed comparison of the Byzantine *Diegesis* and narratives concerning the foundation and dedication of the Holy Sepulchre is intended to demonstrate how surprisingly close and evident are the parallels between these stories.

The *Vita Constantini* and the *Diegesis*

The account of the church of St Sophia recalls in several places the description of the building and dedication of the Holy Sepulchre as given by Eusebius in his *Vita Constantini*. First of all, the idea to construct the church is presented as divinely inspired. Both Constantine and Justinian set out to build their church because of supernatural incentive.[130]

Furthermore, both emperors undertook to build their eminent creation on a site previously occupied by another sacred shrine, which, on

(126) Procopius, *De aed.*, I, i. 20–78; J. Haury and G. Wirth (eds.), *Procopii Caesariensis opera omnia*, vol. 4: *De aedificiis* (Leipzig, 1963) 8–17.

(127) Agathias, *Hist.* V, 9.2-5; R. Keydell (ed.), *Agathiae Myrinaei Historiarum libri quinque* (Berlin, 1967) (CFHB, 2) 174–175.

(128) Evagrius, *Hist. eccles.* IV, 31; J. Bidez and L. Parmentier (eds.), *The Ecclesiastical History of Evagrius with the Scholia* (London: 1898, repr. Amsterdam: Adolf M. Hakkert, 1964) 180–181.

(129) P. Friedländer (ed.), *Johannes von Gaza und Paulus Silentiarius* (Leipzig, 1912) 226–265.

(130) "Ἀὐτίκα γοῦν οἶκον εὐκτήριον συστήσασθαι διεκελεύετο, οὐκ ἀθεεὶ τοῦτ᾽ ἐν διανοίᾳ βαλὼν ἀλλ᾽ ὑπ᾽ αὐτοῦ τοῦ σωτῆρος ἀνακινηθεὶς τῷ πνεύματι" (*VC* III, 25). "Ἐν τῷ πέμπτῳ ἔτει αὐτοῦ τοῦ Ἰουστινιανοῦ ἐνέπνευσεν ὁ Θεὸς εἰς τὴν διάνοιαν αὐτοῦ τοῦ οἰκοδομῆσαι ναόν..." (Vitti, *Die Erzählung über den Bau der Hagia Sophia...*, 436, l. 12–14).

their orders, was entirely demolished. Justinian's demolition and subsequent refusal to utilise any material from the demolished church[131] parallel the efforts of Constantine who, after having destroyed the pagan temple, carefully cleared the site and dumped the remaining rubble far from the place of his foundation.[132] While Eusebius' account of the demolition of the pagan temple of Aphrodite that had been built at the site of Christ's tomb has some historical value, the actions of Justinian as presented by the author of the *Diegesis*, have virtually no historical background. There is no independent record suggesting that Justinian levelled to the ground the Constantinian church that stood at the site of his future foundation, as it is related in the *Diegesis*. We may only surmise that the author of the *Diegesis* did not have to invent this scene of demolition and following foundation of a new church without any use of the materials from the previous building, but probably derived the motif from available Byzantine models; Eusebius' *Vita Constantini* may well have been his primary source.

Further correspondence between the two narratives is found in the aspiration of both emperors to build extraordinary churches on a magnificent scale. Justinian, according to the *Diegesis*, similarly to Constantine, as depicted by Eusebius, aimed at an unsurpassable construction that would be more beautiful than any religious foundation ever constructed. Thus, Constantine wrote to Macarius, the bishop of Jerusalem:

> It is thus for your own Good Sense to make such order and provision of what is needed that not only a basilica superior to those in all other places, but the other arrangements also, may be such that all the excellences of every city are surpassed by this foundation.[133]

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(131) "Τῷ δὲ δωδεκάτῳ ἔτει τῆς βασιλείας Ἰουστινιανὸς τὸν προειρημένον ναὸν τὸν παρὰ τοῦ Μεγάλου Κωνσταντίνου κτισθέντα ἐκ θεμελίων κατέστρεψε, τὴν δὲ ὕλην ἰδίως ἀπέθετο· οὐδὲ γὰρ χρείαν αὐτῆς εἶχε διὰ τὸ πολλὴν καὶ ἄπειρον ὕλην ἑτοιμᾶσαι" (Vitti, *Die Erzählung*, 438, l. 9–13).

(132) "Ἅμα δὲ προστάγματι τὰ τῆς ἀπάτης μηχανήματα εἰς ἔδαφος ἄνωθεν ἀφ᾽ ὑψηλοῦ κατερρίπτετο, ἐλύετό τε καὶ καθηρεῖτο αὐτοῖς ξοάνοις καὶ δαίμοσι τὰ τῆς πλάνης οἰκοδομήματα. Οὐ μὴν δ᾽ ἐν τούτοις τὰ τῆς σπουδῆς ἵστατο, ἀλλὰ πάλιν βασιλεὺς αἱρεσθαι καὶ πορρωτάτω τῆς χώρας ἀπορρίπτεσθαι τῶν καθαιρουμένων τὴν ἐν λίθοις καὶ ξύλοις ὕλην προστάττει. Ἔργον δὲ καὶ τῷδε παρηκολούθει τῷ λόγῳ" (*VC* III, 26.6–27).

(133) "Προσήκει τοίνυν τὴν σὴν ἀγχίνοιαν οὕτω διατάξαι τε καὶ ἑκάστου τῶν ἀναγκαίων ποιήσασθαι πρόνοιαν, ὡς οὐ μόνον βασιλικὴν τῶν ἁπανταχοῦ βελτίονα ἀλλὰ καὶ τὰ λοιπὰ τοιαῦτα γίνεσθαι, ὡς πάν-

The author of the *Diegesis*, similarly to Eusebius, speaks of Justinian's divine inspiration to construct an extraordinary building: Justinian was prompted "to build the church which has not been built from the times of Adam."[134]

To prepare for their enormous projects, both emperors sought the assistance of local governors and high officials; letters were dispatched to people in authoritative positions instructing them to collaborate in the provision of grants and materials for the future foundation.[135]

Then, the beauties of the imperial foundations were so astonishing that the authors of both narratives purport to be lost for words to describe them. The dazzling splendour of the newly-built churches of the Holy Sepulchre and St Sophia, richly decorated with precious metals and stones and adorned with munificent dedications bestowed by the building emperors, is said to be so incredible that no literary description could adequately express it.[136]

A concluding account of the inauguration ceremonies that traditionally marked the completion of churches displays some correspondence between the two narratives as well. The celebration of the Encaenia of the Holy Sepulchre is said to have been accompanied by lavish banquets and distribution of money, goods and food to the destitute, arranged by a trustee of the emperor.[137] Similarly, abundant

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τα τὰ ἐφ᾽ ἑκάστης καλλιστεύοντα πόλεως ὑπὸ τοῦ κτίσματος τούτου νικᾶσθαι" (*VC* III, 31. 1; trans. Cameron and Hall, *Eusebius. Life of Constantine…*, 134; cf. also *VC* III, 29. 2).

(134) "... τοῦ οἰκοδομῆσαι ναόν, οἷος οὐκ ἐκτίσθη ἀπὸ τοῦ Ἀδάμ" (Vitti, *Die Erzählung*, 436, l. 12–14).

(135) *VC* III, 29.2–32; Vitti, *Die Erzählung…*, 436, l. 15 – 437, l. 3.

(136) "Τόνδε μὲν οὖν τὸν νεὼν σωτηρίου ἀναστάσεως ἐναργὲς ἀνίστη μαρτύριον βασιλεύς, πλουσίᾳ καὶ βασιλικῇ κατασκευῇ τὸν σύμπαντα καταφαιδρύνας, ἐκόσμει δ᾽αὐτὸν ἀδιηγήτοις κάλλεσι πλείστων ὅσων ἀναθημάτων, χρυσοῦ καὶ ἀργύρου καὶ λίθων πολυτελῶν ἐν διαλλαττούσαις ὕλαις, ὧν τὴν κατὰ μέρος ἐπισκευὴν φιλοτέχνως εἰργασμένην μεγέθει τε καὶ πλήθει καὶ ποικιλίαις οὐ σχολὴ νῦν ἐπεξιέναι τῷ λόγῳ" (*VC* III, 40). "Θαῦμα δὲ ἦν ἰδέσθαι ἐν τῷ κάλλει καὶ τῇ ποικιλίᾳ τοῦ ναοῦ, ὅτι πάντοθεν ἐκ τε χρυσοῦ καὶ ἀργυροῦ ἐξήστραπτε" (Vitti, *Die Erzählung…*, 462, l. 8–10). "Τὴν δὲ ὡραιότητα καὶ τὴν ὑπερβολὴν τοῦ κάλλους τοῦ κεχρυσωμένου καὶ διηργυρωμένου ναοῦ ἀπὸ ὀρόφου ἕως ἐδάφους τίς ἰσχύει διηγήσασθαι;" (Vitti, *Die Erzählung…*, 463, l. 15–17).

(137) "… πτωχοῖς δ᾽ ἀνείμοσι πενήτων τ᾽ ἀνδρῶν καὶ γυναικῶν μυρίοις πλήθεσι, τροφῆς καὶ τῶν λοιπῶν χρειῶν ἐν ἐνδείᾳ καθεστῶσι, πολυτελεῖς

food supplies were distributed among the poor during the festivities of the dedication of St Sophia.[138]

Thus, the comparison of the two accounts shows a number of textual correspondences. Furthermore, the *Diegesis* follows the same basic structural outline as the description given by Eusebius. The nature and order of parallel details discussed above suggest the resemblance of the *Diegesis* with Eusebius' account could hardly be accidental. It is quite possible the similarities are the result of a familiarity of the author of the *Diegesis* with Eusebius' presentation of the story of the foundation and dedication of the Holy Sepulchre.

Such a hypothetical acquaintance is all the more reasonable in light of the following chronological correspondence. While very little knowledge of the *Vita Constantini* is displayed in Byzantine sources, as it was greatly overshadowed by hagiographical legends about Constantine, it has been argued that Eusebius' work was actually rediscovered in the period after the ending of the Iconoclasm in 843.[139] Photius discussed it in his *Bibliotheca* (cod. 127),[140] and the earliest surviving manuscript was produced in the tenth century, which points to a renewed interest in the work in the post-Iconoclastic times. This rediscovery of the *Vita Constantini* corresponds to the chronology of the composition of the *Diegesis* (arguably written in the ninth century). Thus, it is all the more likely that the author of the *Diegesis* knew and used Eusebius' *Vita Constantini* as his model.

διαδόσεις χρημάτων καὶ περιβλημάτων ἐποιείτο, ἤδη δὲ καὶ τὸν πάντα νεὼν πλουσίοις καὶ βασιλικοῖς ἀναθήμασι κατεποίκιλλεν" (*VC* IV, 44. 2).

(138) "Ὅμως τελειώσας τὸν ναὸν καὶ τὰ ἱερὰ ἀναθήματα τῇ κβ΄ τοῦ Δεκεμβρίου μηνὸς εἰσῆλθεν ἀπὸ τοῦ Παλατίου μετὰ προελεύσεως ἕως τῶν πυλῶν τοῦ Αὐγουστίωνος, τῶν ἐξερχομένων εἰς τὸ Ὡρολογεῖον, καθεζόμενος ἐφ᾽ ἅρματος τετραΐππου· καὶ ἔθυσε βόας χιλίους, πρόβατα ἑξακισχίλια καὶ ἐλάφους ἑξακοσίους καὶ σῦας χιλίους, ὄρνεις καὶ ἀλεκτρυῶνας ἀνὰ δέκα χιλιάδας καὶ δέδωκε πένησι καὶ τοῖς δεομένοις. Δέδωκε δὲ καὶ σίτου μόδια τρισμύρια. Ταῦτα δέδωκε τοῖς πένησι τῇ ἡμέρᾳ ἐκείνῃ μέχρι τριῶν ὡρῶν.... Καὶ τῇ ἐπαύριον ἐποίησε τὰ ἀνοίξια τοῦ ναοῦ τοσαῦτα καὶ πλείονα ὁλοκαυτώματα θύσας καὶ μέχρι τῶν ἁγίων Θεοφανίων διὰ δεκαπέντε ἡμερῶν κλητορεύων πάντας καὶ ῥογεύων καὶ εὐχαριστῶν τῷ Κυρίῳ" (Vitti, *Die Erzählung…*, 463, l. 18 – 464, l. 8 and 464, l. 18–21).

(139) On the later tradition of the *VC*, see Cameron and Hall, *Eusebius. Life of Constantine...*, 48–50.

(140) R. Henry (ed. and trans.), Photius, *Bibliothèque*, vol. 2 (Paris: Les Belles Lettres, 1960) 99–101).

The Encaenia of the Holy Sepulchre in Eastern Christian traditions

Further analysis of the *Diegesis* as compared to hagiographical versions of the story of the Holy Sepulchre reveals an even tighter association of the two "foundation-dedication" stories. As discussed above, in some of the Oriental *Synaxaria* and *Menologia* the commemoration of the Encaenia on 13 September (or rather, the equivalent date in the local calendar) is furnished with relevant hagiographical narrative explaining the origins of the feast.

Similarly to the version of the Coptic *Synaxarium* published in the series of *PO*,[141] the *Synaxarium Alexandrinum* contains a reading for the sixteenth of the month of Tūt (13 September) that marks the consecration of the churches.[142] The account starts with a conventional story of Helena setting out to Jerusalem to look for the True Cross. Her son, the emperor Constantine, gladly supported her in this endeavour, dispatching some soldiers to accompany her on the trip and allocating significant sums of money for her purposes. Her quest having been a success, Helena celebrated the discovery of the Cross and resolved to build the churches of the Resurrection and Golgotha, along with a number of other religious edifices. After Helena's decision to launch out into building activities, an episode is introduced that is nearly identical with the passage from the *Diegesis*. Helena wanted to embellish the churches with precious stones wrought in gold and silver. Yet, there was a holy bishop in Jerusalem who dissuaded her from accomplishing her intentions. Following his advice, Helena abandoned the project and remitted the significant amount of money to the bishop.[143] Akin to the story of the foundations in Jerusalem, the account of the

(141) R. Basset (ed.), Le Synaxaire arabe jacobite. Rédaction Copte (Mois de Tout et de Babeh), in: *PO* 1/3, 273–275.

(142) I. Forget (Latin trans.), *Synaxarium Alexandrinum* (Rome: Karolus de Luigi, 1921) (CSCO, 78) 29–30.

(143) "Tum iussit templa resurrectionis, Golgothae, Bethlehemi, speluncae, coenaculi, Gethsemani, et caetera templa exstrui, praecepitque ut gemmis insertis, auro et argento ornarentur. Erat autem in nobili Hierosolymorum civitate sanctus episcopus qui ipsam ne illud faceret dehortatus est, dicens : 'Mox venient gentes, quae hunc locum servituti subiicient, et evertetur vel auferetur quod feceris; quare tibi potius curandum ut decentia pro more aedificia exstruas, reliquam vero pecuniae partem pauperibus largiaris.' Hortanti obsecuta, eidem pecuniam multam tradidit et opus commisit" (*Synaxarium Alexandrinum*, 29–30).

building of St Sophia in Constantinople relates how the emperor Justinian intended to make the floor of the church entirely of silver. Some Athenian philosophers and astrologists, however, discouraged him, saying that in the last days indistinct kingdoms will come and despoil the church of all treasures. Thus, paying heed to the foresight of the wise men, the emperor forsook his plan.[144]

Continuing her church-building projects, Helena received further support and financial assistance from her son. Constantine appointed overseers of the work, who were instructed to pay the labours their wages each day.[145] The version of the account for the commemoration of the Encaenia located in the Coptic *Synaxarium*, published and translated into French by R. Basset, adds some details; the daily salary was to be paid to the builders in order to avoid their grumbling, which, the emperor feared could provoke the Lord's anger against him.[146]

The Ethiopic *Synaxarium*, following its earlier Arabic prototype, contains the reading for the commemoration of the Encaenia in Jerusalem on 16 Maskaram. It is very close to the version transmitted in the Coptic *Synaxaria*. There are, however, some minor divergencess. The bishop of Jerusalem, identified as Macarius, is placed in charge of all the construction work and the master-builders. Also, the account of the money paid *per diem* is much lengthier, though the meaning is kept unchanged: the salaries were to be given without delay to exclude any complaint that might irritate God.[147]

The *Diegesis* is overtly reminiscent of the episode included into the Coptic and Ethiopic *Synaxaria*. Upon the order of the emperor Justinian, the anonymous Byzantine narration goes, "each day silver coins were brought from the palace and placed in the Horologion, and who-

(144) "Βουλόμενος δὲ καὶ τὸν πάτον ὁλοάργυρον ποιῆσαι οὐ συνεβούλευσαν αὐτῷ διὰ τὸ εἰς τὰ ἔσχατα πένητας ἁρπάσαι αὐτά. Οἱ δὲ αὐτὸν ἀναπείσαντες ἦσαν Ἀθηναῖοι φιλόσοφοι καὶ ἀστρολόγοι, Μαξιμῖνος, Ἱερόθεος καὶ Σύμβουλος, λέγοντες, ὅτι ἐν ταῖς ἐσχάταις ἡμέραις βασιλεῖαι ἀμυδραὶ ἐλεύσονται καὶ ταῦτα ἀφέλονται· καὶ ἐκ τῆς βουλῆς αὐτῶν ἔασεν τοῦτο" (Vitti, *Die Erzählung...*, 457, l. 13–19).

(145) "Cum dein, ad filium conversa, hunc certiorem fecisset de iis quae a se peracta fuissent, laetatus est et ad eam alias opes atque inspectores operum direxit, eam admonens ut integram operariis mercedem post singulos dies tribueret" (*Synaxarium Alexandrinum*, 30).

(146) Basset, Le Synaxaire arabe jacobite, 274.

(147) G. Colin (ed.), Le Synaxaire éthiopien. Mois de Maskaram, in: *PO* 43/3, 418–421.

ever was lifting the stones took one silver coin each day so that none of them would be discouraged or commit blasphemy."[148]

The story of Helena's mission and foundations in Jerusalem, placed under 4 Hori (13 September) for the commemoration of the dedication of the Resurrection church in the redaction B of the Armenian *Synaxarium*, contains none of the episodes that have parallels to the *Diegesis*.[149] Although the Armenian version of the narrative is very close to the Coptic and Ethiopic accounts, reiterating essentially the same legend of Helena's quest for the Cross and subsequent building of the churches in the Holy Land, the omission of the two specific passages is rather surprising. We can only speculate about possible reasons behind such a significant, for us, discrepancy. Possibly, the Coptic, Ethiopic and Armenian translations were made from different Greek redactions of the hagiographical legend. Yet, it could also be that the compiler or translator of the Armenian *Synaxarium* merely cut out some parts of the story according to his own tastes.

Most interesting, however, is a unique detail in the text for the Encaenia in the Armenian *Menologium*. The main part of the article included in this collection dwells on the church's symbolical significance. The introductory section of the entry, however, briefly explains the reason for the feast of dedication. In a quasi-historical manner, the text introduces, not only the traditionally main protagonists, Constantine and Helena, but also Pope Sylvester, as the persons involved in the building and consecration ceremony of the Anastasis church. Helena, we are told, was in charge of the dedication; she ordered to perform a great feast for eight days and to accompany it by sacrifice of lambs and calves. She also instituted the feast to be celebrated each year on 13 September.[150]

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(148) "Μιλιαρίσια γὰρ ἀργυρᾶ καθεκάστην ἐκομίζοντο ἐκ τοῦ Παλατίου καὶ ἐτίθοντο εἰς τὸ Ὡρολόγιον καὶ ὅσοι ἀνεβίβαζον λίθους, ἐλάμβανον καθεκάστην ἡμέραν ἀνὰ ἀργυροῦ ἑνός, διὰ τὸ μὴ ἀκηδιᾶσαι τινὰ ἐξ αὐτῶν ἢ βλασφημῆσαι" (Vitti, *Die Erzählung...*, 444, l. 13–17).

(149) G. Bayan (ed.), Le Synaxaire arménien de Ter Israël (II. Mois de Hori), in: *PO* 6/2, 212–216.

(150) This is the version of the *Menologium* transmitted in the manuscript the *Arm. c.* 3. The episode explaining the meaning of the feast of the dedication according to this manuscript is briefer and, seemingly, closer to whatever the Greek model might have been, than the legend in the manuscript *Marsh.* 438. The version in the *Marsh.* 438 manuscript is noticeably embellished with Armenian elements, apparently in accordance with legendary tradition cur-

The reference to animal sacrifice is a remarkably close, and rather unique, parallel to the *Diegesis*, where the emperor Justinian is similarly described as offering abundant animal sacrifices on the occasion of the church's dedication. There is little doubt that this detail could have crept into the *Diegesis* only under the influence of an authoritative model, since there was no historical ground for such information. There could be no better source and model for the motif of animal sacrifice at the dedication than the hypothetical Greek version of the account of the Encaenia of the Holy Sepulchre.[151]

The Legend of the Holy Sepulchre in Coptic

The treatment of the hagiographical history behind the feast of the Encaenia would be glaringly incomplete if we were to omit another legendary account tightly associated with the Holy Sepulchre. The two separate themes of the Encaenia festival — the church dedication and the invention of the Cross — were essentially blended in the majority of Byzantine hagiographical accounts focusing on the discovery of the Cross. Although Byzantine literature in Greek transmitted only the account of Helena's legendary finding of the Cross, there is an interesting story in Coptic relating the discovery of the Christ's Tomb by Eudoxia, a fictional sister of Constantine the Great.[152] Some elements of this legendary story, particularly the pronounced distinction between the two discoveries, are featured in the Coptic discourse on the

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rent in Armenia. Thus, St Gregory the Illuminator is introduced into the story as the one who also participated in the supervision of the building project. It reflects the legendary tradition popular in Armenia of St Gregory the Illuminator and the king Trdat going to Jerusalem with Constantine the Great and the Pope Sylvester to build the churches and monasteries and, thereafter, to divide the Holy Places between the Armenians and the Romans.

I gratefully recognize the help of Professor Zara Pogossian in translating this significant, for the present research, passage from the Armenian manuscripts and providing useful comments on its content.

(151) There could be no better source and model for the motif of animal sacrifice at the dedication than the hypothetical Greek version of the account of the Encaenia of the Holy Sepulchre.

For more detailed treatment of the passage describing animal sacrifice at the dedication of St Sophia, see my article, The Encaenia of St Sophia: Animal Sacrifice in Christian Context, *Scr* 4 (2008) 159–200.

(152) H. A. Drake, A Coptic version of the Discovery of the Holy Sepulchre, *Greek, Roman and Byzantine Studies* 20 (1979) 381–392; Orlandi, Pearson, Drake, *Eudoxia and the Holy Sepulchre…*, *passim*.

Cross ascribed to Cyril of Jerusalem and have been already mentioned above.

The great significance of the Encaenia and the existence of two separate liturgical feasts in the Eastern calendar for commemorating the Holy Sepulchre and the Finding of the Cross paved the way for two separate stories to develop on Coptic soil. As has been reasonably noted by H. Drake, there was a vacuum in the history of the Encaenia feast as regards the foundation of the Holy Sepulchre, and the need to fill this gap called for the composition of an appropriate account.

> Combined with the physical presence of two structures in Jerusalem on which to hang these stories and the fact that the Helena legend came to focus so intensively on the discovery of the Cross, this litlurgical separation opened the way for the story of Eudoxia and the Sepulchre.[153]

Although the Coptic legend of the Holy Sepulchre reflects the pervasive influence of the famous *inventio crucis*, it nevertheless appears to be an original composition; no equivalent survives in any other language. However, it is possible there was a Byzantine model of this Coptic text. There is a major difference of opinion concerning the issue of a plausible Greek original. Pearson, in the *Introduction* to the edition and translation of the Coptic legend, was in favour of the hypothesis that the Eudoxia narrative (conventionally called so after the name of the protagonist of the story) is an original Coptic composition rather than a translation from a Greek model. Orlandi, on the other hand, placed the legend in the context of the non-Chalcedonian literature of Egypt, which was supposedly produced mainly in Greek. Consequently, he regarded the Eudoxia narrative as a translation from Greek.[154] If the Coptic version did derive from a Greek source, it would substantially support the hypothesis that there was an early Byzantine narrative describing the foundation and the dedication of the Holy Sepulchre.

Despite allegedly being a translation from a Greek original, the Eudoxia story finds no reflection in Greek literature. It has, however, some traces in other Coptic compositions. These literary reflections may point to the popularity of the hagiographic legend on Coptic soil. The encomium of St George of Cappadocia attributed to Abba The-

(153) Orlandi, Pearson, Drake, *Eudoxia and the Holy Sepulchre…*, 148.

(154) Ibid., 19.

odotus, the bishop of Ancyra,[155] explicitly names Eudoxia as the one who accompanied Constantine the Great and his mother, Helena, on pious visits to the churches of Jerusalem.[156] In another Coptic literary work, the already-mentioned homily on the Cross written by Pseudo-Cyril of Jerusalem, the spurious sister of Constantine appears as well. Yet, in this account her name is not given: Constantine, leaving for Jerusalem in order to discover the Cross, is told to take along with him his mother and "his sister, who was a virgin."[157]

The latter text shows more familiarity with the Eudoxia legend rather than mere awareness of the existence of Constantine's sister. It has been already noted that the homily on the Cross distinquishes between discovery of the Tomb and discovery of the Cross. Such unusual separation of the discovery of the Tomb event is also conspicuous in the Coptic Eudoxia legend.

Yet, the significance of the homily extends further than its attention to the discovery of the Tomb. For, after the exposition of the finding of the True Cross and the discovery of the place of Christ's burial and resurrection, the homily relates in some detail the building of the church at the Tomb. Here again we can identify some important resemblance with the church building process as described in the *Diegesis*. When Constantine resolved to build churches in the holy places of Jerusalem, he commissioned a great number of workers and ordered that the required material be brought. In this way, he collected an enormous amount of building materials for his grand project.

> And forthwith they began to burn bricks for the church, and Constantine sat handicraftsmen to work, each at his own trade, and he made foremen to supervise the work which was carried on in all the workshops. . . . And he ordered to be brought to him vast quantities of alabaster, and stone slabs for tessellated pavements, and marble, and well-grown timber, and silver, and copper, and a very large quantity of lead; in short, he made to be brought every-

(155) According to Wallis Budge, this was the twelfth bishop of Ancyra in Galatia who lived in the early fifth century (E. A. Wallis Budge, *The Martyrdom and Miracles of Saint George of Cappadocia* (London: D. Nutt, 1888), 274).

(156) "And he [Constantine the Great] went into the shrine of the Church of the Resurrection, and prayed there, and he went into the shrine of Saint George with his mother Helena, and his sister Eudoxia, and Saint George appeared to him by night, and told him what he should do" (Wallis Budge, *The Martyrdom and Miracles of Saint George of Cappadocia…*, 325).

(157) Wallis Budge, *Miscellaneous Coptic Texts…*, 794.

> thing which was required for the building. . . . And those who were working at the building the new Jerusalem were very many. And one may say that they were more in number that those who worked on the Temple of Solomon in days of old. And the work was carried on until the shrines were completed, and they decorated them and made them to be like unto the firmament of heaven in its beauty.[158]

This passage manifests close affinities with the equivalent story of the material collection in the *Diegesis*, as well as with the Old Testament account of David's provision of material for the Temple building.[159] The biblical text was probably on the mind of both composers. The large number of workers laboring under the supervision of headmasters, collection of material required for the grand-scale building projects, and the sheer beauty of the completed churches — are the details equally present in the descriptions of both the Holy Sepuchre and St Sophia. At the same time, these correspondences strongly evoke the classic biblical account of the Temple foundation.

The account of the collection of materials in the story of St Sophia seems to be almost identical with the Eudoxia legend. The *Diegesis* recounts that Justinian ordered his officials throughout the empire to send him all kinds of building material, columns and piers, slabs and revetments, lattice doors and other goods "appropriate for the building of the church." According to the text, this was obediently carried out according to the imperial instructions.[160]

The points of contact between the two texts, and particularly their similar descriptions of church construction, can be considered as support for the existence of a "foundation-dedication" legend of the Holy Sepulchre that significantly influenced the author of the *Diegesis*. The authors of the Eudoxia legend and the discourse on the Cross appear to be drawing on a common hagiographical source (or souces) that contained, besides the discovery of the Tomb, the story of the building

(158) Wallis Budge, *Miscellaneous Coptic Texts…*, 803–804.

(159) 1 Chron. 22: 1–4; 14–16; 29: 1–5.

(160) "Ἔγραψε δὲ τοῖς στρατηγοῖς καὶ σατράπαις καὶ κριταῖς καὶ φορολόγοις τοῖς ὑπὸ τῶν θεμάτων ἅπασιν ἐρευνᾶν πάντας αὐτούς, ὅπως εὕρωσι κίονάς τε καὶ συστεμμάτια, στηθαῖά τε καὶ καγκελλοθυρίδια καὶ τὴν λοιπὴν ὕλην τὴν ἀνήκουσαν εἰς ἀνεγεῖραι ναόν. Πάντες δὲ οἱ παρ᾽ αὐτοῦ ὁρισθέντες <εὑρόντες> ἀπὸ εἰδωλικῶν ναῶν καὶ ἀπὸ παλαιῶν λουετρῶν τε καὶ οἴκων ἔπεμπον τῷ βασιλεῖ Ἰουστινιανῷ μετὰ σχιδέων ἀπὸ πάντων τῶν θεμάτων Ἀνατολῆς τε καὶ Δύσεως, Βορρᾶ τε καὶ Νότου καὶ ἐκ πάντων τῶν νήσων" (Vitti, *Die Erzählung...*, 436, l. 15 – 437, l. 8).

and dedication of the Holy Sepulchre. This would be the same hypothetical legendary narrative that should be responsible for a considerable amount of material found in the *Diegesis*.

As a result of the undertaken comparative analysis of literary motifs and episodes in the accounts for the feast of the Jerusalem Encaenia from the Oriental collections, some Coptic hagiographical legends, and the *Diegesis*, I conclude that the close textual resemblances are best explained if we assume there was a Greek version of the legendary account relating the building and dedication of the Holy Sepulchre. This legend arguably served as a source for the Oriental versions and the influential model for the *Diegesis.*

Furthermore, the parallels detected between the *Diegesis* and the section from Eusebius' *Vita Constantini* dealing with the building and dedication of the church complex at Golgotha suggest the author of the account of St Sophia's construction purposefully selected the source material and deliberately drew upon stories connected with the foundation of the Holy Sepulchre that were available to him. This literary parallelism was not an end in itself but served a deeper ideological goal; it was a technique intended to depict the church of St Sophia as a new Temple that superseded any other great religious foundation. This ambition could be achieved only if the Holy Sepulchre, which was commonly perceived as a new Jerusalem and was indeed the most significant foundation in all Christendom, were deprived of its central position. The methods of literary imitation and appropriation applied by the author served this purpose very effectively; the use of common motifs highlighted the resemblance between the two churches. After the necessary association of the great foundations was established, the hindrance of potential rivals could be eliminated and the unsurpassable excellence of St Sophia proclaimed.

Hagiography as a Literary Background of the *Diegesis*

A comparison of the *Diegesis* with the hagiographic legends of the building and dedication of the Holy Sepulchre revealed close parallels of narrative motifs in the given accounts. Besides giving way to the interpretation of the deeper ideological significance behind this, very likely deliberate, literary imitation, the resemblance between the texts leads to another corollary — it suggests more than a random association of the *Diegesis* with the lore of hagiographic literature. Indeed, upon a closer examination of the foundation account one cannot but notice a distinct hagiographic character of the narrative, which is espe-

cially pronounced in the usage of literary themes and miracle stories that are typical of a range of hagiographical accounts.

Inasmuch as it is proposed here to classify the account of St Sophia as a hagiographical legend, it is necessary to deal first with a general issue of hagiography and then, more specifically, with the question of how justifiable such an approach to the *Diegesis* is.

The questions of genre definition and the generic study of Byzantine literature have already produced some controversy.[161] Without going into the problem of legitimacy and usefulness of such an approach to the study of Byzantine literature in particular, which clearly lies beyond the scope of the present research, it is nevertheless necessary to give a brief overview of this debatable issue with regard to hagiographical literature and to clarify what is understood under the term of hagiography in the present study.[162]

The classical definition of hagiography has been given by the father Delehaye: "It thus appears that, in order to be strictly hagiographic, the document should be of a religious character and should aim at edification. The term may only be applied therefore to writings inspired

(161) For a general discussion on the problem of genre in Byzantine literature see M. Mullet, The Madness of Genre, *DOP* 46 (192) 233–243. The appropriateness of generic approach to the literature classified as hagiography has been questioned by C. Rapp, "For Next to God, You Are My Salvation": Reflections on the Rise of the Holy Man in Late Antiquity, in: J. Howard-Johnston and P. A. Hayward (eds.), *The Cult of Saints in Late Antiquity and the Early Middle Ages. Essays on the Contribution of Peter Brown* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1999) 63–81; M. van Uytfanghe, L'hagiographie: un "genre" Chrétien ou antique tardif? *AB* 111 (1993) 135–188; S. Constantinou, Subgenre and Gender in Saints' Lives, in: P. Odorico and P. Agapitos (eds.), *Les Vies des saints à Byzance. Genre littéraire ou biographie historique? Actes du II^e colloque international philologique Paris, 6–7–8 juin 2002* (Paris: Centre d'études byzantines, néohelléniques et sud-est européennes, E.H.E.S.S., 2004) 411–423.

(162) The term "hagiography," relevant to both Byzantine and Western Medieval contexts, has a number of meanings in modern scholarship. Apart from being conventionally considered as a literary genre, it also refers to a literary discipline focusing on lives and cults of saints as reflected in the textual sources (G. Philippart, Hagiographes et hagiographie, hagiologes et hagiologie: des mots et des concepts, *Hagiographica* 1 (1994) 1–16). For a summarising discussion of the question of hagiography as a literary genre see Aigrain, *L'hagiographie*, 206–46; В. Лурье, Из Иерусалима в Аксум через Храм Соломона: архаичные предания о Сионе и Ковчеге, *XB* 2 (8) (2000 [ed. 2001]) 141–150.

by devotion to the saints and intended to promote it."[163] The classification of hagiographical literature according to the original strict sense, however, has become inadequately limiting as the study of hagiography proceeded over the last century. The students of hagiography have been continually confronted with the complexities of a form and mode, subject matter and function of the literary compositions associated with this literary genre.[164] The intricacies of the methodological approach to the body of literature defined as hagiography have been pinpointed recently by C. Rapp who clearly realized the lop-sidedness of generic study of a literary corpus which is conventionally labeled as hagiography:

> Scholars have tended to devote most attention to saints' Lives and, as a consequence, have posited the existence of a 'genre of hagiography' despite the variety of late antique literary formats in which the various aspects of the quest of pious men and women for the holy life are related. The label misleads since it presupposes that hagiographical writing follows a specific set of rules, such as typically defined the composition of particular genres in classical and late antiquity . . . No such guidelines were ever formulated for writing about saints. In fact, it is the subject matter alone that defines what we call 'hagiography', and not the manner of its literary representation which could take a variety of literary forms — most prominently, the *Vita*, the *miraculum*, or, as we shall see below, the letter. In the stricter sense, hagiography is not a 'genre'. Still it did have conventions — such as stock phrases and oft-repeated miracle stories — that developed over time, as more and more texts were added to the corpus of saints Lives, each continuing and often subtly manipulating the established tradition of hagiographical writing.[165]

(163) H. Delehaye, *The Legends of the Saints*, trans. V. M. Crawford (London: Longmans, Green, and Co., 1907) 2.

(164) It has been persuasively argued that Byzantine hagiography should not be put into a straight-jacket of literary genre akin to generic classifications applied, for instance, in the study of classical literature of Ancient Greece and Rome. As an alternative, a more general definition of hagiography as a broader category comprising texts marked by *hagiographical discourse* has been suggested (cf. van Uytfanghe, L'hagiographie…, 170–179). Unlike other fairly clear-cut Byzantine literary genres (eg. hymnography or epistolography), hagiography should rather be viewed as an over-all category that encompasses a number of literary genres.

(165) Rapp, Reflections on the Rise of the Holy Man in Late Antiquity..., 64–65.

Despite the justified reservations as to such a generic approach, which have been aptly articulated by Rapp, the study of Medieval hagiography continues along traditional lines focusing mainly on the *Vitae* of saints. The precursor of hagiographic genre, which conventionally began with the *Life of Antony*,[166] was a group of texts identified as the acts of martyrs, recording heroic deeds of the people who were persecuted and died for the Christian faith. Later on, the subject of the hagiographic *vitae* was confined to men and women who, as a rule, attained the sainted status by means of miracles, the *conditio sine qua non* of sainthood. Although the literary form of hagiographical discourse could reasonably vary,[167] the scope of hagiography was originally limited to the subject of the holy men and women strictly speaking.[168] Accordingly, hagiography is seen primarily as a biographical description of the holy men aimed at their glorification and claiming for them the status of a saint. In addition to hagiographical descriptions of saints' lives, there is a vast range of religious works which are conventionally subsumed under the literary genre of hagiography but are not biographical descriptions of saints *per se*. The *Sayings of the Desert Fathers*, the *Spiritual Meadow*, the *History of the Monks of Syria*, to name just a

(166) G. J. M. Bartelink (ed. and French trans.), Athanase d'Alexandrie, *Vie d'Antoine* (Paris: Cerf, 1994) (SC, 400).

(167) The works which modern scholars classify as hagiography often have a different self-definition in manuscripts. Apart from *bios*, a rather dominant way of hagiographical exposition, some hagiographers presented their works in the epistolary form and referred to the mode of their story-telling as that of *diegesis* or *diegema*. Two other genres of hagiography, frequently mentioned in the titles of hagiographical narratives, are *enkomion* and *martyrion.* The existence of different modes of hagiographic representation demonstrates, at the very least, that hagiography was not confined to one particular literary type but utilised various genres and forms of exposition (Rapp, Reflections on the Rise of the Holy Man in Late Antiquity…, 80; idem, Storytelling as Spiritual Communication in Early Greek Hagiography: The Use of *Diegesis*, *JECS* 6 (1988) 436–437).

(168) A number of studies on the genre of hagiography with detailed discussion of various literary forms of hagiographic documents were done by H. Delehaye. They remain valuable source of insight and classic reference works for anybody dealing with the field of hagiography. See, for example, Delehaye, *The Legends of the Saints...*; idem, *Les Passions des martyrs et les genres littéraires* (Brussels: Société des Bollandistes, 1921). An attempt at overview of hagiographical literature, with a special attention to its sources and methodology, was made by Aigrain, *L'hagiographie*... The volume is useful as a reference book — it comprises a comprehensive bibliography on the subject.

few, — all of which are traditionally considered as hagiographical literature yet depart from traditional biography of saints and represent a variety of formats and discourses.[169]

Apart from a relative freedom as regards the form of representation of hagiographic discourse, its scope and character could also vary considerably. The original purpose of hagiography to edify and promote the devotion to the people who were great example of holiness and faith substantially changed over time. As the persecution subsided and there were no more martyrs whose life and deeds were the main focus of hagiographic compositions, the content of hagiography reflected the socio-ideological and political changes of the society as well. The main *dramatis personae* of hagiography were no longer limited to the men and women dying for the true Christian faith or striving for sanctity of their lives but included the members of the imperial court and the ecclesiastical elite who were mainly concerned with their own public image and reputation. A major shift occurred around the ninth century. Hagiographers of the mid-Byzantine period were predominantly occupied with emperors, patriarchs, bishops, state officials and concentrated mostly on political and ecclesiastical conflicts.[170] Hagiography, therefore, became a powerful means of political propaganda and a carrier of imperial ideology. It has been reasonably suggested that, because of such distinctive secular flavour, some hagiographic works of this period should be regarded as "semi-secular hagiography" instead of being characterized too generally as hagiography.[171]

Along with the indicated modifications with regard to the type of main heroes, hagiographic genre did not remain limited to only people either. As noted by Lourie,[172] *mutatis mutandis*, the classical scope of hagiography could be extended also to sacred objects. Suffice it to browse, for instance, through the *Bibliotheca Hagiographica* (*Latina, Graeca, Orientalis*) published by the Bollandists to perceive with how

(169) Rapp drew attention to the problem of inaccuracy of generic distinction with regard to this group of texts that are conventionally labelled as hagiography. She suggested to re-define this type of works as monastic literature (Rapp, Reflections on the Rise of the Holy Man in Late Antiquity…, 64).

(170) A. P. Kazhdan, *A History of Byzantine Literature (650–850)* (Athens, 1999) 386–387.

(171) P. Alexander, Secular Biography at Byzantium, *Speculum* 15 (1940) 204.

(172) Лурье, Из Иерусалима в Аксум..., 137, n. 2.

great a variety of the subject matter and literary form the corpus of hagiographical literature was enriched over the centuries. These reference collections list in a convenient form diverse works that, evidently, belong to the realm of hagiography. Among the popular subjects of hagiographical discourse were material relics of the saints, but also the reliquary items related to Christ and the Theotokos — such were, for example, tunic of Christ,[173] the letter fallen from the sky,[174] the belt and the robe of the Theotokos,[175] and the like. Miracle–working images of Christ, Theotokos and saints also received much attention of Byzantine hagiographers.[176] As Lidov correctly observed,

> Miracle-working icons could be regarded among the heroes of the Orthodox church. . . . these icons were perceived as living beings, they could move, speak and even fight with pagans, unbelievers or sinners. The defence of the Orthodox faith was one of their major functions.[177]

No wonder that, being likened in their role to the heroes of faith, the icons became one of the favorite themes of hagiographic accounts too. Comprehensive lists of narratives about images published in the *BHG*[178] demonstrate that icons, perceived as miraculous agents of the divine power, were a common subject matter of numerous hagiographic texts.

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(173) M. van Esbroeck, Invention de reliques comme attribut impérial: la tunique du Christ à Moscou et son symbolisme, in: P. Catalano and P. Siniscalco (eds.), *Roma fuori di Roma: istituzioni e immagini* (Rome: Università degli studi "La Sapienza," 1985) 225–243.

(174) *BHG* 812i–s; H. Delehaye, Note sur la légende de la lettre du Christ tombée du ciel, in: *Mélanges d'hagiographie grecque et latine* (Brussels: Société des Bollandistes, 1966) (SH, 42) 150–178.

(175) *BHG* 1086. For a scholarly discussion of the texts dealing with Marian relics see A. Cameron, The Virgin's Robe. An Episode in the History of Early Seventh Century Constantinople, *Byz* 49 (1979) 42–56; Ch. Angelidi, *Pulcheria. La castità al potere* (Milan: Jaca Book, 1996) 81–86.

(176) Many of *narrationes de imaginibus* were collected and edited by E. von Dobschütz, *Christusbilder. Untersuchungen zur christlichen Legende* (Leipzig: Hindrichs, 1899) (TU, 18).

(177) A. Lidov, Leo the Wise and the Miraculous Icons in Hagia Sophia, in: E. Kountoura-Galake (ed.), *The Heroes of the Orthodox Church: The New Saints, 8th–16th c.* (Athens: Institute for Byzantine Research, 2004) 393.

(178) Cf. *Iesus Christus* in *BHG* 780–801; *Maria Deipara* in *BHG* 1141; *BHG*^{3} 1065m–1070c; *Orthodoxiae festum* in *BHG* 1388–1391; *BHG*^{3} 1387y–1391b.

In the same vein, no one would question nowadays hagiographical nature of various legends about the invention of the True Cross, the main focus of which is the Wood of the Cross on which Christ was crucified.[179] That is true, there are a few people involved, immediately or somewhat more indirectly, into the paramount, for religious history, discovery: famous mother of Constantine the Great, Helena, and Judas Kyriakus, who gained a prominent status in the ecclesiastical world particularly because of the role they played in the finding of the Cross. Yet, as a matter of fact, the legends of the *inventio crucis* cannot be said to be a hagiographical account of any specific person. It is, indeed, the hagiography of the sacred object, namely, of the Wood of the Cross that, similarly to holy men, is vested with the miraculous powers and therefore is perceived as a channel of divine manifestation.

The quasi-historical account of the saints or sacred objects was not always in the forefront light of hagiographic texts. Popular in the Christian East, *narrationes animae utiles*[180] had often a totally fabulous nature. More than anything else, the stories aimed at giving a valuable moral lesson for edification of the faithful. A series of these highly instructive tales is, as a rule, also approached as falling into the category of hagiographic literature. By extension, the designation of hagiographic genre is applied also to a corpus of Byzantine apocalyptic texts. The association of apocalyptic literature with the hagiographical genre was established already by the father Delehaye[181] whereas a more extensive study of Byzantine apocalyptic tradition was carried out only comparatively recently by P. Alexander.[182]

Furthermore, a number of stories which are associated with hagiography mainly because of their liturgical function relate neither of saints nor sacred objects, but of certain events or natural disasters, such as wars, liberations of cities, translations of relics, earthquakes, floods,

(179) Cf. *Crux Christi* in *BHG* 396–451y; *Crux et passio* in *BGH*[3] 396–451z.

(180) *BHG* 1318–1322z; *BHG*[3] 1317d–1322zm. A group of the *narrationes animae utiles* ascribed to Paul of Monembasia has been published, translated and commented upon by J. Wortley, *Les récits édifiants de Paul, évêque de Monembasie, et d'autres auteurs* (Paris: C.N.R.S., 1987); idem, *The Spiritually Beneficial Tales of Paul, Bishop of Monembasia* (Kalamazoo, Mich.: Cistercian Publications, 1996).

(181) Delehaye, *Les passions des martyrs...*, 8.

(182) D. de F. Abrahamse (ed. with an introd.), P. J. Alexander, *The Byzantine Apocalyptic Tradition* (Berkeley, Calif.: University of California Press, 1985).

etc. The elements of spiritual edification and miraculous manifestations of divine power are prominent here similarly to conventional hagiographic *Lives*. Often, the texts about different events do not clearly fall into the category of hagiography, but are rather quasi-historical narratives displaying some hagiographic features that allow associating them with this genre.

One of the historical accounts in a hagiographic disguise is a text about the events of the war with the Bulgarians. Among a group of notices composed for commemoration of victims of the war with the Bulgarians in 811 there is a text that especially drew attention of scholars. That the *Diegesis* "About the emperor Nikephorus and how he left his bones in Bulgaria" admittedly manifests some features of hagiographical character was first noted by Gregoire[183] and later elaborated by Dujčev.[184] Most recently, Markopoulos upheld the earlier expressed view that this text is a hagiographical composition.[185] The main trait that was considered as exposing the hagiographic character of the narrative is the ending formula typical for the texts read in the monastic environment for commemoration purposes. As a matter of fact, the narrative had probably been originally a historical text that was given some hagiographic polish to adjust it for commemoration of the prisoners-martyrs and the victims of the war of 811 during the liturgical office on 26 July.[186]

Much revealing of mid-Byzantine tradition to commemorate liturgically various events are the Constantinopolitan *Synaxarium* and *Typicon*. These hagiographic compilations contain a number of entries in memory of fires, earthquakes, floods, sieges, barbarian invasions, ecumenical councils, dedications of cities and churches,[187] pointing to the fact that the liturgical year of Constantinope was shaped around

(183) H. Grégoire, Du nouveau sur la Chronographie byzantine: le "scriptor incertus de Leone Armenio" est le dernier continuateur de Malalas, *Académie royale de Belgique. Bulletin de la classe des lettres et des sciences morales et politiques* 5, XXII (1936) 431–432; idem, Un nouveau fragment du "Scriptor incertus de Leone Armenio," *Byz* 11 (1936) 417–427.

(184) I. Dujčev, La chronique Byzantine de l'an 811, *TM* 1 (1965) 205–254.

(185) A. Markopoulos, La chronique de l'an 811 et le *scriptor incertus de Leone Armenio*: Problèmes des relations entre l'hagiographie et l'histoire, in: *History and Literature of Byzantium in the 9th–10th Centuries* (Aldershot: Variorum, 2004) 255–262.

(186) Delehaye, *Synaxarium*, cols. 846–848.

(187) Ibid., cols. lxxv–lxxvi.

the events of its own history.[188] The celebrated events, similarly to the tradition recording lives and merits of saints, were given a shorter or longer hagiographic account relating the historical (or what was believed to be historical) background of the event commemorated.[189] These notices, though having rather diverse nature and origins, were used in the commemoration office of specific events and, thereafter, especially due to their function as *lectio hagiographica*, belong to the corpus of Byzantine hagiography.

Hence, it should be emphasized, hagiography could thematically deviate from a narrow focus on a particular individual with a status of the saint and dealt with a diversity of themes. The subject matter of a hagiographic text often included physical objects or events that, nevertheless, had to be somehow related to the biblical characters and holy men, or to possess some religiously significant dimension as, for instance, miraculous recovery and other manifestations of divine intervention.

The above overview does not pretend to be either detailed or exhaustive. It is meant to demonstrate that there is a great variety of literary production that is conventionally referred to as hagiography. It is possible to speak about a narrow sense of the hagiographic genre, which refers strictly to the lives of saints; and a broad sense, which includes a range of literary compositions, varied in their format, about sacred objects and historical events as well as edifying stories and apocalyptic texts.

For the sake of clarity in our own work, we should distinguish between the *vitae* of saints strictly speaking, and hagiographical texts that could be presented in a diversity of forms, have rather different functions and, significantly, quite a range of subject matter. Un-

(188) There are twenty commemorations of specific events pertinent to the history of Constantinople listed in the tenth-century *Typicon* of the Great Church (cf. J. F. Baldovin, Worship in Urban Life. The Example of Medieval Constantinople, in: P. S. Hawkins (ed.), *Civitas*: Religious Interpretations of the City (Atlanta: Scholar's Press, 1986) 57–67, esp. 58).

(189) For example, there are seven entries commemorating earthquakes or, rather, divine deliverance from them in the Byzantine calendar. Only three entries (on 25 September, 25 January, and 26 October) give a longer description of the events, whereas the rest of the commemorations are rather concise (Delehaye, *Synaxarium*, cols. 79. 18–80. 21; 117. 1–3; 166. 31–44; 308. 29–32; 308. 29–32; 380. 19–23; 425: 1–17; 904. 28–32). On the historicity of the *Synaxarium* entries see B. Croke, Two Early Byzantine Earthquakes and Their Liturgical Commemoration, *Byz* 51 (1981) 122–147.

derstandably, it is not the first group of literary texts that is regarded here as a context for our story of the building of St Sophia with. With relative ease, the *Diegesis* can be placed within the second category of hagiographic literature which, having less strictly defined framework, displays a number of similarities with our narrative of St Sophia.

Hagiographic Features of the *Diegesis*

As we have seen, it was quite a wide-spread practice that the venerable objects and events which were viewed as crucial, from the Christian perspective, for memory of the Byzantine past received nearly the same "hagiographical" treatment as the saints. The church of St Sophia was a most prominent shrine of the Byzantines and certainly merited no less attention of hagiographers than other religious objects. If miraculous icons could be regarded amongst the heroes of the Orthodox church, even much more so could be perceived the Great Church of Constantinople. There is, therefore, little wonder that St Sophia would become the main theme or, as it could also be said metaphorically, the "protagonist" of the account with a distinctly hagiographic character. The *Diegesis*, consequently, can be considered as a sort of the *Vita ecclesiae Sanctae Sophiae* where the church plays a role of the main "hero." Not unexpectedly, that is exactly how the *Diegesis* is called in one of the manuscripts — a rather late copy of the foundation account in the manuscript *Athous Iwiron* 383 bears the title "Τὰ πάτρια τῆς ἁγίας Σοφίας τῆς Κωνσταντινουπόλεως, ***ὁ βίος*** καὶ τὰ ἔξοδα αὐτῆς" (emphasis mine).[190]

The widely-used reference to the account of the building of St Sophia as a *diegesis* can also suggest further association with hagiographic writings. For quite frequently Byzantine hagiographers avoided referring to their own compositions as *bios*. Instead, they used the words *diegesis* or *diegema* when speaking about their literary works.[191] Yet, despite an explicit connection of the *diegesis* as a mode of narrating with a hagiographic discourse — existence of such a link was convincingly demonstrated in the article of C. Rapp[192] — the use of the word *diegesis* is so common in the narrative literature of various genres that it is

(190) Vitti, *Die Erzählung...*, 74.

(191) The instances of the word *diegesis* being used as a reference to hagiographic *Vitae* are discussed in Rapp, Storytelling as Spiritual Communication, 437–438.

(192) Ibid., 431–448.

hardly possible to speak of generic classification on the basis of such self-definition in literary pieces. We can conclude that, however important a terminological designation in fact is in identifying the nature of a composition, it is not a decisive factor for association with one or another a literary genre. Yet an overall nature, style, content and function of a literary text are. These aspects will be given further attention, with a particular emphasis on the liturgical function of the *Diegesis*.

There is another rather curious factor that once and again prompts us to place the *Diegesis* in the context of hagiography. The account, as a matter of fact, appears in the *Bibliotheca Hagiographica* (*BHG* 369m) — the essential reference book for hagiographic literature. The inclusion of the *Diegesis* into the *BHG* can certainly imply that the text has been already considered by F. Halkin as a composition pertaining to the realm of hagiography. The place where it is listed — among the texts associated with the name of Constantine the Great — is somewhat unexpected, for we know that the narrative focuses on Justinian rather than on Constantine. This erroneous location of the account, however, could be explained if reasoned by the *incipit* of the narrative: it begins with the foundation of Constantinople by the emperor Constantine the Great. The story must have been thought as one of numerous legends forming the Constantine-cycle since it starts with the description of his building achievements and therefore has been mistakingly associated with the name of Constantine by the editors of the *BHG*.

The only codex which is adduced in the *Novum Auctarium* of the *BHG* as containing the story, entitled in Latin as *Fundatio urbis CP. et ecclesiae S. Sophiae*, is the sixteenth century manuscript *Holkham. Gr.* 57 of the Bodleian library in Oxford. The text, evidently, is nothing else but one of the numerous versions of the *Diegesis* which, as we can judge from the ending sentence, belongs to the family *k* according to Vitti's classification.[193] The manuscript adduced in the *BHG*, interestingly, is missing from the comprehensive list of more than 80 codices compiled by Vitti.[194]

One of the characteristic features of hagiographic texts, from the point of view of textual criticism, has been observed by Delehaye, who remarked that "tous ceux qui mettent la main à nos texts semblent conspirer pour les altérer."[195] Indeed, textual criticism of hagiographi-

(193) Vitti, *Die Erzählung…*, 490.

(194) Ibid., 69–116.

(195) Delehaye, *Les passions des martyrs...*, 260.

cal legends has been made extremely difficult because of their high variability. The numerous versions of the *Diegesis*, which were dealt with in detail by Vitti, demonstrate that the legend of St Sophia is one of such texts that had been continuously subjected to modifications and alterations. As Preger noted long time ago, nearly every scribe of the *Diegesis* considered himself competent to deviate from the copies at hand by adding and extracting, or freely changing some details in the legend as if he was the one who knew the story the best.[196] If a high textual variability can be counted among the factors contributing to literary identification of the *Diegesis*, then it would add substance to our classification of the text as a hagiographic legend.

Literary Motifs and Miracle Stories as Markers of Genre

In support to the theoretical assumptions formulated above I would like to adduce some literary evidence demonstrating that the *Diegesis* is associated with hagiographical literature in a broader sense, and not only with the thematically related stories of the Holy Sepulchre.

A vivid illustration of a common hagiographic substratum shared by the *Diegesis* comes from an episode in a commemoration article for the feast of the martyr St Sophia, recorded in the Ethiopic *Synaxarium* on 5 Maskaram. Certainly, the hagiography of the early Christian martyr St Sophia and her daughters, who supposedly died in the beginning of the second century, is not altogether irrelevant to the narrative of the church of St Sophia. The church built in the memory of the martyr in Jerusalem[197] had the same name as the one assigned to the Great Church of Constantinople. The link between the two churches, therefore, is based on their bearing the same name of St Sophia, although with a totally different significance.[198]

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(196) Th. Preger, Die Erzählung vom Bau der Hagia Sophia, *BZ* 10 (1901) 456.

(197) St Sophia of Jerusalem was also known as the church at the house of Pilate. Its dedication was celebrated on 7/8 August, but also on 21 September (cf. Garitte, *Le calendrier palestino-géorgien…*, 296–297, 335; K. Кекелидзе, *Иерусалимский канонарь VII века* (Тбилиси, 1912) 134; M. van Esbroeck, Le saint comme symbole, in: S. Hackel (ed.), *The Byzantine Saint* (London: Fellowship of St Alaban and St Sergius, 1981) 137–138. For hagiographic legends of St Sophia and her daughters Pistis, Elpis and Agape see *BHO* 1082–1085; *BHG*^{3} 1637x–1639; *NA BHG* 1637x, 1627y, 1637z.

(198) The intricacies of existence of different saints named Sophia as well as the usage of a theological concept of St Sophia as Holy Wisdom of God —

Having recounted the story of Sophia's martyrdom, a hagiographer continues to the events that took place after the death of the saint woman. Constantine had the relics of St Sophia translated to Constantinople and placed them in an already built church.

> Before [he heard] her history his people built a church, and wrote upon a tablet, "This is the house of Constantine;" and an angel of God came down and destroyed it. And he wrote, "This is the house of Sofya" (Sophia), and although the workmen wanted to cut it they left it written. One day whilst the son of the king was playing with his friends there, the angel of God whose name was Rufael appeared unto them and said unto them, "What is the name of this house?" And the youth said, "I do not know." And the angel said unto him, "Tell thy father to call it the house of Sofya" (Sofia). And the youth said unto him, "Wilt thou wait here until I come back?" and the angel said, "I will." And when his father heard this he knew that it was an angel, and he killed his son, and said, "The angel will not depart from that place because he must wait for the youth." And that angel is there to this day waiting for the youth.[199]

Noteworthy, Greek versions of martyrdom of St Sophia and her three daughters do not contain the legendary episode about building the shrine and giving it a name to commemorate the Roman martyr Sophia.[200] Neither does a corresponding legend in Syriac contain a similar story.[201] Interestingly, the scene of conversation between a young lad and the angel who gives the name to the church in the Ethiopic legend reappears in the *Diegesis*. The motif of the angel revealing the name of the church to a youth and then becoming its guardian is strongly reminiscent of the episode in the legend of St Sophia in Constantinople.

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all of which complicate the possibility of establishing clear interrelation between the stories — were treated in van Esbroeck, Le saint comme symbole..., 128–140.

(199) E. A. Wallis Budge, *The Book of the Saints of the Ethiopian Church* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1928) 17.

(200) Three recensions of the Greek legend have been published in F. Halkin, Les martyres Foi, Espérance, Charite et leur mère Saint Sophie, in: Idem, *Légendes grecques de "martyres romaines"* (Brussels: Société des Bollandistes, 1973) (SH, 55) 179–228.

(201) A. S. Lewis, *Select Narratives of Holy Women* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1900) (Studia Sinaitica, 9–10).

The Byzantine legend of the angel incorporated into the *Diegesis* goes as follows. Being invited by the Emperor Justinian to dinner, the *protomaistor,* the main master, leaves the place of construction together with all the builders and craftsmen for the imperial palace. The master sets his son — a young lad — to guarding the instruments. Watching over the building equipment the youth sees a beautiful eunuch, whom he takes for one of the palace officials. The eunuch reprimands the builders for leaving God's work unfinished and orders the lad to go and call them back to finish the work. When the son of the main master refuses to leave the spot and leave the tools unattended, the eunuch vows by God's Wisdom, in whose name the church is being built, to guard the place until the youth returns. The lad goes to the palace and recounts his conversation to his father, who takes him to the Emperor. Upon listening to the story, Justinian understands that the eunuch that appeared to the lad was none other than an angel of God. The emperor expresses his gratitude to God for showing His goodwill and revealing the name of the church, and, with the approval of the father, decides to send the youth to the Cyclades. In this way, he assumes, the church will always be under the angel's protection.

The similarity of the two narratives is striking. How then should this vivid parallel be interpreted? The re-occurrence of the episode of a guardian angel giving a name to the church in both narratives could be explained in one of the following ways: the influence onto each other's stories or they simply drew upon a common stock of miracle stories which was continually growing and being re-cycled. The way of interdependency of the narratives, if that is the reason of the parallelism, is difficult to resolve. Since the Ethiopic *Synaxarium* includes the variety of material that belongs to different chronological strata, the given story of St Sophia could be both earlier and later than the *Diegesis*. Had we known more about the textual history of the episode of the guardian angel, we would have had more grounds to surmise a chronological correlation between the stories of the martyr St Sophia and Constantinopolitan church of St Sophia. Yet for now, it has been only possible to detect this pronounced similarity, which suggests, at the very least, the *Diegesis*' relation to hagiographic material.

Another hagiographical piece showing rather close resemblance with the *Diegesis* as far as literary themes and motifs are concerned is a legendary story, *De columna viduae,* belonging to the cycle of the

miracles of St George.[202] In one of the manuscripts this miracle is called "Περὶ τῆς οἰκοδομῆς τοῦ ναοῦ καὶ τοῦ κίονος."[203] It is likely that this miracle comes from an originally longer composition about building of the church of St George which could be similar to the account of St Sophia that we have in our disposal. The main focus of the miracle is the donation of the column by a widow to the church of the great martyr George that was being built in Palestine. The anonymous emperor, having set his mind to build the church in honour of the saint, commissioned a man to be in charge of the building process. The man entrusted with the responsibility to build the church as soon as possible started the building by laying the foundation. Later, however, he realised the need for additional columns. Failing to find the place appropriate for quarrying the supervisor of the building, however, came across a spot with ready-made pillars of exceeding beauty. It happened that at the same location there lived a rich widow who desired to send a beautiful column for the church building hoping it would be counted for the spiritual benefit of her soul. Yet when seeking assistance in bringing her donation to the place of the building she was refused by the man who oversaw the transportation of the rest of the columns. Greatly distressed, the widow said a prayer to the holy martyr George complaining about the infelicitous situation. Evoking enormous astonishment and fear of the devout lady, there appeared a soldier riding a horse, apparently none the other than the holy martyr George, with whose miraculous intervention the column was immediately transported to the foundation spot and placed in the right part of the church in accordance with widow's pious request.

This miraculous story recalls the *Diegesis* in a couple of instances. First of all, the motif of a rich widow sending the columns for the building of the church is prominent in the story of St Sophia as well. The *Diegesis* relates an episode of a widow from Rome, named Markia, sending a set of eight columns, which were in her disposition as a dowry, to Constantinople in response to Justinian's quest for building material. She, similarly to the widow in the miracle of St George,

(202) J. Aufhauser (ed.), *Miracula S. Georgii* (Leipzig, 1913) 2–8. This parallel has been already noticed by Dagron. Yet, the French scholar did not perceive in this striking similarity between the two stories a sign of a common genre (Dagron, *Constantinople imaginaire…*, 279–280).

(203) Cod. *Chalki, scholae theologicae* 39, copied in 1559 (cf. Aufhauser, *Miracula S. Georgii…*, XI–XII).

dispatched her gift expressing, this time in a letter, a pious hope that it would be used for the salvation of her soul.[204]

The same theme of a widow making a donation to the emperor building the church — this time, the donation of a land plot that was occupied by the widow's private house — reappears in the account of building St Sophia following the episode of material collection. Here, once and again, the widow sought the reward for her pious deed on the Judgement day. The emperor magnanimously promised the widow, the texts inform us, that she would be berried at the same place after the church is built and perpetually commemorated.[205]

Unfortunately, because of lack of any definitive chronological information about the hagiographic legends discussed above, the literary similarities can not be used for establishment of interrelation between these hagiographic legends and the *Diegesis*. Yet, quite significantly, the observed parallels do demonstrate that the *Diegesis* shares a number of literary themes and motifs with hagiographic texts. Along with the earlier observations on commonalities of literary patterns present in hagiographic stories of the foundation-dedication of the Holy Sepulchre, the identification of parallel stories in the legend of the martyr St Sophia and the miracle of the column in the church of St George points to existence of a common stock of hagiographic themes and motifs that was also employed in the *Diegesis.* What is more, it is quite striking to observe that all of the parallels identified and analysed above — several episodes in the accounts of the Holy Sepulchre, the legend of the guardian angel and the donation of the column by a widow — are found exclusively in the hagiographic narratives dealing with various aspects of the church foundation. Obviously, there is an inherent association of the *Diegesis* with hagiographic legends concerned with the church building. Although not possible to substantiate by some evidence — no such data are available at present — it is rather tempting to assume that the accounts of the Holy Sepulchre, the legend of the guardian angel of the church of St Sophia in Jerusalem, and the miracle about the column sent by the widow for the church built in honour of St George were the sources re-cycled by the author of the *Diegesis.* We can speculate even further that there must have been other literary pieces, particularly hagiographic accounts concerned with the theme of the church building and dedication, which were used as

(204) Vitti, *Die Erzählung…*, 437–438.

(205) Ibid., 438–39.

sources or models of the *Diegesis* and, if revealed, would demonstrate more points of correspondence in terms of literary motifs and narrative plots akin to those already identified.

Nevertheless, leaving such speculations aside until more evidence is found, the existence of considerable amount of already identified literary motifs shared by the *Diegesis* with a few hagiographical accounts can justify a re-consideration of the *Diegesis* as regards its literary genre — the issue which formerly posed a great difficulty for scholars. It can be claimed, from a literary point of view, that the account has a pronounced nature of a hagiographic legend. That is, on the basis of the narrative correspondences in the material analysed thus far, we can argue that an appropriate literary context for the *Diegesis* of St Sophia is the lore of Byzantine hagiographical production.

Liturgical Function of the *Diegesis*

Association of the *Diegesis* with the realm of Byzantine hagiographical literature it closely related to the problem of the original destination and function of the legendary account. I will further suggest that its original purpose — which particularly justifies definition of the *Diegesis* as a hagiographical account of the church foundation — was to be read in the annual commemoration of the *encaenia* festival of the church of St Sophia. It has been already discussed earlier that Byzantine church had a prominent tradition of celebrating the dedication of churches that, very likely, included liturgical reading of the relevant text explaining the details of the church building history. It appears that the *Diegesis* was exactly such a text for being read in the liturgical office of the *encaenia* of the Great Church.

If the *Diegesis* indeed was the account designed for the dedication feast of St Sophia then why, one may wonder, it does not appear to be included into any Byzantine collection traditionally providing liturgical readings, like those of the *Menologia* or *Synaxaria*. It can be rightly expected that the narrative for commemorative purposes would be incorporated into specialised editions that were in wide use in the Byzantine ecclesiastical culture. Yet, there are cases of some hagiographical legends that were certainly designed for the liturgy and used as *lectio hagiographica* and were nevertheless omitted from Byzantine compilations. A vivid example of such inexplicable omissions is the case with the *Vita* of Constantine the Great and his mother Helena, commemorated on 21 May, being absent from the Metaphrastic collection of hagiographic texts — the fact noted by some scholars as truly

surprising.[206] Thus, despite the existence of certain pronounced rules and regularities in traditional practices of the Byzantine liturgy, there are numerous divergences from the commonly established principles. The *Diegesis* therefore could also be one of those irregular instances of the text that, although meant for reading in the church, was omitted from official collections.

Yet it is not impossible, however, that the *Diegesis* was actually included into some liturgico-hagiographic collections which, however, did not survive into our days. To this very conclusion points a later Georgian translation of the *Diegesis*, which was made no later than the eleventh or twelfth century from a Greek model.[207] The Medieval Georgian literary tradition, which is often very helpful in reconstructing how the matters were in Byzantium, does include the *Diegesis* into the collection of hagiographic texts. Although there is no surviving equivalent evidence about the precise usage of the *Diegesis* in Byzantium, the Georgian hagiographical collection reflects, almost doubtless, the original liturgical function of the translated text.

The oldest of the four Georgian manuscripts of the text — the thirteenth-century codex A-70 of the K. S. Kekelidze Institute of Manuscripts in Tbilisi — transmits the *Diegesis* among other hagiographic narratives arranged according to the order of the liturgical calendar.[208] Although there is no precise date indicated for which the *Diegesis* was assigned for, it is rather explicit for what time approximately the text was meant: the preceding and following texts give a clear indication of a chronological framework meant for the foundation account of St Sophia. Thus, in an immediate precedence of the *Diegesis* there are hagiographical accounts for the feasts of the Vision of Constantine and the Discovery of the Cross by Helena (7 May), two sermons by John of Bolnisi, and the *Life* of St Stephen the Younger. After these texts the *Di-*

(206) S. Lieu, From History to Legend and Legend to History: The Medieval and Byzantine Transformation of Constantine's *Vita*, in: S. N. C. Lieu and D. Montserrat (eds.), *Constantine: History, Historiography and Legend* (London: Routledge, 1998) 153.

(207) O. Beridze (ed.), *Byzantine Account of the Building of the Church of St Sophia and its Medieval Georgian Translation* (Tbilisi: Metsniereba, 1982) 20 (in Georgian).

(208) For a description of this manuscript, cf. E. P. Metreveli (ed.), *Description of Georgian Manuscripts. Collection A of the Former Church Museum* (Tbilisi: Metsniereba, 1973) 243–251 (in Georgian).

egesis is placed, being followed by the account of the Sack of Jerusalem by Antioch Strategios assigned for 11 May.[209]

All of it suggests that the *Diegesis* must have been meant for 11 May, which could be connected with nothing else but the famous commemoration day of the feast of the dedication of Constantinople. The subtle link of the dedication of the Great Church with the γενέθλια of Constantinople is not altogether foreign to the Byzantine liturgy either. For both offices of the *encaenia* as described by the *Typicon* of the Great Church share common themes and readings, which points to the fact that the feasts were tightly associated in their liturgical expression.[210]

There is some evidence confirming that the celebration of at least one of larger restorations of St Sophia was timed to coincide with the *encaenia* of Constantinople. An adscript at the end of the codex *Laur. S. Marci* 304 informs us that the copying of the manuscript was finished on Sunday 13 May when the ritual opening, that is the dedication, of the Great Church was celebrated.[211] According to Byzantine practice the *encaenia* was to be celebrated on Sunday — that is why the exact date of the church dedication could be slightly shifted as compared with the model celebration. Thus, the date of 13 May, mentioned in the

(209) Metreveli, *Description of Georgian Manuscripts...*, 245–246.

(210) The παραμονή of the office for the *dies natalis* of Constantinople is similar to the annual commemoration of the *encaenia* of St Sophia if fallen onto Saturday or Sunday. Moreover, the *troparia* for the liturgical dedications of St Sophia and the City display the same concern with the theme of the protection of the city by the Theotokos, sometimes fully overlapping in their hymnological expression. Namely, both *encaenia* offices contain the *troparion* "Τὴν πόλιν ἡμῶν, Κύριε, ὡς τῆς οἰκουμένης ὀφθαλμόν, ἐκ πάσης σου δικαίας ἀπειλῆς ἐλευθέρωσον, καὶ τοῖς σκήπτροις τῆς βασιλείας αὐτὴν διαπαντὸς κατακόσμησον, βαρβάρων ἀποστροφὴν καὶ τῶν κινδύνων ἀπαλλαγὴν διὰ τῆς Θεοτόκου δωρούμενος" (Mateos, *Typicon…*, I, 144–147, 286–289).

(211) "ἐτελειώθη σὺν Θεῷ μηνὶ μαΐῳ ιγ΄ Κυριακῇ ὥρα τῆς ἡμέρας ὅτε ἤνυξεν [ἤνοιξεν] ἡ Μεγάλη Ἐκκλησία." The reading of the manuscript with a suggested correction is given according to A. Παπαδοπуло-Керамевс, Из истории греческих этимологиков, *Журнал Министерства Народного Просвещения* 319 (1898) 115–119. There is also a relevant discussion of the question when the mentioned dedication must have occurred. The conclusion reached is that the dedication of St Sophia on 13 May must have been celebrated either in 994 or in 882, following the repairs after the damage caused by the earthquake of 989 or 869 respectively. Cf. also C. Mango, *Materials for the Study of the Mosaics of St. Sophia at Istanbul* (Washington, D.C.: Dumbarton Oaks Trustees for Harvard University, 1962) 76–78.

manuscript as the time of the *encaenia* of St Sophia, is apparently associated with the celebration of the dedication of Constantinople, placed on the nearest Sunday adjacent to 11 May.

Another proof that some of medieval *encaenia* of St Sophia might have been timed with 11 May is derived from the later Russian tradition. The Medieval Russian church preserved the custom to celebrate church dedications on 11 May, which must have been introduced in Kievan Rus in obedience to practice inherited from Byzantium.[212] Thus, as witnessed by Medieval Russian liturgical collections, dedications of the church of Tithe and the first church of St Sophia in Kiev were celebrated on 11 May or on a nearby Sunday.

Therefore, it is very likely that at some point the *Diegesis* was used, if not originally assigned, for such an occasion of the *encaenia* of St Sophia that was celebrated after one of the renovations took place. And, if the witness of the Georgian hagiographic collection is to be taken into serious consideration, this specific dedication fell on 11 May.

Further evidence of the *Diegesis* being employed in the liturgical office of the *encaenia* of the Great Church comes from within the Greek tradition itself. Thus, the sixteenth-century codex *Vaticanus gr*. 1701 containing just a fragment of the *Diegesis* has the following conclusion at the end of the legend: "ἕως ὧδε τὸ πέρας τοῦ λόγου τῶν κατὰ τὴν ἡμέραν τῆς οἰκοδομῆς τῆς μεγάλης καὶ περιωνύμου ἁγίας ἐκκλησίας, τῇ ἐπ᾽ ὠνόματι τῆς τοῦ θεοῦ σοφίας ὠκοδομηθήσης."[213] Although the manuscript is rather late, we can consider the closing statement as a straightforward indication that the narrative was meant for the commemoration day of the dedication of the church, which could hardly mean anything else but the official feast of the *encaenia* of St Sophia.

Another interesting observation can be made on the basis of divergent readings in the erratic manuscript tradition. Some of the main codices of the *Diegesis*, all of which belong to the β-version of the μ-redaction according to Vitti's classification,[214] give the version of the text ending with the following prayer:

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(212) О. В. Лосева, *Русские месяцесловы XI–XIV веков* (Москва, 2001) 88.

(213) I reproduce here the original spelling according to C. Giannelli, *Codices Vaticani Graeci Codices 1684–1744* (Vatican: Vatican Library, 1961) 44.

(214) These codices are the following: *Parisinus gr.* 1712, *Vaticanus gr.* 973, *Vaticanus gr.* 697 (cf. Vitti, *Die Erzählung...*, 90–91, 101, 102, 180–181).

> Let us give glory to our holy God who enables us to be worthy to enter this admirable church and to render the due praise to Christ the Lord. For to him be the glory and honour, power and worship now and always and for ever more, amen.[215]

The particular formulation of this prayer explicitly points to the fact that the *Diegesis* was read aloud in the church of St Sophia. It is specifically in this sacred building that the congregation of the faithful, upon listening to the account of the church foundation, was encouraged to render praise and thanksgiving to the Lord. It is very likely, therefore, that the text accompanied by this kind of prayer must have been destined to be read during some liturgical celebration in the church of St Sophia. Similarly, in the context of scholarly discussion of Constantinian hagiography, it has been remarked that the closing prayers of the oldest *Vitae* of Constantine the Great show that the accounts were meant for the liturgical use.[216] Hence, we can also assume that the prayer rendering glory to God attached to the *Diegesis* in several manuscripts is an indicator of the liturgical context of the account. Noteworthy, the doxology closing the text appears mainly in some of the manuscripts representing a variant of the earliest redaction,[217]

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(215) "Ἡμεῖς δὲ δῶμεν δόξαν τῷ ἁγίῳ θεῷ ἡμῶν τῷ ἱκανώσαντι ἡμᾶς αὐταρκέσαι ὁ τοιοῦτος ἀξιοθαύμαστος ναὸς, τοῦ εἰσιέναι ἐν αὐτῷ ·καὶ ἀναπέμπειν χριστῷ τῷ θεῷ πρέποντας αἴνους. Ὅτι αὐτῷ πρέπει δόξα τιμή · κράτος καὶ προσκύνησις, νῦν καὶ ἀεὶ καὶ εἰς τοὺς αἰῶνας τῶν αἰώνων, ἀμήν." The text of the prayer is given according to the codex *Vaticanus gr.* 973 (Vitti, *Die Erzählung...*, 102). Translation of the Greek passage is rather complicated. The phrase ὁ τοιοῦτος ἀξιοθαύμαστος ναὸς might have been originally a scholion, which was later introduced into the main text without a proper syntactical adaptation. I am grateful to Basil Markesinis for this clarifying suggestion.

(216) A. Luzzi, Il *Dies Festus* di Costantino il Grande e di sua madre Elena nei libri liturgici della Chiesa greca, in: G. Bonamente and F. Fusco (eds.), *Costantino il Grande dall'Antichità all'Umanesimo*, vol. 2 (Macerata: Università degli studi di Macerata, 1992) 588. An example of a hagiographic account with the closing prayer suggesting its liturgical use is a βίος ἐν συντόμῳ edited by F. Winkelmann, Die älteste erhaltene griechische hagiographische Vita Konstantins und Helenas, in: J. Dummer (hrsg.), *Texte und Textkritik: Eine Aufsatzsammlung* (Berlin: Akademie-Verlag, 1987) (TU, 133) 623–638.

(217) The manuscripts containing this closing prayer — the twelfth century *Parisinus gr.* 1712 and *Vaticanus gr.* 697, as well as the sixteenth-century *Vaticanus gr.* 973, which is a copy of *Parisinus gr.* 1712, — all represent one of the oldest independent versions of the *Diegesis.* These codices have been listed

which is suggestive of the fact that a liturgical usage was an original destination of the *Diegesis*. Indeed, it seems very appropriate that the *lectio hagiographica* for the *encaenia* of the Great Church would be finished with the doxological prayer, exactly as it features in an earliest variant of the textual tradition of the *Diegesis*.

All in all, the material discussed in this article strongly suggests that the *Diegesis* is a hagiographical story read during the feast of the *encaenia* of St Sophia. The time framework for such a liturgical function of the *Diegesis*, however, should be limited to the mid-Byzantine period. The conventional dating of the *Diegesis* to the ninth century marks the lower chronological limit for usage of the legendary account as a reading during liturgy at St Sophia. Such a function would be terminated with the sack of Constantinople by Latin troops in 1204, when the practice of celebrating the *encaenia* ceased in the capital and was never to be renewed in the former splendour — the fact made known to us by Symeon of Thessalonica.[218]

SUMMARY

This article aims to demonstrate that the famous *Diegesis* about building of St Sophia in Constantinople is a hagiographic legend composed for the feast of *encaenia*. In order to substantiate this hypothesis I first look at the history and then hagiography of the Encaenia of the Holy Sepulchre in Jerusalem. A comparative analysis of the *Diegesis* with Byzantine and Oriental legends of the Holy Sepulchre as well as with some other hagiographic narratives provided tangible proves of a shared stock of hagiographic motifs and conspicuous literary similarities. Along with additional data coming from the manuscript tradition of the *Diegesis*, close literary parallels and common hagiographic topoi pointed towards a conclusion that the story of the foundation and dedication of St Sophia belongs to the lore of hagiographic production that served the needs of liturgical celebrations, in this case the celebration of the church dedication feast.

among the most important witnesses of the original text (cf. Preger, *Scriptores…*, I, xi–xiii; Vitti, *Die Erzählung...*, 175–182).

(218) Symeon of Thessalonica, *Περὶ τοῦ ἁγίου ναοῦ*, *PG* 155: 325C11–D7.

We do not possess biographical information about Ioane, the bishop of Bolnisi. The only thing known about him is that he was a contemporary of King Bagrat III (980–1014). In different sources there is mention of one Ioane Khakhuleli, who flourished in the same era and who is known to be an eloquent preacher called even "Oqropiri", that is to say, the Golden Mouth. It is possible that he is identical with Ioane Bolneli, for the name of the latter was also renowned for eloquent homilies of its bearer. If this is true, then Ioane, after having held the Bolinisi see, was entrusted with the Khakhuli see, which he abandoned for Mt. Athos in 1019. Perhaps this explains the fact that some of Ioane Bolneli's sermons are preserved in an Athonite manuscript of the tenth–eleventh century. So far thirteen original sermons of Ioane Bolneli have been discovered in various manuscripts. (See above, p. 285, n. 73, for the reference to the Georgian edition.)

THE WORD SPOKEN BY JOHN THE BISHOP OF BOLNISI CONCERNING THE CONSECRATION OF THE HOLY CHURCHES WHICH WAS CONDUCTED IN JERUSALEM

Translated by Levan Gigineishvili (Tbilisi, Georgia)

Today the heavens rejoice and the earth is joyful, and [joyful are] the sea and all that is therein. Today rejoices the Holy Church, [the Church of] the resurrection of our Lord Jesus Christ and with it rejoice all the Holy Churches, for in this month, on September 13, is conducted the consecration of this Holy Church of the Resurrection, and on the fourteenth of the same month is conducted the consecration of the Holy Catholic Apostolic Church, which were built by the Emperor Constantine. And on the same day there was a vision and worship of the venerable Cross, on which our Lord Jesus Christ was hanged for our salvation.

And on the fifteenth of the same month is conducted the consecration of the Holy and Glorious Sion, which is the mother of all churches, which was established by the Holy Apostles, and Theodosius the Great built, magnified and glorified it, in which [church] the Holy Ghost descended (just like in the mystery of the tongues of flames of fire on the holy day of Pentecost in the same holy house, in which [fire] spread upon the holy Apostles, through which they were filled with

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the grace of the Holy Spirit) and joyfully cried and said: raise the voice of praise in Sion and give glory to God in it, for this is the mother of all churches, upon which the Holy Spirit descended and in which He (the Spirit) dwelled. And now all creation rejoices in the consecration of the Holy Churches.

Today are fulfilled the sayings of the prophets: "all the nations which Thou have created will come and worship Thee, o Lord, and will glorify Thy name, and no more [only] Israel will come to worship Thee, neither all the Jews, but all the nations, which Thou have created, will come and worship Thee o Lord, and glorify Thy name". And similar to those [words]: "There will ascend nations of the Lord, for bearing witness to Israel, and for proclaiming the name of the Lord."

And St. Apostle Paul attests to all those [prophetic sayings] and says that "to the name of Jesus Christ all knees will bend in heaven and on earth and in hell and all will witness that the Lord Jesus Christ is the one whom God the Father glorifies"[1] Amen.

And now you, the beloved, who are borne by this "barren one," the Holy Church, all you who are from other nations and of different languages, all the nations that are bought by our Lord Jesus Christ through His blood, now, let us come and ascend to the consecration of those Holy Churches. Let us enter its chambers and worship this place, where His feet stood, where there was the peace of the Cross and the building of those powerful fortresses — His Holy Churches.

And, we, with the superabundance of His mercy shall enter into His house and say together with His psalmist: "and worship Thy Holy Temple in Thy fear," yet, this is not the temple of the gathering of the Jews, for the place of the gathering of the Jews (i.e. the Temple), that had a multitude of children, weakened, it was ruined so that not a stone remained on stone, according to the words of the Lord, but we worship this present Temple, the Church of the gentiles (pagans), that first was barren, but now has begotten many children, which the Holy Scripture bears witness to: "Rejoice thou, o barren one, who could not beget, rise and cry aloud: for more are the children of the widow than of the one who had a husband." (cf. Is. 54:1).

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(1) Here is a modified interpretation of a Pauline text in Phil. 2:10–11. Actually, Paul says that "all will witness that Jesus Christ is Lord to the glory of God the Father" (i.e. unless one affirms the divinity of Christ, one cannot glorify the Father).

I speak about this temple, which the Holy Church has now built, and to which the Holy Gospel bears witness and says: "When our Lord came to the places of Caesarea of Philip, He summoned His disciples and asked them: 'Whom do the people think the Son of Man is?'" (cf. Matt. 16:13). Oh, mysterious and magnificent and inscrutable mystery of the Divinity! What, did not He know what the people spoke about Him, He who knows the hearts and kidneys of men and all their thoughts? So, why does He then ask the disciples and say: 'Whom do the people think the Son of Man is?' But, the question which He puts to the disciples, was the same question he put initially to Adam in Paradise: "Where art thou Adam?" Did He not know where he was? Yet, still He asks and says: "Where art thou, Adam?" and the latter answers and says: "I heard Thy voice, as Thou proceeded through paradise, and I was afraid, for I was naked, and I hid myself". And again, He asks Cain, "Where is Abel, thy brother?" And to Adam: "Who told thee that thou wast naked? Hast thou eaten of the tree, from which I have commanded thee not to eat?" And to Cain He says: "The voice of the blood of Abel, thy brother, crieth from the ground unto Me". If He knew that Adam had eaten from that tree and had hid himself, and that Cain had killed his brother and hid himself, then He knew all these things; and similarly He asks Abraham in the tent and says: "Where is Sarah, thy wife?", and also asks Elijah: "What doest thou here, Elijah?" Abraham answers Him concerning his wife: "Here she is, in the tent," and Elijah testifies about Israel and says: "O, Lord, Thy prophets have been slain, Thy altars have been thrown down, and only I am left and they seek my soul." And what response does the Lord give to him? "I have retained for myself seven thousand men, who did not bend their knees unto Baal." And the first saying is similar to the last: He asks Adam: "Adam, Adam where art thou?" and to Cain "Where is thy brother?" and to Abraham "Where is Sarah, thy wife?" and He tests Elijah and says "What doest thou here, Elijah?" And here, now, when He appeared on the earth and dwelled among men, He asks His disciples and says: 'Whom do the people think the Son of Man is?' and they answered: "[Some say that Thou art] John the Baptist, others say that Thou art Elias, still others say that Thou art Jeremias or one of the prophets". Whom did the disciples imply by saying 'or one of the prophets?' In fact, they (i.e. the people) thought Him to be Moses and said: "Could He be Moses, one of the prophets?" Then Jesus asked them: "And what say ye concerning Me, who am I? Ye, who see the raising of the dead, the cleansing of lepers, the

healing of the paralytic, what do ye say of Me, who am I?" And then the disciples turned sober and looked at each other marveling, and meditated in their hearts as to what answer they should give to Him. And then all of them, as if with a single face, looked at the Apostle Peter, as at their leader, and the head of the Apostles, as the elder and the wise, as the prophet and truly a prophet and even greater and more than a prophet, for the Apostles were greater than prophets, as also Paul says: first Apostles and then prophets. So, as they meditated, the Apostle Peter was filled with the Holy Spirit, with the Grace from Above, and said unto the Lord: "Thou art the Christ, the Son of the Living God," for which he attained blessedness. And then Jesus told him: "Blessed art thou, Simon, the son of Jonah, for not flesh and blood, but my Father which is in Heaven hast revealed this to you, and also I say to you: thou art a rock and upon this rock I will build my Church and the council of Hell shall not prevail against it. Because thou art an unshakeable measure and on this unshakeable measure I will build my Church and the council of hell shall not prevail against it. For thou art a pillar, built and erected, and on this pillar, I will build my Church and the council of hell shall not prevail against it; for thou art the unshakeable faith, and on this unshakeable faith I will build my Church and the council of hell shall not prevail against it. And not only this shall I do, but I will also give unto thee the keys of the Heavens, and whatsoever thou shalt bind on earth, shall be bound also in the Heavens, and whatsoever thou shalt loose on earth, shall be loosed also in the Heavens."

Do you see, the great and wonderful and ineffable philanthropy of the Son of God? For, He entrusts His Heavens to men? [Before] He entrusted the house of Israel to Moses, but now He hated this house and said: "I have hated this nation and said: they permanently err in their hearts and they could not understand my ways. As I have sworn, due to my rage, they will not enter into my repose." He entrusted the tent of the covenant and the ark of the Law to Aaron the Priest and all the Levites, which is abolished now; he entrusted the Temple of the Lord to Solomon, which later the Jews turned into a den of thieves, as the Lord himself says: "The house of My Father shall be called the 'House of Prayer' and ye have made it a den of thieves," which after Him was ruined so that not a stone remained on stone, according to the words of the Lord. But this [Church he entrusts to] the Holy Apostle Peter, the leader of Churches, the unshakeable rock, the fundament that does not quake, the pillar and fortification of the Churches, that is built not

for Jews, but for all the gentiles (pagans). This Church did the Lord entrust to His beloved disciple and gave to him also the keys of the Heavens, and gave to him and together with him to all the bishops and priests authority and told them: "Whatsoever thou shalt bind on earth, shall be bound also in the Heavens, and whatsoever thou shalt loose on earth, shall be loosed in the Heavens; and whose soever sins ye remit, they are remitted, and whose soever sins ye retain, they are retained."

Then Jesus asks his disciples not to tell anybody that he is the Christ.

Why does He command His disciples not to tell anybody that He is the Christ? Yet, here the same thing happens as happened when they were descending from Mount Tabor, when He commanded Peter, James and John: "Tell nobody what you have seen, until the Son of the Man be risen from the dead." And again, when He cleansed the leper, He told him: "Behold, let nobody know what the Lord hath done for thee and how He hath helped thee, but go and show thyself to the priest and offer that sacrifice for thy cleansing that Moses commanded, for a testimony unto them". And there are many other passages like this in the Holy Gospels. And let us hasten and come for that purpose, for which we have gathered here: the consecration of those Holy Churches. Before I have spoken about the new consecration, but from now on I shall speak about the [feast of consecration] of the old Temple, built by King Solomon, which John the Evangelist bears witness to and says: "There was [the feast] of the dedication in Jerusalem and it was winter and Jesus was coming and going from the Temple and the porch of Solomon".

Of which dedication [does John speak here]? This was the consecration of the Temple built by Solomon. And what about the winter? Actually, the winter here signifies the winter of great disbelief, and 'Jesus was coming and going from the Temple and the porch of Solomon,' and it was a great winter of the disbelief of the nation. The Jews surrounded our Lord Jesus and told Him: "How long dost thou exasperate us, if thou be the Christ, then tell us plainly," however in this present consecration of the Holy Churches all the gentiles (pagans) cry and say: "Thou art the Christ, the Son of the living God" and "Have mercy upon us." While there the Lord responds to the Jews and says: "I told you and you believed me not. The works that I do in the name of My Father, they bear witness of Me. It was meet for thee to hearken to My words, it was meet for thee to obey My teachings, it was meet

for thee to come closer to Me. I have come to thee and thou received Me not, and neither didst thou believe Me, because thou art not from My sheep, the pagans who knew me not, they believed and heard My voice, for they are from My sheep. My sheep will hear My voice and will follow Me; My sheep will hear My voice and worship Me and I shall give them eternal life and will not ever let them perish and nobody will take them from My hands! My Father, who gave them to Me, is greater than anybody and nobody will take them from the hands of My Father. I and My Father are one."

As the Jews heard of their ruin and the acceptance of the gentiles (pagans) they took up stones in order to stone him.

Now look, at the consecration of the old Temple they are ready to stone our Lord, but at the present new consecration of the Holy Church all the gentiles (pagans) cry out and say: "Shed Thy Holy Spirit upon this Temple, cleanse it with the Grace of Thy Holy Spirit, so that it may become the healer of our souls and bodies, to us who now hasten to, and glorify and supplicate and worship Thee and conduct this consecration and cry: 'save us, our God, for Thou only are the Holy, the Savior, and Purifier of us all.'

Our Lord answered the Jews: "I have shown you many good works from My Father; for which of them are ye going to stone Me? Haven't I raised the dead; haven't I made thy blind see; haven't I cleansed thy lepers, made the crippled walk and many other things have I done in front of you, for which of them do ye intend now to stone me?" And they responded: "We are not going to stone thee for good works, but for blasphemy: because thou art a man and makest thyself God."

Why are you going to stone Him for the reason that He said 'I am the Son of God,' O Jews? If you do not believe Him, then listen the voice from Above upon the Jordan river: "This is My beloved Son, in whom I am well pleased". And another voice on holy Tabor: "This is my beloved Son, in whom I am well pleased. Hear ye Him." Either listen to the words said by the Father from above upon the Jordan river, or the second witnessing upon holy Tabor, or listen to the third voice that came like thunder and said: "I have glorified Thee and will glorify Thee again." And if you do not believe those three witnesses of the divine voice that came from above, then listen to the witness of your father the devil, when He exorcized the Legion, and they were telling Him: "O, Jesus, the Son of God, why have Thou come before the time to destroy us? We know who Thou art, the Holy one of God."

If the devils believe [that He is the Son of God] and tremble before Him, then how do you have such blindness of heart? But, you have remained in your evil error; as for us, the new nation, marked with the new blood of the innocent sheep, renovated in the bath of the second birth, may we conduct the gathering of the consecration in the new Temple and cry: "Thou art the Christ, the Son of the Living God, and unto Thee is due glory together with the Father and the Holy Spirit, now and ever and unto ages and ages. Amen.

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GEORGE OF TREBIZOND'S VIEWS ON ISLAM AND THEIR ESCHATOLOGICAL BACKGROUNDS[1]

Introduction

During the period 1453–1467 the fifteenth-century Greek émigré and humanist George of Trebizond wrote to the Turkish sultan, Mehmed II the Conqueror, three treatises and three letters in which he tried not only to formulate methods and principles of peaceful dialogue between Muslims and Christians, but also to describe his eschatological views.[2] Modern scholars place great emphasis on the atypical concept of George of inter-confessional dialogue to such an extent that they fail to make any mention of close connection between the apocalyptic concept of George and his attitudes toward Islam.[3]

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(1) Some ideas of this paper were discussed at the International Congress of Byzantine Studies (London, 2006). I am grateful to Dr. John Monfasani, Dr. Basil Lourie, Dr. Antonio Rigo and Dr. Rustam Shukurov for their comments and suggestions.

(2) Γεωργίου Zορας, Γεργίου τοῦ Τραπεζουντίου, *Περὶ τῆς ἀληθείας τῆς τῶν χριστιανῶν πίστεως* (Αθῆναι, 1954) 93–165. Below — Γεώργιος ὁ Τραπεζούντιος 1954; J. Monfasani, *Collectanea Trapezuntiana. Texts, Documents and Bibliographies of George of Trebizond* (New York, 1984). Below — CTr; J. Monfasani, Γεργίου τοῦ Τραπεζουντίου, *Περὶ τῆς θειότητος Μανουὴλ* (New York, 1984) 564–574. Below — CTr *CXLV*; J. Monfasani, Γεργίου τοῦ Τραπεζουντίου, Περὶ τῆς ἀϊδίας τοῦ αὐτοκράτορος δόξης καί τῆς κοσμοκρατορίας αὐτοῦ (New York, 1984) 492–563. Below — *CTr. CXLIV*; J. Monfasani, Georgius Trapezuntius, *Epistola ad Mahomatem* (New York, 1984) 281–284. Below — *CTr. CXLIV*; Edition of two Latin letters of George: A. Mercati, Le due lettere di Giorgio da Trebisonda a Maometto II, *OCP* 9 (1943) 94–95; All quotations from Γεώργιος ὁ Τραπεζούντιος 1954 are given in my translation, all quotations from Collectanea Trapezuntiana — in J. Monfasani's translation.

(3) M. Balivet, Deux partisans de la fusion religieuse des chrétienne et de Musulmans au XV[e] siècle: le turc Bedreddin de Samavna et le Grec George de Trebizond, *Byzantina* 10 (1980) 363–396; M. Balivet, *Pour une concord islamo-chrétirnne. Démarches byzantines et latines à la fin du Moyen-Âge (de Nicolas de*

Besides, if the eschatological views of George's contemporary Gennadius Scholarius are well known to historians of Byzantine eschatology, there is no detailed information about the apocalyptic views of George of Trebizond.[4] Nevertheless they deserve to be discussed.

J. Monfasani has suggested that he felt himself to be prophet. In his book devoted to George he writes: "Was George of Trebizond, rhetorician, curial official, and translator, a prophet besides? The answer is that he was a prophet most of all. Unless we accept this judgment not only do the most of his non-technical works make no sense, but also his later life will appear as one fit of madness."[5] We need to remind ourselves that George predicted both the occurrences of the every-day world (using astrology[6]) and the future of mankind (using Holy Scripture, apocalyptic writings and his own prophetic insight).

Apparently George was sure of his ability to predict the future. In his letter of 1469 to cardinal Bessarion, George confessed that by the divine aid he had grasped the mystery of the Last Days.[7] He regarded himself as an outstanding interpreter of apocalyptic writings of the past. George wrote to Mehmed the Conqueror: "Observe therefore, most high and wise autocrat, if these things accord not only with what our prophets have foretold (as I myself well know, having studied them more than anyone else, I who take second place to no one in natural talent, in perfection of knowledge and devotion towards Your Greatness), but also with what has been written by many wise

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Cues à George de Trébizonde) (Roma, 1997). A. Th. Khoury, *George de Trébizonde et l'union islamo-chrétienne* (Louvain, 1971); P. Badénas. Corrientes conciliatoras de intelectuales griegos en la corte del Gran Turco, in: А. А. Чекалова (ред.), Мир Александра Каждана. К 80-летию со дня рождения (Санкт-Петербург, 2003) 273–280.

(4) C. J. Turner, Pages from Late Byzantine Philosophy of History, *BZ* 57 (1964) 346–373; C. J. Turner, An Oracular Interpretation Attributed to Gennadius Scholarius, *Ελληνικά* 21 (1968) 40–47; C. Mango, *The Empire of New Rome* (London, 1980) 213; P. Magdalino, The year 1000 in Byzantium, *The Medieval Mediterranean 45* (2003) 234–271.

(5) J. Monfasani, *George of Trebizond: A Biography and a Study of his Rhetoric and Logic* (Leiden, 1976) 86.

(6) George of Trebizond translated ps.-Ptolemy's Hundred Sayings in astrology (*Centiloquium*) and Ptolemy's *Almagest* and wrote commentaries on them. He was renowned as a mighty astrologer and mathematician. Monfasani, *George of Trebizond*…, 149.

(7) CTr. XXXVI. 179.

students of Mohammedanism."[8] This passage is remarkable for two reasons. First, George was sure that he had studied the old prophetic writings "more than anyone else", second, he studied both the Latin and Muslim prophecies.[9]

George of Trebizond believed in his prophetic talent to such an extent, that he wrote to the Pope Nicholas V: "There is no one, I believe, Most Blessed Father, who has studied the book and the prophecy of the Abbot Ioachim[10] more than I. I had it with me in Venice when I was living there and I worked hard to understand everything that happened to the popes of my times."[11]

In the sources which have been quoted we have seen that studying apocalyptic writings and creating eschatological predictions were George's labors of love. George felt himself to be prophet of doom and last events. In fact the treatises of the philosopher from Crete, which he wrote for Mehmed the Conqueror, confirmed this suggestion with good reason. The treatise *On the divinity of Manuel* as well as the treatise *On the eternal glory of autocrat and his world-dominion* demonstrate his original eschatological concept.

It's noteworthy to mention here that George also wrote in Latin a work *On awesome events.*[12] This work was lost but it must have been of considerable length since George quoted from the 51st chapter of Book II of this treatise.[13] It is a pity that this work has not survived because other works of George don't provide us with exhaustive information

(8) CTr. CXLIV. 12. 530–531.

(9) On the relationship between the Byzantine and Turkish prophesies of the end of the world, see: M. Balivet, *Byzantins et Ottomans: relations, interaction, succession* (Istanbul, 1999) 181–195.

(10) George means the *Papalista* or *Liber de pontificalibus*, which was attributed to Ioachim of Flora. This book was a conflation of two different fourteenth century forgeries. The Papalista was considered to be the holder of the secrets of the destiny of the Roman Pontiffs. M. Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy in the Middle Ages* (Oxford, 1969) 193–194, esp. 214; M. W. Bloomfield, Joachim of Flora: a Critical Survey of his Canon, Teachings, Sources, Biography and Influence, *Traditio* 13 (1957) 249–311; C. Mango, The Legend of Leo the Wise, *Зборник Радова Византинолошки Институт* 6 (1960) 59–93; Monfasani, *George of Trebizond*…, 86–87.

(11) CTr. LXXXVII. 288; Monfasani, *George of Trebizond*…, 85.

(12) CTr. CXLV. 4. 572.

(13) CTr. CXLV. 4. 572

of his apocalyptic vision. Thus his eschatological views are in need of reconstruction and interpretation.

In fact the predictions of George which are preserved are full of enigmas. Why did he think that Mehmed II would be the last Christian emperor? Why did George want to rename Mehmed II as Manuel? Did he identify the foul eschatological people Gog and Magog with the Turks? Did he identify the Turks with the Ismaelites of Pseudo-Methodius, that is with descendants of biblical Ishmael who were mentioned for the first time as eschatological people by archbishop of Patara? The answers to these questions give us an opportunity to understand the eschatological concept of George of Trebizond.

This paper interprets the treatises and letters of George of Trebizond which he addressed to Mehmed II the Conqueror. It analyses the traditional and new elements of his eschatological concept and some strange and even enigmatic passages of George's apocalyptic writings. The main aim of the paper is to demonstrate a close connection between the atypical views of George on Islam and his eschatological theory.

A Problem of Islam and Eshatology

It's impossible to understand what George thought about Islam without studying his eschatological ideas. R. Landes came to the conclusion that for all its ephemeral volatility, its protean qualities, its documentary disguises, the phenomenon of apocalyptic expectations and chiliastic enthusiasm belongs within the purview of the millennial generation. Otherwise we fail to appreciate the hearts and minds of people who lived, not in our Middle Ages, but in their Last Age.[14] Indeed, I would suggest that George of Trebizond belonged to the millennial generation and more than anyone else in his epoch lived not in the fifteenth century but in his Last Age. It is in this context that one should approach an analysis of the eschatological views of George of Trebizond and their connections with his views on Islam.

In the fifteenth century, contacts between West and East became wider. Christian philosophers were forced by Turkish expansion to see the problem of Islam in a different light. George of Trebizond in his works tried to rethink the problem of dialogue with Muslims anew. He tried to find new ways of communicating with Muslims.

(14) R. Landes, The Fear of an Apocalyptic Year 1000: Augustinian Historiography, Medieval and Modern, *Speculum* 75 (2000) 145; Magdalino, The Year 1000…, 235.

He came to the conclusion that it was impossible to resolve the problem of Turkish expansion by using violence. He condemned both Christians and Muslims for crusade and jihad.[15] George wrote that reason was more useful than a sword for the emperor who wanted to unite mankind in one faith.[16] He also condemned Christian and Muslim wise men for boasting and vanity.[17]

George of Trebizond was the first Byzantine and Italian writer who set out to understand why the dialogue between Christians and Muslims had not been effective. He thought that Christians must have known more about Islam and Muslims also must have tried to know more about Christian dogmas.[18] George came to the conclusion that it had been the mutual ignorance (and especially ignorance in the field of languages) and use of violence that prevented an effective dialogue between Christians and Muslims.[19]

The Byzantine emperor Manuel II Palaeologos in his *Dialogue with a Persian* also complained that Muslims were not good at Greek and didn't understand him properly (especially when he were talking about sublime theological things) so he had to tell them the same thing two or three times.[20] But he didn't care about the fact that Byzantine did not know Arabian and Turkish languages. More than that Manuel II Palaeologos wrote that the Turkish language was the language of barbarians.[21]

On the contrary George of Trebizond thought that Christians and Muslims were both in need of knowledge of languages of each other. He wrote: "Disagreement was increased by the ignorance. Christians and Muslims couldn't talk to each other on account of an ignorance of languages."[22] George even praised the Turkish language for its beauty.[23]

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(15) Γεώργιος ὁ Τραπεζούντιος 1954, 97.

(16) Ibid.

(17) Ibid.

(18) Ibid., 98–99.

(19) Ibid.

(20) K. Förstel, Manuel II Palaiologos, *Dialoge mit einem Muslim*, t. I (Altenberg: Oros Verlag, 1993) 10.

(21) Ibid.

(22) Γεώργιος ὁ Τραπεζούντιος 1954, 98–99.

(23) Ibid, 94.

It's hard to say if George knew the Arabian and Turkish languages or not. It is more important for us that he recognized the necessity of learning Arabian and Turkish languages for Christians. He also supposed that Christians and Muslims did not understand each other because of swear words. He wrote that swear words "kindled the fire of wrath, incited a great hatred and divided people."[24]

Did George of Trebizond think that these obstacles could be broken down? Without a doubt, he did. First of all he advised Mehmed II to talk about the Christian faith and to study Christian dogmas.[25] After that George wanted the Turkish sultan to order to arrange frequent meetings in which wise Christians and wise Muslims should talk and search for the truth.[26] George insisted that they were not to try to prove their own point of view but they were to "find the truth for the sake of love."[27] The same idea of peaceful conference ("contraferentia") between Christians and Muslims as a method for breaking down Islam-Christian antagonism was created by a George's contemporary Spain cardinal John of Segovia.[28]

The dialogue between Christians and Muslims has lasted since the seventh century.[29] But George of Trebizond was the first who tried to analyse the dialogue and to produce some exceptional reflections about it. In my opinion, his interpretation of Islam was quite atypical. George rejected almost all usual and widespread Christian's arguments against Islam. In his letters and treatises to Mehmed II he didn't criticise the prophet Muhammad, and the Koran as other Byzantine and Western writers did.

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(24) Γεώργιος ὁ Τραπεζούντιος 1954, 98.

(25) Ibid., 96.

(26) Ibid.,113.

(27) Ibid.

(28) D. Cabanelas, *Juan de Segovia y el problema islamico* (Madrid, 1952) 343–349; R. Schwoebel, *The Shadow of the Crescent: the Renaissance Image of the Turk (1453–1517)* (New York, 1967) 222–225; R. W. Southern, *Western Views of Islam in Middle Ages* (Cambridge, 1962) 86–92.

(29) On the history of Byzantine and Western polemic against Islam see: A. Th. Khoury, *Les théologiens byzantins et l'islam. I. Textes et auteures (VIII^e–XIII^e s.)* (Paris, 1969); A. Th. Khoury, *Apologétique byzantine contre l'Islam (VIII^e–XIII^e s.)* (Altenberg, 1982); A. Th. Khoury, *Polémique byzantine contre l'Islam* (Leiden, 1972); J. Meyendorff, Byzantine Views of Islam // *DOP* 18 (1964) 113–132; Southern, *Western Views of Islam*…; J. Tolan, *Saracens. Islam in the Medieval European Imagination* (New York, 2001).

George of Trebizond reduced all the differences between Islam and Christianity to the three points. He supposed that the other differences as customs and way of life were not extremely important in this context. The philosopher from Crete wrote: "So if one house which consists of a wife and a husband, and of many sons and daughters, and of many sons-in-law and daughters-in-law can not agree to have one way of life, it will be, as I think, full to consider that the whole world might follow the one rule of life."[30] It's noteworthy to mention here that this idea of George was a great novelty for the time, because for medieval polemists with Islam the criticism of the Muslim ethics and the customs and rituals of Muslims were as important as the criticism of Muslim dogmas.

As for the more important differences between Christians and Muslims from the viewpoint of George of Trebizond — the first was that Muslims had thought that Christians believed in three gods.[31] The second was that Christians believed that Jesus Christ is the son of God and is God Himself.[32] The third was that Jesus Christ died and rose from the dead and lives forever as the true God.[33]

Then George demonstrated that these differences were just imaginary.[34] He wrote: "So, is there any difference between us, Christians, and you, Muslims? It seems to me, there is not. If there is the difference, it is only the difference in words. But wise men do not regard this as the difference. Because there are a lot of languages, a lot of peculiarities and methods of a speech. And each nation speaks according to the customs of his own dialect."[35] He supposed that the dogmas of Islam and the Koran itself proved the truth of the Christian faith.[36]

In fact George of Trebizond declared an internal unity of Islam and Christianity. German cardinal Nicolas of Cusa went even further and declared a unity of all religions.[37] In his treatise the *On the peace of faith* he tried to prove the principle "una religio in rituum varietate" (the one

(30) Γεώργιος ὁ Τραπεζούντιος 1954, 99.

(31) Ibid.

(32) Ibid.

(33) Ibid.

(34) Ibid.

(35) Ibid., 112. 524–529.

(36) Ibid., 98–99.

(37) R. Klibansky, H. Bascour, Nicolai de Cusa, *De pace fidei*, *Opera Omnia*, t. LVIII (Hamburgi: Meiner, 1970).

religion in the different rituals). This idea seems to be very close to the reflections of George of Trebizond, who maintains that if the one God exists then on the earth "the one faith, the one church, the one kingdom" (μία πίστις, μία ἐκκλησία καί βασιλεία μία) have to exist.[38]

But does it mean that George of Trebizond regarded Islam as being identical to Christianity? The only scholar who tried to research this problem has been the remarkable specialist in Byzantine and Turkish Studies Michel Balivet.[39] However, it is necessary to revise some of the results of his research.

M. Balivet regards the treatise *On the truth of the Christian faith* as the work about dogmatic unity of Christianity and Islam which outstripped for its audacity all the same attempts of the time.[40] He has also supposed that for George of Trebizond Islam was identical to Christianity.[41] On the contrary, J. Monfasani maintains that George of Trebizond had hated Islam even more than he had admired Mehmed II the Conqueror.[42] But let us turn back to the treatises of George themselves.

M. Balivet has based his research only on the treatise *On the truth of the Christian Faith*. But the other treatises of George as *On the Divinity of Manuel* and *On the eternal glory of autocrat and his world-dominion* merit detailed analysis as documents which clearly reveal the close relationship between the eschatological views of George and his attitudes toward Islam. These treatises also make clear some nebulous passages in *On the truth of the Christian Faith*.

In the treatise *On the Divinity of Manuel* George wrote that Antichrist was at the door and before the coming of Antichrist all the race would be converted to Christianity.[43] He added that "this divine and marvelous change" would take place through the agency of Mehmed II.[44]

Many Byzantine polemists with Islam were forced to recognize that the attempts to convert Muslims were condemned to fall through. Emperor Manuel Paleologos, one of the most brilliant polemists with Muslims in the fifteenth century, wrote with sorrow that Muslims did

(38) CTr. CXLIV / I. 5, 9.

(39) Balivet, *Pour une concord islamo-chrétirnne…*

(40) Ibid., 37.

(41) Balivet, Deux partisans de la fusion religieuse…, 383–385.

(42) Monfasani, *George of Trebizond…*, 199.

(43) CTr. CXLV. 570.

(44) CTr. CXLV. 570.

not abandon their faith even though their arguments were broken down as false ones. He was convinced of the senselessness of the attempts to convert Muslims to Christianity.[45]

As for George of Trebizond he didn't stop thinking about the possibility of conversion of Muslims to Christianity. He did not regard the idea of converting Muslims as impossible because of his apocalyptic expectations. We need to remind ourselves that George of Trebizond had been living not in our Middle Ages but in his Last Age.

I would suggest that George's striving for a demonstration of the eternal unity of Islam and Christianity was a diplomatic tactic of George who had wanted to convert Mehmed II. The philosopher from Crete did not criticize the prophet Muhammad, the Koran and dogmas of Muslims because he had not wanted Mehmed II to get angry. George had wanted him to agree with his point of view. It was not a coincidence that in his letter to Pope Paul II, George explained that his excessive praise of Mehmed II had only been a technique for converting the Sultan to Christianity.[46]

As we have seen, George supposed that in letters and treatises to Muslims it had been unreasonable to criticize their faith. That is why it is not easy for scholars to understand what George thought about Islam.

Nevertheless in the treatise *Comporationes philosophorum Aristotelis et Platonis*[47] George openly and severely criticized Islam and in the *Oration on the death of martyr Andreas of Hios*[48] he condemned Christians who had been converted to Islam. It is important to note that these works were not intended for Muslims.

Even in one of the most peaceful of his writings *On the truth of the Christian Faith* we can find a hidden criticism of Islam.[49] The treatise *On the eternal glory* contains deliberate and open criticism of Islam.

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(45) Förstel, Manuel II Palaiologos, *Dialoge mit einem Muslim*…, 4.

(46) CTr. CII. 309; Monfasani, *George of Trebizond*…, 355–359, Appendix Nine.

(47) Georgius Trapezuntius, *Comporationes philosophorum Aristotelis et Platonis a Georgio Trapezuntio viro clarissimo editae* (Venetiis, 1523) (Repr. Frankfurt, 1965).

(48) Georgius Trapezuntius, *Martyrologium Beati Andree de Chio*, *PG* CLXI, 883B, 886D, 888D.

(49) On hidden critic of Islam in George's treatises see: Γεώργιος ὁ Τραπεζούντιος 1954, 117/700–710, esp. 109/432–443, 164/2061–2072; CTr. CXLIV/I.13.

George wrote that according to Latin and Muslim prophecies after the capture of Constantinople the preaching of Islam would be collapsed.[50]

George predicted: "If the conqueror (that is Mehmed II) strives for the unity of the faith and of the Church, and if he demonstrates his zeal by deeds and not merely by words, than through him God will destroy Mohameth's creed and make the conqueror and his descendants lords of the whole world."[51]

In this passage we may see that the problem of Islam that George connected with the problem of universal last kingdom and the starting of the Last Days.

So, in the treatise George spoke about Islam with animosity. In my opinion, in the above mentioned passage, George had demonstrated his true attitude towards Islam. That is why it is impossible to agree with M. Balivet who has supposed that George demonstrated extremely tolerant attitude towards Islam. But George had broken his own principle about denunciation of the critic of Muslim dogmas. How can we interpret this fact?

To my mind the only surviving version of this treatise is a copy which has been made especially not for Mehmed II, but for the patron of George, cardinal Bessarion. It can explain why against of his principles concerning inter-confessional dialogue George openly criticized Islam. In the version for Christian reader George could more frankly talk about his attitudes towards Islam. That is why the treatise *On the eternal glory* is so different from the treatise *On the truth of the Christian Faith.*

Thus it can be concluded that George of Trebizond did not regarded Islam as being identical as Christianity. More than that it is impossible to say that he was extremely tolerant towards Islam. He regarded Islam as an important, but temporary stage in the apocalyptic drama. His main goal in the writings to Mehmed II was the conversion of the Turkish sultan to Christianity.

George of Trebizond was not the only man who had wanted to explain to Mehmed II the Conqueror the dogmas of Christian faith. The famous letter of Pope Pius II to the Turkish Sultan[52] and the treatises

(50) CTr. CXLIV/I.12.

(51) Ibid.

(52) G. Toffanini (ed.), Pius II. *Lettera a Maometto* (Naples, 1953). English translation of the letter in another edition: A. R. Baca (ed.), Pius II. *Epis-*

of the Greek Patriarch Gennade Scholarius[53] were also the confessions of faith which had been written for Mehmed II. George Amiroutzes in his treatise *The dialogue about the faith in Christ* described his dialogues with Mehmed II about the religion of Christians.[54] But George of Trebi-

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tola ad Mahomatem (New York: Peter Lang, 1990); On the person of Pius see: C. M. Ady, *Pius II, Eneas Silvius Piccolomini. The Humanist Pope* (London, 1913); Ph. Levillain, *Dictionnaire historique de la Papauté* (Paris, 1994) 1323–1325; On Pius's letter to Mehmed II see: V. Poggi, Lettera non spedita di Pio II a Maometto II, *Studi sull'Oriente Cristiano* 7/2 (2003) 113–133; E. Garin, *Ritratti di umanisti* (Firenze, 1967) 34; F. Gaeta, Sulla lettera a Maometto II di Pio II, *Bullettino dell'Istituto Storico Italiano per il medioevo e l'archivio muratoriano* 77 (1965) 127–227; Southern, *Western Views*…, 99; Balivet, *Pour une concorde islamo-chrétienne*..., 3.

(53) L. Petit, X. A. Sidéridès, M. Jugie (eds.), Gennade Scholarius, *Œuvres complètes de Gennade Sholarius*, vol. IV (Paris, 1930) 434–475; On Gennadius Sholarius see: P. Konortas, *Les rapports juridiques et politiques entre le patriarcat orthodoxe de Constantinople et l'administration ottomane de 1453 à 1600 (d'après les documents grecs et ottomans), thèse dactylographiée, sous la direction de H. Ahrweiler* (Paris: Paris I, 1985); M.-H. Blanchet, *Georges Gennadios Scholarios (vers 1400 – vers 1472), premier patriarche de Constantinople sous la domination ottomane: personnage mythique, personnage réel, thèse dactylographiée*, sous la dir. d'A. Ducellier (Université Toulouse II Le Mirail, 2005); Τ. Ζηση, *Γεννάδιος Σχολάριος. Βίος, συγγράματα, διδασκαλία* (Θησσαλονίκη, 1988); C. J. Turner, The Career of George-Gennadius Scholarius, *Byz* 39, (1970) 420–455; Idem, Pages from Late Byzantine Philosophy of History, *BZ* 57 (1964) 346–373; Idem, Another Anti-latin Work Attributed to Gennadius Scholarius, *BZ* 58 (1965) 337–347; Idem, George-Gennadius Scholarius and the Union of Florence, *JTS* 18 (1967) 83–103; Idem, An Oracular Interpretation Attributed to Gennadius Scholarius, *Ἑλληνικά* 21, 40–47; M. Jugie, Les écrits apologétiques de Gennadios Scholarios à musulmans, *Byz* 5 (1929) 295–314; A. Papadakis, Gennadius II and Mehmet the Conqueror, *Byz* 42 (1972) 88–106.

(54) A. Argyriou, G. Lagarrigue, Georges Amiroutzès, *Dialogue sur la foi au Christ tenu avec le sultan des Turcs*, *Byzantinische Forschungen* 9 (1987) 29–221; J. Monfasani, "Lost" Final Part of Georges Amiroutzes' Dialogus de Fide in Christum and Zanobi Acciaiuoli Humanism and Creativity in the Renaissance, in: C. S. Ceienza, K. Couwens (eds.), *Essays in Honor of Ronald G. Witt* (Leiden—Boston, 2006); On George Amiroutzes see: С. Карпов, Культура Трапезундской империи, в: Г. *Литаврин* (ред.), *Культура Византии XIII – первая половина XV в.* (Москва, 1991) 86–119; Balivet, *Pour une concorde islamo-chrétienne*…, 26–27; M. Balivet, Aristote au service du sultan! Ouverture aux turcs et aristotélisme chez quelques penseurs byzantins du quinzième siècle, dans: Balivet, *Byzantins et Ottomans*…, 139–150; M. Jugie, La profession de foi de Georges Amiroutzès au concile de Florence, *Échos d'Orient* 36 (1937)

zond was the only writer who had really believed in the possibility of the conversion of Mehmed to Christianity. The confidence of George had been based on his apocalyptic expectations.

Apocalyptic Predictions of George of Trebizond and the Apocalypse of Pseudo-Methodius

I would like now to consider in greater detail eschatological views of George of Trebizond. At the beginning of the treatise *On the Divinity of Manuel* George briefly declared his apocalyptic vision. His eschatological expectations are as follows:

1. First, that before the coming of Antichrist all races will of necessity be converted to God's truth, not by being pushed by us [Christians], but on their own initiative.[55]

2. Second, that this divine and marvelous change will take place through the agency of some descendant of Ishmael.

3. Third, that now is the time.[56]

4. Fourth, that the present king of the Turks is the descendant of Ismael who will do these things.[57]

5. Fifth, that he will rule absolutely the whole world.[58]

Thus George supposed that Mehmed II would be the last universal Christian Emperor who would establish the final universal Pax Christiana. He wrote: "From all the preceding, we must conclude that the king who descended from Ishmael has been divinely preordained to be the governor, minister and guardian of the final and true conversion of all the people to Christ and the reformation of Christians."[59]

Why did he think that Mehmed II should be the last Christian emperor? First of all because Mehmed had captured Constantinople. George noted: "I say, therefore, that in my opinion there has never been a man nor will there ever be one to whom God has granted a greater opportunity for sole dominion of the world than He has granted to Your Mightiness. Neither Cyrus nor Alexander nor Caesar nor

176–180; D. R. Reinsch, Byzantinisches Herrscherlob für den türkischen Sultan. Ein bisher unbekanntes Gedicht des Georgios Amirutzes auf Mehmed den Eroberer, *Cupido Legum* (Frankfurt a. M, 1985) 195–210.

(55) CTr. CXLV. 570.

(56) Ibid.

(57) Ibid.

(58) Ibid.

(59) CTr. CXLV. 572.

Constantine were given as much. I arrived at this opinion immediately after I heard how God bestowed Constantinople on you."[60]

It was very important for George that, as he thought, Mehmed was the descendant of Ishmael and Abraham. George wrote: "It's obvious from his (Mehmed's) name that he is descended from Abraham through Ishmael."[61] Therefore Mehmed should lead all the people to the Christian faith and through this he should fulfill God's obey to Abraham: "In Isaac you will have your seed called, but I will also make the son of your slave girl into a great people because he is your seed."[62] George was sure that "those who interpret Scripture accurately will not be able to doubt that now, at this moment, all the races of men will approach the cross of Christ through the agency of the descendant of Abraham who presently is king of both the Turks and the greatest part of the Christians."[63]

Did George realize that Mehmed II was not Arabian and therefore was not the descendant of Ishmael? Apparently he did not. George supposed that Turks, Muslims, Ishmaelites were synonymous: "For the Turks are called Ishmaelites from their king having taken this name. The race of Mohammedans is not one. Rather it is no race at all."[64] I think that George means rather the spiritual affinity of all Muslims than ethnic relationship. The philosopher from Crete also emphasizes spiritual affinity of Christians and Muslims because of their memberships in the house of Abraham.

The idea that some descendant of Ishmael would become the last Christian Emperor was borrowed by George from the Apocalypse of Pseudo-Methodius. It's obvious that the Apocalypse of Pseudo-Methodius[65] (one of the most popular writings in Byzantium and in the West)

(60) CTr. CXLIV. I.2.

(61) CTr. CXLV. 571.

(62) Gen. 21: 12–13; CTr. CXLV. 571.

(63) CTr. CXLV. 572.

(64) CTr. CXLV. 571–572.

(65) Pseudo-Methodius was the third-century theologian and martyr, bishop of Olympus in Asia Minor, under whose name circulated the Apocalypse. E. Sackur, *Sibyllinische Texte und Forshungen. Pseudo-Methodius. Adso und die Tiburtinische Sibylle* (Halle, 1898; repr. Turin, 1963). Edition of Greek and Slavic versions of Apocalypsis: В. Истрин, *Откровения Мефодия Патарского и апокрифические видения Даниила* (Москва, 1987); New critic edition of the text (Greek and Latin versions): W. J. Aerts, G. A. Kortekaas, Pseudo-Methodius. *Die Apokalypse* (Lovanii, 1998). Syriac version of Apocalypse with

had a great influence on the eschatological theory of George.[66] George highly esteemed and cited Pseudo-Methodius.[67] The Apocalypse of Pseudo-Methodius was written in the seventh century as a response to the Arab conquest of Byzantium. The treatises of George of Trebizond were a response on the fall to Constantinople and the Turkish conquest of Byzantium.

Even before the fall of Constantinople George was concerned about the appearance of people from Ethiopia, Ismaelites, which, according to Pseudo-Methodius, should start the apocalyptic cataclysm. In his letter of 1441 to the papal diplomat Ioannes de Dominicis he wrote that the appearance on 2 September 1441 at the Council of Florence of the monk Peter representing the Copts of Abyssinia is clear evidence that Antichrist is at the door.[68]

From his letters to Alfonso of Aragon (1442) and to the Holy Roman Emperor Frederick III (1452) we knew that George had considered the Turks to be the descendants of the "Ethiopians" (that is Ismaelities) who started the eschatological drama.[69]

Pseudo-Methodius supposed that the last emperor was the descendant of an Ethiopian princess. According to Pseudo-Methodius, the last Christian emperor will defeat Ismaelites and establish the last Christian kingdom, which will last until the incursions of the Gog and Magog and the revelation of Antichrist. Then the last Christian emperor, helpless against the Gog, Magog and Antichrist, will place his crown on the cross erected on the Golgotha. Raising his hands towards heaven he will see the cross ascend with the crown to the God.[70] That is why in offering his crown to God he will fulfill the prophecy of the king David: "Ethiopia will stretch her hand out to God" (Ps. 67:32). From Genesis Pseudo-Methodius knew that Ishmael was born to Abraham of an Egyptian wife. According to the archbishop from Patara Ishmael was among descendant of the Ethiopian princess.

German translation: G. J. Reinink, Pseudo-Methodius, *Die Apokalypse* (Louvain, 1993).

(66) The question of the influence of Pseudo-Methodius on the writings of George was for the first time discussed by J. Monfasani: Monfasani, *George of Trebizond*…, 132–136.

(67) Monfasani, *George of Trebizond*…, 93.

(68) CTr. LXXIV. 262–263.

(69) CTr. CXXIX, CXXX. 422–431.

(70) Sackur, *Sibyllinische Texte*…, 41.

Mehmed II the Conqueror was identified by George of Trebizond with the descendant of Ishmael who must become the last Christian Emperor. In the treatise *On the Divinity of Manuel* George wrote: "That clearly, from many indications, the descendant of Ishmael who will do these things is the king of the Turks who became such just recently and is such now in the year from the incarnation 1467. For it is obvious from his name that he descended from Abraham through Ishmael. For the Turks are called Ishmaelites from their king having taken this name."[71] From this passage we can see that George also identified Turks with Ishmaelites.

George was sure that Mehmed II's converting to Christianity would convert all the peoples and become the universal emperor: "Clearly then, Scripture predicted that the present descendant of Ishmael would be king over the whole world so that through him there would be converted to the Lord both the ends of the earth."[72]

The eschatological scheme of George was not quite different from the predictions of the archbishop of Patara. To my mind George did not want to change radically the predictions of Pseudo-Mephodius. Of course George of Trebizond produced his own interpretations of Holy Scriptures and contemporary events, but he did it on the platform of Pseudo-Mephodius.

Reformation of Christians, from George's point of view, means punishment of Christians for their sins by Ishmaelites. George listed these sins: the schism of the Church,[73] the win of the "Palamite heretics"[74] and passion of the Roman Catholic priests for the philosophy of Plato.[75]

George supposed that the philosophy of Plato was extremely dangerous for the Christian Church. He wrote to Mehmed: "Then also occurred in Rome the apostasy from Christ to Plato at the instigation of Cardinal Bessarion, who is honored as pious by Pope Paul and by his own people because he lives his life according to Plato..."[76] All of these sins according to George caused the capture of Constantinople. They also indicated that the end of the world was coming.

(71) CTr. CXLV. 4. 571.
(72) CTr. CXLV. 5. 573.
(73) Mercati, Le due lettere…, 94–95.
(74) Ibid.
(75) CTr. CXLV. 571.
(76) CTr. CXLV. 571.

Why was George of Trebizond sure that the end of the world was at the door? He had confirmed his predictions by his own interpretations of Holy Scripture: the psalms of David, the Epistles of Apostle Paul, the Book of Genesis.

George expected the world to end in 1667 corresponding to the year 7170 of anno mundi chronology.[77] It is not hard to see that this dating was the reflex to the symbol of the eight day (that is the eight millenium) when the cosmic week would come full circle.[78]

But George wrote that "now is the time" for last events. That is he thought he lived in the epoch when the last time began. He wrote: "The present moment is about two hundred years away from the end of Antichrist, as we showed in chapter 51 of Book 2 of the work written in Latin on awesome events."[79]

According to P. Magdalino, in Byzantium dating the end took three main forms: 'blind dating', 'computus dating, and 'dating on the side.'[80] George of Trebizond used all of these forms of dating. 'Blind dating' was the reflex to natural phenomena or human events which were believed to herald the end of the world. For George such events, as we have already seen, were the capture of Constantinople and passion of the Roman Catholic priests for the philosophy of Plato. 'Computus dating' was the projection of numerically significant dates. In the case of George it was the symbol of the eight day (the eight millenium). 'Dating on the side' was the chronology projected by apocalyptic texts. In his predictions George used most of all apocalyptic text the Apocalypse of Pseudo-Methodius from Patara.

(77) CTr. CXLV.572.

(78) A. Sharf, The Eight Day of the Week, in: J. Chrysostomides (ed.), *Καθηγήτρια. Essays presented to Joan Hussey for her 80th Birthday* (London, 1988) 27–50; G. Podskalsky, Ruhestand oder Vollendung? Zur Symbolik des achten Tages in der griechisch-byzantinischen Theologie, in: G. Prinzing, D. Simon (hrsg.), *Fest und Alltag in Byzanz* (Munich, 1990) 157–66, 216–219; Magdalino, The Year 1000…, 236–238.

(79) CTr. CXLV. 4. P.572.

(80) Magdalino, The Year 1000…, 239.

George of Trebizond and Mehmed II the Conqueror: the Imagery of the Turkish Sultan as a Prototype of the Messiah

In the treatise *On the Divinity of Manuel* George had strongly recommended Mehmed II to change name and to take a new name — Manuel.[81] As we have already said the predictions of George are full of enigmas. One of the most difficult of them is why George wanted to rename Mehmed II Manuel?

George of Trebizond believed that Mehmed II would be the Last Emperor. But the Last Emperor should be the Christian emperor of the Christian universal kingdom. The Turkish sultan was the Muslim. Thus George wanted Mehmed to convert to Christianity. But he did not suggest this openly. George veiled his suggestion: he wanted Mehmed to rename.[82] He even chose the new name for the sultan: Manuel.

How did the philosopher from Crete argue the suggestion? His explanation was as follows: «For God altered the names of those whom he had chosen for the inauguration of great and wondrous deeds and for establishment and reformation either in some part as Abraham from Abram (Gen. 17:2), or while keeping only the first letter or syllable as Israel from Iacob (Gen. 35:9–10).[83] Thus George is suggesting to Mehmed the new name (Μανουὴλ) has preserved the first syllable of the old (Μαχούμετ).

Obviously George regarded Turkish sultan as the Christian successor of Byzantine Empire. It's important to note that the name Manuel was the name of two Byzantine emperors: Manuel I Komninos (1143–1180) and Manuel Palaiologos (1391–1425).

Why did George of Trebizond choose the name Manuel? To my mind eschatological expectations of George were factors in the choice. The name Manuel is the Byzantine version of the Jewish Immanuel. In the New Testament the famous passage from the book of the prophet Isaia is quoted: "Behold, a virgin shall conceive, and bear a son, and shall call his name Immanuel."[84] Then Evangelic explanation is followed: "Behold, a virgin shall be with child, and shall bring forth a son, and they shall call his name Emmanuel, which being interpreted

(81) CTr. CXLV. 570.
(82) CTr. CXLV. 570
(83) CTr. CXLV. 570
(84) Math. 1:23. Is. 7:14.

is, God with us."[85] I suppose that suggesting this name to Mehmed, George regarded the Turkish Sultan as the imagery and the symbol of the Messiah. As George expected the beginning of the Last Days he thought that the appearance of the last Emperor Manuel should be the prelude of the Epiphany. He promised Mehmed II that he would become an emperor of the whole world and heavens.[86]

George supposed that he had managed to understand God's idea about the Turkish sultan. According to the philosopher from Crete, not he wanted to change the name of Mehmed, but God Himself wanted to do so: "We should say why we name Manuel one who is not so named. We therefore declared that, in accordance with Holy Writ, we think it necessary that the future king of the world should not be called by his presently used name, but by the name with which he is about to be divinely graced."[87] Apparently he hinted at the passage from the New Testament which explained the meaning of the name "Emmanuel" (Math. 1:23).

My interpretation of the new name which George had offered to Mehmed II was also confirmed by the expression "king of kings and lord of lords" which George of Trebizond used very often when he addressed to the sultan.[88] The expression "king of kings and lord of lords" is taken from St. Paul Epistle (1 Tim. 6:15) and from The Book of Revelation (17:14, 19:6). In both cases the expression refers to the future Epiphany of Christ.[89] This traditional Byzantine formula was often used in the imperial coinage as an official statement of the doctrine of symbasileia (that is the faith over which Christ co-reigns with a Byzantine emperor).

(85) Math. 1:23.

(86) Ὁ τοῦ σοῦ ὕψους ἐλάχιστος δοῦλος τῇ θαθμαστῇ σου θαρρήσας ἀγατότητι ἔγραψα, Γεώργιος ὁ Τραπεζούντιος εὐχομενός σε ἰδεῖν **πάσης τῆς οἰκουμένος καὶ τῶν οὐρανῶν βασιλέα** in Γεώργιος ὁ Τραπεζούντιος 1954. 165/2073–2076.

(87) CTr. CXLV. 570.

(88) CTr. CXLIV. I.1; CTr. CXLV. 570; LXXXII. 283; Γεώργιος ὁ Τραπεζούντιος 1954, 93.

(89) P. Magdalino fairly supposes that the apocalyptic connotations of the biblical quotation have been ignored by modern scholars, but they would not have been lost of Byzantine authors, for example, of the author of the Apocalypse of Pseudo-Methodius: Magdalino, The Year 1000…, 253. To my mind George of Trebizond used this expression in its apocalyptic meaning.

Besides this, when George promised to Mehmed the world dominion he mentioned the wild ox: "It is clear that he who will set these things aright by the power of Christ, "the wild ox", will rule absolutely the whole world."[90] This expression is taken from David's Psalm (Ps. 21:21, 28:6, 21:28) also referring to the Epiphany of Christ.

Messianic character of the figure of the Last Roman Emperor was not an unusual thing for Byzantine apocalyptic literature because of influence of Jewish eschatology. It becomes especially clear from a small eschatological treatise *The true emperor* (Ὁ ἀληθινὸς βασιλεύς).[91] I think that this treatise had an influence on George of Trebizond. The manuscript of the treatise is dated of the sixteenth century, but according to a scribal note it was copied of the twelfth century at the latest. The treatise is a compilation of different Jewish and early Christian apocalyptic texts on the messianic ruler. It discussed the time when the true emperor will be revealed[92] and physical characteristic as well as moral and mental qualities of the messianic ruler.[93] An anonymous author called the Last Emperor the Anointed (ὁ ἠλειμμένος),[94] the Expected (τὸν ἐλπιζόμενον)[95] and The chosen emperor (ἐκλεκτοῦ βασιλεύς).[96] Nevertheless the author of the treatise didn't mention a name of the Last Emperor. Thus George of Trebizond developing an idea of the last Christian emperor followed Byzantine apocalyptic tradition.[97] It must be noted that nobody among George's contemporaries regarded the Turkish Sultan as the prototype of the Messiah.

* * *

(90) CTr. CXLV. 573. D. Nicol stated that according to the legend of immortal emperor the awaking of the sleeping emperor would be heralded by the bellowing of an ox. D. M. Nicol, *The Immortal Emperor. The Life and Legend of Constantine Palaiologos, Last Emperor of the Romans* (Cambridge, 1994) 104.

(91) This treatise is also known as *Cento on the true emperor*. See *Ὁ ἀληθινὸς βασιλεύς*, *PG* 107, 1141–1150. On the treatise see: P. J. Alexander, *The Byzantine Apocalyptical Tradition* (Berkeley, 1985) 130–136.

(92) *PG* 107, 1141.

(93) Ibid, 1141, l. 36 – 1145B, l. 3.

(94) Ibid, 1141, l. 19; 1144B, l. 5, 15; 1148A, l. 2.

(95) Ibid, 1148A, l. 12.

(96) Ibid, 1141, l. 4.

(97) On the expectation of a Last Roman (Byzantine) Emperor as one of the main themes in Byzantine apocalyptic tradition see: Alexander, *The Byzantine Apocalyptical Tradition…*, 152–184.

George believed in his prophetic talent to such an extent that he was ready to risk his life telling Mehmed II that he would be the emperor of the whole world. George wrote his treatise *On the Divinity of Manuel* in 1467 when he was an old and ill man. A man who had been imprisoned because of his letters to the Turkish sultan. But even suffering in prison could not shake his conviction in his ability to predict the future.

George of Trebizond was not well informed in the field of Islam and of the Koran. His knowledge in this field was fragmentary and chaotic. He was also not a remarkable polemist with Islam. However he produced some atypical ideas about religious dialogue between Christians and Muslims. In this sense George of Trebizond was a remarkable person because he was able to get over the narrowness of medieval picture of the universe. He didn't regard Muslims as barbarians and enemies of Christ. He had declared a necessity of studying Islam in order to make inter-confessional dialogue more effective. But I think that it would be a mistake to mix George's principles of the dialogue with Muslims and his real attitudes toward Islam.

Thus George suggested a new method of converting Muslims to Christianity. As we have already said the main aim of his letters and treatises to Mehmed was to convert the Turkish sultan. His enthusiasm about the possibility of converting Muslims was apocalyptic enthusiasm of the man who thought that he could predict the future of mankind. The man who was very much impressed by the Apocalypse of the archbishop of Patara and who creatively developed the ideas of Pseudo-Methodious.

SUMMARY

This paper deals with the treatises and letters of George of Trebizond addressed to Mehmed II the Conqueror. The author analyses the traditional and new elements of George's eschatological concept and some strange and even enigmatic passages of George's apocalyptic writings. The main aim of the paper is to demonstrate a close connexion between George's atypical views on Islam and his eschatological theory. The author suggests that the degree of religious tolerance expressed by George of Trebizond has been somewhat exaggerated by modern researchers, in particular by M. Balivet. The paper proves that it is impossible to conclude that George of Trebizond was ready to equate Islam and Christianity. It also shows that George suggested a new method of converting Muslims to Christianity, which was based on his apocalyptic concept.

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TRACES HISTORIQUES DES ONZE MONASTÈRES FONDÉS PAR PACHÔME, PÈRE DU COENOBIUM, UN ESSAI DE SYNTHÈSE DES SOURCES VARIÉES

I. Introduction

Ayant établi sa première communauté vers 323, Pachôme n'a pas cessé de fonder les monastères régis sous son autorité et régularisés par les règles de la vie commune. Ainsi, la congrégation pachômienne consistait, vers la quatrième décennie du IV^{e} siècle, en neuf monastères d'hommes et deux couvents de femmes dispersés dans la vallée du Nil à distance de 175 km entre Panopolis et Latopolis de la Haute Egypte.[1] Cet exploit méritait à Saint Pachôme le père du *Coenobium* et depuis la fin du 19ème siècle, il y avait beaucoup d'études de son cénobitisme.

En effet, bien qu'on ait parlé beaucoup du cénobitisme égyptien inauguré au début du IV^{e} siècle, j'ai constaté des lacunes des études pachômiennes, dont la première concerne des traces que les onze monastères de Pachôme ont laissées dans l'histoire, en particulier après V^{e} siècle. Pour compléter cette lacune scientifique, j'ai essayé, dans cette étude, de faire une synthèse des données variées, c'est-à-dire littéraire, archéologique, voire papyrologique. Quant aux documents papyrologiques, je dois beaucoup à Monsieur Jean Gascou, Professeur à l'Université Marc Bloch (Strasbourg II) et Directuer de l'institut de Papyrologie. J'espère que cette étude de synthèse puisse contribuer à approfondir les études pachômiennes, surtout grâce aux informations papyrologiques.

(1) Cf. La première *Vie* grecque de Pachôme = *G*^{1} 112

II. Les Monastères fondés par Pachôme

1. Tabennêse (ⲧⲁⲃⲉⲛⲛⲏⲥⲓ)

Après avoir passé sept ans de sa vie comme semi-anachorète sous la direction de son maître spirituel Palamon, Pachôme s'installe vers 320 à Tabennêse, village abandonné à cette époque. Cette installation ni au désert ni en bordure de terre cultivée mais au sein d'un village annonce une des caractéristiques géographiques des monastères pachômiens qui seront situés principalement dans la plaine de la vallée du Nil.[2] Le nom de Tabennêse était nouveau dans les milieux ascétiques de la deuxième décennie du IV^e^ siècle. On entend dans la bouche de Théodore émanant d'un milieu semi-anachorétique l'expression 'Tabennêsiotes' pour se référer aux habitants ascétiques de Tabennêse.[3] Les règles communautaires précisant la vie intérieure, ainsi que le mur d'enceinte qui est comme un cadre extérieur destiné à assurer la vie en communauté, devaient être à l'origine de ce fameux épithète, et plus tard le port dont ils disposaient contribuera beaucoup à la diffusion du terme.[4]

Pourtant ce dernier aspect ne caractérise pas l'ascèse communautaire des moines de Tabennêse du vivant de Pachôme. Il semble que les compilateurs ou les auteurs des *Vies* soient attentifs au mot 'bateau', quand la narration des récits leur obligent de l'écrire. Pachôme monte souvent sur une 'petite' barque pour se rendre à d'autres monastères.[5] Deux bateaux essentiels pour la congrégation, rapportés par *G*^{1} 113, lesquels concernent la vente de nattes et l'achat d'autres besoins à Alexandrie, activités annuelles confirmées par *Bo* 107, étaient aussi qualifiés 'petit' dans la version bohaïrique (*Bo* 96). Par contre,

(2) Cf. J. Goehring, Withdrawing from the Desert : Pachomius and the Development of Village Monasticism in Upper Egypt, *Harvard Theological Review* 89 (1996) 267–286; idem, The Encroaching Desert: Literary Production and Ascetic Space in Early Christian Egypt, *JECS* 1.3 (1993) 281–296.

(3) La *Vie* bohaïrique = *Bo* 63 et *G*^{1} 68.

(4) *Les Règles d'Ange* (*Histoire Lausiaque de Pallade* 32, 2–7) reflète le nom des articles contraignants prescrit par Pachôme. Et la tradition copte et grecque ne manquent pas d'évoquer 'le mur de clôture' (*Bo* 42 et *G*^{1} 42). Tabennêse se situait 'sur le fleuve' (traduction d'une vingtaine *Vies* coptes de Pachôme: L. Th. Lefort, *Les Vies Coptes de saint Pachôme et de ses premiers successeurs* (Louvain, 1943) (Bibliothèques du *Muséon*, 16) 56).

(5) *Bo* 59; *La cinquième Vie sahidique* 53 et 54 (deux bateaux offerts à Pachôme sont aussi 'petits').

cette précision 'petit' a significativement disparu pour une barque qui entreprit, sous le gouvernement de Théodore, le voyage vers Alexandrie (*Bo* 183) et elle ne figure pas en général à l'époque des successeurs de Pachôme.[6] Ce fait est très suggestif. Les compilateurs des *Vies* qui vivaient à la fin du IVe siècle veulent certainement mettre en relief un changement important par rapport aux débuts du cénobitisme : le fondateur ne disposait que de 'petites barques', tandis que les moines qui se vantent d'être ses fils spirituels ne l'ont pas suivi. Le premier monastère de Tabennêse, qui cède à Phbôou sa place vers 336/7, prévoit par sa propre localisation 'sur le fleuve' ses activités étendues sur le Nil, et dont Pachôme fit à son insu la préparation préliminaire.

2. Le couvent féminin de Tabennêse[7]

Après l'installation de la communauté à Tabennêse vers 323, Pachôme fonda bientôt une communauté féminine; sa sœur Marie est devenue la 'mère' (μήτηρ)[8] des moniales qui vivent d'après les règles copiées par son frère Pachôme (ⲙⲁⲣⲓⲁ, le nom n'est que dans la version bohaïrique 27).[9] Le couvent de femmes était situé à peu de distance du village de Tabennêse. La date de sa création est différente selon les traditions : dans le texte copte, c'est avant 329, alors que *G*[1] 32 (*Athenien-sis*) la situe après 329–330, moment où Athanase d'Alexandrie visite Tabennêse. On s'incline à accepter la tradition grecque, comme on l'a vu plus haut.

Pachôme a confié à un certain Pétros le rôle d'intermédiaire entre les deux communautés de Tabennêse. Le responsable-intermédiaire des moniales meurt avant la grande pénitence de Théodore, et Titouiê,

(6) La mission de ce bateau était importante : «Il arriva encore qu'une fois une barque des frères, chargée d'étoupe destinée à leurs vêtements, sombra. Lorsqu'on apporta à notre père Théodore la nouvelle qu'elle avait sombré, les frères en furent fort tristes » (*Bo* 183).

(7) Voir aussi S. Elm, *Virgins of God. The Making of Asceticism in Late Antiquity* (Oxford, 1996) 289–296.

(8) La mère des moniales a, semble-t-il, une grande importance dans la vie des monastères pachômiens plus tardifs. Au cours du VIe, un certain Jean, membre de la communauté d'Aphroditô, salue 'notre père commun très aimé de Dieu' (τὸν τε θεοφιλέστατον κοινον πατέρα) et 'notre très vertueuse mère commune' (τὴν κοσμιωτάτην κοινὴν μητέρα) qui réside au monastère de Canope (*P. Fouad* 88, voir H. Marrou, 199).

(9) Cf. *G*[1] 32 de *l'Atheniensis.*

un des anciens, le remplace (*Bo* 27 ; voir aussi *SBo* 27, n. 6).[10] Il apparaît que ce dernier est décédé quelques temps après l'avènement de Théodore, et ensuite la visite des moniales est confiée à Apa Epônychos pour la communauté féminine de Tabennêse et celle de Phbôou.

3. Phbôou (ⲡⲏⲃⲟⲟⲩ / ἡ Παβαῦ ou Βαῦ)[11]

Vers 330, le surpeuplement de la communauté de Tabennêse conduit Pachôme à se diriger vers un autre village voisin abandonné appelé Phbôou pour y construire son deuxième monastère, également doté d'un mur d'enceinte (*G*[1] 54, *Bo* 49).[12] Ce couvent de Phbôou qui dépendait de l'évéché de Diospolis Parva, se localisait à 2 mille (3 km) au *nord*-ouest de Tabennêse — le lieu est souvent mal localisé sur les cartes des monastères pachômiens —, et sa proximité permettait au fondateur résidant à Tabennêse de faire des visites fréquentes durant les premiers six années. En 336–337, c'est-à-dire, sept ans avant ce qu'on appelle sa 'grande pénitence' située en 344–346, Théodore fut établi à Tabennêse en tant qu'économe, et Pachôme séjournait à Phbôou qui devint ainsi à jamais la maison mère de toute la congrégation (*G*[1] 78, *Bo* 70).

Le monastère de Phbôou n'a pas disposé d'un port réservé à lui seul, puisqu'on n'en trouve pas traces, ni même d'un canal, et ce sur le plan littéraire comme archéologique. Il se trouvait dans une plaine, aujourd'hui fertile, et où la crue du Nil débordait souvent à l'époque de Pachôme.[13] Cette localisation géographique explique indirectement

(10) *SBo* = *La Vie de saint Pachôme*, traduction de la vie bohaïrique (L. Th. Lefort (éd.), *S. Pachomii vita bohairice scripta* (Louvain, 1925) (CSCO, 89 ; Scriptores Coptici, 7) complétée par les Vie sahidiques par A. Veilleux, *La Vie de saint Pachôme* selon la tradition copte (Bellefontaine, 1984) (Spritualité Orientale, 38).

(11) Voir aussi S. Timm, Fāw, dans: idem., *Das christlichen-koptische Ägypten in arabischer Zeit* (Wiesbaden, 1984) 947–957; R.-G Coquin et P. Grossmann, Pbow: History and Archaeology, dans: A. S. Atiya (éd), *The Coptic Encyclopedia* (New York—Oxford—Sydney, 1991) 1926–1929.

(12) Pour la chronologie, je me réfère à D. Chitty, A Note on the Chronology of the Pachomian Foundations, *SP* 2 (Berlin, 1957) (TU, 64) 381. Il ne faut pas penser que le nombre des moines pachômiens s'accroît rapidement; même après la fondation ou l'annexion de quelques monastères, les *Vies* nous renseignent qu'il y avait à peine 300 ou 360 moines dans la congregation (Lefort, *Les Vies Coptes de saint Pachôme et de ses premiers successeurs...*, 180).

(13) L. Th. Lefort, Les premiers monastères pachômiens, exploration topographique, *Le Muséon* 52 (1939) 392–393. Le monastère de Phbôou est à

son appui sur le port de Tabennêse pour la communication avec le monde extérieur, et plus souvent encore pour la visite des autres monastères filiales (cf. *Bo* 59 et 183, *S*[5] 53–54).[14] La tradition tardive décrivant la tête de la *Koinonia* pachômienne entre les mains de l'archimandrite soit de Phbôou soit de Tabennêse, s'explique sans aucun doute par le fait que le résidant de Phbôou doit toujours passer par le port de la communauté de Tabennêse pour naviguer sur le Nil.

Les pachômiens étaient fiers de leur 'monastère glorieux' de Phbôou, dès le début de son histoire, grâce à la construction de la grande basilique au milieu du V[e] siècle.[15] La basilique de Phbôou (l'actuel Fāw al-Qublī) a fait l'objet de fouilles menées par P. Grossmann.[16] Et les explorations archéologiques ont distingué trois moments différents de construction de l'église : une ancienne, une deuxième à la fin du IV[e] siècle ou au début du V[e] siècle et une dernière après un demi siècle. Le premier oratoire de Phbôou à l'époque de Pachôme n'est connu que par les *paralipomena* ch. 32, et *Bo* 25 (cf. *G*[1] 29) concerne celui de Tabennêse. D'après *Paralipomena* 32, une fois construit l'oratoire, Pachôme pense qu'il est trop beau, et il ordonne aux frères de pencher les colonnes pour lui enlever de sa beauté. Le dernier édifice, consacré le 11 novembre 459 à l'époque de l'archimandrite Martyrios, était une basilique, comme toujours à cinq nefs, mais largement amplifiée par sa taille, 75 m de longueur et 37.5 m de largeur (elle peut accueillir au moins 2.000 personnes), avec beaucoup de colonnes de granit. L'agrandissement de la basilique de Phbôou parle, d'une manière indirecte, de l'économie fleurissante de la maison mère, à peu près au milieu du V[e] siècle. D'ailleurs, la dédicace de Timothée Elure a été l'occasion pour la littérature pachômienne d'assurer son attachement à la foi anti-

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3 mille (4 1/2 km) du désert arabique du nord. La carte dans le *Biblical Archeologist* 1979, p. 201 localise, à ma connaissance, le plus exactement le monastère de Phbôou. Le canal du nord-ouest du village al-Fāw Qublī est moderne (Coquin et Grossmann, Pbow..., 1928).

(14) *S*[5] = la cinquième Vie sahidique.

(15) A. Boud'hors (texte copte et traduction) et R. Boutros (textes arabes et traductions), Timothée Elure. *L'Homélie sur l'Eglise du Rocher attribuée à Timothée Elure*, dans: *PO* 49, fasc. 1 (2001) 107 , 143, 145, 151–153.

(16) Coquin et Grossmann, Pbow, 1927–1929; P. Grossmann, The Basilica of Pachomius, *Biblical Archeologist* 42 (1979) 232–236. Pour connaître l'état de la question, voir J. Goehring, New Frontiers in Pachomian Studies, dans: B. A. Pearson et J. E. Goehring (éd.), *The Roots of Egyptian Christianity* (Philadelphia, 1986) 252–257.

chalcédonienne comme on le voit aussis dans l'*Allocution*[17] et l'*Homélie* attribuées à Timothée Elure.

Le stationnement des soldats de Justinien à la communauté de Phbôou, peu connu dans les milieux d'études pachômiennes, fait l'objet d'un grand intérêt.[18] Ce *numerus* monté qui fut cantonné au cours du VI^e^ siècle dans le centre monastique de Phbôou (Βαῦ) avait été composée, d'abord, d'un détachement de milice de Pharanites provenant d'une petite cité du Sinaï, Pharan, proche du monastère de Sainte Catherine, puis de soldats scythes. *P. Lond*. V 1735, 23–29, contient le contrat de vente d'une maison, et nous apprend quelques noms de membres de cette milice qui ont été des témoins de l'acte : Victor, Jacob et Théodore.[19] Les soldats de Phbôou bénéficiaient de prestations fiscales prélevées sur les communautés de la Moyenne Egypte comme Aphroditô-Kom Ichaou (*P. Flor* III 297, 192, 219 et 302).

Parfois, les couvents pachômiens devaient verser les annones militaires pour la milice qui avait protégé entre autres leur maison mère contre les barbares. Le bureau des finances du village 'Aphroditô enregistre en 525–526 le versement des annones militaires du monastère pachômien de Tsmîne représenté par son moine, peut-être économe, Mousaios.[20] A la liste des contributeurs s'ajoute le couvent pachômien de Stratonikis. Il est aussi notable que l'église épiscopale d'une Apollinopolis fut contributeur fiscal, au VI^e^ ou au début du VII^e^ siècle, pour la milice de Phbôou, puisqu'on sait qu'elle paya 2 *Solidi* 21 c. pour la

(17) A. van Lantschoot, Allocution de Timothée d'Alexandrie prononcée à l'occasion de la dédicace de l'Eglise de Pachôme à Phbôou, *Le Muséon* 47 (1934) 13–56.

(18) Il est mis à jour par J. Gascou, à la fois corrigeant quelques lectures contradictoires proposées par R. Rémondon et, d'autre part, publiant par la suite un nouveau témoin. Ainsi deux références: J. Gascou, P. Fouad 87: Les monastères pachômiens et l'Etat byzantin, *BIFAO* 76 (1976) 171–174 et idem., La Table budgétaire d'Antaeopolis (P. Freer 08.45 c–d), dans: J. Lefort et C. Morrison (éd.), *Hommes et Richesses dans l'empire byzantin I* (Paris, 1989) 309–310.

(19) *P. Lond*. V 1735, 23 : Φλς Βικτωρ Ιωαννο στρ/ αριθμς Βαῦ …
24 : … Φλ/ Ιακωβ Ιωαννου Φαρ αριθμου …
29 : δι εμου Θεοδώρου Απολλωνιου νομικ / Βαῦ

(20) P. *Flor*. 297 :
302 εἴσπραξις ἀννώνης ὁμοίως τῶν Φαρανιτῶν Βαῦ τῆς αὐτῆς
303 μοναστηρίου Σμῖνος δια ᾽Απα Μουσαίου μονάζοντος ν. α ~~Α~~ βL΄ ζυγ(ῷ)

prestation semestrielle d'une unité de scythes stationnée au couvent de Phbôou (*P. Grenf* II 95).[21]

Dans *P. Freer* 08.45 c–d, la table budgétaire d'Antaeopolis, ville ducale, rédigée entre 533–543, nous permet de penser que le nombre de soldats établies à Phbôou ait été approximativement de cinquante ; car les annones sont quotidiennement de 50.[22] Il se pourrait que l'origine de ce stationnement des soldats dans le monastère de Phbôou du VI^e^ siècle remonte au deuxième quart du V^e^ siècle. D'après l'*Allocution* attribuée à Timothée d'Alexandrie, Victor l'archimandrite qui est de retour de Constantinople à Phbôou en 431 est accompagné, entre autres, de 80 soldats que l'empereur Théodose II lui a offerts pour parer aux éventuelles attaques des barbares, et il se met avant tout à construire une citadelle autorisée d'avance par l'empereur au sein de sa communauté.[23] Le *Paralipomena* 8–11 nous apprend d'autre part la présence des Blemmyes à la première moitié du IV^e^ siècle dans le désert proche du monastère de Phbôou. La vie de Šenoute § 89 nous informe de son côté que pendant la première moitié du V^e^ siècle, ils ont effectivement pillé quelques villages de la partie septentrionale du nome Panopolite ; on sait aussi que l'armée locale d'Egypte byzantine avait surtout un rôle défensif contre les incursions barbares.[24]

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(21) Δέδωκεν ἐκκλησία᾽ Απόλλωλος εἰς λόγον ἀννωνῶν τῶν γενναιοτάτων Σκυθῶν᾽ Ιουστινιανῶν ἀγραρευόντων ἐν τῷ μοναστηρίῳ Βαῦ ἐξαμήνου κανόνος τεσσαρεσκαιδεκάτης ἰνδικτίονος χρυσοῦ νομίσματα δύο κεράτια εἴκοσι ἕνα ζυγῷ, γίνεται ν° β κ κα ζυγῷ.

Verso : ᾽Εκκλησία᾽ Απόλλωνος ιδ ᾽ινδικτίονος νομίσματα β κεράτια κα.

(22) *P. Freer* 08.45 c–d,

26 στρατιώταις Σκυθῶν᾽ Ιουστινιανῶν προσκαρτυρούντων τῷ μοναστηρίῳ τῆς Βαῦ

27 ὑπὲρ ἡμερινῶν ἀννωνῶν ν καπίτων κε … .

(26) «pour les soldats des Scythae Iustiniani en quartiers au monastère de Bau,

(27) pour 50 annones journalières et 25 *capita*… »

Une annone rémunère en principe un individu. Mais certains bénéficiaires, par exemple les officiers, touchaient de multiples annones, alors que d'autres, comme les valets de rémiment, se contentaient de demi-rations (J. Gascou, La Table budgétaire d'Antaeopolis (P. Freer 08.45 c–d), dans: J. Lefort et C. Morrison (éd.), *Hommes et Richesses dans l'empire byzantin I* (Paris, 1989) 290).

(23) van Lantschoot, Allocution de Timothée d'Alexandrie..., 43–45.

(24) Pour le rôle de l'armée byzantine d'Egypte, voir J. Gascou, L'armée, dans: C. Morrison (éd.), *Le Monde byzantin I, L'Empire romain d'Orient 330–641* (Paris, 2004) 421–423. D'autre part, Les Blemmyes qui s'opposaient militai-

Il se pourrait d'ailleurs qu'un nouveau village se formât autour de la communauté de Phbôou au moins avant le VIII^e siècle. Dans un papyrus trilingue daté du VIII^e siècle et publié par A. Grohmann, on voit un certain Collouthos, fils de Phoibammon, signer en tant que chef du village de Phbôou.[25] En même temps, un homme appelé Noah représente le village de Tabennêse, ce qui atteste également de la formation d'un nouveau bourg à Tabennêse abandonné au IV^e siècle comme Phbôou.[26] D'autre part, notre hypothèse est renforcée par quelques personnages connus dans le Synaxaire arabe. Les parents de Yousâb étaient anciens habitants de Fâw (Phbôou) avant de remonter le Nil jusqu'à Coptos.[27] Fâw est aussi le village natal de Badâsyous.[28] Ce dernier guérit la maladie d'une certaine Arsinoé, 'femme du premier magistrat de

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rement aux *Romains* (par exemple, troisième guerre blemmye en Thébaïde entre 563–568), ne leur étaient pas toujours hostiles. Aux époques byzantine et arabe (ils sont connus souvent sous le nom de Beja à l'époque arabe (W. Y. Adams, Beja Tribes = Blemmyes, dans: *The Coptic encyclopedia*, 373–374), une partie de ce peuple était sédentarisée sur les marges de la vallée du Nil entretenant avec eux des relations souvent pacifiques (J. Gascou, Militaires étrangers en Egypte byzantine, *BIFAO* 75 (1975) 206); Pallade parle, au début du V^e siècle, des Blemmyes établis près des moines de la communauté de Tsmîne (*Histoire Lausiaque*, ch. 32, 10). Pour la différence des recensions, voir l'édition de D. Butler, p. 210, n. 55). Cf. pour les couvents-forteresses du Moyen Age, voir M. H. Torp, Mûrs d'Enceinte des monastères coptes primitifs et couvents-forteresses, *Mélanges d'Archéologie et d'Histoire* 76 (1964) 173–200.

(25) P. *arab. Grohmann* 167, 27: [ⲁⲛⲟ]ⲕ ⲕⲟⲗⲗⲟⲩⲉ ⲡⲱⲉⲛⲡⲙⲁⲕ / ⲫⲓⲃ ⲡⲣⲉⲙⲡⲃⲟⲟⲩ ⲧⲓⲥⲧⲏⲭⲉ ☥

(26) Il est sûr que Collouthos n'est pas l'archimandrite de Phbôou. Apa David est présente comme archimandrite du monastère d'Apa Zénobios (ⲁⲡⲁ ⲇⲁⲩⲓⲇ ⲡⲁⲣⲙⲁⲛ ⲙⲡⲙⲟⲛ ⲛⲁⲡⲁ ⲍⲏⲛⲟⲃⲓⲟⲥ : 167, 20), Philotheos comme habitant d'Apa Collouthos de Pešove (ⲫⲓⲗ^ⲉ ⲡⲣⲙ [ⲁ]ⲡⲁ ⲕⲟⲗⲗⲟⲩ^ⲉ ⲙⲡⲉⲱⲟⲩⲉ : 167, 22), Phoibamon comme celui du monastère d'Apa Leontios (ⲫⲟⲓⲃⲁⲙⲱⲛ ⲡⲣⲙ ⲡⲁ ⲧⲗⲉⲟⲛⲧⲓⲟⲥ : 167, 33) et Olympios comme celui du monastère d'Athanasios ([ⲟⲗⲩⲙⲡ]ⲓⲟⲥ …[ⲡⲣⲙⲙⲡⲙⲟ]ⲛⲁ^ⲥ ⲁⲑⲁⲛⲁⲥⲓⲟⲥ : 167, 35). Pourtant, s'agissant de Collouthos, fils de Phoibammon, habitant de Phbôou, il manque des indicessur son identité monastique.

P. *arab. Grohmann* 167, 19: [ⲁⲛⲟⲕ] ⲛⲱϫⲉ ⲡⲱⲏⲣⲉ ⲛⲡⲙⲁⲕ / ⲡⲉⲃⲱ[ⲱ]ⲡⲣⲙⲧⲁⲃⲉⲛⲛⲏⲥⲉ

(27) R. Basset (éd.), Le synaxaire arabe Jacobite (rédaction copte), *PO* 3 (1909) 283.

(28) Idem, Le synaxaire arabe Jacobite (rédaction copte) III, *PO* 11 (1915) 666.

Phabâou, sans doute dérivé du grec Παβαῦ.[29] Enfin, le village existe encore aujourd'hui, tandis que le couvent de Phbôou attesté encore au VIII^e^ siècle fut, dit-on, détruit par al-Hākim (996–1021).

4. Šenesêt (ϣⲉⲛⲉϩⲏⲧ / Χηνοβόσκια)

La communauté de Šenesêt ou Chénoboskia (l'actuel al-Qasr), qui existait probablement déjà vers 321 et se trouvait du même côté du Nil que Tabennêse-Phbôou est le premier couvent annexé, peu après 329, sous la direction de Pachôme.[30] A l'origine, le père de la communauté de Šenesêt était un certain Ebonh (ϵⲃⲱⲛϩ : *Bo* 50) ou Epônychos (Ἐπώνυχος : *G*[1] 54). L'incorporation du monastère de Šenesêt fut la conséquence de la renommée des règles imposées par Pachôme aux monastères de Tabennêse-Phbôou. Pachôme lui-même dirigea, au début, les frères de Šenesêt en s'y rendant souvent (*Bo* 50), car le village était seulement à 12 km en aval de Phbôou. D'abord, il établi les chefs de maison et les seconds (*Bo* 50), et peut-être quelques temps après, le supérieur (οἰκονόμος) et le second du monastère (δεύτερος τῆς μονῆς : *G*[1] 54). Et Epônychos a vraisemblablement été le même que le père des moniales sous le gouvernement de Théodore.

L'annexion de ce monastère constitue un tournant dans la vie de la *Kononia* pachômienne, parce qu'il ne s'agit plus d'un village désert comme Tabennêse et Phbôou. Le village Χηνοβόσκια est attesté dans les papyrus à partir du II^e^ siècle. Le *P. Lond.* II 196, qui rapporte un procès relatif à des dettes nous donne sa forme dative, Χηνοβοσκίοις (ligne 39). Le toponyme Χηνοβόσκια se retrouve dans le P. *Nag Hamm.* (1, 4 et 31, 3) datée de la fin du III^e^ siècle ou du début du IV^e^ siècle, et pour la première fois on constate que le mot Χηνοβωσχίτης, désigne

(29) Selon la traduction latine de I. Forget: Arsinoé est « principis nobilis ex incolis *Fāu* uxor » (I. Forget, *Synaxarium Alexandrinum*, I (Louvain, 1932) (CSCO, 78) 397).

(30) Lors d'une rencontre, peut-être en 387, d'Horsièse avec Théophile d'Alexandrie, le premier dit que soixante-six ans se sont écoulés depuis qu'il a pris l'habit monastique, ce qui signifie que son monastère d'origine qui est Šenesêt, doit exister en 321 (voir, la 21ème Vie Sahidique, Lefort, *Les Vies Coptes de saint Pachôme et de ses premiers successeurs*, 393). Pour toutes les variantes du Χηνοβόσκια, voir l'édition de Halkin, p. 465. Voir aussi la notice du monastère de Chenoboskiôn dans H. Gauthier, Nouvelles notes géographiques sur le nome Panopolite, *BIFAO* 4 (1905) 57–59.

un 'habitant de Chénoboskia' (153, 9).[31] Encore dans P. *Erl*. *Diosp*. qui remonte au premier quart du IVe siècle (313–314), on trouve le toponyme Χηνοβ (1, 120 et 167 ; 3, 24) du nome Diospolite Parva, qui était sans doute une forme abrégée du village Χηνοβόσκια.[32] Les gens de Chénoboskia effectuèrent, selon ce document, un payement à Aionios de 10 talents d'argent pour Theodosios (1, 166–167).[33] Les données papyrologiques suggèrent enfin que la communauté de Šenesêt était en train de se développer évidemment en relation avec le village, non seulement avant l'incorporation dans la *Koinonia* pachômienne, mais aussi après son annexion qui se situe au début des années trente du IVe siècle. Elle fut aussi la communauté d'origine d'Horsièse (*G*[1] 114).

5.Thmoušons (ⲧⲙⲟϩϩⲟⲛⲥ / Μόνχωσις)[34]

Il s'agit du deuxième monastère annexé à la *Koinonia* pachômienne (*Bo* et *S*[5] 51 ; *G*[1] 54). Au début, ce monastère fut organisé par Apa Jonas.[35] Il était aussi en 352 à l'origine de la révolte contre Horsièse, un des premiers successeurs de Pachôme (*G*[1] 127–129 ; S[5] 124–133). Au début du Ve siècle, Yūnās de Bahānis (Thmoušons) accompagne l'archimandrite Pachôme le Jeune pour aller à Alexandrie.[36] Le *P*. *Lond* IV 1460, 54, registre d'impôts daté de 709 mentionne le village (ἀπὸ

(31) J. W. B. Barns, G. M. Browne et J. C. Schelton (éd.), *NAG HAMMADI CODICES XVI, Greek and Coptic Papyri from the Cartonnage of the Covers* (Leiden, 1981). A. Veilleux mentionne aussi le village dans ce papyrus (A. Veilleux, Monasticism and Gnosis in Egypt, *Semeia* 58 (1992) 279).

(32) F. Mitthof, *Ein spätantikes Wirtschaftsbuch aus Diospolis Parva, Der erlanger Papyruskodex und die Texte aus seinem Umfeld (P. Erl. Diosp.)* (Leipzig, 2002) 4–5.

(33) 166 Θεοδοσίῳ διὰ τῶν
167 ἀπὸ Χηνοβ(οσκίων) τάλ. ι

(34) Voir aussi S. Timm, Tmoušons, dans: *Das christlichen-koptische Ägypten in arabischer Zeit*, 2717–2720. Pour les variantes coptes et grecques du toponyme, voir les index de CSCO 99 et 100, p. 370 et de l'édition de Halkin, p. 462.

(35) Jonas est vivant à l'époque de Théodore (*G*[1] 123). Voir aussi, Lefort, *Les Vies Coptes de saint Pachôme et de ses premiers successeurs*, 116, n. 1.

(36) R. Coquin, Apa HĀMĀY Martyr pachômien au Ve siècle, *Mélanges Serge Sauneron II Egypte post-paraonique* (Caire : Institut français d'archéologie orientale du Caire, 1979) 155.

Μοονχ^{o} παρ^{χ} θινοτ).[37] Encore existant aujourd'hui, ce village est situé sur la rive occidentale du Nil à 7–8 km au nord de Faršout.

*** Pmampesterposen**

Lefort veut le compter parmi les monastères fondés par Pachôme,[38] ce auquel trois autres critiques modernes contestent.[39]

6. Tsê (ⲧⲥⲏ / Ταση̃)

Chitty et Coquin comptent trois monastères d'hommes sur le territoire de Panopolis, alors que Lefort et Timm seulement deux.[40] Je pense comme les premiers, étant donné que la tradition copte distingue clairement trois monastères dans le nome Panopolite, dont le premier est la communauté de Tsê.

Selon *S*^{5} 52, une vision extraordinaire emmena Pachôme à fonder un couvent dans 'la région de Panopolis' (**ⲧⲕⲁϫⲱⲙⲓⲛ**), qui s'appelait Tsê (**ⲧⲥⲏ**- selon *G*^{1} 83, Ταση̃). Le nom arabe *Schedsina* (*Am* 569, 2)[41] de ce village copte Tsê n'a pas survécu.[42] H. Gauthier écrit qu'Amélineau n'était pas sûr de l'existence de ce monastère.[43] Mais le village Tsê

(37) D'après ce passage, Μόνχωσις dépend de la pagarchie Thinitos (παγαρχία θινίτου).

(38) Lefort, *Les Vies Coptes de saint Pachôme et de ses premiers successeurs*, 247, n. 3.

(39) «Il est donc fort possible, ce n'est certes qu'une hypothèse, que Pma mpesterposen n'ait été qu'une dépendance, où résidaient seulement quelques moines, du grand couvent de Šensêt / Chénoboskia » (R. Coquin, Un complément aux Vies sahidiques de Pachôme: Le Manuscrit IFAO copte 3, *BIFAO* 79 (1979) 237); Chitty, A Note on the Chronology..., 383; Veilleux, *La Vie de saint Pachôme...*, 271, n. 4.

(40) Chitty, A Note on the Chronology of the Pachomian Foundations..., 382–383; Coquin, Un complément aux Vies sahidiques de Pachôme..., 233–237; Lefort, *Les Vies Coptes de saint Pachôme et de ses premiers successeurs...*, 247, n. 3 et 379–407; Timm, dans: *Das christlichen-koptische Ägypten in arabischer Zeit...*, 655.

(41) Am = E. Amélineau (édition et traduction), *Monuments pour servir à l'histoire de l'Egypte chrétienne au IV*^{e} *siècle. Histoire de saint Pakhôme et de ses communautés. Documents coptes et arabe inédits* (Paris, 1889) (Annales du Musée Guimet, 179).

(42) E. Amélineau, *La géographie de l'Egypte à l'époque copte* (Paris, 1893) 485–486. D'après Amélineau, le mot Schedsinâ est composé du premier mot **ϣⲉⲧ** et d'un deuxième inconnu (ibid., 428–429).

(43) H. Gauthier, Nouvelles notes géographiques sur le nome Panopolite, *BIFAO* 4 (1905) 94.

dans le nome Panopolite — il y avait plusieurs villages qui portaient le même nom — est attesté dans un papyrus du début de l'époque arabe (l'an 709) : P. *Lond. IV*, 1460, 44 et 152 (ἀπὸ Τσῆ παρὰ Πανός). Selon Timm, ce monastère pachômien de Tsê devait se situer vraisemblablement aux environs de l'actuel aṣ-Ṣawãmi'a Šarq, approximativement à 8 km au nord de Akmîm, où il existe aujourd'hui une église sur des ruines, vraisemblablement de ce monastère.[44]

7. Panopolis (Šmin / Πανός)

D'après la tradition copte (*S*[5] 54 et *IFAO copte 3*, 54, également *Am* 569–570), Arios, évêque orthodoxe de Šmin (ϣⲙⲓⲛ)-Panopolis demanda à Pachôme de fonder un couvent dans sa ville. Selon la tradition copte, les gens envieux attaquèrent le mur d'enceinte pour le détruire, mais un ange l'entoura comme pour en faire un mur de feu, ce que la tradition grecque n'accentue pas. Pourtant, on cherchera en vain une mention de l'endroit précis où le couvent fut construit dans le nome Panopolite. Les *Vies* affirme que l'évêque a offert à Pachôme un terrain de construction, vraisemblablement avec des matériaux, car c'est ce que signifie la phrase «l'évêque leur désigna l'emplacement ». Cependant, si on considère les attaques renouvellées contre le mûr d'enceinte du monastère, notamment la visite des philosophes (*Bo, S*[5] et *IFAO copte 3*, 54 b et 55), il semble qu'il se trouve, parmi les monastères pachômiens panopolitains, le plus proche de la ville de Panopolis, et constitue un centre culturel au IV[e] siècle à côté d'Alexandrie.

L'attention portée au chapitre 32 de l'*Histoire Lausiaque* de Pallade permet de localiser le monastère de Šmin-Panopolis. Je m'attacherais à suivre l'avis de A. Veilleux, selon lequel Pallade ne monta pas au-dessus de Šmin.[45] En effet, notre intérêt, un peu différent de celui de A. Veilleux qui voulait montrer le caractère non-pachômien des chapitres 32–34, se focalise sur le fait que Pallade rapporte un témoignage au sujet des monastères panopolitains de la congrégation pachômienne. Dans le chapitre 32, 8, après avoir présenté d'une manière concise le monastère de Phbôou, et Aphtonios, le second du monastère, il passe à la description des monastères panopolitains.

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(44) Timm, dans: *Das christlichen-koptische Ägypten in arabischer Zeit...*, 654–655 et 87–88; voir aussi "Tsê" (pp. 2851–2852).

(45) A. Veilleux, *La liturgie dans le cénobitisme pachômien au quatrième siècle* (Rome, 1968), 138–146 et idem, Monasticism and Gnosis in Egypt..., 277–278.

ἔστι δὲ ἄλλα μοναστήρια ἀπὸ διακοσίων καὶ τριακοσίων·
ἐν οἷς καὶ εἰς Πανὸς τὴν πόλιν εἰσελθὼν εὗρον ἄνδρας τριακοσίους.

« Mais il existe d'autres monastères de deux cents et de trois cents.

Entre autres, étant entré à Panopolis, j'y trouvai trois cents hommes. »

(texte et traduction de Lucot, p. 221; texte identique à celui de l'édition de Bartelink, p. 156)

Exilé en Egypte en 406, Pallade passa quelques années à Syène et à Antinooupolis avant de revenir en Galatie en 412–413.[46] Quant aux monastères pachômiens, il ne visita que le monastère de Panopolis qui abritait trois cents d'hommes.[47] Il est difficile de savoir pourquoi il le choisit de préférence aux monastères de Kaior et Nouoi situés aux environs de Hermopolis Magna, sur la rive gauche du Nil, en face de la ville d'Antinooupolis. En tout cas, Pallade alla au couvent de Panopolis, sans doute en remontant le Nil de la ville d'Antinooupolis vers Panopolis. Les deux monastères de deux cents et de trois cents âmes pourraient rappeler les monastères de Tsê et de Tsmîne dont le nombre de moines est probablement transmis au pèlerin par la bouche des habitants du couvent de Panopolis. En effet, c'est 'aux confins de la ville de Panopolis' (καὶ εἰς Πανός τὴν πόλιν εἰσελθών), mais en dehors de cette ville, que Pallade trouva le monastère pachômien abritent trois cents hommes. On s'incline à penser que ce couvent est celui qui est fondé sur la sollicitation et grâce aux soutiens matériaux de l'évêque Arios.

Pourtant il faut se demander si la halte de Pallade au monastère de Šmin est crédible. Un peu avant le rapport de la visite de la ville de Panopolis, il introduit un certain Aphtonios. Son rapport sur ce personnage suscite un intérêt spécial.

᾽Εν οἷς καὶ ὁ καλὸς᾽ Αφθόνιος ὁ φίλος μου γενόμενος γνήσιος,
τὸ νῦν δευτερεύων ἐν τῷ μοναστηρίῳ· ὃν ὡς ἀσκανδάλιστον
ἀποστέλλουσιν ἐν᾽ Αλεξανδρείᾳ ἐπὶ τὸ διαπωλῆσαι μὲν αὐτῶν
τὰ ἔργα,
συνωνήσασθαι δὲ τὰς χρείας.

(46) A. Lucot, L'introduction de *Histoire Lausiaque* de Pallade, XIV; E. Amann, Pallade, dans: *Dictionnaire de la Théologie catholique*, t. 11–12, col. 1824.

(47) Il faut lire 300 au lieu de 3000 que Timm fournit dans sa notice d'Akhmim (Timm, dans: *Das christlichen-koptische Ägypten in arabischer Zeit...*, 82).

«Parmi eux, il y avait aussi le bel Aphtonios, qui est devenu mon ami intime
et qui pour le moment est le second dans le monastère. Comme il ne saurait être scandalisé,
ils l'envoient à Alexandrie pour vendre leurs ouvrages
et acheter les choses nécessaires »
(texte et traduction de Lucot, p. 220–221 ; texte identique à celui de l'édition de Bartelink, p. 156)

Pallade nous informe que Aphtonios a été envoyé à Alexandrie 'pour être consolé' à cause d'un conflit dont le caractère nous échappe' (ὡς ἀσκανδάλιστον). D'un autre côté, son voyage à Alexandrie se caractérise matériellement par la vente de produits manuels et l'achat des choses nécessaires. Ce témoignage a des parallèles dans les *Vies*. En 345, Zachée, chef des frères nautoniers demanda à Pachôme d'emmener Théodore en grande pénitence à Alexandrie, afin que ce dernier fut consolé (*Bo* 96). L'équivalent *G*[1] 113 donne les deux motifs principaux du voyage à la capitale de l'Egypte : la vente des nattes et l'achat d'autres biens. Encore environ une cinquantaine d'années après, à l'époque du généralat de Bêsarion, apa Victor fut envoyé à Alexandrie après des troubles qui ont bouleversé la Koinonia, « pour qu'il reçut consolation ».[48] De manière significative, Aphtonios occupe donc une position considérable dans le monastère de Phbôou, comme l'étaient Théodore et Victor. Des exemples précédents rendent intelligible la cause de l'incident d'Aphtonios : un conflit autour de l'hégémonie dans la congrégation.

Cet Aphtonios fut l'ami de Pallade, et il serait donc la source orale de son rapport. Comment est-ce que Pallade n'ayant pas visité Phbôou arriva à connaître Aphtonios, moine de ce lieu ? La clé à ce problème doit être trouvée dans le rôle d'Aphtonios. *Actuellement* νῦν), c'est-à-dire certainement vers 406–411, Aphtonios est devenu le second du monastère de Phbôou. Au début du V[e] siècle, il faut voir le rôle de l'économe général dans celui du sous-supérieur général de la communauté de Phbôou. Ce système est confirmée pour la première fois sous le gouvernement de Théodore. En 360, lors de la perquisition du duc Artémios à Phbôou en quête d'Athanase, le vice-supérieur de l'ordre hiérarchique après Théodore était un certain Psarphéin, nommé économe principal (οἰκονόμος μέγας : *G*[1] 138), tandis que, selon l'ordre

(48) Lefort, *Les Vies Coptes de saint Pachôme et de ses premiers successeurs...*, 404.

moral, Pékyssios, un des anciens de la première génération de la *Koinonia*, était, pour les frères de Phbôou, supérieur à l'économe principal.[49]

Cet indice permet de confirmer que, désormais, l'économe principal de la communauté de Phbôou est le second, dans la hiérarchie, du monastère ainsi que de la *Koinonia* pachômienne. Ce fait s'accorde bien avec notre hypothèse générale selon laquelle Théodore ne put être investi dans son généralat qu'avec son acceptation tacite des activités économiques des monastères, notamment commencées après la mort de Pachôme.[50] Vers 352–360, les activités économiques des monastères pachômiens étaient tellement développées par rapport aux années précédentes qu'elles nécessitèrent qu'un économe général seconde l'archimandrite. Aphtonios, devenu le second du monastère de Phbôou, sous le gouvernement de Jonas le Doux ou de Pachôme le Petit, est ainsi devenu le grand économe. Et le rôle essentiel du grand économe de Phbôou consiste à préciser les travaux que doivent faire chaque économe des monastères. Dans l'exercice de cette fonction, les voyages vers les monastères de la *Koinonia* furent fréquents. C'est dans ce contexte qu'on peut situer des rencontres avec Pallade et Aphtonios. Les visites des monastères de Kahior et Nouoi, voisins de la ville d'Antinooupolis, sinon même des communautés panopolitaines, étaient autant d'occasions favorables pour lier amitié. En conclusion, je pense donc que le rapport de Pallade sur Aphtonios est authentique. De ce fait, selon le témoignage de Pallade, le monastère de Panopolis peut être localisé d'une manière approximative à la limite de la ville. Un passage propre à G^1 81 doit être interprété en ce sens : « καθότι ἐγγὺς πόλεως ἦσαν » (l'édition de Halkin, p. 55, 3). On connaît aussi, hors de la littérature pachômienne, quelques personnages qui ont vécu dans le monastère de Panopolis.

8. Tsmîne (ⲦⲤⲘⲒⲚⲈ / Ζμῖν)

Après la fondation des communautés de Tsê et de Panopolis, le monastère de Thbêou appartenant à Pétronios fut annexé à l'ordre pachômien (*Bo* 56 et *IFAO Copte 3*, 56). Puis, Pachôme construisit un couvent

(49) Pékyssios est un des premiers huit disciples de Pachôme (G^1 25–26). Par contre, Psarphéin succéda en 346 à Paphnuce, frère de Théodore, premier économe général (G^1 124).

(50) Telle est l'hypothèse du chapitre II de notre étude. Cf. E. Wipszycka, Contribution à l'étude de l'économie de la congrégation pachômienne, *Journal of Juristic Papyrology* 26 (1996) 181.

appelé Tsmîne (ⲧⲥⲙⲓⲛⲉ) aux alentours de la ville de Panopolis (*S*[5] 56 et *IFAO Copte 3*, 57). Pachôme y établit très tôt Pétronios en lui confiant aussi le soin 'des deux *autres* monastères (ⲛ̀ⲧⲕⲉ ⲥⲛⲟⲩ ⲧ̀ⲙⲙⲟⲛⲏ)' environnants, Tsê et Panopolis (*Bo* 56).[51] Il faut voir aussi une communauté de femmes sous la direction de Pétronios. Les deux autres *Vies* sahidiques mutilées transmettent également le nom du monastère, ⲧⲥⲙⲓⲛⲉ ou ⲧⲥⲙⲉⲓⲛⲉ dont Pétronios a été le supérieur jusqu'à la mort de Pachôme (ⲡⲉ ⲡⲉⲧⲣⲱⲛⲓⲟⲥ ⲡⲉⲓⲱⲧ ⲛⲑⲉⲛⲉⲉⲧⲏ ⲛⲧⲥ-ⲙⲓⲛⲉ, *CSCO* 99 et 100, p. 128, 19–20. ⲧⲥⲙⲉⲓⲛⲉ dans la page 93, 9). La *Vita Prima* donnent ailleurs des variantes qui sont dûs à la difficulté de la grécisation de ce toponyme : Τομηνέ, Ἰσμίν, Τισμηναι, Τσμήν et Τομήν (voir l'index de l'édition de Halkin, p. 465).

Malgré peu de renseignements dans les *Vies*, ce village, en particulier le monastère portant le même nom, laissa beaucoup de traces, notamment dans les papyrus, où, pour la première fois, il figure au III[e] siècle : il s'agit d'un village (κώμη) appelé Ζμῖν, ou Σμινις et Ζμιναι dans le nome Panopolite (P. *Froehner*, Inv. 1127, A 2–3 et 7–8, B 12).[52] Le village de Tsmîne avait un port (εἰς ὅρμον Ζμεινός, P. *Froehner*, Inv. 1127, A 7 et B 12), et le P. *Lond* V 1686, 7–8 et le P. *Cair. Masp*. 67170, 5–8 situent le monastère de Tsmîne sur la rive occidentale du Nil en face de Panopolis (τοῦ μοναστηρίου Σμῖνὸς τοῦ διακειμένου περὶ τὴν περαίαν τῆς Πανοσπόλεως ou μοναστηρίου Σμῖνος ... κεκτημένου περὶ περαίαν τῆς Πανοπολιτῶν), or, celui-ci est souvent mal localisé dans les études pachômiennes, notamment celles d'A. Villeux, Ph. Rousseau, H. Bacht

(51) *IFAO copte 3* complète la lacune de la cinquième Vie sahidique, équivalent de *Bo* 56 : « ⲉⲁϥ ⲕⲱ ⲇⲉ ⲟⲛ ⲛⲁϥ ⲙⲡⲣⲟⲟⲩϣ ⲛ ⲧ̀ⲕ̣ⲑ̣ⲉⲥⲛⲧⲉ ⲛ ⲍⲉⲛⲉⲉⲧⲉ ⲉⲧ ⲍⲏⲛ ⲉⲣⲟϥ : Il (Pachôme) lui confia aussi le soin des deux autres monastères, qui étaient proches de lui » (Coquin, Un complément aux Vies sahidiques de Pachôme..., 217, 14–18). Lefort a omis le mot *'autres'* dans sa traduction de *Bo* 56 en étant convaincu qu'il n'y avait que deux monastères panopolitains (Chitty, A Note on the Chronology..., 383; Coquin, Un complément aux Vies sahidiques de Pachôme..., 227, n. 7). Ainsi, l'agglomération des trois communautés panopolitaines se forma du vivant de Pachôme, comme une seconde Koinonia à cause de sa distance géographique qui était défavorable à des visites efficaces du fondateur.

(52) « εἰς Σμίνειν κώμη τοῦ Πανοπολίτου » (M. Chauveau et H. Cuvigny, Les étiquettes de momies de la collection Froehner, *Cahier de recherches de l'Institut de Papyrologie et d'Egyptologie de Lille* 9 (Lille: Presses Universitaires de Lille, 1987) 71–72, n. 4). Le P. *Lond*. 604 B mentionne un habitant de Zmin, ζμινείτης et l'hésitation entre σμ- et ζμ- à l'initial du nom de la ville est un phénomène connu dans les papyrus grecs (Ibid., 72).

et S. Elm.[53] D'autre part, au VIII[e] siècle, un certain Jean, chef de village de Tesmine (ⲦⲈⲤⲘⲒⲚⲈ) souscrit dans un document administratif trilingue où on se déclare sur l'innocence d'un collecteur d'impôts et de son équipe accusés d'oppression fiscale.[54] A ma connaissance, c'est la première fois après les *Vies* de Pachôme que les toponymes coptes ⲦⲈⲤ-ⲘⲒⲚⲈ (Tsmîne) et ϢⲘⲒⲚ (Panopolis) apparaissent en même temps.[55]

A partir du VI[e] siècle, le toponyme Tsmîne est plus fréquent dans les documents en raison des activités économiques de son couvent pachômien. D'après le cadastre d'Aphroditô, document rédigé en 525–526, et publié par J. Gascou et L. MacCoul, la communauté de Tsmîne (μοναστήνιον Σμῖνος) de la Haute Egypte est propriétaire de quelques terrains dans la région d'Aphroditô en Moyen Egypte, à un peu moins de 100 km en aval de Panopolis.[56] Le monastère de Tsmîne y possède environ 33 aroures (égales à un peu plus de 8 hectares) de terre arable et de vignoble dont l'origine est variée et qui sont cultivés par deux responsables d'exploitation. Selon l'analyse de J. Gascou et L. Maccoull, les terres recensées représentent 5906 aroures (environ 1.500 hectares), et parmi les propriétaires sept autres monastères détiennent à peu près un tiers des surfaces cultivées.[57] La propriété foncière du

(53) Ph. Rousseau, *Pachomius. The Making of a Community in Fourth-Century Egypt* (Berkely, 1985), 56; H. Bacht, *Das Vermächtnis des Ursprungs, Studien zum frühen Mönchtum II* (Köln, 1982) (Studien zur Theologie des geistlichen Lebens, 8) 295; Veilleux, *La Vie de saint Pachôme*, Carte des monastères pachômiens; Elm, *Virgins of God...*, 284.

(54) [ⲁⲛⲟⲕ ⲓⲱ]ϩⲁⲛⲛⲏⲥ ⲡϣⲛⲧⲙⲁⲕ / ⲑⲱⲙⲁⲥ ⲡⲣⲙ ⲦⲈⲤⲘⲒⲚⲈ ⲦⲒⲤⲦⲨ (P. *Arab. Grohmann* 167, 17). Ce papyrus n° 167 est rédigé en original copte, récapitulé en grec, et traduit en arabe, mais mutilé.

(55) On voit 11 représentants de la ville de Panopolis (Šmin) se déclarer avec chaque nom suivi de ces deux formes: ⲡⲣⲙ Ⲧⲡⲟⲗⲓⲥ ϢⲘⲒⲚ (167, 45, 46, 47, 48, 54, 61, 72, 73 et 74) ou ⲡⲁϢⲘⲒⲚ (167, 55 et 56).

(56) J. Gascou et L. MacCoull, Le cadastre d'Aphroditô : P. Freer a–b, *TM* 10 (1987) 103–158. Nous allons citer les lignes ainsi que la traduction touchant le monastère de Tsmîne dont le nominatif est Σμῖν.

(57) *P. Freer*

46 μοναστήριον Σμῖνος [± 12] χίου᾽ Ησαι [κ]αλαπησε
σπο(ρ.) (ἀρ.) δ ηʹ

(Monastère de Smin : 1/4 1/8 aroures de terre arable)

81 μοναστήριον Σμῖνος ὑπὸ Παλῶν Πατάιτος τόπου Πμουνακὼν
σπο(ρ.) (ἀρ.) L δ ηʹ ιςʹ ἀμ(π.) (ἀρ.) α L

(Monastère de Smin aux mains de Palôs fils de Pataïs, lieu dit de Pmounakôn : 1/2 1/4 1/8 1/16 ar. de terre arable, 1 1/2 de vignes)

monastère de Tsmîne n'est donc pas considérable dans ce document mais signifiante, puisqu'il s'agit de bien-fonds éloignés de l'emplacement de la communauté. Il y a également d'autres documents concernant le monastère de Tsmîne, dont la référence complète dans l'état actuel est fournit par l'éditeur du cadastre d'Aphroditô.[58] Le *P. Lond* V 1690 est un contrat de location de terrain, signé le 29 août 527, en faveur d'Apollôs par Psaïos, le *proestôs* du monastère de Σμῖν. Dans le *P. Cair. Masp*. 67170, daté de 564–565, deux fermiers, Aurelios Senouthès et Aurelois Ioulios, originaires du village de Tsmîne (κώμη Σμῖνος), louent pour un temps illimité au même monastère (μοναστήριον Σμῖνος) un jardin en vue de cultiver des légumes. Par ailleurs, le *P. Lond* V 1686 est l'enregistrement d'un contrat conclu, le 7 nov. 565, par lequel le monastère acquiert un droit de propriété sur trois aroures de terres appartenant à Dioscoros, notable d'Aphroditô, lesquels se trouvaient dans la partie méridionale du même village. Selon un registre d'impôts provenant du village d'Aphroditô, un fermier, responsa-

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121 μοναστήριον Σμῖνος ὑπὸ Παλῶν Πατάιτος γεωργὸν σπο(ρ.) (ἀρ.) ιε
(Monastère de Smin aux mains de Palôs fils de Pataïs fermier : 15 ar. de terre arable)

128 μοναστήριον Σμῖνος ἀπὸ ἐκβολῆς τῶν αὐτῶν ὑπὸ τὸν αὐτὸν
σπο(ρ.) (ἀρ.) L
(Monastère de Smin, par suite d'expulsion des mêmes — héritiers de Dios fils de Truphiodôre, L. 127—, aux mains du même — Palôs fils de Pataïs : 1/2 ar. de terre arable)

135 μοναστήριον Σμῖνος ὑπὸ Παλῶν Πατάιτος γεωργὸν
σπο(ρ.) (ἀρ.) α L
(Monastère de Smin aux mains de Palôs fils de Pataïs fermier : 1 1/2 ar. de terre arable)

152 μοναστήριον Σμῖνος ὀνόματος Σοφία Χαιρήμωνος ὑπὸ Παλῶν Πατάιτος γεωργὸν σπο(ρ.) (ἀρ.) ε L ἀμ(π.) (ἀρ.) L δ ις΄
(Monastère de Smin, pour le compte de Sophia fille de Chairèmôn, aux mains de Palôs fils de Pataïs, fermier : 5 1/2 ar. de terre arable, 1/2 1/4 1/16 de vignes)

249 μοναστήριον Σμῖνος τόπου Μακαρίου῾ Αρποκρᾶ καὶ τόπου᾽ Αλαπανε
250 ὑπὸ ᾽Ανοῦφιν ᾽Αβρααμίου ποιμένα γεωργὸν
σπο(ρ.) (ἀρ.) ζ δ λβ΄ ἀμ(π.) (ἀρ.) δ ις΄
(Monastère de Smin, lieux-dits de Makarios fils d'Harpokras et d'Alapane, aux mains d'Anouphis fils d'Abraamios, berger et fermier, : 7 1/4 1/ 32 ar. de terre arable, 1/4 1/16 de vignes)

Gascou et MacCoull, Le cadastre d'Aphroditô..., 118. J. Gascou précise que les monastères sont absents des cadastres du IVe siècle.

(58) Ibid., 137, note de la ligne 46.

ble de l'exploitation d'une portion de terre paye l'impôt pour la communauté de Tsmîne (P. *Flor*. 297, 208). Ce dernier paye lui-même une fois, puis se fait représenter, toujours dans le même registre de taxes (P. *Flor*. 297, 294 et 376). Il faut mentionner également dans le même document que le monastère de Tsmîne versa les annones militaires au profit de la milice sinaïtique de cavalerie composée de Pharanites, qui stationna à la maison mère de Phbôou.[59] On trouve pour finir des mentions, dans des documents de l'époque arabe, du τόπος Σμῖνος, ce qui désigne probablement un *topos* appartenant au monastère de Tsmîne. Le *topos* Σμῖνος paye, en 706, par le biais de l'épouse du Kyrillos, l'impôt d'un demi *Solidi* et d'un demi artabe de blé (P. *Lond*. IV 1420, 46) et probablement le même personnage dont le nom est cette fois-ci évoqué, Ezekiêl, paye un demi *Solidi* en 716 pour le même *topos* Τσμῖνος (P. *Lond* IV 1424, 14).[60] Tous ces documents juridiques permettent de voir dans ce monastère un riche propriétaire de biens fonciers, en particulier dès le VI[e] siècle.

9. La communauté féminine de Tsmîne (deuxième couvent des moniales)

Dans son *Histoire Lausiaque* ch. 33, Pallade décrit une communauté féminine de Panopolis et raconte l'événement malheureux qui s'y passa. Timm, Lucot et Bartelink ont torts de supposer qu'il s'agit d'un monastère féminin de la région de Tabennêse-Phbôou.[61] En effet, Ladeuze et D. Butler veulent y voir une communauté de moniales de

(59) P. *Flor*. 297 :

302 εἰσπραξις ἀννώνης ὁμοίως τῶν Φαρανιτῶν Βαῦ τῆς αὐτῆς

303 μοναστηρίου Σμῖνος διὰ ˝ Απα Μουσαίου μονάζοντος ν. α A βL ´ ζυγ(ῷ)

Il faut lire Βαῦ (le monastère de Phbôou) au lieu de la lettre mytérieuse β (voir Gascou, P. Fouad 87..., 171–172).

(60) Le P. *Lond* IV 1420, 46 se lit : δ[τ] / γαμ[ε] Κυριλλο[υ] ∫ μ[ε] το[π] Ζμινος ν° S ν° α γι / ν° S σι αρ[τ] S

(διὰ τῆς γαμετῆς Κυρίλλου ὑπὲρ μερισμὸν τόπου Ζμινος 1/2 *Solidi* un *Solidi* devient 1/2 *Solidi* et 1/2 artabe de blé).

Le *P. Lond* IV 1424, 14 est ainsi écrit : [δ /] γαμ[τ] Κυριλλος Ιεζεκιηλ [∫] μερ· το[π] Τσεμινος ν° S [(διὰ τοῦ γαμετῆς Κύριλλος Ιεζεκιηλ ὑπὲρ μερι σμὸν τόπου Τσεμινος 1/2 Solidi [ ].

(61) Timm, dans: *Das christlichen-koptische Ägypten in arabischer Zeit...*, 2440; Lucot, Pallade, *Histoire Lausique...*, 33, 224 ; «nella regione di Tabennisi si trovavano tre monasteri femminili» (l'édition italienne de l'*Histoire Lausiaque* de Pallade, p. 362).

Panopolis.[62] Et il n'est pas difficile de saisir la cause de cette fondation, dans la mesure où la ville de Panopolis est, au IVe et Ve siècle, à côté d'Alexandrie, un des centres textiles et culturels. Ainsi il est raisonnable de penser que le récit légendaire de la rencontre entre un tailleur séculier et une moniale soit à attribuer à la communauté féminine de Panopolis, et non à celle de Tabennêse.

La tradition copte ne connaît pas cette communauté de femmes, alors qu'il y a dans la *Vita Prima* une réminiscence obscure. « Καὶ εἰς Τομηνὲ ἄλλην (μονὴν τῶν παρθένων) ἐποίησεν ἀββᾶ Παχούμιος περιών » (*G*[1] 134 ; l'édition de Halkin, p. 84, 27–28) : «et c'est à Tomêne que Abba Pachôme fonda une autre (communauté de femmes) dans son voyage». C'est la seule mention qu'on trouve au sujet de la nonnerie de Tsmîne dans toute la bibliothèque pachômienne, en principe réticente aux couvents de femmes et aux moniales. Le toponyme Τομηνέ (dans l'*atheniensis*, Ἰσμίν), et ses variantes Τισμηναι et Τομήν (l'édition de Halkin, pp. 56, 9 et 75, 9) n'est autre que le résultat de la grécisation du toponyme copte de Tsmîne. La localisation de Pallade selon laquelle la nonnerie se trouve sur la rive gauche (καὶ αἱ μὲν γυναῖκες πέραν τοῦ ποταμοῦ, οἱ δὲ ἄνδρες ἀντιπέρα), de l'autre côté de Panopolis, est conforme aux données papyrologiques. Comme la première communauté féminine de Tabennêse, proche de Phbôou, la nonnerie de Tsmîne dont le catéchumènes étaient confiés aux *didaskaloi* (διδασκάλοι), n'aurait pas été très éloignée du couvent d'hommes du même village.[63] En outre, on connaît, à travers une épigraphie, l'existence d'une moniale appelée Thekla originaire de la communauté féminine de Tsmîne.

10. Thbêou (ⲧⲃⲏⲟⲩ ; Τηβεῦ ou Τβοῦ)

Après la fondation de la communauté de Panopolis, le monastère typiquement '*familial*' de Pétronios fut incorporé dans la congrégation pachômienne (*G*[1] 80 et *Bo* 56). Selon *Bo* 56, la communauté de Thbêou se trouvait sur le domaine de ses parents. Et il est notable que, bien que Pétronios ait fait cadeau de tous ses biens à Pachôme, la terre ne figure pas dans la liste. D. Chitty pense que l'annexion de la communauté

(62) P. Ladeuze, *Etude sur le cénobitisme pakhômien pendant le IVe siècle et la première moitié du Ve* (Frankfurt 1961[2]) 177; D. Butler, *The Lausiac History of Palladius*, VI 1–2 (Cambridge, 1904) (Texts and Studies, 6) pt. II, 211, n. 59.

(63) Pallade, *Histoire Lausiaque* 34, 4. Pour le terme *didaskalos*, voir Elm, *Virgins of God...*, 246–248.

familiale de Thbêou n'est possible qu'après 339–340.[64] Atteint par la peste, mais désigné comme successeur par Pachôme à ses derniers moments, Pétronios mourut le 19 ou 21 juillet 346 (*Bo* 130 et *G*[1] 117) environs deux mois après la mort de Pachôme.

11. Phnoum (ϥⲛⲟⲩⲙ / Πιχνούμ ou Παχμοῦ)

Il s'agit du dernier monastère fondé par Pachôme, qui se trouvait au sud de Latopolis (*Bo* et *IFAO copte 3* 58 et *G*[1] 83). Il semble que la construction du mur d'enceinte du monastère provoqua, selon la tradition copte, la colère des chrétiens ainsi que celle de l'évêque de la ville. Lorsque Pachôme, convoqué entre 339 et 345 au synode de Latopolis à cause de son don de clairvoyance, fut victime d'une violence éclatante, il se réfugia dans ce monastère (*G*[1] 112).[65]

III. Conclusion

En ce qui concerne Tabennêse, la première communauté de Pachôme, j'estime qu'il n'y a pas de grand chose. J'ai tenté de remarquer seulement la mention fréquente des 'petites barques' figurée dans les *Vies*, car les bateaux et les bateliers faisaient un rôle important dans l'histoire de la *Koinonia* pachômienne. Il faudrait une autre étude pour les activités maritimes sur le Nil des moines pachômiens. Le monastère de Phbôou qui a remplacé le rôle de Tabennêse en tant que maison mère, représente la congrégation pachômienne dans l'histoire, particulièrement avec la contruction de sa basilique du V[e] siècle. Cette maison mère dont le nom se figure dans quelques documents papyrologiques du VI[e] siècle, est encore attestée même dans un papyrus trilingue daté de VIII[e] siècle. Bau (Βαῦ), autre toponyme grec de Phbôou est un des noms les plus fréquents dans les documents papyrologiques parmi les onze communautés de Pachôme.

Quant à Šenesêt (Χηνοβόσκια), Thmoušons (Μόνχωσις) et Tsê (Ταση̃), il n'y a pas de données siginicatives. J'ai essayé, pour la communauté de Panopolis, d'analyser, entre autres, quelques expressions enigmatiques dans l'*Histoire Lausiaque* de Pallade. On a arrivé à connaître le fait qu'il y avait souvent, dans la Koinonia pachômienne, un

(64) Chitty, A Note on the Chronology..., 382–384.

(65) A.-J. Festugière (introd. et trad.), *La Première Vie grecque de saint Pachôme*, dans: *Les Moines d'Orient*, t. IV/2 (Paris, 1965) 56–57; voir aussi Amélineau (éd. et trad.), *Monuments pour servir à l'histoire de l'Egypte chrétienne*, 591–595 et 642–643.

conflit autour de l'hégémonie. Le monastère de Tsmîne (μοναστήριον Σμῖνος) était un riche propriétaire de biens fonciers, surtout dès le VIe sicècle, comme on le voit dans quelques documents juridiques. Il est rarement mentionné dans les *Vies* mais les documents papyrologiques nous permettent de lui voir une grande importance économique parmi les monastères fondés par Pachôme. Pour les autres quatres monatères dont les deux sont féminins, leurs informations ne sont pas presques connues hors des *Vitae pachomianae*.

Les études pachômiennes restaient, durant le siècle dernier, principalement dans un domaine littéraire parfois complété par une fouille archéologique. Je crois que les données papyrologiques peuvent contribuer, avec d'autres sources traditionelles, à saisir mieux le développement des monastères pachômiens dans l'histoire et que la présente étude constitue un tel essai.

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SUMMARY

Pachomius founded eleven monasteries, nine for man and two for woman during his life (290–346). In the *Life of Pachomius*, there are several informations about the cenobite communities scattered along the Nile. The Pachomian communities in the *Life* is limited chronologically only to the end of the fourth century. Nevertheless, other sources, in particular, the papyrological documents present the Pachomian Koinonia in the fifth and sixth century. In all, twenty-four local communities of the Pachomian Koinonia can be confirmed through the various sources of the 5th–6th century, and even 7th–8th century. This study focuses on the early eleven communities founded by Pachomius himself.

Concerning the first monastery of Tabennesis, the significant documents have not been found, and this phenomenon results mostly from

the fact that Phboou, the second Pachomian monastery, played the role of the 'maison-mère'. The name of the Phboou is figured several times in the papyrological sources dated 6th and 8th century. Bau, Greek toponym of Phboou, is the most frequent name among the eleven monasteries in the papyrological sources. There are no important sources about Seneset (Chenoboskia), Thmousons (Monchosis) and Tse (Tase). On the other hand, several legal documents present that the monastery of Smin (Panopolis) was rich in the immovable property especially since the 6th century. Other pachomian monasteries were not almost known except *Vitae Pachomii*. The Pachomian study was focused generally on the literary sources, sometimes completed by archeological discovery. The papyrological materials can contribute to understand more the development of the Pachomian monasteries in the history.

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UN PALAMITE RUSSE DU DÉBUT DU XX^{ÈME} SIÈCLE : LE HIÉROMOINE ANTOINE BOULATOVITCH ET SA DOCTRINE SUR L'ÉNERGIE DIVINE[1]

Il est difficile de concevoir qu'à l'aube du XX^{e} siècle une querelle théologique ait pu ... se propager en Russie parmi les couches d'une société déjà largement sécularisée et provoquer ainsi une crise comparable aux pires excès des disputes christologiques dans l'empire byzantin des V^{e}–VI^{e} siècles. Il y a là matière à paradoxe, ce n'est certainement pas le seul.

Antoine Nivière[2]

La pensée théologique du hiéromoine Antoine Boulatovitch (1870–1919) reste pratiquement inconnue aux patrologues et aux historiens de la philosophie à l'Occident, elle est mal étudiée jusqu'au présent même en Russie, où au début du XX^{e} siècle avait éclaté la querelle théologique dont le père Antoine est devenu l'un des plus actifs participants.[3]

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(1) Les abréviations employées dans cet article :

Ap. — Иеросхимонах Антоний (Булатович), *Апология веры во Имя Божие и во Имя Иисус* [Hiéromoine Antoine Boulatovitch, *L'apologie de la foi en le Nom de Dieu et en le Nom de Jesus*] (Москва, 1913).

MP — Idem, *Моя мысль во Христе. О Деятельности (Энергии) Божества* [*Ma pensée en Christ. Sur l'Activité (l'Énergie) de la Divinité*] (Петроградъ, 1914).

JF — Idem, *Оправдание веры в Непобедимое, Непостижимое, Божественное Имя Господа нашего Иисуса Христа* [*La justification de la foi en le Nom Invincible, Incompréhensible, Divin de notre Seigneur le Christ Jesus*] (Петроградъ, 1917).

(2) A. Nivière, L'onomatodoxie: une crise religieuse à la veille de la révolution, dans : *Mille ans de Christianisme russe: 988–1988* (Paris, 1989) 285.

(3) Sur la discussion entre les onomatodoxes (*имяславцы*, les glorificateurs du nom) et les onomatoclastes (*имяборцы*, les ennemis du nom ; les onomatodoxes appelaient ainsi leurs adversaires, comme les iconodules appelaient autrefois les iconoclastes) voir: A. Nivière, *Le mouvement onomatodoxe : une querelle théologique parmi les moines russes du Mont-Athos (1907–1914)* (PhD diss., Paris, Sorbonne, 1987) ; T. E. Dikstra, *Heresy on Mt. Athos :*

Cependant les œuvres de Boulatovitch représentent un vrai phénomène dans la culture russe : cet homme qui n'avait pas d'éducation théologique spéciale et avait mené avant la tonsure une vie éloignée de l'activité écclésiastique,[4] est entré en discussion sur un problème théologique assez compliqué et s'est montré contre toute attente un meilleur connaisseur de la tradition patristique que ses adversaires, évêques et autres hommes d'Église.

C'est pourquoi les œuvres du père Antoine méritent beaucoup plus d'attention qu'on ne leur a prété jusqu'à présent. Bien que la discussion sur la vénération du nom de Dieu n'a point tiré à sa fin, les vues de Boulatovitch ne sont toujours pas devenues objet d'une étude approfondie. Aucune de ses œuvres théologiques principales n'a été traduite en une langue européenne, et seulement une d'elles a été rééditée en russe.[5] Le canevas des événements historiques liés avec la querelle

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Conflict over the Name of God Among Russian Monks and Hierarchs, 1912–1914 (M. Thesis. St. Vladimir' seminary, 1988), sur Internet http://www.pravoslav.de/imiaslavie/english/dykstra/dikstra.htm; Епископ Иларион (Алфеев), *Священная тайна Церкви. Введение в историю и проблематику имяславских споров* (Санкт-Петербург, 2002) Т. I, 289–637 (l'édition française de ce livre : H. Alfeyev, Introduction à l'histoire et à la problématique des débats athonites sur la vénération du nom de Dieu (Fribourg, 2007) (Studia Œcumenica Friburgensia, 47) ; *Д. Лескин, Спор об имени Божием. Философия имени в России в контексте афонских событий 1910-х гг*. (Санкт-Петербург, 2004) (Византийская библиотека) 21–137. Il faut noter que dans tous ces travaux la pensée de Boulatovitch est examinée d'une manière incomplète et assez fragmentaire ; pour les détails voir : монахиня Кассия (Т. А. Сенина), Афонское имяславие: степень изученности вопроса и перспективы исследований, *Вестник Русской Христианской Гуманитарной Академии* 9.1 (2008) 286–291 ; eadem, Новые монографии по вопросам имяславия, *Волшебная гора* XV (2009) 150–166.

(4) Le père Antoine, Alexandre Ksaverievitch Boulatovitch, un ancien officier de la garde et un explorateur intrépide en Abyssinie, avant l'entrée dans les ordres menait une vie pieuse mais tout à fait éloignée de quelle que ce soit activité ecclésiastique. Sur sa vie avant la prise d'habit voir : *И.* Кацнельсон, Г. Терехова, *По неизведанным землям Эфиопии* (Москва, 1975). On peut trouver l'exposé d'un autre livre de Katsnelson consacré à Boulatovitch sur le site de Richard Seltzer: I. S. Katsnelson, *A.X. Bulatovich — Hussar, Explorer, Monk* (http://www.samizdat.com/kats.html).

(5) C'est *Ap*. Les rééditions : 1) Е. С. Полищук (ред.), *Имяславие. Антология* (Москва, 2002) 9–160; 2) протоиерей К. Борщ (ред., сост. и комм.), *Имяславие. Сборник богословско-публицистических статей, документов и комментариев*, т. I (Москва, 2003) 307–502

onomatodoxe a déjà été assez bien étudié, mais on ne peut dire de même sur le fond théologique de la discussion.

Dans l'article présent je voudrais examiner la doctrine sur l'énergie divine formulée par le pére Antoine dans ses œuvres.

1. Le père Antoine sur la différence entre l'énergie et l'essence en Dieu

Le père Antoine a maintes fois souligné que la discussion sur le nom de Dieu ressemblait beaucoup au conflit entre les barlaamites et les palamites en XIV[e] siècle, et que cette controverse ayant commencé à cause de la prière de Jesus est devenue en fin de compte « la discussion sur l'Énergie Divine en général » (*JF*, 203).[6]

> « La thèse principale des onomatodoxes »,[7] affirmait le P. Antoine, « comme on le sait, est que toute énergie Divine est et se nomme Dieu, et c'est pourquoi les mots Divins inscrites dans les Saintes Écritures sont les Paroles de Dieu, pas mortes mais vivantes, et les noms de Dieu sont donc aussi en mystère Esprit et Vie, et ils peuvent avec juste raison être nommés Dieu Lui-même comme l'Énergie de la Divinité inséparable de l'Essense de Dieu » (*MP*, 5).

Et puisque le nom de Dieu est un cas de la parole de Dieu (*Ap.* 17), pour démontrer sa divinité il suffit de démontrer la divinité de la vérité de la Révélation divine et en fin de compte la divinité de toute action de Dieu. La discussion sur la divinité du nom de Dieu est ramenée de cette façon au débat « sur la divinité des dons du Saint-Esprit donnés dans la prière », car les onomatoclastes contestent « le théo-énergétique[8] du Nom de Jesus, de tout Nom de Dieu et des Paroles de l'Evangile » et « sont arrivés à la négation de cette verité apparemment absolue que *Vivante, en effet, est la parole de Dieu et efficace* (Heb 4,12)» (*JF*, 203).

C'est pourquoi dans ses œuvres le P. Antoine a assigné une place considérable aux preuves de la divinité et de la « théo-énergétique »

(6) En citant le P. Antoine je reproduis partout son emploi des lettres majuscules.

(7) J'employerai dans cet article les noms « onomatodoxes » et « onomatoclastes » employés par le P. Antoine pour appeler les partisans et les adversaires de l'onomatodoxie.

(8) Chez Bulatovitch : « Богоэнергетичность ».

Le hiéromoine Antoine Boulatovitch

des mots de prière et des mots des Saintes Écritures[9] comme de la vrai *parole divine* et non pas humaine, ayant accordé beaucoup d'attention au problème des énergies divines. Le débat entre les onomatodoxes et les onomatoclastes était au fond celui sur la connaissance de Dieu, sur la communion et l'union avec Dieu par les énergies divines, de la même façon qu'autrefois le débat entre les palamites et les barlaamites. La querelle onomatodoxe a commencé par la discussion sur le statut du nom de Jesus mais a révélé très vite « la différence organique de la foi » chez les onomatodoxes et les onomatoclastes sur laquelle écrivait le P. Antoine (*JF*, 8–9), et cette différence concernait déjà non seulement la doctrine des noms divins mais les vues sur le salut de l'homme et sur la communion avec Dieu.

On a déjà écrit assez sur la doctrine palamite,[10] et ici je voudrais montrer comment le P. Antoine s'est acquitté de sa tâche, celle de démontrer la divinité de la révélation de Dieu, « des Paroles de Dieu » au sens général, et des noms de Dieu en particulier. Ce problème n'était point simple parce que Boulatovitch n'avait pas à sa disposition une partie considérable des sources qu'employait S. Grégoire Palamas ni les œuvres de Palamas lui-même.[11] Il connaissait l'essentiel de la doctrine orthodoxe sur les énergies divines mais on peut dire qu'il lui fallait trouver de nouveau l'appui de cette doctrine. Le P. Antoine a su le faire quoique par d'autres moyens que S. Grégoire : Palamas en écrivant ses *Triades* et les autres traités citait beaucoup les œuvres dogmatiques des Pères de l'Église, mais dans les œuvres de Boulatovitch une place considérable est occupée par les citations des Saintes Écritures et des

(9) Sur cet aspect des vues de Boulatovitch voir en détail mon article : T. Senina, The Status of Divine Revelation in the Works of Hieromonk Anthony Bulatovich, *Scottish Journal of Theology* (à paraître).

(10) Les œuvres principales avec une vaste bibliographie sont : J. Meyendorff, *Introduction à l'étude de Grégoire Palamas* (Paris: Édition de Seuil, 1959), citée plus bas d'après l'édition russe, И. Мейендорф, *Жизнь и труды святителя Григория Паламы. Введение в изучение*. Пер. Г. Н. Начинкина под ред. И. П. Медведева и В. М. Лурье (Санкт-Петербург, 1997) (Subsidia byzantinorossica, 2) ; *Д*. И. Макаров, *Антропология и космология св. Григория Паламы (на примере гомилий)* (Санкт-Петербург, 2003) (Библиотека христианской мысли. Исследования).

(11) La plupart des œuvres de Palamas n'étaient pas alors traduites ni même éditées. Boulatovitch, à en juger par le contenu de ses œuvres, ne connaissait que le sujet du débat entre S. Grégoire et Barlaame et l'anathème contre ceux qui nient la divinité de l'énergie de Dieu (voir plus bas la 3ème partie de cet article), mais il ne cite pas une seule fois Palamas lui-même.

textes liturgiques que le P. Antoine interprète dans le sens palamite. Il a consacré à cela toute « Ma pensée en Christ » au commencement de laquelle il déclarait son but :

> « Je me décide à exprimer dans cet ouvrage-ci, en premier lieu, les pensées sur l'Énergie Divine qui m'ont été révélées aux moments des méditations de prière et de la lecture du Saint Evangile et des offices divins, aussi bien que les pensées qui portent un témoignage incontestable pour moi que les Paroles de la Révélation Divine adressées aux hommes sont en vérité les Paroles vivantes de Dieu Lui-même et son Énergie verbale[12] et toujours existante et non pas une création de l'Énergie de la Divinité, et que les Noms de Dieu sont de pareilles Paroles Divines » (*MP*, 6).

Les théologiens russes s'intéressaient si peu à la problématique palamite que le P. Antoine n'exagérait pas en écrivant : « La doctrine sur l'Énergie de la Sainte Trinité est élaborée très peu dans la théologie » (*MP*, 6), en entendant la théologie russe. Peut-être le P. Antoine est devenu le premier théologien russe dont les œuvres ont mis ce sujet si fort en relief, notamment « parce que le débat présent sur le Nom de Dieu ne peut être tranché que sur la base de la doctrine sur l'Énergie Divine » (*MP*, 6). Il donne une définition de l'énergie divine :

> « L'Énergie est un terme grec, et que personne ne pense que le mot "Énergie" signifie à l'égard de Dieu la même chose que nous entendons par le mot "énergie" dans le sens commun. ... L'Énergie Divine signifie l'Activité de l'Essence Divine. ... Saint Grégoire Palamas

(12) Chez Bulatovitch : « словесная Энергия »; il entend par cela non pas littéralement l'énergie verbale dans le sens commun, mais l'énergie de Dieu qui se manifeste aux hommes par le Verbe de Dieu, par la révélation divine. Il appelle cette énergie « Глаголъ » (« la Parole ») en s'appuyant sur la traduction slavone de Hebr. 1,1–3 : **бг҃ъ ... въ послѣдокъ дни҃й сі́хъ гл҃а на́мъ въ сы́нѣ, є҆го́же положи҃ наслѣ́дника всѣ́мъ, и҃мже и҆ вѣ́ки сотвори҃. и҃же сы́й сіа́нїе сла́вы и҆ ѡ҃бразъ у҆постаси҃ є҆гѡ̀, носи́ же всѧ́чєскаѧ гл҃го́ломъ сі́лы своєѧ̀, собо́ю ѡ҃чищє́нїе сотвори́въ грѣхѡ́въ на́шихъ, сѣ́де ѡ҆ десно́ю престо́ла величествїѧ̀ на высо́кихъ. — *Dieu**, en ces jours qui sont les derniers, **nous a parlé par le Fils**, qu'il a établi héritier de toute chose, par qui aussi il a fait les siècles. Resplendissement de sa gloire, effigie de sa substance, **ce Fils qui soutient l'univers par <u>sa parole</u> puissante**, ayant accompli la purification des péchés, s'est assis à la droite de la Majesté dans les hauteurs*, — « ne comprenant pas le mot "Parole" dans le sens d'un mot articulé, mais en le comprenant dans le sens d'une Action verbale mystérieuse du Verbe ... qui définit, c'est-à-dire dit toutes les expressions de la volonté du Père », « non pas dans le sens d'un mot articulé humain, mais dans le sens spirituel et mental » (*MP*, 8, 20 ; cf. 11).

> a établi que, d'une part, l'Activité de Dieu est sans confusion avec l'Essence de Dieu et que, d'autre part, l'Activité de Dieu est sans séparation avec l'Essence de Dieu, et il a établi la qualité Divine et la nature Divine de l'Activité de Dieu » (*MP*, 6–7).

Ayant marqué de cette façon la succession de ses vues par rapport à la doctrine de Palamas, Boulatovitch montre comment on peut voir la différence entre l'essence et l'énergie en Dieu. L'énergie divine est communicable à la création, à la différence de l'essence non-communicable (*MP*, 66), c'est pourquoi tous les textes d'église parlant de la communion avec Dieu, de l'action de Dieu sur l'homme, de l'acquisition de la grâce divine ont en vue l'énergie de Dieu et non pas son essence. Par exemple, « l'enrichissement en vue de Dieu » (Lk 12,21) dont parle le Christ montre, d'après l'exégèse du P. Antoine, « qu'on peut devenir possesseur de Dieu », et qu'il s'agit ici notamment de la communion à Dieu par l'énergie : « L'Essence de l'Existant n'est pas communicable à la création ... Mais l'Activité (l'Énergie) de Dieu est communicable à la création. L'Énergie Divine s'appelle Dieu et Divinité, et voici donc de quel enrichissement parle le Seigneur » (*MP*, 101). De la même façon il interprète la phrase de la Première Épitre de Jean le Théologien « qui a le Fils a la vie » (1 Jn 5,12) : « Est-ce qu'il est possible d' "avoir" l'essence même du Fils de Dieu ? L'Essence de l'Existant n'est pas communicable à la création, mais à la création est communicable Son Activité (Énergie) », et par conséquent l'apôtre entendait ici notamment la communion à l'énergie divine (*MP*, 162).

Le P. Antoine trouve les indications de la différence de l'essence et de l'énergie divines aussi dans l'hymnographie. Ainsi, par exemple, en interprétant le 2ème tropaire de la 5ème ode du canon à la Trinité du 4ème ton à l'office de minuit,[13] Boulatovitch écrit à propos de l'expression « la Nature incréée et la Source produisant la lumière de tout éclat qui donne la Lumière » : ici « on distingue tout à fait nettement l'Essence non-communicable de la Divinité et Son Énergie communicable » : l'essence divine est appelée « la Lumière Trisolaire, la Lumière Substantielle » etc, et l'énergie est appellée « *l'Éclat qui donne la Lumière* de cette *Source produisant la Lumière*, de l'Essence de la Sainte Trinité », et par la communion à cette énergie « on contemple la Beauté indicible de la Divinité, c'est-à-dire Ses qualités » (*MP*, 34–35).

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(13) Voir : **Ѻ́ктоѵ́хъ, сі́рѣчь ѻ́смогла́сникъ. Гла́сы а̑–ѯ̑** (**Москвѣ, лицѣ**) 510 ; le texte grec se trouve dans : *Παρακλητικὴ ἤτοι Ὀκτώηχος ἡ μεγάλη* (Ἐν Ῥώμῃ, 1885) 276.

Pour appuyer cette pensée dans son autre livre le P. Antoine emploie le troisième Discours Théologique de S. Syméon le Nouveau Théologien où le saint parle de la connaissance expérimentale des actions de la Lumière divine.[14] « Il est évident qu'il ne peut pas être question de la connaissance expérimentale de la Lumière des hypostases Divines et de la production de la lumière par elles ; en effet, qui peut connaître l'essence Divine "par expérience" ? », écrit Boulatovitch en venant à la conclusion que dans le texte de S. Syméon il s'agit de la connaissance de Dieu grâce à la communion à sa lumière-énergie par la prière au nom de Dieu (*JF*, 35–36).

Il est intéressant de noter que pour démontrer la difference entre l'énergie et l'essence en Dieu et la possibilité de la communion à l'énergie divine, le P. Antoine utilise les œuvres de S. Syméon que les palamites n'utilisaient presque pas en leur temps, bien que dans ses œuvres le sujet de la communion à Dieu et de la divinisation soit représenté beaucoup plus fortment que chez bien d'autres Pères d'Église. La cause était qu'il y avait les différences dans la terminologie chez S. Syméon et S. Grégoire Palamas : Syméon utilisait la terminologie archaïque, confondait les notions « hypostase » et « essence » dans la christologie, enseignait la communion de Dieu « par l'essence » et l'« essentielle » connaissance de Dieu, en employant la terminologie théologique qui existait avant le système théologique de S. Maxime le Confesseur, et la notion de l'essence chez S. Syméon différait de celle qui était généralement reçue après S. Maxime. En étudiant la théologie de S. Syméon Istvan Perczel a conclu que chez lui l'essence communicable « plays exactly the same role as the Operations in the Hesychast doctrine », et que les doctrines de S. Syméon et de S. Grégoire Palamas « can perhaps be considered as identical in their ultimate content, but very different in their form, and also in their philosophical connotations » ;[15] cette opinion de Perczel est partagée aussi par Basile Lourié.[16] On peut donc dire que les œuvres du P. Antoine représentent la

(14) *Theol*. III, l. 158–168, J. Darrouzès (ed.), Syméon le Nouveau Théologien, *Traités théologiques et éthiques*. T. I (Paris, 1966) (SC, 122) 166; pour les detais voir : Т. А. Сенина (монахиня Кассия), Св. Симеон Новый Богослов в творениях иеросхимонаха Антония (Булатовича), *Волшебная гора* XV (2009) 37–57, voir 45–48.

(15) I. Perczel, Saint Symeon the New Theologian and the theology of the Divine Substance, *Acta Antiqua Hungarica* 41 (2001) 125–146, voir 136 et 139.

(16) В. М. Лурье, Луч света в темном веке: Симеон Новый Богослов и догматика византийских *Dark Ages* (à paraître). Voir aussi : Д. С. Бирюков,

réception ecclésiastique de la doctrine de S. Syméon et en même temps correspondent aux conclusions des savants modernes : bien que Boulatovitch ne soit pas raffiné sur la doctrine du saint, il y a vu toutefois l'essentiel, à savoir que S. Syméon exprimait la même doctrine que les palamites, et que justement cette doctrine sur la communion réelle à Dieu est orthodoxe et adoptée par toute l'Église.

2. L'énergie divine comme « l'activité triune » de la Sainte Trinité

Le P. Antoine, en réponse à la question pourquoi l'énergie divine, malgré sa différence de l'essence, s'appelle aussi Dieu, explique :

> « Ainsi que nous distinguons mais ne divisons pas les Trois Personnes de la Sainte Trinité, de même nous distinguons dans la Sainte Trinité Son Activité Triune et Son Essence, mais ne divisons point l'Activité d'avec l'Essence Divine, c'est pourquoi nous sommes en droit de nommer et nous devons nommer l'Essence Divine ainsi que l'Énergie Divine "Dieu". Mais il est plus juste de dire "Dieu Lui-même", en entendant notamment le contact avec Dieu dans son Activité. Car en l'Activité de la Divinité on ne vénère pas une autre Divinité, séparée de la Sainte Trinité, mais la Sainte Trinité Elle-même dans la manifestation de Son Activité. Il convient donc d'appeler l'Énergie Divine manifestée aux hommes par le mot "Dieu Lui-même", pour montrer plus clairement la confession qu'elle ne se sépare pas de l'Essence Divine » (*MP*, 53).

Cette opinion correspond parfaitement à la doctrine de S. Grégoire Palamas qui a accordé une place considérable dans ses œuvres à l'argumentation de ce pourquoi l'existence de l'énergie distincte de l'essence en Dieu ne mène pas au duothéisme : comme l'essence de Dieu est inabordable pour la création, la communion avec Dieu est possible par les énergies qui ne sont pas l'essence mais qui sont néanmoins le même Dieu, parce qu'Il « est présent tout entier dans chacune des énergies appropriées à Dieu » (*Triades*, III.2.7).[17]

Св. Симеон Новый Богослов, dans : Г. И. Беневич (сост., ред.), *Д.* С. Бирюков (ред.), *Антология восточно-христианской богословской мысли. Ортодоксия и гетеродоксия*. Т. 2 (Москва—Санкт-Петербург: «Никея»—РХГА, 2009) (Smaragdos Philocalias ; Византийская философия, 5) 286–290.

(17) Je cite la traduction par l'édition : J. Meyendorff (éd.), Grégoire Palamas, *Défense des saints hésychastes*. Introduction, texte critique, traduction et notes (Louvain, 1973²) (Spicilegium Sacrum Lovaniense. Études et documents, 31) 656, avec une modification. Sur cet aspect de la doctrine de S. Grégoire,

« Dieu est inaltérable mais aussi toujours en mouvement », écrit le P. Antoine. « Le mouvement permanent de Dieu s'exprime par la manifestation des propriétés de Son Essence » (*Ap.*, 4). Puis il interprète l'expression d'Évangile « le Verbe était avec Dieu »[18] (Jn 1,1) comme indication qu'avant la création du monde « l'action de Dieu était dirigée vers Dieu lui-même ». Dans *MP* il revient à ce sujet et spécifie qu'en parlant dans son livre de l'énergie de Dieu, il parlera de « la manifestation extérieure de l'Activité de la Divinité par rapport à la création », mais dans la vie intérieure de la Sainte Trinité il y a un autre mouvement : le Père engendre toujours le Fils et fait procéder l'Esprit, le Fils naît toujours et l'Esprit procède toujours du Père (*Ap.*, 30; *MP*, 13), et outre cela il existe « le mouvement éternel des Hypostases l'une vers l'autre » (ici de nouveau Jn 1,1 est cité) qui « peut aussi être nommé l'Énergie » (*MP*, 7). Cette énergie « intérieure » de Dieu est « la contemplation de Soi-Même », comme écrit le P. Antoine (*Ap.*, 30), en fondant son opinion sur les paroles de S. Jéan Damascène que Dieu a créé le monde visible et invisible « sans se contenter de la contemplation de Lui-même ».[19] On trouve la même doctrine chez les autres Pères. Par example, S. Grégoire Palamas, en démontrant que les énergies divines sont incréées et éternelles, dit que la contemplation de Soi-même par Dieu est Son énergie ou activité :

> « ... non seulement les puissances de Dieu, que les saints Pères, comme tu pourras le trouver, appellent aussi souvent "énergies naturelles", mais aussi les œuvres de Dieu sont sans commencement ... Et la prescience divine a-t-elle un commencement ? Pourrait-on imaginer un commencement de la contemplation de soi et y a-t-il eu un moment où Dieu commença à être poussé vers cette contemplation de soi ? Jamais. ... Voici manifestement des oeuvres de Dieu sans commencement et antérieures aux siècles : la prescience,

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avec les citations et les références, voir en détail : Мейендорф, *Жизнь и труды святителя Григория Паламы*…, 288–300; Архиепископ Василий (Кривошеин), Аскетическое и богословское учение св. Григория Паламы, dans : Idem, *Богословские труды 1952–1983 гг. Статьи, доклады, переводы* (Нижний Новгород, 1996) 145–174.

(18) ὁ λόγος ἦν πρὸς τὸν θεόν, slavon : слово бѣ къ бг҃у; la traduction russe synodale «Слово было у Бога» est aussi possible.

(19) Cf. Joannes Damascenus, *Expositio fidei*, 16, l. 2–3 ; voir l'édition P. B. Kotter (hrsg.), *Die Schriften des Johannes von Damaskos*, vol. 2 (Berlin: De Gruyter, 1973) (PTS, 12).

la volonté, la providence, la contemplation de soi et tout ce qui leur est semblable » (*Triades*, III.2.6–7).[20]

Le Père Antoine a réservé beaucoup de place dans *MP* et en partie dans *JF* aux arguments à l'appui de la « triunité » de Dieu, c'est-à-dire que, d'une part, toutes les personnes de la Trinité possèdent l'énergie unie, mais, d'autre part, « chaque Personne prend sa propre part à l'action unie et commune », notamment : le Père comme le Principe est « l'Initiateur c'est-à-dire Celui qui veut toute action de la Sainte Trinité », le Fils comme la Parole et l'image du Père « annonce la volonté et la décision de tout dessein de Dieu et décrit toute qualité de Dieu », et l'Esprit « est la Force vitale et le Sens[21] du Père, Il est pour ainsi dire l'Âme de la Divinité », et par l'Esprit « toute volonté du Père définie par le Fils s'accomplit, et toute perfection du Père nommée par le Fils se fait sentir » (*MP*, 18–19).

> « ... comme chaque Personne de la Sainte Trinité participe à toute action divine par Son Activité, nous distinguons dans l'Activité triune de la Sainte Trinité manifestée envers les hommes l'Activité particulière du Père, l'Activité particulière du Fils et l'Activité particulière de l'Esprit Saint » (*MP*, 13–14).
>
> « ... dans toute Action de la Sainte Trinité prennent part le Père par l'acte de volonté, le Fils par la définition et l'Esprit Saint par l'exécution et la sensation ; et toute Action de la Sainte Trinité ne représente pas trois actions séparées des trois Personnes, mais elle est l'action unie du Dieu Unique » (*MP*, 17).
>
> « ... la Faveur à l'homme et la réconciliation avec l'homme est une Action particulière du Père, la Révélation et la Vérité révélées à l'homme sont une Action particulière du Fils, et la Grâce et la Puissance données aux hommes sont une Action particulière de l'Esprit Saint, — et toutes ces trois sont une. Nous unissons ces Énergies du Père, du Fils et de l'Esprit Saint et les distiguons, toujours existantes ensemble et distinguées ; nous pensons à une seule Action inséparable de la Divinité et nous entendons les trois qui se distinguent inséparablement » (*MP*, 37).

Chaque Hypostase de la Trinité agit, mais leur action et unie parce que « ces trois Personnes consubstantielles ont une seule essence et un seul lien de l'amour, ... une seule volonté, une seule parole, une seule sensation, un seul acte » (*MP*, 18). Le P. Antoine a consacré à ce sujet

(20) Meyendorff, Grégoire Palamas, *Défense...*, 652–654.

(21) Chez Boulatovitch: « Чувство ».

les 1er–3e chapitres de la première partie de *MP* et plus tard il le touche aussi dans *JF*.[22]

Il trouve dans les Saintes Écritures des preuves que l'énergie divine est en même temps triple et une. Par exemple, les déscriptions évangéliques du baptême du Christ (Mt 3,13–17, Mk 1,9–11, Lk 3,21–22) et de Sa transfiguration (Mt 17,1–13, Mk 9,1–9, Lk 28,28–36) sont pour le P. Antoine des preuves de « la triplicité de l'activité de la Sainte Trinité » : « chaque Personne de la Sainte Trinité s'est manifestée par une action particulière de Son Activité » (*MP*, 20). À propos des paroles du Christ « tout ce qui est à Moi est à Toi, et tout ce qui est à Toi est à Moi » (Jn 17,10) Boulatovitch écrit : « Le bien commun du Père et du Fils est en premier lieu l'Activité indivisible de la Divinité. Et qu'il s'agit ici notamment de l'Activité de la Divinité, c'est témoigné par les paroles précédentes : "ils ont reconnu que tout ce que Tu M'as donné vient de Toi". Par conséquent "à Moi" est tout ce que le Père donne au Fils, c'est-à-dire les Paroles et la Révélation » (*MP*, 36).[23] Le P. Antoine trouve beaucoup de preuves de la triunité de l'énergie de Dieu dans les textes liturgiques, surtout dans les canons à la Trinité des offices de minuit de dimanche. Dans toutes les expressions comme « равносла́тную си́лу я҃кω и҃му́щи, тр҃це пре҃бщественнаѧ »,[24] « равнодѣ́тельнъ бо [l'Esprit] е҃сть о҃у҃̀ и҃ сло́ву », [25] « свѣ́тъ нераздѣ́льный е҆ди́наго е҆стества̀, ... трисїа́нный »,[26] « о҃у҃̀а и҃ сі́на, и҃ дх҃а сла́вимъ, ... тебѣ̀ е҆ди́нственнаго и҃ трисїа́ннаго г҃да », [27]« хра́мъ ма̀ твоеа̀ трисвѣ́тныа сотвори́ Зари́, бл҃годѣ́телю », [28] etc, le P. Antoine voit des témoignages de l'énergie triple et une de la Trinité (voir *MP*, 21–36).

Quel rapport cette doctrine sur l'action triune de Dieu a-t-elle avec la doctrine des Pères d'Église sur l'énergie divine ? D'une part, les Pè-

(22) Voir : *JF*, 52–54, 92, 166, 173, 176.

(23) D'autres exemples de la même interprétation des passages différents du Nouveau Testament voir : *MP*, 38–39, 46–47, 49, 51–53, 84, 118–119, 221.

(24) L'office de minuit, le canon à la Trinité, ton 1, ode 6, tropaire 1, en grec : ἰσόῤῥοπον τὴν δύναμιν ὡς ἔχουσα, Τριὰς ἡ ὑπερούσιος.

(25) Les Matines du dimanche, ton 6, la 2ème antienne, sur la « Gloire... » : ἰσουργὸν γὰρ τῷ Πατρί ἐστι καὶ Λόγῳ.

(26) L'office de minuit, le canon à la Trinité, ton 5, ode 5, tropaire 3 : φῶς τὸ ἀδιαίρετον τῆς μιᾶς φύσεως, ... τριλαμπὲς.

(27) Ibid., ode 3, tropaire 3 : Πατέρα καὶ τὸν Υἱὸν καὶ Πνεῦμα δοξάζομεν ... σὲ τὸν ἑνικὸν καὶ τριλαμπῆ Κύριον.

(28) L'office de minuit, le canon à la Trinité, ton 7, ode 8, tropaire 3 : ναόν με τῆς σῆς τριφαοῦς ποίησον αἴγλης, ἀγαθουργέ.

res soulignent toujours que les Hypostases de la Trinité possèdent une seule énergie parce qu'elles ont une seule essence. En résumant les arguments des Pères à l'appui de ce pourquoi l'on parle d'un seul Dieu et non pas de trois, bien qu'il y ait trois Hypostases dans la Trinité, S. Jean Damascène écrit :

> « [Dans la Sainte Trinité] la communauté et l'unité se voient en réalité à cause de la co-éternité [des Personnes] et de l'identité de leurs essence, énergie et volonté, et à cause de l'unanimité dans l'opinion et de l'identité du pouvoir, de la puissance et de la bonté — j'ai dit : l'identité et non pas la ressemblance, — et aussi à cause de l'origine unie du mouvement. Car il y a une seule essence, une seule bonté, une seule puissance, une seule volonté, une seule énergie, un seul pouvoir, un seul mouvement des trois hypostases et non pas les trois pareils l'un à l'autre ».[29]

D'autre part, on peut trouver chez les Pères des affirmations fort semblables aux paroles du P. Antoine sur « l'activité particulière » des personnes de la Trinité et en même temps sur « une seule action d'un seul Dieu » :

> « ... Procédons donc déjà à l'exposé de la théologie, en donnant la parole au Père, au Fils et à l'Esprit Saint dont nous parlons : que l'un y mette sa complaisance, que l'autre y concoure et que l'autre l'inspire. Mieux vaut dire, que soit sur elle une seule illumination d'une seule Divinité, qui se divise en s'unissant et s'unit en se divisant, ce qui est merveilleux ».[30]
>
> « Dieu a médité premièrement les puissances des anges et des cieux. Et la pensée est devenue l'action executée par le Verbe et accomplie par l'Esprit ».[31]
>
> « Cette prière ... appelle le bien de chacune des Hypostases bienheureux par un nom particulier : celui du Fils, la grâce, celui du Père, l'amour, celui de l'Esprit, la communion. Car alors que nous n'avions rien apporté de nous-mêmes et que nous étions même dignes de condamnation, le Fils est devenu Lui-même notre Saveur, parce qu'*alors que nous étions encore pécheurs, Il est mort pour nous* (Rom 5,8), et c'est pourquoi Sa providence de nous est la grâce. Et comme le Père s'est réconcilié avec le genre humain par les souffrances du Fils et a aimé les ennemis, Son bienfait à nous s'appelle

(29) Joannes Damascenus, *Expositio fidei*, 8, l. 240–246 (Kotter).

(30) S. Gregorius Theologus, *Oraitio 28, Theologica secunda, De theologia*, 1, dans : *PG* 36, col. 25D, 28A.

(31) Idem, *Oratio 45, In sanctum Pascha*, 5, dans : *PG* 36, col. 629A.

> l'amour. Et comme il convenait aux ennemis qui s'étaient faits amis de devenir des participants des biens du *Riche en miséricorde* (Ephes 2,4), l'Esprit Saint tombé sur les apôtres l'accomplit, et c'est pourquoi Sa grâce envers les hommes s'appelle la communion ».[32]

Ainsi l'on peut dire qu'en parlant de « l'énergie triune » de Dieu, le P. Antoine, malgré l'affirmation contraire aux usages sur « l'Action particulière » de chaque Personne de la Trinité, formule la théologie qui ne sort pas du cadre de la doctrine orthodoxe dont le P. Jean Meyendorff a fait l'exposé suivant :

> « … in God's nature the decisive acting factor is hypostatic; hence, divine "energy" is not only unique but tri-hypostatic since the "energy" reflects the common life of the three Persons. The personal aspects of the divine subsistence do not disappear in the one "energy," and it is indeed the Trinitarian life of God which is communicated and participated in the "energy": through the «energy» therefore the divine hypostases appear in their co-inherence (*perichōrēsis*): "I am in the Father and the Father in me" (Jean 14:11). ... in God ... the *perichōrēsis* expresses the perfect love, and, therefore, the perfect unity of "energy," of the three hypostases, without however any mingling or coalescence. The "energy," because it is always Trinitarian, is always an expression and a communication of love: "As the Father has loved me, so I have loved you: abide in my love" (Jean 15:9) ».[33]

3. « D'où lui vient donc tout cela ? » (Mt 13,56)

On se présente pourtant une question : d'où le P. Antoine a-t-il été renseigné sur la doctrine sur les énergies divines qui n'était point bien répandue dans la théologie russe ? En commençant le travail sur *Ap.*, le P. Antoine ne savait rien encore de l'existence de l'anathème contre Barlaame et il l'as appris apparemment de Michel Novoselov.[34]

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(32) Nicolaus Cabasilas, *Explicatio divinae liturgiae*, 26.4, voir : R. Bornert, J. Gouillard, P. Périchon, S. Salaville (éds.), Nicolas Cabasilas, *Explication de la divine liturgie* (Paris : Éditions du Cerf, 1967) (SC, 4 bis).

(33) J. Meyendorff, *Byzantine theology: historical trends and doctrinal themes* (Fordham University Press, 1979) 186. Dans le Chapitre 14 de ce livre, « The Triune God » (pp. 180–190), on trouve un exposé de la doctrine des Père byzantins sur ce problème.

(34) Sur M. A. Novoselov et son activité dans le domaine de l'instruction chrétienne voir : И. В. Никитина, С. М. Половинкин, Московский авва, dans : Игумен Андроник Трубачев (ред.), *Архив священника Павла Александрови-*

Boulatovitch s'est adressé à Novoselov en août 1912 avec la demande d'imprimer son *Ap*. À ce qu'il paraît, les éditions de la « Bibliothèque religio-philosophique » publiée par Novoselov en 1902–1917 étaient connues assez bien en Athos, et le P. Antoine croyait justement que Novoselov était un homme avec des vues strictiment orthodoxes. Dans sa première lettre à Novoselov (du 13 août 1912) le P. Antoine écrit que les onomatoclastes « font descendre le Nom de Dieu sur le degré d'un simple mot, mort et créé », « nient que la puissance Divine est inhérente au Nom » et disent que le Fils de Dieu a pris le nom Jésus « seulement dans Son humanité » ; que « le Nom de Dieu est devenu maintenant pour les hautains sur-savants intelligents totalement rien ! Et même Dieu est devenu non pas Dieu, mais une sorte de bon camarade » ; en envoyant *Ap.* à Novoselov, Boulatovitch espérait de rencontrer chez lui un écho comme chez un « intellectuel repenti ».[35] Il a reçu la réponse de Novoselov très vite, car la lettre suivante du P. Antoine à lui date du 26 septembre, et vers ce moment Boulatovitch a déjà eu le temps de remanier le début d'*Ap*., évidemment en rapport avec l'information reçue de Novoselov.

> « Serviteur de Dieu Michel », écrit le P. Antoine, « béni soit Celui qui vous suscite à notre aide dans cette lutte. ... J'ai approuvé vos remarques. ... Je vous envoie le début remanié. Je n'ai pas eu le temps de faire tout pour ce courrier. Si les vapeurs circulent, j'enverrai le reste dans deux semaines avec le vapeur suivant. Sinon, tirez-vous-en avec ce que vous avez. Il ne faut qu'abréger la Conclusion et **attirer l'attention sur l'Anathème contre Barlaame** ».[36]

Un peu plus tard le P. Antoine est entré en correspondence avec le père Paul Florensky et le 17 décembre il lui apprend qu'il a renvoyé à Novoselov les six premiers chapitres d'*Ap*. et il écrit :

ча Флоренского. Вып. 2. *Переписка с М. А. Новоселовым* (Томск, 1998) 9–38 (en particulier, sur la participation de Novoselov au débat onomatodoxe voir p. 30–32). Sur le cercle de Novoselov voir : Лескин, *Спор об имени Божием*… 141–171. Dans sa jeunesse Novoselov s'était engoué des idées de L. N. Tolstoy mais puis il est revenu sur les positions strictement orthodoxes qu'il n'a pas quittées jusqu'à la fin de sa vie, n'étant pas pourtant clérical et ne rampant pas devant les autorités écclesiastiques.

(35) Трубачев, *Архив священника Павла Александровича Флоренского*…, 70 (Lettre 25).

(36) Ibid., 72 (Lettre 26), mis en relief par moi.

> « Je vous prie d'imprimer ces mêmes chapitres et non pas ceux écrits plus tôt », dit-il, « car lorsque j'écrivais la première Apologie, je cherchais des raisons pour affirmer que l'essence du Nom est divine, mais je ne savais pas encore que la qualité Divine du Nom de Dieu est déjà reconnue par l'Eglise et que tous ce qui ne reconnaissent pas la qualité Divine de l'**action** du Nom de Dieu sont déjà condamnés. Par conséquent notre but est simplifié à présent, et nous avons le droit non seulement de contredire les adversaires, mais **de les appeler sans façon hérétiques**, et **non seulement nous pouvons le faire, mais nous le devons pour sauver l'orthodoxie**. ... La nouvelle Apologie est donc édifiée sur la pierre de ce que le Nom de Dieu est la Vérité révélée par Dieu, et s'il est ainsi, cette Vérité est donc l'action verbale[37] de la Divinité et, par conséquent, se nomme par nécessité **Dieu** ».[38]

Malheureusement on ne sait pas exactement ce que Novoselov a écrit à Boulatovitch, mais on peut supposer que l'association avec l'anathème contre Barlaame a pu surgir parce que les onomatodoxes insistaient dès le début que le nom divin est inséparable de Dieu, aussi bien que les palamites insistaient sur l'inséparabilité de l'énergie divine de Dieu. Dans la rédaction nouvelle d'*Ap*. qui a été publiée par Novoselov dans la « Bibliothèque religio-philosophique » en 1913, le P. Antoine cite l'anathème contre Barlaame et met en parallèle les débats entre les palamites et les barlaamites et les débats entre les onomatodoxes et les onomatoclastes (*Ap*., 2–6). Comme Boulatovitch indiquait dans *Ap*., il a cité cet anathème dans sa propre traduction d'après le *Triode de carême* grec.[39]

De plus, dans la lettre à M. Novoselov du 15 mai 1913, déjà de Saint-Pétersbourg, le P. Antoine écrivait qu'un certain Sokolov lui avait lu un fragment inédit de S. Grégoire Palamas où « il y a un passage disant tout franchement que le nom *Dieu* est appliqué en premier lieu à l'Essence divine elle-même, en deuxième lieu à chacune des Hypostases, et en troisième lieu à l'action Divine et, par conséquent, à la révélation

(37) Voir plus haut, n. 12.

(38) Трубачев, *Архив священника Павла Александровича Флоренского*…, 81–82 (Lettre 34), mis en relief par le P. Antoine.

(39) En la citant quelques années plus tard dans *JF*, Boulatovitch emploie l'édition : К. Никольский, *Анафематствование (отлучение от Церкви), совершаемое в первую неделю Великого поста: Историческое исследование о чине Православия* (Санкт-Петербург, 1879).

Divine et au nom ».[40] Les éditeurs de cette lettre n'ont pas pu identifier ce Sokolov, mais à mon avis il y a une probabilité que il s'agit du bysantiniste russe Ivan Ivanovitch Sokolov (1865–1939), professeur de l'Académie ecclésiastique de Saint-Pétersbourg, qui étudiait les aspects historiques et théologiques de l'hésychasme byzantin et a publié en 1911 un vaste compte rendu du livre de G. Papamichaïlos sur S. Grégoire Palamas.[41]

Dans *Ap*. le P. Antoine n'a qu'effleuré le thème de la divinité des énergies de Dieu et s'est concentré sur la divinité du nom de Dieu. Mais quand les onomatoclastes se sont mis à contester la confirmation que l'énergie divine est Dieu,[42] le P. Antoine a décidé évidemment d'examiner la question des énergies divines d'une manière plus détaillée, ce qu'il a fait dans *MP*.

Il faut noter à part avec quelle rapidité le P. Antoine a su employer l'information reçue de Novoselov sur l'anathème contre ceux qui nient la divinité de l'énergie de Dieu, et avec quelle profondeur il a développé le thème des énergies divines dans ses œuvres, surtout dans *MP*. Ce fait paraît être étroitement lié avec celui que Boulatovitch était enraciné en pratique dans la tradition des Pères, voilà pourquoi il a su comprendre rapidement, profondément et exactement la théorie

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(40) Трубачев, *Архив священника Павла Александровича Флоренского…*, 101 (Lettre 49).

(41) Voir : Г. Е. *Лебедева*, Ученый и время: И. И. Соколов, dans : И. И. Соколов, *Состояние монашества в Византийской Церкви с середины IX до начала XIII века (842–1204). Опыт церковно-исторического исследования* (Санкт-Петербург, 2003) 7–32; И. И. Соколов, Свт. Григорий Палама, архиепископ Фессалоникийский, его труды и учение об исихии. По поводу исследования Г. Х. Папамихаила: « Ὁ ἅγιος Γρηγόριος Παλαμᾶς ἀρχιεπίσκοπος Θεσσαλονίκης ». Ἀλεξάνδρεια, 1911, dans : ibem, *Свт. Григорий Палама, архиепископ Фессалоникийский, его труды и учение об исихии. Никифор Влеммид, византийский ученый и церковный деятель XIII в. Церковная политика византийского императора Исаака II Ангела* (Санкт-Петербург, 2004) (Библиотека христианской мысли. Исследования) 46–124 (réédition du compte rendu du livre de G. Papamichaïlos).

(42) La divinité de l'énergie de Dieu est niée dans l'Épître du Synode russe du 18 mai 1913 qui a condamné l'onomatodoxie comme hérésie, ainsi que dans les trois rapports sur lesquels l'Épître était fondée ; voir : *Святое Православие и именобожническая ересь* (Харьков, 1916) [le recueil où tous les matériels onomatoclastes étaient réédités] 42–43, 48 (l'Épître), 61, 68 (rapport de l'archévêque Nicon Rozhdestvensky), 90–91 (rapport de l'archévêque Antoine Khrapovitsky), 119–122, 143–144 (rapport de Serge Troïtsky).

et, sans connaître les œuvres de S. Grégoire Palamas et beaucoup de travaux dogmatiques des Pères byzantins examinant le problème de l'essence et des énergies divines, il pouvait formuler la théologie dans la même tradition, en trouvant avec facilité les arguments à l'appui de sa position dans d'autres sources d'Église.

SUMMARY

A RUSSIAN PALAMITE IN THE EARLY TWENTIETH CENTURY: HIEROMONK ANTHONY BULATOVITCH AND HIS TEACHING ON THE DIVINE ENERGY

One side of the theological thought of hieroschemamonk Anthony (Bulatovitch, † 1919) is reviewed, namely, his teaching on the divine energy. Fr Anthony was the leader of the Athonite onomatodoxes in the 1910s; his works remain so far mostly unstudied. The teaching of the onomatodoxes on the name of God as a divine revelation of God and the divine energy was going back to the teaching of St Gregory Palamas on the divine energy of God. Thus, Fr Anthony develops, taking evidence from the Holy Scripture and the hymnography, a doctrine on the tri-unity of the energy of the Holy Trinity as the unique energy of the three Persons and the unique God. This doctrine remains strictly within the frame of the eastern patristic tradition, which was, however, almost forgotten in the official ecclesiastical education and textbooks of the contemporary Russian Church.

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BETWEEN BABYLONIA AND ETHIOPIA:
SOME THOUGHTS ABOUT A RECENT BOOK ON THE QUMRANIC CALENDARS

Jonathan Ben-Dov, *Head of All Years. Astronomy and Calendars at Qumran in their Ancient Context* (Leiden/Boston: Brill, 2008) (Studies on the Texts of the Desert of Judah, 78) xx, 331 p. ISBN 978 90 04 17088 9.

The calendric contents of the Dead Sea Scrolls are, in our time, to be found in a very strange place — somewhere between Babylonia and Ethiopia. On the one hand, their "ancient context" is accessible through a variety of Ethiopic documents representing late Jewish calendric traditions which were available in Greek in the Hellenistic epoch, but are usually irreparably lost in this language. Among the Ethiopian documents, the most important is the Ethiopic translation of the *Astronomical Book* (*AB*) transmitted in *1 Enoch*; second in importance is the *Book of Jubilees*. In addition, many short astronomical treatises mostly originally written in Geʿez but following some Jewish astronomical traditions contemporary to the DSS are also very important. The repertory and analysis of this literature by Otto Neugebauer in 1979 is not yet out-of-date.[1] On the other hand, there is a Babylonian background behind Jewish calendric traditions, and especially those based on the 364-day year (364DY). It was the same Otto Neugebauer, the outstanding expert on Babylonian astronomy, who opened the way in his 1981 analysis of *AB*,[2] but the breakthrough study was produced by Matthias

(1) O. Neugebauer, *Ethiopic Astronomy and Computus* (Wien, 1979) (Österreichische Akademie der Wissenschaften. Phil.-hist. Kl., Sitzungsberichte, 347; Veröffentlichungen der Kommission für Geschichte der Mathematik, Naturwissenschaften und Medizin, 22); hereafter: Neugebauer 1979.

(2) O. Neugebauer, *The "Astronomical" Chapters of the Ethiopic Book of Enoch (72 to 82). Translation and Commentary.* With Additional Notes on the Aramaic Fragments by M. Black (København, 1981) (Det Kongelige Danske Videnskabernes Selskab. Matematisk-fysiske meddelelser, 40:10); reprinted as Appendix A in: M. Black, *The Book of Enoch* or *I Enoch* (Leiden, 1985) (Studia in Veteris Testamenti Pseudepigraphica, 7) 386–419.

Albani in 1994.[3] Unfortunately, after several important papers by Albani and his close colleague Uwe Gleßmer in the 1990s dealing in various ways with the Babylonian background of the DSS calendars, these lines of inquiry were stopped in about 2000. Quite recently, however, Jonathan Ben-Dov has picked up the baton from Matthias Albani.

Albani's success in finding a deep background for *AB* in the Babylonian astronomical tradition was due to the publication of the full text of a Babylonian compendium, MUL.APIN ("Polar Star"), by Hermann Hunger and David Pingree in 1989. Here, the only Babylonian text implying a 364DY calendric scheme (MUL.APIN II ii 11–12)[4] appeared for the first time. It was still unavailable to Neugebauer when he was studying *1 Enoch*.

The 364DY calendric tradition is the main character of Ben-Dov's book. It is an ephemeral event in the history of Babylonian science—born in the mind of some Babylonian astronomers on their way from the ancient 360DY calendric scheme to the 365¼DY one, and it became the cornerstone of the liturgical calendars and cosmological thought of many Jewish communities, including that of the DSS (cf. p. 167).[5] In order to clarify the outlines of Ben-Dov's monograph, I have isolated its three major story lines:

1. The 364DY calendar tradition *in statu nascendi*, that is, in MUL.APIN and *AB*, and its place in the corresponding astronomical and cosmological theories;

(3) M. Albani, *Astronomie und Schöpfungsglaube. Untersuchungen zum Astronomischen Henochbuch* (Neukirchen—Vluyn, 1994) (Wissenschaftliche Monographien zum Alten und Neuen Testament, 68).

(4) H. Hunger, D. Pingree, MUL.APIN. *An Astronomical Compendium in Cuneiform* (Horn, 1989) (Archiv für Orientforschung, 24) 94. These two lines of MUL.APIN mention an intercalary lunar month of 30 days in 3 years caused by the difference of 10 days between the lunar year (354 days) and the calendric year; thus, the calendric year implied is the 364DY.

(5) As Ben-Dov writes, "The 364DY was developed in Mesopotamia as an improvement upon the 360-day year. In later Mesopotamian literature, the realisation dawned that even the 'corrected' number 364 fails to provide a perfect solution, itself requiring periodical corrections. Since the 364DY did not exist long in Mesopotamia after the seventh century B.C.E., rapidly being replaced by more accurate numbers, we are unable to inspect how this anomaly [the discrepancy between the ideal 360DY of the cosmological theories and the empirical 364DY. — *B. L.*] was handled by Babylonian astronomers. In the following centuries, however, an abundance of Jewish material was based on the same type of year" (p. 122).

2. The 364DY calendar tradition in the Qumranic literature (again, its place in the corresponding astronomy and cosmology);

3. the Babylonian background of Jewish calendric science.

All these major topics are illustrated by numerous case studies in the monograph, sometime very detailed and often brilliant.

The 364DY calendar tradition *in statu nascendi*. Ben-Dov reopens this question after Albani's 1994 monograph. He is indebted to Albani in many respects but his main conclusion is different: both MUL.APIN and *AB* were still operating by 360DY idealised calendric schemes while their knowledge of the 364DY scheme was limited by the necessity of following the natural order (sidereal year's length) more closely. There is no specific interest in the heptadic orders (calendric constructions based on the number seven and its multiples), no specific cosmology in either MUL.APIN or in *AB*.[6] The necessity of following observable events as closely as possible was vital for Babylonian science, which was always based on observation; this is not the case for its Jewish counterpart. As to the latter, throughout his book Ben-Dov reaffirms the view of earlier scholars, who stated that Jewish astronomy was not a natural science but rather sets of religiously loaded schemes. As Ben-Dov writes, "Scientifically speaking..., whereas the Babylonian material is rightly called 'astronomy,' a large measure of the Jewish material is better identified as 'calendar science'" (p. 276; cf. p. 181–182).[7]

In both MUL.APIN and *AB*, the four extra days added to the idealised 360DY scheme are cosmologically unacceptable. This fact was noted by Neugebauer only briefly (when discussing the linear zigzag

(6) In *AB*, a meagre interest in the septenary models is always limited to the lunar phenomena; cf. Ben-Dov's discussion of Albani (p. 54–55).

(7) Of course, this is not to say that in Qumran there were no astronomical observations at all. Ben-Dov does review the discussion of a mysterious Qumranic artefact commonly interpreted as a sundial. Ben-Dov accepts this view as the most probable although unproven, but argues (convincingly, I think) against Albani's and Gleßmer's interpretation of its working principle (p. 258–259 and 189). One relevant paper that escaped Ben-Dov's attention: M. Albani, U. Glessmer, It's Not a Game, It's a... a Handy (Astronomical?) Instrument! A reaction to A. Levy's interpretation of the Qumran roundel (BAR 24,4 (1998) 18–23), *XB* 2 (VIII) (2000) 279–283 (with some further bibliography). In his most recent paper ("The Qumran Dial: Artifact, Text, and Context," forthcoming in J. Frey *et al.* (eds.), *Qumran and Archeology* (Tübingen: Mohr Siebeck)), Ben-Dov concludes that the artefact is certainly not a sundial but its purpose remains unclear.

function of the length of night/daylight)[8] but it is demonstrated by Ben-Dov in a very detailed way. First of all, he adds to Neugebauer's observation that the path of the sun through the twelve heavenly gates arranged in the six pairs, according to *AB*, is also regulated by the zigzag function whose Babylonian equivalent is the motion of the sun between three "paths" (sectors) of heaven: Enlil, Anu, and Ea. Each of these "paths" is equivalent to two pairs of "gates" in the Enoch astronomy. Such a cosmology implies the 360DY and not the 364DY. Ben-Dov thus supports previous scholarship in his assertion that the 364DY passages of *AB* are a later, even if still very early, addition to a cosmological treatise implying the 360DY (p. 32–37 and 161–167).

The editorial history of the lunar theory in *AB* is even more complicated. Its internal contradictions were pointed out by previous scholars, especially by Neugebauer. The main contradiction is that in some places, the author operates with the 354-day lunar year with alternating full and hollow lunar months (of 30 and 29 days, respectively), and in other places, he tries to harmonize the lunar motion with the sun's yearly motion through the twelve gates both in space and in time, thus operating with ideal months of 30 days. Ben-Dov supposes that *1 Enoch* 74:10–16 in its original recension formulated the triennial cycle that harmonizes the lunar 354DY with the 364DY (p. 112–113, 125–129), while realising that "[t]he calculations of the triennial cycle would not have been possible had the author also wished to account for the heavenly gates" (p. 145). However, in the preserved documents, this cycle is described explicitly only in the Qumranic documents later than *AB*, starting from an "extremely simplistic" roster in 4Q317 (a sectarian document written in the so-called cryptA script designated to a restricted circle within the sect itself), without any spatial considerations (p. 145).

From his analysis of early Jewish 364DY calendar texts (*AB*, *Aramaic Levi Document*, *Book of Jubilees*, and several DSS), Ben-Dov concludes that initially, the main value of the four additional days was to mark the beginnings of the four seasons (p. 38–52). Ben-Dov takes his evidence from the Jewish sources because the single reference to the

(8) Neugebauer, *The "Astronomical" Chapters...*, 11 = Black, *The Book of Enoch...*, 394. Such a linear zigzag function does not take into account the four additional days, but the very linearity of such functions is a distinctive feature of Babylonian astronomy which implies that the corresponding natural events (such as the length of daylight) change continuously between the four breaking points corresponding to the solstices and the equinoxes.

364DY in MUL.APIN is not enough to give any cultic interpretation of the four additional days. However, at one point he seems to extrapolate this early Jewish state of affairs back to Mesopotamia.[9] This seems to me the most likely scenario, given that the four-season division of the year is one of the key concepts of Babylonian calendric science.

The final conclusion of this first major "story line" is of importance for the Jewish apocalyptic tradition as a whole, not only for the documents reviewed by Ben-Dov: "Although noting the possibility for correcting the 360-day ideal, the author of Mul.Apin was unable to operate his models according to a more accurate year length, an exercise which would have required a change of the entire paradigm. A similar dilemma is reflected in AB with respect to the triennial cycle" (p. 129). I would add that this could explain the further corruption of the twelve heavenly gates construction in such Jewish apocalyptic documents as *2 Enoch* and one of the recensions of *3 Baruch* (the lost original of the Slavonic version, itself already distinct from the genuine recension), where instead of the six pairs of heavenly gates one can see five gates between different sections of heaven. In *2 Enoch*, the five-gate scheme is clearly dominated by the heptadic calendar calculations.[10]

The 364DY calendar tradition in the Qumranic literature and the Babylonian background of Jewish calendric science. Most of Ben-Dov's achievements in his analysis of the Qumranic calendars are connected with their Mesopotamian background. This method, in Ben-Dov's hands, turns out to be extremely powerful.

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(9) "The significance of the four days at the turn of the seasons in *Jubilees* <…> locates the book [*of Jubilees*] along a continuous line which stretches from Mesopotamia to the Qumran calendrical scrolls" (p. 44). Ben-Dov's conclusion here is also important because it provides a strong argument against the alleged Egyptian origin of *Jubilees* proposed in 2003 by Liora Ravid. As Ben-Dov rightly points out, any genuine Egyptian tradition would presuppose the three-season year instead of the four-season one (p. 44, n. 86).

(10) B. Lourié, Calendrical Elements in *2 Enoch*, in: G. Boccaccini, A. Orlov (eds.), *Proceedings of the Fifth Enoch Seminar, Naples, 2009* (forthcoming); idem, Review of A. Kulik, *3 Baruch. Greek-Slavonic Apocalypse of Baruch* (Berlin—New York, 2009), *Journal for the Study of the Pseudepigrapha* 19 (2010) (forthcoming), and also my forthcoming paper on the calendar and the cosmology in *3 Baruch*. The dates of the calendars and the cosmologies of both *2 Enoch* and *3 Baruch* are still to be determined. At least, *2 Enoch*'s calendar is older than the book itself. Thus, I would prefer to be a bit more cautious when asserting that *AB* is "...the earlier Jewish document to include an explicit depiction of the 364DY" (p. 280).

Especially impressive is how Ben-Dov resolved the issue of the pair of lunar phenomena that had engaged almost all of the top figures of DSS scholarship in the 1990s, immediately after the first publication of 4Q320, 4Q321, and 4Q321a in 1991 (ch. 5 "Lunar phases in the *Mišmarot* scrolls and late Babylonian astronomy," p. 197–244). One of these phenomena is unnamed, labeled "X" by modern scholars, and the other is called *dwq*. The majority opinion (established mostly by VanderKam, Gleßmer, Albani, and Abegg) interpreted *dwq* as the new moon and X as the full moon, with the month beginning at full moon (p. 223).[11] According to the minority opinion (established by Talmon and Knohl and shared by Wise, Horowitz, and Ben-Dov himself), X constitutes the day of the moon's complete invisibility and *dwq* the day *after* the full moon, that is, the day when the moon begins to wane (p. 225–227). In his book, Ben-Dov shifts the whole discussion from Jewish to Babylonian ground, introducing as new evidence a very close parallel, lunar texts of the so-called "Lunar Three" type that became standard from about the fifth century B.C.E. These "Lunar Threes" indicated three main lunar parameters closely corresponding to the Qumran documents: (1) the number of days in the lunar month (indicated in Qumran as well, although in a somewhat different way); (2) KUR = first morning visibility of the moon at the end of the lunation = Qumranic X; and (3) NA = first moonset after sunrise, on the day following the full moon = Qumranic *dwq* (thus confirming Talmon's and Knohl's etymology of *dwq* from the root *dqq* "thin," that is, the day when the moon starts to become thinner). The only difference between the Qumranic "Lunar Threes" in the *mišmarot* texts and their Babylonian prototypes consists in the fact that the numbers in the Babylonian tables contain some variances in their figures because they were the results of empirical observations, whereas in Qumran, only rigid computational schemes are used. Nevertheless, the exactitude of the correspondence is revealing. Compare, in a Babylonian document (BM 32327, third century B.C.E.), the interval from NA to KUR, which is 13 or 14 days (occasionally 12 or 14) and, in 4Q320–321, from *dwq* to X is always 13 days; in the

(11) Ben-Dov argues convincingly against the month beginning at the full moon in *AB* and the Qumranic calendars, thus denying any connection with the evidence of the full moon reckoning from the medieval Maghariah sect (p. 223–227, esp. 224). It is likely, however, that Maghariah's reckoning goes back to some earlier epoch, so the question of the origin of this reckoning needs to be reopened.

same documents, from KUR to NA is 16 or 17 days and from X to *dwq* is also 16 or 17 days.

In spite of the fact that our knowledge of Babylonian astronomy has grown rapidly over the last quarter century, given its relatively brief period of development and correspondingly brief period of documentation, it is no wonder that we have missed some important Babylonian texts representing ideas accepted in the Jewish milieu. Ben-Dov points out one especially important case (p. 183–184) in which the Babylonian origin of an idea is demonstrable but, so far, without textual evidence. It is the case of the subdivision of the day (nychthemeron) into 18 "parts" (Geʿez *kəfl*, in *AB* and many other Ethiopic astronomical treatises; the Akkadian/Sumerian equivalent is unknown, the Hebrew equivalent is מחלקת "division, part"[12]). As Neugebauer has pointed out, this subdivision corresponds to the scheme in which the longest day/night is divided into 12 parts and the shortest day/night into 6 parts. Such a 2:1 ratio corresponds to the Mesopotamian reality but not to the Judean one (another ancient scheme is also known: most Egyptian astronomical texts have this ratio as 3:1). The duration of the night/daylight changes according to a linear zigzag function in which monotonic periods take three months each. It is only the 18-part division of the nychthemeron for the 12-month year that provides a one-part change per month, because 18 is the smallest natural number that can be divided into twelve months in a 2:1 ratio avoiding the use of fractions, and thus permitting one to calculate the velocity of change as one "part" per month. Needless to say, this Enochic calculation is "completely detached from the actual measurement of time units" (p. 184). The 18-part subdivision makes sense in the Babylonian astronomical schemes, and so must be attributed to Babylonia.

The problem of *kekros*. I would add that some other concepts of traditional Ethiopian astronomy are likely candidates for Babylonian ancestry, especially *kekros* and *kentros*. The basic meaning of these terms is, respectively, 1/60 and 1/30 of some interval of time. Both terms, even

(12) Known from 4Q317 fr. 1, II, 11, as Jonathan Ben-Dov pointed out to me. This term is often used in *1 Chroncles* in a technical sense of the organisation of priests and Levites. Its LXX equivalent, in this meaning, is διαίρεσις. The latter recalls another Ethiopic term, *kufāle*, as it is used in the Ethiopian title of the *Book of Jubilees* ("Book of Division/Distribution"), but *kəfl* is also known as a rendering of διαίρεσις, cf. A. Dillmann, *Lexicon Linguae Aethiopicae* (Lipsiae, 1865; repr. Osnabrück, 1970), col. 878. Thus, probably, *kəfl* may be rendered more correctly as "division/section."

if known exclusively from late Ethiopian astronomical treatises, can be traced in earlier sources. Setting aside the discussion of *kentros*,[13] let us concentrate on *kekros*. The notion of *kekros* is used for designating either "in computus of the sun and the moon," 1/60 of the equinoctial 12-hour day (thus, 1 *kekros* = 12 minutes, 1 hour = 5 *kekroses*), or "in computus of the stars," 1/360 of the 24-hour nychthemeron (thus, 1 *kekros* = 4 minutes).[14] In the latter sense, *kekros* is the same as the Babylonian *uš*, which is a unit of both time and space, a time degree, corresponding to 1° of the movement of the celestial sphere, and thus to about 4 minutes.[15]

Neugebauer in 1979, when reporting one case of a striking identity between the Ethiopian notion of *gize* ("time" = double hour, 2 hours) and the Babylonian notion of *bēru* (2 hours), wrote: "I do not know where the concept of 'double hour' originated. A relationship to the Babylonian 1 uš = 0;4^{h} — 1 bēru = 2^{h} seems to me unlikely."[16]

It seems not so unlikely now, when we have a better understanding of some Jewish links between the Babylonian and the Ethiopian astronomies. In the passage just referred to, Neugebauer quotes from

(13) Neugebauer 1979, 169, supported by Albani, thought that an Aramaic *AB* fragment 4Q211 meant the *kentros* (here 1/30 of a "part"). Ben-Dov quotes both of them favourably, adding that this fragment "...clearly forms part of the Mul.Apin-type astronomical teaching" (p. 195). However, Ben-Dov mistakenly names *kentros* as "*kekros*" in this passage. The notion of *kentros* occurs in different contexts (where it means 1/30 of different units of time) but, in general, its origin remains obscure (cf. Neugebauer 1979, 177–178). Nevertheless, its origin within a MUL.APIN-type astronomical context now seems demonstrated with a high degree of probability. Its etymology from Greek κέντρος is as obvious as it is obscure because we do not know any corresponding terminological meaning in Greek (s. Neugebauer 1979, 175).

(14) Neugebauer 1979, 176–177.

(15) Here my formulation is a bit anachronistic. It fits completely the avatar of *uš* in Ptolemy's *Almagest* where it is the so-called "time degree" (χρόνος ἰσημερινός "equatorial time" = 4 minutes), but the very notion of the celestial sphere is much later than the notion of *uš*, and even the existence of such a concept in the Babylonian cosmology is an open question. Babylonian *uš* emerged from the water-clock measurements in which the amount of water used was not dependent on the season. See F. R. Stephenson, L. J. Fatoohi, The Babylonian Unit of Time, *Journal for the History of Astronomy* 25 (1994) 99–110.

(16) Neugebauer 1979, 168. Here 0;4 is a sexagesimal fraction, 4/60 of hour = 4 minutes.

a manuscript the relationship 1 *gize* = 10 *kekroses* (according to the "computus of the sun and the moon," as we now know), but does not take into account the "computus of the stars" where *kekros* becomes an equivalent of *uš*, that is, a very peculiar element of Babylonian astronomy connecting the measurement of time with the daily motion of the sun.[17]

This supposition opens a way to reconsider the etymology of the term *kekros* (sometimes written as *kikros*). Although the existence of some Greek prototype is not in doubt here, it is not obvious. August Dillmann's early etymological attempt (1865) was severely rejected by Neugebauer ("The naïve etymology kēkros = circus [*i.e.*, through κίρκος] is not worth discussion beyond remarking that nowhere in ancient astronomy does circus appear as a technical term"[18]), although without supplying any alternative. Given that the Greek texts that were mediators between the Enochic astronomy and Ethiopia are lost almost completely, it is no wonder that some terms are lost in Greek. Most often, the corresponding words are known in Greek, but not in the terminological sense (such is the situation of *kentros*). If a term was a loanword used in the terminological sense only, it had to disappear completely, with no trace in Greek sources. Thus, it is reasonable to ask whether the Ethiopic *kekros* goes back to a lost loanword in Greek, *κέκρος. In this case, the most natural source language is Akkadian.

(17) A possible Babylonian origin of *kekros* waives one of Ben-Dov's objections to Neugebauer's explanation of the apparent contradiction between *1 Enoch* 79:10–11 (operating with the 360DY, while with a mention of the number 364 in 79:10b as probably a later correction) and 79:13–16 (operating with the 364DY). According to Neugebauer, vv. 10–11 mean "days" as 1/360 of the sidereal year where these sexagesimal "days" are analogous to the *kekroses* according to the "computus of the stars" (Neugebauer 1979, 231). Ben-Dov's objection to this, that "...the concept of *kekros*... originates from significantly later literature" (p. 126, n. 18), does not hold. Nevertheless, I accept Ben-Dov's explanation of the contradiction (that it is due to the difficult redaction story of *AB*) as simply the most natural. Neither *AB* nor MUL.APIN were consistent in dealing with the 364DY astronomy.

(18) Neugebauer 1979, 175. Leslau adds nothing to this reference to Neugebauer except his erroneous statement that *kekros* means "interval of twenty-four minutes" [W. Leslau, *Comparative Dictionary of Geʿez (Classical Ethiopic)* (Wiesbaden, 1987) 280–281, *s. v.*]. Siegbert Uhlig repeats Dillmann's etymology in the same place where he quotes Neugebauer, but fails to mention Neugebauer's criticism [S. Uhlig, Chronography, in: S. Uhlig (ed.), *Encyclopaedia Aethiopica,* vol. I (Wiesbaden, 2003) 733–737, here 737].

Indeed, in Akkadian, we have the word *kakkaru* that has a terminological meaning of "metal disk[19] (weighing one talent)," the latter being a weight unit equal to 60 minas or 6000 shekels.[20] Mina (*manû*) is the sixtieth part of talent (*biltu*) as a weight unit or, as a time unit, the weight of water running through a water clock over 1/6 of the nychthemeron (= 4 hours). Another meaning of *manû* as a time-space unit is 6 *uš* (*biltu* is unknown in the time-space meaning at all).[21] The latter meaning of *manû* is the most interesting to us: 6 *uš* = 24 minutes = 1/60 of nychthemeron. We see here the same principle of the sexagesimal subdivision of the day as in the Ethiopic *kekros* (with the only distinction that its application to the whole nychthemeron is unknown in Ethiopia).

Both *biltu* and *kakkaru* are unattested in the spatiotemporal meaning but, unlike *biltu*, *kakkaru* always signifies round or circle, even if it is a unit of weight. Thus, *manû* as one-sixtieth of *kakkaru* is one-sixtieth of a circle, while *manû* as one-sixtieth of *biltu* is simply one-sixtieth of a mass unit. On the other hand, there is an attested meaning of *manû* where it is one-sixtieth of the nychthemeron, which is one of the cycles (circles) of time. This is why I consider the existence of a spatiotemporal meaning of *kakkaru* very likely. As a spatiotemporal unit, *kakkaru* would mean the sum of sixty fractions, especially the nychthemeron when considered for sexagesimal partition. This meaning is already very close to that of the Ethiopic *kekros* (the main difference is that *kekros* is itself a sexagesimal part and not the sum of all such parts). In the word *kekros*, the Greek ending *–os* replaces its original Akkadian ending. Otherwise, the Akkadian term is preserved quite well: *kakkaru* > *κέκρος > *kekros*. Greek μνέα > μνᾶ "mina" is also an early loanword from Akkadian borrowed together with its sexagesimal relationship to the talent.[22] "Talent" is an Indo-European word that replaced, in

(19) Other meanings of *kakkaru* as well as its root meaning are also connected with "disc" or "circle." In this way, probably, Dillmann was right in his etymology of *kekros* from *circus*, while only on the remote level of the Afrasian and Indo-European linguistic unity.

(20) *The Assyrian Dictionary of the Oriental Institute of the University of Chicago*. Vol. 8: *K* (Chicago—Glückstadt, 1971) [thereafter: CAD with the title (letter) of volume and page numbers] 49–50, *s. v.*

(21) CAD M, 220–221. Cf. CAD B, 229–236, *s. v. biltu*.

(22) The corresponding Semitic root is attested in different Semitic languages, cf. Hebrew *mānē*, Ugaritic *mn*, Phoenician (Szemerényi's reconstruction) **mənē* [see P. Chantraine, *Dictionnaire étymologique de la langue grecque. Histoire des mots* (Paris, 1968–1980) 707; H. Frisk, *Griechisches etymologisches*

Greek, the original Akkadian term for a unit equal to 60 minas, that is, either *biltu* or *kakkaru*. It is likely that one of the latter words or even both were borrowed, too, although they later fell out of use.

It is *kakkaru* that was borrowed by Aramaic (different dialects, from Official Aramaic to Syriac) in two forms, *kkr* and *knkr* (with dissimilation of geminants), and with two meanings, "talent" (mass unit) and "loaf"[23] (round piece of bread, etc.; the same also in Akkadian). The form *kkr* might become an Aramaic intermediary between Akkadian *kakkaru* and Greek *κέκρος,[24] although such an intermediary is not necessary (and we do not know whether early Aramaic *kkr* presupposed any sexagesimal partition[25]).

At any rate, the Akkadian *kakkaru* is to be recognised in a strange Ethiopic word of Greek origin, *kekros.* Thus, it seems to me that in Greek, μνᾶ and *κέκρος were sometime connected to each other in the same manner as, in Akkadian, *manû* and *kakkaru*.

Origin of the twelve heavenly gates in *AB*. Despite the fact that *AB* is a treatise along the same lines as the MUL.APIN astronomy, its twelve heavenly gates are known nowhere in the extant Babylonian texts.[26] In the Babylonian tradition, two prerequisites of this concept

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Wörterbuch, Bd. II (Heidelberg, 1970) 247]. However, for Akkadian or Sumerian as the source language, see É. Masson, *Recherches sur les plus anciens emprunts sémitiques en grec* (Paris, 1967) (Études et commentaires, 47) 32–34 (cf. Frisk, *Griechisches etymologisches Wörterbuch*, Bd. III (1972) 153); W. Burkert, *Orientalizing Revolution. Near Eastern Influence on Greek Culture in the Early Archaic Age* (Cambridge, MA—London, 1992) (Revealing antiquity, 5) 37, 175. Borrowing is dated to the post-Mycenaean period (after *ca* 1100 b.c.e.) because in the Mycenaean epoch, whose system of measures and weights is well known, there are no traces of either mina or sexagesimal fractions of the talent.

(23) According to the *Comprehensive Aramaic Lexicon* (http://cal1.cn.huc.edu/).

(24) I am grateful for this idea to A. N. Duntsov. Edward Lipiński provides as renderings of Aramaic *knkr* the Greek κίνχαρες (in fact, not a loanword but rather an *ad hoc* transliteration in Josephus, *Ant* 3:144) and the Coptic *ǧinǧōr, ǧinǧor* [E. Lipiński, *Semitic Languages: Outline of a Comparative Grammar* (Leuven, 1997) (Orientalia Lovaniensia Analecta, 80) 176)].

(25) Josephus in *Ant* 3:144 equates one κίνχαρες (*knkr*) to 100 minas.

(26) As Ben-Dov writes, "The concept of twelve gates remains unique in the history of astronomy, continuing solely in trajectories of AB: Slavonic Enoch, Ethiopic astronomy, and a Persian-Sogdian text which, according to Tubach, is dependent on *1 Enoch* 72 [*i.e.*, Manichean fragments published by J. Tubach in 1986]" (p. 185). The Slavonic Enoch does not contain the concept

were firmly established: (1) use of the sections of the horizon to describe phenomena concerning the entire sky,[27] and (2) the very concept of the heavenly gates (*abullu* = ideographic KÁ.GAL) used by luminaries and all other objects (including men) ascending the heaven, especially when it is specified that the gates form symmetrical pairs on the two sides of the horizon (such as the "gateways in both ribcages (*ṣillī*)" of heaven).[28]

To explain the origin of the six pairs of symmetrical heavenly gates, Ben-Dov evokes an "analogy" (p. 185) that he considers to be only typological, with no direct genetic relationship: Ptolemy, *Harmonica*, 3.12.[29] Here, Ptolemy establishes a direct relation between the modulations of the seven *tonoi* (modes) and the harmony of the heavenly spheres. Unlike *AB*, however, he employs the concept of the heavenly sphere (Fig. 1). Ptolemy gives a clear idea how the ecliptic divided into twelve parts by the zodiacal constellations can be projected to the horizon, making two symmetrical rows of six arcs. The sun traces out the ecliptic eastward (in the opposite direction of the sun's daily motion),

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of twelve gates: here, the number of the gates is only five and their function is very different; see Lourié, Calendrical Elements in *2 Enoch*.

(27) Here, Ben-Dov quotes E. Reiner and D. Pingree (in their edition of another Babylonian work in the MUL.APIN-type tradition, the *Enūma Anu Enlil*, tablets 50–51 (1983)) that three "paths" of heaven "...most commonly signify sections of the horizon rather than a division of the entire sky" (p. 163, Ben-Dov's wording).

(28) *Enuma Eliš* V, 9–11. See esp. W. Heimpel, The Sun at Night and the Doors of Heaven in Babylonian Texts, *Journal of Cuneiform Studies* 38 (1986) 127–151, esp. 134. Ben-Dov does not take into account any Babylonian background of the "gates of heaven," and thus creates difficulties for himself when investigating the origin of the Enochic twelve-gate concept (see below).

(29) "We are not asserting here that AB was associated in any sense with Ptolemy, merely that the Ptolemaic scheme constitutes a useful analogue for the system of twelve gates—or, more substantially, the division of the horizon into six bands" (p. 186). For a new critical edition and commentaries of the *Harmonica*, see the thesis of Pedro Redondo Reyes, *La* Harmónica *de Claudio Ptolomeo: edición crítica con introducción, traducción y comentario* (Murcia: Servicio de Publicaciones. Universidad de Murcia, 2002), here 121–122 (txt), 256–257 (tr.), 767–768 (notes). The graphic schemes that are usually employed to illustrate the relevant passage of Ptolemy (reproduced by Ben-Dov, p. 186, fig. 4.2) would be anachronistic in relation to *AB*. They presuppose the notions of the celestial sphere and the celestial equator, both of them alien to AB and MUL.APIN; the celestial equator is unknown to Babylonian astronomy in any fashion (see Fig. 2).

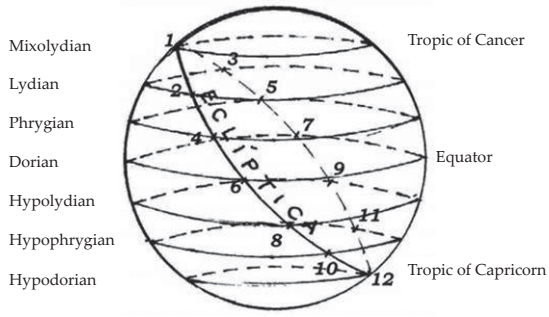

Figure 1. Ptolemy's harmony
between the seven musical modes and the twelve signs of the zodiac
(adapted from Reyes, *La* Harmónica *de Claudio Ptolomeo...*, 768).
Signs of the zodiac: Cancer (1), Gemini and Leo (2 and 3), Taurus and Virgo (4 and 5), Aries and Libra (6 and 7), Pisces and Scorpio (8 and 9), Aquarius and Sagittarius (10 and 11), Capricorn (12).
On the diagram, the arcs of the horizon are shown as having equal length, while the arcs of the ecliptic are of different length; in reality (here, the reality of the Ptolemaic geocentric system), it is quite the opposite.

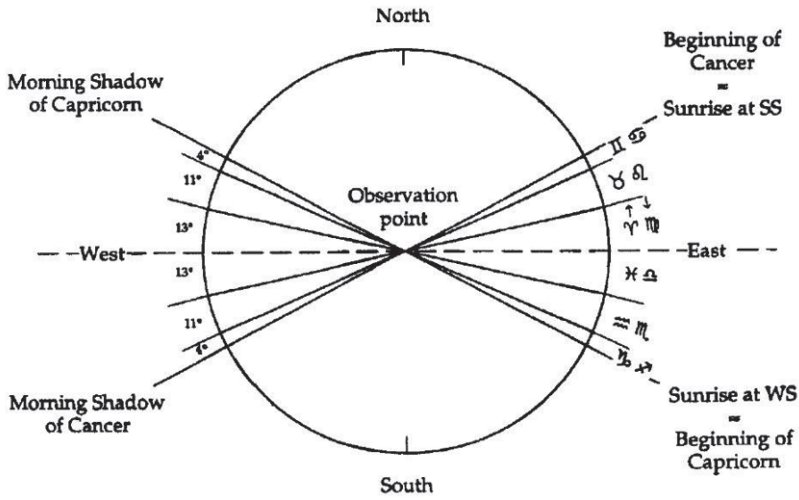

Figure 2. The observable projections
of the twelve zodiacal parts of the ecliptic to the horizon
(based on the supposition that the beginning of the horizontal arc of Cancer coincides with the sunrise point at the summer solstice).
From Brack-Bernsen, Hunger, The Babylonian Zodiac..., 284, fig. 1.
Cf. *ibid.*, fig. 2 (based on the supposition that sunrise at the summer solstice is on the middle of Cancer) where the arcs of the horizon are of even greater difference in length.

with the highest rising point on the summer solstice in the sign of Cancer and the lowest point on the winter solstice in the sign of Capricorn. These extreme points are symmetrical in relation to the heavenly equator and correspond to the symmetrical circles on the heavenly sphere called tropics. Ten remaining signs of the zodiac form five pairs, each defining a planar section of the heavenly sphere (the pair of Aries and Libra corresponds to the plane of the heavenly equator and to the two equinoxes). Thus, the part of the heavenly sphere between the latitudes of the two tropics is sliced by the five planes into six discs of unequal thickness (the ecliptic is divided into the twelve equal arcs, and so, given that the length of the arc is always the same, their projections to the horizon will be arcs of different length—because of the inclination of the equator to the ecliptic at an angle of 23.5°).

In his comparison of *AB* and this Ptolemaic harmony, Ben-Dov concludes: "...the Enochic author who produced the system of gates may have been aware of the zodiacal signs. For some reason, however, he chose not to refer to them explicitly but rather adopt a system which reflects the ecliptical orbits of the sun and moon only obliquely, referring solely to their position on the horizon. This notion was part of the general tendency in AB, where the focus of celestial activity appears to be the horizon rather than the ecliptic." Ben-Dov then refers to 4Q318 (an Aramaic brontologion operating with the signs of zodiac) as a later document that, in contrast, sets out the ecliptical positions of the moon, thus moving away from the Enochic astronomy tradition (p. 187). Indeed, 4Q318 is a document of Hellenistic astronomy (astrology) while *AB* represents an older Babylonian tradition whose difference from the latter is often partially overlooked. It is this difference that could explain "some reason" why neither *AB* nor the whole MUL. APIN-type astronomical tradition uses the concept of the ecliptic.

By definition, the ecliptic is the trajectory of the sun on the sphere of the fixed stars. However, in the MUL.APIN universe, neither such a sphere nor such stars exist. When one speaks about the "fixed stars" in Babylonian astronomy, one would say that these stars are indeed fixed in the sense that they do not participate in the yearly movement of the sun eastward; this movement can thus be measured in relation to their positions. However, these "fixed" stars are not fixed themselves in the literal sense of the Ptolemaic geocentric system. All the luminaries, without exception, arise above the flat earth (not the spherical earth of Ptolemy) passing from the specific heavenly gates. What they do when they are invisible, somewhere beyond the horizon, in the "interior of

heaven" (*ú-tu-ul šamê*) is not so clear. There are somewhat contradictory accounts.[30] Be that as it may, the Babylonians did not have any room for the concept of the path of the sun among the fixed stars. Instead of following such a path, the sun rises every day in the same manner as these stars rise every night. Only at the moment of the heliacal rising (the first star's rising on the eastern horizon before sunrise, after the period of the star's invisibility) can one see that the "fixed" constellations gradually (with an angular velocity of about 1° per day) replace each other. The moments of appearance and disappearance of a given luminary did have, naturally, a basic value for such astronomy. This is not to say that the Babylonians were unaware of the zodiac, even if MUL.APIN still uses seventeen constellations to locate heavenly bodies on the sky. By the fifth century B.C.E., their number was reduced to twelve, restricted to the now usual list of the zodiacal constellations.[31] The distribution of the twelve zodiacal areas within the twelve equal zones of 30° was performed shortly before 400 B.C.E.[32]

Lis Brack-Bernsen and Hermann Hunger put forward the hypothesis that the zodiac was invented in Babylonia by the observation of the luminaries in relation to their appearance above the horizon, in such a way that not the ecliptic but the arcs of horizon were used as limits for each of the twelve zodiacal areas (see Fig. 2). Brack-Bernsen and Hunger themselves pointed out the resemblance of such a system to the heavenly gates in *AB* (see Fig. 3).[33]

The unevenness of the length of the horizontal arcs does not contradict the strict correspondence of one month (30 days) to one zodiacal sign in Babylonia or the equal length (30 days in the 360DY idealised scheme) of the periods of the sun's rising from a given gate in *AB*. In the Babylonian documents, there is no statement that the sun moves

(30) See, for details, Heimpel, The Sun at Night and the Doors of Heaven…

(31) F. Rochberg, *The Heavenly Writing: Divination, Horoscopy, and Astronomy in Mesopotamian Culture* (Cambridge, 2004) 130.

(32) Thus according to L. Brack-Bernsen, H. Hunger, The Babylonian Zodiac: Speculations on its invention and significance, *Centaurus* 41 (1999) 280–292, here 280. See also, especially for the pre-history of the zodiac: В. В. Емельянов, *Ниппурский календарь и ранняя история зодиака* [V. V. Emel'janov, *The Nippur Calendar and the Early History of the Zodiac*] (St Petersburg, 1999) (Orientalia).

(33) Brack-Bernsen, Hunger, The Babylonian Zodiac...; for comparison with *AB*, see p. 283. Ben-Dov does mention this paper (p. 257, n. 27) but does not use it in his analysis of *AB*.

with a uniform velocity.[34] Let us add that there is no such statement in *AB* either. If the sun's velocity in relation to the horizon is changeable from one arc to another, there is no problem with establishing the equality of the time intervals for the sun's passing across each arc.

Moreover, Brack-Bernsen and Hunger noticed that their hypothesis could explain a mysterious expression in *AB* (*1 Enoch* 72:6), where the fourth gate is called the "great gate."[35] Indeed, the greatest gates are around the equinoxes,[36] that is, the fourth (corresponding to the beginning of the year) and the third. To pass the greater gate does not demand more time than to pass any other. This is explainable by the uneven velocity of the sun in the gates.

The remark of the Enochic author calling the fourth gate "great" without giving any further explanation appears to be an implicit reference to an already-established tradition (unless we suppose a lacuna in the available text). In any case, in Babylonian astronomy, all the prerequisites for the twelve-gate cosmology were ready: (1) connecting the sky observation data to the arcs of horizon; (2) the concept of the heavenly gates; and (3) the idea of symmetrical gates in "both ribcages" of heaven (cf. *Enuma Eliš* quoted above).

Thus, I consider the twelve-gate cosmology as, most probably, a borrowing from a presently unknown Babylonian source. It seems to me extremely unlikely that it was an invention by the Enochic author, who does not appear to have been a very creative or gifted astronomer.

Heavenly gates for every day. Ben-Dov proposes an interpretation of the cosmology implied in the Qumranic papyrus 4Q503 *papDaily Prayers*—unfortunately, a very fragmentary text (p. 132–139). He concludes "that in 4Q503 each daily exit of the sun is counted as one 'gate'" (p. 135). These gates are, of course, different from the gates in *AB*. This reconstruction could be corroborated by a part of the tradition of *3 Baruch* 6:13, where "365 heavenly gates" are mentioned (Greek recension only; however, the reading of the majority of Slavonic mss as "65" is, according to scholarly consensus, a corruption of "365"). In

(34) Brack-Bernsen, Hunger, The Babylonian Zodiac..., 289.

(35) Neugebauer was perplexed by this verse. In his commentary, he asked: "Why is gate 4 called "large"? Dillmann thinks of a comparison with the windows which eject flames (72,7). Are other gates not provided with such windows?" (Neugebauer, *The "Astronomical" Chapters...*, 12). Indeed, to have windows does not mean to be "large."

(36) Brack-Bernsen, Hunger, The Babylonian Zodiac..., 292, n. 4.

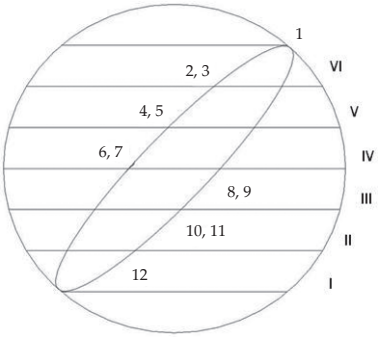

Figure 3. The idealised projection of the ecliptic to the horizon: the northern point of the ecliptic corresponds to the tropic of Cancer, the southern point to the tropic of Capricorn. The sections located between the two tropics are divided by the five lines, each of which is defined by one pair of the signs of the zodiac (numbered as in Fig. 1). All six branches of heaven are presented as equal in width, notwithstanding the observable data. Roman numerals from I to VI correspond to the six gates of the East (the six gates of the West are those on the opposite side of the horizon).

3 Baruch the number "365" refers to the 365DY which is here a later modification.[37] Nevertheless, the idea of a specific gate for each day is explicit in *3 Baruch*.

Septenary principle. Neither Babylonian astronomy nor Babylonian liturgics is considered to be especially interested in septenary constructs (even if the sacred nature of the number seven is traceable in Babylonian mythology). Ben-Dov convincingly argues (*pace* Albani) that *AB* is similarly uninterested in such constructs. The Jewish "sacred arithmetic" (Ben-Dov's *bon mot*, p. 151) based on the number seven and its multiples is a later idea replacing the observation-based Babylonian astronomy. "While the 364DY was not created as a septenary construct, it was easily identified as such and consequently adopted and developed in various apocalyptic circles," Ben-Dov writes (p. 59). It appears that the septenary principle replaced observation when Babylonian astronomy was transplanted to Jewish soil.

(37) Lourié, Review of A. Kulik, *3 Baruch.* Here I disagree with Kulik, who argues for the 365DY as the genuine one. For a detailed review of the one-gate-per-day cosmological tradition, see A. Kulik, *3 Baruch. Greek-Slavonic Apocalypse of Baruch* (Berlin—New York, 2009) 257–259; his main witnesses are *y. Rosh. HaSh.* 2.58a, *Pirqe R. El.* 5, and the Iranian *Bundahišn* 5 B 3–6.

We now have documentary data suggesting that the reality was a bit more complicated. In a recently published text, BM 54312 (Neo- or Late Babylonian tablet, *ca* 1000–539 B.C.E.), a liturgical commentary on the *Akītu*-festival,[38] the role of the number seven is somewhat surprising. Normally, the corresponding ritual, being a New Year ceremony, occupies the first eleven days of the year, from *Nisannu* 1 to 11.[39] In BM 54312, however, these days are reduced to seven, from 5 to 11 (thus, even *Nisannu* 1 is excluded from the New Year festival). The main subject of the ritual must adorn himself in the following manner (italics for seven and its multiple fourteen are mine):

(a) *seven* waistbands;

(b) *fourteen* writing styli of reed, *seven* strapped at his right side, *seven* at his left;

(c) two more styli, two at the front and two at the back;

(d) two upper overgarments and two lower overgarments;

(e) belts, evidently two in number;

(f) an unidentified item (text damaged) worn behind the waist;

(g) *fourteen* twists of coloured wool, *seven* on the right and *seven* on the left;

(h) another unidentified item, made of linen;

(i) headgear?[40]

Such a heavy emphasis on the number seven is unusual for Babylonian rituals. It is certainly tied to the modification of the liturgical calendar where the number of days of the festival is reduced to seven.

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(38) A. R. George, Babylonian Texts from the Folios of Sydney Smith. Part Three: A Commentary on a Ritual of the Month Nisan, in: A. K. Guinan *et al.* (eds.), *If a Man Build a Joyful House: Assyriological Studies in Honor of Erle Verdun Leichty* (Leiden—Boston, 2006) (Cuneiform Monographs, 31) 173–185. Cf. further on this text: В. В. Емельянов, Новые источники по месопотамскому культовому календарю [New Sources on the Mesopotamian Cultic Calendar], *Вестник древней истории* (2009) № 1, 236–243. I am grateful to Vladimir Emel'janov for drawing my attention to these and other relevant publications.

(39) This festival could be closely connected to some of the Jewish 364DY calendar traditions. The calendar of *2 Enoch* starts its liturgical year on 11.I (at least, according to my reconstruction; Lourié, Calendrical Elements in *2 Enoch*). Jonathan Ben-Dov pointed out to me that even in the usual *Akītu*-festival, the four first days are only days of preparation.

(40) George, Babylonian Texts…, 178.

Thus, we have here a Babylonian precedent of the Jewish manner of arranging the liturgical calendar according to the septenary principle. Although Jewish astronomy developed from Babylonian practice, given the short lifetime of the latter it is no wonder that the Babylonian sources are so often difficult to trace and discovered only by chance. It seems to me most likely that even the Jewish septenary principle was initially a part of the Babylonian legacy in Jewish astronomy.

Divine covenant with the heavenly luminaries. The passages in 4Q319 and 4Q320 presenting the *mišmarot* cycle as a fundamental element of creation reminded Ben-Dov of the passage of the *Enūma Eliš* tablet V, where a "covenant" terminology is used in relation to the luminaries. Ben-Dov recalls Landsberger's and Wilson's observation (1961) that the word *riksu* (V, 6) is taken "to convey more a legal implication or obligation or duty, rather than the notion of course, revolution [*sc.*, of the luminaries]" (p. 277 and n. 96). Vladimir Emel'janov drew my attention to the fact that *riksu* also has the meaning of "ritual." Indeed, the covenant symbolism would presuppose a ritual. Ben-Dov goes further and translates line V, 7, *ana lā ēpiš anni lā egû manāma*, as "so that (they will) not commit sin nor loosen in any way" (p. 277, n. 96).[41] Ben-Dov's approach is corroborated by the meaning of another key term in the same passage (V, 6), *Neberu*.[42] I argue elsewhere that this is a designation of a heavenly "ford" between different "paths" of heaven (Ea, Anu, and Enlil), analogous to the inter-heavenly "gates" in some part of the Jewish apocalyptic tradition (*3 Baruch*, *2 Enoch*). Passing through such a ford has a ritual connotation of entering into

(41) This translation seems to be the most literal and the most helpful in explaining the real meaning of the text. If the luminaries are in a sort of covenant, they must be—theoretically—able to commit sin. The Russian scholarly translation of Gennady Kurtik shares this interpretation (*ēpiš anni* = "commit sin"): "[ч]тобы никто (при своем движении) не совершил греха или не проявил неряшливость" [Г. Е. Куртик, *Звездное небо древней Месопотамии. Шумеро-аккадские названия созвездий и других светил* [*The Star Heaven of Ancient Mesopotamia: the Sumero-Akkadian Names of Constellations and Other Heavenly Bodies*] (St Petersburg, 2007) 368]. Cf. some previous scholarly translations: "that none (of the stars) should make a mistake (or) not be on time" (CAD E, p. 203, *s. v.* epēšu 2c *s. v.* arnu (annu)); "And that none (in their movement) should err or be remiss" (B. Landsberger, J. V. K. Wilson, The Fifth Tablet of *Enuma Eliš*, *Journal of Near Eastern Studies* 20 (1961) 154–179, here 157).

(42) "He fixed the stand of ^{d}Neberu to determine their ritual arrangements"; here I translate *riksu* as "ritual arrangements" (cf. CAD R, 351–352, *s.v.* riksu 5). For *Neberu*, see now Куртик, *Звездное небо…*, 367–370.

covenant, as it is in the related Hebrew root *ʿbr*, "to pass through/to enter into covenant."[43]

Conclusion. The most impressive element in Ben-Dov's book is probably the feeling of the extreme proximity of the Jewish 364DY tradition to the Babylonian one. My notes above are intended only to reenforce such an impression. The contacts were established not between the peripheries but "...directly between the heart of one tradition and the heart of another," writes Ben-Dov, quoting Peter Kingsley (1992) (p. 246). "Since this scholarly discipline... was considered secret and esoteric in Babylonia itself, the Jewish scholars who borrowed it evidently had access to the very heart of the scholarly institution" (p. 245–246). The corresponding phase of Babylonian astronomy is datable to "a short period around 700 B.C.E.," the date of the final redaction of MUL.APIN (p. 246).

When did the close contacts between Jewish and Babylonian scholars first take place? Ben-Dov thinks they occurred during the long period from *ca* 700 to the date of *AB* (dated variously from the mid-third century to the Persian period up to *ca* 400 B.C.E.), but especially — and quite naturally — the period of Babylonian exile in the sixth century. Then, as Qumranic documents show, the contacts continued: the Babylonian "Lunar Threes" were borrowed somewhere in the late second century B.C.E. Thus, one can create a chronological table of the Babylonian impact on Jewish astronomy (p. 247–249).

Ben-Dov's monograph builds upon the last thirty years of studies of Babylonian astronomy and the last twenty years of studies of the DSS (especially after the publication of the manuscripts from Cave 4 in 1991). This line of research was established by Neugebauer in 1979–1981 and followed by Albani and Gleßmer in the 1990s. Jonathan Ben-Dov's new book shows that this line of inquiry is still very promising. In the 1950s, after the first publications of the Qumran discoveries, the scholarly community started to realise how much of early Christianity was Jewish. I believe it is now time to start realising how much Second Temple Judaism was Babylonian.

(43) Lourié, Review of A. Kulik, *3 Baruch*.

Dmitrij Bumazhnov, Visio mystica *im Spannungsfeld frühchristlicher Überlieferungen. Die Lehre der sogenannten Antoniusbriefe von der Gottes- und Engelschau und das Problem unterschiedlicher spiritueller Traditionen im frühen ägyptischen Mönchtum* (Tübingen: Mohr Siebeck, 2009) (Studien und Texte zu Antike und Christentum, 52) XII, 308 p.
ISBN 978-3-16149729-2.

Dmitrij Bumazhnov wrote his second monograph (after *Der Mensch als Gottes Bild in christlicher Ägypten*, 2006; cf. *Scr* 4 (2008) 435–441) in the same field as the first: he explores attitudes regarding the possibility of visions of God in different milieus of early Egyptian monasticism. In his latest book, his main question is the possibility (or the non-possibility) of seeing incorporeal realities through corporeal eyes, and the main object of his study is the corpus of the epistles ascribed to St Antony the Great, portions of which are merged with the corpus ascribed to Abba Ammonas. And his main stimulus seems to be the famous monograph of Samuel Rubenson on the same topic (*The Letters of St. Antony. Origenist Theology, Monastic Tradition, and the Making of a Saint*, 1990; ^{2}1995).

As always, Bumazhnov's analytical manner is especially user-friendly: he starts by giving long parallel citations of all available versions (mostly Latin, Georgian, and Arabic, and sometimes Syriac and Coptic), with translations and a tentative reconstruction of the archetype. This is quite useful because there is no parallel edition of these versions, and the Arabic edition is difficult to access. Moreover, in his analysis of Ammonas' corpus, Bumazhnov uses (and cites from) an unpublished Georgian version preserved in the manuscript *Sin. iber.* 35 (one of the three Georgian Ammonas mss now known). This makes his monograph useful to everybody interested in its sources.

Were the epistles ascribed to Antony Origenistic? Are they authentic or not? Bumazhnov bypasses previous scholarly assumptions and instead proposes his own solution to the most unusual claim of the *Letters* (VI, 50–56), namely, that not only God but even the demons are invisible to corporeal eyes ("grundsätztliche Unsichtbarkeit der Dämonen," as Bumazhnov puts it). In Bumazhnov's analysis, this part of the corpus is the *crux interpretum*; thus, the corresponding ch. III (p. 120–169) is the key chapter of his book. Here he demonstrates that the Platonism/spiritualism of the main part of Antony's letters does not belong to any known types; Antony's claim regarding the invisibility of demons contradicts both Origen and Evagrius. This conclusion is

especially important in light of the growing appreciation that modern scholarship still has a long way to go in grasping the real complexity of the spiritual landscape of Christian Egypt.

Bumazhnov seems to me convincing in tracing the opposition between, on the one hand, Antony's *Letters* (except the first one) and ps.-Ammonas' *De patientia* (= ep. 17 in the Arabic version of Antony's corpus), and, on the other hand, the authentic tradition of Antony and Ammonas. The latter is the mainstream of Egyptian monasticism, together with the Pachomian tradition. This is a tradition in which the human body has an immediate and physical involvement in the depths of spiritual life. Its formulations are often polemical concerning attempts at disregarding or even humiliating the body. Thus, Bumazhnov puts forward an attractive hypothesis suggesting that, in the corpus of Antony's *Letters*, only the first could be authentic while the others are almost certainly not. My own confidence in Bumazhnov's approach is based on — but also limited by — the possibility of tracing the succession between the early monastic and the late Jewish ascetical concepts. Indeed, unlike the "mainstream" monastic tradition, which is, more or less, traceable to the "Jewish matrix of Christianity," the bulk of Antony's letters is not. Let us recall, however, that our knowledge of the corresponding spiritual traditions is still far from being representative.

Basil Lourié

Katharina Heyden, *„Die Erzählung des Aphroditian". Thema und Variationen einer Legende im Spannungsfeld von Christentum und Heidentum* (Tübingen: Mohr Siebeck, 2009) (Studien und Texte zu Antike und Christentum, 53) XIV, 440 p. ISBN 978-3-16-149815-2.

In our post-Qumranic epoch, Christian pseudepigrapha are far less studied than the Jewish writings of the Second Temple period to which the so-called apocrypha and pseudepigrapha of the Old Testament belong. In comparison, studies of the pseudepigrapha of the New Testament lag considerably behind. Against this background, the present study of the *Narratio Aphroditiani* (*CANT* 55; cf. *BHG* 806–806c for independent Greek recensions) is especially important.

I will begin with a brief description of the field Heyden explores. The *Narratio Aphroditiani*, apart from its isolated recensions, is known within two larger treatises: the anonymous hagiographical novel *De*

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gestis in Perside (*CPG* 6968 = *BHG* 802–805g), from the fifth or sixth century (critical edition by Eduard Bratke 1899, a new critical edition in preparation for the *Sources chrétiennes* by Pauline Bringel, the author of the 2007 unpublished thesis "Une polémique religieuse à la cour perse : Le 'De gestis in Perside'. Histoire du texte, édition critique et traduction"), and John of Damascus' *Sermo in nativitatem domini* (*CPG* 8066 = *BHG* 1912; critical edition by B. Kotter 1988). The author of *De gestis in Perside* used the lost *Historia christiana* (*CPG* 6026) for his recension of the *Narratio*; the *Historia*, by Philippus of Sede, appeared between 425 and 439. These dates are the *terminus ante quem* for the *Narratio*. The *Narratio* was translated into Slavonic several times. The Slavonic recensions that circulated in Rus' were published in a critical edition by Alexander Bobrov in 1994. The South Slavic recensions have been published in part but have never been studied critically. The reference books (including *CPG* and *CANT*) mention an unpublished Armenian recension of *De gestis in Perside* with reference to Bratke 1899, p. 128, but, in fact, Bratke only guesses that the *Narratio* might be indicated by the title "Discussion historique sur la religion chrétienne devant le Chah de Perse" given by Brosset in his description (1840) of a manuscript in the library of Etchmiadzin. Whether an Armenian version of *De gestis in Perside* exists is still an open question (even after Bringel's edition, judging from her "position de thèse").

Heyden's aim seems to be twofold. First, to make available to a Western audience the main data related to the *Narratio*. Thus, in a large appendix to her book ("Materialen," p. 303–361, including 50 illustrations, mostly in colour), Heyden lays out the two earliest Slavonic recensions and the two earliest Greek recensions (those of *De gestis* and John of Damascus), all of them with parallel German translations, as well as beautiful miniatures from the Greek manuscripts and images of Aphroditian among the icons on the ironwork gates of cathedrals of the Moscow Kremlin.

Heyden's second aim is to trace the long history of the interpretation of the *Narratio* in different milieus. This is why she specifies the title of her book as "Thema und Variationen." Here "Thema" is a brief review of the content of the *Narratio* (p. 13–18). The main focus of the book, however, is in the "variation" sections, that is, in the several instances in which various cultures and ideologies focused special interest on the *Narratio*.

Heyden's first "variation" (p. 20–56) is, naturally, medieval Rus', where, in the sixteenth century, "Aphroditian" was popular to such

an extent that Maxim the Greek addressed it in a specific invective. She starts by making the useful observation that the so-called "pre-Mongolian Russian translation" must be of South Slavic origin, despite the early consensus of Russian scholars attributing the translation to Kievan Rus' (p. 26; I would add a reference to Bobrov 1994, p. 38–40, where the South Slavic origin of the earliest translation is demonstrated in detailed fashion). However, the South Slavic career of our *Narratio* remains obscure. Heyden shows that there was a renewed interest in the *Narratio* in sixteenth-century Muscovy in the context of the anti-Greek autarkist ideology of the "translation" of the Byzantine Empire to the Muscovite state. Indeed, such a reading of the *Narratio* explains both the popularity of the text even to the level of the official propaganda portrayed on the gates of the Kremlin cathedrals as well as its radical rejection by Maxim the Greek, who was a consequent adversary of the Muscovite Church schism from Constantinople and a confessor of Church unity. I think that, despite its brevity, Heyden's analysis in this context is especially helpful for studies of the ideology of the Muscovite state and its Church during the period of the Muscovite schism, 1467–1589 (one must not confuse "Muscovite" with "Russian": for the sixteenth century, the word "Russian" presupposes both the Muscovite Church and the metropolis of Kiev in Lithuania and Poland under the omophorion of the Patriarch of Constantinople; I elaborate on this in my "Русское православие между Киевом и Москвой [*Russian Orthodoxy between Kiev and Moscow*]" (Moscow, 2009)).

Heyden's second "variation" (p. 57–115) is dedicated to John of Damascus. It is especially interesting as a study by an art historian who analyses the miniatures in connexion with the corresponding text. Heyden's third "variation" (p. 116–170) is dedicated to *De gestis in Perside*; she concludes that the author was a Syrian Christian of the epoch of Justinian. This conclusion is a bit more categorical than that of Bringel, who is not precise about the place and adopts a larger period for dating, up to the decline of the Sassanid empire (620s). Heyden's fourth "variation" (p. 171–225), dedicated to the *Christian History* of Philippus of Sede, seems very promising to me. For the history of the Byzantine fifth century, as well as for the history of the Muscovite sixteenth century, such ideologically overloaded sources as *apocrypha* and hagiography in general are still far from being exhausted. Heyden's "fourth variation" must be taken into account by anyone studying the early Byzantine Marian cult. Heyden's fifth "variation" is the review of the scholarly debates on the *Sitz im Leben* of the *Narratio* (p. 226–294).

Although her own conclusion does not contain anything decisive, she seems to be convinced that the *Narratio* goes back to the pre-Constantine epoch, despite its possible re-actualisation at different points of fourth-century Christian history.

This elegantly written and interesting book deserves the attention of researchers working in many different fields.[1]

Basil Lourié

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Martyrdom of Mār Qūryāqūs and Yōlīṭī (Cyriacus & Julitta). Critical text, Russian translation from Syriac, and research by Alisa A. Terpelyuk (Moscow: Assyrian Church of the East, 2009).

This small but very elegant book looks like a fascicle of the *Patrologia Orientalis* series, with only two differences: a smaller format and Russian as the language of the introduction, translation, and apparatus. Its *raison d'être*, after the non-scholarly edition of Bedjan, is to provide the *editio princeps* of the earliest manuscript of the Syriac version of the "Martyrdom of Cyriacus and Julitta," *Vat. syr.* 161 (dated to the late ninth or the early tenth century by the author), compared with Bedjan's printed text and with a late unpublished manuscript of the St Petersburg Institute of Oriental Manuscripts of the Russian Academy of Sciences, collection Diettrich, d (dated to 1888 according to the colophon whose correct reading is provided by the author). The St Petersburg manuscript contains the same recension as Bedjan's edition whereas the recension of the Vatican manuscript is different. It is

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One correction to the translation: for ܕܡܐ ܟܕܒ, the exact translation is кровоядца (αἱμοβόρος, literally "blood-eating") and not кровопийца (literally "blood-drinking") (see p. 76 for text and translation and cf. n. 137). Of course, both translations go in the same direction, with the general meaning "bloodthirsty," but αἱμοβόρος alludes to pagan impiety (cf. 4 Ma 10:17 for Antiochus) as transgressing the prohibition to eat blood (Gen 9:4, Lev 7:27). And in the case of one pair of words the translator is hesitant: ὀνοκένταυροι and ἱπποκένταυροι (rightly recognised in the corresponding Syriac transliterations) are not "centaurs similar to donkeys" or "similar to horses," as the translator supposes (flagging her translations with a question mark, p. 85) but rather two different kinds of centaurs, semi-human and semi-donkey or semi-human and semi-horse, respectively (the correct Russian equivalents are thus simply онокентавры and гиппокентавры).

Alisa Terpelyuk's scholarly debut has made an important contribution to the studies of the Christian Orient. The Assyrian Church of the East in Moscow deserves special gratitude for investing in such a "non-profit" enterprise.

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Jens T. Wollesen, *Patrons and Painters on Cyprus. The Frescoes in the Royal Chapel at Pyrga* (Toronto: Pontifical Institute of Mediaeval Studies, 2010) (Studies and Texts, 169). Pp. xv, 180. 88 black-and-white and 4 color plates, bibliography, and index. ISBN 978-0-88844-169-0

In our days when Chinese or Mexican restaurants can be found in virtually every city, when any private music collection includes several CDs with ethnic music, and when we daily communicate with our friends around the globe on-line, any case of multicultural interaction from the past inevitably and naturally draws our attention. The book by Jens Wollesen is a case study attempting to analyze and contextual-

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ize the iconographical program and style of the frescoes in the private (most likely royal) chapel of St. Catherine at Pyrga in the south-eastern part of Cyprus, which was largely neglected by the researchers as eclectic and uninspiring. The author is interested in the eccentricity and eclecticism of the frescoes, viewing them not as a result of the professional deficiency of the artists, but as the outcome of a unique and innovative task of creating a program of a Lusignan royal chapel within the local Cypriot artistic framework. On the basis of stylistic evidence and historical analysis of the contents of frescoes, Jens Wollesen proposes a new dating to the first half or the middle of the fourteenth century, during the reign of Henry II (1285–1324) or Hugh IV (1324–1358), both Lusignan kings of Cyprus and Jerusalem, as opposed to the commonly accepted dating of 1421. With the new dating the chapel represents one of the earliest cases of adoption and adaptation of Palaiologian models on Cyprus, which at the time was a major place of artistic interchange between the East and West. Western additions to the choice of scenes and their emotional contents are reminiscent of Franciscan art. In addition to Western inspiration, the workshop used Palaiologian Constantinopolitan models (such as Kariye Camii mosaics) most likely aware of them through the Acre tradition, brought to Cyprus as a result of the massive inflow of artists after the fall of Acre in 1291. Thus, the fresco decoration represents a fascinating mixture of Cypriot, French, and Byzantine Constantinopolitan pictorial languages made for French-Cypriot royal commissioners. Since King Henry II had ties with the Crusaders, and was himself involved in a crusade, Jens Wollesen is forced to touch upon the issue of Crusader Art with all its terminological and methodological ambiguities. For each scene of the program he carefully identifies both mainstream Byzantine, local Cypriot (especially pronounced in Panagia Phorviotissa in Asinou, and the church of the Holy Cross in Pelendri), and Western parallels. Yet, rather then compartmentalizing the frescoes under a particular theme, such as Cypriot or Crusader art, or main influences such as Byzantine or French, Jens Wollesen chooses to treat the frescoes as a unique set of pictures speaking to us and telling their story in a language that we have to learn and understand. The author was successful in combining a stylistic analysis with a historical and anthropological perspective: from the particular choice of subjects for the fresco program and from the changes the artists introduced into individual scenes, there emerged a political and theological idea behind the program and the personality of the royal commissioner. This approach

enabled Jens Wollesen to reveal the whole complexity and originality of the religious and cultural situation on Cyprus at the time of the Crusades, when Cypriot society and its leaders were forced to find its own, middle, way between the East and the West.

The study by Jens Wollesen contains not only a description of the frescoes in the royal chapel at Pyrga with a detailed iconographical and stylistic analysis, but also provides ample art historical evidence making it possible to view this unique monument within the extremely rich yet lamentably understudied fabric of medieval Cypriot art.

Vladimir Baranov